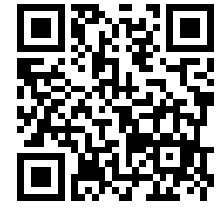
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STUDIA PATRISTICA

VOL. XLVIII

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VOL. XLVIII

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Greek Writers
Latin Writers
Nachleben

Edited by
J. BAUN, A. CAMERON, M. EDWARDS and M. VINZENT

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Abbreviations

AA.SS	see ASS.
AAWG.PH	Abhandlungen der Akademie der Wissenschaften in Göttingen Philologisch-historische Klasse, Göttingen.
AB	Analecta Bollandiana, Brussels.
AC	Antike und Christentum, ed. F.J. Dölger, Münster.
ACL	Antiquité classique, Louvain.
ACO	Acta conciliorum oecumenicorum, ed. E. Schwartz, Berlin.
ACW	Ancient Christian Writers, ed. J. Quasten and J.C. Plumpe, Westminster (Md.)/London.
AHDLMA	Archives d'histoire doctrinale et littéraire du moyen âge, Paris.
AJAH	American Journal of Ancient History, Cambridge, Mass.
AJP	American Journal of Philology, Baltimore.
AKK	Archiv für katholisches Kirchenrecht, Mainz.
AKPAW	Abhandlungen der königlichen Preußischen Akademie der Wissenschaften, Berlin.
ALMA	Archivum Latinitatis Medii Aevi (Bulletin du Cange), Paris/Brussels.
ALW	Archiv für Liturgiewissenschaft, Regensburg.
AnalBoll	Analecta Bollandiana, Brussels.
ANCL	Ante-Nicene Christian Library, Edinburgh.
ANF	Ante-Nicene Fathers, Buffalo/New York.
ANRW	Aufstieg und Niedergang der römischen Welt, ed H. Temporini *et al.*, Berlin.
AnSt	Anatolian Studies, London.
AnThA	Année théologique augustinienne, Paris.
APOT	Apocrypha and Pseudepigrapha of the Old Testament in English, ed. R.E. Charles, Oxford.
AR	Archivum Romanicum, Florence.
ARW	Archiv für Religionswissenschaft, Berlin/Leipzig.
ASS	Acta Sanctorum, ed. the Bollandists, Brussels.
AThANT	Abhandlungen zur Theologie des Alten und Neuen Testaments, Zürich.
Aug	Augustinianum, Rome.
AugSt	Augustinian Studies, Villanova (USA).
AW	Athanasius Werke, ed. H.-G. Opitz *et al.*, Berlin.
AZ	Archäologische Zeitung, Berlin.
BA	Bibliothèque augustinienne, Paris.
BAC	Biblioteca de Autores Cristianos, Madrid.
BASOR	Bulletin of the American Schools of Oriental Research, New Haven, Conn.
BDAG	A Greek-English Lexicon of the New Testament and Other Early Christian Literature, 3rd edn F.W. Danker, Chicago.
BEHE	Bibliothèque de l'École des Hautes Études, Paris.
BETL	Bibliotheca Ephemeridum Theologicarum Lovaniensium, Louvain.
BGL	Benedictinisches Geistesleben, St. Ottilien.
BHG	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Graeca, Brussels.
BHL	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Latina Antiquae et Mediae Aetatis, Brussels.

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BHO	Bibliotheca Hagiographica Orientalis, Brussels.
BHTh	Beiträge zur historischen Theologie, Tübingen.
BJ	Bursians Jahresbericht über die Fortschritte der klassischen Altertumswissenschaft, Leipzig.
BJRULM	Bulletin of the John Rylands Library, Manchester.
BKV	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter, ed. F.X. Reithmayr and V. Thalhofer, Kempten.
BKV2	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter, ed. O. Bardenhewer, Th. Schermann, and C. Weyman, Kempten/Munich.
BKV3	Bibliothek der Kirchenväter. Zweite Reihe, ed. O. Bardenhewer, J. Zellinger, and J. Martin, Munich.
BLE	Bulletin de littérature ecclésiastique, Toulouse.
BoJ	Bonner Jahrbücher, Bonn.
BS	Bibliotheca sacra, London.
BSL	Bolletino di studi latini, Naples.
BWAT	Beiträge zur Wissenschaft vom Alten Testament, Leipzig/Stuttgart.
Byz	Byzantion, Brussels.
BZ	Byzantinische Zeitschrift, Leipzig.
BZNW	Beihefte zur Zeitschrift für die neutestamentliche Wissenschaft, Berlin.
CAr	Cahiers Archéologique, Paris.
CBQ	Catholic Biblical Quarterly, Washington.
CCCM	Corpus Christianorum, Continuatio Mediaevalis, Turnhout/Paris.
CCG	Corpus Christianorum, Series Graeca, Turnhout/Paris.
CCL	Corpus Christianorum, Series Latina, Turnhout/Paris.
CCSA	Corpus Christianorum, Series Apocryphorum, Turnhout/Paris.
CH	Church History, Chicago.
CIL	Corpus Inscriptionum Latinarum, Berlin.
CP(h)	Classical Philology, Chicago.
CPG	Clavis Patrum Graecorum, ed. M. Geerard, vols. I-VI, Turnhout.
CPL	Clavis Patrum Latinorum (SE 3), ed. E. Dekkers and A. Gaar, Turnhout.
CQ	Classical Quarterly, London/Oxford.
CR	The Classical Review, London/Oxford.
CSCO	Corpus Scriptorum Christianorum Orientalium, Louvain. Aeth = Scriptores Aethiopici Ar = Scriptores Arabici Arm = Scriptores Armeniaci Copt = Scriptores Coptici Iber = Scriptores Iberici Syr = Scriptores Syri Subs = Subsidia
CSEL	Corpus Scriptorum Ecclesiasticorum Latinorum, Vienna.
CSHB	Corpus Scriptorum Historiae Byzantinae, Bonn.
CTh	Collectanea Theologica, Lvov.
CUF	Collection des Universités de France publiée sous le patronage de l'Association Guillaume Budé, Paris.
CW	Catholic World, New York.
DAC	Dictionary of the Apostolic Church, ed. J. Hastings, Edinburgh.

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DACL	see DAL
DAL	Dictionnaire d'archéologie chrétienne et de liturgie, ed. F. Cabrol, H. Leclercq, Paris.
DB	Dictionnaire de la Bible, Paris.
DBS	Dictionnaire de la Bible, Supplément, Paris.
DCB	Dictionary of Christian Biography, Literature, Sects, and Doctrines, ed. W. Smith and H. Wace, 4 vols, London.
DHGE	Dictionnaire d'histoire et de géographie ecclésiastique, ed. A. Baudrillart, Paris.
Did	Didaskalia, Lisbon.
DOP	Dumbarton Oaks Papers, Cambridge, Mass., subsequently Washington, D.C.
DOS	Dumbarton Oaks Studies, Cambridge, Mass., subsequently Washington, D.C.
DR	Downside Review, Stratton on the Fosse, Bath.
DS	H.J. Denzinger and A. Schönmetzer, ed., Enchiridion Symbolorum, Barcelona/Freiburg i.B./Rome.
DSp	Dictionnaire de Spiritualité, ed. M. Viller, S.J., and others, Paris.
DTC	Dictionnaire de théologie catholique, ed. A. Vacant, E. Mangenot, and E. Amann, Paris.
EA	Études augustiniennes, Paris.
ECatt	Enciclopedia Cattolica, Rome.
ECQ	Eastern Churches Quarterly, Ramsgate.
EE	Estudios eclesiasticos, Madrid.
EECh	Encyclopedia of the Early Church, ed. A. Di Berardino, Cambridge.
EKK	Evangelisch-Katholischer Kommentar zum Neuen Testament, Neukirchen.
EH	Enchiridion Fontium Historiae Ecclesiasticae Antiquae, ed. Ueding-Kirch, 6th ed., Barcelona.
EO	Échos d'Orient, Paris.
EtByz	Études Byzantines, Paris.
ETL	Ephemerides Theologicae Lovanienses, Louvain.
EWNT	Exegetisches Wörterbuch zum NT, ed. H.R. Balz *et al.*, Stuttgart.
ExpT	The Expository Times, Edinburgh.
FC	The Fathers of the Church, New York.
FGH	Fragmente der griechischen Historiker, Berlin.
FKDG	Forschungen zur Kirchen- und Dogmengeschichte, Göttingen.
FRL	Forschungen zur Religion und Literatur des Alten und Neuen Testaments, Göttingen.
FS	Festschrift.
FThSt	Freiburger theologische Studien, Freiburg i.B.
FTS	Frankfurter theologische Studien, Frankfurt a.M.
FZThPh	Freiburger Zeitschrift für Theologie und Philosophie, Freiburg/Switzerland.
GCS	Die griechischen christlichen Schriftsteller, Leipzig/Berlin.
GDV	Geschichtsschreiber der deutschen Vorzeit, Stuttgart.
GLNT	Grande Lessico del Nuovo Testamento, Genoa.
GNO	Gregorii Nysseni Opera, Leiden.

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GRBS	Greek, Roman and Byzantine Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
GWV	Geschichte in Wissenschaft und Unterricht, Offenburg.
HbNT	Handbuch zum Neuen Testament. Tübingen.
HDR	Harvard Dissertations in Religion, Missoula.
HJG	Historisches Jahrbuch der Görresgesellschaft, successively Munich, Cologne and Munich/Freiburg i.B.
HKG	Handbuch der Kirchengeschichte, Tübingen.
HNT	Handbuch zum Neuen Testament, Tübingen.
HO	Handbuch der Orientalistik, Leiden.
HSCP	Harvard Studies in Classical Philology, Cambridge, Mass.
HThR	Harvard Theological Review, Cambridge, Mass.
HTS	Harvard Theological Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
HZ	Historische Zeitschrift, Munich/Berlin.
ICC	The International Critical Commentary of the Holy Scriptures of the Old and New Testaments, Edinburgh.
ILCV	Inscriptiones Latinae Christianae Veteres, ed. E. Diehl, Berlin.
ILS	Inscriptiones Latinae Selectae, ed. H. Dessau, Berlin.
J(b)AC	Jahrbuch für Antike und Christentum, Münster.
JBL	Journal of Biblical Literature, Philadelphia, Pa., then various places.
JdI	Jahrbuch des Deutschen Archäologischen Instituts, Berlin.
JECS	Journal of Early Christian Studies, Baltimore.
JEH	The Journal of Ecclesiastical History, London.
JJS	Journal of Jewish Studies, London.
JLH	Jahrbuch für Liturgik und Hymnologie, Kassel.
JPTh	Jahrbücher für protestantische Theologie, Leipzig/Freiburg i.B.
JQR	Jewish Quarterly Review, Philadelphia.
JRS	Journal of Roman Studies, London.
JSJ	Journal for the Study of Judaism in the Persian, Hellenistic and Roman Period, Leiden.
JSOR	Journal of the Society of Oriental Research, Chicago.
JThSt	Journal of Theological Studies, Oxford.
KAV	Kommentar zu den apostolischen Vätern, Göttingen.
KeTh	Kerk en Theologie, 's Gravenhage.
KJ(b)	Kirchliches Jahrbuch für die evangelische Kirche in Deutschland, Gütersloh.
LCL	The Loeb Classical Library, London/Cambridge, Mass.
LNPF	A Select Library of Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church, ed. P. Schaff and H. Wace, Buffalo/New York.
L(O)F	Library of Fathers of the Holy Catholic Church, Oxford.
LSJ	H.G. Liddell and R. Scott, A Greek-English Lexicon, new (9th) edn H.S. Jones, Oxford.
LThK	Lexikon für Theologie und Kirche, Freiburg i.B.
MA	Moyen-Âge, Brussels.
MAMA	Monumenta Asiae Minoris Antiqua, London.
Mansi	J.D. Mansi, Sacrorum conciliorum nova et amplissima collectio, Florence, 1759-1798. Reprint and continuation: Paris/Leipzig, 1901-1927.
MBTh	Münsterische Beiträge zur Theologie, Münster.

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MCom	Miscelanea Comillas, Comillas/Santander.
MGH	Monumenta germaniae historica. Hanover/Berlin.
ML	Mediaevalia Lovaniensia, Louvain.
MPG	See PG.
MSR	Mélanges de science religieuse, Lille.
MThZ	Münchener theologische Zeitschrift, Munich.
Mus	Le Muséon, Louvain.
NGWG	Nachrichten der Gesellschaft der Wissenschaften zu Göttingen.
NH(M)S	Nag Hammadi (and Manichaean) Studies, Leiden.
NovTest	Novum Testamentum, Leiden.
NPNF	See LNPF.
NRSV	New Revised Standard Version.
NRTh	Nouvelle Revue Théologique, Tournai/Louvain/Paris.
NTA	Neutestamentliche Abhandlungen, Münster.
NT.S	Novum Testamentum Supplements, Leiden.
NTS	New Testament Studies, Cambridge/Washington.
OBO	Orbis biblicus et orientalis, Freiburg, Switz.
OCA	Orientalia Christiana Analecta, Rome.
OCP	Orientalia Christiana Periodica, Rome.
OECS	Oxford Early Christian Studies, Oxford.
OLA	Orientalia Lovaniensia Analecta, Louvain.
OLP	Orientalia Lovaniensia Periodica, Louvain.
Or	Orientalia. Commentarii editi a Pontificio Instituto Biblico, Rome.
OrChr	Oriens Christianus, Leipzig, then Wiesbaden.
OrSyr	L'Orient Syrien, Paris.
PG	Migne, Patrologia, series graeca.
PGL	A Patristic Greek Lexicon, ed. G.L. Lampe, Oxford.
PL	Migne, Patrologia, series latina.
PLRE	The Prosopography of the Later Roman Empire, ed. A.H.M. Jones *et al.*, Cambridge.
PLS	Migne, Patrologia, series latina. Supplementum ed. A. Hamman.
PO	Patrologia Orientalis, Paris.
PRE	Paulys Realenzyklopädie der classischen Alterthumswissenschaft, Stuttgart.
PS	Patrologia Syriaca, Paris.
PTA	Papyrologische Texte und Abhandlungen, Bonn.
PThR	Princeton Theological Review, Princeton.
PTS	Patristische Texte und Studien, Berlin.
PW	Paulys Realencyclopädie der classischen Altertumswissenschaft, ed. G. Wissowa, Stuttgart.
QLP	Questions liturgiques et paroissiales, Louvain.
QuLi	Questions liturgiques, Louvain
RAC	Rivista di Archeologia Cristiana, Rome.
RACh	Reallexikon für Antike und Christentum, Stuttgart.
RAM	Revue d'ascétique et de mystique, Paris.
RAug	Recherches Augustiniennes, Paris.
RBen	Revue Bénédictine, Maredsous.
RB(ibl)	Revue biblique, Paris.

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RE	Realencyklopädie für protestantische Theologie und Kirche, founded by J.J. Herzog, 3e ed. A. Hauck, Leipzig.
REA(ug)	Revue des études Augustiniennes, Paris.
REB	Revue des études byzantines, Paris.
RED	Rerum ecclesiasticarum documenta, Rome.
RÉL	Revue des études latines, Paris.
REG	Revue des études grecques, Paris.
RevSR	Revue des sciences religieuses, Strasbourg.
RevThom	Revue thomiste, Toulouse.
RFIC	Rivista di filologia e d'istruzione classica, Turin.
RGG	Religion in Geschichte und Gegenwart, ed. Gunkel-Zscharnack, Tübingen
RHE	Revue d'histoire ecclésiastique, Louvain.
RhMus	Rheinisches Museum für Philologie, Bonn.
RHR	Revue de l'histoire des religions, Paris.
RHT	Revue d'Histoire des Textes, Paris.
RMAL	Revue du Moyen-Âge Latin, Paris.
ROC	Revue de l'Orient chrétien, Paris.
RPh	Revue de philologie, Paris.
RQ	Römische Quartalschrift, Freiburg i.B.
RQH	Revue des questions historiques, Paris.
RSLR	Rivista di storia e letteratura religiosa, Florence.
RSPT, RSPh	Revue des sciences philosophiques et théologiques, Paris.
RSR	Recherches de science religieuse, Paris.
RTAM	Recherches de théologie ancienne et médiévale, Louvain.
RthL	Revue théologique de Louvain, Louvain.
RTM	Rivista di teologia morale, Bologna.
Sal	Salesianum, Roma.
SBA	Schweizerische Beiträge zur Altertumswissenschaft, Basel.
SBS	Stuttgarter Bibelstudien, Stuttgart.
ScEc	Sciences ecclésiastiques, Bruges.
SCh, SC	Sources chrétiennes, Paris.
SD	Studies and Documents, ed. K. Lake and S. Lake. London/Philadelphia.
SE	Sacris Erudiri, Bruges.
SDHI	Studia et documenta historiae et iuris, Roma.
SH	Subsidia Hagiographica, Brussels.
SHA	Scriptores Historiae Augustae.
SJMS	Speculum. Journal of Mediaeval Studies, Cambridge, Mass.
SM	Studien und Mitteilungen zur Geschichte des Benediktinerordens und seiner Zweige, Munich.
SO	Symbolae Osloenses, Oslo.
SP	Studia Patristica. Papers presented to the International Conference on Patristic Studies held in Oxford, successively Berlin, Kalamazoo, Louvain.
SPM	Stromata Patristica et Mediaevalia, ed. C. Mohrman and J. Quasten, Utrecht.
SQ	Sammlung ausgewählter Quellenschriften zur Kirchen- und Dogmengeschichte, Tübingen.
SQAW	Schriften und Quellen der Alten Welt, Berlin.

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SSL	Spicilegium Sacrum Lovaniense, Louvain.
StudMed	Studi Medievali, Turin.
SVF	Stoicorum Veterum Fragmenta, ed. J. von Arnim, Leipzig.
TDNT	Theological Dictionary of the New Testament, Grand Rapids, Mich.
TE	Teologia espiritual, Valencia.
ThGl	Theologie und Glaube, Paderborn.
ThJ	Theologische Jahrbücher, Leipzig.
ThLZ	Theologische Literaturzeitung, Leipzig.
ThPh	Theologie und Philosophie, Freiburg i.B.
ThQ	Theologische Quartalschrift, Tübingen.
ThR	Theologische Rundschau, Tübingen.
ThWAT	Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Alten Testament, Stuttgart.
ThWNT	Theologisches Wörterbuch zum Neuen Testament, Stuttgart.
ThZ	Theologische Zeitschrift, Basel.
TLG	Thesaurus Linguae Graecae.
TP	Transactions and Proceedings of the American Philological Association, Lancaster, Pa.
TRE	Theologische Realenzyklopädie, Berlin.
TS	Theological Studies, New York and various places; now Washington, D.C.
TThZ	Trierer theologische Zeitschrift, Trier.
TU	Texte und Untersuchungen, Leipzig/Berlin.
USQR	Union Seminary Quarterly Review, New York.
VC	Vigiliae Christianae, Amsterdam.
VetChr	Vetera Christianorum, Bari (Italy).
VT	Vetus Testamentum, Leiden.
WBC	Word Biblical Commentary, Waco.
WUNT	Wissenschaftliche Untersuchungen zum Neuen Testament, Tübingen.
WZKM	Wiener Zeitschrift für die Kunde des Morgenlandes, Vienna.
YUP	Yale University Press, New Haven.
ZAC	Zeitschrift für Antikes Christentum, Berlin.
ZAM	Zeitschrift für Aszese und Mystik, Innsbruck, then Würzburg.
ZAW	Zeitschrift für die alttestamentliche Wissenschaft, Giessen, then Berlin.
ZDPV	Zeitschrift des Deutschen Palästina-Vereins, Leipzig.
ZKG	Zeitschrift für Kirchengeschichte, Gotha, then Stuttgart.
ZKTh	Zeitschrift für katholische Theologie, Vienna.
ZN(T)W	Zeitschrift für die neutestamentliche Wissenschaft und die Kunde der älteren Kirche, Giessen, then Berlin.
ZRG	Zeitschrift für Rechtsgeschichte, Weimar.
ZThK	Zeitschrift für Theologie und Kirche, Tübingen.

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XVI. Greek Writers

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Human Action and the Passions in Nemesios of Emesa

Susan WESSEL, Washington, DC

The relationship between mind and body in early Christian thought has sometimes been construed according to a traditional dualist model, in which the mind (or soul) is defined as a nonmaterial substance completely at odds with the physical realities of bodies. Whereas the mind was acknowledged as the place where the image of God resided, the body, in the most extreme form of dualism, was dismissed as something base, lowly, and prone to acting out repugnant passions that needed to be quieted in order to restore the mind to its untarnished image. While traditional dualism, as it might be called, the roots of which can be traced to Plato, does not begin to describe the nuances and complexity of early Christian thought, it is especially inadequate for describing the thought of Gregory of Nyssa (d. 394) and Nemesios of Emesa (c. 400), only the latter of which will be considered here. Both theologians, as Young has shown, were deeply committed to making their theology of the human person consistent with the medical science that was current in their day and with the philosophical issues that they had inherited from the classical past.[1] By integrating the empiricism of Aristotle and the medical materialism of Galen with the Christian Platonism that was prevalent among the church fathers, Gregory and Nemesios subtly connected the immaterial substance of mind to the physical processes of material bodies.

In his doxographic treatise, *De Natura Hominis* (c. 400), the only work of his that has survived, Nemesios re-imagined the role that the passions played in the formation of the human person.[2] If the passions, as he learned from Galen, were the result of motion originating from outside the subject, then how could the individual be held responsible for the actions that were their result? If the passions were construed more subtly as arising from an integrated bodily organism, then how did they function in the sphere of human action? Nemesios grappled with both these questions in the context of the broader

[1] See Frances M. Young, Adam and Anthropos. A Study of the Interaction of Science and the Bible: Two Anthropological Treatises in the Fourth Century: *VC* 37 (1983) 110-40.

[2] Nemesios of Emesa, *De Natura Hominis* (= *De Nat. Hom.*); Moreno Morani (ed.), *Nemesii Emeseni, De Natura Hominis* (Leipzig, 1987) (= Morani). For the translation and commentary, see William Telfer, *Cyril of Jerusalem and Nemesius of Emesa*, Library of Christian Classics 4 (Philadelphia, 1955). On Nemesios' use of doxography, see Teun Tieleman, *Chrysippus' On Affections* (Leiden, 2003), 72-6.

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problem of human freedom and moral responsibility.[3] Although in doing so he borrowed extensively, as scholars have shown,[4] from Aristotle's *Nicomachean Ethics*, his original contribution, I shall argue, was to integrate the moral psychology that he inherited from Aristotle with a critical reassessment of Galen.[5] The result was a nuanced understanding of the human person that was a significant departure from the model of Platonic dualism that he had inherited.

Nemesios identified three different usages for the Greek word πάθος which I shall translate here as 'passion'.[6] We are told first that it was sometimes used to refer to what the body endured as a result of illness or injury. Although 'passion' according to this sense implied that the body had indeed suffered to the extent that it had undergone a change from its natural condition, the word did not include within its purview the feeling or perception of grief that resulted from, and was often associated with, the actual experience of bodily suffering[7] (The emotional response to the suffering that the English word implies is therefore absent from the Greek[8]). We are further told that 'passion' was frequently used to describe the passions of the soul, such as concupiscence and anger, as Nemesios himself used the word here. Finally, 'passion' could be used in a more general sense merely to describe whatever caused pleasure or grief in a living creature. As in the case of bodily suffering outlined above, Nemesios was careful to point out that 'passion' was not synonymous with such feelings, which were rather the perception of the suffering, and not the suffering itself, that the subject experienced. The human person was thereby understood to be a conscious creature (though Nemesios himself would not have used the word) that was capable of distinguishing the suffering ('passion') that happened to the body from the 'I' who perceived it. Just as the sensory nerves brought sensation to the limbs that the brain then processed as a conscious feeling (συναίσθησις), so the passions were reported as feelings once the brain (in a fraction of a second) perceived and integrated the pathological transformation to the physical state.[9] Although it might seem obvious to the post-Cartesian mind, the

[3] The related topic of Nemesios' theology of divine providence (which he treats in chapters 42-4) has already been considered by Robert W. Sharples, Nemesius of Emesa and Some Theories of Divine Providence: *VC* 37 (1983) 141-56, and will not be addressed here.

[4] Michael P. Streck, Aristotelische und neoplatonische Elemente in der Anthropologie des Nemesius von Emesa: *SP* 34 (2001) 559-64.

[5] See Samson Eitrem, Eiliv Skard (eds.), *Nemesiosstudien*, Symbolae Osloenses. Fasc. Suppl. 17 (Oslo, 1937), 9-25; see generally P.K. Sakezles, Aristotle and Chrysippus on the physiology of human action: *Apeiron* 31 (1998) 127-65; Bolesiaus Domanski, *Die Psychologie des Nemesius* (Munster, 1900).

[6] *De Nat. Hom.* 16 (73.21-5 Morani).

[7] *De Nat. Hom.* 16 (74.1-2 Morani): 'grief is not "passion", but the perception of "passion"'.

[8] W. Telfer, *Cyril of Jerusalem and Nemesius of Emesa* (1955), 348, n. 5.

[9] *De Nat. Hom.* 8 (64, lines 3-15 Morani). For Nemesios, the sensation (αἴσθησις) of touch was due to nerves proceeding from the brain and spreading throughout the body. It was the

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insight was significant for recognizing the person as a unified organism whose passions were distinguished from its feelings, which were somehow, though perhaps inexplicably insofar as Nemesios was concerned, necessary for its functioning. Without the capacity to feel the suffering, in other words, the person would have had little information about his bodily condition and, therefore, no opportunity to assuage it.[10] Without this capacity, the person would have had no way of declaring that 'I' was the subject who experienced it. And unable to make the feeling of suffering her own, there would have been no grounds for ascribing moral responsibility.

To understand better this distinction between feeling (what Nemesios calls 'the perception' or αἴσθησις of grief) and suffering (πάθος), which was necessary for Nemesios' larger agenda to make the passions and emotions intimately connected to the moral formation of the person, it might be useful to examine his extensive borrowing in this regard from the philosophical medical works of Galen. For Galen, 'passion' was quite simply a motion in one thing that comes from something else.[11] Insofar as it was thought to originate someplace other than the thing itself, whether that be the soul or the body, depending on the frame of reference, its opposite was *energeia* or 'activity', which was a motion that came from the moving object itself.[12] Perhaps the clearest example that Galen used, and Nemesios borrowed, was that the heart in pulsation was an 'activity', while in palpitation its deviation from normal functioning transformed it into a 'passion'.[13] Because 'activity' was a motion originating with the object itself, it was thought to be consistent with nature, while 'passion' was not. The striking feature of this definition was its inherent capacity to recognize one state, such as anger or fear, from multiple perspectives. Anger was not simply a 'passion' of the body that it forcibly moved to act, or of the rational and 'desiderative' parts of the soul that failed to restrain it. Depending upon the angle from which it was viewed and the extent of its fury, anger might simply be an 'activity' of the spirited part, because it was there that anger normally resided in its natural and tempered form.[14] For Nemesios all of this implied that passions that were properly controlled had the capacity to be restored to their natural function. Because the passions were not inherently problematic, they were not to be eradicated in the way in which a dualist model might have implied. They were the 'components of a living creature, for life

consciousness (συναίσθεσις) and the report of the πάθος, but not the πάθος itself, that traveled up the sensory nerves to the brain.

[10] For this insight I draw upon the work of the neuroscientist, Antonio Damasio, in *The Feeling of What Happens: Body and Emotion in the Making of Consciousness* (San Diego, New York, London, 1999) 23, 145.

[11] Galen, *De placitis Hippocratis et Platonis* VI 1.5.

[12] *Ibid.*

[13] *Ibid.* VI 1.10.

[14] *Ibid.* VI 1.14.

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could not be sustained without them'.[15] Passions were not simply the result of motion originating from outside the subject, but were also the pathological consequence of normal activity gone awry. Because they were thereby connected to the natural functioning of the organism, the passions were brought within its orbit.

In contrast to Galen who envisioned a tripartite soul consisting of the rational soul which he located in the brain, the spirited which he placed in the heart, and the 'desiderative' which he placed in the liver, Nemesios followed Aristotle's *Nicomachean Ethics* in dividing the soul into two general categories, the rational and irrational parts.[16] The move from the Platonic tripartite soul that Galen had defended to what Nemesios perceived to be an Aristotelian model facilitated his broader plan to make the passions an essential part of the moral life of the person.[17] This was accomplished in part by integrating fully the irrational soul, where the passions resided, with the rational, and then by making the irrational partly susceptible to reason. It was, in particular, the passions of anger, concupiscence, and its derivative passions of desire, pleasure, grief, and fear that reason commanded through the irrational part of the soul (Only respiration, pulse, and the appetites were wholly devoid of reason). By controlling such passions through the exercise of reason, the person was thought to be restored to his natural capacity. Were Nemesios' discussion to end here, so that the human person was imagined to exist in the realm of reason that was opposed to, and a commanding force against, the passions, then he would have had little to add to the commonly-held view of the moral life of the individual. Her freedom and self-determination would have consisted mainly in her ability to make reason prevail over the lure and degradation of the irrational passions.

In chapter twenty-six, however, Nemesios introduced a new way of dividing up the faculties in a living organism. Having set aside the reason/passion dichotomy that he explored in the context of the rational and irrational parts of the soul, he then considered the extent to which the will or choice (προαίρεσις) was operative in human action.[18] The living organism might, he suggested, be understood not only according to the parts of its soul, but by dividing its faculties (δυνάμεις) further into the faculties of soul, on the one hand, and the vital faculties, on the other. Because he had already argued that the rational and

[15] *De Nat. Hom.* 16 (73.18-20 Morani).

[16] Galen, *De placitis Hippocratis et Platonis* VI 1.17; *De Nat. Hom.* 16 (73-5 Morani); Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 1.13. On Galen's anatomical tripartition of the soul, see Teun Tieleman, Galen's Psychology, in: Jonathan Barnes, *et al.* (eds.), *Galien et la Philosophie*, Fondation Hardt pour l'étude de l'antiquité classique 49 (Geneva, 2003), 131-61, esp. 154f.

[17] In contrast to Plato, Aristotle 'proposed a single vital principle or soul capable of intellectual, sensitive, affective, and nutritive activities, of which the principle organ was the heart'. Theodore J. Tracy, Plato, Galen, and the Center of Consciousness: *Illinois Classical Studies* 1 (1976) 43-52, 46.

[18] *De Nat. Hom.* 26 (87 Morani).

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irrational parts of the soul, except for pulse, respiration, and the appetites, were under the command of reason, the faculties that the soul exercised were, therefore, dependent upon choice (The implication was that the capacity to reason facilitated decision-making[19]). These soul or psychic faculties governed by choice were further divided into the two categories (i) of impulsion, which included locomotion, speech, and respiration, and (ii) of perception. The vital faculties, in contrast, such as nourishment, growth, the formation of semen, and pulse, were understood to be involuntary. It is worth noting that pulse and the appetites were construed (i) as faculties of the irrational soul that reason did not control and (ii) as part of the vital faculties that were involuntary, while respiration, though it resided in the same irrational part of the soul as the pulse and appetites, was understood to be part of the broad category known as the faculty of soul, which was governed by choice. The explanation for the discrepancy lies perhaps in the ambiguous quality of respiration as the place in which body and soul came together in the panting and sobbing breath of grief (a passion of the irrational soul), on the one hand, and in which life was sustained by maintaining the vital heat and replenishing the psychic spirit, on the other.[20] Although respiration was surely understood to be a kind of vital faculty that could not be withheld for life to continue, Nemesios thought it was inseparably mingled with the soul, whose will controlled the movement of muscles that made breathing possible. During sleep, respiration did not cease because the soul had the capacity to govern the vital processes, even when consciousness, in the sense of awareness, was absent.[21] The significance of respiration for Nemesios, therefore, lay in its dual status as a process that was necessary for life in a way that the movement of walking, for instance, was not, and as a fully voluntary motion governed by the faculty of soul. Like Galen, Nemesios thought that movement, including the muscular motion of breathing in respiration, occurred by the operation of nerves and muscles which involved the intervention of the soul.[22] Where he differed from Galen was in making an act of the will the means by which this connection between the soul and the muscles was effected.[23] The addition was striking for its insistence that an assent of the will made even the most basic and seemingly involuntary physical motions, such as 'the matter of evacuations', subject to the faculty of soul. Because the same voluntary mechanism was required for the muscular movement of respiration, the person was made innately responsible for her continued existence.

[19] Note that Aristotle had conceived of freedom as 'rational self-direction'. Moira M. Walsh, Aristotle's Conception of Freedom: *Journal of the History of Philosophy* 35 (1997) 495-507, esp. 496.

[20] *De Nat. Hom.* 28 (89-93 Morani).

[21] *De Nat. Hom.* 28 (90.9-11 Morani).

[22] *De Nat. Hom.* 28 (88.21-2 Morani).

[23] W. Telfer, *Cyril of Jerusalem and Nemesius of Emesa* (1955), 372, n. 8.

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In considering how the will in connection with soul and bodily processes was essential to such voluntary movements as locomotion, speech, and respiration, Nemesios laid the groundwork for analyzing what constituted a voluntary act in the sphere of moral psychology. Because all voluntary actions required an act, on the one hand, and the will to act, on the other, such passions as desire and anger (to namely only two), which were part of the impulse for action, were essential to his theory. The centrality of the passions for his moral psychology, however, led him directly into an anthropological conundrum. If the passions, as Nemesios and Galen argued, were the result of motion in one thing that comes from something else, if their 'inciting source' was, in other words, outside of the subject, then how could the person whose actions were the result of such passions be held morally accountable? Resolving this problem was essential to determining what sorts of acts should be ascribed to the person as voluntary, and therefore within her control, and what acts should be deemed involuntary and therefore beyond the scope of her moral accountability. Nemesios tackled the problem by borrowing extensively from Aristotle's *Nicomachean Ethics*, book 3 (the borrowing was so extensive, in fact, that only the relevant dependencies on and deviations from it will be noted here): voluntary acts have an element of choice, are done with pleasure, and bring about either praise or blame upon the acting subject.[24] Involuntary acts are not done by choice, are done reluctantly, and are considered to be either excusable or deserving of pity.[25] The definition is striking for considering not only the state of mind of the subject, whose experience of pleasure or grief assumed the capacity of the subject to feel, but the customary response to the actions as well. The implication was that feeling emotions was essential to voluntary action, that reasonable minds know a voluntary act when they see it, and that this combination of personal experience and collective knowledge should be taken into account in evaluating the moral responsibility of the actor.

In defining this sphere of moral accountability, Nemesios also clarified his position with respect to the passions. It was a distinguishing feature of his anthropological thought, I suggest, to make the passions intimately connected to the moral life of the person. Were the passions such an integral part of the personality of the subject that the actions resulting from them were hers? If the passions were thus integrated, then how could they also be construed, as Nemesios and Galen had said, as the motion in one thing that comes from something else? If the passions originated outside of the person, as this definition suggested, then how might an individual ever be held accountable for his passionate deeds? In his article on Galen, Hankinson outlined the several

[24] The Stoics apparently shared this conception of freedom. For a full discussion of Stoic thought in this area, see Susanne Bobzien, Stoic Conceptions of Freedom, and their Relation to Ethics, in: Richard Sorabji (ed.), *Aristotle and After* (London, 1997), 71-89, esp. 73.

[25] *De Nat. Hom.* 29 (93-4 Morani); Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 3.1-3.12.

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possible strategies that had been proposed by the ancient philosophers to address such questions, three of which are relevant here: i) according to Aristotle, individuals are in control of their actions and dispositions for action, including their 'susceptibility to the passions [...], even though [their] actual acts may themselves be directly and ineluctably caused by those dispositions'; ii) according to the Stoics, and partly to Aristotle as well, the passions are essential to the individual's personality, and therefore do not undermine his moral accountability; and iii) according to Galen, individuals, in recognition of some grander sense of justice, must be held responsible for the consequences of what they do, even though the passions might be beyond their control.[26]

Because Nemesios, in his intellectual commitment to Aristotle and Galen, could have chosen to follow uncritically any one of the strategies outlined above, his original resolution of the moral problem, which combined all three approaches in the context of a Christian theology, sheds light on his broader anthropological agenda. The mere fact, he said, that concupiscence and anger are incited outside of the acting subject does not mean that the actions resulting from them are involuntary. Although a courtesan may have incited a man's indulgence, or another person may have provoked his anger, although, in other words, 'these motions had their origin external to the subject, the subjects, nevertheless, did their deeds themselves with their own members'.[27] Nemesios was not, strictly speaking, correct in ascribing the first cause in such instances to something outside the individual, insofar as he ultimately made the lack of personal discipline the origin of morally repugnant deeds that were committed under the influence of the passions.[28] The human being that Nemesios envisioned, therefore, was responsible for his passions, because his passions were not only susceptible to reason and subject to discipline, but were also fully integrated into a body whose every voluntary movement, including the impulse to breathe, depended upon an assent of the will to desire. It was desire undisciplined, due perhaps to poor upbringing and lack of education, and not desire in and of itself, that ascribed moral responsibility to an individual whose repugnant actions were the result of his passions.

By making the lack of discipline the root cause of morally reprehensible actions, Nemesios incorporated the moral ethics of Aristotle, on the one hand, which emphasized the importance of 'reasonable moderation' in the exercise of virtue, and the Christian ascetic tradition, on the other, for which the practice

[26] James Hankinson, Actions and passions: affection, emotion, and moral self-management in Galen's philosophical psychology, in: Jacques Brunschwig and Martha C. Nussbaum (eds.), *Passions and Perceptions: Studies in Hellenistic Philosophy of Mind. Proceedings of the Fifth Symposium Hellenisticum* (Cambridge, 1993), 184-222, 195f.

[27] *De Nat. Hom.* 30 (96.5-7 Morani).

[28] *De Nat. Hom.* 30 (96.7-9 Morani).

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of discipline was the path toward achieving freedom from the passions.[29] He was well aware of what was at stake in this formulation. If the deeds of lust and anger were deemed involuntary merely because they had been committed in passion, he said, then 'ethical virtues would have no meaning'.[30] To excuse passionate acts as involuntary undermined the basis not only for punishing the immoral deeds, but also for rewarding virtuous conduct. It also misunderstood the nature of human action by ascribing the quality of being involuntary to acts whose aim and impulse lay within the scope of the individual.

The real concern for Nemesios was to carve out a sphere of moral responsibility not in order to facilitate punishment, but to recognize the moral excellence by which the individual became what he was truly meant to be. Because Nemesios, like Aristotle, was deeply committed to the idea that 'deeds of virtue' were accomplished with a moderate degree of passion, the capacity of the individual to become that excellent person depended upon the passions being fully integrated, on the one hand, and susceptible to discipline, on the other. Virtuous conduct was the result, in other words, of guiding the passions, which belonged to the individual and were an essential part of her person, toward morally excellent ends. His approach differed from that of an ascetic theology that made the passions the object of a discipline whose intent was to eradicate them entirely, except for the passion of desire, which, when properly directed, led to union with God.

Acts that were truly involuntary, such as those done under constraint or in ignorance, were acts that could not be said to originate with the individual, because they were accomplished without his impulse (ὁρμή)[31] (I have already suggested that Nemesios' particular understanding of the passions made it possible to differentiate the 'impulse' that belonged to the individual, from the 'impulse' that did not). Not all acts committed under duress or without knowledge qualified as involuntary acts, however. Sometimes a person might be compelled to act in order to avoid what he perceived to be a greater wrong.[32] In that case the act had a dual quality: it was involuntary with respect to the deed that the individual was compelled to perform, but voluntary insofar as the process of decision-making that led up to the deed was fully his.[33] Although Nemesios does not say, the only acts that were committed under constraint that he might have considered involuntary were those that did not involve the impulse or will of the individual, such as acts done under real physical force (*i.e.*, someone shot the arrow because he was physically overcome). Not even

[29] Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 2.6-8; W. Telfer, *Cyril of Jerusalem and Nemesius of Emesa* (1955), 390, n. 2, n. 3.

[30] *De Nat. Hom.* 32 (99.2-3 Morani): (lit.) 'He does away with ethical virtues'.

[31] *De Nat. Hom.* 30 (94.17-8 Morani).

[32] *De Nat. Hom.* 30 (95.7-10 Morani).

[33] *Ibid.* lines 11-3 Morani.

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the threat of physical force (*i.e.*, I will murder you if you do not do 'x') sufficed, according to the reasoning supplied by Nemesios, to render the impulse involuntary. There was no such thing as an involuntary impulse, for by its very nature, the human will was free.

Acts done in ignorance were another matter altogether. Their consequences were, by the definition that Nemesios borrowed from Aristotle, either non-voluntary (οὐχ ἑκούσιον) or involuntary (ἀκούσιον).[34] Because unintended consequences (which were the result of non-voluntary acts), such as digging for rocks but uncovering a buried treasure, implied that the outcome was pleasant, the only truly involuntary act done in ignorance was that which caused grief and regret in the doer. Even this latter sort of ignorance was not without exception. A regrettable act done in ignorance might not be involuntary if the doer either willfully disregarded the consequences of his action (by committing a wrongful act, for instance, while drunk or in a rage), or fell so far short of what a so-called reasonable man should know that the action remained within his compass.[35]

Like Aristotle, therefore, Nemesios expanded the scope of individual responsibility by holding the person accountable for any steps he took to alter his state of mind, on the one hand, and for the knowledge of certain universal principles, on the other. 'Surely then', said Nemesios, 'ignorance of universals or of general notions, or of things that lie within our own control is not involuntary'.[36] Ignorance was involuntary and, therefore, morally excused when it was limited to ignorance of particular facts that the individual might reasonably have not known, such as the 'character of the doer, the nature of the act, the means, the place, the time, the manner, the cause'.[37] Considering how devoted Nemesios was to making the individual responsible for her actions, it is striking that he absolved the individual of responsibility in several cases that we might find objectionable. For example, a man who, to his surprise, killed someone with merely a light blow should, according to current moral thought (and contrary to Nemesios' reasoning), be held accountable for the consequences of his violent deed[38] (In contemporary American tort law, for instance, the actor takes his victim as he finds him). That a passageway was narrow suggests to us, though it did not to Nemesios, that a special degree of caution should be exercised in traversing it.[39] The overwhelming impression was, nevertheless, that the individual was responsible for nearly all of his deeds. That was certainly the case for all voluntary acts: (i) the impulse for which lay within the individual, and (ii) the consequences of which resulted in either praise or blame, or in pleasure or grief. This connection between the impulse to act and the

[34] *De Nat. Hom.* 31 (96.18-9 Morani); Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 3.15.
[35] *De Nat. Hom.* 31 (96.26-97.1 Morani); Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 3.16.
[36] *De Nat. Hom.* 31 (97.11-3 Morani).
[37] *De Nat. Hom.* 31 (97.16-7 Morani).
[38] *De Nat. Hom.* 31 (97.23-4 Morani).
[39] *De Nat. Hom.* 31 (97.20-1 Morani).

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customary response by the individual and by society that was its consequence implied that the individual was defined not only by the physiological connections between the soul and body that played out in Nemesios' reception of Galen, but also by her relationship, as an integrated body-soul organism, to the outside world. Self-determination existed, according to Nemesios' way of construing the problem, not only because muscles controlled movement by an assent of the will, but because people generally acted as though it did.

Although moral responsibility was ascribed to voluntary acts, true human freedom resided in the smaller subset of voluntary acts known, according to Nemesios and Aristotle, as choice.[40] It was here in the realm of choice that Nemesios' vision of the human person as a unified organism, whose passions were fully integrated into the working of the body, came to fruition. Choice differed from voluntary acts in drawing a direct connection between the desire for something, the plan to attain it ('judgment' or 'deliberation'), and the particular end that was its result.[41] The passion of desire, a part of the irrational soul that was susceptible to reason, was therefore a necessary, though not a sufficient, condition for an act of choice to occur. Without desire, an act might be voluntary, but not truly free. Finding a treasure unexpectedly, for instance, was not understood to be the exercise of choice because there was no possibility of desiring something whose attainment was not foreseen. The presence of desire implied, therefore, that the end was not only favorable, but fully conceived of as well. For an act to be free it was also necessary that the subject had the capacity to imagine, and then to implement, the means to attain a particular end through the rational exercise of judgment and deliberation. The man who committed a crime out of anger, for instance, might be morally responsible for his voluntary act, but cannot have acted freely because the passion of anger undermined the process of rational thought that linked the desiring subject to the goal he planned to achieve. Though anger was, according to Nemesios, a form of desire (such as a desire for revenge), as was lust and merely wanting something (βουλή), it differed implicitly from the desire that was essential to choice in making the impulse to act the result of a physical, rather than a rational, process.[42] The subject who succumbed to anger had not only failed in his personal discipline, but also failed to restrain his bodily functions, so that the blood around the heart became heated as a result of exhalation rising from the bile. Desire that constituted choice, in contrast, was inextricably interwoven with the plan, judgment, and deliberation about things within the subject's agency that shaped it. 'An act of choice and the course of action chosen by prior decision of the will come about when desire has been roused',[43] because desire,

[40] *De Nat. Hom.* 33 (99-101 Morani); Aristotle, *Nicomachean Ethics* 3.2.
[41] *De Nat. Hom.* 33 (101.4 Morani).
[42] *De Nat. Hom.* 33 (100.19-20 Morani).
[43] *De Nat. Hom.* 33 (101.12-3 Morani).

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shaped by judgment, implicitly sought out the one of many possible goods to which action might aspire. Choice was thereby conceived of as a complex, interrelated process in which the passion of desire both shaped, and was shaped by, the plan and judgment of the rational subject.

Nemesios imagined the moral responsibility of the human person not simply according to the care that individuals took to subdue the passions, as might be the case for the dualist model, but according to an act of will that connected human action i) to the faculty of soul and ii) to physical processes. Muscles moved, breathing occurred, and acts took place because of this connection. Not all actions, however, were voluntary and, therefore, within the sphere of moral responsibility, while even fewer were truly free. Voluntary acts, because they were identified by the pleasure they invoked in, and the praise or blame that accrued to, the acting subject, could not occur without the individual being perceived as an integrated body-mind organism with the capacity for self-reflection. Without the ability of the acting subject to feel the emotion of pleasure and the ability of observers to identify a subject to whom praise or blame might legitimately attach, there could be no possibility, according to Nemesios, for ascribing moral responsibility. The passions were essential to the formation of the human person as a self-conscious and, therefore, morally responsible being, because they were not simply 'motion in one thing originating from something else', but were sometimes the result of a normal bodily process gone awry. Anger in its more restrained form, for instance, resided in the spirited part of the soul and was, therefore, among the passions necessary for the normal functioning of the organism. For not only a voluntary but a truly free act to occur, the passion of desire initiated the deeply interdependent process of plan, judgment, and deliberation. Nemesios thereby imagined the human person as a rational actor whose passions, more specifically the passion of desire, were not only connected to the physical body, but were essential to human action.[44] The passions were the 'components of a living creature' because they were the first step in a psychological process that made it possible for the individual to differentiate the body that underwent pathological change from the subject that experienced it. This careful delineation of a feeling subject, an 'I' to whom praise or blame might plausibly adhere, made it possible for Nemesios to carve out a legitimate sphere of moral responsibility. It was his original contribution to suggest that the passions initiated action, on the one hand, and helped constitute the individual as a self-conscious subject, on the other, to whom moral acts might be attributed.

[44] Augustine also understands the will in relationship to moral responsibility, although his emphasis is rather different. For Augustine, people are morally responsible for their voluntary negligence in failing to seek out the 'enabling power of grace'. Ann Pang-Shite, The Fall of Humanity: Weakness of the Will and Moral Responsibility in the Later Augustine: *Medieval Philosophy and Theology* 9 (2000) 51-67, esp. 65, 66. 'One's guilt arises from failing to acquire the proper facility (that is, the assistance of grace) to correct one's own weakness.' *Ibid.* 65.

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'Fellow-lovers of God': Participation in the Desire for God in Theodoret's *Historia Philotheos*

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1. Introduction

The *Vita Antonii* has usually been perceived as a work for monks. In a recent article Samuel Rubenson reconsiders this, and by showing how closely the hagiography follows the ideal picture of the philosopher in Jamblichus' *De Vita Pythagorica*, he comes to the conclusion 'that the *Vita Antonii* should be read as an apologetic anti-Pythagorean (...) treatise'.[1] What about a later Christian hagiography, the *Historia Philotheos*, Theodoret of Cyrrhus' *History of the Monks of Syria*, written in the 440's; is this treatise apologetic as well?[2] Now, a similar conclusion about a direct apologetic motive may not come as a surprise, even if I think that the full consequences of this are not yet drawn. In the latest contribution to these ascetic godlovers of Syria Cristian-Nicolae Gaşpar, in a still unpublished dissertation from last year, persuasively argues how these stories are fictions, or better said, panegyrics, written by a bishop showing off as a learned rhetor, to convey and convince the intellectual elite of the city about the truth of the Christian faith by means of the Classical *paideia*.[3] This is something, I think, that needs to be reaffirmed, but I want to add that we must not forget that *paideia* in this Neoplatonic setting was also a spiritual path.

In the following short communication we will look at one of the stories of the *HPh* through the lens of its epilogue about 'Divine Love'. We will see how the concept of love in the epilogue is used also in the *Life* of Julian Saba,

[1] Samuel Rubenson, 'Anthony and Pythagoras': A Reappraisal of the Appropriation of Classical Biography in Athanasius' *Vita Antonii*, in: David Brakke, *et al.* (eds.), *Beyond Reception* (Frankfurt am Main a.o., 2006), 191-208.

[2] *Historia Philotheos* is sometimes better known by its Latin name: *Historia Religiosa*. Theodoret of Cyrrhus, *Historia Philotheos*, ed. Pierre Canivet and Alice Leroy-Molinghen, SC 234, 237 (Paris 1977, 1979). Engl. transl. R.M. Price, *Theodoret of Cyrrhus: A History of the Monks of Syria* (Kalamazoo, 1985).

[3] Christian-Nicolae Gaşpar, *In Praise of Unlikely Holy Men: Elite Hagiography, Monastic Panegyric, and Cultural Translation in the Philotheos Historia of Theodoret, Bishop of Cyrrhus* (PhD diss., Central European University, Budapest, 2006).

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revealing a 'mystical' concept of participation (and its Neoplatonic and Christian background) as an important key to understand also a work of hagiography such as the *HPh*.

2. The concept of love in the epilogue

The treatise on 'Divine Love' is mostly considered as the epilogue of the HPh, even if it does not belong to all the early manuscripts. Different attempts have been made to place it in a historical context, such as Theodoret's exile (in 449/50), but for our concerns these matters are not crucial.[4] For our sake it is rather the consistent argument about love that matters, which makes the epilogue a key to open the different *Lives* of the ascetics, and it is enough to say that it probably was a key that Theodoret himself made some years after his first composition.

As in our times the language of love was laden with connotations, not at least among Neoplatonists of the fourth and the fifth centuries that leaned towards theurgy.[5] And just like Iamblichus, Hierocles of Alexandria, or John Chrysostom, Theodoret makes use of similar Platonic themes throughout the *HPh*. It is ἔρως, in the Epilogue, that gives the god-lovers 'wings and teaches to fly', it is said with words reminding the reader of Plato's *Phaidros*.[6] The goal is to 'transcend the heavens', because as we know from *Phaidros*, it is in a place above heaven (τὸν ὑπερουράνιον τόπον) that the souls can contemplate the Good, the Beautiful and the True.[7] And furthermore: it is a contemplation of 'the Beloved' (τὸν ἐρώμενον) through the eyes of someone who is sometimes also called ἐραστής – echoing the lover and the beloved of the *Symposium*.[8]

However, what qualifies this as Christian is what comes next: 'Such was Moses ... and Paul ... and Peter'.[9] It is through the chain of biblical examples through history that are so typical for the *HPh*, but nowhere as explicit as in the epilogue, that we can see where the true philosophers are. These lists may seem characteristically Antiochene, but not as opposed to something supposedly

[4] See the discussion by Price, who dismisses Canivet's attempt to 'tie down the date of *On Divine Love*' as 'futile'. R.M. Price, *Theodoret of Cyrrhus: A History of the Monks of Syria* (1985), 206.

[5] Patricia Cox Millar, Strategies of Representation in Collective Biography, in: Tomas Hägg, *et al.* (eds.), *Greek Biography and Panegyric in Late Antiquity* (Berkeley and Los Angeles, 2000), 212.

[6] *Historia Philotheos*, XXI 4. Philip Rousseau draws another line, namely that of the dove in *Psalm* 55:6-7. Philip Rousseau, Moses, Monks, and Mountains in Theodoret's *Historia Religiosa*, in: Maciej Bielawski, *et al.* (eds.), *Il monachesimo tra eredità e aperture* (Roma, 2004), 323-46, esp. 344.

[7] Plato, *Phaidros* 247c.

[8] *E.g. Historia Philotheos* XXI 15.

[9] *Historia Philotheos* XXI 5.6.10.

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Alexandrine, but rather as opposed to someone from the affinity of Antioch, such as Iamblichus with his lists of true philosophers.[10] 'The conflict between the two', one could say in line with what Rubenson says about the VA, 'is not a matter of their ideals, it is a matter of their sources'.[11]

Eventually the epilogue ends with some remarkable paragraphs, filled with biblical quotations, where the chain of successors leads up to the 'new athletes of virtue', *i.e.* the Syrian ascetics, and from them to 'us': 'Let us too conceive this longing; let us become bewitched by the beauty of the Bridegroom ...'.[12] In the end the point is clear: there is a mystery to participate in. I say mystery because there is so much in the epilogue that sounds like a mystical treatise. The paragraph about Moses entering the darkness with an ever-growing desire does certainly remind of the *Vita Moysis* of Gregory of Nyssa.[13] And the description of God letting his abundant beauty shine through the clothes he has chosen for himself sounds similar to the Syriac tradition in general – and the *Corpus Dionysiacum*.[14] Beauty, wisdom, power and love are like divine names, given through the Scriptures. In both these passages the line is drawn to the mystical meeting of the Bride and the Bridegroom of the *Song of Songs*.

We will hear an echo of this mystical language also in the *Life of Julian Saba*, to which we will now turn, and where we will see that this mystery is revealed in this particular saint, and participated by those who meet him.

3. The concept of love in the *Life of Julian Saba*

The *Life of the Old Julian*, Saba meaning old man, is the second story of the *HPh*. Here we are provided with the longest description of this well-attested saint from the fourth century, who may be categorised as one of the founders of monastic life (in Egyptian style) in a Syriac-speaking milieu.[15]

A recurring theme in Julian's life is the interplay between separation and return. It is exemplified in the two greater journeys that Julian makes. In the first place the story about Julian's trip to the Sinai and back, the only story

[10] Iamblichus, *De vita pythagorica*, ch. 36. See *e.g.* Michael von Albrecht, *et al.* (eds.), *Jamblich. Pythagoras. Legende – Lehre – Lebensgestaltung* (Darmstadt, 2002). Both Proclus and Hierocles use lineages to describe their Platonic heritage in a language that is similar to that of the other 'especially in its religious tone'. Hermann S. Schibli, *Hierocles of Alexandria* (Oxford, 2002), 7f. Proclus talks about these philosophers as a 'divine choir' (θεῖος χορός), an expression that we can also find in *Historia Philotheos* XVI 1.

[11] S. Rubenson, 'Anthony and Pythagoras' (2006), 208.

[12] *Historia Philotheos* XXI 19-21.

[13] *Historia Philotheos* XXI 5.

[14] *Historia Philotheos* XXI 19-20.

[15] Sydney Griffith, Julian Saba, "Father of the Monks" of Syria: *JECS* 2 (1994) 185-216. There are also hymns about Julian, of which some may come from the hand of Ephraem, even if, according to Griffith, 'there is no evidence that Theodoret knew of the hymns' (*ibid.* 186f.).

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shared with Ephraem, shows this. But also the other main story, when Julian leaves the desert to go to Antioch to defend the faith, is an example of it. Moreover, and more importantly, it comes to the fore in the stories where Julian, who is the first of whom we hear that he receives disciples, relates to a beloved disciple, or to all of them.

The pattern of being separated and coming back is a commonplace of the love story in Antiquity, and it has to do with love here as well.[16]

On the one hand we have the love-story between God and the philosopher. It is through the separation of Julian from human company and his sole focus on the 'Beloved', only singing his psalms, that love is (as from the outside) 'transferred into himself'.[17] Just as Moses in the epilogue he is filled with an ever-growing fire of longing so that he becomes 'intoxicated with desire'. It is his purified soul that is the place for this mystical meeting with God.[18]

On the other hand we have the love story between Julian and his disciples, because this divine love is shared with other people, when Julian returns to his disciples. Julian himself has become an object of beauty, attracting disciples. Also in this sense the Moses story is used, since Julian is 'returning like some Moses from ineffable contemplation on the mountain'.[19] The appearance of this is explained by another story where we hear that Julian is 'beaming'.[20] Moses is used as the example for this separation and return, but does it not also sound very Platonic? Not only in the general Platonic sense of returning to the Good, but also in a more specific sense that links to the concept of participation in Neoplatonism. Iamblichus uses words like παρεῖμι, μετέχομαι (or μεταλαγχάνω) to describe a mystery that one can have a share of – despite the separation of the gods from the material realm.[21] This participation links to the

[16] Tomas Hägg, *Eros und Tyche: Der Roman der antiken Welt* (Mainz, 1987), 128-31. Hägg argues that this motive does not come from the antique Mystery cults, even if someone trained in allegorical reading, could read a romance that way.

[17] *Historia Philotheos* II 2.

[18] His soul is a mirror where he can gaze 'upon that divine and inexpressible beauty', as long as no conversation would 'rob the mind of its reflection of God'. *Historia Philotheos* II 4.6. In one of the four hymns that Griffith attributes to Ephraem it is similarly expressed: 'Zu jeder Stunde trennte er sich und ging er hinaus zum Beten, * um mit dem unsichtbaren Auge den Unsichtbaren zu betrachten, * den er liebte. Denn er ist schön für seine Anbeter. * Und wer das Auge seines Herzens reinigt, * und seinen Glanz sieht, der kann an seiner Herrlichkeit sich nicht satt (sehen)'. Ephraem the Syrian (Des heiligen Ephraem des Syrers), *Hymnen auf Abraham Kidunaya und Julianos Saba*, ed. and transl. Edmund Beck, CSCO 335 (Louvain, 1972), 48.

[19] *Historia Philotheos* II 4.

[20] *Historia Philotheos* II 14. But the concept of light comes again many times. James is illuminated in his soul (II 9) and his disciples are shining of virtue (James in II 6 and Acacius in II 9). Philip Rousseau writes about 'the wider impact of ascetic virtue and practice' that metaphors like these carry in HPh betraying e.g. a greater interest in the social role of the ascetic than is shown in earlier works of Theodoret' (Ph. Rousseau, Moses, Monks, and Mountains, 2004, 338-40).

[21] Beate Nasemann, *Theurgie und Philosophie in Jamblichs De Mysteriis* (Stuttgart, 1991), 293f.

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concept of hierarchy, with intermediaries, spreading light and love from a higher to a lower level.

In both these love stories we have spoken of in the *Life of Julian Saba* the relation is unequal, it is between a disciple and his master, whether Julian is the master, in relation to his disciples, or the disciple in relation to God. But on this ladder of hierarchical relations a 'drama of persuasion', as Peter Brown has put it, is going on.[22] Repeatedly someone is begging (ἱκετεύω), to receive or have a share of another person's life (δέχομαι, μεταλαγχάνω or κοινόω). However, to be on the begging or receiving side of this is not to be passive, as we might imagine, on the contrary. It is the disciple that is the lover (and not the master – in contrast to Plato), therefore not only the holy man can be described as a lover of God, but also, in this story, two of Julian's disciples can be called lovers of *him* (ἐρασταί).

All in all, these descriptions answer to the Neoplatonic cult of heroes by showing another, Christian, κοινωνία where grace is shared. This is something that has been proposed in relation to Theodoret's *Cure of Hellenic Maladies* – as another unpublished dissertation of Yannis Papadoyannakis from 2004 shows – but has not been taken into full account for the HPh.[23]

4. Conclusion

In this short communication I have tried to put the *Historia Philotheos* in an apologetic context, where Theodoret, just like Neoplatonic philosophers, by making his saints 'lovers', lets them take part of the 'war of biography' that Averil Cameron speaks of for the fourth and fifth centuries.[24] It puts the *HPh* closer to other works of his, such as the *Cure of Hellenic Maladies*. Such a connection also places the *HPh* in an even larger context of Christian 'mystagogy', which makes the link with the *CD* and the hierarchies of love that are revealed there. It may be a common Neoplatonic ideal, but as Theodoret shows, it is in line with Christian god-lovers, from Adam, to Moses and the modern athletes of virtue, that God opens his love for us to participate in.

[22] Peter Brown, *Power and Persuasion* (Madison, Wisconsin, cop. 1992), 64.

[23] Yannis Papadoyannakis, *Christian Therapeia and Politeia: The Apologetics of Theodoret of Cyrrhus Against the Greeks* (PhD diss., Princeton University, 2004), esp. 44f. and the following chapter (3). See also the description of Hierocles on the heroes: 'They are rightly called ... 'heroes' because they are, so to speak, 'loving ones', like 'erotics' and 'lovers' of god versed in dialectics, 'raising us up and bearing us aloft from our sojourn on earth to citizenship with the divine'. Hierocles of Alexandria, 'On Providence', in: H.S. Schibli (introd. and transl.), *Hierocles of Alexandria* (Oxford, 2002), 192f.

[24] Averil Cameron, *Christianity and the Rhetoric of the Empire: the Development of Christian Discourse* (Berkeley, cop. 1991), 145.

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Theodoret's Bias: The Aim of the *Historia Ecclesiastica*

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'No one has so far settled when it was written.' Those are the words of the French Jesuit Jean Garnier, who died in 1681, on Theodoret's *Historia ecclesiastica*.[1] Garnier, of course, then went on to claim he had solved the problem and affirmed that he knew not only the year, but 'the part of the year' – namely, the first half of 450.[2] That is almost the position that became more or less canonical – though for rather different reasons – and remained so until, I suppose, 1981, when Glenn Chesnut protested vigorously against it.[3] Chesnut and others in his wake did their work well, and a straw-poll now would probably show a clear majority in favour of shifting the date a few years earlier, towards the mid-440s. Thus Annick Martin, in the first volume of the superb new Sources chrétiennes edition, opts after careful discussion for a four-year window between 444 and the middle of 448.[4]

That naturally prompts the question, what difference does it make? Does much actually hang on two or three years? In this case, yes. In this case our whole view of the nature and purpose of the work depends in no small part on when it was written.

On the earlier dating, the work was written at a time of relative peace, when Theodoret had free access to the episcopal archives of Antioch and leisure for the task. The multiplicity of documents cited – one of the most striking characteristics of the *Historia ecclesiastica* – becomes an argument for that view. That is essentially Martin's position.[5] One could then go on to draw the conclusion that the deficiencies and inaccuracies of Theodoret's work simply reflect Theodoret's deficiencies and that its blatant bias – including an exaggeratedly white-hats and black-hats approach to orthodoxy and heresy – is simply what happens when bishops rather than *scholastici* try to write history.

[1] Joannes Garnerius, *Beati Theodoreti Episcopi Cyri Operum Tomus V* (Paris, 1684), 191b, col. 1. I will cite Garnier below by the pages of its reissue in vol. 5 of Schulze's edition (Halle, 1774), itself reprinted in PG 84: here Schulze, V 278b.

[2] Schulze, V 279a-b.

[3] Glenn F. Chesnut, The Date of Composition of Theodoret's Church History: *VC* 35 (1981) 345-52.

[4] Théodoret de Cyr, *Histoire ecclésiastique*, ed. Annick Martin *et al.*, SC 501 (Paris, 2006), 29-37, esp. 32 and 36.

[5] *Ibid.* 35-6.

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On a later dating, 449 or early 450, let us say, the work was written at fever pitch as a piece of propaganda and as an awful warning of what might befall emperor and empire if heresy remained rampant. On that view the work's deficiencies and inaccuracies simply reflect the circumstances of its composition, and its 'bias' is the whole point. And obviously the multiplicity of documents cited becomes an argument for *that* view, since the text becomes an often thin and tendentious narrative stringing together the elements of what must have been an already existing dossier.

That, roughly speaking, is the question at issue. In the remainder of this paper I would like first to review some of the evidence deployed in this long-running and at times tedious debate and then to enter a plea in support of a modified and, I hope, somewhat saner version of Garnier's own solution.

What I referred to earlier as the canonical view for most of the twentieth century was in fact canonized by Léon Parmentier in his GCS edition of 1911.[6] Theodoret was confined to his diocese by Theodosius II in 448 and forbidden from attending the Council of Ephesus in August 449. In anguished protest he wrote *Ep.* 113 to Leo the Great, a letter which includes a catalogue of 'seine bisherigen Schriften'. But that catalogue does not include the *Hist. eccl.* – 'existierte also noch nicht'. But the end of the work (V 36.1) refers to Theodosius as ὁ νῦν βασιλεύων. Theodosius died on 28 July 450. 'Theodoret hat demnach die KG in den letzten Monaten 449 und der ersten Hälfte 450 abgefaßt' – back in the monastery of Nicertae, near Apamea. 'Er hat also kaum ein Jahr Zeit gehabt, um seine KG zu schreiben.'

Q.E.D. Or so it appeared. Chesnut attacked the conclusion Parmentier drew from *Ep.* 113 from a number of alternative and sometimes competing angles.[7] One consideration seems to me to be decisive, and Chesnut's argument here can be considerably strengthened. It depends on looking at what Theodoret is actually claiming and what he is trying to prove in *Ep.* 113.

In that letter of studiously wounded innocence, written in September or October 449,[8] Theodoret asks the Pope

> 'to bid me run to you and show you that my teaching follows the steps of the Apostles. For I have some writings of twenty years ago, others of eighteen, others of fifteen, others of twelve, some against the Arians and Eunomians, others against the Jews and Greeks, others against the Magi in Persia, others about universal Providence, and others about theology and the divine incarnation ...' (III 64, lines 7-18 Azéma)

There is a partial parallel in *Ep.* 82, to Eusebius of Ancyra, written some months before, probably in December 448.[9] There Theodoret produces another,

[6] I cite from the abridged introduction in Theodoret, *Kirchengeschichte*, ed. Léon Parmentier, 2nd edn. Felix Scheidweiler, GCS 44 (19) (Berlin, 1954), where the discussion in on xxv-xxvi.

[7] G.F. Chesnut, The Date (1981), 245-7.

[8] Théodoret de Cyr, *Correspondance*, ed. Yvan Azéma, SC 40, 98, 111, 429, 4 vols. (Paris, 1955-98), III 56, note 1.

[9] Y. Azéma, II 198, note 3 (on pp. 198-99).

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overlapping list (Azéma II 202, lines 7-20) of 'my old writings, those written before the Council of Ephesus and those again written after it, twelve years ago'.

Despite the nine or ten months that separate the two letters, Theodoret presumably has roughly the same period in mind when he speaks in both cases of twelve years. And the 'eighteen years ago' of *Ep.* 113 presumably equates, more or less, with the reference to Ephesus in 82. What do these periods indicate? Clearly, they are not chosen at random. Theodoret must be trying to convince the Pope that his beliefs were orthodox before the dispute with Cyril over Diodore and Theodore, before his reconciliation with Antioch and Alexandria, before Ephesus, and even before the beginning of the Nestorian controversy. And that is, of course, precisely the point at issue – the orthodoxy of his *past* beliefs.

On any reckoning, the *Hist. eccl.* must postdate 27 January 438, since it describes in highly charged terms the arrival of the relics of John Chrysostom in Constantinople (V 38.5 and 39.10).[10] And on any sober reckoning, it must postdate 444, since it refers clearly and repeatedly to the *Historia religiosa*, which must belong to that year.[11] Thus its omission from the catalogue in *Ep.* 113 is just what we would expect.

One other seductive argument demands attention. Güldenpenning[12] thought he could establish as the *terminus ante quem*, not the death of Theodosius, but that of his younger sister Marina, on 3 August 449.[13] The point is that in his encomium on Theodosius Theodoret records the fact that the emperor 'has his *sisters* as partners in hymnody' (V 36.4), but after the death of Marina only one sister, Pulcheria, was left.

This is not, like *Ep.* 113, a red herring, but neither is it conclusive. Brian Croke commented that the reference might be 'to the reign of Theodosius in general rather than to any particular point during it',[14] and Martin notes that the verb might be 'un présent duratif'.[15] And there may be a little more to it than that. A parallel passage of Socrates here trumps Theodoret by observing that the emperor 'made the palace no different from a monastery. For he would rise early with his sisters and offer antiphonal hymns to the divine' (*Hist. eccl.* VII 22.5). But Theodoret must have been writing during the period of Chrysaphius' ascendancy and Pulcheria's withdrawal, or, rather, during a period

[10] See A. Martin, 32-3.

[11] See A. Martin, 35 with note 4.

[12] Albert Güldenpenning, *Die Kirchengeschichte des Theodoret von Kyrrhos: Eine Untersuchung ihrer Quellen* (Halle, 1889), 22-3. His argument is endorsed by G.F. Chesnut, The Date (1981), 249.

[13] *PLRE* II 723 ('Marina 1').

[14] Brian Croke, Dating Theodoret's Church History and Commentary on the Psalms, *Byz* 54 (1984), 59-74, at 62-3.

[15] Martin, 32.

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in which he, in far-off Syria, was hearing disquieting rumours of dissent in the imperial household. He might then have had reason even after Marina's death to avoid undue precision about the number of sisters he was including as well as the locale of their hymnody.

So we are after all left with a window framed by the date of the *Historia religiosa* on one side and the death of Theodosius on the other – *termini* recognized by Garnier more than three-centuries worth of scholarly discussion ago.[16]

Can we close that window a little? In the end a decision must rest on our reading of the tone and drift of Theodoret's work. Theology must here determine chronology, not the other way round.

I will rehearse a little of the evidence. It seems to me, in the first place, that there is a sense of crisis. The conflict between good and evil, orthodoxy and heresy is notoriously sharpened throughout the *Hist. eccl.* And that conflict is for Theodoret not *just* a matter of history – nothing for him ever is. Early in Book V, after a discussion of Arians at Antioch, he introduces Apollinaris. 'From this root', he adds, 'there sprang up in the churches the one nature of the flesh and Godhead and applying the Passion to the Godhead of the Only-begotten and all the other things that have generated strife for people and priests. But that happened later' (V 3.8). That is very much the take of the *Eranistes* of 447 or 448, the structure and even the title of which derive from the assumption that the errors of Theodoret's 'Monophysite' enemies are but a warmed-up version of Arian and Apollinarian heresy.

There is, secondly, a note of warning. The whole structure of the work highlights the way in which the welfare of emperor and empire depends on the piety of the ruler. Book I covers the reign of Constantine, the very model of a devout and orthodox emperor, and the last words of that book are a quotation of 1*Sam.* 2:30, 'Those who glorify me I will glorify, and those who despise me I will despise.' Subsequent books are littered with salutary warnings. There is, for example, the awful fate of Valens, 'at first adorned with the apostolic doctrines' but suffering from a fatal 'weakness of soul' (IV 12.1 and 2), who at the end of Book IV at Adrianople 'paid even in the present life the penalty of his sins' (IV 36.2).

Central to the theological vision of Theodoret and the tradition from which he came was the picture of a God active in history throughout the ages, training and preparing a people through instruction and admonition, rewards and punishments. That drama had been played out in biblical history and in the history of the 105 years he claims to record in his *Historia ecclesiastica* (V 40.3). And it was just as surely being played out in the great events unfolding before his eyes as he wrote.

[16] Garnier, 279a and b. He in fact thought that within that window he could fix the time quite precisely thanks to Theodoret's reference to the thirty years of persecution in Persia that followed the martyrdom of Abdas in 420 (V.39.5).

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The work ends with the death of Theodore of Mopsuestia in 428, 'teacher of the whole Church and champion against all the ranks of heretics' (V 40.1). Church history of course became unwriteable at that point since 428 was also the year of the accession of Nestorius to the throne of Constantinople. But there is more to it than that. The *Hist. eccl.* ends, as every reader would know, at a time of looming crisis, and the great struggle that was then about to begin was still being played out.

Finally, just as the contemporary crisis mirrors and continues those of the past, so actors on the contemporary stage have pre-set roles to act out. Bishops clearly wear white mitres or black ones. The orthodox must act with bold resolution – the resolution Ambrose had to show, for example, in confronting even the pious Theodosius I over Thessalonica (V 18). Παρρησία is, as Parmentier's *index verborum* claims, a 'Lieblingswort des Theodoret' – it in fact occurs thirty-six times in the *Hist. eccl.*[17]

The elder Theodosius is not the only instance of a good emperor falling into error. Even Constantine was deceived. He too readily believes black-mitred bishops (I 28.2), who exploit his φιλανθρωπία (I 20.11). The last word on Constantine, at the end of Book I, is an *apologia*.

'No one should be surprised if he exiled such great men because he was deceived. For he believed high priests who concealed their wickedness but were prominent in other ways. And those who are learned in the things of God know that even the divine David – a man so gentle and so great a prophet – was deceived. ... And I say this not to accuse the prophet, but to present an apology for this king and to show the weakness of human nature and to teach that one must not believe the accusers alone, however notable they may be, but rather keep one ear for the accused.' (I 33.1, 3)

Theodoret had all too much experience of the exile of the innocent – as he would see it – from Nestorius to his own precarious position after the Latrocinium. But it is more than tempting to think that this heartfelt plea, coming as it does at a key and load-bearing point in the architecture of the work, is meant to have an existential relevance.

At the other end of the work, near the end of Book V, there is a quick flash forward to the pious Theodosius, ὁ νῦν βασιλεύων, who 'continually plucks the fruits of the good seeds' of piety (V 37.3), as instanced by miraculous victories against Huns and Persians (V 37.4-9). 'Thus does the Great King of all care for this most pious king. For the latter confesses his servitude and offers fitting service to his Lord' (V 37.10). The 'for' of that sentence (καὶ γὰρ δή) is a threat as well as a promise.

Garnier worked out an elaborate theory according to which Theodoret was telling two stories at once, one open and one veiled. The Arians correspond to

[17] According to the TLG. *Parrhesia* can, however, be used for evil purposes as well, as by Eusebius of Nicomedia at I.21.1.

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'defenders of the hypostatic union'; Eusebius of Nicomedia, to Cyril; Athanasius and John Chrysostom, to Nestorius.[18] Theodoret would surely think that the resonance between the past he was recording and the present he was living transcended encryption.

Where within that six-year window should we, then, place the *Historia ecclesiastica*? Garnier's initial judgement remains valid: 'No one has so far settled when it was written.' But I would like to enter a plea for not rejecting what is in essence though not in argument Parmentier's view and placing it at the end of that period – say between Theodoret's deposition at the Latrocinium and the fateful fall of Theodosius from his horse.

If the *Hist. eccl.* is a work of impassioned propaganda, we can, I think, presume that it quickly found its way into the hands of influential friends and contacts like the patrician Anatolius.[19] One can only wonder what he made of it as he stood by the bedside of the dying emperor.

[18] Garnier, in Schulze, V 282a-b. Schulze himself says indignantly at this point, *Somnia haec dixeris potius quam coniecturas viro erudito dignas* (V 282, note 18).

[19] *PLRE* II 84-6 ('Flavius Anatolius 10').

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Theodoret and the Aesthetics of Ascetics

Brent A. SMITH, Claremont, California

Sometime around 444[1] Theodoret, bishop of Cyrrhus, began a small preservation project that recorded select anecdotes of some of the local eccentrics scattered throughout his own rural diocese and the neighboring hinterland. At the time the bishop took up his pen and parchment, Symeon, the undisputed star of the *Historia religiosa*, was at the height, so-to-speak, of his pneumatic popularity, having already weathered nearly two decades perched atop his pillar. The stylite embodied all the wonder and spectacle that was considered synonymous with Syrian asceticism, especially in its anchoritic manifestation. With their emphasis on public performances, the Syrian practitioners created visual exhibitions that compelled the viewer to submit aesthetic judgments in the same way a trip to the local museum of fine arts might. It was this conspicuous nature of Syrian behaviors that earned them an international reputation – albeit often of the ignominious sort.

The aesthetic quality of praxis did not escape the contemporaries of the holy men and women of Syria. Apa Apollo, an Egyptian anchorite, provides us with his 'professional' opinion of some prominent Syrian practices. He exhorted his disciples to avoid the wearing of iron chains or long hair, stressing instead a visage wasted through rigorous fasting.[2] What the apa seems to take exception with is the aesthetic quality conveyed by his northern co-practitioners. An emaciated body would have been no less conspicuous than a chain-toting hippie, yet he considered the latter a facile attempt to gain notoriety instead of a legitimate bodily 'hexis' – those robust, embodied deportments that imprint dispositions (*i.e.*, 'a way of being'[3]) upon the practitioner.[4] Apa Apollo's assessment is not

[1] The date of authorship of the *Historia religiosa* is disputed. For a summary of the arguments, see Richard Price, *A History of the Monks of Syria*, translated with introduction and notes (Kalamazoo, 1985), xiii-xv. A further clue might lay in a veiled reference. Theodoret recounts that Symeon Stylite predicted the death of a personal enemy (*Hist. rel.* XXVI 19.14-16; Pierre Canivet and Alice Leroy-Molinghen, eds. and transl., *Théodoret de Cyr: Histoire des Moines de Syrie*, SC 257, Paris, 1979, 201). If he were alluding to Cyril of Alexandria, with whom he (Theodoret) had been embroiled in theological debate, this would put authorship sometime after the death of Cyril in 444.

[2] *Historia Monachorum in Aegypto*, VIII 59 (A.-J. Festugère, ed., *Historia Monachorum in Aegypto: édition critique du texte grec*, SH 34, Brussels, 1961, 70).

[3] Pierre Bourdieu, *Outline of a Theory of Practice*, transl. Richard Nice (Cambridge and New York, 1977), 72.

[4] Pierre Bourdieu technically defines 'hexis' as '... political mythology realized, embodied, turned into a permanent disposition, a durable way of standing, speaking, walking, and thereby

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surprising, given the fact that his own *hexis* was derivative of very different processes of inculcation, which reflect the collective perceptions and practices characteristic of agents sharing similar social conditions (identified as the 'habitus' by the sociologist Pierre Bourdieu).[5] Criticism of the Syrian ascetics however was not limited to outside sources. Not all Syrian insiders were prepared to rally around the indulgences of the local heroes.

The *Historia religiosa*, the very document claiming to preserve the eccentrics for posterity,[6] is not a blanket admission of support for some rather bizarre local practices. It is a subtle critique, an aesthetic assessment of the vibrant spectacle created by the regional performers. On more than one occasion Theodoret himself expressed discomfort with the ascetic regimen adopted by a number of the surrounding practitioners, attempting, often unsuccessfully, to exorcise their voluntary burdens.[7] Nothing, however, troubled him more than the somewhat 'unique' behavior of Symeon the Stylite's standing upon a column.[8] Static, or immobile, ascetic behaviors were a regular feature among the Syrian anchorites, but the bishop was noticeably perplexed by Symeon's addition of the pole.[9] In what surely must be regarded an *apologia*, Theodoret weakly surmises that he believes that the pillar is of divine inspiration, and politely asks Symeon's critics to be silent. Yet his discomfort is evident in the fact he feels compelled to invoke parallels with some of the Hebrew prophets, rationalizing that bizarre behaviors often worked to provoke attention to the 'real' message.[10] He follows this with a few choice anecdotes of the pillar's evangelical success among 'barbarian' groups, confirming its power of attraction.[11]

In the succeeding section, Theodoret recounted a scene before the pillar. In what might be considered the Late Antique version of reality TV, the audience

of feeling and thinking.' See *The Logic of Practice*, transl. Richard Nice (Stanford, CA, 1990), 70.

[5] Pierre Bourdieu, *Outline of a Theory of Practice* (1977), 78-87.

[6] Theodoret, *Hist. rel.* prologue, 1-3; Pierre Canivet and Alice Leroy-Molinghen, eds. and transl., *Théodoret de Cyr: Histoire des Moines de Syrie*, SC 234 (Paris, 1977), 123-31.

[7] Notable examples of Theodoret's attempted interventions occur in his accounts of Jacob of Cyrrhestica (*Hist. rel.* XXI 6-11; SC 257, 79-89), Polychrinius (*Hist. rel.* XXIV 4; SC 257, 143-45), and Marana and Cyra (*Hist. rel.* XXIX 5; SC 257, 236-237).

[8] Although there is some history of a pillar cult in the region, it is 'unique' in the sense that Theodoret seems to have been unaware of their existence. See David Frankfurter, Stylites and Phallobates: Pillar Religions in Late Antique Syria: *VC* 44 (1990) 168-98.

[9] Other famous static ascetics were Baradatus, who confined himself for a time to a small wood crate (Theodoret, *Hist. rel.* XXVII 2; SC 257, 218-21); Thalelaeus, who suspended himself in an iron-maiden sort of device (*Hist. rel.* XXVIII 3; SC 257, 226-9); or Jacob of Cyrrhestica, one of the many stationary open-air anchorites (*Hist. rel.* XXI 4-5; SC 257, 74-9). See also the excellent short explication of the pillar by Robert Doran in his introduction to *The Lives of Simeon Stylites*, transl. and introduced by Robert Doran, Cistercian Studies 112 (Kalamazoo, 1992), 29-36, esp. 31.

[10] Theodoret, *Hist. rel.* XXVI 12 (SC 257, 184-91).

[11] *Ibid.* XXVI 13-21 (SC 257, 190-205).

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looked on as Symeon performed one of his spates of ritualized bowing. He notes that some in the crowd counted along, and that on one occasion a companion gave up after one thousand two hundred and forty-four repetitions.[12] Behaviors such as these were effective performances of self-objectification, devised not only to attract spectators, but also to keep their gaze transfixed upon the subject – that self-portrait rendered through the brush strokes of the *ars ascetica*. It is here at the intersection between the site of contestation (*i.e.*, the pillar) and the audience that aesthetic judgments are made, and more importantly it is the locus where class differences emerge.

Pierre Bourdieu calls 'taste' a marker of class.[13] Aesthetic dispositions are dependent upon a social agent's particular 'class habitus',[14] which determines the manner in which they engage and appreciate the artistic endeavor. There are two types of distinction represented in the *Historia religiosa*: a popular aesthetic, and the author's elite or cultivated tastes. Not surprisingly, the former, characterized by its superficial exultation of function over form,[15] appears only sparingly. When Theodoret does portray the popular aesthetic, he does so uncomplimentarily, highlighting its simple motivations and demonstrating its lack of true appreciation for the ascetic enterprise. The bishop casts this rival distinction as overwhelmingly preoccupied with the potential benefits that might be gained through association with (or even possession of) ascetic practitioners. Any 'appreciation' shown by the popular aesthetic, therefore, is largely utilitarian in nature rather than a real admiration of the ascetic body for its own sake.[16]

In one chapter Theodoret describes the battle to possess the supposedly dead body of Jacob of Cyrrhestica between the occupants of town and countryside. Many lay claim to the corpse, quite literally, with some plucking out his hair for a souvenir. Heavily armed citizens from the town, however, removed the body to a nearby shrine for protection under a hail of arrows. Eventually Jacob recovered and baldly returned to his mountain.[17] Represented here by peasants, the popular aesthetic was obsessed with possessing the ascetic. Derivative of a preoccupation with subsistence and necessity, it looked to secure benefits that might alleviate an unenviable condition. This type of 'appreciation' is the antithesis of Theodoret's aesthetic ideal, which is predicated on constructing distance from the object.

[12] *Ibid.* XXVI 22 (SC 257, 204-7).

[13] Pierre Bourdieu, *Distinction: A Social Critique of the Judgement of Taste*, transl. Richard Nice (Cambrdige, MA., 1994 [2002]), 1.

[14] A refinement of the 'habitus', class designates the 'similar conditions of existence and conditionings' of a particular sub-grouping, *i.e.*, wealth, power, access to education. See P. Bourdieu, *The Logic of Practice* (1990), 59f.

[15] P. Bourdieu, *Distinction* (1994 [2002]), 5.

[16] Peter Brown noted a number of utilitarian functions subsumed by ascetics in his seminal essay, The Rise and Function of the Holy Man in Late Antiquity: *JRS* 61 (1971) 80-101.

[17] Theodoret, *Hist. rel.* XXI 9 (SC 257, 82-5).

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Pierre Canivet, perhaps sensing Theodoret's intent, once described the *Historia religiosa* as a portrait gallery.[18] It is an apt depiction. The majority of the subjects represented in its pages are two-dimensional renderings that rigidly fix the free-range ascetics into stylized representations.[19] Richard Price noted that with very few exceptions Theodoret's stories are repetitious and interchangeable;[20] leading him to conclude further that the collection was a 'feeble series of portraits'.[21] But the bishop is not interested in parading the viewer past masterpieces that capture the various stages and differences of the *ars ascetica*. The walls of Theodoret's museum are intentionally lined with pictures of the same ascetic archetype. Each one imitates the 'bodiless beings',[22] acting more angelic than human in their capacity to ignore the dictates of the body. In emphasizing the 'ambiguous' nature of the mature ascetic,[23] Theodoret successfully objectifies the subject as an *objet d'art* and promotes an aesthetic appreciation that reinforces distance and elevates form over function, or a disinterested contemplation of the ascetic body rather than utilitarian interests.

Theodoret's preference signifies what Bourdieu calls an 'aristocracy of culture'.[24] Unlike the popular aesthetic, the bishop draws upon his privileged background, or rather his elite class 'habitus', to identify legitimate works of art and construct a case for their admiration. The prologue to the *Historia religiosa* is replete with evidence of Theodoret's own academic capital.[25] Demonstrating all the marks of a classical education, he bemoans the fact that historians, poets and tragedians have preserved often disgraceful and appalling human behaviors, while the 'bodiless beings' are in danger of being lost to oblivion. Even worse, paint and marble has been expended on the entertainment industry with busts and panels devoted to past chariot racers, athletes and actors, but the 'living statues' have no honor in kind.[26] It is a masterful rhetorical stroke. In comparing the merits of the 'bodiless beings' to the subjects

[18] Pierre Canivet (SC 234), 41; 'Théodoret avait conçu son livre comme une collection de Vies ou une galerie de portraits, plutôt qu'à la manière d'une histoire du monachisme dont il aurait analysé les origines et suivi le développement, en dégageant les traits caractéristiques des différentes familles spirituelles.'

[19] Geoffry Harpham has offered a detailed analysis of hagiography's 'deadening' power in *The Ascetic Imperative in Culture and Criticism* (Chicago, 1987 [1993]), 14.

[20] R. Price, *A History of the Monks of Syria* (1985), xv.

[21] *Ibid.* xv.

[22] Theodoret emphasizes this characteristic, *asomaton physin*, of all his subjects in the prologue, 2 (SC 234, 128-9), and applies it later most dramatically to Symeon Stylite in a scene resembling the appearance of Jesus to Thomas (*John* 20:24-9) (*Hist. rel.* XXVI 23; SC 257, 206-9).

[23] On body ambiguity see Patricia Cox Miller's excellent article: Desert Asceticism and 'The Body from Nowhere': *JECS* 2 (1994) 137-53.

[24] P. Bourdieu, *Distinction* (1994 [2002]), 11.

[25] *Ibid.* 22; According to Bourdieu, '[a]cademic capital is the guaranteed product of the combined effects of cultural transmission by family and that of the school.'

[26] Theodoret, *Hist. rel.* prologue, 2-3 (SC 234, 126-31).

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of past art and literature, Theodoret accomplishes two things: he reinforces his own expertise to 'recognize' legitimate art, and simultaneously employs the aesthetic values of his class to create an objective admiration of the newly identified subjects.[27] Given his background we should not be surprised at the bishop's allusion to classical literary forms in the *Historia religiosa.*

This dependence, which is well described elsewhere,[28] has been identified as a 'cultural translation... [of] the spirituality of one culture in terms that make sense in another.'[29] This characterization, however, is contingent upon an exaggerated dichotomy between Greek and Syrian spiritual traditions, and the concomitant assumption that Theodoret somehow acts as a mediator between two different 'cultural' registrations.[30] It does not consider such borrowings as a signifier of class dispositions within a stratified society, but regards them as evidence from an outsider's vantage point – much like the critique of apa Apollo. But our author is no stranger to the local 'habitus', since he is its product. He simply reflects the dispositions of a privileged class, one marked by access to academic capital. In this light conformity to previous literary styles and motifs are not cultural interpolations, but the appropriate grid for framing tastes indicative of an elite class. If differences do exist, they are not trans-cultural but intra-cultural – between classes, not cultures. Theodoret is not therefore engaged in translation, but the annexation of the *ars ascetica* on behalf of his class.

Deploying the aesthetic tastes of the elite against area ascetics would have produced profound results. It effectively mitigated or subordinated the aesthetic distinctions of the lower classes. The agents from below could no longer approach the local eccentrics through the perceptual schemes of the practical ethos that they had acquired through their limited daily activities.[31] The masses now had to contend with formidable assessments of the elite, who possessed the status, power, education and leisure to render aesthetic judgments that potentially influenced everyone's perceptions. As a member of the upper classes Theodoret successfully advocated valuations of the local ascetic heroes predicated by an informed competence, discernible through its ability to engage in the identification of common stylistic elements.[32]

In the final chapter of the *Historia religiosa*, Theodoret reflects upon his enterprise, instructing other would-be ascetics to pick a favorite from the many

[27] 'Recognition' is a distinguishing characteristic between the classes. See P. Bourdieu, *Distinction* (1994 [2002]), 26.

[28] Pierre Canivet, *Le Monachisme Syrien: selon Théodoret de Cyr,* Théologie Historique 42 (Paris, 1977), 65-86.

[29] Susan Ashbrook Harvey, The Sense of a Stylite: Perspectives on Simeon the Elder: *VC* 42 (1988) 376-94, 379.

[30] *Ibid.* 378.

[31] P. Bourdieu, *Distinction* (1994 [2002]), 44.

[32] *Ibid.* 50.

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lives he has given. Fittingly, he employs an art metaphor, encouraging the imitator to look at the chosen model with the eye of a painter and to faithfully copy what he or she sees.[33] But as we know, all the portraits are essentially the same. The result will be reproductions that reflect a carefully crafted aesthetic preference based on the singular feature of the remote 'bodiless being'. The model is thoroughly elevated beyond everyday humanity so as to bracket the subject/object off from simple emotive reactions while reinforcing detached appreciation.[34] It is an elegant deterrent to competing tastes, leaving little room left at the canvas for the popular aesthetic, whose advocates probably couldn't afford paint supplies anyway.

[33] Theodoret, *Hist. rel.* XXX 7 (SC 254, 248-51).
[34] P. Bourdieu, *Distinction* (1994 [2002]), 54.

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How Authentic is the Antiochene Construction of Athanasius and His Theology in Nestorius and Theodoret?*

Andrew TEAL, Oxford

Wessel's recent study of Cyril's rhetoric in his conflicts with Nestorius urges that the Alexandrian's victory largely depended upon his successful self-identification with Athanasius and the projection of his enemy as the new Arius. She urges that Cyril builds upon Athanasius' panoramic approach to Scripture:

> Athanasius' interpretative method had been to imagine the broader intent and scope (σκοπός) of Christian faith as providing the context for correct interpretation ... Cyril ... thus understood it to mean that difficult words and phrases should be interpreted according to the truth of the Christian message that the creed of Nicaea preserved and ... not according to the literal words of the scriptural text.[1]

Recent scholarship has provided careful critical appreciations of Cyril,[2] this paper explores Athanasius of Alexandria's place in Nestorius and Theodoret, triangulating his significance: Athanasius is core to competing fifth-century Christologies, though the manner in which he is claimed is significantly different. The Nestorian *Heracleides*[3] and Theodoret's *Eranistes*[4] evidence divergent but authentic claims upon Athanasius and his theology.

Nestorius does not appear to cite Athanasius in the fragments collected by his opponents (or followers) in Loofs' critical edition of 1905.[5] Perhaps Nestorius did not refer to Athanasius at this point, or – more likely – his absence is because these fragments lack a contextual integrity: it was not in the interest of Nestorius' detractors to provide patristic *florilegia* in his defence. However, Athanasius appears in *Heracleides* in a manner that is quite central to the text

* I am grateful for the helpful critical questions and suggestions provided by Markus Vinzent of this article.

[1] Susan Wessel, *Cyril of Alexandria and the Nestorian Controversy: the making of a Saint and of a Heretic* (Oxford, 2004), 299.

[2] *E.g.*, Thomas G. Weinandy and Daniel A. Keating, *The Theology of St Cyril of Alexandria: A Critical Appreciation* (London, 2003).

[3] All references to *Heracleides* are Godfrey R. Driver and Leonard Hodgson, *The Bazaar of Heracleides* (Oxford, 1925).

[4] Gérard H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus. Eranistes. Critical Text and Prologomena* (Oxford, 1975).

[5] Friedrich Loofs, *Nestoriana: Die Fragmente des Nestorius. Gesammelt, Untersucht und Herausgegeben* (Halle, 1905).

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and the author's theological argument.[6] This centrality makes it most likely that Nestorius' Christology always claimed an Athanasian integrity – though exile may well have prompted Nestorius to connect his theological priorities more explicitly with Athanasius.

In *Heracleides*, Athanasius is a proto-Nestorius: both hold the same faith and share calumnious exile. Nestorius counters arguments that his Christology leaves ultimately only an inspired man, differentiates his language from that of Arians and other heretics, offering definitions of his Christological language to clarify his position.[7] *Heracleides* paints Cyril as unethical in the controversy, and the simplest way of showing that error is to cite the great Christological authority, Athanasius.

For Nestorius, the incarnation is real, Christ is truly human and divine: he challenges his readers to remember Athanasius, citing *Ad Epictetum 7*, concluding with this phrase which he will repeat:

> Human therefore is that which issued from Mary, according to the Divine Scriptures and truly it belongs to our Saviour.[8]

The author succinctly argues that his preferred title, Χριστοτόκος, is Athanasian. *Heracleides* identifies that Athanasius' Christology works by both natures being different and maintaining their aspects after the union in order that salvation may be won for the creature. *Heracleides* therefore provides arguments not only by a legitimate general reading of Athanasius' theology, but by citations and quotations that are absent from Cyril, and which he would find it very difficult to account for.

Terminologically, οὐσία means 'reality' in Athanasius,[9] 'that which is'.[10] In *Contra Gentes – De Incarnatione*[11] it may be translated 'essence'. This usage is compatible with both Cyril and Nestorius. Φύσις as 'nature' is, again, mostly a technical term in the *Contra Apollinarem*, used to emphasize the divine nature of the Son.[12] It stretches beyond οὐσία because it stresses the intimate qualities of something. Athanasius' usage is consonant with both Cyril and Nestorius. Ὑπόστασις is where Cyril and Nestorius disagree. Müller[13] observes that in relation to the Trinity, Athanasius uses ὑπόστασις in the sense of 'person'

[6] On Nestorius's authorship: Luise Abramowski, *Untersuchungen zum Liber Heraclides des Nestorius*, CSCO 242 (Louvain, 1963) argued that questions remain about work's integrity. Luigi I. Scipioni, *Recherche sulla christologian del Libro di Eraclido di Nestorio: La formatione teologica e il suo filosofico* (Freiburg, 1956), is more positive, as is Milton V. Anastos, Nestorius was Orthodox: *Dumbarton Oaks Papers* 16 (1962) 119-40.

[7] *Bazaar*, 42-45; 9-11; 13-28.

[8] *Bazaar*, 192; 193; 205; 227; 256; 261; 262; 333.

[9] *Epist. Afr.* 4, PG 26, 1036B.

[10] *Contra Gentes* 9, 27. See Guido Müller, *Lexicon Athanasianum* (Berlin, 1952), 1049-52.

[11] *Contra Gentes* 2, 35, 39, 46; *De Incarnatione* 18 and 20.

[12] Müller, *Lexicon*, 1553-9.

[13] Müller, *Lexicon*, 1509f.

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when writing to the Antiochenes[14] – there are three persons in this context – it is used *in the plural.* Nestorius takes this as its primary meaning, urging that Cyril has abandoned Athanasius' Christological argument at this point. However, in the *Contra Arianos* (especially book 3), and *De Decretis*[15] ὑπόστασις is used *in the singular* to emphasize the unity of Father and Son. In an anti-Arian context, it is interchangeable with οὐσία. Athanasius' dual usage fuels later Christological controversy: both feel back for him to undergird their argument, and both find corroborating evidence. Athanasius is useful to *both* miahypostatic *and* dyohypostatic Christologies, even if a differentiation is required between Athanasius' consistent *dyohypostatic* Christological use of ὑπόστασις, but a miahypostatic use in his theology of the relation of Father-Son.

Πρόσωπον in Athanasius represents the *presentation* of the person, denoting identity: the Son is the Father's πρόσωπον.[16] Its representational sense perhaps accounts for Cyril's suspicion of it when applied to the union. But Athanasius has influenced arguments and vocabulary on both sides.

Axiomatic to Nestorius' Christology is συνάφεια, two irreducible natures in harmonic communion, both in this single harmony are the subject of the incarnate Son. There are thus two background πρόσωπα but one Πρόσωπον, Jesus Christ. Cyril, however, will not allow the *humanity* of Jesus to have this role. Cyril looked to salvation to be something more than the restoration of the *image* of God in humanity.[17] Instead, Cyril's prioritising of ἕνωσις is well-known. But Cyril moved, even *before* this conflict, from Athanasius in his preferring to attribute participation in the divine *sacramentally*, with the Holy Spirit continually perfecting humanity.[18]

Athanasius' use of συνάφεια and ἕνωσις can again account for each being convinced that their term was an appropriate Christological description.

Athanasius' συνάφεια is applied to marriage,[19] the harmony and peace of the Church[20] and indicates intimate communion between Father and Son.[21] Athanasius asserts that there is no space, or distance allowed in the harmonic conjunction between Father and Son.[22] Athanasius' *sense* here echoes Cyril, but his *language* is that of Nestorius.

[14] *Tom. Ad Antioch.* 5 (PG 26, 801).

[15] 25-7 (PG 25, 461-5).

[16] *Contra Arianos* I 38 (PG 26, 92).

[17] *Doctrinal Questions and Answers* 4; Lionel R. Wickham, *Cyril of Alexandria: Select Letters* (Oxford, 1983), 196f.

[18] Frances M. Young, *Theotokos:* Mary and the Pattern of Fall and Redemption in the Theology of Cyril of Alexandria in: Thomas G. Weinandy and Daniel A. Keating, *The Theology of St Cyril* (2003), 55-74.

[19] *Contra Apollinarium* I (PG 26, 1097C11).

[20] *de Synodis* (PG 26, 720B4).

[21] *de Sententia Dionysii* (PG 25, 504D1; Opitz, 1936, 58).

[22] *de Synodis* 26:9 (PG 26, 733B4; Opitz, 1941, 253).

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Ἕνωσις in Athanasius is more directly a Christological term, but is, however, problematic because it appears predominantly in *Contra Arianos* IV,[23] now identified as Apollinarian.[24] That is not to say that Cyril was (necessarily) the new Apollinarius, he had moved on in a Trinitarian direction, but it accounts for Nestorius' concern, obsessive Christological precision, and conservatism.

Thus whilst Athanasius was not responsible for others' developments of his ideas, he was the figure to whom both reached and upon whom both had a legitimate claim.

Theodoret's *Eranistes* are Christological dialogues exploring the serious differences between Antiochene and Alexandrian priorities. The hero, Orthodoxos, is Theodoret's spokesman for the Antiochenes; Eranistes is an *apocrisiarius* of the Alexandrian tradition. The dialogues are followed by a syllogistic epilogue, outlining arguments establishing the immutability of the Logos.[25] Its significance is not merely as a commentary upon fifth-century arguments in which Theodoret was embroiled, but illustrative of a process in theology which constructs arguments upon cited patristic texts, appended to each dialogue as florilegia of authorities. Among these are thirty citations from Athanasius,[26] who is a defender of, and protagonist for, orthodoxy. Ettlinger notes that '*Eranistes* represents the high point in Theodoret's opposition to Cyril',[27] yet there is an unavoidable sense of Athanasius' *personal* authority in *Eranistes*. Athanasius is the brightest star of the Alexandrian Church (ὁ φανότατος τῆς Ἀλεξανδρέων ἐκκλησίας φωστήρ)[28] with the exasperated implication that the current Alexandrian horizon was particularly benighted.

Theodoret approves of Athanasius' paradigm of the ontological gulf between divine and created natures and integrates it in his own method, claiming continuity with Athanasius after the first dialogue, rhetorically challenging Eranistes to judge whether this noteworthy star is an admissible witness.[29] The passage from *Ad Epictetum*[30] prefigures the very wording of Orthodoxos in the dialogue:

[23] Müller, *Lexicon*, 498.

[24] PG 26, 516C3 (where it is equated with ἐνανθρώπησις); 517A12; B2; 520C5; 524B10; 15; C14 are from a context which Cyril believed to be Athanasian, but which in all probability is Apollinarian.

[25] PG 76, 319-36; G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 254-65.

[26] See G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 9. 11. 14f. 20f. for each citation of Athanasius in *Eranistes*. Theodoret draws from the *Epistula ad Epictetum*; *De Sententia Dionysii; Sermo maior de fide; Oratio II contra Arianos; Epistula ad Adelphium; De Incarnatione et Contra Arianos; De Incarnatione*. He regards all of these as authentic documents from Athanasius' hand, including the probably spurious *Sermo maior de fide* and *De incarnatione Verbi et contra Arianos*.

[27] G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 3.

[28] Preface to Florilegium 1, PG 76; G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 91, line 19.

[29] PG 76; G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 91, line 18.

[30] *Ad Epictetum* 8 (PG 26, 1061D-1064A).

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Orthodoxos[31]	*Athanasius*[32]
οὐκ εἰς σάρκα τραπείς,	οὕτως οὐχ ὅτι τραπεὶς εἰς σάρκα
ἀλλ' ἀνθρωπείαν φύσιν	ἀλλ' ὅτι σάρκα ὑπὲρ ἡμῶν
τελείαν λαβών	ἀνέλαβε

The change from Athanasius' 'flesh' to 'perfect (or complete) human nature' has characteristically Antiochene resonances, but the other characteristic theological preference (repugnance at divine passibility) is almost Athanasius *verbatim*.

Theodoret argues for the importance of the Logos not *becoming* flesh but *taking* (λαβών) flesh. Enfleshment (σάρκωσις) is not the mechanics of salvation, as if making a *via media* between the two natures of divinity and humanity. Rather, the divine initiative of the Logos' taking (λαβών) flesh is the great mystery. The florilegia demonstrate that Theodoret is nearer Athanasius' insistence on human and divine natures than he is to the exegetical practices of Diodore and Theodore.

Theodoret recognizes a significant and authentic Christological continuity with Athanasius. Changes to the divine nature are rejected by both Athanasius and Theodoret, yet there is dissonance over the place of *human* nature in divine mediation. Athanasius emphasises the divine power of the Logos sovereign in the body of Jesus. He does not postulate the *replacement* of any part of humanity;[33] it is the divine power that preserves the body. Athanasius' connection of essential and economic Christology understands salvation for the Christian to be a similar renewal of human nature by the divine Logos in Christ – Christian life is an extension of the incarnation. For Theodoret,

> salvation did not mean the transformation of man into God [θεοποίησις], nor the realization of a natural kinship between the human and the divine, but rather the union of man with God by participation, neither God nor man sacrificing their integrity, but man becoming the image of God by being made by him.[34]

'Participation' here correctly explicates Theodoret's stretching beyond simple co-existence or juxtaposition in his use of συνάφεια to describe Christ's two natures. Communion, κοινωνία, is interchangeable with συνάφεια in Theodoret's conceptuality. Quoting Athanasius, he maintains that this is of Athanasian origin:

> Life does not die but gives life to the dead: the Godhead of the Word is immutable and unvarying.[35]

[31] PG 220; G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 189, line 2-3.

[32] In *Eranistes* Florilegium 1 after the first dialogue, PG 76; G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 91, lines 24-30.

[33] Athanasius does not specify that there is a human soul of Christ: Thomas G. Weinandy, Athanasius: The Incarnation and the Soul of Christ: *SP* 41 (2006) 265-9.

[34] Frances M. Young, *From Nicaea to Chalcedon* (London, 1983), 275.

[35] Florilegium 28 Dialogue 3, citing Athanasius' *Sermo Maior de Fide* (Schwarz, *ACO* XXII 6-19, n. 62).

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The familiar abbreviation of Athanasius' ontological soteriology is αὐτὸς γὰρ ἐνηνθρώπησεν ἵνα ἡμεῖς θεοποιηθῶμεν ('he became man in order that we might become divine').[36] Consequently, this appears to fit better with Cyril's Christology.

However, Theodoret astutely chooses a less ambiguous *logion* to illustrate a dynamic subtlety in Athanasius' thought. *Florilegium* 25 of *Dialogue* III cites a theologically explicit and sophisticated couplet to describe the scheme of Athanasius' Christological soteriology:

Ἃ γὰρ τὸ ἀνθρώπινον ἔπαχε τοῦ λόγου
ἵνα ἡμεῖς τῆς τοῦ λόγου θεότητος μετασχεῖν δυνηθώμεν.[37]

(For the humanity of the Logos suffered so that we might be empowered to participate in the divinity of the Logos.)

The suffering humanity of the Logos is the mediator of humanity's being gracefully given the possibility of participating in the divine nature of the Logos.

There is, therefore, a common theological coherence between Athanasius and Theodoret, as well as differences of emphasis. Both understand θεοποίησις as something other than assumption into the *uncreated* divine nature. It is being united with, and remaining in, the Son. Christians participate in Christ's true divine nature, but do not possess it as he does. Christians participate in Christ's divinity because of a shared human nature. Participation thus depends upon distinctions remaining within the union.

Theodoret's claims upon Athanasius, evidenced by citations in his *Florilegia*, establish that Theodoret's Christology is a trajectory with its roots in Athanasius' own concerns. Athanasius' emphasis on a basic ontological incompatibility between created and uncreated being gives dynamism to Theodoret's concern to maintain the two natures distinctly. Like Cyril against Nestorius, Theodoret claims identification with Athanasius, not merely as a rhetorical strategy but substantially.

This examination has exposed theological continuities between both Antiochenes and Athanasius. Cyril asserts continuity with his predecessor, drawing parallels and allusions with a style intended to reinforce familiarity and continuity, whereas Nestorius and Theodoret quote and cite Athanasius to demonstrate their claims of Christological authenticity. Clearly, to claim Athanasius successfully would be a political achievement. Though this should never be underestimated in the ecclesiastical politics of the period, Athanasius really does register the Antiochene theological concerns which correspond to their emphasis of τὸ μεθοδικόν and τὸ ἱστορικόν – the grammatical and the whole spectrum of appropriate enquiries into the narrative dynamic applied to

[36] *De Incarnatione* I:54.

[37] PG 292; G.H. Ettlinger *Theodoret of Cyrus* (1975), 235, lines 10-11 = *Ep. ad Epictetum* 6 (PG 26, 1060C).

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Christology. As Wessel observed of Athanasius with regard to Cyril, he follows the shape or σχῆμα of doctrine through the narrative of Scripture. His is a Christology which, as Young observes of Antiochene exegetical priorities, had a breadth because it 'cared more about the narrative logic of the whole biblical text than about historicity or literalism.'[38]

[38] Frances M. Young, The Fourth Century Reaction against Allegory: *SP* 30 (1997) 120-25, 125.

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Deux fragments inédits de l'*In Isaiam* de Cyrille d'Alexandrie

Dimitrios ZAGANAS, Paris

Auteur à la fois infatigable et prolixe, Cyrille d'Alexandrie (c. 378-444) laissa une œuvre exégétique monumentale (sept volumes dans la Patrologie de Migne) qui date d'avant le déclenchement de la crise nestorienne en 429. Parmi ses écrits, le *Commentaire sur Isaïe* (CPG 5203) se distingue tant par l'ampleur que par la qualité de son interprétation. Malgré son importance pour l'histoire de l'exégèse, ce commentaire n'a pas fait jusqu'à ce jour l'objet d'une édition critique. On est ainsi encore obligé de se référer à l'édition *princeps* de Jean Aubert en 1638 qui a été reprise par J.-P. Migne dans sa Patrologie (PG 70).

Souhaitant probablement achever au plus vite son grand projet, l'éditeur de Cyrille s'est appuyé uniquement sur deux manuscrits: le *Parisinus gr.* 836 (Xe s.) pour les deux premiers livres de l'*In Isaiam*, et le *Vaticanus gr.* 590 (XVIe s.) pour le prologue et pour les trois derniers livres du commentaire. Malgré son ancienneté, le manuscrit de Paris, mutilé au début, ne comportait que l'explication cyrillienne des vingt-quatre premiers chapitres d'Isaïe. C'est pourquoi Aubert a cherché à compléter le texte par le manuscrit du Vatican qui est en fait un apographe du *Conventi Soppressi* 200 (XIVe s.) de la Laurentienne. Le résultat n'a pourtant pas été très satisfaisant, car la confrontation du texte grec avec la traduction latine a relevé un bon nombre de lacunes. En effet, Aubert a repris la version latine de l'*In Isaiam* faite par l'anglais Laurent Hunfred. Cette traduction, publiée à Bâle en 1563, fut élaborée à partir d'un autre manuscrit qui est conservé à Oxford, le *Laudianus gr.* 85 (XVIe s.) de la Bodléienne.[1] Les nombreuses divergences entre les deux versions (grecque et latine) ont révélé non seulement que chacun de deux manuscrits utilisés par Aubert était lacunaire mais aussi que son propre travail avait des défauts. Loin de faire œuvre critique, l'éditeur de Cyrille n'a pas collationné les deux manuscrits de base qui comportaient également les deux premiers livres de l'*In Isaiam* (chap. 1-24). Grâce à la confrontation de son texte grec et de la traduction latine, alors qu'il aurait pu amender son texte et surtout combler d'autres lacunes, Aubert n'a comblé *in*

[1] *Diui Cyrilli ... Commentariorum in Hesaiam prophetam libri quinque nunc primum in latinam linguam ex græca conuersi*, Laurentio Hunfredo interprete, Per Frobenium et Episcopium, Basiliæ 1563. Achevée en 1562, cette traduction a été dédiée à la reine Elisabeth I d'Angleterre.

Studia Patristica XLVIII, 41-46.
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extremis que deux d'entre elles, en reprenant le texte qu'il trouvait dans le *Vat. gr.* 590.[2] Repris par Migne, le texte d'Aubert du *Commentaire sur Isaïe* comporte ainsi un grand nombre de lacunes mais aussi de fautes de lecture et de coquilles. Dans le cadre de cette communication, nous essayerons de remédier à deux lacunes particulièrement importantes pour l'intégrité du commentaire cyrillien, que l'examen d'un autre manuscrit nous a récemment fait découvrir.

Si l'on regarde la liste des manuscrits de l'*In Isaiam*, on peut aisément constater que le témoin le plus ancien, après le manuscrit de Paris, est le *Laurentianus gr.* V 6 datant du XI[e] siècle, qui contient le commentaire de Cyrille sur Isaïe des chapitres 17 à 66.[3] Ayant servi de modèle pour le *Vaticanus gr.* 591 (XVI[e] s.) et le *Monacensis gr.* 15 (1550 ca.), ce manuscrit comporte deux extraits qui, à notre connaissance, ne se rencontrent nulle part ailleurs, ni dans les éditions grecques ni dans la traduction latine.[4] Le fait mérite notre attention, car ceux-ci pourraient permettre d'améliorer considérablement le texte de l'*In Isaiam* sur deux points qui touchent à l'explication cyrillienne de la vision d'Égypte (*Is.* 19:1.18). Nous allons d'abord reproduire les deux fragments, puis faire des remarques plus précises:

Laurentianus V 6, f. 12[r]: Τόμος Δ΄: Ὅρασις Αἰγύπτου

Ἐπιστῆσαι[5] δεῖ τὸν νοῦν τῷ ῥητῷ· οὐ γὰρ ὡς κατὰ τῆς Ἰουδαίας, ἢ κατὰ Ἱερουσαλήμ, ἢ κατὰ Βαβυλῶνος, ἢ Δαμασκοῦ, ἢ κατὰ τῆς Μωαβίτιδος, οὕτως δὴ κἀνταῦθα τὴν ὅρασιν ἐξεφώνησεν ὁ προφήτης, ἀλλ'*ὅρασις Αἰγύπτου*, ἢ ὡς αὐτῆς <τῆς>[6] Αἰγύπτου μελλούσης ὁρᾶν τὸν θεὸν ἐν σώματι, ἢ ὡς αὐτοῦ τοῦ προφήτου τεθεαμένου τὴν ὅρασιν τῶν γενησομένων διορατικώτερον καὶ γυμνότερον. Πρόῤῥησις, οἷα τοὺς Αἰγυπτίους ὁ Κύριος βρέφος πρὸς αὐτοὺς καταβεβηκὼς εὐηργέτησεν· ὅπως τε αὐτῶν πᾶν γένος τῆς ἀπάτης ἐξηφάνισεν, καὶ τοὺς σοφοὺς τοὺς παρ'αὐτοῖς νομιζομένους ἤσχυνε, καὶ φανερὰν αὐτοῖς τὴν βουλὴν τὴν οἰκείαν κατέστησεν.[7]

Ἰδοὺ Κύριος κάθηται ἐπὶ νεφέλης κούφης ...

[2] Dans l'appendice du commentaire, Aubert plaça deux fragments tirés du *Vat. gr.* 590 que Migne a incorporé dans le texte (*In Is.* II 2, PG 70, 357B[4]-C[5] ; *ibid.* II 4, PG 70, 451B[4-5]). L'ajout de deux scholies tirées du *Vat. gr.* 591 (f. 354[r-v]: *In Is.* V 1, PG 70, 1175-1178 n. 2) dans ce même appendice, Aubert le doit à Léo Allatius qui y renvoyait explicitement dans une note qui figure au f. 435[v] du *Vat. gr.* 590.

[3] Ce manuscrit semble être assorti de la chaîne de Nicolas Muzalon sur les seize premiers chapitres d'Isaïe (*Laurentianus plut.* V 8 datant du XII[e] s.) qui comporte un grand nombre d'extraits de l'*In Isaiam* de Cyrille.

[4] Nous avons pu examiner de près les mss. de Paris, du Vatican et de Florence, et les microfilms des *Monacensis gr.* 15 et *Scorialensis gr.* 552 (Ω.III.19). Pour le reste de la tradition manuscrite, nous nous sommes contentés des informations plus ou moins détaillées des catalogues respectifs.

[5] ἐπιστῆσαι *correxi ex Eusebio*: ἐπιστῆναι L.

[6] *addidi.*

[7] *In Is.* (19:1a) II 4, PG 449D[7].

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Laurentianus V 6, f. 18^{v} (après le lemme d'*Is.* 19:18):

Διὰ τῶνδε τῶν ῥημάτων ἐμφαίνει τὴν συμφωνίαν τε καὶ ὁμοφροσύνην τῆς ἐκκλησίας· ἐκ πέντε μὲν συγκειμένην συστημάτων τε καὶ ταγμάτων, εἰς 'ἕνα δὲ θεόν, μίαν πίστιν, ἓν βάπτισμα' (*Eph.* 4:5) συνηγμένην, καὶ μίαν πόλιν ἀποτετελεσμένην· περὶ ἧς φησιν ὅτι *πόλις 'Ασεδὲκ κληθήσεται ἡ μία πόλις*, ὅ ἐστι πόλις 'εἰρήνης τῆς πάντα νοῦν ὑπερεχούσης' (*Phil.* 4:7), κατὰ τὸν θεῖον ἀπόστολον. Ἐνοποιὸς γὰρ ὁ Χριστός, καὶ πρὸς ἓν θέλημα συνάγων τὸ ἑαυτοῦ τε καὶ τοῦ Πατρὸς τοὺς αὐτῷ προσανέχοντας καὶ ἐν αὐτῷ ὁμνύοντας. 'Ἐπαινεθήσεται γὰρ πᾶς ὁ ὀμνύων ἐν αὐτῷ' (*Ps.* 62:12), ἀλλὰ μὴ τοῖς πατρῴοις θεοῖς οὓς ἐνόμιζον. Πόλεσι δὲ τοὺς τῆς ἐκκλησίας ἀπεικάζει τροφίμους, εἰκότως· ὧν ἡ τῶν πέντε μία, βασιλεῖς τε καὶ ἄρχοντες· ἰδίοις νόμοις ὡς τείχεσι περιειλημμένη· πόλεως γὰρ ἴδιον τὸ εὐνομεῖσθαι. Καὶ ὁ Δαυίδ· 'καθεῖλες τὸν φραγμὸν αὐτῆς καὶ τρυγῶσιν αὐτὴν πάντες οἱ παραπορευόμενοι τὴν ὁδόν' (*Ps.* 79:13), φραγμὸν τὸν νόμον καλῶν· οὗπερ ὑπὸ Ἰουδαίων παραβαθέντος, ἡ πόλις θεοῦ τοῦ δεδωκότος τὸν νόμον αὐτοῖς μηνίσαντος. Ἑτέρα πόλις, τὸ ἱερατικὸν ἅπαν πλήρωμα, ἰδίοις καὶ αὐτὸ νόμοις τετειχισμένον. Ἐπὶ ταύτῃ καὶ τὸ μοναχικόν, ὡς ἀνακεχωρημένον πάντῃ τῶν ἐγκοσμίων καὶ τῶν γεηρῶν ὑψηλότερον. Καὶ τετάρτη, τῶν ἐν πράγμασι πολιτευομένων. Καὶ πέμπτον, τὸ στρατιωτικόν. Πρὸς μίαν πόλιν τὴν ἐκεῖθεν κατάστασιν ἁπάντων ἐπαγομένων, τὴν εἰρηναίαν καὶ ἀστασίαστον. Εἰ καὶ κατὰ τὸν Σύμμαχον, 'πόλις δικαιοσύνης' τὸ 'Ασεδὲκ ἑρμηνεύεται· σῴζει γὰρ κἂν τούτῳ τὸ ῥητὸν τὴν διάνοιαν. Ἐκεῖνος γάρ ἐστι ὁ τῆς δικαιοσύνης ἥλιος, ὁ λέγων· 'τοῖς δὲ φοβουμένοις με ἀνατελεῖ δικαιοσύνη· καὶ ἴασιν ἐν ταῖς πτέρυξιν αὐτοῦ' (*Mal.* 3:20).[8]

Καταθαυμάσειε δ'ἄν τις καὶ σφόδρα εἰκότως ...

Ces fragments se trouvent également présents dans les deux apographes.[9] Si l'on regarde attentivement le commentaire cyrillien, on constate que tous les oracles contre les nations (*Is.* 13-23) sont munis d'une introduction plus ou moins développée.[10] Cyrille a d'ailleurs pour habitude de doter les différentes péricopes ou oracles prophétiques d'un exposé liminaire, en respectant les règles de la rhétorique. Or la vision d'Égypte constitue une anomalie dans ce schéma exégétique: en effet dans l'édition d'Aubert et par suite dans celle de Migne, le texte commence subitement par l'explication d'*Is.* 19:1 (Voici que le Seigneur siège sur un nuage léger...). De même, si l'on examine le commentaire de Cyrille à *Is.* 19:18 (Ce jour-là il y aura cinq villes en Égypte parlant la langue de Chanaan et prêtant serment au nom du Seigneur; la ville seule s'appellera Ville-Asédec),[11] on s'aperçoit que son explication mot après mot du verset n'en recouvre que les trois quarts et reste muette sur la partie finale qui évoque la

[8] *In Is.* (19:18) II 4, PG 70, 468C^{1}.

[9] *Vaticanus gr.* 591: ff. 18^{r} et 27^{v}-28^{r} ; *Monacensis gr.* 15: ff. 13^{r} et 19^{v}-20^{r}.

[10] PG 70, 345B-348B (Babylone); 396D-400A (Moabite); 420C-421B (Damas); 484A-D (vision du désert); 493C-497A (Idumée: «Καὶ τῆς προκειμένης δράσεως οἶμαι δὴ δεῖν προαφηγήσασθαι τὴν ὑπόθεσιν»); 501A-504A (vallée de Sion); 520C-521C (Tyr).

[11] PG 70, 468C-469B.

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Ville-Asédec. Quoi qu'il en soit, il paraît difficile de croire que ce passage échappa à l'attention de Cyrille qui s'efforce d'ordinaire dans ses commentaires linéaires de rendre compte du texte dans sa totalité (παντα χόθεν). Les extraits repérés et reproduits du *Laurentianus* V 6 viennent donc probablement combler ces deux lacunes, en corrigeant largement l'édition d'Aubert. Il est évidemment nécessaire de considérer les raisons de leur absence dans les autres manuscrits. Remarquons tout d'abord que la plupart d'entre eux sont des apographes du XVIe siècle. Or, les copistes n'ont pas soupçonné l'existence de lacune à de tels endroits au point de recourir à d'autres exemplaires. À moins bien sûr que leur modèle ne fut pas le *Laurentianus* V 6. D'autre part, pour ce qui est des témoins plus anciens, la forme très fragmentaire du texte transmis par le *Scorialensis gr.* 552 (XIIe s.) ne nous permet aucun rapprochement. Un autre cas, celui du *Laudianus* 85 d'Oxford, qui a par ailleurs servi de base à la traduction latine de Hunfred, permet en outre d'illustrer la fiabilité du *Laurentianus* V 6: en marge du commentaire sur *Is.* 19:5-10, le copiste du *Laudianus* reproduit en effet un passage qui ne se retrouve que dans le *Laurentianus* V 6.[12] Absent dans l'édition d'Aubert, ce passage ne se retrouve pas dans les autres manuscrits considérés. Cet exemple vise à montrer que l'explication du chapitre 19 d'Isaïe offre dans plusieurs manuscrits un texte corrompu, et surtout que le texte du manuscrit de Florence est un témoin fiable et précieux.

L'attribution à Cyrille de nos deux fragments demeure cependant problématique. Du point de vue du contenu, les deux fragments manifestent plus ou moins ouvertement l'influence eusébienne. L'introduction à la vision d'Égypte reproduit presque *ad litteram* le commentaire d'Eusèbe au même verset d'Isaïe.[13] Les termes sont si proches que l'on serait tenté d'accuser l'auteur de plagiat. Il n'en va pas exactement de même pour l'interprétation ecclésiologique d'*Is.* 19:18.[14] La ville seule appelée Ville-Asédec désigne pareillement l'Église qui est constituée de cinq ordres. Pour Eusèbe, les cinq ordres sont les évêques, les prêtres,

[12] Le copiste note avant de placer le supplément: «ἐν ἑτέρῳ ἀντιγράφῳ ἦν». Les folios de ce ms. ne sont pas numérotés. Hunfred a incorporé par la suite l'ajout marginal, ce qui fait que seule la version latine de l'*In Isaiam* nous donne le texte complet (PG 70, 459C[13]-D[3]).

[13] Eusèbe de Césarée, *Der Jesajakommentar* 73, J. Ziegler (ed.), Eusebius Werke IX (GCS 57), 124.4-14: «Προσήκει δὲ τὸν νοῦν ἐπιστῆσαι, ὅπως εἴρηται· *ὅρασις Αἰγύπτου.* Οὐ γὰρ ὡς ἐπὶ τῆς Βαβυλῶνος ἐλέγετο· *ὅρασις κατὰ Βαβυλῶνος*, οὐδ'ὡς ἐπὶ τῆς Ἰουδαίας καὶ Ἱερουσαλήμ· *ὅρασις, ἣν εἶδεν Ἡσαΐας υἱὸς Ἀμώς, ἣν εἶδε κατὰ τῆς Ἰουδαίας καὶ κατὰ Ἱερουσαλήμ*, οὐδ'ὡς ἐπὶ τῆς Δαμασκοῦ καὶ τῆς Μωαβίτιδος, οὕτως καὶ ἐπὶ τῆς Αἰγύπτου· οὐ γὰρ εἴρηται 'ὅρασις κατὰ τῆς Αἰγύπτου', ἀλλ'*ὅρασις Αἰγύπτου*, ἤτοι ὡς αὐτῆς Αἰγύπτου μελλούσης ὁρᾶν καὶ θεωρεῖν ὀφθαλμοῖς διορατικῶς τὰ θεσπιζόμενα· ἢ ὡς τοῦ προφήτου τὴν ὅρασιν τεθεαμένου τὴν τὰ κάλλιστα τοῖς Αἰγυπτίοις προαναφωνήσασαν. Τί γὰρ κάλλιον, τί δὲ μακαριώτερον ὑπάρχειν ἤμελλεν Αἰγυπτίοις τοῦ τὸν Κύριον τῆς αὐτοῦ παρουσίας καταξιοῦν αὐτοὺς καὶ τὴν αὐτοῦ γνῶσιν αὐτοῖς παρέξειν καὶ ποιήσειν, ὅσα ἄλλα ἐμφέρεται τοῖς Αἰγυπτίοις;». Cf. aussi l'influence d'Eusèbe sur Procope de Gaza (*Commentarii in Isaiam*, PG 87.2, col. 2144A-B).

[14] Eusèbe, *Jesajakommentar* 76, 133.1-26. Cf. Jérôme, *In Esaiam* V, CChr.SL 73, 198.17-26.

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les diacres, les fidèles et les catéchumènes. En revanche, pour notre exégète, il s'agit des princes, des ecclésiastiques, des moines, des laïcs et des militaires. Un autre point commun aux deux textes est que la traduction du nom «Asédec» («justice») se trouve accompagnée par la citation de *Mal.* 3:20. Si la parenté étroite avec Eusèbe paraît de prime abord inquiétante pour juger de l'authenticité de ces fragments, elle se transforme rapidement en argument pour l'attribution à Cyrille des deux fragments. En effet, à trois reprises, l'interprétation cyrillienne d'*Is.* 19 renvoie expressément à d'autres exégètes (τινὲς τῶν ἐξηγητῶν)[15] qui sont donc la source de Cyrille. Or l'une de ses sources est sans doute l'évêque de Césarée: dans deux de ces trois allusions aux exégètes précédents, Cyrille puise directement chez Eusèbe.[16] Plus loin aussi, il adopte explicitement l'interprétation eschatologique d'*Is.* 24:1-14 qu'Eusèbe avait proposée.[17] Éclectique dans sa méthode, notre interprète pourrait également se laisser influencer par le commentaire eusébien à propos du début de la vision d'Égypte et d'*Is.* 19:18. Un autre point de comparaison entre les deux exégètes est l'interprètation de la Ville-Asédec comme «ville de justice». À deux reprises, Eusèbe précise clairement qu'à la différence des Septante qui donnent «Ville-Asédec», c.-à-d. «ville de justice», Symmaque donne «ville de soleil». Cyrille, à son tour, rapporte l'interprétation de la Ville-Asédec comme «ville de justice» en l'attribuant faussement à Symmaque. Cela reflète son attitude à l'égard de la critique textuelle: peu intéressé par les variantes textuelles, Cyrille fournit sporadiquement des informations qui leur sont relatives, et qui sont visiblement de deuxième ou de troisième main, et parfois imprécises.

Les difficultés qui pourraient se présenter par rapport à l'authenticité de nos fragments sont, d'une part, la brièveté de l'introduction à la vision d'Égypte et, d'autre part, la place étonnante du deuxième fragment dans l'économie du discours. Section fort obscure d'Isaïe, les oracles contre les nations sont d'ordinaire munis d'une introduction assez longue (environ une colonne dans Migne) qui vise à éclairer le contexte historique, à exposer l'*hypothesis* et à avertir le lecteur de la complexité du discours. Anormalement courte pour une introduction cyrillienne, celle de la vision d'Égypte ne doit pas nous décourager par la minceur des renseignements qu'elle nous apporte. Cyrille avait déjà souligné le changement du discours prophétique vers l'Égypte en *Is.* 18:1 et anticipé la prophétie de la conversion des Égyptiens par l'explication spirituelle d'*Is.* 18:7.[18] Quant au commentaire d'ordre spirituel d'*Is.* 19:18, il est curieusement placé juste après le lemme, en guise d'introduction, tandis qu'il traite plutôt de la dernière phrase du verset (*Is.* 19:18b). Si l'on voulait rétablir l'ordre, il conviendrait

[15] *In Is.* II 4, PG 70, 452B (*Is.* 19:1); 468A-B (19:16-17); 472A (19:19).

[16] PG 70, 468A-B (19:16-17), cf. Eusèbe, *Jesajakommentar* 76, 132.16-22; 472A (19:19), cf. Eusèbe, *ibid.* 77, 134.4-11.

[17] PG 70, 536A-B (*Is.* 24:1) à comparer avec Eusèbe, *Jesajakommentar* 84, 153.32ss.

[18] Voir respectivement, PG 70, 436D-440C et 448D-449D.

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plutôt de découper le texte prophétique, de mettre *Is.* 19:18b (La ville seule s'appellera Ville-Asédec) comme nouveau lemme et à sa suite notre fragment. Quoi qu'il en soit, aucune de ces difficultés ne semblent pas être de nature à mettre en doute l'origine cyrillienne de nos fragments.

Au delà de cette présentation, c'est l'exégèse ecclésiologique d'*Is.* 19:18 qui devra retenir notre attention. Cette analyse qui dépasse le cadre de la présente communication pourrait, nous semble-t-il, confirmer l'attribution du second passage à Cyrille. Ainsi, le fait que l'auteur insiste particulièrement sur l'union et l'unité (συμφωνία, ὁμοφροσύνη) de l'Église composée de cinq différents corps sociaux (princes, ecclésiastiques, moines, laïcs, militaires), et qu'il appelle de ses vœux la paix, renvoie vraisemblablement au contexte historico-politique de l'Alexandrie de la première moitié du Ve siècle. Or il est vrai que les premières années de l'épiscopat de Cyrille (412-7) sont marquées par une grande agitation en Égypte, depuis son élection au siège d'Alexandrie et la persécution des novatiens jusqu'au meurtre d'Hypatie et les conflits avec le préfet Oreste. La distinction ferme entre deux autorités différentes, par ex. entre la royauté et le sacerdoce, qui apparaissent dans l'exégèse comme deux villes fortifiées par leurs propres lois, pourrait faire allusion aux relations conflictuelles entre l'évêque d'Alexandrie et le préfet Augustal. Quoi qu'il en soit, le fait que les cinq corps de la société tendent vers un but unique qui est l'unité et la coexistence pacifique et sans dissension (εἰρηναία καὶ ἀστασίαστος), manifeste une volonté de paix. L'invitation à la paix est par ailleurs attestée dans la *Lettre Festale* de 418 qui a justement pour fil directeur un passage d'*Isaïe* (27:5: «Faisons la paix avec lui, faisons la paix nous qui venons»).[19] Ce dernier rapprochement nous aide également à remonter à la période de la composition de l'*In Isaiam* de Cyrille qu'il faudrait ainsi situer autour de la fin des années 410.

[19] Cyrille d'Alexandrie, *Lettre Festale VI*, SC 372, 331-99.

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New Birth through the Second Adam: The Holy Spirit and the Miraculous Conception in Cyril of Alexandria

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The Holy Spirit's operation in relation to the incarnate Word emerged as a matter of concern for Cyril of Alexandria during his conflict with Nestorius. Cyril understood Nestorius to suggest that Jesus required the Spirit's intervention at numerous points in his life, a suggestion that evinced to Cyril both an inordinate separation of the divine and human natures of Christ and a heretical separation of the Spirit from the Son.[1] One of the key events to which Nestorius mentions as being an example of Jesus requiring the Spirit is his virginal conception.[2] In this paper I shall examine Cyril's anti-Nestorian interpretation of the Spirit's role in Christ's conception as formulated in *In Lucam* (post-428) and *Quod Unus sit Christus* (*c.* 437). In both these texts Cyril proffers a soteriological reading of the miraculous conception intended to account for the Spirit's operation at this event in a manner that does not compromise the unity of Christ. While this reading is problematic in certain respects, it does contain significant soteriological and pneumatological insights that underline the centrality of the Holy Spirit in Cyril's thought.

In his anti-Nestorian compositions Cyril often discusses the circumstances of the Word's origination in the flesh, but in most of these discussions no reference is made to the activity of the Holy Spirit. Rather, as a means of emphasizing the union of the Word with his flesh and thus of the appositeness of referring to Mary as the mother of God, Cyril instead frequently characterizes the Word as the primary agent of his own incarnation who united flesh to himself in the virgin's womb and underwent a human birth.[3] The absence of references to the Holy Spirit in these contexts is likely for rhetorical effect, and

[1] *Adversus Nestorii Blasphemias* IV 3; Eduard Schwartz (ed.), *Acta Conciliorum Oecumenicorum* (Berlin, 1927), I 1.6, 81.11-83.40. Schwartz' work is hereafter cited as ACO. See also *Epistula* 17.10, 12.9 (*Ad Nestorium III*) (ACO I 1.1, 39.15-40.2, 41.17-20).

[2] *Adv. Nest.* IV 3 (ACO I 1.6, 81.1-10).

[3] For example, see *Ep.* 4.4 (*Ad Nest. II*) (ACO I 1.1, 27.12-4); *Ep.* 17.3, 11 (*Ad Nest. III*) (ACO I 1.1, 35.17-9, 40.7-8); *Ep.* 45.5 (*Ad Successum I*) (ACO I 1.6, 153.1-4); *Adv. Nest.* I 1 (ACO I 1.6, 18.2-4), I 10 (32.30-7), II 6 (42.15-9), III 3 (62.31-3; 63.28-30; 63.39-42), III 4 (71.22-5); *De Symbolo* 14 (ACO I 1.4, 54); *Homilia Paschalis* XVII 4 (SC 434, 288.65-8), XX 1 (PG 77, 841C); *Explanatio XII Capitulorum* 8 (ACO I 1.5, 18.2-4); *De Symbolo* 14 (ACO I 1.4, 54); *Scholia de Incarnatione Unigenti* 17 (PG 75, 1391B).

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Cyril perhaps justified this omission on the basis of his conviction, described in detail in the fourth book of *Adversus Nestorii Blasphemias*,[4] that the Spirit's operation in the life and work of Christ must be primarily ascribed to the Word given the fact that the Spirit is the Word's own and continued to be so when the Word became flesh. Whatever the case may be, when faced with an opponent who seemed to emphasize the Spirit's operation to the detriment of Christ's unity, Cyril clearly perceived that his overall argument against Nestorius' christology would be best served by an account of the Word's enfleshment that focused solely on the Word. Christological gains are made, however, at the cost of pneumatological ambiguity, and the question of why Christ became human through the intervention of the Spirit is left unanswered.

Cyril does, however, address this question in both *In Lucam* and *Quod Unus sit Christus*. His discussion of the conception in *In Lucam* occurs in the context of an exposition of Christ's birth, in which Cyril endeavours to provide a reading of this event that preserves Christ's unity. The focus in the first part of the exposition is on this unity,[5] and it is only after laying this christological foundation that Cyril attends to the purport of the miraculous conception. And as the following quotation illustrates, he suggests that Christ's conception by the Spirit should be read in terms of human salvation.

ἡ πάντων ἀπαρχὴ Χριστός, ὁ δεύτερος Ἀδὰμ κατὰ τὰς γραφὰς γεννητὸς γέγονε πνεύματος, ἵνα καὶ εἰς ἡμᾶς παραπέμπῃ τὴν χάριν. ἐμέλλομεν γὰρ καὶ ἡμεῖς οὐκ ἀνθρώπων ἔτι χρηματίζειν τέκνα, θεοῦ δὲ μᾶλλον τὴν διὰ τοῦ πνεύματος ἀναγέννησιν ἐν πρώτῳ λαχόντες Χριστῷ, ἵνα γένηται αὐτὸς πρωτεύων ἐν πᾶσιν, καθά φησιν ὁ πάνσοφος Παῦλος ('Christ, the firstfruits of all and the second Adam according to the scriptures, was born of the Spirit in order that he might convey grace to us. For we also were destined no longer to be called children of men, but rather [children] of God, having received rebirth through the Spirit in Christ first, "that in everything he might be pre-eminent", as the very wise Paul says').[6]

Before analysing these comments it is worthwhile first to examine a comparable, albeit more thorough, interpretation of Christ's conception in *Quod Unus sit Christus*.[7] Cyril commences his account of the conception by explaining that the Word became flesh in order to reconstitute the fallen human condition, and that his conception must be understood within the framework of this renewal and re-creation of the human race. As such, the Son was born of the Spirit, and was the first to be so born, in order to form a path of grace for us that we might be spiritually reborn through the Spirit, attain likeness (συμμορφίαν) with the one who is Son by nature so that we might be able to call God our Father, and

[4] See note 1.

[5] *In Lucam* 2.4 (PG 72, 484B-C).

[6] *In. Luc.* 2.5; Joseph Reuss (ed.), *Lukas-Kommentare aus der Griechischen Kirche* (Berlin, 1984), 225. All translations are my own.

[7] *Quod Unus sit Christus* 724C-725B (SC 97, 334.23-336.10) and 725B-E (SC 97, 336.13-338.34).

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so escape the corruption that is the consequence of the sin of Adam, our first father. The divine adoption of humankind was fundamental to Jesus' mission, as texts like *John* 1:12-3 indicate. And Cyril argues that the Word's conception by the Holy Spirit was integral to this divine adoption, for by it Christ became the firstfruits of the Spirit's operation, thereby opening the door for all humankind to experience it: Πέμψει γὰρ οὕτω καὶ εἰς ἡμᾶς τῆς υἱοθεσίας τὴν χάριν, καὶ γεννητοὶ Πνεύματος ἐσόμεθα καὶ ἡμεῖς ἅτε δὴ τῆς ἀνθρώπου φύσεως ἐν αὐτῷ καὶ πρώτῳ λαχούσης τοῦτο ('For thus will he send the grace of adoption also to us, and we too shall become born of the Spirit because in him [Christ] human nature attained this first').[8] The basis of Cyril's argument is his understanding of Christ as the second Adam, as indicated by his citation of 1*Corinthians* 15:47-9, a key passage in which Paul uses the Adam-Christ typology, at the conclusion of his account of the conception. Relating this passage to the conception, Cyril explains that the curse of sin and corruption inherited from the earthly Adam are overcome in Christ, who was born of the Spirit that we might remain holy and incorruptible like him, the inference appearing to be that our own spiritual rebirth, made possible because Christ was born of the Spirit, is inextricable from likeness with Christ who is both holy and incorruptible.

In both *In Lucam* and *Quod Unus sit Christus* Cyril detaches Christ's conception from his opponent's christological misreading by arguing that the primary signification of this event is soteriological. And for Cyril this signification is tied to the incarnate Word's role as the firstfruits of human redemption and the second Adam. The Adam-Christ typology occurs frequently in Cyril's writings, and is rooted in his penchant for portraying the salvific efficacy of the incarnation in terms of recapitulation and re-creation.[9] In terms of Christ's conception, this typology provides Cyril both with a hermeneutical key by which to unlock the meaning of a potentially problematic detail regarding the incarnation, and with a means of expounding upon the soteriological benefits associated with the Word made flesh. Although he was human like us, Christ was, unlike us, conceived by the power of the Holy Spirit. This occurred, not for the sake of the Word, but for the sake of humanity. In Christ's conception by the Spirit humanity's rebirth through the Spirit is both prefigured and enabled. In order for humans to be born of the Spirit and thus to become children of God rather than children of Adam, human nature first had to experience a pneumatological birth in the person of Jesus Christ, the divine Word made flesh. Christ was conceived by the Holy Spirit, in other words, that human nature might first undergo saving birth through the Spirit in him who alone did not require such a birth and who could thus accept it representatively for all

[8] *Quod Unus* 725B-C (SC 97, 336.16-9).

[9] See Robert L. Wilken, Exegesis and the History of Theology: Reflections on the Adam-Christ Typology in Cyril of Alexandria: *Church History* 35 (1966) 139-56.

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humanity. Those who become children of God by grace are conformed by the Spirit to attain likeness with him who was himself conceived by the Spirit as a human, but who is the incorruptible and holy Son of God by nature. Christ thus became the inaugurator of a new human race adopted and transformed through the Holy Spirit who conceived the incarnate Word.

Cyril's soteriological reading of Christ's conception bears striking resemblance to his interpretation of Christ's baptismal reception of the Holy Spirit, an interpretation proffered in a number of places in his corpus, most extensively in *In Joannem* and *In Lucam*.[10] Against the Arian argument that Christ's reception of the Spirit indicates his ontological inferiority, Cyril proposes that Christ received the Spirit as the second Adam and thereby paved the way for all humanity, which had lost the Spirit because of the sin of the first Adam and his progeny, to receive the Spirit anew. While Cyril's account of human renewal through Christ's baptismal reception of the Spirit is more detailed and thorough than his portrayal of the salvific efficacy of Christ's conception, his logic in both cases is roughly the same. In both accounts Cyril undermines his opponents' interpretations by arguing that the event in question must be read through the hermeneutical lens of Christ as the second Adam, and thus that both the conception and the baptism are to be situated within the narrative of human salvation.

Moreover, the soteriology that emerges from Cyril's interpretations of Christ's conception and baptism indicates the salvific centrality of the Holy Spirit in Cyril's thought. Although his primary purpose in these accounts is to defend christological ground, he does so by emphasizing the imperative role the Spirit plays in human salvation. In terms of Christ's conception, the focus is on Christ as the one in whom human nature is renewed and re-created, but such renewal and re-creation occurs through the intervention of the Holy Spirit in the second Adam and his spiritual offspring. The incarnate Word submitted to conception by the Spirit precisely because humanity required the saving transformation of the third person, and Christ alone was capable of receiving that which previously was impossible for humans because of sin. The incarnation of the Word thus creates the means whereby we become children of God, doing so by tracing a path whereby the integral soteriological activity of the Holy Spirit can be actualized in human nature. Whereas the Word tends to overshadow the Spirit's role when Cyril ascribes primary agency to the Word in his own incarnation, in his soteriological account of the conception Cyril portrays the Spirit as being absolutely essential in his own right for the redemption of humanity.

[10] *In Joannem* 1.32-3; P.E. Pusey (ed.), *Sancti patris nostri Cyrilli Archiepiscopi Alexandrini in d. Joannis Evangelium* (Oxford, 1872), I 182.20-185.22; *In Luc.* 3.21-3, 4.1-2 (62-5 Reuss). On this topic see Robert L. Wilken, *Judaism and the Early Christian Mind* (London, 1971), 127-41 and Daniel Keating, The Baptism of Jesus in Cyril of Alexandria: The Re-creation of the Human Race: *Pro Ecclesia* 8 (1999) 201-22.

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However, while this soteriological reading of Christ's conception presents a dynamic pneumo-centric soteriology at the same time as it provides a way of countering Nestorius' christology, a number of questions are raised by it. There is a marked resemblance between the salvific benefits associated with Christ's conception and those associated with his baptismal reception of the Spirit, such that one wonders whether and how the two events are related soteriologically. Cyril does not, however, express whether Christ's conception by the Spirit yields a distinct soteriological outcome than his reception of the Spirit, whether, that is, the conception adds something to human salvation that was not attained through his baptism and vice versa. In addition to this ambiguity, there remains some confusion about how the divine adoption of humanity corresponds to the Spirit's role in Christ's conception. Cyril seems content to understand the two to be analogous in that they both involve birth through the Spirit, but given the categorical difference between the physical conception of Christ by the Spirit and the spiritual rebirth of human beings, the exact relationship between the two requires more elucidation than Cyril provides. For Cyril's soteriological reading to be cogent, Christ's conception has to be effectively spiritualized. Finally, as occurs when he ascribes primary agency to the Word in his own incarnation, Cyril does not in his soteriological account delineate the precise role of the Spirit in terms of the person and work of the incarnate Word. He was clearly disinclined to discuss the operation of the Spirit in a manner that could be misread to suggest that Christ required the Spirit, but a more extensive examination of the Spirit's activity vis-à-vis Christ himself may have provided some clarity regarding the correlativity of Christ's conception and the adoption of humans as children of God, and would have complemented the pneumatological insights proffered.

These drawbacks should not, however, obscure the overall value of Cyril's soteriological interpretation of the conception, particularly in terms of its pneumatological insights. Cyril's account of the salvific efficacy of Christ's conception underlines the integral position of the Holy Spirit in his soteriological vision, a position that is beginning to be more fully appreciated in his thought.[11] In Cyril's hands the virginal conception of Christ becomes an event of soteriological significance that revolves around the critical saving operation of the Spirit by whom humans become children of God, transformed into the likeness of the incarnate Word. Such an emphasis on the Spirit's role in the drama of human salvation is indicative of the fundamental role the Holy Spirit plays in Cyril's salvific schema as formulated throughout his corpus as a whole, and is a facet of his thought that warrants further study.

[11] See Daniel A. Keating, *The Appropriation of the Divine Life in Cyril of Alexandria* (Oxford, 2004), 30; Brian E. Daley, The Fullness of the Saving God: Cyril of Alexandria on the Holy Spirit, in: Daniel A. Keating, *et al.* (eds.), *The Theology of Cyril of Alexandria: A Critical Appreciation* (Edinburgh, 2003), 113-48.

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Christology in Cyril and Leo: Unnoticed Parallels and Ironies

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In discussions of the fifth-century christological controversies, Cyril and Leo are typically portrayed as holding two quite different conceptions of the Incarnation – and this despite the sanction given to both Cyril's *Second Letter to Nestorius* and Leo's *Tome* by the Council Fathers at Chalcedon in 451.[1] Representing this view admirably, Grillmeier concludes: 'Leo's view of the divine-human working of Christ shows that Leo was inwardly a long way from the Alexandrine conception of the unity in Christ.'[2] The most evident difference between the two conceptions is that Leo speaks consistently of two active natures in Christ, while Cyril only reluctantly allows the use of two-natures language and prefers to speak of 'one incarnate nature of the Word'.

Leo's most flagrant departure from Cyril's approach is usually reckoned to be his infamous statement in chapter 4 of his *Tome* where he writes: 'Each form carries on its proper activities in communion with the other. The Word does what belongs to it, and the flesh carries out what belongs to it.'[3] It was this distinction of the activity of each *forma* that troubled the Easterners and caused them to hear Nestorius's teaching in Leo's words.[4]

[1] Leo plainly believed that his account of Christ was in full accord with that of Cyril, as he states in 453, two years after the Council of Chalcedon: 'If they think there is anything uncertain about our teaching, at least let them not deny the writings of those Alexandrian bishops of holy memory, Athanasius, Theophilus, and Cyril. The tenets of our faith are so in harmony with theirs that the man who says he agrees with them will in no way be at odds with us' (*Ep.* 117. 3); *St. Leo the Great: Letters*, transl. Edmund Hunt, Fathers of the Church 34 (Washington, 1957), 201.

[2] Aloys Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition: From the Apostolic Age to Chalcedon*, 2nd ed., transl. J.S. Bowden (New York, 1975), 534.

[3] Transl. Richard Norris, *The Christological Controversy* (Philadelphia, 1980), 150. See A. Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition* (1975), 536.

[4] Leo's writings on the Incarnation are plainly grounded in a single-subject Christology, with the eternal Son and Word of God (made flesh) being the single subject of all predicates applied to Christ. In *Serm.* 21. 2 (pre-Chalcedon), he makes this explicit: 'Consequently, the Word of God, God the Son of God, who in the beginning was with God.., to free human beings from eternal death was himself made human. He condescended to take up our lowliness without diminishing his majesty. Remaining what he was and taking on what he was not, he united the true "form of a servant" with the "form" in which he is equal to God the Father' (*St. Leo the Great: Sermons*, transl. Jane P. Freeland and Agnes J. Conway, Fathers of the Church 93, Washington, 1996, 78). The application of both sets of predicates to the eternal Son appears in

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When reading through this line in the Latin, it suddenly occurred to me that the objectionable term, 'form' (*forma*), must be drawn from *Phil.* 2:6-7, where Paul speaks about the one who was in 'the form of God (*forma Dei*)' taking on 'the form of a servant (*forma servi*)'. A brief examination of the *Tome* itself shows that Leo has *Philippians* chapter two (and the two *formae*) very much at the forefront of his entire presentation. Earlier in the *Tome* (chapter 3) Leo writes:

> He took on the form of a slave without any spot of sin. What he did was to enhance humanity not diminish deity. That self-emptying of his by which the Invisible revealed himself visible and the Creator and Lord of all things elected to be reckoned among mortals, was a drawing near in mercy not a failure in power. Consequently, he who made humanity while remaining in the form of God is the same one who in the form of a slave became human. Each nature retained its characteristics without defect, and just as 'the form of God' does not remove the 'form of a slave', so the 'form of a slave' does not diminish the 'form of God'.[5]

Searching more broadly through Leo's writings, I discovered that this manner of depicting the Incarnation according to the two *formae* is extremely common. Some use of these terms appears in twenty-six of his ninety-six sermons and in at least eight of his letters, both pre- and post-Chalcedon.[6] It is curious that in commentaries on paragraph four of the *Tome* there is typically no attention drawn to the fact that Leo is using biblical terminology here, not philosophical language. Recognition of the intended reference to *Phil.* 2:6-7 is further hindered by translations that supply the word 'aspect' for '*forma*'.[7]

Leo makes use of the *forma Dei* and *forma servi* language in two ways. He employs it most commonly to speak of the divine-human constitution of Christ and the end-goal of redemption, namely, that human beings might come to share in the divine life of God. To quote him: 'He who was in "the form of God" took "the form of a servant" in such a way that Christ is one and the same in both forms: God bending himself to the weak things of man, and man rising up to the high things of the Godhead.'[8] But he also uses the two *formae* language to distinguish the divine acts of Christ from his human acts. This is just what he is doing in the embattled text from the *Tome* cited above, and also

Serm. 30. 5 (post-Chalcedon): 'He who took up a body also remains incorporeal. He who can suffer in our weakness cannot be harmed in his strength. He who was crucified by the godless on a piece of wood has not been separated from his Father's throne' (129 Freeland).

[5] Transl. R. Norris, *The Christological Controversy* (1980), 148f.

[6] *Serm.* 21. 2; 22. 2, 3; 23. 2; 24. 2; 27. 1; 28. 1; 30. 5, 6; 31. 2; 34. 1; 46. 1, 2; 51. 6; 52. 2; 53. 1; 54. 2; 59. 1; 62. 1; 63. 4; 64. 2; 65. 3; 66. 4; 67. 6; 69. 3, 5; 72. 4; 74. 1; 77. 2, 5; 91. 2; *Ep.* 28. 3, 4; 31. 2; 35. 1; 59. 3; 124. 3, 7, 9; 139. 2; 164. 3; 165. 6, 7, 8. Leo is undoubtedly in debt to Augustine (see *e.g. De Trin.* II 1. 2-3) for this manner of stating the duality in Christ and the distinction of his actions as either according to the 'form of God' or the 'form of a servant'.

[7] For example, the translation by E. Hunt in *St. Leo the Great: Letters* (1957), 97.

[8] *Ep.* 124. 9, A Select Library of the Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers of the Christian Church (hereafter NPNF), 2nd series, vol. 12 (reprinted Grand Rapids, 1989), 95, adjusted.

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in this selection from *Ep.* 139 written in 453: 'For He is one and the same Person, who in "the form of God" wrought great miracles of power, and in "the form of a slave" underwent the cruelty of the passion.'[9] Or again: 'Recognize "the form of a servant", wrapped in swaddling clothes and lying in a manger; but in the one announced by the angels, declared by the heavens, worshipped by the wise men, confess "the form of the Lord".'[10]

What came as rather a revelation to me was to discover that Cyril has his own way of making this distinction between the acts and sayings of Christ 'as man' (ὡς ἄνθρωπος) on the one hand, and 'as God' (ὡς θεός) on the other. In countless instances – in biblical commentary and polemical works, both pre- and post-Nestorian – Cyril distinguishes Christ's actions and sayings in just this way, using the paired terms, ὡς ἄνθρωπος and ὡς θεός, or less frequently another parallel set of terms.[11] Moreover, it is clear that he derives his terminology from the same verses in *Phil.* 2:6-7. The phrase, 'as man' (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), is picked cleanly from *Phil.* 2:7, and the frequent linkage of this terminology with direct citations of *Phil.* 2 shows that Cyril has this text in view. In his *Commentary on John*, for instance, he writes: 'For if he had not pleased to receive, as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), or to suffer too, as one of us, how could any one have shown that he humbled himself or how would "the form of a servant" have been fittingly kept, if nothing befitting a servant were written of him?'[12]

This then becomes the characteristic way that Cyril distinguishes the activities of Christ. When speaking of Christ's submission to the rite of circumcision, he writes: 'And to-day too we have seen him obedient to the laws of Moses, or rather we have seen him who as God (ὡς θεός) is the Legislator, subject to his own decrees.... He yielded therefore his neck to the law in company with us, because the plan of salvation so required: for it became him to fulfil all righteousness. For [he] assumed the form of a servant.'[13] Again, concerning the submission of Christ to the baptism by John, Cyril states:

Behold Him, therefore, as [a] man, enduring with us the things that belong to human estate, and fulfilling all righteousness, for the plan of salvation's sake.... For He was

[9] *Ep.* 139. 2 (NPNF, vol. 12, 98, adjusted).

[10] *Serm.* 46. 2 (199 Freeland).

[11] The most common synonyms are the adverbs, αἰσθητῶς – νοητῶς, and ἀνθρωπίνως – θεικῶς.

[12] *In Jo. 1:32-33*; *Commentary on the Gospel according to St. John by S. Cyril, Archbishop of Alexandria*, vol. 1, transl. Phillip E. Pusey (Oxford, 1874), 143. In the post-Nestorian work, *On the Unity of Christ*, Cyril writes: 'Did not the Word become flesh? Has he not been called the Son of Man? Did he not assume the form of a slave? Did he not empty himself, coming in the likeness of men and being found in fashion as a man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος)?... And so, even if he did become man, there is nothing in this to hinder us from understanding that all things come into being through him, insofar as he is considered as God, and coeternal with the Father'. Transl. John A. McGuckin, *On the Unity of Christ* (Crestwood, NY, 1995), 87f.

[13] *Hom.* 3; transl. R. Payne Smith, *A Commentary on the Gospel according to S. Luke by S. Cyril, Patriarch of Alexandria* (New York, 1983), 55, 57, adjusted.

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made flesh and became man, not to avoid whatever belongs to human estate and despise our poverty, but that we might be enriched with what is his, by his having been made like to us in every particular, sin only excepted. He is sanctified therefore as man, but sanctifies as God: for being by nature God, he was made man.[14]

Even more striking are Cyril's descriptions of how Christ overcame the world and received his kingship. Concerning *Jn.* 16:33, 'I have overcome the world', Cyril writes:

For Christ overcame [the world] for us as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), being also in this a beginning and gate and way for human nature. For we who were fallen and vanquished of old have conquered and have overcome on account of the one who overcame as one of us and for our sake. For if he conquered as God (ὡς θεός), it profits us nothing; but if as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), we have overcome in him.[15]

This is hauntingly similar to Leo's own description of Christ overcoming the tempter:

He conquered the adversary.... by the witness of the law, not by forceful power, so that by this very fact he might honor mankind more and punish the adversary more, since the enemy of the human race was to be overcome not as if by God, but as if by man.[16]

Returning to Cyril: when describing Christ's kingly role in *Jn.* 17, he claims: 'For though possessing all things as God (ὡς θεός), [John] says that he receives as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), to whom kingly rule is not intrinsic, but given'.... He, then, that of old reigns from the beginning as God (ὡς θεός) together with his own Father, was appointed king as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), to whom like all else kingly rule is given, according to the limitation of human nature'.[17]

This parallel between Leo's use of *forma Dei* and *forma servi*, and Cyril's use of ὡς ἄνθρωπος and ὡς θεός, is potentially a significant coincidence that shows a profound similarity in their conceptions of Christ. They do not employ the word 'nature' in the same way, but we do find a dual terminology in both authors, drawn from the same text of Scripture, grounded in a single-subject Christology, and applied in strikingly convergent ways to describe the twofold constitution and activity of the one Christ, the Word made flesh. In both authors, the paired terms are used adverbially to state that the incarnate Word has remained fully divine while having become fully human, and to designate

[14] *Hom.* 11 (78 Smith); *Hom.* 12 (86 Smith), adjusted.

[15] *In Jo. 16:33*; *Commentary on the Gospel according to St. John by S. Cyril, Archbishop of Alexandria*, vol. 2, transl. Thomas Randell (London, 1885), 476f., adjusted.

[16] *Serm.* 39. 3 (168 Freeland).

[17] *In Jo. 17:2* (485 Randell, adjusted); *17:6-8* (502-3 Randell, adjusted). For Cyril's use of the distinction between Christ acting 'as man' and 'as God' in both pre- and post-Nestorian works, see the following: *Commentary on Luke 2:8-18* (*Hom.* 2); *2:21-4* (*Hom.* 3); *2:40-52* (*Hom.* 5); *3:21-3* (*Hom.* 11); *4:2* (*Hom.* 12); *8:19-21* (*Hom.* 42); *9:18-22* (*Hom.* 49); *10:17-20* (*Hom.* 64); *Commentary on John 1:32-3*; *3:35*; *4:6, 22*; *5:36-7*; *7:39, 46*; *8:29*; *12:27-8*; *14:2-3, 16-7, 20, 28*; *16:7, 31-2, 33*; *17:2, 4-5, 6-8, 9-11, 14-5, 22-3, 24*; *19:4*; *Scholia on the Incarnation*, 1, 2, 4, 34.

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how the single incarnate Word acts and speaks, either according to his divinity or his humanity. This conclusion is at odds with that of Grillmeier, who states that 'for Cyril there are not really two parallel sets of actions in Christ such as we must assume for Leo'.[18] To the contrary, it seems to me that Cyril consistently describes a twofold activity – according to the *forma Dei, forma servi* model – of the single subject of the Word made flesh, in a way strikingly parallel to Leo in practice.

There is yet a further parallel between Leo's use of *forma servi* and Cyril's application of ὡς ἄνθρωπος. Both phrases are used to designate the specifically human activity of Christ that *we can then imitate*. For his part Leo more commonly uses the term, *exemplum*, to describe the human activities of Christ meant for our imitation:

> A double remedy has been prepared for us.... by the Almighty Physician, one of which is in the mystery (*in sacramento*), the other in his example (*in exemplo*). Through the one, divine grace is conferred; by virtue of the other, human response is required.... 'The Lord of Hosts' and 'King of Glory' endured all things in the 'form' of our weakness and 'in the likeness of sinful flesh', so that, among the dangers of this life, we should not so much wish to flee by running away as to overcome them by enduring.[19]

And after recounting how Christ has overcome the fault of Adam by his willingness to suffer humiliation in the flesh, Leo concludes: 'These works of our Lord, dearly beloved, are useful to us, not only for their communication of grace (*sacramento*), but as an example (*exemplo*) for our imitation also.'[20]

In a similar fashion Cyril employs the phrase, ὡς ἄνθρωπος, to designate those activities of Christ that we are meant to imitate. For Cyril, we cannot imitate Christ 'as God', but we can imitate those things he has said and done 'as man'. Explaining Christ's prayer to the Father in *John* 17, Cyril writes: 'If then, as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), he says this, you may take it in this way: Christ is for us a type and origin and pattern of the divine life, and shows us plainly how, and in what way, we ought to live our lives.'[21] And just a few verses later in the commentary, he reapplies the same principle: '[Christ] ranks himself, too, with his disciples because of his humanity, and by imitating him, when he is conceived as man (ὡς ἄνθρωπος), we attain every kind of virtue.'[22]

Let me close by drawing attention to what seems to me an ironical feature of the comparison between Leo and Cyril. When Leo's treatment of the nativity of Jesus is compared to Cyril's handling of the baptism of Jesus, we see in both

[18] *Christ in Christian Tradition*, 1st ed., 1965, 473. The page-long section in which this text is embedded appears to have been deleted from the second edition (1975).

[19] *Serm.* 67. 5, 6 (294-5 Freeland). For Leo's use of the paired terms, *sacramentum* and *exemplum*, see also *Serm.* 21. 2; 25. 6; 35. 3; 39. 3; 63. 4; 72. 1, 4-5.

[20] *Serm.* 26. 6 (103-4 Freeland).

[21] *In Jo. 17:4-5* (491-2 Randell).

[22] *In Jo. 17:14-5* (525-6 Randell, adjusted).

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accounts a narrative in the life of Christ that is directly tied to the Incarnation and then applied to our own reception of the Spirit in baptism. But in Cyril's commentary on the baptism, he says that Christ 'as man' first receives the Spirit, and so secures it for our humanity, while Christ 'as God' will pour out the Holy Spirit upon his disciples. There is really no parallel to this dual activity of Christ in Leo's account, and in fact when Leo comes to treat the baptism of Jesus, he allows a place only for Christ as the *giver* of the Spirit, and not for Christ who first receives it 'as man.' In this case it is Cyril who appears to allow greater play for the full humanity of Christ in the account of redemption.

This specific case can be more generalized. Throughout Cyril's writings, he repeatedly draws attention to the distinction between how we receive Christ 'spiritually' (πνευματικῶς) and how we receive him 'physically' or 'somatically' (σωματικῶς) – it is something of a fingerprint of his account of our participation in Christ.[23] The first means, πνευματικῶς, normally refers to our reception of the Holy Spirit in baptism; the second, σωματικῶς, to Christ's life-giving flesh in the Eucharist.[24] In Leo, there are only the most elusive hints of this kind of distinction.[25] One might have expected that Leo, with a more neatly balanced Christology of the two active natures in Christ, would have been the one to develop this twofold path of reception. But ironically it is Cyril – the one constantly critiqued for failing to allow full play for Christ's humanity – who consistently presents the gift of divine life as coming in a twofold manner, exactly suited to the spiritual and bodily constitution of both the Redeemer and the redeemed.

It is indeed ironic that some of the Easterners, upon hearing the '*forma*' language in Leo's Tome and believing it to be Nestorian, objected to this approach in defense of the teaching of the great archbishop of Alexandria, who himself consistently employed a parallel set of terms drawn from the same text of Scripture to describe the twofold constitution and activity of the one incarnate Word.

[23] For Cyril's use of the paired terms, σωματικῶς and πνευματικῶς, see: *Commentary on Luke 22:17-22* (*Hom.* 142); *Commentary on John 15:1*; *17:20-1, 22-3*; *20:21*; *Commentary on Romans 8:3*; *Commentary on 1 Corinthians 6:15*; *Adv. Nest.* IV 5.

[24] For a Cyrilline text that links the terms, 'as man' / 'as God' with 'somatically' / 'pneumatically', see *In Jo. 17:22-3* (554 Randell).

[25] In a sermon on the Passion (*Serm.* 63.7), Leo employs the terms 'spirit' and 'flesh' to describe our twofold participation in the Eucharist: 'This partaking in the body and blood of Christ means nothing else than that we should pass over into what we have taken in. Since we have died with him and are buried with him and are risen with him, let us bear him through all things both in spirit and in flesh (*et spiritu et carne*)' (277 Freeland).

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Single Subjectivity and the Prosopic Union in Cyril of Alexandria and Theodore of Mopsuestia

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It is often argued that one cannot provide an adequate reading of Theodore of Mopsuestia's understanding of the Incarnation if one does not take into account his commitment to Nicaea and Constantinople I. This commitment led to an apprehension of Arianism and Apollinarianism and an intense desire to account for the full humanity of Christ as well as to 'safeguard the freedom of the will in the "assumed man" as in all other men.'[1] Theodore's insistence on the two-natures, however, extended beyond a mere safeguarding of the full humanity of Christ, for he was 'especially convinced of the need to preserve the integrity of Christ's two natures in a union where the Word's transcendence was not compromised [either].'[2] And though some may be tempted to see the Antiochene assignment of attributes to each of Christ's natures and to the common *prosôpon* perhaps as an equivalent of the Alexandrian *communicatio idiomatum*,[3] in this paper I argue that the two formulations are incommensurable because they are also based on fundamentally differing understandings of the *process* of the Incarnation.

A single subject or a prosopic union?

Thomas Weinandy has argued that at the heart of the disagreement was not that Cyril and the Antiochenes 'were using different words for the same concept, but rather [that] they were using the same words for different concepts.'[4] Both sides used the same term ὑπόστασις. For Cyril it signified the *subject* to whom attributes and operations can be applied within the true substantial unity (*i.e.* the true existing individual), that is, the single subject of the Word incarnate. On the contrary, for Theodore ὑπόστασις indicated the real, complete, existing *nature* (φύσις) in Jesus Christ; and since Christ is composed of two natures,

[1] Kevin McNamara, Theodore of Mopsuestia and the Nestorian Heresy: Part II: *ITQ* (1953) 172-191, 188.

[2] Frederick G. McLeod, *The Roles of Christ's Humanity in Salvation: Insights From Theodore of Mopsuestia* (Washington DC, 2005), 144f.

[3] More recently by F.G. McLeod, *Christ's Humanity* (2005), especially chs. 6-7.

[4] Weinandy, *Does God Suffer?* (Notre Dame, 2000), 179, n. 11.

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Theodore would, by necessity, speak of two ὑποστάσεις, thus safeguarding 'Christ's human will [to] act freely in an integral, existential way within its "exact" union with the Word.'[5] Otherwise, only one hypostasis in Christ would mean that Christ's human nature had lost its *own reality* and had been changed into the divine nature. Theodore insisted that during the Incarnation 'the natures are distinguished, yet in the union the resultant *prosôpon* is one; so that, in this way when we try to distinguish the natures we say that the *prosôpon* of the human is perfect, and also that the [*prosôpon*] of the divinity is also perfect. But when we look upon the union (ἕνωσιν), then we declare the *prosôpon* to be one out of /from (ἄμφω) both natures;'[6] thus allowing both attributes, human and divine, to be 'assigned to the ego of the common *prosôpon*.'[7]

This common *prosôpon* of the union, however, would not be a 'person' in the strict, philosophical sense, and the resultant union would be a 'phenomenological interplay' between the divine and the human predicates, a functional rather than a metaphysical one since the two natures, each with its own hypostasis, would come together in an asymptotic συνάφεια,[8] a joining, even a 'close relationship' κατ' εὐδοκίαν, but not an ontological union, for that, Theodore was afraid, would create a *tertium quid* in the process.[9]

This conclusion has been challenged recently by Eric Phillips who has argued that the reason Theodore seems to be presenting a merely functional union in the common *prosôpon,* is both because he ruled out the 'union by substance' as an option and because of his frequent use of the soul-body analogy. Theodore used the language of the single subject only within the framework of the pragmatic/economic manifestation of the union as presented in Scriptures. 'He is content to have two subjects, because what is important to him is the *union* between the two persons, not the question of whether they are *one* afterwards in any ontological sense ... The question whether "Jesus Christ" is the assumed man or the Person of the union poses a false dichotomy; He is both, because the Person of the union *is* the assumed man, as surely as He also is the assuming Word.'[10] In this case, the prosopic union must be seen to be more than just a circumincession of two activities, for they 'point to the inner presence in Christ of a human and a divine nature that not only function as one but *are* one in a union where Christ's humanity shares in the Word's

[5] F.G. McLeod, *Christ's Humanity* (2005), 194.

[6] Theodore, *De Incarnatione* VIII, in H.B. Swete, *Theodori Episcopi Mopsuesteni in Epistolas B. Pauli Commentarii*, vol. 2, (Cambridge, 1882), 300.

[7] F.G. McLeod, *Christ's Humanity* (2005), 238-40.

[8] Συνάφεια is Theodore's favorite term, though sometimes he seems to not distinguish between συνάφεια and ἕνωσιν. See *De Incarnatione* VIII, in H.B. Swete, vol. 2, 290-339.

[9] See, Th. Weinandy, *Does God Suffer?* (2000), 179-81.

[10] Eric Phillips, *Man and Salvation in Theodore of Mopsuestia* (Ph.D. diss. CUA, 2006), 218. See also, Richard A. Norris, Jr., *Manhood and Christ: A Study in the Christology of Theodore of Mopsuestia* (Oxford, 1963), 211-34.

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honors, much in the same way the body shares with its soul an organic kind of union.'[11] The problem such language created, of course, was that it was susceptible to the accusation that the true relationship was, at the end, asymptotic, creating two distinguishable centers of attribution, 'two sons' – a charge both Theodore and Nestorius denied strenuously, even calling it 'naïveté in the extreme'.[12] The two *hypostaseis* are always one *prosôpon*, the hypostasis of Christ's humanity never being separated from that of the Word, 'not even at Jesus' death on the cross'.

Even though such language indeed bears some resemblance to the *communicatio idiomatum*, it is not of the Alexandrian *in abstracto* form, but rather what would later be called a *communicatio idiomatum in concreto*, where the interchange of predicates is understood as taking place at the level of the common *prosôpon*, not between the natures.

Unlike the Antiochenes, Cyril was far less interested in the impassibility of God *per se* than he was in the narrative of the Incarnation. Led by this narrative, Cyril's articulation of the communication of idioms insisted that the divine and human attributes were not predicated of their respective natures but of the single person of the Son, καθ' ὑπόστασιν. Such an understanding of the communication of idioms ensured two fundamental precepts of human salvation: first, that it was indeed the *Son of God*, the Second Person of the Trinity, who experienced suffering, and, second, that it was *true* human suffering that the Son of God experienced.[13] This meant that 'the Incarnation is not the compositional union of natures but the person of the Son taking on a new manner or mode of existence'.[14]

Before the Formula of Reunion Cyril would insist that 'as for our Saviour's statements in the Gospels, we do not divide them out to two subjects or persons. The one, unique Christ (ὁ εἷς καὶ μόνος Χριστός) has no duality though he is seen as compounded in inseparable unity out of two differing elements ... all the sayings contained in the Gospels must be referred to a single person (ἑνὶ προσώπῳ), to the one incarnate subject of the Word (ὑποστάσει μιᾷ τῇ τοῦ λόγου σεσαρκωμένῃ).'[15] What was most important for Cyril was to protect the integrity of the Scriptural narrative of the Incarnation itself – the narrative within which salvation occurs – not God's transcendence or impassibility:

Inspired Scripture tells us he suffered in flesh and we should do better to use those terms than to talk of his sufferings 'in the nature of the manhood'... It is futile, then,

[11] F.G. McLeod, *Christ's Humanity* (2005), 202f. My emphasis.

[12] *CH* 8:14, in Raymond Tonneau and R. Devreese (eds. and transl.), *Les Homélies Catéchétiques de Théodore de Mopsueste* (Vatican City, 1949), 206f.

[13] Th. Weinandy, *Does God Suffer?* (2000), 203.

[14] *Ibid.* 200.

[15] Cyril, *Ad Nestorium* 3.8, in: L.R. Wickham (ed. and transl.), *Cyril of Alexandria: Select Letters* (Oxford, 1983), 22-5.

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for them to talk of his suffering in the nature of the manhood, separating it, as it were, from the Word and isolating it from him so as to think of him as two and not one Word from God the Father yet incarnate and made man.[16]

Cyril saw clearly that foundational to the concept of the common *prosôpon* was the incompatibility of the two component elements: the divine and the human nature. Though the hypostasis of Christ's humanity was never separated from that of the Word during the Incarnation – not even at Jesus' death on the cross – the prosopic union was, at the end, driven by the desire to protect divine transcendence and safeguard against Arianism and Apollinarianism. As such, it was necessarily 'anthropomorphic', insisting not only on the full humanity of the incarnate Son, but, moving beyond that, also resulting in a phenotypical, an economic meta-person, a real prosopic unity, yet not a true Person: 'When he ascends, he will manifest clearly the nature that is dwelling in him, which obviously descended with no [physical] location having been changed.'[17]

Cyril was focused on the incarnational center, the single subject of the Word becoming flesh. His was truly an ἐνανθρώπησης: 'The one, unique Christ has no duality, though he is seen as compounded in inseparable unity out of two differing elements.'[18]

First principles: Predication and the hypostatic union

In a recent article on the nature of the hypostatic union, John Lamont[19] has shown us, among other things, that while both Cyril and Theodore might have agreed that the humanity of Christ did not have an ontology preexisting the union with the divine, conceptually the Antiochenes imagined the two natures as separate *before* the Incarnation. Beginning with a division of the predicates that assign divine and human attributes to the single person of Christ (divinity, eternality, infinite goodness, *etc.*, on the one hand, and manhood, birth, having a rational body, *etc.*, on the other) Lamont points out that 'some of the predicates on the human list ... are *substantial* predicates...'[20] As such, Lamont argues that there are two possible ways of understanding the relationship between the one to whom the human predicates apply and the Son, the Second Person of the Trinity: the first is a *connection of identity*; the other sees the human predicates as *added* to the divine being, carefully maintaining the distinction between the predicates that are substantial in the cases of all other humans but

[16] Cyril, *Ad Succensus* 2.5, in: L.R. Wickham, *Cyril of Alexandria* (1983), 92f.

[17] Theodori Mopsuesteni *Commentarius in Evangelium Johannis Apostoli*, J.-M. Vosté (ed. and transl.), CSCO 115/6 (Louvain, 1940), 72/50 (Syr./Lat.).

[18] Cyril, *Ad Nestorium* 3.6, in: L.R. Wickham, *Cyril of Alexandria* (1983), 20f.

[19] John Lamont, The Nature of the Hypostatic Union: *HJ* 47 (2006) 16-25.

[20] J. Lamont, Hypostatic Union (2006), 16. My emphasis.

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are not substantial predicates in the case of Christ.[21] I propose that the prosopic union represents this, second, possibility.

Proceeding from an understanding of the Incarnation that emphasized the full humanity of Christ, the prosopic union would ascribe inferences of human attributes and properties (birth, thirst, suffering, *etc.*) to the concretion of the common *prosôpon*, but only at the level of the human nature, never to the divine. Theodore explained it this way: 'In the same way we say that the essence of God the Word is his own and that the essence of the man is [man's] own, for the natures are distinct, but the person effected by the union is one.'[22] As such, the prosopic union allowed the Antiochenes 'to adopt the general strategy of claiming that these inferences are valid when [they] want to preserve the [union],[23] and invalid when [they] want to avoid contradiction.'[24] In his *Commentary on the Nicene Creed* Theodore imagined the Word explaining: 'I would not have allowed this [(*i.e.* death)] to happen to it [(*i.e.* the Word's temple)] had I not intended to do a higher thing to it.'[25] In this (additive) relationship one can say that Christ indeed died on the cross because the human nature of the common *prosôpon* suffered the death, and one can also say, at the same time, that the divine did not suffer, because 'the centers for divine and human activities are their existing natures – though always in relation to the ego of their common *prosôpon*.'[26]

The other possibility, then, is the relationship of identity. Though I am aware that this argument may be challenged as anachronistic as one attempts to apply it to the fourth century, I believe that Cyril's understanding of the hypostatic union was not as far removed from this notion of identity as it might seem at first. That is because in Cyril's vocabulary *hypostasis* (or *physis*) signifies a singular subject of unity and attribution in Christ: the Second Person of the Trinity *is* the person of Jesus Christ.[27] Thus, all predicates, whether those assign human or divine attributes, can truly be said of the single person. Far from being 'a blatant contradiction', 'a theological double-talk', or jeopardizing the role for Christ's human freedom in the union,[28] Cyril's account of this identity allows him to prevent the contradictions from arising in the first place. 'This is because', argues Lamont, '[Cyril's account] is a statement about the identity

[21] *Ibid.* 17.

[22] Theodore, *On the Incarnation* VIII 8; R.A. Norris, Jr. (ed. and transl.), *The Christological Controversy* (Philadelphia, 1980), 120.

[23] The *communicatio idiomatum*, says Lamont.

[24] J. Lamont, Hypostatic Union (2006), 18.

[25] Theodore of Mopsuestia, *Commentary of Theodore of Mopsuestia on the Nicene Creed*, in: A. Mingana (ed. and transl.), Woodbrooke Studies 5 (Cambridge, 1932), 85.

[26] F.G. McLeod, *Christ's Humanity* (2005), 157f.

[27] See Th. Weinandy, *Does God Suffer?* (2000) and John Lamont, Aquinas on Divine Simplicity: *Monist* 80 (1997) 521-39.

[28] F.G. McLeod, *Christ's Humanity* (2005), 231.

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of individuals ... not about the natures of Christ at all. It thus preserves what St. Cyril wanted to express about the hypostatic union without having to make any claims about the identity or unity or mingling of the divine and human natures of Christ; it makes no claim about anything happening to either the divine or the human nature of Christ. It does make claims about these natures belonging to a particular individual, but the constitution of the natures themselves are left untouched by this claim.'[29]

Conclusion

The Antiochene prosopic union was based on the principle that those predicates that assign human attributes to Christ – and are substantial for all other humans – cannot be substantial predicates in the case of Christ. To avoid contradiction – and along with it even the hint of divine possibility – the attributes of each nature were understood as expressed in the Incarnation only at the level of the common *prosôpon*, in a functional manner. On the contrary, Cyril's emphasis was on the identity of the unified, single subject of the Incarnation. The hypostatic union clarified that there are no contradictions that need to be explained in the unmediated presence of the Second Person of the Trinity, for one cannot speak of the two natures as separate, isolated entities threatened by the union of incompatibles.

[29] J. Lamont, Hypostatic Union (2006), 24.

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Aspects of the Will in Maximus the Confessor

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When in 633 the aged monk Sophronius learned the terms of the reconciliation of the non-Chalcedonian communities in Egypt on the basis of the μία ἐνέργεια formula, he made known his objections first to Cyrus the patriarch of Alexandria then to Sergius of Constantinople that the formula was Apollinarian.[1] Sergius thought it advisable to apprise the Pope, Honorius I, of the successful reunion developments in Egypt. In his letter to him he relays the doctrinal precisions of Sophronius and makes it clear that he thinks the monk is making a problem over what has proven to be an ecumenically winning formula, appealing precisely on the basis of its ambiguity.[2] Sophronius, after all, had formerly been known as Sophronius the Sophist. Honorius goes for the bait, and suggests that expressions like one or two energies are proper matter for the grammarians to waste their time on. 'It is much better if the empty, idle, and paganising philosophers, who weigh out the natures, proudly raise their croaking against us, than that the people of Christ, simple and poor in spirit, should remain unsatisfied.'[3] Thinking that he has avoided 'the snares of the hunters right and left', he serves up to Sergius what will in fact be the main course at the Monothelite banquet: 'Whence also, we confess one will of Our Lord Jesus Christ (ἓν θέλημα, *unam voluntatem*), since our nature was plainly assumed by the Godhead, and this being faultless, as it was before the Fall.'[4] The concluding expression sets the statement in a particular theological context, but the words themselves will prove fatal to orthodox Christology and the reputation of Honorius.

During the dispute that Maximus had with Bishop Theodosius at Bizya it was explained to him that it was because of an arrangement (δι' οἰκονομίαν) that the Typos forbade the using of the terms one or two wills in Christ, 'lest the laity be harmed by too subtle words of this kind.' To this Maximus replied: 'The silencing of words is the abrogation of words... Therefore the word that is not uttered, in no way exists.'[5]

[1] Maximus, *Opusculum* 12 (PG 91, 143C-D).

[2] That Sophronius was still regarded in Constantinople as a troublemaker a dozen years later is shown in the rejoinder of Maximus to Pyrrhus' charge in the celebrated debate between them (PG 91, 332B-333A).

[3] Karl Joseph von Hefele, *A History of the Councils of the Church*, transl. William R. Clark (Edinburgh, 1896), V 31.

[4] *Ibid.* 29.

[5] Pauline Allen and Bronwen Neil (eds.), *Maximus the Confessor and His Companions: Documents from Exile* (Oxford, 2001), 110-3.

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Subtle words for simple folk? The explanation recalls the image of the croaking of the philosophers summoned up by Honorius. In 633 Maximus can very well write to Pyrrhus in apparent admiration of the ecumenical coup brought off in Alexandria by the use of the μία ἐνέργεια formula, later on to be succeeded by the even more elastic ἓν θέλημα: simple expressions with an appeal to the commonsensical. But even at that early date, and in this flattering context, Maximus asks Pyrrhus for a clarification of the term. What do you mean by ἐνέργεια; how is it distinguished from ἐνέργημα, considering the work itself and the act of bringing it about? At this point Maximus makes a telling remark: 'We find that the fathers diverged often enough in the use of terms, but never in their meaning.' Then, echoing Gregory the Theologian, he repeats the principle that, 'the mystery of our salvation consists not in formulas but precisely in definite ideas and realities.'[6] Here Maximus correctly diagnoses the cancer that had eluded the analysis of Honorius. Even at the outset of the Monothelite debate he shows himself focused on expressing the Christian mystery in unambiguous terms. Get beyond words to the meaning in order to avoid confusion, Maximus urges sounding a frequent theme.

In the second wave of the heresy, known as Monothelitism, the focus is on the will in Christ, specifically the human will. In *Opusculum* 4, Maximus reasons that since Christ is fully human as well as fully divine, as Chalcedon had defined, he must have a fully human will as a property of this nature. Now the Psephos of Sergius, ostensibly to avoid any notion that there was contrariety of wills in the one person of the Savior, had forbidden mention of number in regard to the wills. But as Léthel has argued, this was to confuse distinctiveness with contrariety.[7] In the Dispute, Pyrrhus asserts as a truism that two wills cannot exist without opposition.[8] In order for Maximus to show that there existed true human freedom in the composed person of the Logos made flesh he will be obliged to wade into the murky waters of human psychology. He will find very little help from his philosophical and theological forebears who had approached the topic.

Maximus begins his search from a philosophical and psychological standpoint. What is human willing? How has it been defined? What is the volitional power in human beings? Does it have a purpose or is it an end in itself? In *Opusculum* 1, dated by Sherwood 645 or 646 when the controversy was at its height, he provides a collection of definitions of the various terms associated with willing: wish, will, enquiry, deliberation, consideration, judging, choosing, etc.[9] In this analysis Maximus follows very closely the text of Nemesius of

[6] *Ep.* 19 (PG 91, 596B), with truth replacing mystery. For Gregory see *Panegyric on St. Basil, Or.* 44. The fathers were concerned with meaning, not words: *Opusc.* 25 (PG 91, 273C).

[7] François-Marie Léthel, *Théologie de l'Agonie du Christ* (Paris, 1979), 33-5 and *passim.*

[8] PG 91, 292A. See *Dispute at Bizya* (96-7 Allen-Neil).

[9] PG 91, 12D; *Disp. with Pyrrhus* (293B-C).

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Emesa, who was himself heavily influenced by Aristotle's analysis, and transmits the definitions to the later Doctor. The intention of Maximus is to answer the question posed in the Psephos: if Christ possessed a full and functioning human energy, would this not be in necessary conflict with his divine energy? This is the ploy served up to Honorius which provoked his commonsense reply of the *unam voluntatem*.

So with the help of Nemesius transmitting Aristotle, Maximus launches into an investigation of the mechanism of the volitional act. Θέλησις is a simple appetite, rational and animal, while προαίρεσις is the concurrence of appetite, decision, and judgment. In desiring we first consult or deliberate, then we make an act of judgment, and 'in judging we select what seems better from the worse in the scale, for the former depends solely on the natures, the latter solely on what is from us and arises from our movement. Θέλησις is not προαίρεσις',[10] which is 'a deliberative appetite of things done that depends on ourselves.' It is made up of the three realities of appetite, decision, and judgment.[11] We choose things over which we deliberate.[12] Although it is frequently confused with it in common speech, προαίρεσις is not γνώμη, which can be defined as an internal appetite for those things which are in our power. It gives rise to προαίρεσις and thus is related to it as habit to act.[13] The complex deliberative process is implied in man's rationality. He is not only a λογικὸν ζῶον but also a προαιρετικὸν ζῶον. He deals with things which have an uncertain end.[14] Deliberation, judgment, and choice are necessary because things are ambiguous, ἀμφίβολα. When ambiguity is lifted, these will be unnecessary.[15] Free will for us implies choice, which implies a plurality of possibilities, which implies the possibility of error. Error translates into a vitiated will, and how could this exist in the Logos made flesh? But free choice is not freedom, and because it involves the possibility of ignorance and sin it therefore cannot be predicated of Christ. It is a *tropos* of human nature, a quality of willing that is not will itself, which is of the essence of our nature. Christ had the logos of human nature, but the *tropos*, the 'how' of willing, was one that was uncorrupted by sin or sinful habit. Προαίρεσις and γνώμη are not in Christ because he would not then be ἀπαθής, free of passions, but ἐγκρατής, continent with regard to the passions.[16] He would be considered changeable. On the contrary, because of its union with the Logos, his human nature has a firm and stable movement in

[10] 13A.
[11] 16B-C.
[12] 16C.
[13] 17C.
[14] 24A-B.
[15] 24B, 32C.
[16] 28D. Maximus has to explain away the use of the term προαίρεσις in reference to Christ in the fathers and his own use of the term in *Thal.* 42.

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accordance with rational appetite, that is, θέλησις.[17] He put on our full nature and deified it.[18]

But Maximus is no psychologist, and psychology does not resolve the mystery of the freedom of Christ's human nature. The fathers are a far more reliable guide in this than is Aristotle. But at Bizya, Bishop Theodosius has a patristic list in favor of the monothelite position (provided, as he confesses, by the patriarch), all of doubtful authenticity. One quotation, from Cyril of Alexandria, Maximus judges to be spurious. Nevertheless, he is willing to examine it on its own merits. But Theodosius objects that he has to accept the words as they are without scrutinizing the meaning. To this Maximus retorts: 'Obviously in the case of words too you are introducing rules which are new and foreign to the Church. If, according to you, one ought not to scrutinize the words of Scripture and the Fathers, we are rejecting all Scripture, both the old and the new.'[19]

John Madden, in tracing the authenticity of the patristic definitions of θέλησις cited by Maximus in the Dispute with Pyrrhus, comes up dry.[20] The definitions seem to be fabricated, whether by Maximus or a disciple of his is not clear. But even this loose practice is seen by Madden as emphasizing the originality of Maximus' vision and genius in linking θέλησις to the content of προαίρεσις seen now as situated at the very center of human personality.

If Madden is right, it would not be the first time that Maximus had bestowed his creative revision services on his patristic predecessors, and indeed on his own writings, since he had previously used the expression μίαν γνώμην καὶ θέλημα ἕν in reference to Christ.[21] In dealing with the 'common (or new) theandric energy' of Ps.-Dionysius, Maximus provides a proper laundering so that it comes out orthodox.[22] He provides the same service for Honorius, explaining his *unam voluntatem* phrase in an orthodox sense, and his defense of the hapless pope is unrelenting.[23] Similarly with Gregory of Nazianzus in his text: 'For the will of him has nothing in it contrary to God, since it was wholly deified.'[24] This text had been used by Sergius in the Psephos as one supporting a monothelite position, and indeed while Gregory is writing from a trinitarian perspective and is not at all addressing a seventh-century Christological problem,

[17] 32A.

[18] *Opusc.* 4. 6. 7 (PG 91, 60C, 68C, 77C, 80D).

[19] *Dispute at Bizya* 4 (92-3 Allen-Neil), In *Opusculum* 15 Maximus considers patristic testimonies on the reality of Christ's human will (PG 91, 156B-184A).

[20] John Madden, The Authenticity of early Definitions of the Will (THELESIS), in: Felix Heinzer and Christoph Schönborn, *Maximus Confessor* (Fribourg, 1982), 61-79. The definition quoted from Diadochus of Photiki is correct, except that in that father it defines not θέλησις but αὐτεξουσιότης. It is also quoted in *Opusc.* 26 (PG 91, 277B).

[21] *Ep.* 2 (PG 91, 396C).

[22] *Opusc.* 7 (PG 91, 84D).

[23] *Opusc.* 20 (PG 91, 237D, 244B).

[24] *Opusc.* 15 (PG 91, 160D-161A); the passage from Gregory is from his *Second Theological Oration, On the Son.*

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his language does seem open to that interpretation. In *Opusculum* 6 Maximus has to address the problem head-on and to explain the important saying of the Theologian in a dyothelite sense, translating him, as it were, into a changed dynamic. But in fact, it is Maximus himself who is taking the creative step in line with Chalcedon, stretching Gregory's language and interpreting his 'deified will' to mean the human will in Christ.[25] According to Maximus, the heretics have deformed the vocabulary of the fathers against the true faith. They try to make into one what the fathers spoke of as two distinct realities.[26]

In the same *Opusculum* fifteen he adduces as evidence for Christ's human will what Cyril of Alexandria writes concerning the weakness of the flesh in the face of death.[27] But to say that human nature recoils at approaching physical danger or death is not to say that it is endowed with a faculty of will. This activity is instinctual for animal nature, and does not imply volitional rationality. Another defense of the Alexandrian father is provided in the direction of a proper dyothelite interpretation of Christ's sayings about his will in the fourth gospel and in the Synoptics. In *John* 6:38 Jesus says: 'I came down from heaven not to do my own will but the will of the one who sent me.' Cyril's interpretation of this passage is interesting, though not explicitly dyothelite. Then he switches scenes to the Synoptic account of the Agony in the Garden and asks what it was that Christ both willed and did not will. The answer is the details of the Passion.[28] The subject willing, of course, is the Word made flesh, but Cyril's language does not make it altogether clear that it is through his human nature that he makes an act of the will to correspond to the divine salvific will. This language about shuddering in the face of death is comprehensible enough in another context, but in the heat of the monothelite debate it is weak on the properly human side. Much clearer is Cyril's interpretation of *John* 12:28 ('Father, glorify your name'). Here Cyril offers a better focus on his own previous treatment of this mystery. He writes, 'when he says, "Glorify thy son", he means, "allow me to suffer in a voluntary fashion".'[29] If Maximus can defend Cyril's celebrated formula, μία φύσις τοῦ Λόγου τοῦ Θεοῦ σεσαρκωμένου, never withdrawing his support for the term despite the fierceness of the opposition to it, he can see the orthodox teaching in Cyril's sometimes limping expressions, now inadequate in a monothelite context. And he was available to nudge the Alexandrian's language to fit a new context while preserving its essential meaning.

[25] *Opusc.* 4. 20 (PG 91, 61B, 233B). See F.-M. Léthel, *Théologie de l'Agonie du Christ* (1979), 31-5.

[26] *Opusc.* 7 (PG 91, 88C-89A).

[27] *Opusc.* 15 (PG 91, 165A). He claims Cyril for orthodoxy also in *Opusc.* 8 (PG 91, 100B-109A) and *Opusc.* 9 (PG 91, 121B-125C).

[28] *Jo.* 4.1 (PG 73, 529C); Philip Pusey (transl.) *Commentary on the Gospel According to St. John* (Oxford, 1874), I 384.

[29] *Jo.* 8.12.27 (PG 74, 92C); Thomas Randell (transl.) II, 320. This passage is included in Norman Russell, *Cyril of Alexandria* (London and New York, 2000), 121.

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Renunciation According to Maximus the Confessor

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The ascetical ideal of Maximus the Confessor works within the struggle between the willing fall into sin and the willing surrender to the will of God. The purpose of my research is to explore the role of renunciation in the process of this struggle for the transformation of human nature. Renunciation reflects the spiritual ecstasy by which man discovers his true origins in the *Logos* – his archetype – and is inclined towards Him as his *telos* or end.[1]

Renunciation for Maximus is thus neither rejection of the world nor hope for a reward. It cannot be so because through it begins the re-unification of the world and, in accord with this process, the life of renunciation is a 'reward' in itself. The life of renunciation is the life that offers the greatest of joys, but in this world it is fated to clash with the principle of fallen-ness. It is an act according to the *logos* of human nature by which the deviant aspect of passibility is overcome. Thus renunciation is inevitably painful but, paradoxically, it is what life should ideally look like.

Having in mind that the human mind has 'gone astray and lost its natural motion'[2] creation must not be at the same time a cloud and a veil which makes us blind to the beauty of the creator. 'For the cloud is the fleshly passion darkening the pilot of the soul, and the veil is the deceit of the senses.'[3] Through renunciation we recognise the value God puts on the created order and confirms his plan for a final transformation and unification, a true unity in diversity, a deification. To be sure, the process that leads to deification is a process of pain and suffering. However, in a paradoxical way, when the body is deified it rejoices. This joy, says Maximus, is supernatural: 'By "supernatural" I mean the divine and inconceivable joy, which God naturally creates when he is united by grace to those who are worthy.'[4]

[1] *Ambiguorum Liber* 7 (PG 91, 1076D); English transl. Paul M. Blowers and Robert L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Jesus Christ: Selected Writings from St Maximus the Confessor* (Crestwood, NY, 2003), 53.

[2] *Amb.* (PG 91, 1112A); Engl. transl. Andrew Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (London and New York, 1996), 99.

[3] *Ibid.*

[4] *Quaestiones ad Thalassium* 59 (CChr.SG 22, 69.160-65). Engl. transl. Brian E. Daley, Apokatastasis and 'Honorable Silence' in the Eschatology of St. Maximus the Confessor, in: Felix Heinzer and Christoph Schönborn (eds.), *Actes du Symposium sur Maxime le Confesseur* (Fribourg-en-Suise, 1982), 85-96, 338f.

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The worthy can discern the sensible aspects of creation that hide beneath its inner, spiritual aspects. These are the fundamentals, the principles, the laws or God's ideas. Having perceived correctly, the mind ascends to spiritual ideas, so that the true *logoi* of the created beings are discovered in the Logos. As their true nature is discovered through contemplation, so the process of mediation of the divisions begins. Here is the moment where pain and suffering become relevant. Thus Maximus says: 'All visible things need a cross.' The cross enables separation from all that is sensible and intelligible. As natural activity and movement come to point of rest, then 'the Word (*Logos*) which alone exists by itself as if he had risen from the dead is manifested anew.' [5]

The cross on the things causes tension, an existential crisis that is a reflection of man's anxiety over his mortality and corruptibility, sensing as he does that this was not his original destiny. Pleasure seems to be an attempt of man to prove his own significance, to outwit the apparent futility of his life, to achieve, even if for a moment, a self-actualization, to come to a feeling of wholeness and harmony with the rest of creation. Man's pursuit of pleasure is a cry through which he declares his presence and through which he communicates to the rest of the world the deepest longing for identity and belonging. Pleasure is a reflection of the search for how one may say, positively and unequivocally, 'I am'.

Sexuality seems to be the primary example of how this tension works. The sexual way of procreation, while introducing life, immediately introduces death as well. Human striving for continuity is proven futile, as its every attempt is inevitably brought to a halt. Every move towards permanence increases the intensity of transitoriness. According to von Balthasar, this view of sexuality in Maximus has no 'final and fulfilling meaning'.[6] Maximus, says von Balthasar, takes the quotation from *Galatians* 3:28 ('For in Christ Jesus there is neither male nor female') as abolishing all sexual differences, thereby excluding the possibility that any of them could represent the 'likeness' to God. It seems that von Balthasar is making too much of what he calls the 'Eastern tradition'[7] in Maximus' thought. Adam Cooper rightly observes that reunion of the divisions does not reduce diversity to indistinguishable confusion. Thus the 'distinct characteristics' will be retained even after the divided entities are united.[8] It can be concluded then that the journey towards the uniting of all creation, as Maximus

[5] *Capita theologica et oeconomica* 1.67 (PG 90, 1108B); Engl. transl. George C. Berthold, *Maximus Confessor: Selected Writings* (London, 1985), 140.

[6] Hans Urs von Balthasar, *Cosmic Liturgy: The Universe According to Maximus the Confessor*. Transl. B.E. Daley (San Francisco, 2003), 204.

[7] See *ibid.* 204.

[8] See Adam G. Cooper, *The Body in St. Maximus the Confessor: Holy Flesh, Wholly Deified* (Oxford, 2005), 211. See Max. Conf., *Amb.* (PG 91, 1308C-1309D); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 158. See Lars Thunberg, *Man and the Cosmos: The Vision of St. Maximus the Confessor* (Crestwood: NY, 1985), 82.

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sees it, happens through the overcoming of the divisions, but not through the abolishing of the distinctions.

Meanwhile, the passions divide the one nature into countless pieces. Due to this, says Maximus, although our nature is one, we are so divided that we try to plunder each other.[9] Answering the first question in *Quaestiones ad Thalassium*, Maximus claims that, in those who zealously seek God, the passions become beautiful, since they wisely separate them from the carnal things. In doing this, they direct them towards attaining heavenly treasures. Thus, for example, they turn desire into a longing for God, and pleasure into a joyous ascension of the mind towards divine things.[10]

The mind is the lover of God. In the manner of Gregory of Nyssa's *Life of Moses*, commenting on Moses' contemplation on the mountain, Maximus says that the highest experience of the act of love is its ecstatic flight into the darkness of God's sanctuary, being absolutely freed of all other links but the awareness of God's formless, invisible and bodiless presence.[11] Both love and unity are paradoxical. Love reaches forward in a conscious move of self-denial for the sake of affirming the presence of the other, and at the same time the more loving and harmonious the relationship becomes, the more independent grow the subjects involved in it.[12] Each participates in the other and as the participation intensifies the difference between them becomes more obvious. So as the mind gains admittance into the presence of God, it 'is inflamed with desire and seeks first of all the principles of his being but finds no satisfaction in what is proper to himself, for that is impossible and forbidden to every created nature alike.'[13]

According to Maximus, man's primary natural characteristic is his yearning for God. God, for him, is that 'ultimately desired' (τὸ ἔσχατον ὀρεκτόν)[14] end for whose '... sake ... all things exist.'[15] In other words God satiates all human longing, and is its beginning and end.'[16] This was the driving power behind Paul's exclamation: 'and it is no longer I who live, but it is Christ who lives in me' (*Gal.* 2:20).[17] In another place Maximus will say that Paul said this as a

[9] See *Q. Thal.* introduction (CChr.SG 7, 33.265-73).

[10] See *Q. Thal.* 1 (CChr.SG 7, 1.47-9).

[11] See *Amb.* (PG 91, 1117B); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 103.

[12] This is how von Balthasar describes this process: '... the union between God and the world reveals, in the very nearness it creates between these two poles of being, the ever-greater difference between created being and the essentialy incomparable God.' H.U. v. Balthasar, *Cosmic Liturgy* (2003), 64.

[13] *Capita de Caritate* 1.100 (PG 90, 981D-984A); Engl. transl. G.C. Berthold, *Maximus Confessor* (1985), 46.

[14] *Th. Oec.* 2.86 (PG 90, 1165B); Engl. transl. G.C. Berthold, *Maximus Confessor* (1985), 166.

[15] *Amb.* (PG 91, 1072C); Engl. transl. P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Jesus Christ* (2003), 48.

[16] *Amb.* (PG 91, 1073C); Engl. transl. P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Jesus Christ* (2003), 50f.

[17] *Amb.* (PG 91, 1076B); Engl. transl. P. M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Jesus Christ* (2003), 52.

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true lover, 'ὡς ἀληθὴς ἐραστής.'[18] Looking through the lenses of Paul, in unison with him, Maximus ponders over the meaning of existence which he discovers in love. He wants to lure the reader out from the shell of deceptive safety of the realm of an independent existence, from the pathetic mimicry of love in carnal affection. He challenges him to give up the false pretences over his soul, to surrender his life, and find it resurrected in Christ.

The wording in the *Ascetic Life* 15 is a strong confirmation of Maximus' ideal of love as the renunciation of all satanic scheming and reasoning. Victory is to be won through the love that is 'giving up'. The focal point of the apostle's ministry of reconciliation is that '... by giving way, they conquered those who thought to conquer' (διὰ ἥττης νικήσαντες τοὺς νικᾶν ἐλπίσαντας).[19] This statement summarises the main claim of this essay. For Maximus giving up, or renunciation, is the seed of the victory of the kingdom of God already present. Giving up is life lived by the principles of that kingdom. Renunciation is a sign of being present for the other – the ultimate meaning of love.[20] The liturgy, says Maximus, assumes that each and every one of the participants is there for the other.[21] For him the liturgy, the focal point of the life of the body of Christ, communicates his favourite topic: selfless love overcoming selfish self-love, *philautia* the nemesis of true love. As John Meyendorff observes: 'The sin of Adam came from the *philautia*, from attachment to himself in consenting only to egoistic pleasure.'[22] From this attachment resulted sorrow and death for man. The acceptance of suffering and death in Christ will break up this *philautia*, re-establishing us in the charity that gives us wholly back to God. Thus renunciation is the most natural thing man can do since his real nature was created without sin and with potential to grow more and more like God. Again and again, Maximus refers to the reason why one should give up the world. The answer, from within different aspects and perspectives, is always the same, 'so that one should discover the true being and meaning of the world.' Thus man must look for the meaning of life, not to himself, but rather to the one who created him.

The only way we can appreciate the real value and dignity of anything is to penetrate beneath the surface, to be able to recognise its inner coherence and beauty, goodness and truth. For Maximus, this is discovered in the potential of

[18] *Diversa Capita* (PG 90, 1348D).

[19] *Liber asceticus* 15 (ed. P. Van Deun, CChr.SG 40, 35.293); Engl. transl. Polycarp Sherwood, *St. Maximus the Confessor: The Ascetic Life, The Four Centuries on Charity* (Westminster, MD and London, 1955), 112.

[20] See *Epistula ad Iohannem cubicularium* 2 (PG 91, 401D); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 90.

[21] See *Mystagogia* 1 (PG 91, 668B); Engl. transl. G.C. Berthold, *Maximus Confessor* (1985), 187.

[22] John Meyendorff, *Christ in Eastern Christian Thought*. Transl. Fr. Yves Dubois (Crestwood, NY, 1987), 137.

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creation for its transformation; not only renewal but 'resurrection' as well. The continuity of the 'old' is preserved, and yet, by grace, is brought to a level that is utterly 'new'. This newness is God's ultimate gift – a unity between the Creator and the created.

The active willingness to receive the gift of God offered in Christ is the beginning of the life of renunciation, through which man actively participates in his own transformation and, through it, the transformation of the whole creation:[23]

'because then, at the end of the ages, there will be through the same God, our Savior, a transformation and renewal of the whole human race that is all-encompassing, natural, and by grace, from death and corruption to immortal life and incorruption in the expected resurrection.'

[23] *Expositio in Psalmum lix.* (CCSG 23: 3.12-16); Engl. transl. Ian A. McFarland, 'Naturally and by Grace': Maximus the Confessor on the Operation of the Will: *Scottish Journal of Theology* 58 (2005) 410-33, 410.

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St Maximos' Doctrine of the *logoi* of Creation

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St Maximos' doctrine of the *logoi* of creation is one of the most distinctive features of his teaching. It is also, it seems to me, somewhat isolated. Commentators have long remarked that, as Thunberg puts it, in this doctrine we have something 'developed much further, and in a much more systematic way, by Maximus than by any of his predecessors',[1] though inspection of the long footnote indicating the work of his predecessors does not reveal very much; the only significant predecessors seem to be Origen, Evagrios and Dionysios the Areopagite. In those thinkers what we find is references to a doctrine of *logoi*, but little in the way of explanation. Evagrios, in particular (with whom we find far more references than the other two put together), seems to presuppose a traditional doctrine: in *Kephalaia Gnostica* V 24 (S_1), he tells us that 'the Fathers say that the *logoi* of judgment are second in relation to the *logoi* of movement'. That quotation introduces another aspect of Evagrios' doctrine, also picked up by Maximos, the notion of *logoi* of (providence) and judgment, about which we learn little from Evagrios' extant writings. However, most of what we find in Evagrios relates to the idea of contemplation of the *logoi* of creation as a stage towards contemplation of God, or *theologia*, corresponding to the spiritual 'cloud', which is 'spiritual contemplation containing the *logoi* of providence (or the *oikonomia*: S_1) and judgment' (KG V 24) and the spiritual 'mountain', which is 'lofty spiritual contemplation, when the *nous* arrives above itself and comes to behold all the *logoi* which concern natures' (KG V 40).

Another possible source of this notion of *logoi* of creation, not much remarked on (to my knowledge) is Plotinos, who in his treatise on providence (*Enn.* III 2-3 [47-8]) introduces the notion of *logoi*, which are an activity of the all-Soul, and responsible for the manifold nature of the universe and its harmonious unity, though a union of opposites.[2] In contrast with our Christian sources Plotinus has a lot to say about these *logoi*, not altogether unlike what we find in Maximos. In summary, Armstrong remarks, following Bréhier, that *logos* here is not to be understood as a separate hypostasis, 'but as a way of speaking of the living formative and directive pattern, derived from Intellect through Soul in the usual

[1] Lars Thunberg, *Microcosm and Mediator: The Theological Anthropology of Maximus the Confessor*, 2nd ed. (Chicago and La Salle, 1995), 73 (unchanged from p. 77 in the first edition, Lund, 1965).

[2] *Enneads* III 3.1.5-9 (Armstrong).

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pattern, which keeps the material universe in the best possible order and brings it into a unity-in-diversity of contrasting and clashing forces which, though far inferior to the unity of the intelligible world, is its best possible image in the sharply divided world of space and time.'[3]

If Maximos' doctrine of the *logoi* has little in the way of precedent, it has little, too, by way of influence. There is no hint in St John Damascene of the doctrine, even though he evidently knew Maximos' work well, and indeed shares with him (and most likely learnt from him) about Nemesios of Emesa, and how invaluable he was as a resource for a Christian understanding of the man and the cosmos. I don't know any Byzantine theologian who shows awareness of the doctrine of the *logoi* – though that is a vast field in which anyone could be overlooked – indeed, it may well not have been until the last century that Orthodox theologians began to see something worth recovering in Maximos' doctrine of the *logoi*.[4]

It is then a somewhat isolated doctrine. Over the last three-quarters of a century, however, it has attracted the attention of Orthodox theologians, and has been incorporated into some recent expositions of Orthodox theology, notably by the Greeks, Christos Yannaras[5] and John Zizioulas (Metropolitan John of Pergamon),[6] and by the Romanian, Fr Dumitru Stăniloae.[7] It has also received notable expositions in modern scholarship by such as Balthasar,[8] Dalmais,[9] Sherwood,[10] Thunberg,[11] and more recently, Loudovikos,[12] Törönen[13] and Tollefsen.[14] Is there anything left to say? Maybe not, but I still find myself puzzled

[3] A.H.M. Armstrong, *Plotinus* III, Loeb Classical Library (London, 1980), 39.

[4] See Florovsky's tentative treatment in *The Byzantine Fathers of the Sixth to Eighth Century*, Collected Works IX (Vaduz, 1987), 223, and Vladimir Lossky's more confident treatment in his *Essai sur la Théologie mystique de l'Église d'Orient* (Paris, 1944), 90-7 (the new edition in the series *Patrimoines*, Paris, 2005, preserves the pagination of the original), which makes reference to the first edition of Hans Urs von Balthasar's *Kosmische Liturgie*, 1941, and his treatment of the doctrine of the *logoi* there.

[5] See Christos Yannaras, *To Prosopo kai o Eros*, 4th ed. (Athens, 1987), 223-56.

[6] See John Zizioulas, *Being as Communion* (London, 1985), 67-122, especially 95-8.

[7] See Dumitru Stăniloae, *The Experience of God*, vol. 2, *The World: Creation and Deification* (Brookline, MA, 2000), 27-43.

[8] Hans Urs von Balthasar, *Kosmische Liturgie*, 2nd ed. (Einsiedeln, 1961), 110-7.

[9] Irénée-Henri Dalmais, Le théorie des 'logoi' des créatures chez s. Maxime le Confesseur: *Revue des Sciences Philosophiques et Théologiques* 36 (1952) 244-9.

[10] Polycarp Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua of St Maximus the Confessor*, Studia Anselmiana 36 (Rome, 1955), 164-80.

[11] L. Thunberg, *Microcosm and Mediator* (1995), 72-9 (1st ed.: 76-84); *id.*, *Man and Cosmos. The Vision of St Maximus the Confessor* (Crestwood, NY, 1985), *passim*, and especially 132-40.

[12] Nikolaos Loudovikos, *I Efcharistiaki Ontologia* (Athens, 1992), 85-164.

[13] Melchisedec Törönen, *Union and Distinction in the Thought of St Maximus the Confessor* (Oxford, 2007), 127-42, 153-62.

[14] Tollefsen's monograph has now been published: *The Christocentric Cosmology of St Maximus the Confessor* (Oxford, 2008). The *logoi* are discussed in chapter 3, 64-137.

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over some aspects of the doctrine and in this paper will share these puzzles with you in the hope of gaining enlightenment. I shall concentrate on *Ambiguum* 7, which is the subject of this workshop, and only make references to other passages when it seems useful; but this is not much of a limitation, as the discussion in *Amb.* 7 is one of the fundamental discussions of the doctrine of the *logoi* in the whole of Maximos' œuvre.

I want to start by quoting a remark of Sherwood's: 'As the Greek word is itself polyvalent, so the doctrine attached to it is polymorphous'.[15] That is obviously true, but its consequences are worth pondering. Because the Greek word is polyvalent, it is difficult to translate: word, reason, meaning, principle? If you choose any of these you exclude meanings that a Greek might be expected to pick up on hearing or reading the word. So we tend not to translate and just leave it in Greek: *logos*. But that entails another danger, the danger of, on the one hand, assuming that the word *logos* always appears 'trailing clouds of glory', or rather meaning, and, on the other, of reifying the word: because the word is foreign, it is not transparent to its meaning as genuinely English words are, which leads us to suppose, even more than usual, that the meaning of the word is a thing, an error of which Wittgenstein warned us.

In his discussion of *logoi* in *Amb.* 7, Maximos is countering an Origenist doctrine that saw everything beginning in a henad, or unity, of rational beings, which failed in attentiveness to God, and fell away, coming into being as embodied beings in the cosmos, there to engage in ascetic struggle and eventually to regain their capacity for attention and be restored to unity in the contemplation of God. As Dom Polycarp Sherwood remarked of the *Ambigua*, and especially the seventh: 'These *Ambigua* are a refutation of Origenism, especially of the doctrine of the henad, with a full understanding and will to retain what is good in the Alexandrian's doctrine – a refutation perhaps unique in Greek patristic literature.'[16] So, Maximos corrects this Origenism by reversing its ontological sequence of rest-movement-genesis, and replacing it with his own understanding that creatures move through the triad genesis-movement-rest. And in relation to the doctrine of the henad, he is concerned to preserve the notion of unity-in-diversity that the doctrine of the henad was intended to express. He starts by affirming creation out of nothing, an understanding that 'what exists was brought out of non-being into being by God' (1077C).[17] This, for Maximos, is absolutely fundamental: we start with God, not with some primal

[15] P. Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua* (1955), 166.

[16] P. Sherwood, *An Annotated Date List of the Works of Maximus the Confessor*, Studia Anselmiana 30 (Rome, 1952), 3.

[17] I have generally followed the translation of *Ambiguum* 7 in St Maximus the Confessor, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Christ*, translated by Paul M. Blowers and Robert Louis Wilken (Crestwood, NY, 2003) (though see below). I have given references in parentheses in the text, however, by column and section to the edition published in Migne, PG 91 (which are also given in parentheses in the Blowers-Wilken translation).

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state of being. Turning to the created order, and beholding 'the infinite differences and variety of things as they exist by nature', he introduces the model, the *logos*, in accordance with which everything is. All that is manifests both natural diversity and an overall unity, so this model must be understood as one and many: as he puts it 'the one Logos is the many *logoi*', and also the many *logoi* are the One Logos. The former is evident

> in the incomparable differences among created things. For each is unmistakably unique in itself and its identity remains distinct in relation to other things. He [the one observing this] will also know that the many *logoi* are the one Logos to whom all things are related and who exists in himself without confusion, the essential and individually distinctive God, the Logos of God the Father. (1077C)

Since Balthasar, at least, scholars have remarked on the use here of one of the 'Chalcedonian' adverbs – in this case ἀσύγχυτος, in its adjectival form – and spoken of Maximos' 'Chalcedonian logic'. I am convinced by Fr Melchisedec Törönen that this is probably unwarranted. The fascination with unity-in-diversity antedates Chalcedon, even in Christian circles, and so is independent of it, and Maximos nowhere suggests that there is anything 'Chalcedonian' about his concern for the integrity of beings united.[18]

Maximos goes on to affirm the priority of the *logoi* to that of which they are the *logoi*. This is an entailment of the doctrine of divine creation. 'Because he held together in himself the *logoi* before they came to be, by his gracious will he created all things visible and invisible out of non-being' (1080A) – and by 'all things', he includes both universals and particulars.

Here we have our first interpretative *crux*. The *logoi* in some sense precede creation, whereas all that exists in accordance with these *logoi* is created – including, Maximos makes explicit, universals and particulars (τὰ καθόλου τε καὶ τὰ καθ' ἕκαστον: 1080A). One way of approaching the doctrine of the *logoi* – Balthasar is an example, and Lossky seems to follow him in this – is to see it as deriving in some way from the Platonic doctrine of the Forms. Plato's forms, the eternal models of everything that exists, come in Middle Platonism to be identified with God's ideas, the ideas in accordance with which God fashioned the universe. These forms, from the time of Plato himself, are characterized by *logoi*, definitions, and it is not difficult to see how this Middle Platonic notion would be taken over by Christians who believed that God had created the universe through his *Logos*, so that the *Logos* comes to be thought of as the place of the *logoi* (see Philo's notion of God as the 'place of the ideas'[19]), and the *logoi* as manifold expressions of the *Logos* of God. There may well be something behind this sketch, but it is misleading if brought to bear on Maximos without a good deal of caution. For, as we have seen, the universals, to

[18] See M. Törönen, *Union and Distinction* (2007), 1-6.
[19] Philo, *De Cherubim* 49.

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which the Platonic forms correspond, are for Maximos explicitly created, in contrast to the *logoi*. Something else must be going on in Maximos' understanding of the *logoi* than the adoption of the later Platonic notion of the forms as ideas of God. It would appear that, on the one hand, Maximos is concerned to preserve a sense of the contingency of creation (so even universals are created) with a sense of God's intimate concern for his creatures. But this may emerge more clearly from what follows.

Let us continue with Maximos. He now goes on to introduce another distinction in the notion of Logos. First, there is the Logos itself, 'whose excellence is incomparable, ineffable and inconceivable in himself [and who] is exalted beyond all creation and even beyond the idea of difference and distinction'. Secondly, there is

> this same Logos, whose goodness is revealed and multiplied in all the things that have their origin in him, with the degree of beauty appropriate to each being, [who] recapitulates all things in himself. Through this Logos there came to be both being and continuing to be, for from him the things that were made came to be in a certain way and for a certain reason, and by continuing to be and by moving, they participate in God... Consequently, each of the intellectual and rational beings, whether angels or human beings, through the very Logos according to which each was created, who is in God and is 'with God', is 'called and indeed is' a 'portion of God' through the Logos that pre-existed in God as I have already argued (1080B).

We have another *crux* here, which turns, in the translation, on how you write 'logos' – with a capital or not. I have followed Wilkens' translation, but the last reference to 'logos' could be taken as referring to one of the *logoi*. Törönen's translation of this passage (though it is said to be taken from Wilken and Blowers) reads:

> Each of the intellectual and rational beings.., through the very *logos* according to which each was created (*logos* that is in God and is 'with God') is and is called a 'portion of God'.[20]

Which is it – the Logos of God or the *logos* of being? In favour of Wilken's translation is the echo of *John* 1:1, which directly applied to the Logos of God, but if the many *logoi* are the one Logos, then the reference could well be extended to them. In favour of Törönen's translation, is, first, that the next sentence follows on much more straightforwardly: 'Surely then, if someone moves according to his *logos*, he will come to be in God [ἐν τῷ Θεῷ γενήσεται: an Evagrian and Maximian phrase, as Sherwood remarks[21]], in whom the *logos* of his being pre-exists as his beginning and cause' (1080C); Wilken has to take κατ' αὐτόν as referring to the Logos of God, and then the next occurrence of *logos* as referring back to the *logos* of being, as he makes explicit.

[20] M. Törönen, *Union and Distinction* (2007), 130.
[21] P. Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua* (1955), 169.

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It is also in Törönen's favour that Maximos very often speaks of the '*logos* in accordance with which a being has been created', meaning the particular *logos*, not the Logos of God: for instance later on in this *Ambiguum* and in *Amb.* 15, cited by Wilken and Blowers in a footnote.[22] It could be that Wilken wants to underline that we are created in accordance with the Logos of God, but for Maximos this is always equivalent to being created in accordance with our own particular *logos*, and even Wilken's translation goes on to affirm this. This, of course, raises an acute question as to the status of these *logoi*. If they are not created, they must be uncreated. Must they therefore be identical with God Himself?

Lossky solves this by invoking a point Maximos will make a little later on in this *Ambiguum* (and elsewhere), when he identifies the *logoi* with predeterminations and 'divine wills' – or 'products of the divine will'[23] – προορισμοί and θεῖα θελήματα, and also invoking the distinction between the divine essence and the divine energies.[24] Since they are described as 'divine wills', they are distinct from the being of God, and must therefore be identified with the divine energies. I don't think that Maximos ever really makes this identification, but let that pass. Others draw from Lossky's interpretation the idea that each of us has in our *logos* a point of identity with God. It seems to me pretty clear that this is not what Maximos means; the point of his argument throughout the *Ambiguum* is that, though the language of being a 'portion of God', found in St Gregory the Theologian, is legitimate, it cannot be taken literally (on which there is more to follow). My suggestion for the moment is that these *logoi*, according to which we are created, are precisely God's will and predetermination for each creature. They are not 'things', ontic realities; they are what God intends for each of his creatures. Take a passage like this one:

> The *logoi* of all things known by God before their creation are securely fixed in God. They are in him who is the truth of all things. Yes all these things, things present and things to come, have not been brought into being contemporaneously with their being known to God; rather each was created in an appropriate way according to its *logos* at the proper time according to the wisdom of the maker, and each acquired concrete actual existence in itself (1081A).

What this means is that God's intention for each of his creatures is not adventitious, but part of his enduring plan for the *oikonomia* of creation.

This, it seems to me, is what Maximos is saying in the passages that follows. Not untypically, Maximos seems to be paraphrasing in different ways his understanding of the central problem addressed in this *Ambiguum*, namely,

[22] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081A), and *Amb.* 15 (PG 91, 1217A-B), cited in *Cosmic Mystery* 57, n. 34.

[23] Adopting Brian Daley's term from his translation of Balthasar's *Cosmic Liturgy*: Wilken-Blowers, 61, n. 46.

[24] V. Lossky, *Essai sur la Théologie mystique* (1944), 91.

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how, following the use of St Gregory the Theologian,[25] one can be called μοῖρα Θεοῦ, a portion of God. He starts again from the ineffability of the Logos of God, but continues saying that

nevertheless we affirm that the one Logos is many *logoi* and the many *logoi* are One. Because the One goes forth out of goodness into individual beings, creating and preserving them, the One is many. Moreover the many are directed toward the One and are providentially guided in that direction. It is as though they were drawn to an all-powerful centre that had built into it the beginnings of the lines that go out from it and that gathers them all together. In this way the many are one. Therefore 'we are and are called' a 'portion of God' because the *logoi* of our being pre-existed in God. Further, we are said 'to have slipped down from above' because we do not move in accord with the *logos*, which pre-existed in God, though which we came to be (1081 BC).[26]

Living in accordance with our *logos*, which pre-existed in God, means living in accordance with God's intention for us, an intention that is not external to God.

Maximos suggests another way of looking at this by commenting on the apostle's word that 'In him we live and move and have our being' (*Acts* 17:28).

For whoever does not violate the *logos* of his own existence that pre-existed in God *is* in God through diligence; and he *moves* in God according to the *logos* of his well-being that pre-existed in God when he lives virtuously; and he *lives* in God according to the *logos* of his eternal being that pre-existed in God (1084B).

First note that we are in God 'through diligence' – or perhaps better 'through attention' (διὰ προσοχῆς) – if we do not violate the *logos* of being, if we live, as it were, in accordance with the grain of our created being, the intention with which God created us. But then there develops a threefold *logos* – of being, of well-being and of eternal being. Elsewhere, Maximos tells us that being and eternal being are gifts of God alone, while the middle one, well being, depends on our inclination (*Amb.* 10. 3; 1116B). To be and to be eternal are simply gifts of God, but to be well depends on us, depends on our not violating our *logos* of being. All these *logoi* of being are said to 'pre-exist in God', for it is God's intention, from before the creation of the world, that we should exist, and as rational creatures exist eternally. It is also God's intention for us that we should link 'being' and 'eternal being' by 'well being', but that is an intention that depends on us. If we join being to well-being we will come to eternal well being, the bliss of union with God. If well being is not present, Maximos does not speak of eternal ill being (ἀεὶ φεῦ εἶναι), but says that 'the extremes [of being and eternal being] are designated in vain, and the truth that is in the extremes cannot otherwise accrue to them or be preserved, or even come to be' (1116B) – God's eternal intention, in some mysterious way, is frustrated, but

[25] In Gregory Nazianzen, *Or.* 14. 7 (PG 35, 865C).
[26] Wilken again translates the last *logos* with a capital.

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that state of frustration – presumably damnation – is not simply parallel to the attainment of bliss.

It is in these terms that I am minded to interpret Maximos' doctrine of the *logoi* of creation: as a way of expressing how God's ineffable will for the created order manifests itself in a state of manifold difference and diversity that is intrinsic to finite created being, and intrinsic, too, to its state of fulfilment in deification.

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Causality and Movement in St. Maximus' *Ambiguum* 7

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In the 7th *Ambiguum* St. Maximus the Confessor criticises the heretical cosmology and soteriology of a spirituality usually termed Origenist.[1] According to this view, an original *henad* of rational beings was gathered around God. Being satiated in their contemplation of Him, they fell and moved away, with the consequence that God made the present cosmos as a pedagogical device for punishment and improvement. This adds up the following cosmological scheme: *rest-movement-creation*. St. Maximus does not find this cosmology sound at all. His criticism succeeds, in my opinion, well. It is developed along rather strict philosophical lines, and is based on a certain concept of causality, viz. that of final causality. Through his arguments in the 7th *Ambiguum* the basic features of Maximus' own philosophy is revealed. We find a metaphysics and ontology that is developed in connection with a definite understanding of the beginning and end of the cosmos. In addition, one clearly sees the contours of a Christian system that is opposed to non-Christian schools of thought, viz. Neoplatonism. In this paper I shall investigate some basic metaphysical structures of the cosmology of Maximus, viz. his doctrines of causality and movement as these are treated in the 7th *Ambiguum*.

Beginning and end

St. Maximus quotes with approval an unidentified, probably an Aristotelian, 'outsider':[2] 'The end is that for the sake of which all things exist, it, however, is for the sake of nothing.' In the strictest sense this definition fits God. God is, in the 7th *Ambiguum*, the end of all actualization and movement, and God does not exist for the sake of something.

St. Maximus replaces the heretical triad of *rest-movement-creation* with, according to his own arguments, the philosophically more sound triad *creation-movement-rest*. This is established along two lines of thought. The first is connected with the idea that what moves (*i.e.* what enters the state of movement from a state of – apparent – rest) has not yet been at rest in the ultimately

[1] Polycarp Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua of Saint Maximus the Confessor* (Rome, 1955).
[2] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C).

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desired condition. Its status is obviously other than that of ultimate rest, and it obviously has a course to fulfil. The question of the *origin* of the beings constituting the *henad* becomes more and more pressing.[3] The second reason stems from a basic metaphysical and ontological conviction that sounds quite reasonable: it is impossible for God and beings other than God to have togetherness under the same ontological conditions. At least in St. Maximus' presentation of it, the ontological status of the original *henad* is left unexplained, and one could get the impression that it somehow was present together with God in the beginning. However, since the intelligences of the *henad* enter the condition of movement, they obviously are ontologically constituted in a lower kind of reality than the divinity. In essence they must be, according to a categorical scheme, of a delimited nature (they are called τὰ πεπερασμένα).[4] Therefore, such beings must have originated in another ontological dimension through an act of creation. To sum up: creatureliness, as being delimited, points in the direction of something still outstanding, *i.e.* an end for the sake of which a being would enter a process of actualization and movement. Consequently, for beings other than God there first comes creation, secondly movement and in the end rest.

Something striking with the doctrine of the heretics, as attacked by Maximus, is the similarity with Plotinus' *Ennead* V 1, on the three primary hypostases. Souls, according to Plotinus, are parts coming from the higher world, and their fall is due to audacity (τόλμα), with the consequence of generation, the first difference and the wish to belong to themselves.[5] According to Plotinus, there is a condition of rest or remaining above that is broken by souls proceeding downwards, figuratively speaking. Plotinus' and, in general, the Neoplatonic doctrine of causation tells that the effect occurs at a lower level of reality than its cause. The similarities should not, however, blind us to the differences, because the Origenist doctrine obviously takes a kind of temporality into consideration that Plotinus does not. For Plotinus the fall is an image of an eternal ontological condition in a logical sequence of fall, cosmic generation, differentiation and the wish to belong to oneself. One should note that it is the soul, not the One, that is the proximate efficient cause of the material world. It is also to be noted that temporal succession is introduced on the last stage in the cosmology. I think the main difference between the Christians and Plotinus consists in different understandings of the first principle, especially its will. We shall return to this.

The Maximian triad of creation-movement-rest is equivalent with his triad of procession-conversion-rest. This last triad immediately suggests a pattern according to which beings other than God are conditioned within the cosmic

[3] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).
[4] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081B).
[5] *Ennead* V 1.1.

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scheme of *procession* and *conversion*. God creates them and they move towards God, yes, they are guided providentially towards their end in Him.[6] In the philosophy of St. Maximus this is a development of his Christian conception of final causality, and at the same time demonstrates the Anti-Neoplatonic character of his thought.

Students of ancient philosophy are acquainted with the Neoplatonist doctrine of procession (πρόοδος) and conversion (ἐπιστροφή). Whenever these terms, or close equivalents, turn up in a Christian system of thought, it is often held to be due to a Neoplatonist influence. In one sense this might be true, in another it is wrong. It might be true, I think, when it comes to the terms as such, but not when it comes to the concepts. The Neoplatonist *concepts* of causality and movement carried by these terms (*i.e.* procession and conversion) differ markedly from the Christian concepts of causality and movement. According to Plotinus, the perfect activity (ἐνέργεια) of the higher hypostases is somehow transported to a lower hierarchical level. In Plotinus' philosophy this is conceived as the causal scheme of *double activity*, *i.e.* internal and external activity.[7] Here we touch upon the philosophical doctrine behind the metaphors of emanation. But whether one goes to Plotinus or to Proclus the doctrine of causation they develop cannot fit the concerns of a Christian understanding of created being.

Now, what would be the limitations? I shall just touch upon some. According to Plotinus, the One is as it is, not because it cannot be otherwise, but because being what it is is the best.[8] The will of the One, consequently, wills itself.[9] This act of willing itself has the lower levels of being as a coincidental result. Even if the making of lower hierarchies is incidental – from the point of view of the will of the One in itself – all lower strata exist as necessary bi-products of the act of the One willing itself.[10] The One's act of will is, of course, simple. Multiplicity is introduced on the level of the Mind – especially as contemplated by the Soul. In this scheme procession and conversion are causal moments of a simultaneous kind. They occur together as ontologically constitutive in the same creative act. In short, when a being proceeds it is only incipient. When it converts it is perfected.[11] The two 'movements' are not separated by any passing of time. Historical time as a dimension of major importance is not brought into the great metaphysical scheme at all.

Measured by Christian standards, such metaphysics is intolerable. Some of the same terms are used, the concepts, however, differ. The divine will, in

[6] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081C).
[7] *Ennead* V 1 gives some clues as to how double activity is conceived.
[8] *Ennead* VI 8.10. St. Maximus would, no doubt, have accepted this dictum.
[9] *Ennead* VI 8.13.
[10] For this, see *Ennead* V 4.2, V 1.6 and VI 1.22.
[11] This idea is found again and again in *Ennead* V 1.

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St. Maximus, should also be conceived as turned towards the divine being itself. But this act of being turned towards itself, immediately and eternally, is *the will to make what is other than God.* While the God of Plotinus does not consider anything other than itself, the God of St. Maximus considers, even eternally, the making of a cosmos under the conditions of space and time, filled with myriads of creatures, and with man as the primary focus of divine benevolence. In *Ad Thalassium* 60 Maximus speaks of the plan of God, 'a super-infinite plan infinitely pre-existing the ages'.[12] The thought that would now naturally turn up in a Neoplatonist mind would be 'well than, what God eternally thought, He eternally did, so creation is from eternity'. Maximus denies this, but in this paper I have not the space, unfortunately, to discuss the philosophical problems related to his doctrine of creation. Rather briefly it can be stated, however, that as far as I can understand, what he teaches is that God eternally wanted that something other than God should emerge so that for the part of the otherness (in relation to itself) there would be a temporal beginning and a temporal succession.

In the metaphysics of the *Ambiguum* 7, the procession is the creation of the world, and the conversion is the movement towards eschatological fulfilment. The 'between' procession and conversion, or the dimension in which conversion begins, is the extension of historical time, which in this metaphysics is economically and soteriologically essential. To legitimate the procession-conversion scheme, St. Maximus does not appeal to any representative of the philosophical schools, he appeals to the Scriptures, and the metaphysics of propositions found in texts by St. Paul. From the *Col.* 1:15-7 and *Rom.* 11:36, he gathers that beings are created in Him (ἐν ᾧ), from Him (ἐξ αὐτοῦ), through Him (δι' αὐτοῦ), and for Him (εἰς αὐτόν). The 'from Him' points to the procession in the sense of creation. God is the *efficient cause* of beings. The 'for Him' points to the conversion and shows God as *final cause* of the All. The 'in Him' and 'through Him' point to certain ways divine causality may be specified even more closely. We are led to Maximus' doctrine of the *logoi.*

Logos and *logoi*

According to the Neoplatonists the simplicity of God is a basic concept, and creation, however one should put it, somehow has a taint of being a fall from perfection. The plurality of principles necessary to make a cosmos occurs on a lower level in the divine or intelligible world. Maximus would never deny divine simplicity, rather the opposite. Still, according to him, the plurality of principles causative of created multiplicity occurs at the highest level, within

[12] *Ad Thalassium* 60 (CChr.SG 22, 75).

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the eternal divine act of contemplation and willing:[13] '[...] the one Logos is many *logoi*.' – It could be objected that Maximus states in the text of the 7th *Ambiguum* that the One is many in the *procession* of beings from God and, on the other hand, the many are One in the movement of *conversion*.[14] If this is the case – that the plurality of principles occur at the moment of *creation*, and in the conversion become One again – then plurality should *not* in any way be led back into the eternal being of the One. However, if the principles are plural in the act of creation, they 'already' are plural *in some way* in the eternal contemplative act of God:

> The *logoi* of all things known by God before their creation are securely fixed in God. They are in Him who is the truth of all things. Yet all these things, things present and things to come, have not been brought into being contemporaneously with their being known by God [...].[15]

Somehow beings exist potentially in divine knowledge before they are actualized in creation. The question is, then, how the principles of this potential plurality are conceived as fixed in God.

In the *Ambiguum* 7 St. Maximus makes use of an image that may bring us closer to a solution of the problem:[16] 'It is as though they [*i.e.* created beings – present author's remark] were all drawn to an all-powerful centre that had built into it the beginnings of the lines that go out of it and that gathers them all together.' It is common knowledge that the centre of a circle is a point with no extension. What we have here is an image of the unity of all principles in the one Logos. The image is used in the *Mystagogia* to illustrate just this point. Christ, the divine Logos, St. Maximus says, encloses in Himself all beings by 'the unique, simple, and infinitely wise power of His goodness', and this is compared with being the centre of straight lines that radiate from Him.[17] On this background we may grasp Maximus' intention and say that somehow the principles of beings, the *logoi*, are essentially related to the Logos Himself. The plurality of the *logoi*, when it comes to the act of creation, is, according to Maximus, 'already' eternally known and willed in the *simple* wisdom of God. We could say, I think, that God knows as Logos, in a simple way, His own simple perfection to be the paradigm of a multitude of created beings. God Himself does not contain a plurality, nor is His thought split up in multiple thoughts and patterns according to which He will create. His wisdom is simple and contains all possibilities in that He just knows Himself. God thinks His simplicity as perfect and good, and thinking it as such He thinks it as a possibility of being mirrored in a plurality of possible creatures. I suppose this could be St. Maximus'

[13] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077C).
[14] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081B-C).
[15] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081A).
[16] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081C).
[17] *Myst. Ch.* 1 (PG 91, 668A).

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understanding of St. Paul's all things are created 'in Him'. That is: God is the *paradigmatic cause* of beings. He thinks the *logoi* that become acts of will for the establishment of the cosmos.[18] As Maximus says in the 7th *Ambiguum*, it is the *same* Logos (τὸν αὐτόν) whose goodness is revealed and multiplied in all the things that have their origin in Him.[19]

From a philosophical point of view one could have desired a more detailed exposition of the way the *logoi* are conceived eternally by God. In Plotinus we find an elaborate discussion of the intelligibles in the Intellect. However, the Plotinian Intellect and the God of St. Maximus differ in ontological status and therefore in perfection. I think St. Maximus consciously only hints at the subject of how the *logoi* are conceived in the Logos, because his God is in a radical sense transcendent. On the other hand I think St. Maximus indicates a way the relation between Logos and *logoi* could be considered in *Ambiguum* 41.[20] The *logoi* of individuals are contained in the *logoi* of species, the *logoi* of species by the *logoi* of genera, and the highest *logoi* are contained by Wisdom, *i.e.* by the Wisdom of God, that is by Christ, the Logos. Consequently, in one, simple act of knowledge, the Logos knows it all, because everything is contained by the *logos* of the highest genus of essence. In knowing the contents of His own Wisdom God in one sense contemplates nothing other than Himself, since the thinker and what is thought are the same. If this line of interpretation is sound, one might suggest that there is a distinction between the *logoi* considered in unified simplicity and the *logoi* as acts of will in the act of creation. It is clear, however, that the primary act of divine knowledge cannot differ from the act of divine will to be oneself. In view of that, the *logoi* as actualized in creation must be considered a second act of divine will.

St. Maximus' Christian image of God is quite different from the Neoplatonist understanding of divine being. God does not make the world by coincidence, as a by-product of His being and thinking Himself exclusively. Rather creation and salvation are essential to being God, and His will, as a will to be Himself, should simultaneously be understood as a will turned towards making of otherness. The divine will is, consequently, understood differently than in Plotinus.

With a view to creation, the one Logos is many *logoi*, and by these *logoi* as acts of will, God is causative of beings other than Himself:

> For we believe that a *logos* of angles preceded their creation, a *logos* preceded the creation of each of the beings that fill the upper world, a *logos* preceded the creation of human beings, a *logos* preceded everything that receives its becoming from God, and so on.[21]

[18] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1085A).
[19] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080B).
[20] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1313A-B).
[21] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080A).

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In St. Maximus' philosophy there is a close connection between God as paradigmatic cause and God as efficient cause. The *logoi* have the dual aspects of essential definitions and acts of will. In the act of creation the paradigms are imprinted in an otherness brought from non-being into being. The Logos gives, in addition to the essential contents, both being and remaining (or continuation) (τὸ εἶναι καὶ τὸ διαμένειν).[22] I suppose one could suggest that the being and remaining is what is expressed in the Pauline term that beings exist 'through Him'.

Maximus sees a difference between the three causal moments of the *what*, *that* and *why* things are. The 'whatness' is the essential content of something conceived in the wisdom of God as a *logos*. The 'what' (the essence) is distinguished from the *emergence* of the thing as such, the 'that' it is. *If* created or *when* created a being is brought from non-being into being, and it receives *being* and *remaining in being* from God, or as said by Maximus: '[...] by continuing to be and by moving, they [*i.e.* beings] *participate* in God (καὶ μένοντα καὶ κινούμενα μετέχει θεοῦ).' They participate in accordance with the kind of nature they have been given.[23]

Maximus further makes us aware of the close connection between the dual moments of the 'what' and the 'for the sake of which'. This duality is related to the way the *logos* of being a certain thing, is conceived within the Logos Himself. A particular *logos* is shown to manifest a dual or even a triadic character, according to the Pauline pattern of *Acts* 17:28: 'For in Him we live, and move, and have our being [...].' In Maximian terms: there is a *logos* of being (see 'have our being'), of well-being (see 'move') and of eternal well-being (see 'live').[24]

The *for the sake of which*, final causality, is the main idea behind St. Maximus' coherent philosophical critique of the spirituality of the myth he combats in the 7th *Ambiguum*, and it dominates his metaphysical description of the condition of intellectual beings. It seems to be the dominating concept of causality subsuming all other causal aspects under it. Final causality is behind paradigmatic, efficient and preservative causality. It is the basic fact behind the movements of procession and conversion. God instituted the whole cosmic drama for a *purpose*, and all metaphysical and ontological moments are determined by this purpose. It dominates cosmic being to such a degree that one might wonder if any creature, even intellectual ones, have any real freedom of movement. Beings seem to be fenced in by their efficient cause, that is their *logos* of being, in the one end, and their final destiny, their *logos* of eternal well-being, in the other end. Maximus stresses the vertical dependency of beings to such a degree that one might wonder if any freedom exists at all. He sees this

[22] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080B).
[23] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080B).
[24] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1084B).

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himself, and says explicitly that he does not want to deny the power of self-determination.[25] He at least tries to describe the ontological conditions of free acts.

The sequence 1072B-C is crucial in this connection. Maximus first emphasises that no creature is unmoved (ἀκίνητον). The reason is that 'to be created' means somehow to lack fulfilment, and what lacks fulfilment strives for it, in short it *moves*. As I said earlier, there is something still outstanding for every creature. Movement is essentially directed towards an end, it is for a purpose. Movement takes place from a natural faculty or power, because of a passion, or is generally a passing from one thing to another or is an efficacious activity (ἐνέργειαν δραστικήν), but in every case the end is fulfilment, impassibility (τὸ ἀπαθές). Now, one would usually think that all striving would be directed towards perceivable goals, *i.e.* would be directed horizontally to the object of desire that may be grasped and enjoyed within the course of an earthly life. However, the main drive of final causality according to St. Maximus is, as we clearly see, vertical, not horizontal. The striving for fulfilment cannot be achieved immanently. Why not? The answer to this question is worked out in the first series of arguments in the *Ambiguum* 7: there is no rest if not what is *ultimately desirable* is possessed, and only the divine itself is of such a nature. No created being has, therefore, its end in itself (οὐδὲν δὲ τῶν γενητῶν ἑαυτοὺς τέλοι ἐστίν). By implication, no created being can be the extreme end for another creature. Rather, striving is for what is self-fulfilled (τὸ αὐτοτελές),[26] *i.e.* for what may only be achieved vertically, figuratively speaking. If a creature had been self-fulfilled in itself, it would have been like the divine, *i.e.* unmoved and inactive in relation to ends that should be fulfilled.[27] A creature lives as it should live whenever it transcends the sensible realm in the direction of God, because it is only from God one may achieve the grace to be God.[28]

Beings are made according to principles and within conditions that should bring them most naturally into the right course. The power of self-determination might be taken as a fact, but one might still wonder why creatures do not follow the order of nature and instead choose to live discordant with divine

[25] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1076B).

[26] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072B).

[27] See *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C). Here I disagree with the interpretation and translation of the text in: St Maximus the Confessor, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Christ*, translated by Paul Blowers and Robert Louis Wilken (Crestwood, NY, 2003), 49. *Amb.* 7, 1072C 5-7 is translated thus: 'If complete it would have the power of action, but because it has its being from what is not, it does not have the power of action.' This is said of created beings, and makes the impression that activity is not essential to them at all rather they do not have the power of being active. I don't think this is in accordance with Maximus' general teaching, which rather seems to be that the power of actively pursuing ends is typical of creatures. I think what Maximus really wants to say is that if created beings had been self-fulfilled they had been inactive (in relation to ends that should be achieved).

[28] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1084A), see the whole sequence 1084A-D.

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principles. There is, generally, no good answer to this question, but in Christian theology one points to the fall as the explanation of the problem. After the fall the internal (psychological) and external (environmental) conditions are unfavourable. A being for which something is still outstanding will strive for fulfilment. If a being striving for fulfilment is confused and possibly wrong-directed because of deceit, as Maximus says in his discussion with Pyrrhus,[29] it might choose wrong and come to live discordant with the norm expressed in its *logos*. Even if St. Maximus has a rather strong view of final causality, such a being is not constrained by external forces to move in a preordained course.

The world-view of *Ambiguum* 7 is not concerned with the causality of occurrences in physical or biological nature. However, there is nothing in St. Maximus' system that would exclude the possibility of describing such causality. What he focuses on is the dependence of all natural striving on the vertical, metaphysical dimension. From other texts we can see that his doctrine does not only concern intelligent creatures. The divine principles are principles of natural phenomena as well, which means that his doctrine of final causality embraces the whole cosmos of non-living and living creatures. This is, of course, a metaphysical, not a scientific doctrine in the modern sense.

[29] *Disputatio cum Pyrrho* (PG 91, 309C).

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St Maximus on Πάθος and Κίνησις in *Ambiguum* 7

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The purpose of this paper is to elaborate St Maximus' doctrine of movement. It is well known that the doctrine of movement in *Ambiguum* 7 was developed in the course of Maximus' refutation of Origenism. However, this doctrine is not something produced *ad hoc* for this purpose; rather, it represents the core of his theological and philosophical insight. Almost every student of St Maximus knows his reversal of the Origen's triad στάσις – κίνησις – γένεσις into the triad γένεσις – κίνησις – στάσις. By this reversal, the concept of movement from the cause of the Fall in Origenism becomes an intrinsic characteristic of the created being. Therefore, exploring this concept in a broader perspective will certainly show that movement occupies the supreme place in the cosmological and ontological framework of St Maximus. The scope of our research will be mainly focused on *Ambiguum* 7, but for a better understanding of this concept we will extend our analysis to the whole *Ambigua* and St Maximus' *opera*. The aim is to show how the concept of movement employed in St Maximus teleology, cosmology and psychology gathers all the parts of his diverse teaching in one inseparable unity.

St Maximus' concept of movement can be divided into three aspects. The first is according to the goal or the end of movement; the second is the nature of moved being; and the third is the simplicity of movement and a geometrical mode or type of movement.

1. Movement according to goal

Before we begin explaining the goal-related aspect it is necessary to show that the ontological distinction between God and creation is made on the basis of movement. The movement is driven by desire to attain the object of desire and to find rest in it. St Maximus introduces the Aristotelian view of movement as something incomplete. Thus, movement refers to imperfection and a being gains fulfillment and perfection only by achieving the cessation of movement.[1]

A desire, and consequently also movement, should be directed toward something that is perfect. The perfect being which satisfies the desires of others

[1] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).

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should not desire something else than itself. The being that is perfect by nature, according to Maximus,[2] is uncaused. The perfect being possesses its cause and presumably its end in itself and has no desire for anything else. Only God is without desire for anything because He fills all the things[3] and consequently He is unmoved. God is one, infinite and uncircumscribed.[4] Therefore, God is for St Maximus 'unmoved and complete and impassible'.[5]

A created being is endowed with movement and movement is therefore intrinsic to the nature of being. However, every movement is directed toward an end and we can define every movement in accordance with the goal of movement. St Maximus teaches that from God 'come both our moving in whatever way from a beginning and our moving in a certain way toward him as an end'.[6] Therefore, the rational being by its faculty of reason can choose in general two ways to move. The first way has the end (τέλος) of movement in God, and the second way has the end of its movement in everything else, namely creation.

In both cases the movement of rational beings is driven by desire to reach an end, but every end does not bring the movement to rest, because the desire is not always satisfied. St Maximus claims that what is intrinsically good and lovable draws all movement toward itself and it satisfies 'the desire of those who find delight in it'.[7]

The divine being is simultaneously the cause of everything because it is uncaused, and the goal of everything because it is the fountain of perfection for caused beings. Therefore, St Maximus claims that 'God is the beginning and the end'.[8] The goal of our movement is then identical with the cause of our beginning, which precedes our movement.[9] God, as our creator, has already determined that the proper end of our being is toward Him as the end in which our movement will be completed. Thus, God, as the ultimate end of movement causes the energy of the being which is driven to find rest in its cause.[10] This energy, which St Maximus calls passion or passibility (πάθος), causes the movement toward its proper end. Passion or desire directed toward being's first and only cause or toward the ultimately desirable.[11] St Maximus defines passion

[2] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C).
[3] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).
[4] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C).
[5] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073B).
[6] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073B). See the English translation in: St Maximus the Confessor, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Christ*, translated by Paul M. Blowers and Robert Louis Wilken (Crestwood, NY, 2003), 50.
[7] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069BC); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 46.
[8] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073C).
[9] St Maximus claims this also in *Amb.* 23 (PG 91, 1257C): 'Everything that by nature is moving, necessary moves for the reason of a cause; and everything that moves from the reason of a cause, necessarily also exists because of a cause'.
[10] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).
[11] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072B).

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as a 'natural power or movement passing from one thing to another and having impassibility as its end' or 'irrepressible activity that has as its end perfect fulfillment'.[12] Thus, passion or passibility does not represent a corruption of the faculties of created beings, but a constitutive or essential characteristic of the created order. Therefore, aspects of passion can be distinguished in accordance with the object of desire and consequently the aim of movement. Passibility by itself is a natural capacity or faculty to execute the operation of movement toward something in which being finds a source of its fulfillment. Thus, the goal toward which we direct our desires determines the nature of our passions. Not every passion leads toward the proper end and not every movement is essential movement.

St Maximus warns John of Cyzicus (and indirectly warns us as well) not to misunderstand passibility as a corruption of one's power.[13] This leads us to the question: How can passion be corrupted if it is an inherent power that directs being toward its end? Passion is a natural or inherent power produced not by us, but by God in us for all movement. It is in our power to choose the means and direction of movement and our choice is either movement toward its proper end, namely God, or toward the creatures or objects of our desire.

Rational beings, after coming into existence through creation, continue (continue because they were already in a transition from non-being to being) to move not only in accordance with their natural passion from the beginning toward end, but also in accordance with their free will, which determines the direction of the movement. We see that Maximus makes a clear distinction between movement according to nature (κατὰ φύσιν) and movement according to will (κατὰ γνώμην).

The constitutive and distinctive feature of every rational creature is the faculty of reason. Reason is a source of self-determination or self-governed movement. Therefore, if reason is a constitutive faculty of rational nature then self-determination, or will to move or govern one's own being, is also a faculty of nature. The will or freedom of rational beings to move in whatever way they choose is in their nature *ab initio*. If they exercise their freedom to move voluntary toward good or well-being, they are moving toward God as an end. By moving steadfastly toward well-being, rational beings gain eternal well-being as something naturally endowed to them by God. Our beginning in being and end in eternal well-being are given to our nature, and we naturally move from the beginning in being toward the end in well-being. Nevertheless, the capacity for natural movement is only a potential and the choice of the direction towards the end in eternal well being depends on our will.[14] It is necessary to pass through

[12] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072B); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 48.
[13] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073B).
[14] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073C).

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mere well-being in order to reach the divine eternity. Therefore, being in which we were brought from non-being is our natural beginning and eternity or eternal well-being in God is the purpose of our creation and the natural end of our being. The proper end as good or well-being is within the powers of our natural will and our nature. Reason, according to St Maximus, directs free will to choose movement in accordance with nature. Movement toward God is thus both in accordance with our nature and in accordance with our free will.

In contrast, movement toward the creatures or objects of desire is likewise the choice of our free will, but it is not natural because it is movement toward something which is less stable than we are. Therefore, the willingness to move not toward God but toward something else corrupts our powers. Hoping to gain its stability, the rational being searches for fulfillment among created objects that neither satisfy its desire nor bring the movement to rest.

2. Movement according to the nature of being

The second type of movement in *Ambiguum* 7 is that of intellectual or sensible movement. It depends on the realm of created order to which being belongs. This division is basic to creation. Every created thing has its goal out of itself and moves in harmony with nature toward its goal. Thus, the movement of intellectual things is intellectual and the movement of sensible things is sensible.[15] St Maximus does not further elaborate on the movement of sensible things here, but he does not spare ink to describe the movement of intellectual or reasonable beings.

Let us examine the way in which intellectual beings move. Intellectual movement can be divided into two kinds. The first kind can be called ecstatic movement or the movement of love; and the second kind can be called the *gnostic* movement or the movement of knowledge.

Movement requires initially the appropriate movement of intellectual beings – that is, movement in accordance with their nature. If intellectual beings move according to their nature, then their thoughts are naturally directed toward the goal of their movement. Having an implanted desire or passion toward the goal of their movement in them, they love what they think. Therefore, movement toward the goal is a natural consequence of this desire or passion. Thus, love causes ecstasy or ecstatic movement of being toward its goal. Ecstasy means that the centre of the being is moved from it and placed in that towards which it strives. It is a kind of departure from oneself. Ecstatic movement can be described by two concepts introduced by St Maximus. The first concept is that of delimitation or the *perigraphic*; the second concept is that of voluntary

[15] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072A).

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emigration. St Maximus describes the first concept in the following words: 'It not longer wants anything from itself, for it knows itself to be wholly embraced, and intentionally and by choice it wholly receives the life-giving delimitation'.[16]

Union with the divine being supersedes the boundaries of intellectual being not only by centering being in the divine, but also by expanding the limits of intellectual being through the divine embrace. Having been embraced by the divine, the intellectual being changes its self-perception as defined by its limits and circumscription, to being defined by what it is embraced by. Therefore, the rational being no longer experiences limits because in union with the unlimited and the uncircumscribed, the limits of its being are abolished. Therefore, the rational being can participate in God without being restricted to its natural definition (ὅρος) and it therefore becomes 'uncontainably contained' (ἀχωρήτως χωρουμένου).[17] The union of intellectual being with the divine does not suppose a mixture or confusion of the two natures. On the contrary, it fully preserves the natural distinctions inherent in nature.

The second concept important for the understanding of ecstatic movement is that of voluntary emigration. Change in the intellectual being takes place not only on the level of definition but also on the level of will. Thus, the intellectual being does not only will to know and to unite itself with God, but also wills to be known, to be embraced and circumscribed by God. Therefore, Maximus warns that this firm and steadfast disposition to fix our will in the divine will is not giving up of our free will (αὐτεξούσιον), but rather ἐκχώρησις γνωμική,[18] a 'willing surrender'[19] (as Blowers and Wilken translate it) or a 'voluntary outpassing'[20] and 'a complete handing-over of our self-determination' (as Sherwood suggests[21]). It means that our will is completely subject to the divine will, as in the Lord's Prayer where we ask of God that His will be done. Therefore, our reliance on God is based on the fact that He gave us being and the capacity for movement toward Him.

The concept of voluntary surrender is central to understanding the difference between the Neoplatonic notion of return or conversion (ἐπιστροφή), and St Maximus' idea of ἐπιστρεπτικὴν ἀναφορά. Sherwood[22] suggests that St Maximus employs the Neoplatonic idea of the cycle of progress from a cause and return thereto, evident in Proclus' 12th proposition.[23] There is without doubt

[16] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073D); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 51.

[17] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1076D).

[18] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1076B).

[19] See P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 52.

[20] Polycarp Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua of Saint Maximus the Confessor* (Romae, 1955), 129.

[21] Polycarp Sherwood, *St Maximus the Confessor: The Ascetic Life. The Four Centuries of Charity*, ACW 21 (New York, 1955), 59

[22] P. Sherwood, *Earlier Ambigua* (1955), 129, n. 7

[23] Proclus, *Elements in Theology*, ed. E.R. Dodds (Oxford, 1933), 14, 198.

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a degree of this Neoplatonic idea in St Maximus, but the main difference in St Maximus' is that an intellectual being does not want to attain the divine being by its own power. The intellectual being voluntarily surrenders itself to God expecting God to act further in order to achieve union. Therefore, having unconditional trust or faith in God, the intellectual being expects to be embraced by the divine being and not to actively seize Him. However, theoretically speaking, God is not obliged to move one step toward the intellectual being and the union might therefore never take place.

St Maximus describes the nature of the future union between God and the intellectual beings by the metaphors of air and light and iron and fire, frequently used in Christology. This would be a union where the distinctiveness of the natures is preserved. Thus, the illuminated air is still air, just as red-hot iron is still iron. Therefore, the divine being penetrates the intellectual being just as the soul penetrates the body; yet the penetration takes place the other way around; the intellectual being penetrates the divine being to a certain extent. However, the nature of this interpenetration is asymmetrical. As we can see in the light-air and fire-iron examples, the light and fire play an active role of illuminating and heating while the air and the fire receive the light and the heat passively. Likewise, the intellectual nature of angels and humans also experience passivity after the submission of their being to the divine being. St Maximus clearly describes the achieved state by the oxymoron ever-moving rest or ever-resting movement around the divine. The reason why rational being continues to move even attaining God is due to the fact that the divine infinity causes the desire not to perish but 'to become more intense and to have no limit'.[24]

The second type of movement of intellectual and rational creatures is the *gnostic* movement. The provisional division between ecstatic and *gnostic* movement requires a corresponding distinction between certain faculties of the intellectual and rational creature. The *ecstatic* movement is a natural movement of the intellectual faculty of angels and humans, and the *gnostic* movement is governed by their faculty of reason.

However, γνῶσις or knowledge of created things is attainable by reason, wisdom[25] and appropriate movement. The appropriate movement is actually 'naturally wise and reasonable movement' (ὡς κατὰ φύσιν σοφῶς τε καὶ λελογισμένως δι' εὐπρεποῦς κινήσεως)[26] toward the object of knowledge. Thus, the soul's faculty of reasoning is naturally oriented toward beings, in order to learn the essential nature of beings. Knowing the essential nature of beings means to know their causes and distinctive principles (λόγοι) of their beings according to which every being is 'unmistakably unique in itself' and

[24] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1089B); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 65.
[25] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077C).
[26] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080C).

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distinct from others.[27] The striving for knowledge about created beings leads reason to acknowledge that the distinctive principles of beings (λόγοι) are one divine *Logos*. Therefore, St Maximus maintains that if someone is 'moved by desire and wants to attain nothing else than its own beginning, he does not flow away from God'.[28]

Consequently, not only the intellectual but also the rational faculty leads to knowledge of God, who is the source of all life and knowledge. Rational beings gain perfect knowledge of the created world through knowledge of God, because the λόγοι of beings preexisted in the *Logos* as divine wills. Therefore, the ecstatic movement, which is directly oriented toward God, apart from the knowledge of divine brings is the perfect knowledge of creation. The *gnostic* movement or the movement of reason, which is oriented toward any object of knowledge, leads us toward the principle of every created being and through it to the sum of all principles (λόγοι) of beings, the divine Logos.

3. Movement according to simplicity or geometrical type

The third type of movement, the geometrical type, shows once more the distinction between ecstatic and *gnostic* movement or the movement of mind and the movement of reason. Following Dionysius the Areopagite, St Maximus teaches about three types of movement: linear, circular and spiral. These types of movement can also be delineated on the basis of their complexity; whereas the linear movement is presumably simple, and the other two are complex.[29] Andrew Louth[30] suggests that these three types of movement can be identified with three kinds of movement in the soul exposed in *Ambiguum* 10, namely the movement of mind, reason and senses. St Maximus obviously follows his great teacher Dionysius the Areopagite who has a similar division of the soul's faculties.[31]

As we can see from the above, mind causes the ecstatic movement that is simple and oriented directly toward the object of its ultimate desire, the divine. St Maximus repeats this in *Ambiguum* 10, claiming that the movement of mind is a 'simple and explicable motion, according to which the soul, moved in unknowable way close to God, knows Him in a transcendent way that has nothing to do with any of the things that exist'.[32] It is easy to conclude from this that the mind moves in a straight line or linearly.

[27] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077C).
[28] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080C); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 56.
[29] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072A).
[30] Andrew Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (London and New York 1996), 205.
[31] *DN* 4.8-10 (PG 3, 704D-705C); *Pseudo-Dionysius: The Complete Works*, trans. C. Luibheid (New York, 1987), 78-9.
[32] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1112D-1113A); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 100.

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The second movement is the movement of reason and it is directed toward the object of knowledge or 'in accordance with the defining cause of something unknown'.[33] If the movement of mind is linear, which of other two types of movements, circular and spiral should be applied to the movement of reason? Could this movement be described as circular? In this case, reason begins its movement from the object of knowledge, whose natural *logos* investigates and naturally moves toward the cause of it. Therefore, movement of reason can be described as movement along the Porphyrian tree; first from the particular object to its universal nature, and then back from universal nature or generic genus, over intermediate genera, species and the most specific species to the distinctive accidental feature of particular object. This movement looks as circular, but in Dionysius[34] the movement of reason is not explained as circular but as a spiral movement. It is hard to believe that St Maximus corrects Dionysius on this point. How then does the movement of reason gets its vertical dimension to become spiral? As we can see from *Ambiguum* 7, Maximus claims that even the being wants to learn its beginning or cause or the causes of other beings. It does not flow away from God[35] because many λόγοι of created being inevitably lead to one divine *Logos*.[36] Consequently, the movement of reason – which is not like the movement of mind directed toward God, but horizontally toward created beings and their causes – gets its vertical dimension in the process of learning the ultimate cause of all beings. Therefore, the reason on its way toward universals does not stop on most generic genus but ascends further to the ultimate cause or Logos. Thus, St Maximus claims that 'if we know God our knowledge of each and everything will be brought to perfection'.[37] However, we cannot know God because of his infinite nature and we constantly direct our desire to know Him. Therefore, the spiral movement of reason is a combination of the linear movement toward God and the circular movement toward creatures. Finally, the last movement of the soul (presumably the movement of senses) is a composite movement, 'according to which, affected by the things outside as a certain symbols of things seen, the soul gains for itself some impression of the meaning of things'.[38] This movement could be considered circular because the soul moves first toward the things in the sensible world, and then moves back to itself where the impressions of the things seen are summed up and arranged in a particular symbolic structure.

All we have noted serve to determine the particular principle (λόγος) and mode (τρόπος) of every being in a broader ontological framework. The different

[33] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1113A); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 100.
[34] *DN* 4.9 (PG 3, 705A-B).
[35] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080C).
[36] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077C).
[37] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077A); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery* (2003), 53.
[38] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1113A); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 100.

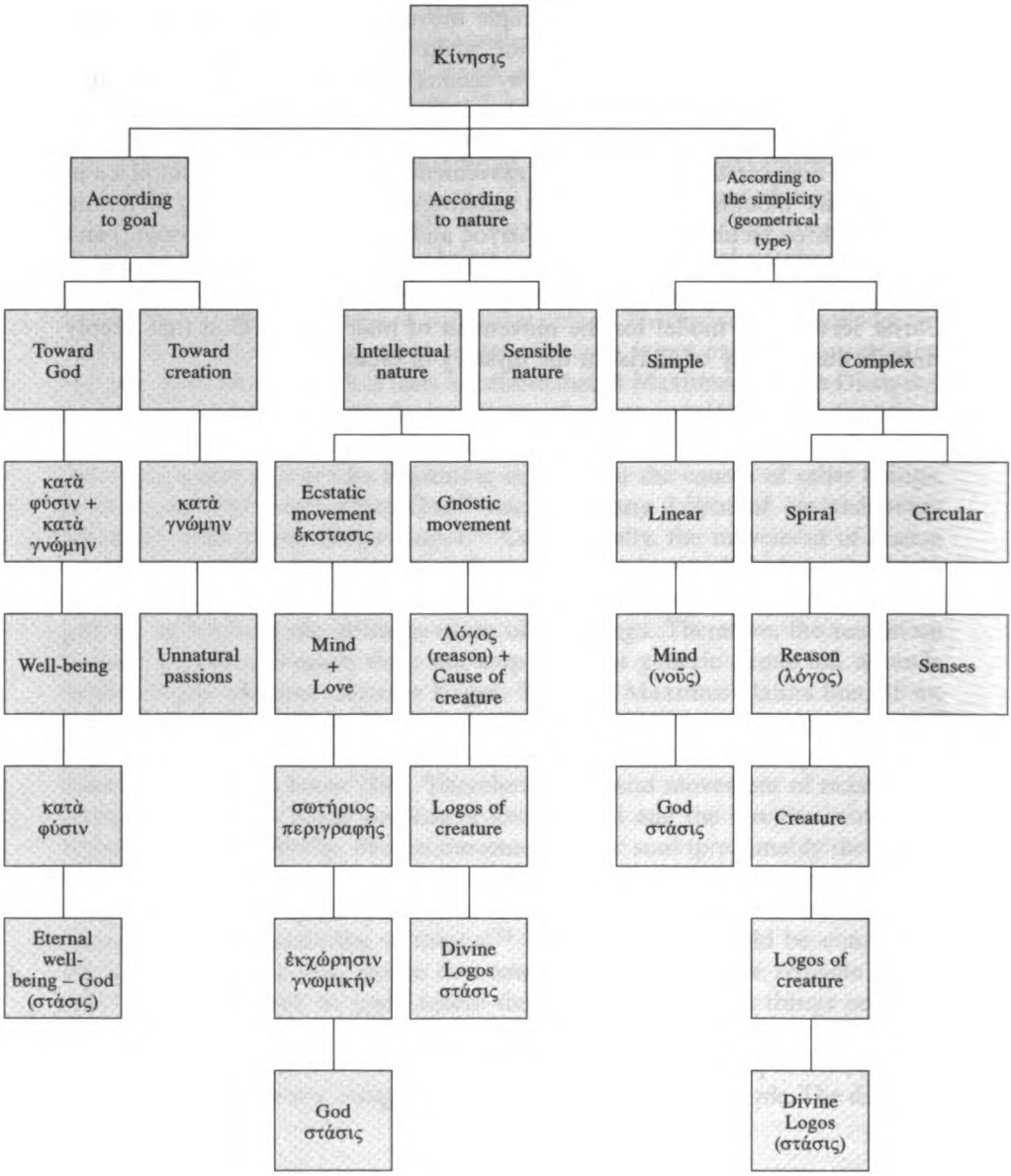
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natural movements gather in one simple movement of rational beings. This movement is directed toward the divine when 'the spiritual reasons of things perceived through the senses, ascend by means of reason up to mind, and, in a singular way, they unite reason, which possesses the meanings of beings, to mind in accordance with one, simple and undivided sagacity'.[39]

We can now see that the notion of movement occupies a significant place in St Maximus' thought. Many different teachings such as the teaching on nature and will, three faculties of the soul, Λόγος and λόγοι, creation (γένεσις) and rest (στάσις), being, well-being and eternal well being find their explanation through the teaching on movement. The movement of God toward man in Christ serves as a model for the movement of man toward God that deeply embeds the mystery of Christ in the mystery of creation.

[39] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1113AB); A. Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), 100.

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The divisions and subdivisions of movement in *Ambiguum* 7

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On the Identity of ἀλλότριος and His Definition in *Ambiguum* 7 of St Maximus

Vladimir CVETKOVIC, St Andrews

1. Introduction

At the beginning of *Ambiguum* 7 St Maximus mentions an outsider (ἀλλότριος) who taught that 'the end is for the sake of which all things exist; it is for the sake of nothing' (Τέλος ἐστὶν οὗ ἕνεκεν τὰ πάντα, αὐτὸ δὲ οὐδενὸς ἕνεκεν).[1] Unfortunately, St Maximus does not reveal the identity of the outsider. It is therefore possible only to guess at the person who lies behind that word and so further develop the research on St Maximus' philosophical sources. The aim of this paper is not to discover the identity of the mysterious outsider; that would be overly ambitious. Rather, it intends to discuss St Maximus' usage of the sources and suggest what this definition really meant for him.

2. The identity of the 'outsider'

At first sight, every student of Patristics with a decent knowledge of the Greek philosophical tradition will identify the outsider with Aristotle. In *Metaphysics* A 2 Aristotle claims that 'the final cause of a thing is an end, and is such that it does not happen for the sake of something else, but all other things happen for its sake' (Ἔστι δὲ τὸ οὗ ἕνεκα τέλος, τοιοῦτον δὲ ὃ μὴ ἄλλου ἕνεκα, ἀλλὰ τἆλλα ἐκείνου).[2] The conceptual similarity of the definition from the *Ambiguum* 7 with Aristotle's formulation obliges and logically directs a researcher to claim that the person of Aristotle lies behind the 'outsider'. This conclusion would probably have remained a matter of general agreement among the earlier scholars of Maximus if Polycarp Sherwood had not eagerly launched the idea that the outsider is none other than Evagrius Ponticus.[3] Evagrius in his *Gnome* 21, preserved only in Syriac, teaches that: 'The end is that thing to which everything else is ordered, while the end itself is not ordered to anything

[1] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C). English translation in Paul M. Blowers and Robert L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Jesus Christ* (New York, 2003), 48.

[2] Aristotle, *The Metaphysics*, LSL, (London, 1933), A 2 994b.

[3] Polycarp Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua of Saint Maximus the Confessor* (Romae, 1955), 100.

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else. Or the end is the thing for which we do something, while the end is not made for anything else'.[4]

In spite of the evidence provided by Sherwood that the definition is from Evagrius not many scholars have been fully convinced that St Maximus had Evagrius in mind. The compromise or moderate solution that neither Aristotle nor Evagrius is the true source of this definition, but that it derives from some of Aristotle's later commentators is now more widely accepted among scholars. The name of Alexander of Aphrodisias is frequently mentioned by scholars, even by Sherwood who accepts that the possible source for this could be Alexander's comments on Aristotle's *Metaphysics* B2, where he states that 'good cause is for the sake of all, and that which is its own end is caused by nothing' (τὸ γὰρ ὡς ἀγαθὸν αἴτιόν ἐστι τὸ οὗ χάριν τὰ ἄλλά, αὐτὸ δὲ οὐδενός, τὸ δὲ τοιοῦτον τέλος).[5]

This solution does not weaken the distinction that St Maximus, following the Capadocian Fathers (mainly St Gregory of Nyssa), makes between outer learning, which is pagan philosophy, and inner learning which is Christian philosophy.[6] Therefore, when St Maximus refers to the Church Fathers he does not only mention their names, but he also gives them pious attributes. However, when he refers to a source other than from the Christian tradition, he calls them 'outer' learning or the learning of 'philosophers from outside' (τῶν ἔξω φιλοσόφων).

This distinction between outer and inner philosophy gives us some hints about the sources that have a priority for St Maximus. Therefore, it is possible that the source of the definition is not identical with the originator of definition. The definition could have come to St Maximus from somebody within the Christian camp, while the true outsider could be a pagan philosopher. We should not exclude the possibility then that the outsider is Aristotle, despite the textual similarity of St Maximus with Aristotle's commentators or even Evagrius more than with Aristotle himself. Every commentator of Aristotle, from whom St Maximus could have learned the definition, would have pointed to the works that served as basis for the commentaries. The question of textual approximation of St Maximus to Alexander of Aphrodisias and other commentators is less important than the question of the real source of the definition, because St Maximus was definitely able to textually conceptualise his thoughts, instead of adjusting them to the textual moulds of the Aristotelian vocabulary or of the vocabulary of his commentators. It is important to point out that St Maximus recognises the sources of various ideas which he encountered in the Church

[4] *Gnome* 21 (PG 40, 126D). See also Syriac text followed by the French translation in Joseph Muyldermans, *Evagriana Syriaca* (Louvain, 1951), 34.

[5] Alexandri Aphrodisiensis, *In Aristotelis Metahysica Commentaria*, Michael Hayduck (ed.) (Berolini, 1891), 181f., 137.

[6] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1189C). See also *Disputatio cum Pyrrho* (PG 91, 296B).

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Fathers. Even if St. Maximus borrows the definition from Evagrius, or from somebody whose name concealed the identity of Evagrius' writings, it can be said that St Maximus knows the true source of the definition. He employs ideas from pagan philosophy, which are borrowed and developed by Church Fathers and incorporated in their writings. Thus, the transformed doctrines of pagan philosophers became a part of the Christian tradition. Nevertheless, St Maximus does not consider these teachings, even though they are incorporated in the tradition as doctrines of the Fathers. Rather, he extracts them and links them to their real pagan sources. Therefore, St Maximus informs us about the Christian sources, while, as a general rule, he omits the names of pagan philosophers.

3. The definition of the outsider and its implications

Let us return now to the definition of the outsider and its meaning. The short, and at first sight most simple definition is interpreted in various ways in St Maximus' thought. It follows first, that all the things are for the sake of the end (τέλος), and second that the end is for the sake of nothing. If the end does not exist for the sake of anything else then it has a perfect fulfilment, while everything else is imperfect and gains fulfillment and perfection only by achieving its end (τέλος).[7] The being which is naturally perfect is, according to St Maximus,[8] the being which is uncaused. Thus, if it possesses its cause and presumably its end in itself, then it does not have desire for something else. Having no desire for anything else, the perfect being does not move toward the object of its desire – which implies that it is unmoved.[9] Something which is without desire for something else and therefore unmoved, fills all things[10] and is one, infinite and uncircumscribed.[11] This being is 'a) absolutely accomplished; b) fully sufficing for itself; c) owing its own being to itself and d) not deriving its own being from anywhere else'.[12] It is not difficult to guess that the being who owns all these characteristics is, for St Maximus, God. God is 'unmoved and complete and impassible'.[13]

Being for the sake of everything, the divine being is therefore also the goal of everything because it is the fountain of perfection. But it is also the cause

[7] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).

[8] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C).

[9] St Maximus in his *Amb.* 23 (PG 91, 1260C) gives the following argument for the divine stillness: 'If what is without cause is certainly without movement, then the divine is without movement, as having no cause of being at all, but being rather the cause of all beings'.

[10] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).

[11] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1072C).

[12] The division is from Maximos Lavriotis, St Maximus' cosmology and modern astrophysics, in: http://digilander.libero.it/ortodossia/Cosmology.htm

[13] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073B).

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of everything because it is uncaused. Thus, God is the beginning and the end[14] and everything derives from Him as a cause and everything moves toward Him as their natural end.

4. The movement of rational beings

The movement of a rational being for St Maximus is driven by a desire to attain the end of its being, namely God, and to find rest in Him. He perceives the Aristotelian view on movement as indicating something incomplete. Thus, movement refers to imperfection. A being gains fulfillment and perfection only by achieving the cessation of movement[15] and therefore St Maximus claims that the end is for the sake of everything.

Carefully following St Maximus' further argumentation from *Ambiguum* 7, we find two ways to reach the end (τέλος). The first way in which intellectual and rational beings can reach their end is through the ecstatic movement (the movement of love); and the second way is through the *gnostic* movement (the movement of knowledge).

a) *The ecstatic movement*

The first way requires an appropriate movement of intellectual beings in accordance with the principle (κατὰ λόγον) of their nature. If intellectual beings move naturally by means of their minds, then their thoughts are naturally directed toward the goal of their movement. Intellectual beings, having an implanted desire or passion for the goal of their movement in their minds, love what they think. Therefore, movement toward the goal is a natural consequence of this desire or passion. Thus, love causes ecstasy or ecstatic movement of a being toward its goal. Ecstasy is the motive force which drives the core of a being to be centered in its ultimate goal. It is a kind of forgetfulness of self. Union with the divine being replaces the definition of intellectual being not only by putting the centre of its being in the divine, but also by expanding the limits of intellectual beings as they are embraced by the divine. Having been embraced by the divine being, the intellectual being changes its self-perception from being defined by its limitations to a being defined by what embraces it. Therefore, the rational being no longer experiences limitations because the union with the infinite and the limitless abolishes the natural boundaries of the created being. Therefore, the rational being can participate in God without being restricted to its natural definition (ὅρος). It becomes 'uncontainably contained' (ἀχωρήτως χωρουμένου).[16]

[14] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1073C).
[15] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1069B).
[16] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1076D).

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If we wish to define the movement of mind in accordance with St Maximus' typological division of movements as simple and complex, and further as in a straight line, circle and spiral, we could perhaps also describe movement of mind as simple and linear. The ecstatic movement or movement of mind is simple and linear because it is oriented towards and moves without detour towards the object of its ultimate desire, the divine.

b) *The gnostic movement*

The second way that intellectual and rational creatures might move towards the Divine is *gnostic* movement, which is determined by their faculty of reason. However, knowledge of created thing is attainable by reason, wisdom[17] and 'appropriate' movement. Appropriate movement is naturally wise and reasonable movement[18] toward any and all objects of knowledge. Thus, the soul's faculty of reasoning is naturally oriented towards learning the essential nature of beings. Knowing the essential nature of beings means to also know their causes and distinctive principles – that is, the principles (λόγοι) of their beings according to which each and every being is 'unmistakably unique in itself' and distinct from all others.[19] Striving for knowledge about created beings leads reason to acknowledge that the distinctive principles of beings (λόγοι) are to be discovered in one divine *Logos*. St Maximus maintains, therefore, that if someone is 'moved by desire and wants to attain nothing else than its own beginning, he does not flow away from God' (ὡς κατὰ φύσιν σοφῶς τε καὶ λελογισμένως δι' εὐπρεποῦς κινήσεως).[20]

The *gnostic* movement or movement of reason can be described as spiral because it is a combination of a linear movement toward God with a circular movement toward creatures. The circular movement is the movement along the Porphirian tree, first from the particular object to its most universal nature, and then back from most universal nature or generic genus, over intermediate genera, species and the most specific species, to the distinctive accidental feature of a particular object. The movement of reason gains a vertical dimension and therefore becomes spiral because reason on its way toward universals does not stop on most generic genus but ascends further to the ultimate cause or *Logos*. Therefore, the *gnostic* movement or movement of reason, which is oriented toward any object of knowledge, leads us toward the *logos* or principle of every created being and through it to the sum of all *logoi* of beings, the divine Logos.

[17] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077C).
[18] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080C).
[19] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1077C).
[20] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1080C); P.M. Blowers and R.L. Wilken, *On the Cosmic Mystery of Jesus Christ* (2003), 56.

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5. Conclusion

We can conclude that the outsider (ἀλλότριος) is probably for St Maximus a pagan philosopher, whom he mentions to show that God is the cause and end of everything not only in Christian teaching but also in pagan philosophy. The source from which this definition derives could be a Christian author with whose writings St Maximus is acquainted because St Maximus had much more interest in inner than outer philosophy. Finally, St Maximus introduces a definition of the outsider as a vehicle for his teaching about the relationship between God and intellectual beings, especially the doctrine of movement. Starting from the definition, St Maximus further develops his theological interpretation, which because of its richness could be hardly reducible to the starting hypothesis. Therefore, St Maximus finds in his sources much deeper meanings than is normally seen in them by a reader or conceived by an author.

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Christology and Philosophical Culture in Maximus the Confessor's *Ambiguum* 41

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> The mystery of the Incarnation of the Word bears the power of the hidden meanings and figures of Scripture as well as the knowledge of visible and intelligible creatures. The one who knows the mystery of the cross and the tomb knows the principles of these creatures.[1]

The above citation captures the core of Maximus the Confessor's vision. This paper will try to explain the above citation through a close reading of *Ambiguum* 41. The second motivation for this paper is the question about the role of the philosophical categories in Maximus' writings. I think that the wide usage of philosophical and logical vocabulary is related to Maximus' desire to give expression to the mystery of incarnation, that for him is all-encompassing and affecting all aspects of reality. This paper will dwell on the connection between the incarnation of the Logos and the 'knowledge of visible and intelligible creatures'.

A brief look at *Ambiguum* 7 will introduce us to Maximus' logos theology and to his cosmic understanding of Christology that is based on it.

For Maximus, the logos of each being is a principle of self-impartation of the divine Logos into each being. God distributes himself according to the logos, which is a principle of proportionality: it regulates both the measure, the position and the character of that particular being in creation.

'For all created things are defined, in their essence and in their way of developing, by their own *logoi* and by the *logoi* of the beings that provide their external context. Through these they find their defining limits [...] Although he is beyond being and nothing can participate in him in any way, nor is he any of the totality of things that can be known in relation to other things, nevertheless we affirm that one Logos is many *logoi* and the many *logoi* are One.'[2]

The Logos centered creation is the ontological ground of Maximus' trust in the possibility of natural contemplation. Based on this possibility, Maximus has

[1] *Chapters on Theology* 1.66 (PG 90, 1108) (*The Philokalia* 2, 66).

[2] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081C); the translations are taken from Andrew Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (New York, 1996); I have also used Maxim Marturisitorul, *Mistagogia*, transl. Dumitru Staniloae (Bucuresti, 2006); I have checked the translations against the Greek original and where appropriate, amended.

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recourse to a very complex system of metaphysical vocabulary which is, I contend, closely related to his theology. Before turning to the discussion of *Ambiguum* 41, I would like to offer another text that points to the connection between Christology and philosophical language.

This text comes from the *Disputation with Pyrrus* where Maximus gives a description of the incarnation in order to show that we can talk of two natures, two wills and two activities in Christ.

> The creative energy created both quantity and quality in an essence, and the ousia of things is contemplated from and in these categories. The Greek philosophers divide beings (τὰ ὄντα) into ten principles (λόγοι).[3] For then everything is maintained and contained in these. So Christ showed the energy proper to human nature in as many categories as are proper to that nature: He fulfilled οὐσία by making the eyes of the blind man see, quality (ποιότητα) by turning water into wine and quantity (ποσότητα) by increasing the loaves of bread. The life-giving operation (ἐνέργεια) he displayed in breathing, in speaking, in seeing, in hearing, touching, smelling, eating, drinking moving his hands and the rest as many by reason of nature without alteration, he displayed the energy (ἐνέργεια) according to nature.[4]

As we can see, Maximus understands the incarnation as assumption of the human nature in all its aspects, including the way it functions according to the categories of being. The hypostatic union does not effect the violation of the human nature; thus, Christ assumes and redeems human nature in its deepest recesses; in order to demonstrate this, Maximus has recourse to the Aristotelian categories.[5]

Ambiguum 41 is a discussion of Gregory's *Oration* 38, *On the Theophany.* Maximus exegetes a passage of this oration trying to clarify a 'stumbling block' for his addressee bishop John of Cyzicus: 'Natures are instituted afresh and God becomes Man.' Maximus starts with mentioning that the 'saints of old' 'say that the substance of everything that has come into being is divided into five divisions'. The first division is between created and uncreated nature.[6] The second division is between νοετά and αἰσθετά. The third division is within the sensible realm itself: between heaven and earth. According to the fourth division the earth itself can be divided into paradise and the inhabited world. With the fifth division Maximus comes to discussing the human person, whom

[3] Maximus calls the categories of Greek philosophy, principles (λόγοι).

[4] *Disputatio cum Pyrrho* (PG 91, 345).

[5] Following Origen, Maximus refers to Scripture as an incarnation of the divine Logos too. In *Ambiguum* 37 he explains the diversification of the Logos in the *logoi* of Scripture by employing a system of ten categories. For an excellent discussion of this text see, Paul Blowers, The World in the Mirror of Holy Scripture: Maximus the Confessor's Short Hermeneutical Teatise in Ambiguum ad Joannem 37, in: *id., et al.* (eds.), *In Dominico Eloquio: Essays on Patristic Exegesis in Honor of Robert Louis Wilken* (Grand Rapids, Michigan, 2002).

[6] Maximus remains faithful to this great correction of Neo-Platonic ontological division, first realized by the Cappadocians.

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he calls 'the laboratory in which everything is concentrated',[7] and which is divided between male and female.

Because the human being spans all aspects of creation: from the sensible to the intelligible, it is a natural συνδεσμός,[8] one in whom the extremities of creation are re-connected. The great interval (διαστῆμα) constituted by the ontological divisions is annulled because of this natural bond. Humans fail to fulfill their vocation because of the abuse of their 'natural power of uniting what is divided'.[9]

After pointing to the failure of the humans to fulfill their role of laboratory and συνδεσμός, Maximus says that the renewal of natures in the text of Gregory, refers to Christ's incarnation; he will expound how everything is reunited and rebound through the descent and ascent of the Logos.

Christ repairs the division between man and woman through his birth, then sanctifies every aspect of our world through his human life: by assuming our nature, 'he encompasses the whole creation through its intermediaries and the extremities through their own parts.'[10]; he unites heaven and earth by taking the human flesh to heaven: thus he shows that even the sensible creation is 'by the most universal *logos* of its being, one.'[11] Finally 'by passing (διελθών) with his soul and body, that is with the whole of our nature, through all the divine and intelligible ranks of heaven, he united the sensible and intelligible and shows the convergence towards unity of all creation with the One according to its most original and universal *logos*'.[12]

Christ unifies us in himself through the hypostatic union; but uniting himself to human nature, the natural bond of all things, he unites himself to the whole creation. Through his descent into human nature and his ascent through all the levels of the cosmos, the Logos brings together in himself and thus harmonizes all the principles of beings and realizes the unity of the cosmos: 'Thus he divinely recapitulates the universe in himself, showing that the whole creation exists as one, like another human being, completed by the gathering together' (1312 A).

Next, Maximus will offer the philosophical underpinning of the recapitulation realized by Christ by having recourse to the language of the categories.

Therefore 'natures have been instituted afresh' when the Logos has, through himself and in accord with nature, united the fragmented natural parts of the universal nature

[7] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1305A).

[8] According to Andrew Louth, *Maximus the Confessor* (1996), this term is found in Nemesius of Emessa, *De Natura Hominis*.

[9] *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1308D).

[10] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1310C).

[11] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1309 D).

[12] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1309C); Maximus gives similar account of the unification realized in the recapitulation of Christ in *Quaestiones ad Thalassium* 48 (PG 90, 431). However in this text Maximus employes biblical exegesis to prove his point.

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in its totality, and manifesting the *universal logoi* that have come forth from the *particulars* by which the union of the divided naturally comes about and thus he fulfils the great wisdom of the Father to recapitulate everything both in heaven and earth in himself (*Eph.* 1:10), in whom everything has been created.[13]

The recapitulation achieved by Christ realizes the unity between the *logoi* of the various beings in the one Logos[14] and thus grants the possibility of harmony between the particulars and universals. As a result of this unification, 'the whole of creation admits of one and the same undiscriminated (ἀδιάκριτον) *logos*.'[15] There is no contradiction or tension among beings because Christ himself, through his recapitulation, has incorporated and thus pacified all beings, all aspects of creation into his hypostasis.[16]

The unity, that has been destroyed through the unnatural movement of humans, by disconnecting the *logoi* from the Logos, is realized again by the descent of the Logos himself. This descent opens up the possibility for all beings to be reunited, for the brokenness to be repaired.

The possibility of unity in multiplicity is manifest in the very ontological structure of beings: the species are unified in the genus; the individuals acquire their identity through the species and the accidents are unified in the subject (ὑποκείμενον).[17] This Maximus shares with the Porphyrean account[18] of the hierarchy of beings. However he will take it a step further by linking the very possibility of a harmony between multiplicity and unity with his theology of the incarnation. The cosmos, as a harmonious structure of multiplicity (displayed in the universals) and unicity (particulars) is only achievable through the unity of the *logoi* in Christ the Logos.

Thus, the *logos*-theory provides the interface between ontology and Christology. Maximus offers here a true ontological hierarchy by combining an array of Neo-Aristotelian terminology with a cosmic idea of the incarnation. We have seen the same in the passage from the *Disputation with Phyrrus*. He grafts the

[13] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1308D).

[14] *Amb.* 7 (PG 91, 1081C).

[15] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1312A). In *Epistula* 2 (PG 91, 370) Maximus shows how this oneness of *logos* is realized through love. In the context of *Ambiguum* 41, we understand that ascetical life has a cosmic purview: the goal of the spiritual life is to re-make the human being into the laboratory of all creation so that it becomes able again to re-connect all aspects of creation.

[16] This is beautifully captured, in poetic form, in the hymns of Ascension Day. The same idea is expressed in another way in the poetry of the liturgical writings. 'You opened out your palms and united things that before were separated, while by being closed in a shroud and a grave, O Saviour, you loosed those who were fettered. None is Holy but you, O Lord.'

[17] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1309A).

[18] For more on the way Maximus constructs his language on union and distinction on the Porphyrian logic see M. Toronen, *Union and Distinction in the Thought of St. Maximus the Confessor* (Oxford, 2007) Toronen however, deemphasizes the Christological underpinning of Maximus' theology of union and distinction. Nevertheless both strains, the Christological and the logical, are important to Maxumus' understanding of union and distinction.

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language of the *logoi*, which is rather Stoic and Neo-Platonic in character on the Aristotelian language of the categories arranged in an hierarchy, as found in the three of Porphyry, for example.[19] Thus, Maximus' argument weaves together three different registers: the *logoi*, the universals and particulars (derived from the logical handbooks) and the descent and ascent of Christ.

> The *logoi* of the distinct and particular are comprehended in the *logoi* of the universal and general. And the *logoi* of the general and universal are comprehended by wisdom and the *logoi* of the particular, contained in various ways in the general ones, are comprehended by prudence. The *logoi* simplify and forsake the symbolic variety from within individual things in order to be unified by wisdom.[20]

A passage in *Ambiguum* 10 can help us unpack what Maximus refers to here: 'And the contemplative side [of the soul] I call νοῦς (mind), the practical I call λόγος: the first wisdom (σοφία), the second prudence (φρόνησις). According to *Mystagogia* V,[21] mind is called wisdom 'when it directs its proper movements altogether toward God. In the same way the reason is called prudence when it unites to mind the activities of the vital faculty wisely governed' (PG 91, 673). Mind and reason are δυνάμεις of the soul whereas wisdom and prudence are ἐνεργείαι of the soul.

Returning to *Ambiguum* 41, it becomes clear that Maximus refers to the epistemological capacity of the soul to fulfil its natural role of binding all things: the *logoi* of the particulars and those of the universals are grasped by wisdom and prudence respectively, the defining acts of the soul. The human person itself has to realize the recapitulation of Christ by becoming able to grasp the different *logoi* of beings in their unicity and multiplicity. That this is the case, is reinforced by the sequence:

> But the wisdom and prudence of God and Father is Jesus Christ who holds together the universals of beings by the power of wisdom, and embraces their parts by the prudence of understanding, since by nature he is the fashioner and provider of all, and through himself draws into one what is divided, and abolishes war between beings, and binds everything into peaceful friendship and undivided harmony, both what is in heaven and what is on earth.[22]

Both the epistemological (wisdom and prudence qua acts of the soul) and the ontological (*logoi* of the particulars and universals) threads thus are rooted in Christ. Christ's ascent and descent recapitulates and restaurates both the epistemological and the ontological aspects of creation. The more general categories

[19] For an analyses of Maximus' appropriation of the Porphyrian system, see Torstein Tollefsen, *The Christocentric Cosmology of St. Maximus the Confessor* (Oslo, 1999), 83-174.

[20] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1313A).

[21] Maximus makes wide use of this distinction among others in the 'Mistagogy' chapter 4 where he offers an epistemological diabasis starting from *logos* and *nous* as human faculties and reaching to prudence and wisdom as divine attributes.

[22] *Amb.* 41 (PG 91, 1313B).

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lead to wisdom and the particulars lead to prudence; this is however mediated by the redeemed faculties of the natural laboratory of creation: the human being.

The ontological, epistemological and christological movements overlap because it is in Christ, the wisdom and prudence of God, that both the universals and particulars are held together and harmonized. For Maximus, the connection between universal and particulars is based on the incarnation of the Logos itself. Maximus describes an ontological διάβασις[23] based on the incarnation and ascension of Christ. The possibility of unity and multiplicity, of identity and distinction at all levels of reality (including that of the categories) is based on the Christological movement that founds the unity of all the *logoi* in the one Logos. Therefore, the return to Christ as the one Logos in whom we can contemplate the unity of all creation, in whom we realize that God pervades all things,[24] coincides with an ontological advancement from multiplicity to unity in the very structure of reality.

Ambiguum 41 offers a sharp panorama of the mystery of the incarnation as the constitutive principle of all beings. The incarnation is not just a central event to which we *refer*, but is the fundament, the underpinning of all creation. Maximus explains the incarnation with an attentive eye on the categories of being because this helps him better grasp the deepness of the Christological mystery. On the other hand it is his broad notion of cosmic incarnation that fuels his attentiveness to creation. The mystery of the incarnation constitutes the fundamental ontological principle: the cosmos and the person, the micro- and macro-cosmos are Christological in their fundamental movements.

[23] In *Amb.* 10, Maximus uses the pair of expansion (διαστολή) and contraction (συστολή) to describe the movement from the universal to the particular and from there back to the universals. Here too, the expansion and contraction is based on the incarnation.

[24] 'For God is good and wise and powerful, and pervades everything visible and invisible, both universals and particulars, both small and great, indeed anything that possesses existence in any way whatever' (*Amb.* 10; PG 91, 1192B).

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Maxime le Confesseur et la tradition philosophique: À propos d'une définition de la *kinêsis*

Ladislav CHVÁTAL, Olomouc

Maxime le Confesseur (580-662) fait partie des plus grands théologiens et philosophes byzantins. Les acquis philosophiques et patristiques antérieurs – que ce soit dans les domaines théologique ou philosophique – sont intégrés dans son oeuvre en une synthèse originale.

Le présent exposé se consacre au thème encore très peu traité de la détermination des sources philosophiques de Maxime, et ce en se focalisant sur une définition du mouvement.

Dans un passage de l'*Ambiguum* 7 consacré, dans le cadre de la polémique anti-origéniste, au problème du rapport entre κίνησις et γένεσις,[1] Maxime tire profit des connaissances «des plus assidus observateurs des êtres» (οἱ ἐπιμελέστεροι τῶν ὄντων θεάμονες) en utilisant leur autorité pour définir la κίνησις et pour présenter ses variantes et ses caractéristiques.[2]

Selon Maxime, la κίνησις est «[soit] une puissance naturelle (δύναμις φυσική) poussant à sa propre fin, soit un pâtir (πάθος) – à savoir comme un mouvement qui part de l'un à l'autre – ayant pour [sa] fin l'impassible, soit une activité agissante (ἐνέργεια δραστική) ayant pour [sa] fin la fin en soi».[3]

De là découlent les deux questions suivantes: (1) qui sont les θεάμονες ἐπιμελέστεροι τῶν ὄντων et (2) de quelle façon est Maxime attaché à la tradition philosophique grecque précédante en ce qui concerne cette définition?

Si l'on compare la formulation de Maxime avec la célèbre «définition» donnée par Aristote – selon laquelle «le mouvement est l'entéléchie de ce qui est en puissance en tant que tel» (ἡ τοῦ δυνάμει ὄντος ἐντελέχεια, ᾗ τοιοῦτον, κίνησίς ἐστιν)[4] – on obtient un résultat surprenant: la description de Maxime ne semble être en fait qu'un certain type d'interprétation développé à partir de la notion proposée par Aristote lui-même.

[1] Maxime le Confesseur, *Ambigua ad Iohannem* 7 (PG 91, 1072A 11-1073A 14).

[2] Cf. Ladislav Chvátal, Mouvement circulaire, rectiligne et spiral: une contribution à la recherche des sources philosophiques de Maxime le Confesseur: *FZPhTh* 54 (2007) 189-206.

[3] *Ambigua* 7 (PG 91, 1072B 9-13): Ταύτην δὲ τὴν κίνησιν δύναμιν καλοῦσιν φυσικήν, πρὸς τὸ κατ' αὐτὴν τέλος ἐπειγομένην, ἢ πάθος, ἤτοι κίνησιν ἐξ ἑτέρου πρὸς ἕτερον γινομένην, τέλος ἔχουσαν τὸ ἀπαθές, ἢ ἐνέργειαν δραστικήν, τέλος ἔχουσαν τὸ αὐτοτελές.

[4] Aristote, *Physica* III 1 (201A 10-1).

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Evoquons maintenant succinctement les interprétations principales de cette définition, toutes deux fondées sur les différentes approches du mot ἐντελέχεια apparaissant dans la formulation d'Aristote.[5]

Un groupe de chercheurs antiques aussi bien que modernes a interprété le terme ἐντελέχεια comme équivalent à ἐνέργεια, *i.e.* comme «actualisation», «réalisation», «activité». Selon eux, le mouvement se définit comme une sorte de «passage» de ce qui est en puissance à ce qui est en acte. Il s'agit de ce que l'on nomme depuis «the process-view».[6] Le mouvement est censé décrire un *processus* par lequel le potentiel – ou la puissance – d'être ceci ou cela est actualisé. La définition d'Aristote est alors interprétée de la manière suivante: s'il existe quelque chose qui est actuellement *x* et potentiellement *y*, le mouvement consiste à rendre actuel son «*y*-ness».[7] La potentialité n'est autre que la potentialité de *(se) changer.* On constate que cette approche insiste sur le fait que mouvement il y a lorsqu'un objet est en train de se changer et cette vision des choses se retrouve parfaitement dans la formule médiévale: *motus est exitus de potentia in actum.*[8]

D'autres exégètes ont nuancé le sens des termes en question, interprétant ἐντελέχεια comme «acte» ou «actualité» de la puissance même. Ainsi, ils soulignent plutôt le résultat de la progression, *i.e.* l'état d'être actualisé. Bien sûr, ils ne considèrent pas le mouvement comme l'état final de l'acte.[9] Ils se concentrent en effet plutôt sur l'explication du type spécifique d'actualité correspondant au type spécifique de potentialité signalés par soit la particule ᾗ, soit par des mots tels que τὸ δυνάμει ὂν ᾗ τοιοῦτον / τὸ δυνατὸν ᾗ δυνατόν / τὸ κινητὸν ᾗ κινητόν *etc.* Selon L.A. Kosman, il s'agit par exemple de «l'actualité constitutive» dont le sujet est la potentialité respective.[10] L'actualité de la potentialité d'être *x* nous renvoie à «l'étant potentiellement *x*», non à «l'étant actuellement *x*». C'est ce que l'on appelle «the actuality-view».[11] Leur position

[5] Une autre approche présente Lambros Couloubaritsis, *La Physique d'Aristote* (Bruxelles, ²1997), 265-306.

[6] Voir les références dans L. Couloubaritsis, *La Physique* (1997), 266, n. 5; en plus cf. Terry Penner, Verbs and Identity of Actions, in: O.P. Wood et G. Pitcher (eds.), *Ryle: A Collection of Critical Essays* (London, 1971), 393-460, surtout 427-33; James Kostman, Aristotle's Definition of Change: *History of Philosophy Quarterly* 4 (1987) 3-16; Robert Heinaman, Is Aristotle's Definition of Change Circular?: *Apeiron* 17 (1994) 25-37.

[7] Cf. par ex. David Ross, *Aristotle* (New York, ⁵1959), 81.

[8] Cf. Thomas d'Aquin, *Commentaria in octo libros physicorum Aristotelis* III 2.2 (5, 77 Busa); aussi par ex. D. Ross, *Aristotle's Physics* (Oxford, 1936), 537.

[9] Cf. Aristote, *Phys.* III 1 (201B 7-13).

[10] Cf. Louis Aryeh Kosman, Aristotle's Definition of Motion: *Phronesis* 14 (1969) 40-62; L. Couloubaritsis, *La Physique* (1997), 265-79.

[11] Voir les références dans L. Couloubaritsis, *La Physique* (1997), 267, n. 7; en plus cf. L.A. Kosman, Aristotle's Definition of Motion (1969), 40-62; Joseph Owens, Aristotle: Motion as Actuality of the Imperfect, in: G.C. Simmons (ed.), *Paideia: Special Aristotle Issue* (New York, 1978), 120-32; Mary Louise Gill, Aristotle's Theory of Causal Action in *Phys.* III,3: *Phronesis* 25 (1980) 129-47; Edward Hussey, *Aristotle's Physics: Book III and IV* (Oxford, 1983), 55-65.

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peut se résumer à la formule latine suivante: *motus est actus exeuntis de potentia in actum.*[12]

La formulation du mouvement apparaissant dans l'*Ambiguum* 7 – utilisée dans le contexte de la polémique anti-origéniste – semble suivre la ligne interprétative du «process-view». Si l'on comprend l'ἐντελέχεια dans son sens étymologique («se-posséder-dans-sa-fin»), les trois termes de la définition maximienne présentent trois types de l'ἐντελέχεια en tant qu'ἐνέργεια, chacun amenant à son but respectif. Elle est déterminée par son but et, après l'avoir atteint, elle cesse. Cette ἐνέργεια est ἐνέργεια ἀτελής, mot par lequel Aristote qualifie justement le mouvement.[13] Maxime suit donc, du moins le semble-t-il, la ligne interprétative qui comprend l'ἐντελέχεια au sens d'ἐνέργεια et dont les explications nous sont parvenues par Simplicius. Il remarque d'ailleurs qu'Alexandre, Porphyre, Themistius et beaucoup d'autres utilisaient ἐνέργεια dans la définition du mouvement parce qu'ils avaient déniché cette leçon dans certaines copies.[14] A cette liste, il faut encore ajouter Philopon. En outre, l'utilisation d'ἐνέργεια à la place d'ἐντελέχεια correspond bien à l'orientation néoplatonicienne de l'Antiquité tardive.[15]

Ensuite, Maxime ne parle pas de «l'étant en puissance» puisque tous les êtres engendrés portent cette caractéristique. Rien n'est jamais complètement «actualisé» (ἐνεργείᾳ). Cette présupposition correspond à la première prémisse d'analyse aristotélicienne du mouvement qui distingue entre, d'une part, ce qui est seulement en entéléchie et, d'autre part, ce qui est à la fois en puissance et en entéléchie.[16] Selon les commentateurs grecs, tels Themistius, Simplicius, Philopon, voire même Alexandre d'Aphrodise, la première expression concerne les formes immatérielles et premières – c'est-à-dire une partie du monde supralunaire – tandis que la seconde, associant puissance et entéléchie, se réfère aux composés de forme et de matière – soit aux êtres du monde sublunaire.[17] Par ailleurs, pour Maxime, chacun des êtres engendrés est en puissance, soit un δυνατόν vers quelque chose. La nature des êtres engendrés est marquée par son orientation: elle est toujours «en vue de quelque chose d'autre».[18] L'approche de Maxime est donc expressivement «aristotelico-téléologique». Les êtres engendrés tendent vers la fin ultime qui leur a été donnée à la création. De la formulation mentionnée découle, selon nous, que Maxime entend un mouvement comme un «passage» de chacun vers la fin respective. Plus tard, cette

[12] Cf. par ex. Thomas d'Aquin, *In Phys.* III 2.3 (5, 77 Busa).

[13] Cf. *Phys.* 3.2 (201B 31-3); L.A. Kosman, Aristotle's Definition of Motion (1969), 56-8.

[14] Simplicius, *In Aristotelis physicorum libros octo commentaria* (CAG 9, 414,16-21).

[15] Cf. L. Couloubaritsis, *La Physique* (1997), 270.

[16] Cf. Aristote, *Phys.* III 1 (200B 26-8).

[17] Cf. Themistius, *In Aristotelis Physica paraphrasis* (CAG 5.2, 67.20-68.7); Simplicius, *In phys.* (CAG 9, 398.4-401.4); Jean Philopon, *In Aristotelis physicorum libros I-IV commentaria* (CAG 16, 347.14-25); L. Couloubaritsis, *La Physique* (1997), 274.

[18] Cf. *Ambigua* 7 (PG 91, 1072C 1-2).

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interprétation a été défendue par Sophonias le Philosophe (13e-14e siècle) qui mentionne que «le mouvement est le passage de ce qui est en puissance en ce qui est actualisé».[19] Les trois termes – δύναμις φυσική, πάθος et ἐνέργεια δραστική – décrivent trois types principaux de la potentialité vers quelque chose et sont, plus précisément, les trois types principaux du passage vers une fin.

La puissance naturelle est la force de propulsion de l'origine principale, donnée par φύσις elle-même, à la fin propre, posée aussi par la φύσις. Selon Jean Philopon, δύναμις φυσική est une «capacité/faculté» (ἐπιτηδειότης). Par exemple, la puissance naturelle de l'enfant consiste à apprendre à lire, à écrire et à parler.[20]

Πάθος est le type passif du passage de la potentialité d'être quelque chose d'autre et se réalise grâce à l'activité d'un autre facteur. Le mouvement est déjà lié avec le πάθος dans les *Catégories* d'Aristote.[21] Cependant, une identification explicite du mouvement et du πάθος n'émergera que chez les commentateurs tardifs, par exemple Jean Philopon.[22]

L'activité agissante est l'actualisation ou la réalisation active propre d'un passage vers le but délimité. L'identification de la κίνησις et de l'ἐνέργεια δραστική se retrouve dans une large mesure dans les textes médicaux, surtout chez Galien. Celui-ci explique qu'il existe deux espèces de mouvement: l'un selon le lieu, appelé locomotion (φορά), l'autre selon la qualité, nommé «altération» (ἀλλοίωσις). Il entende sous le terme de locomotion «toute l'activité qui est un mouvement agissant» (κίνησις δραστική).[23] En outre, on apprend que le mouvement agissant est «celui de soi-même» (ἡ ἐξ ἑαυτοῦ) et que le mouvement subissant est produit dans un être par un autre être (ἐν ἑτέρῳ ἐξ ἑτέρου) ou par quelque chose d'externe (ἀπό τινος τῶν ἔξω).[24]

Pour notre recherche, il est intéressant de souligner (1) que Galien simplifie la distinction aristotélicienne originelle entre l'ἐνέργεια et la κίνησις en les

[19] Sophonias, *In Aristotelis De anima paraphrasis* (CAG 23.1, 16.11-2): κίνησις δέ ἐστιν ἡ ἀπὸ τοῦ δυνάμει εἰς τὸ ἐνεργείᾳ πρόοδος. Cf. aussi par exemple Suda, *Lexicon* 1251,5-6 (2, 278 Adler).

[20] Jean Philopon, *In Aristotelis Categorias commentarium* (CAG 13.1, 139.5-9).

[21] Aristote, *Categoriae* 14 (15A 13-33).

[22] Jean Philopon, *In Cat.* (CAG 13.1, 82.18).

[23] Galien, *De methodo medendi* (10, 87.9-14 Kuhn): διττοῦ δ' ὄντος γένους κινήσεως, τοῦ μὲν κατὰ τόπον, τοῦ δὲ κατὰ ποιότητα, φορὰ μὲν τὸ πρότερον, ἀλλοίωσις δὲ τὸ δεύτερον ὀνομάζεται. πᾶσα μὲν οὖν ἐνέργεια κίνησίς ἐστι δραστική· πᾶσα δ' ἀλλοίωσις κίνησις παθητικὴ τοῦ ἀλλοιουμένου, πάσχει γάρ τι τὸ ἀλλοιούμενον. Cf. aussi *De methodo medendi* (10, 45.17 Kuhn); *De usu partium* (4, 347.1-3 Kuhn); *De naturalibus facultatibus* (2, 7.2-3 Kuhn). À propos de la conception de mouvement chez Galien, cf. Inna Kupreeva, Aristotelian Dynamics in the 2nd Century School Debats, in: P. Adamson *et al.* (eds.), *Philosophy, Science and Exegesis in Greek, Arabic and Latin Commentaries* I (London, 2004), 71-95.

[24] Cf. Galien, *De placitis Hippocratis et Platonis* VI 1.5.1-3 (2, 360 de Lacy); *De methodo medendi* (10, 46.1-3 Kuhn).

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identifiant; (2) que sa division du mouvement en κίνησις δραστική et παθητική correspond aux deux dernières parties de la définition de Maxime; (3) qu'il explique – de même que Maxime – que le mouvement subissant se produit ἐν ἑτέρῳ ἐξ ἑτέρου.

Il est peu probable que Maxime ait directement lu Galien. Sa source la plus proche fut Némésius d'Émèse et son traité *De natura hominis*. Il se réfère en fait à Galien lorsqu'il aborde les parties irraisonnables de l'âme. Après avoir proposé plusieurs définitions du πάθος, il affirme que le πάθος «générique» est défini comme «mouvement [qui se passe] dans l'un à partir de l'autre». Et, aussitôt, il ajoute que «l'activité est un mouvement agissant; il est dit 'agissant' de ce qui se meut de soi-même».[25] Il faut relever que le contexte psychosomatique joue un rôle important: non seulement comme raison de faire utiliser Galien par Némésius mais aussi par rapport à Maxime. Il semble qu'il fut plutôt intéressé par le mouvement «psychique» que «naturel». C'est pourquoi il insiste sur le fait que rien n'a déjà pu atteindre sa fin: «aucun des êtres engendrés n'a déjà mis un terme à la puissance naturelle qui le meut vers sa propre fin, ni n'a arrêté son activité en la fixant sur sa propre fin, ni n'a recueilli le fruit du pâtir (πάθος) selon le mouvement, à savoir l'impassible et l'immobile.»[26] Tout être est essentiellement marqué par le mouvement qui ne s'arrête pas avant que le transporté n'atteigne «la première et unique cause» d'où tout tire son être et qui est la dernière fin de son désir.[27] Selon Maxime, c'est le seul Dieu qui est «la fin (τέλος), l'accompli (τέλειον) et l'impassible (ἀπαθές), en tant qu'immobile (ἀκίνητον) et achevé (πλήρες).»[28] Le mouvement (κίνησις) doit précéder la permanence (μονή) et l'assise (ἵδρυσις) car il tend vers eux et ne s'arrête qu'en eux. Grâce à la conception du mouvement qui s'appuie sur l'autorité «des plus assidus observateurs des êtres», Maxime a renversé la suite de base cosmogonique des origénistes «μονή / ἵδρυσις – κίνησις – γένεσις» en suite dite «orthodoxe» «γένεσις – κίνησις – στάσις / μονή / ἵδρυσις».[29]

Conclusion

Notre attention a été attirée par la recherche des sources «philosophiques» de Maxime le Confesseur concernant sa définition de la κίνησις par son allusion à ces fameux et mystérieux observateurs des êtres. Bien que l'on puisse relever une forte ressemblance systématique avec les commentateurs néoplatoniciens

[25] Némésius d'Émèse, *De natura hominis* 16 (74.6-8 Morani): τὸ δὲ γενικὸν πάθος οὕτως ὁρίζονται· πάθος ἐστὶ κίνησις ἐν ἑτέρῳ ἐξ ἑτέρου. ἐνέργεια δέ ἐστι κίνησις δραστική· δραστικὸν δὲ λέγεται τὸ ἐξ ἑαυτοῦ κινούμενον.

[26] *Ambigua* 7 (PG 91, 1073A 14-B 4).

[27] Cf. *Ambigua* 7 (PG 91, 1069B 4-14; 1072C 11-4; 1073A 14-B 11; 1076A 10-1077B 9).

[28] Cf. *Ambigua* 7 (PG 91, 1073B 4-6).

[29] Cf. *Ambigua* 7 (PG 91, 1069A-1077B).

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d'Aristote, et ce surtout avec Simplicius et Philopon, on ne trouve nulle part, dans les textes philosophiques anciens, une formulation développée du mouvement pareille à celle proposée par Maxime. La source principale de Maxime est, semble-t-il, Némésius d'Émèse dont texte nous renvoie à Galien. En tenant compte de cette définition du mouvement, on peut confirmer le jugement de Larchet selon lequel Maxime avait connaissance des concepts et conceptions originairement aristotéliciens à travers Némésius et, probablement aussi, grâce à des recueils anonyme de définitions philosophiques.[30]

[30] Cf. Lean-Claude Larchet, *Maxime le Confesseur (580-662)* (Paris, 2003), 123.

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The Symphonic Church: Chalcedonian Themes in Maximos the Confessor's Liturgical Theology

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At the outset of *Cosmic Liturgy*, his extensive monograph on Maximos the Confessor, Hans Urs von Balthasar argues that the work of this crucial figure of the late Patristic period possesses 'synthesis' as its interior form.[1] Of course, the Swiss theologian does not suggest that Maximos anticipates Hegel's dialectics, nor does he claim with Thurnberg that Maximos' theology is a conscious attempt to steer clear of theological fragmentation.[2] Rather, 'synthesis' indicates a perceived inner congruence between divine transcendence and created immanence, necessity and contingency, absolute and relative. The hermeneutic key which unlocks the salvific import of this dialectic is the mystery of the hypostatic union, where the divinity of Christ embraces and transfigures our humanity, and thereby foreshadows the ultimate destiny of the cosmos within God's overarching plan.

Maximos' defense of Chalcedon in the context of the monothelite crisis reflected the strong Christocentric character of his spiritual theology, where the pattern of individual practice was the incarnate life of the eternal Word.[3] While his *Liber Asceticus* strongly emphasizes inner purification, Maximos also possesses a pronounced sensitivity for the communitarian, public dimension of Christian spirituality, and the latter is given a lyrical expression in the meditations of the *Mystagogia* about the celebration of the divine liturgy.[4] The burden

[1] Hans Urs von Balthasar, *Cosmic Liturgy: The Universe According to Maximos the Confessor* (transl. Brian Daley, San Francisco, 2003), 56-65.

[2] Lars Thunberg, *Man and the Cosmos: The Vision of Maximos the Confessor* (Crestwood, N.Y., 1985), 31. Here, Thunberg contrasts Maximos' method with the tendency to turn theology into a discussion 'of different entities', which he claims to detect 'in Western medieval scholastic tradition'.

[3] On Maximos and monothelitism, see the monograph by François Marie Léthel, *Théologie de l'agonie du Christ: la liberté humaine du fils de Dieu et son importance sotériologique mises en lumière par saint Maxime le Confesseur*, TH 52 (Paris, 1979).

[4] The Greek text of the *Liber Asceticus* (also known as *The Ascetic Life*) may be found in Migne's *Patrologia Graeca* 90, 912-56; an English translation by Polycarp Sherwood, OSB, is included in his *St. Maximus the Confessor: The Ascetic Life and the Four Centuries on Charity*, ACW 21 (Westminster, Md., and London, 1955), 103-35. The Greek text of the *Mystagogia* (also known as *The Church's Mystagogy*) is in *Patrologia Graeca* 91, 657-717; an English translation by George Berthold is included in his *Maximus the Confessor: Selected Writings*, Classics of Western Spirituality (New York, 1965), 181-225.

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of this paper is thus to explore the Christological, and specifically the Chalcedonian orientation of Maximos' liturgical theology, showing the fundamental congruence of its presuppositions and goals with Maximos' reflections on cosmology and anthropology.

The retrieval of the Stoic teaching of the λόγοι σπερματικοί (customarily rendered as 'seeds of the Word') enables Maximos to balance his strong belief in divine immanence with an equally strong assertion of the utter transcendence of the eternal Word. In the various passages of the *Ambigua* (also known as 'Difficulties') which develop an allegorical reading of problematic Scriptural excerpts, the inner purification attained through familiarity with the λόγοι ensures that one's πρᾶξις (virtuous activity) seconds the divine will which structures and sustains the created order.[5] Θεωρία (contemplation of the Word's presence in the cosmos) introduces the mind to a knowledge of the divine, which remains partial and incomplete. The ungraspable quality of God's presence in creation kindles our desire for a deeper communion with the divine mystery.[6]

In the *Liber Asceticus*, the focus shifts from the sweeping Christocentric cosmology of the *Ambigua* to the contemplation of the eternal Word in the flesh. For Maximos, the episode of the transfiguration affirms beyond reasonable doubt the fundamental congruence between the laws governing the cosmos and a human life which is ethically ordered to its goal.[7] Finally, the *Mystagogia* expatiates on the ecclesial nature of the spiritual life, noting how the liturgical actions of the Church illustrate, and indeed foster, the complementary nature of θεωρία and πρᾶξις, revealing how the ecclesial community, together with the whole cosmos, is patterned after the mystery of the hypostatic union. It is the Chalcedonian reality of a unity which does not suppress, but rather engages and nurtures diversity, that frames Maximos' reflections on the liturgy of the Eucharist, where God embraces and transfigures the fruits of spiritual labor.

Maximos views human freedom as a dimension of the individual that is necessarily contingent and circumstantial. In the *Disputatio cum Phyrrho*, Maximos' passionate defense of dyothelitism reflected his conviction that the monothelite

[5] This term, which broadly means 'action', or 'advantage', is used by Maximos to indicate the practice of all virtues pertaining to a Christian life. See for instance *Capita de Charitate* 2.57-58 (PG 90, 1003-4).

[6] The object of θεωρία is the created order (*Amb.* 10; PG 91, 1129B-C; 1133B), as well as the life of the incarnate Word (*Amb.* 10; PG 91, 1152D); it also encompasses the prayerful reading of Scripture (*Amb.* 10; PG 91, 1160C-D). One is reminded of Gregory of Nyssa's emphasis on the divine unknowing crowning the ascent on Sinai in *De Vita Moysis* (PG 44, 403-11, *passim*). Both Maximos and Gregory underscore the inadequacy of our intellect when confronted by God, but Maximos does not go on to develop an explicit dialectic of φῶς (light) and γνόφος (darkness).

[7] See *Liber Asceticus* 5 (PG 90, 913-6), where the battles waged against evil by the eternal Word set the terms of our struggle to bring the passions in line with our λόγος. For the transfiguration, see *Amb.* 10 (PG 91, 1125D-1128D).

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position of his adversary obfuscated the link between individual αὐτεξουσιότης (moral autonomy) and the λόγος of humanity, making ethical choices independent of the order of nature.[8] For Maximos, Christ reorients humanity's γνώμη (deliberative faculty) towards God, so that in the garden of Gethsemane it becomes an instrument of our salvation. As the elder says at the outset of the *Liber Asceticus*, by taking flesh from the Virgin, the Word of God sets an example for all to follow, so that πρᾶξις becomes nothing but a constant *imitatio Christi*.[9]

In the earlier writings by Evagrios Pontikos, the goal of the spiritual life was an attitude of utter detachment from worldly concerns, so that nothing could truly upset the inner dispassion of the practitioner.[10] In the *Liber Asceticus*, on the contrary, the condition of ἀπάθεια (dispassion) is a sort of active equanimity, which enables the spiritual athlete to overcome φιλαυτία (love of self), but also to follow Christ in loving her neighbour, even if the latter is utterly undeserving.[11] Maximos' construal of practice unveils what one may term the Christic form of everyday life, the ultimately sacramental character of even the most transient and insignificant aspects of the natural order.

Our call to follow and thus to continue Christ's redeeming work is thus a call to discern the Christocentric orientation of creation and to gather within ourselves the λόγοι of every created reality so as to bring about a sort of spiritual union. The very *form* of this union gestures towards the event of the incarnation: there, humanity and divinity rest in the hypostasis of the eternal Word, each perichoretically suffused by the properties of the other nature, and both preserving their own distinctive character. Maximos' polemic with late Origenism, and with its hankering for a lost unity with the divine where all boundaries are dissolved, leads him to posit the incarnation as the ontological template for creation as a whole: in the infinite depths of the cosmos, λόγοι σπερματικοί without number subsist eternally in a kaleidoscope of difference, and yet, like the two natures of Christ, remain forever distinct.[12]

[8] For Phyrros, Christ's will did not belong to his humanity, nor did it belong to his divinity; rather, it belonged to the hypostasis of the eternal Word, which is the subject of each and every one of Christ's acts. Maximos insists that dyothelitism is not a form of Nestorianism, and argues for its compatibility with the teaching of μία φύσις brought forth by Cyril. See *Disputatio cum Phyrro* (PG 91, 288-353).

[9] Maximos the Confessor, *Epistula 6* (PG 91, 428-9); *Liber Asceticus*, 3 (PG 90, 913-4).

[10] In *Kephalaia Gnostika*, 4.90, Evagrios Pontikos envisages the last stage of θεωρία as ultimately detached from the practice of the virtues which leads to it. The two extant Syriac versions of this text, together a French translation, are found in *Les Six Centuries des 'Kephalaia Gnostica' d'Évagre le Pontique*, transl. A. Guillaumont (Paris, 1958), 174f.

[11] Maximos the Confessor, *Liber Asceticus* 12; 15: 110-2 (PG 90, 921-4).

[12] For a broader discussion of Maximos' dispute with 'vulgar' Origenism, see Polycarp Sherwood, *The Earlier Ambigua of Saint Maximus the Confessor and his Refutation of Origenism*, StAns 36 (Rome, 1955). Similarly echoing Chalcedon, the Pseudo-Denys tells us in *De Divinis Nominibus* 5.7 (PG 4, 821A-B) that the separate λόγοι of each individual nature dwell in the eternal Word κατὰ ἀσύγχυτον ἕνωσιν (in an unconfused union).

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If the manner of the hypostatic union simultaneously mirrors and discloses the deepest structure of the universe, the Chalcedonian expression ἀδιαιρέτως καὶ ἀσυγχύτως ('without division and without confusion') can also describe the union between the soul and the body, which is not superseded by a purely noetic reality as in Evagrios, but is the very instrument through which we are called to deification. It is the soul which raises up to θεωρία, but it is through the body that we can engage in πρᾶξις. In the *Centuria Charitatis*, we are told that those anointed with the oil of contemplation who partake of the table of the virtues will eventually drink from the cup of divine knowledge.[13]

If we turn to consider the Church's mediating role in the world, we see how Maximos envisages the mystical body of Christ as straddling the divide between the sensible and the intelligible realm, thereby sharing in the gradual deification of matter.[14] In the *Mystagogia*, Maximos argues that the Church of God is εἰκὼν [...] τοῦ ἐξ ὁρατῶν καὶ ἀοράτων οὐσιῶν ὑφεστῶτος κόσμου ('an image of the world composed of visible and invisible substances'),[15] thereby καὶ ἕνωσιν καὶ διάκρισιν ἐπιδεχομένην ('encompassing within itself both unity and diversity').[16] The church is one architectural unity, and the nave, which is the area assigned to the laity, is separate from the sanctuary, which is only accessible to the sacred ministers. Of course, this difference corresponds to the dialectical relationship of Christ's natures. As the humanity of the Word came into being without hypostasis of its own, ready to be suffused by the divine energies, one can say that ἱερατεῖον μὲν τὸν ναὸν κατὰ τὴν δύναμιν ('the nave is the sanctuary in potency').[17] On the other hand, as we access Christ's divinity only through the mediation of his humanity, it is also the case that ναὸν τὸ ἱερατεῖον κατὰ τὴν ἐνέργειαν τῆς ἰδίας αὐτὸν ἔχον μυσταγωγίας ἀρχῆν ('the sanctuary is the nave in actuality, by virtue of the principle of the sacred action [μυσταγωγία] which is there accomplished.').[18] The two realities are distinct, and yet are one, as the two natures of Christ rest undivided in the hypostasis of the eternal Word.[19] The liturgy is thus the lynchpin of the church structure; the public prayer of the Christian church, no less than the building where it unfolds, prefigures the symphonic reality of the celestial Jerusalem, where every voice sings the praises of God in full harmony with the cosmos.

[13] Maximos the Confessor, *Capita de Charitate* 3.2 (PG 90, 1017-8).

[14] *Mystagogia* 2, 4 (PG 91, 667-71, 684).

[15] *Mystagogia* 2 (PG 91, 667).

[16] *Mystagogia* 2 (PG 91, 667).

[17] *Mystagogia* 2 (PG 91, 669).

[18] *Mystagogia* 2 (PG 91, 669). As noted by George Berthold, this is one of the rare occasions when Maximos actually uses the term μυσταγωγία (rendered by Migne as *res sacra*) to indicate the Eucharist; see his *Maximus the Confessor: Selected Writings*, Note 33 to the *Mystagogia*, 217.

[19] The theme of unity and diversity in Maximos' writings is given ample treatment in Adam G. Cooper's *The Body in St. Maximus the Confessor: Holy Flesh, Wholly Deified* (Oxford, 2005), ch. 4, 165-206.

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As the spiritual and the material world reflect each other in an endless game of mirrors, the Chalcedonian exchange of properties between the two οὐσίαι (usually rendered as 'essences') reflects the ceaseless intercourse between the world of the higher powers, again prefigured by the sanctuary, and the realm of those who indulge the senses, again symbolized by the nave. For Maximos, much as for the Pseudo-Denys, the spiritual world is imprinted onto the sensible realm in symbolic forms, but where the Aeropagite offers no secure hermeneutic tool to discern an order within the maze of signs that is creation, Maximos alerts his audience to its underlying Christocentric thrust.[20] The fact that the humanity of Christ possesses no hypostasis of its own, but receives it, as it were, from the person of the eternal Son, is an ontological reality with a pedagogic purpose: the purpose of the incarnation is the ultimate deification of every individual.[21] In a perfect analogy, the λόγοι σπερματικοί receive their being from the eternal Logos, who guides them towards their final transfiguration. And where but in the liturgy should we look for a pledge of the eschatological destiny of nature? Much as the labyrinth adorning the nave of Chartres cathedral possesses a cruciform structure that helps us make sense of its recondite purpose, the incarnate Word of God is the woof guiding us through the maze of signs which are scattered throughout the cosmos.[22]

Maximos' *Mystagogia* has little to say about the real presence of Christ in the Eucharistic species; indeed, it would be an anachronism to explain Maximos' position on this issue using the later vocabulary of transubstantiation or companation. The consecrated bread and the wine prefigure the 'new heaven and new earth' of the Lord's day, when Christ shall be 'all in all',[23] while the different liturgical actions are interpreted as symbolizing different aspects of Christ's salvific work.[24] Thus, through the celebration of the Eucharist, the Church participates in Christ's mediatorial work, and helps bring about the

[20] See Ps.-Denys, *De Eccl. Hier.* (PG 3, 369-585). This work does posit Christ at the head of the ecclesiastical hierarchy, but its Neoplatonic overtones obfuscate any budding Christological thrust.

[21] This approach posits a fundamental asymmetry in the person of Christ, since the divine οὐσία has its own hypostasis, whereas the human οὐσία does not. The technical term *anhypostasis* is associated with the writings of Leontius of Byzantium (485-543), though Maximos makes no use of it; see Richard Cross, Individual Natures in the Christology of Leontius of Byzantium: *JECS* 10 (2002) 245-65.

[22] See the discussion of the Christian symbolism of the labyrinth in Craig Wright, *The Maze and the Warrior: Symbols in Architecture, Theology and Music* (Cambridge, Mass., 2004), ch. 1-3.

[23] *Rev.* 21:1; *Col.* 3:11.

[24] *Mystagogia* 5-24 (PG 91, 687-718). Maximos' reading of the liturgy greatly influenced to the vast corpus of allegorical readings of the liturgy in the Eastern tradition, the most famous of which is probably Nicholas Kabasilas' *Commentary on the Divine Liturgy*, transl. by J.M. Hussey and P.A. McNulty (Crestwood, N.Y., 1997); see also Endre von Ivanka (ed.), *Das Buch vom Leben in Christus: Sakrament und Liturgie von Nikolaos Kabasilas* (German transl. G. Hoch., 2nd ed., Wien und Munich, 1966).

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transfiguration of created matter.[25] For Maximos, much as the divinity of Christ reconfigures his humanity and yet respects its ontological distinctiveness, the practice of the virtues conforms the sensitive and incensive parts of the soul to the simplicity of the intellect, and yet does not subsume the passions into the νοῦς (intellect).[26] The Chalcedonian eagerness to preserve plurality as a harmonious synthesis provides also the structure for the soul's gradual advance towards the divine mystery. The purposeful unity of altar, sanctuary and nave corresponds to the three parts of the soul, but also suggests the different phases of θεωρία, hierarchically ordered in their mutual complementarity.[27] Towards the end of the *Mystagogia*, the communication of the idioms that takes place in the hypostatic union is taken as the model for the perichoretic relationship of the three forms of contemplation, which in turn is symbolized by the great entrances of the συνάξις (liturgical assembly).[28] Through the circular movement of the entrances, the liturgical action taking place in the sanctuary moves back to the nave and embraces the congregation, making it partake of the mystery accomplished on the altar.[29]

Maximos' fondness for παράδοσις (reciprocity) ensures that the correspondence between divine self-bestowal and human response is reflected by a deep symmetry at the core of spiritual practice: Christ's kenotic self-emptying and humanity's virtuous self-denial mirror each other, and whenever an individual succeeds in turning her passions into virtues, the Word once more becomes incarnate and turns her virtues into his own body. The liturgy is thus the paradigm of what happens within the deepest secret of the self. Evagrios Pontikos had also talked of the virtues as preparing the intellect for the inner epiphany of the divine, but for Maximos the eternal Logos descends into our flesh and makes it its own.[30] In this perspective, the life of the individual Christian is itself a liturgy, no less awesome than what happens in the temples of the church. The Chalcedonian paradigm of unity in diversity anticipates the preservation

[25] *Mystagogia* 2.4 (PG 91, 667-71).

[26] On Maximos' rendition of the Platonic division of the soul into three parts, see Irénée-Henri Dalmais, Un traité de théologie contemplative: *Le Commentaire du Pater Noster* de saint Maxim le Confesseur: *RAM* 29 (1953) 123-39.

[27] Maximos the Confessor, *Capita de Charitate* 3.2 (PG 90, 1017-8).

[28] In contemporary Eastern Orthodox usage, this term is also used to indicate a number of feasts, such as the 'Synaxis of the Fathers of the First Ecumenical Council' on January 16th, or the 'Synaxis of the Theotokos and Joseph' on December 26th.

[29] *Mystagogia* 23 (PG 91, 698-702).

[30] Evagrios' texts collected in the *Philokalia* emphasize how the virtues help the νοῦς shed the images of created reality, and make it ready for an experience of virtual unity with the divine; the incarnation plays hardly any role. See for instance Evagrios, *Outline Teaching on Asceticism and Stillness in the Solitary Life*, and *On Prayer: One Hundred and Fifty-Three Texts*, in: Geoffrey E.H. Palmer, Philip Sherrard, and Kallistos Ware (eds.), *Philokalia* I (London, 1979), 31-7 and 55-71. For Maximos' discussion of the continued presence of Christ after the incarnation, see *Capita Theologiae et Oeconomiae*, 1.54-55; 2.28-33 (PG 90, 1104, 1137-40).

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of individual difference within the assembly of the blessed.[31] As we know from the events of Maximos' life, this response to God's self-disclosure might entail considerable personal suffering; martyrdom is the destiny of only a minority of Christ's disciples, but the pursuit of θεωρία and πρᾶξις renews his incarnation in each one of them, as they come to share in his sufferings.

Maximos' reading of the liturgy as an event with cosmic resonance that simultaneously mimics the spiritual experience of the individual builds upon and presupposes the Cappadocian conception of the universe as an intelligible reality, which by the 7th century was an unquestioned component of the Church's heritage.[32] Maximos reads this conception through the teaching of Chalcedon, and asserts the identity of the natural order with the historical person of Christ, whose manifestation in the flesh inaugurates the final healing of the cosmos. When in her work *After Writing* Catherine Pickstock presents the Eucharist as the guarantee of reality's meaning and purpose, and goes on to indict what she views as the subjectivism and reductionism of contemporary worship, her eschatological thrust is analogous to Maximos' longing for the celestial Jerusalem, whose manifestation will seal the deification of the cosmos begun in Christ.[33] The Chalcedonian adverbs that qualify the manner of the union in the person of Christ, and adumbrate the intrinsic harmony of the liturgical action, may also describe, albeit inadequately, the mystery of the cosmos, which the λόγοι σπερματικοί carry like the wheels in Ezekiel's vision, forever interlocking and forever distinct.[34]

[31] And indeed, within the church here on earth. In his 2004 article on Maximos' ecclesiology, Andrew Louth notes how Maximos' reflections on the Church's relationship with the political authorities (such as *Op. 11* in PG 91, 137C-140B, discussing the nature of Rome's primacy) were written at a much later stage in his life than the *Mystagogia*; yet, his vision of the ecclesial structure as a hierarchically ordered reality nurtured by the Eucharist, where the task of every member is geared to the common good, is in substantial continuity with his Chalcedonian understanding of unity in plurality. See Andrew Louth, The Ecclesiology of Saint Maximos the Confessor: *IJSCC* 4 (2004) 109-20.

[32] On the Cappadocians' qualified retrieval of the Hellenist notion of the cosmos as an ordered reality, see Jaroslav Pelikan, *Christianity and Classical Culture: The Metamorphosis of Natural Theology in the Christian Encounter with Hellenism* (New Haven, Conn., 1993), esp. Ch. 2, 6.

[33] See Catherine Pickstock, *After Writing: The Liturgical Consummation of Philosophy* (Oxford, 1997), esp. ch. 6 ('The Resurrection of the Sign'), 253-66.

[34] *Ez.* 1:4-26.

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Le *documentum* symmachien consacré à Polychronius de Jérusalem: Enseignements géo-ecclésiologiques d'un faux romain

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Depuis que P. Coustant (1721) a su détromper la communauté des savants sur leur origine, ce que l'on est grâce à lui convenu d'appeler les faux symmachiens, se sont vus reconnaître un objectif éditorial et une période de création nettement distingués.[1] Approfondie par L. Duchesne[2] et E. Caspar[3], notre connaissance de cet ensemble documentaire s'est considérablement enrichie il y a quelques années grâce aux travaux d'E. Wirbelauer[4]. Après avoir renouvelé notre compréhension du schisme laurentien tant au plan chronologique qu'en matière d'enjeux religieux, politiques et sociaux[5], celui-ci a su mettre en perspective la signification de la conception et de la diffusion de ce genre de *documenta* (dont on sait que le parti de Symmaque n'eut pas l'apanage exclusif). Son ouvrage se caractérise par la qualité des observations proposées et fournit un sûr fondement au déploiement de nouvelles recherches. Insistant à juste titre sur l'origine et la visée romaines de la forgerie, il relève plus spécialement l'entreprise d'un premier auteur symmachien à l'œuvre (avant mai 502?; durant l'été 502?) qui serait le rédacteur des récits relatifs à Marcellinus, Libère, Xyste et Polychronius en plus de la première version du concile de Sylvestre.[6] Sans doute issu de la chancellerie pontificale, ce faussaire montre une certaine capacité à se mouvoir dans les périodes représentées et révèle une familiarité particulière avec les emplois juridiques privilégiés. Nul doute sur son objectif: il s'agit de convaincre que le légitime évêque de Rome est à la tête d'une institution ecclésiale autonome strictement organisée selon un principe de hiérarchie qui prévient toute mise en cause d'un supérieur par le titulaire d'un grade inférieur

[1] *Pontificum Romanorum Epistolae et quae ad eos scriptae sunt* (Paris, 1721), appendice.

[2] *Liber pontificalis*. I, éd., introd. et comm. Mgr. Louis Duchesne, BÉFAR (Paris, 1886, 1955[2]), CXXII, CXXVI, CXXXIII-CCXXXVII.

[3] *Geschichte des Papsttums: Von den Anfängen bis zur Höhe der Weltherrschaft*. II. *Das Papsttum unter byzantinischer Herrschaft* (Tübingen, 1933), 108-111.

[4] *Zwei Päpste in Rom: der Konflikt zwischen Laurentius und Symmachus (498-514): Studien und Texte*, Quellen und Forschungen zur antiken Welt 16 (Munich, 1993).

[5] *Ibid.* 9-65.

[6] *Ibid.* 69-93 spécialement.

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ou d'un ordinateur par un ordonné. En conséquence, le pape ne peut être jugé par personne.[7]

Pour renforcer cette prétention juridique destinée à délégitimer toute procédure visant Symmaque, il conçoit une historiette qui, un bref moment, déplace le théâtre de l'action loin de Rome. Ainsi est mis en scène un certain Polychronius, censé occuper le siège de Jérusalem et se faire remarquer par son ambition et sa simonie.[8] Il est dénoncé par un de ses suffragants, Eufimius, dont l'accusation bientôt confirmée en Palestine par le nombre requis de quarante témoins entendus en concile. Ainsi Polychronius est-il démis de ses fonctions conformément aux instructions papales formées en synode.[9] Mais le plaignant n'en échappe pas pour autant à toute implication. Au contraire, Eufimius est condamné pour le restant de son existence au motif qu' 'il n'est permis à personne d'accuser son pontife parce que le juge ne peut pas être jugé.'[10] Cependant, se montrant particulièrement charitable à l'occasion d'une famine advenue peu après, Polychronius est finalement restauré par le même pape Xyste dans ses premières attributions.[11] Daté avec adresse (23 mars 450)[12] pour son ultime et heureux épisode, le récit offre donc généreusement les clefs de compréhension nécessaires à son interprétation. Le jeu de mot relatif à Polychronius, celui qui a accompli de nombreuses années, permet de l'identifier à son antonyme latin Juvénal (422-458). Celui-ci, en effet, originaire d'Occident,[13] ne s'était-il pas lui-même prévalu de l'ancienneté de son sacerdoce[14], incitant Léon en retour à ne l'exhorter que davantage à enseigner la foi des Pères? Car le souvenir de la lettre par laquelle, en 454, le pape admonestait son confrère plus âgé a probablement offert la matière de notre légende.[15] Connu pour son indéfectible dessein de constituer son siège en patriarcat, ce qui indisposa jusqu'à son allié le plus proche, Cyrille d'Alexandrie, au point que celui-ci s'en ouvrit à Léon,[16] Juvénal apparaît comme un personnage propre à susciter la caricature. Il inspire donc Polychronius à notre fabuliste et lui communique le trait d'une

[7] *Cf.* Salvatore Vacca, *Prima sedes a nemine iudicatur. Genesi e sviluppo storico dell'assioma fino al Decreto di Graziano*, Miscellanea Historiae pontificae 61 (Rome, 1993), 63 spécialement.

[8] *Gesta (documentum) Polychronii* (ci-après *GP*), texte et traduction allemande annotée dans Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste in Rom* (1993, cit. note 4), 272-83.

[9] *GP*, 273-8.

[10] *Ibid.* 276[70-1].

[11] *Ibid.* 278-80.

[12] *Ibid.* 282[130].

[13] Ernest Honigmann, Juvenal of Jerusalem: *DOP* 5 (1950), 211.

[14] Léon ep 139 (à Juvénal, 4 septembre 454) *Acta conciliorum œcumenicorum* (ci-après *ACO*) II 4, éd. Eduard Schwartz (Berlin, 1932), 93[15].

[15] Cf. Eckhard Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste* (1993, cit. note 4), 87, note 52.

[16] Sans que nous puissions absolument affirmer que son destinataire était encore diacre ou déjà pape. Cf. Léon ep. 119 (à Maxime d'Antioche, 11 juin 453), *ACO*, II-4, 74[15-7] et E. Honigmann, Juvenal (1950, cit. note 13), 217.

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ambition insatiable qui vaut pour grave grief. 'Dans l'irréflexion de sa vieillesse' ne disait-il pas 'que Jérusalem est le premier siège et d'un air superbe, comme s'il s'exprimait d'une position supérieure', n'affirmait-il pas 'être pontife et prêtre (*sacerdos*) suprême.'[17] Quant à la charge de simonie reprochée au vieillard, elle se substitue habilement à celle de proximité avec l'hérésie, surtout lorsqu'elle implique l'ordination d'Égyptiens ou d'Éthiopiens,[18] comprenons de ressortissants de l'espace dominé par Alexandrie et perçu à la suite des lettres de Léon puis du schisme acacien comme le domaine le plus terriblement contaminé par l'hostilité au *Tome à Flavien* et à l'enseignement chalcédonien qui, pour Rome, en découle.

Mais pourquoi avoir choisi de tels ingrédients historiques pour cette fiction? Avant que de nous intéresser à la saveur orientale donnée à la relation, commençons par ce qui pouvait le plus choquer un Romain tant soit peu informé. Pourquoi avoir postdaté l'épiscopat de Xyste à ce point et avoir maintenu Léon dans un simple rôle diaconal? Pour redorer le blason d'un pâle pontife et ne pas paraître manquer de dévotion de quelque façon à l'égard du grand pape en ajoutant un étonnant inédit à son illustre action?[19] Peut-être. Mais le plus probable est sans doute que le faussaire a entendu opérer une transposition chronologique pour que la thématique christologique ne soit à aucun moment explicitement alléguée. Trop évidemment suggéré, un tel rappel aurait pu en effet s'avérer contreproductif pour les intérêts d'un Symmaque que l'empereur Anastase taxerait plus tard de manichéen.[20] La datation terminale fournie joue donc un rôle précis, celui de ne pas inscrire le récit dans le contexte envahissant de la crise eutychienne, même si, nous l'avons dit, le codage spatial ou prosopographique qui en dépend peut être exploité. Dès lors, la figure de Léon, spécialement vénérée pour son entreprise de réfutation des thèses monophysites, ne pouvait convenir que comme antéposée et encore inchoative en quelque sorte.

C'est donc devant la justice de Xyste, en sa qualité de titulaire du premier siège que le cas de Polychronius est présenté. La fiction laisse accroire à l'évidence d'une sollicitation de la part d'un évêque palestinien qui reconnaîtrait le synode romain comme l'instance compétente pour instruire sa plainte et engager la procédure de jugement.[21] Répondant au demandeur, en synode, Xyste prévoit quelle décision sera rendue conformément aux canons romains si les faits sont confirmés devant l'instance locale palestinienne, formée sur l'initiative des envoyés pontificaux et présidée par eux. En outre la sentence prévue,

[17] *GP*, 272[4-6].

[18] *Ibid.* 272[10], 278[79-80].

[19] Cf. E. Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste* (1993, cit. note 4), 87.

[20] Sym., *Ep.* 10 (à l'empereur Anastase, répondant à la charge de son correspondant, sans doute dès 506), *Publizistische Sammlungen zum acacianischen Schisma*, éd. et comm. E. Schwartz, ABAW.PH 10 (Munich, 1934), 153[10-12]; 154[6]; 154[15].

[21] *GP*, 274[25-7].

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qui sera confirmée par le pape au terme du processus, stipule que le suffragant sera lui aussi condamné pour s'en être pris à son supérieur.[22] Sans doute ne faut-il pas trop presser le processus imaginé qui, soulignons-le, est d'abord destiné à servir les intérêts immédiats de Symmaque, mais l'on voit que l'on n'a pas affaire à un appel. Il s'agit bien plutôt d'une accusation contre un titulaire dont l'exacte dignité hiérarchique fait difficulté au regard de Rome. Car la promotion définitive de Jérusalem, d'ailleurs contestée ensuite par Maxime d'Antioche devant Léon,[23] date de Chalcédoine et précède donc, si l'on s'en tient à sa chronologie fictive, l'épisode narré. En revanche, le canon 7 de Nicée prévoit une préséance d'honneur réservée à Jérusalem.[24] En outre la leçon de notre texte suppose une inégalité de statut entre le siège de Polychronius et celui d'Eufimius. Le premier fait donc à tout le moins figure de métropolite. Bien mieux, tout porte même à croire que son autorité légitime est en principe conçue comme supérieure encore, comme si la décision de 451 avait finalement été admise, mais de facto seulement.[25] Car, absent des considérations damasiennes,[26] le siège de Jérusalem ne relève pas de la hiérarchie apostolique exaltée par Léon. Il ne figure donc pas parmi les trois sièges principaux. Solidaires des thèses pétrinologiques, les droits spécifiques de ces derniers ont été récemment exposés par Gélase pour mieux souligner encore l'insupportable captivité monophysite dont ils sont alors l'objet.[27] Avec Jérusalem, si l'on ose dire, point de pareille contrainte disciplinaire ni hérésiologique: le faussaire dispose d'une marge de manœuvre imaginaire propice. À n'en pas douter, c'est là une raison supplémentaire qui explique le choix d'un tel siège. Ajoutons que la longue évocation des Lieux saints proposée par le pape dans la lettre destinée à son

[22] *Ibid.* 274[27]-278[94].

[23] Comme nous l'apprenons d'après la réponse de celui-ci (*Ep.* 119). Sur cette démarche et ses conséquences, cf. E. Schwartz, *ACO.* II 2-2 (*Rerum chalcedonensium collectio Vaticana*) (Berlin, 1936), XIII-XIV et notre *Alexandrie et Constantinople: De l'histoire à la géo-ecclésiologie*, BÉFAR 327 (Rome, 2006), 137, 291, 293 et 429f.

[24] *I canoni dei concili della chiesa antica*, éd. A. Di Berardino, I. *I concili greci*, éd. Carla Noce, Carlo Dell'Osso et Danilo Ceccarelli Morolli, Studia ephemeridis Augustinianum 95 (Rome, 2006), 22.

[25] Il appartiendra à Grégoire le Grand de préciser l'appartenance de Jérusalem au groupe des quatre sièges patriarcaux principaux sans remettre en cause la spécificité de la dignité pétrinienne des trois sièges distingués par le concile de Damase. Cf. Anton Michel, Der Kampf um das politische oder petrinische Prinzip der Kirchenführung, in: Aloys Grillmeier et Heinrich Bacht (éds.), *Das Konzil von Chalkedon: Geschichte und Gegenwart.* II. *Entscheidung um Chalkedon* (Würzburg, 1953), 512f.

[26] Selon ce qu'enseigne le chapitre 3 du *Decretum de libris recipiendis et non recipiendis*, éd. Ernst Von Dobschütz, TU 38 (Leipzig, 1912), 32, chapitre qui reflète sans doute les conceptions ecclésiologiques affirmées à Rome en 382, à un moment où le siège de Jérusalem n'est pas même assuré de l'emporter dans sa lutte d'influence locale contre Césarée.

[27] Voir notre communication 'Le schisme acacien (484-519)' prononcée lors du colloque international *Motivi e strutture di divisioni ecclesiali*, *Pontificio Comitato di Scienze Storiche*, Corfou 10-13 avril 2007: AHC 39 (2007) 65-98.

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collègue hiérosolymite,[28] de même que le souvenir de l'envoi par Juvénal d'un morceau de la vraie croix[29] ou encore le récit des pèlerinages expliquent sans doute le fait que le concile palestinien se tînt dans 'la basilique de la sainte résurrection de notre Seigneur Jésus-Christ'.[30]

Si donc l'option palestinienne procède d'une considération géo-ecclésiale prudente à défaut d'être précise, exploitant la notoriété manifeste d'une Église-mémorial, elle ménage surtout la possibilité d'exploiter un second effet. Car l'auteur surprend lorsqu'il signale que les dispositions prévues par Xyste supposent d'être relayées par Constantinople. Passe encore que l'assentiment de l'empereur Théodose soit mentionné:[31] on peut voir dans cette attitude coopérative le rappel du rôle dévolu au bon prince (celui du dénouement de la crise nestorienne ou plus sûrement encore par rétro-identification celui que sut jouer Marcien dans la controverse eutychienne[32]), rôle qu'Anastase se refuse à revêtir. Mais que vient donc faire l'évêque de Constantinople dans cette affaire? Est-ce une surprise semblable à la nôtre qui saisit le copiste? Quoi qu'il en soit la tradition manuscrite tait le nom du hiérarque, nous laissant devant un dilemme: le faussaire avait-il historicisé ce personnage ou l'avait-il créé de toute pièce?[33] Et quelle place lui assignait-il? L'hypothèse la plus probable est qu'il le considérait comme un auxiliaire du pape, délégué par le siège Apostolique en raison de sa proximité avec le pouvoir impérial pour contribuer sur instruction à régler les affaires ecclésiales dans l'Empire d'Orient, à l'instar de la mission que Simplice avait cru pouvoir confier à Acace en 476.[34] Notons en revanche que le récit ne paraît pas reconnaître au Constantinopolitain la fonction d'informateur patenté sur laquelle le vieux pape avait tant insisté. À moins que ... À moins que la typologie onomastique ne suggère une tout autre leçon. L'accusateur de Polychronius ne s'appelle-t-il pas Eufimius? N'est-ce pas lui qui porte jusqu'à Rome la nouvelle des errements de l'évêque chenu? Et comment ne pas rapprocher Eufimius de l'archevêque chalcédonien de Constantinople Euphème (désigné en 490 et exilé en 496) dont Gélase n'admettait pas qu'il pût continuer à faire mention d'Acace lors de la synaxe?[35] Si c'est bien Euphème qu'il faut

[28] Léon, *Ep.* 139, 92[16]-93[1].

[29] *Ibid.* 93[25].

[30] *GP*, 276[72-3].

[31] *Ibid.* 274[39].

[32] Sur l'excellence du partenariat entre Léon et Marcien et sa valeur paradigmatique pour le siège Apostolique, cf. nos articles: «*Vice mea*». Remarques sur les représentations pontificales auprès de l'empereur d'Orient dans la seconde moitié du V[e] siècle (452-496): *MÉFRA* 113-2 (2001), 1061-79, et: Rome contre Alexandrie? L'interprétation pontificale de l'enjeu monophysite (de l'émergence de la controverse eutychienne au schisme acacien 448-484): *Adamantius* 12 (2006) 199-203.

[33] *GP*, 274[39]. En suggérant les noms de Flavien ou d'Anatole, E. Wirbelauer, *ibid.* 275, note 83, opte pour la première solution.

[34] Cf. 'Vice mea' (2001, cit. note 32), 1085-94.

[35] *Ibid.* 1108-10 et *Alexandrie et Constantinople* (2006, cit. note 23), 234-7, 484-5.

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reconnaître derrière Eufimius, le récit prend une valeur idéologique assez soutenue. Par l'artifice du siège suffragant de Palestine, Constantinople se verrait contrainte à une position hiérarchique comparable à celle que lui attribuait Gélase. En outre, Euphème, tout fondé qu'il fût dans ses convictions et dires (comprenons que son chalcédonisme était incontestable), ne pouvait échapper à la condamnation acacienne, faute de s'être soumis à la sentence légitimement énoncée par le premier siège.[36] Ainsi, l'unique voie de résorption du schisme était-elle à nouveau rappelée: elle consisterait dans le retour constantinopolitain à l'humble accomplissement du double service (informations utiles transmises au premier siège/appui manifeste donné aux décisions pontificales) défini par Rome.

Ainsi, loin de reléguer dans le silence ou de méconnaître la question du rapport avec les Églises d'Orient et tout spécialement avec celle de Constantinople, question dont on sait que, étroitement mêlée aux stratégies sénatoriales et à la politique italienne de Théodoric, elle est l'une des causes principales des divergences cristallisées par le schisme laurentien,[37] le faussaire aurait formulé un discours codé assez efficace, par lequel il aurait réaffirmé le bien-fondé des conceptions géo-ecclésiales traditionnelles développées par Gélase. De la sorte, il aurait implicitement rejeté les ouvertures envisagées par le pape Anastase II et conforté la ligne symmachienne d'intransigeance en cette matière. Il aurait aussi complété le dispositif argumentaire élaboré tout au long de ses autres forgeries en abordant la situation inter-ecclésiale cette fois. Procédant par transfert, allusion, évocation et substitution, il aurait ainsi réalisé le tour de force de résumer et accréditer un programme pontifical exigeant, dont l'objet concernait spécialement Constantinople et de là les deux sièges pétriniens, en ne paraissant s'intéresser qu'au seul cas de Jérusalem. Par le truchement d'une contextualisation exotique, il ne se serait donc pas limité à l'énoncé d'un principe juridique mais aurait aussi signifié sa traduction géo-ecclésiale. Il appartiendrait à un autre membre du parti symmachien, le diacre Hormisdas, devenu pape, d'en méditer la leçon au moment de renouer avec l'Orient compliqué.[38]

[36] Cf. notre communication 'Le schisme acacien (484-519)' (cit. note 27).

[37] Pour une interprétation équilibrée de cette histoire complexe qui a donné lieu à de nombreux travaux privilégiant souvent à l'excès l'un des trois termes de la relation, cf. E. Wirbelauer, *Zwei Päpste* (1993, cit. note 4), 15, 44-65.

[38] Sur les motifs et mobiles de l'action entreprise par Hormisdas après que Justin Ier lui a signifié son intention de mettre un terme à la division ecclésiale entre Constantinople et Rome, cf. notre contribution: Entre idéologie pétrinienne et Realpolitik: quelle place pour le siège constantinopolitain dans la géo-ecclésiologie romaine à l'issue du schisme acacien (518-523)?, prononcée lors de la conférence *Two Romes: Rome and Constantinople in Late Antiquity (Celtic Conferences in Classics, University of Wales)* Lampeter 30 août-2 septembre 2006, à paraître.

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Philoxenus of Mabbug and the Controversies over the 'Theopaschite' Trisagion

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Philoxenus of Mabbug flourished as a writer in the 480s, and his literary activity continued until his death in 523. During Philoxenus' lifetime, the Trisagion hymn 'Holy God, Holy Strong, Holy Immortal, have mercy on us' was the subject matter of three noteworthy controversies. All three were brought about by the addition 'who was crucified for us' – the last part of the hymn would thus become 'Holy Immortal, who was crucified for us, have mercy on us.' This version of the hymn is best known in the literature as the Theopaschite Trisagion.

The first of the three controversies took place approximately in 469-71 in Antioch. The anti-Chalcedonians succeeded in having the Theopaschite addition to the liturgical Trisagion officially sanctioned on this occasion. The second controversy originated and developed in Antioch at the beginning of the 480s, roughly 482-4, when the Chalcedonian Patriarch Calandion interposed the words 'Christ King' in the Theopaschite Trisagion. This stirred discontent among the anti-Chalcedonians, who saw the interpolation of the two words as a deceitful denial of the fact that Christ is the Word of God, one of the Trinity. The third controversy occurred in 511-2, when Emperor Anastasius I tried to impose the Theopaschite Trisagion in the Constantinopolitan liturgy.

It is possible that Philoxenus was present in Antioch on the occasion of the first of these three controversies,[1] but we do not know anything about his potential involvement in the events of 469-71. We do know that he became deeply involved in the second controversy. In fact, all his preserved writings from before 485 (several letters and the *Discourses against Habib*)[2] were produced in this context. The third controversy (511-2) left virtually no trace on his writings, despite the fact that the circumstances were at that point more than

[1] André de Halleux, *Philoxène de Mabbog, sa vie, ses écrits, sa théologie* (Leuven, 1963), 33.

[2] *Letter to the Monks* (*Dogmatic Letter*); Arthur A. Vaschalde (ed. and transl.), *Three Letters of Philoxenus, Bishop of Mabbogh (485-519)* (Rome, 1902), 93-105 (text) and 127-45 (translation); *Letter to the Monks of Teleda*; Ignazio Guidi (ed.), *La lettera di Filosseno ai monaci di Tell'addâ (Teleda)*, Atti della Reale accademia dei Lincei: Memorie della classe di scienze morali, storiche e filologiche III 12 (Rome, 1886), 446-506; *Letter to the Monks of Bēth-Gaugal*; A.A. Vaschalde, *Three Letters*, 105-18 (text) and 146-62 (translation); *Discourses against Habib*; Maurice Brière and François Graffin (ed. and transl.), *Sancti Philoxeni episcopi Mabbugensis dissertationes decem de uno e Sancta Trinitate incorporato et passo*, Patrologia Orientalis 15.4; 38.3; 39.4; 40.2; 41.1 (Turnhout, 1927-1981).

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favorable to Philoxenus' involvement (he was winning a long-fought battle against the Chalcedonian Patriarch Flavian of Antioch (498-512), his popularity in Constantinople was probably at its highest, and, to be sure, the anti-Chalcedonians of the East had not lost interest in the Theopaschite Trisagion, as, for example, Severus' involvement in the events of 511-2, and then his *Cathedral Homily* 125 on the Trisagion demonstrate.

This article analyzes Philoxenus' interest in the Trisagion controversy of the early 480s, attempting to contextualize the author's defense of the Theopaschite Trisagion.

Historical sources present the Trisagion controversy of the years 482-4 in rather vague terms, insisting more than anything on the idea of power struggles. They contain a number of misrepresentations that range from slightly manipulative (for example, Zachariah Rhetor implies that the Chalcedonian Patriarch Calandion did not have any following in Antioch)[3] to manifestly incorrect (such as Theophanes Confessor's claim that Peter the Fuller's initial addition to the Trisagion had been 'Christ King who was crucified for us,' an addition he allegedly changed to simply 'who was crucified for us' upon his third accession to the see of Antioch in 485; in claiming this, Theophanes not only points accusingly to the fickleness of the anti-Chalcedonians, but also attempts to change in his narrative the earlier history of the Trisagion).[4] A significant number of anecdotic details surrounding this controversy can be collected from the sources. However, these details do not amount to a proper contextualization of Philoxenus' campaign.

The conclusion one can draw based on the accounts contained in historical sources is that Philoxenus' involvement in the Trisagion controversy of the 480s was driven by a strong – or even blind and irrational, in Chalcedonian sources – desire to restore Peter the Fuller's original addition to the doxology. A personal feud with Patriarch Calandion of Antioch, whom he eventually defeated by forming alliances with the court of Constantinople and with the monks of the East, is also mentioned as one of Philoxenus' motivations.

Certainly, an explanation fully centered on contemporary ecclesiastical politics and power relations is tempting, but the situation appears to have been more complex. As we can glean from various historical records, Calandion had 'sinned' far beyond the addition of the words 'Christ King' in the doxology of the enlarged Trisagion. Evagrius notes that he anathematized Timothy Aelurus.[5] According to the same author, he anathematized Basiliscus' *Encyclical*,[6] an

[3] Zachariah Rhetor, *The Syriac Chronicle Known As That of Zachariah of Mitylene* V 9, transl. Frederick J. Hamilton and Ernest W. Brooks (London, 1899), 125f.

[4] Theophanes Confessor, *The Chronicle of Theophanes Confessor: Byzantine and Near Eastern History, AD 284-813*, AM 5982, transl. Cyril Mango, Roger Scott, and Geoffrey Greatrex (Oxford, 1997), 206.

[5] Evagrius Scholasticus, *The Ecclesiastical History of Evagrius Scholasticus* III 10, transl. Michael Whitby, Translated Texts for Historians 33 (Liverpool, 2000), 144.

[6] *Ibid.* III 10, 144.

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imperial decree that, although cancelled about a year after its publication (namely in 476), had brought the anti-Chalcedonians to a satisfactory status quo, and continued to enjoy support among the bishops of the East long after its revocation.[7] Further, Calandion refused to subscribe to Emperor Zeno's *Henoticon*.[8] Worse still, Zachariah tells us that Calandion called Cyril of Alexandria a fool.[9] That Philoxenus would not pursue any of these 'sins', but would instead play all his cards on the addition of the words 'Christ King' to the Trisagion, and on the importance of upholding the Theopaschite Trisagion without this modification, suggests that his target was not Calandion himself, or ecclesiastical power in and of itself. The motivations that drove his campaign were more complex. A look into Philoxenus' writings from this period (despite the thorough dehistoricization the author undertook in all these texts, as seen below), is more likely to advance our understanding of his motivations.

The ten *Discourses against Habib* provide a detailed picture of Philoxenus' use and defense of Theopaschite discourse. To this, the letters written in the 480s add insightful touches. The text of the *Discourses* is an elaborate apology of the Christological notion of the 'death of God'. Philoxenus argues that the strong formulations 'God the Word died', 'God died', 'the Immortal died', 'One of the Trinity died' are needed in order to maintain the uniqueness of subject in Christ and to uphold orthodoxy. He argues against the necessity of dissecting these phrases and asking questions such as 'how'? Human inquiry and science should be silenced before the mysteries of the Incarnation, Philoxenus repeats again and again. His adversaries are 'the enemies of the Cross', as we can read in the first *Letter to the Monks of Bēth-Gaugal*.[10] They speak of the death of God as of that of a man, and write theological treatises in support of their position.[11] Philoxenus also emphasizes the soteriological implications of the refusal to use Theopaschite discourse. If one denies that God was crucified, it means that a man was crucified; but the death of a man cannot give life to the world, and a mortal cannot conquer death.

In Philoxenus' texts from the early 480s, the defense of Theopaschite discourse is frequently intertwined with a defense of the Theopaschite Trisagion. In the tenth *Discourse against Habib* he writes:

> Not he who fights to preserve a hymn that is lawfully proclaimed in the Church of God is worthy of scorn, but he who resists it shamelessly, and boldly calls himself a theologian. For I, o foolish one, have not sent my audience to learn from elsewhere that the Immortal God died, but I had them preserve the Trisagion according to custom,

[7] Zachariah Rhetor, *Chronicle* V 5, 113.

[8] Theophanes, *Chronicle* AM 5982, 206. An imperial decree meant to restore Church unity, the *Henoticon* was published in 482.

[9] Zachariah Rhetor, *Chronicle* V 9, 125.

[10] Philoxenus, *Letter to the Monks of Bēth-Gaugal* 115 (159).

[11] Philoxenus, *Letter to the Monks of Teleda* 460-5.

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proclaim it as it was transmitted by tradition, and confess it according to the orthodox practice, as they have received it: 'Holy Immortal, who was crucified for us.'[12]

As his opponent Habib charged, Philoxenus actually used the Theopaschite Trisagion as one of his main arguments in promoting Theopaschite discourse, failing to bring examples from the Scriptures as proofs. Philoxenus defends this practice, explaining that it was not the lack of scriptural or patristic proof that determined him to use the Trisagion, but the fact that tradition and established practice represent an equally acceptable validation.[13] This is a strong statement, and one that may explain why he did not feel the need in this period to subject tradition and established practice to historical scrutiny, even in situations where such scrutiny might have helped his cause. In place of more elaborate historical arguments to counter Habib, Philoxenus brings up in this particular context a distant historical precedent, namely the example of Basil of Caesarea, who had similarly used a hymn as support for his doctrinal statements.[14] However, even this type of narrow historical reference represents a rare occurrence in the Philoxenian texts from this period.

Theopaschite content occupied an important place in anti-Chalcedonian Christological discourse from a very early date. It shows up very frequently in the works of the famous anti-Chalcedonian patriarch of Alexandria, Timothy Aelurus (d. 477). However, Timothy used Theopaschite discourse in an entirely different manner, with noticeable reserves, creating an overall impression that he was trying to protect this type of discourse from attacks and controversy, while at the same time using appropriate occasions to promote it as the most suitable type of discourse on the Incarnation.

It is therefore somewhat puzzling that Philoxenus had the confidence to undertake a fierce defense of Theopaschite discourse, and to put aside all scruples and hesitation in bringing Theopaschism to the fore of Christological debate. It is even more puzzling that he did not try to use to his party's advantage the victory the anti-Chalcedonians of Antioch had won in 469-71 with regard to the Theopaschite Trisagion. This recent past does not come into focus at all in Philoxenus' early works. However, I believe that the two series of events were more closely related than either Philoxenus or the historical sources dealing with the controversy of the 480s would have us believe.

Outside of the Trisagion controversy, the information we have about the late 460s is scarce, but tremendously valuable. From John Rufus' *Plerophories* we learn that, at the time of Martyrius of Antioch's office (459-70/1), there existed quite a few religious disputes.[15] We learn that these disputes focused, on at least

[12] Philoxenus, *Dissertatio* X 162, 333. Emphasis mine.

[13] *Ibid.* 157, 331. That Philoxenus was in fact able to bring patristic proof in support of Theopaschism is demonstrated beyond doubt in the *Florilegium* that accompanies the *Discourses*.

[14] *Ibid.* X 158, 331-3.

[15] John Rufus, *Plérophories* 89, ed. and transl. François Nau, PO 8 (Paris, 1912), 144f.

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one occasion, on the liturgy. In administering the Eucharist, the anti-Chalcedonians had apparently refused to pronounce the words 'the body of Christ', but preferred to say the 'body of God the Word', or 'the body of Christ, the Word of God and Our Saviour'. They had to do this, John Rufus argues, in order to counter the actions of certain impious men who, in administering the Eucharist, were allegedly using the Nestorianizing formula 'the body of the just', thus rejecting not only what Rufus identifies as the formulae preferred by the anti-Chalcedonians ('the body of God the Word', *etc.*), but also the more simple and widespread 'the body of Christ'.[16]

This account indicates that both the Chalcedonians and the anti-Chalcedonians were involved in attempts to take over elements of the liturgy – in this particular case, a formula that accompanied the Eucharist. They were trying to modify their soteriological foundation, redefine them in a manner specific to their Christology, and then disseminate them. John Rufus' report frames very well the understanding of the controversy over the Theopaschite addition to the Trisagion hymn that arose during the last years of Martyrius' office, 469-71. Far from being an isolated incident, the interpolation 'who was crucified for us' is to be situated within this trend of liturgical reforms attempted by both sides.

Certainly, the party that succeeded in imposing an indelible imprint on the liturgy was more likely to attract supporters and to see its Christology prevail. Compared to the discourse of natures, less accessible and less understandable to the lower clergy and to the lay population, the formulas of the liturgy, the phrases that accompanied the Eucharist, and the hymns, by their ritual nature, were more likely to have an impact on the masses. The ability of each of the Christological parties to anchor their Christology in the liturgy was very important, and likely to strengthen their position more than anything else.

By interpolating the phrase 'who was crucified for us' in the Trisagion hymn, the anti-Chalcedonians of Antioch obtained a decisive victory in this series of ongoing fights over the liturgy at the end of the 460s. They gained a position of power rather difficult to challenge. It is most likely for this reason that Philoxenus felt confident to promote Theopaschite language with such openness and even aggressiveness, an attitude so different, as already mentioned, from the one Timothy Aelurus, for example, the most prolific anti-Chalcedonian author before Philoxenus, had adopted with regard to this type of discourse.

Despite the anti-Chalcedonian victory in 469-71, however, the fights over the liturgy between the supporters and opponents of Chalcedon most likely continued. It is in this context that Philoxenus' campaign in the 480s ought to be placed and interpreted. What blurs this connection to the point of being almost indistinguishable is Philoxenus' choice not to make any reference to this

[16] John Rufus, *Plérophories* 89, 147.

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quasi-contemporary context. Probably in an intention to strengthen his position, he chose instead to play the card of tradition and long-established practice. In his own words, he intended to 'preserve the Trisagion according to custom, proclaim it as it was transmitted by tradition, and confess it according to the orthodox practice, as they have received it: "Holy Immortal, who was crucified for us."'[17]

The Trisagion is in fact not the only subject in relation to which Philoxenus chose to emphasize a forged notion of long-standing tradition over a relatively recent anti-Chalcedonian victory. We know that the term *Theotokos* was, from a doctrinal point of view, a more or less settled matter since the Council of Ephesus in 431. However, its liturgical use was not settled. We have evidence that, as part of the fights over the liturgy between Antiochene Dyophysites and Miaphysites in 469-71, the use of the *Theotokos* in the liturgy was also a controversial issue.

Zachariah gives the following account of Martyrius of Antioch's deposition:

> the king ordered that the blessed Mary should be proclaimed and written in the book of life as *Theotokos*, on account of Martyrius of Antioch, who was an avowed Nestorian, and would not now consent to teach these things, who also was deposed.[18]

As such, this notice is not confirmed by other authors. However, bits and pieces of information from other sources seem to make it less far-fetched than it would appear at first glance. The extant legislation from the period does not preserve a decree of Emperor Leo I regarding the *Theotokos*. Nevertheless, a fragment from Theodore Lector informs that, on Leo's order, Patriarch Gennadius of Constantinople (458-71) had to allow the *Theotokos* to go on the diptychs.[19]

The same synod of Seleucia that ordained Peter the Fuller probably condemned and/or deposed Martyrius, and it is not out of question that one of the heads of accusation was, as Zachariah reports, his refusal to accept certain liturgical reforms regarding the *Theotokos*.[20]

John Diakrinomenos adds another piece to this puzzle. He relates that Peter the Fuller was the author of several liturgical reforms, among which was the requirement that the *Theotokos* should be addressed in every prayer (ἐν ἑκάστῃ εὐχῇ τὴν Θεοτόκον ὀνομάζεσθαι).[21] The date of this reform is not specified in the sources. In light of Zachariah's account of Emperor Leo's initiative, and

[17] Philoxenus, *Dissertatio* X 162, 333.

[18] Zachariah Rhetor, *Chronicle* IV 11, 80.

[19] See Eduard Schwartz, *Codex Vaticanus gr. 1431, eine antichalkedonische Sammlung aus der Zeit Kaiser Zenos* (Munich, 1927), 175. See also Facundus of Hermianae, *Pro defensione trium capitulorum* II. IV (accessed on CLCLT-5, vol. 1) for a reference to Gennadius' rejection of the term *Theotokos*.

[20] See *supra* fn. 18.

[21] John Diakrinomenos, *Theodoros Anagnostes. Kirchengeschichte*, no. 547, ed. Günther C. Hansen (Berlin, 1971), 155.

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supported by the information that Martyrius of Antioch was opposed to this initiative, it appears possible to date this reform by Peter the Fuller to the years 469-71.[22] Martyrius would have thus opposed a liturgical reform concerning the *Theotokos* that originated from Peter the Fuller in Antioch, alongside the addition to the Trisagion; Gennadius of Constantinople may have given Martyrius his support in this matter; required to take a stance, Emperor Leo sided with the anti-Chalcedonians (or, in the least, did not support Gennadius and Martyrius), and requested that *Theotokos* should go on the diptychs.

As in the case of the Theopaschite Trisagion, Philoxenus, although most likely aware of the existence of these recent conflicts regarding the place of the *Theotokos* in the liturgy, avoids to mention them altogether, and presents their outcome as the only element with relevance for the present situation. In a passage from the tenth *Discourse against Habib*, Philoxenus writes that the whole Church proclaims the *Theotokos* at the altar at the time of the Eucharist, most likely referring to the reading of the diptychs.[23] He deals with the presence of the *Theotokos* on the diptychs in exactly the same manner he had with the Theopaschite addition to the Trisagion: he presents is as a firm, well-established tradition that is beyond history and beyond human inquiry. He uses this stand to fight his Dyophysite adversaries, one of whom, Habib, had gravely blasphemed against the *Theotokos* in the manner of Nestorius, according to Philoxenus' testimony in the first *Discourse*: 'And you said elsewhere: In the same way in which God did not die, he was also not born of a Virgin; this is why we should not call the Virgin *Theotokos*, but *Christotokos*.'[24]

As his career advanced, Philoxenus would begin to integrate elements of history in his argumentation more and more,[25] but this early phase of his involvement in Christological controversies lacks the historical dimension almost entirely. Cleary, the notion of established tradition was the explanation

[22] *Pace* Michel van Esbroeck, Peter the Fuller and Cyrus of Edessa: *ARAM Periodical* 12 (1999-2000) 467-74, 473. According to M. van Esbroeck, Peter encouraged the cult of Gregory Thaumaturgus during the second part of his exile (477-85); both this initiative and evidence of the reform concerning the *Theotokos* have left traces on a Georgian homiliary. Based on this, Van Esbroeck has argued that the reform concerning the *Theotokos* must be quasi-contemporary with Peter's promotion of the cult of Gregory Thaumaturgus, and therefore belongs to Peter's third period of episcopacy.

[23] Philoxenus, *Dissertatio* X 161, 333.

[24] Philoxenus, *Dissertatio* I 35, 47. See also *Dissertatio* IX 82, 237: Philoxenus explains there that, if one calls Mary Mother of Christ, one could also call her mother of the newborn, mother of the Son of David, *etc.*, because Christ was referred to by these names as well; 'but if it is not allowed to call her by any of these names, even though the child was called by them all, she should then not be called mother of Christ either, nor mother of Jesus, although he who was born was called Jesus Christ and Son and Only Begotten.'

[25] Historical details abound, for example, in Philoxenus' *Letter to the monks of Senun* (*Lettre aux Moines de Senoun*, ed. and transl. André de Halleux, CSCO 231-2 (Leuven, 1963), where he presents and interprets various episodes in recent ecclesiastical and doctrinal history.

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of choice for those involved in Christological controversies at this time. Beyond this, it is ultimately difficult to understand why Philoxenus chose not to employ a recent anti-Chalcedonian victory as an element of legitimization in his defense of the Theopaschite Trisagion. Severus would later abandon Philoxenus' strategy and acknowledge without reserve that, while orthodox and necessary in order to preserve orthodoxy, the addition 'who was crucified for us' was nevertheless relatively recent.[26]

The lack of references to contemporary events and to the historical context in which the controversy of the 480s unfolded also makes it rather difficult to reconstruct with precision the part the Dyophysites played in these events. Historical sources highlight exclusively Patriarch Calandion's insertion of the words 'Christ King' in the interpolated Trisagion. However, neither Philoxenus' *Dogmatic Letter* nor the ten *Discourses against Habib* make any reference to this incident. Philoxenus mentions the addition 'Christ King' in the first *Letter to the Monks of Teleda*,[27] chronologically posterior to the two works just mentioned, and in the first *Letter to the Monks of Bēth-Gaugal*,[28] written at the end of the Trisagion controversy. It is therefore possible that, initially, there existed certain attempts by Dyophysites to simply have the Trisagion reversed to its non-interpolated form. The anti-Chalcedonian reaction to this, as Philoxenus' *Discourses* demonstrate, must have been a strong one. It was perhaps in this context that Calandion suggested a milder modification as a compromise solution, namely the insertion of the words 'Christ King' before the Theopaschite addition. The rejection of this solution in Philoxenus' *Letter to the Monks of Teleda* is a firm one,[29] and leaves little doubt that, had it already existed at the time when the *Dogmatic Letter* or the *Discourses* were written, Philoxenus would not have hesitated to tackle this issue earlier.

While the lack of contextualization diminished to some extent the force and pertinence of his arguments, rendering them somewhat less compelling and more arbitrary, other circumstances compensated for this lack, and fashioned a framework of legitimacy for the fierceness with which Philoxenus promoted Theopaschite discourse. For example, since Zeno's *Henoticon* had declared Cyril of Alexandria's *Twelve Anathemas* canonical,[30] Philoxenus' insistence on Theopaschite discourse, which can be envisaged as a Christological corollary of Cyril's Twelfth Anathema, appeared perhaps as less outlandish. Moreover, from a political perspective, he promoted his cause properly by attaching it to the fate of the victors (Emperor Zeno and Patriarch Acacius of Constantinople);

[26] Severus of Antioch, *Homily* 125, in: *Les Homiliae Cathédrales 120-125*, ed. Maurice Brière, PO 29 (Paris, 1960), 232-53, 247-9.

[27] Philoxenus, *Letter to the Monks of Teleda* 496-9.

[28] Philoxenus, *Letter to the Monks of Bēth-Gaugal* 117 (161). The addition is not explicitly mentioned in this letter; Philoxenus writes that his enemies 'introduced a novelty'.

[29] Philoxenus, *Letter to the Monks of Teleda* 498.

[30] Evagrius, *Ecclesiastical History* III 14, 148-9.

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and, to be sure, Patriarch Calandion's self-dooming rejection of the *Henoticon* and the Dyophysites' alleged association with the conspirators Illus and Leontius helped the future bishop of Mabbug. Similarly, his audience was particularly well chosen.

Philoxenus' audience in the early 480s was almost exclusively monastic. He tried to enlist the support of the monasteries he wrote to. He also tried to warn them against possible attacks by Dyophysites. In the *Letter to the monks of Teleda*, for example, he instructs the monks on how to respond to specific objections the adversaries were raising against the affirmation of the 'death of God', such as 'who governed the world during the three days when God was in the tomb?', 'if the angels cannot die, how can one say that God died?', 'how is it possible that He be mortal and immortal at the same time?'[31] He encouraged the monks to profess publicly the orthodox faith, defying all dangers and not fearing persecutions.[32] It was perhaps not the most prudent move and one likely to get out of control if even slightly mismanaged. In a letter to Acacius of Constantinople, Peter Mongus described the disastrous consequences of a mismanaged relationship with the monasteries in Egypt:

> Even now the monks, who are constantly sowing tares, do not rest; they incorporate among themselves as agents certain men who have never lived in monasteries, and go about babbling various rumors against us and against the ecclesiastical peace of Christ; they do not permit us to act canonically, and appropriately for the holy and universal Church of God; they prepare the people here to rule us rather than to obey us, and wish to do all that is inappropriate for God.[33]

That the monastic communities around Antioch could have easily evolved in the same direction is unquestionable.

Philoxenus however seems to have had a valid intuition regarding the reception of Theopaschite discourse among the monks he addressed. He knew that, picturing themselves as the true followers of Christ and sharers in Christ's Passion, the monks would be the most likely to rise against 'the enemies of the Cross', and to further popularize his views among the common believers. Philoxenus seems to have aptly used the popularity Theopaschite discourse enjoyed among anti-Chalcedonian monks to secure the place of the Theopaschite Trisagion in the liturgy.

The years 511-2 saw a resurgence of the controversy over the Theopaschite Trisagion in Constantinople; yet Philoxenus' correspondence dated to these years is almost exclusively concerned with constructing a solid case against Flavian of Antioch, a case in which the Theopaschite Trisagion, or Theopaschite discourse in general, did not occupy a conspicuous place.

[31] Philoxenus, *Letter to the monks of Teleda* 472, 486.
[32] Philoxenus, *Dogmatic Letter* 95 (130).
[33] Evagrius, *Ecclesiastical History* III 17, 153.

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Theopaschism was not abandoned, it simply moved to the background of Philoxenus' Christological discourse. It became a structural element that was rarely brought to the fore as a subject of controversy. After the initial violent promotion of Theopaschite discourse in the context of his campaign for the Theopaschite Trisagion, Philoxenus seems to have moved to politically more profitable – and safer – argumentative strategies at the time of his fight against Flavian of Antioch. Later on, in the period of his exile, he fully embraced the moderate attitude of Timothy Aelurus, constantly preaching *oeconomia* in place of *akribia*, and incorporating Theopaschite language in his Christological discourse naturally, without militancy.

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Der Leib Christi und das eucharistische Brot. Philoxenus von Mabbug zu *Joh.* 6:51

Karl PINGGÉRA, Marburg

I.

'Seine Entscheidungen sind unergründlich, seine Wege unerforschlich.'[1] Mit diesem Bibelwort (*Röm.* 11:33) weist Philoxenus von Mabbug in seinem Kommentar zum Johannes-Prolog das vorwitzige Bestreben des Menschen in seine Schranken, die Geheimnisse des Glaubens mit dem Verstand erfassen zu wollen. Unter den zahlreichen Beispielen, mit denen Philoxenus die Aussichtslosigkeit solchen Bestrebens vor Augen führt, findet sich auch der Hinweis auf die Sakramente. Für den Menschen sei es unmöglich zu verstehen, wie Brot und Wein durch den Geist zu 'Leib und Blut Gottes' werden könnten, wie durch Wasser und Geist die Taufe zustande komme, wie aus dem Geist und dem Salböl 'die eine heiligende Kraft Christi' hervorgehe.[2]

Der Hinweis auf die Sakramente soll die Paradoxie der christologischen Sprechweise einsichtiger machen, um die es Philoxenus geht. Dass *Joh.* 1:14 vom *Werden* des ewig unwandelbaren Gottes spricht, bleibe für den Verstand unbegreiflich. Durch den Verweis auf die Sakramente soll gezeigt werden, dass die Aussage deswegen nicht unsinnig ist. Für den Verstand sei nämlich auch unbegreiflich, wie Brot und Wein zu Leib und Blut Christi werden könnten. Dem Glauben sei dieses Geschehen aber sehr wohl zugänglich.[3]

Bereits Wilhelm de Vries hatte gezeigt, dass Philoxenus sein Verständnis der Inkarnation öfters mit dem paradoxen Zustandekommen der Sakramente in Beziehung setzt. Das gilt für Taufwasser, heiliges Öl und eucharistische Elemente.[4] Philoxenus hat sein Sakramentsverständnis nicht systematisch entfaltet, so dass seine Aussagen zur Eucharistie in ihrem christologischen Kontext zu interpretieren sind.

Wie Philoxenus die Analogie von Inkarnation und Sakrament in den Dienst seiner miaphysitischen Christologie nimmt, kann man sich im zweiten Traktat

[1] CSCO 380/1 Syr. 165/6 (Louvain, 1977), 190.23-4/188.8 de Halleux.

[2] CSCO 380/1 Syr. 165/6, 191.7-10/188.21-4 de Halleux.

[3] CSCO 380/1 Syr. 165/6, 194.26-195.9/192.15-29 de Halleux. Vgl. Tanios Bou Mansour, Die Christologie des Philoxenus von Mabbug, in: Alois Grillmeier, *Jesus der Christus im Glauben der Kirche*, Bd. 2/3, hg. von Theresia Hainthaler (Freiburg i. Br., 2002), 500-69 (515).

[4] Wilhelm de Vries, *Sakramententheologie bei den syrischen Monophysiten*, OCA 125 (Roma, 1940), 45-59.

Studia Patristica XLVIII, 147-152.
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De Trinitate et Incarnatione vor Augen führen.[5] Es geht Philoxenus um den Nachweis, dass der Logos Mensch wurde und doch Gott blieb. Dabei wendet er sich gegen die 'nestorianische' Vorstellung von der Einwohnung des Logos in einen Menschen. Die Argumentation verläuft ähnlich wie im Kommentar zum Johannes-Prolog: Die Gegner müssten zugeben, dass es zu wenig sei, von den eucharistischen Gaben so zu sprechen, als seien Leib und Blut Christi in Brot und Wein nur auf irgendeine Art verborgen. Vielmehr gelte: Das Brot *ist* der Leib Christi, der Wein *ist* das Blut Christi.[6] Die Identifikation, die Philoxenus hier vornimmt, überträgt er sodann auf die Inkarnation. Auch hier handle es sich nicht bloß darum, dass der Unendliche im Endlichen, der Unbegrenzte im Begrenzten, also Gott in einem Menschen wohne.

Philoxenus' Auseinandersetzung mit Ḥabib zeigt, dass die Analogie von Inkarnation und Sakrament auch von einem antiochenischen Theologen herangezogen werden konnte. In der Auseinandersetzung mit Philoxenus hatte Ḥabib den Vorwurf, seine Christologie laufe auf zwei Söhne hinaus, mit folgendem Vergleich pariert: Auch das eucharistische Brot, das als 'Leib des Sohnes Gottes bezeichnet werde', bedeute keine Hinzufügung zu dem Leib, den der Logos aus dem Samen Davids angenommen habe. Der eucharistische Leib sei 'zum Gedächtnis' des anderen gesetzt. Wie es also in der Eucharistie keine zwei Leiber gäbe, so seien es in der Christologie auch nicht zwei Söhne.[7] In seiner Replik bezeichnet Philoxenus die Vorstellung, das eucharistische Brot sei 'zum Gedächtnis' eingesetzt, geradezu als Gotteslästerung. Dagegen stellt er die Worte des Einsetzungsberichts: Das *ist* mein Leib. Unter keinen Umständen dürfe man sich beim Empfang der heiligen Kommunion vorstellen, Brot zu empfangen, das nur zur Erinnerung an einen anderen Leib dargereicht werde. Der Glaube erfordere vielmehr, das, was man in diesem Moment empfange, 'als Leib und nicht als Brot' zu betrachten.[8]

Nun darf eine solche Stelle nicht dazu verführen, Philoxenus als frühen Gewährsmann der lateinischen Transsubstantiationslehre in Anspruch zu nehmen. Trotz der Identifikation mit dem Leib Christi hört das Brot für Philoxenus

[5] Philox., *De trin.* 7.7 (CSCO 9/10 Syr. 9/10, 118.9-127.21/91.6-97.20 Vaschalde); vgl. Bou Mansour, Die Christologie des Philoxenus von Mabbug (2002), 524f.

[6] CSCO 9/10 Syr. 9/10, 125.27-9/96.8-11 Vaschalde.

[7] Vgl. das Zitat in Philox., *Tract.* 52b (PO 41/1, 28.19-22 Brière/Graffin), gekürzt in *c. Ḥabib* 10.59 (PO 40/2, 286.29-32 Brière/Graffin). Vgl. Luise Abramowski, Aus dem Streit um das 'Unus ex trinitate passus est': Der Protest des *Ḥabib* gegen die Epistula dogmatica des Philoxenus an die Mönche, in A. Grillmeier, *Jesus der Christus im Glauben der Kirche*, Bd. 2/3, hg. von Th. Hainthaler (Freiburg/Br., 2002), 570-647 (620-1).

[8] Philox., *c. Ḥabib* 10.66-7 (PO 40/2, 290.15-27 Brière/Graffin). – Vgl. dazu das Gebet, das Philoxenus für den Kommunionempfang verfasst hat. Der Gläubige soll sich unmittelbar an die eucharistische Gabe in seinen Händen wenden, 'den lebendigen Gott, der sich im Brot inkarniert hat': Aelred Cody, An Instruction of Philoxenus of Mabbug on Gestures and Prayer When One Receives Communion in the Hand, with a History of the Manner of Receiving the Eucharistic Bread in the West Syrian Church, in: Nathan Mitchell and John F. Baldovin (eds.), *Rule of Prayer, Rule of Faith: Essays in Honour of Aidan Kavanagh* (Collegeville, 1996), 56-79.

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nicht auf, als gewöhnliches Brot weiter zu existieren.[9] Das *tertium comparationis* zwischen Inkarnation und Sakrament liegt zwar in der Identifikation des Geistlichen mit dem Körperlichen, aber so, dass beides *zugleich* gedacht und geglaubt werden soll: Wie der inkarnierte Logos zugleich Gott und Mensch ist, so sind auch Leib und Blut Christi zugleich Brot und Wein. Neben dem Werden steht das Bleiben dessen, was ist. Deshalb unterstreicht Philoxenus, dass Brot und Wein nicht 'durch eine Veränderung' (حبب همسلحا) zu Leib und Blut Christi würden.[10] Brot und Wein bleiben als solche bestehen. Auch Wasser und Öl bleiben das, was sie ihrer Natur nach sind, wenn sie zum geweihten und heiligenden Wasser und Öl werden. Trotz aller Betonung der Einheit Christi will Philoxenus in der Inkarnation eine 'Veränderung' (همسلحا) im Sinne einer Wesensverwandlung abwehren. Entsprechend negativ gebraucht Philoxenus diesen Begriff sowohl im Blick auf die Gottheit als auch im Blick auf die Menschheit Christi.[11]

Brot und Wein werden nicht durch eine Wesensverwandlung zu Leib und Blut Christi, vielmehr haben sie 'aufgrund ihrer Einigung mit dem Geist diese Kraft erhalten, an die wir glauben'.[12] Die entscheidende Rolle, die dabei das Wirken des heiligen Geistes spielt, verbindet das Sakramentsverständnis des Philoxenus mit der älteren syrischen Theologie, in der die pneumatische Dimension der Eucharistie betont wurde.[13] Vor diesem Hintergrund leuchtet ein, dass die abendländische Scholastik keinen geeigneten Maßstab an die Hand geben kann, um die Sakramentsauffassung des Philoxenus theologisch zu beurteilen.[14] Die Ablehnung einer Wesensverwandlung der eucharistischen Elemente hat bei Philoxenus allerdings auch mit einem Aspekt der christologischen Frontstellungen jener Epoche zu tun. Darauf hatte Rudolf Abramowski in seiner Besprechung von de Vries' Monographie zur westsyrischen Sakramentenlehre kurz hingewiesen. Abramowski ging es dabei um die Einsicht, 'daß der orientalische Theologe, weil er in fast sämtlichen Denominationen am ἀτρέπτως gegen Eutyches festhält, unmöglich eine Wandlung der Substanz im Abendmahl annehmen wird.'[15]

[9] Vgl. dazu W. de Vries, *Sakramententheologie* (1940), 142-8.

[10] Vgl. den Abschnitt Philox., *De trin.* 7 (CSCO 9/10 Syr. 9/10, 130.30-132.8/99.38-100.35 Vaschalde). حبب همسلحا findet sich 131.10/100.9.

[11] Vgl. Roberta C. Chesnut, *Three Monophysite Christologies: Severus of Antioch, Philoxenus of Mabbug, and Jacob of Sarug* (Oxford, 1976), 59-62.

[12] CSCO 9/10 Syr. 9/10, 131.12-14/100.11f. Vaschalde.

[13] Vgl. Emmanuel-Pataq Siman, *L'expérience de l'esprit par l'église d'après la tradition syrienne d'Antioche*, Théologie Historique 15 (Paris, 1971), 222-3.

[14] Dieser Gefahr ist de Vries nicht immer entgangen; vgl. die kritische Analyse bei Tanios Bou Mansour, W. de Vries et la sacramentologie syriaque: Soixante ans plus tard: *PdO* 29 (2004) 161-97 (182-91 zur Verwendung der Kategorien Transsubstantiation und Impanation).

[15] Rudolf Abramowski, Rez. zu de Vries, *Sakramententheologie*: *ThLZ* 66 (1941) 202-4 (das Zitat: 203).

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II.

Die geistvermittelte Präsenz Christi in den eucharistischen Elementen sowie die Frontstellung gegen den Eutychianismus treten bei Philoxenus hervor in einem noch unedierten Fragment zu *Joh.* 6:51 ('Ich bin das Brot des Lebens, das vom Himmel herabgestiegen ist'). Es handelt sich um eines von 13 Fragmenten, die André de Halleux einem verloren gegangenen Kommentar zum Johannesevangelium zuschrieb.[16] Das Fragment ist in vier Handschriften überliefert;[17] ältester Zeuge ist BL Add. 12155 aus dem achten Jahrhundert.[18]

Die Frontstellung, in der sich Philoxenus hier befindet, geht aus den ersten Zeilen des Fragmentes hervor: 'Als unser Herr sagte "Ich bin das Brot des Lebens, das vom Himmel herabgestiegen ist", da wollte er uns nicht lehren, dass sein Leib vom Himmel stamme, sondern über die Kraft, die das Brot zum Leib aus dem Himmel macht. Denn über das Brot der Mysterien lehrte unser Herr an dieser Stelle – nicht über den Leib seines *qnōmā* ["Hypostase"].'[19] Philoxenus wendet sich gegen Vertreter der Ansicht, dass der Leib Christi vom Himmel stamme. Im fünften Mēmrā gegen Ḥabib unterstellt Philoxenus diese Lehre einigen Anhängern des Eutyches. Danach lehrte eine bestimmte Gruppe der Eutychianer, dass der Leib Christi vom Himmel herabgekommen sei. Als Ahnherr dieser Häresie wird Bardaisan genannt.[20] Philoxenus scheint die Ansichten der Eutychianer aus eigener Erfahrung gekannt zu haben.[21] Die Lehre von der himmlischen Abkunft des Leibes Christi stellt den Extremfall

[16] André de Halleux, *Philoxène de Mabbog: Sa vie, ses écrits, sa theologie* (Louvain, 1963), 161; zur Diskussion um diese Zuschreibung vgl. Karl Pinggéra, Christi Seele und die Seele der Gerechten: Zum fünften Fragment aus dem Johanneskommentar des Philoxenus von Mabbug: *SP* 41 (2006) 65-70, 65-6 Anm. 2.

[17] BL Add. 12155, f. 76ra-va (8. Jh.); Add. 14532, f. 67ra-vb (13. Jh.); Add. 14533, f. 68ra-b (8./9. Jh.); Add. 14538, f. 119rb-111ra (10. Jh.).

[18] Vgl. William Wright, *Catalogue of Syriac Manuscripts in the British Museum acquired since the Year 1838*, vol. 2 (London, 1871), 932b. Im Folgenden werden die Stellennachweise nach dieser Handschrift gegeben (in den anderen Textzeugen liegen keine nennenswerten Abweichungen vor).

[19] BL Add. 12155, f. 76va.13-19.

[20] Philox., *c. Ḥabib* 5.42-3 (PO 38/3, 623.7-26 Brière/Graffin). Die Ansicht, der Leib Christi sei vom Himmel herabgekommen, wird Bardaisan (neben Valentin) auch in Philoxenus' Häretikerkatalog zugeschrieben: PO 13/2, 248.7-8 Nau; Ernest A. Wallis Budge, *The Discourses of Philoxenus Bishop of Mabbôgh*, vol. 2 (London 1894), 137.1-3 (in der Übersetzung, p. xlv, ist 'Lantînôs (?)' in 'Valentinos' zu korrigieren). Diese Ansicht wurde Eutyches auf der Synode von Ephesus 449 vorgeworfen (wobei Eutyches sie zurückwies): ACO 2/1,1, 92.9-12 Schwartz, vgl. Evagr., *Hist. eccl.* II 18; Joseph Bidez and Léon Parmentier, *The Ecclesiastical History of Evagrius* (London, 1898), 70.20-9.

[21] Er habe sie 'viele Male' selbst gehört: Philox., *De trin.* 3.2 (CSCO 9/10 Syr. 9/10, 203.25-7/151.32-4 Vaschalde). Allerdings wird die Auffassung vom himmlischen Leib Christi hier nicht erwähnt. Zur Auseinandersetzung mit den Eutychianern vgl. A. de Halleux, *Philoxène* (1963), 364f.; T. Bou Mansour, Die Christologie des Philoxenus von Mabbug (2002), 520 und 541.

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einer Christologie dar, die die Konsubstantialität Christi mit uns Menschen leugnet.

Um seinen Gegnern entgegenzutreten, unterscheidet Philoxenus in unserem Fragment grundsätzlich zwischen dem eucharistischen Brot und dem 'Leib des *qnōmā*' (ܦܓܪܐ ܕܩܢܘܡܐ) des Gottessohnes. Dieser Ausdruck begegnet auch im Kommentar zum Johannesprolog. Dort dient er zur Bezeichnung des 'persönlichen Leibes' im Unterschied zum ekklesialen Leib Christi. Philoxenus wendet sich mit dieser terminologischen Unterscheidung gegen Eutychianer, die den Leib Christi ausschließlich im Sinne seines ekklesialen Leibes verstehen wollten.[22] In unserem Kontext zeigt Philoxenus in mehreren Anläufen, wie widersinnig die Annahme ist, wir würden im heiligen Mahl diesen 'persönlichen Leib' des Herrn empfangen. Das würde ja bedeuten, dass wir jenen Leib essen, der aus der Jungfrau stammt,[23] jenen Leib, der 'geschlagen wurde, starb, durchstoßen wurde, an seinen Händen und Füßen angenagelt wurde'.[24] Von diesem Leib aber gilt: 'Was aber ist dieser Leib, der den Wunden ausgeliefert wird, anderes als Gott das Wort, und die Wangen, die geschlagen werden, anderes als der eingeborene Sohn Gottes, der Gott von Gott ist? Der Leib des *qnōmā* des Wortes wurde einmal gebrochen am Kreuz. Dieser Leib der Mysterien aber wird an allen Tagen und zu allen Stunden gebrochen und an die Gläubigen ausgeteilt.'[25]

Es entspricht dem miaphysitischen Ansatz, wenn Philoxenus den geschundenen Leib als den Logos selbst, die geschlagenen Wangen als den Sohn Gottes selbst bezeichnen kann. Gerade diese denkbar enge In-eins-Setzung von Gottheit und Menschheit führt aber dazu, dass Philoxenus die Vorstellung ablehnt, jener 'persönliche' Leib Christi könne – vom Logos gleichsam abgelöst – im eucharistischen Mahl ausgeteilt werden.

Den Ausdruck 'vom Himmel' bezieht Philoxenus auf den heiligen Geist, die 'Kraft', die das Sakrament bewirkt, indem sie sich mit dem Brot 'vermischt' (ܐܫܬܠܝ).[26] Mit der Wurzel *ḥlṭ* bezeichnet Philoxenus in seinen Schriften stets eine Form der Vermischung, in der die vermischten Elemente in ihren Eigentümlichkeiten erhalten bleiben.[27] Mit der hier gewählten Terminologie bringt Philoxenus somit jene Analogie von Inkarnation und sakramentaler Vereinigung zum Ausdruck, wie wir sie auch aus seinen anderen Werken kennen. Es sind 'die heiligen Mysterien, die von uns gegessen werden. Vom Himmel sind sie herabgekommen aufgrund der Kraft, die vom Himmel herabkommt und sie

[22] CSCO 380/381 Syr. 165/166, 215.14-218.21/213.12-216.14 de Halleux; der Ausdruck 215.25-6/213.24 ܦܓܪܐ ܕܩܢܘܡܐ (mit der Übersetzung 'corps personnel').

[23] Vgl. BL Add. 12155, f. 76va.20-1.

[24] BL Add. 12155, f. 76va.26-8.

[25] BL Add. 12155, f. 76va.33-41.

[26] BL Add. 12155, f. 76va.24.

[27] Vgl. R.C. Chesnut, *Three Monophysite Christologies* (1976), 66; André de Halleux, La christologie de Jean le Solitaire: *Mus* 94 (1981) 5-36 (33-5).

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zu Mysterien macht.'[28] Unser Fragment befindet sich damit in Übereinstimmung mit den anderen Aussagen des Philoxenus, die die tragende Rolle des heiligen Geistes in der Sakramentenlehre bezeugen.

Das Fragment ist in einem antijulianistischen Florileg auf uns gekommen.[29] Philoxenus dürfte von den julianistischen Streitigkeiten kaum mehr berührt worden sein.[30] Zur Aufnahme in das Florileg wird es gekommen sein, weil sich einige Julianisten auf *Joh.* 6:51 berufen haben. Die *Narratio de rebus Armeniae* schreibt (wohl zu Unrecht) Julian selbst die Meinung zu, der Leib Christi stamme vom Himmel.[31] Das Florileg, in dem sich unser Fragment befindet, schreibt Philoxenus einen weiteren Text mit antieutychianischer Tendenz zu, in dem die Vorstellung des vom Himmel stammenden Leibes Christi erwähnt wird.[32] Es handelt sich um das Fragment aus einem Brief an den Scholastiker Uranius, in dem Philoxenus die Vorstellung zurückweist, dass der Leib Christi den Leiden nicht unterworfen gewesen sei.[33] Dieses Fragment taucht auch im antijulianistischen Florileg 'Plerophorie an alle Rechtgläubigen' des syrisch-orthodoxen Patriarchen Johannes I. von Antiochien (630/31-48) auf.[34]

Dass der Text später gegen die Anhänger des Julian von Halikarnass gerichtet werden konnte, hängt – so de Halleux – mit der klugen Wahl des Kompilators zusammen: Der gewählte Ausschnitt lässt die inhaltliche Nähe des Philoxenus zu Julian nicht unmittelbar erkennen.[35] Entsprechendes dürfte auch für unser Fragment zu *Joh.* 6:51 gelten. Es schien geeignet, in antijulianistischem Kontext Verwendung zu finden.

[28] BL Add. 12155, f. 76va.50-3.

[29] Vgl. zu den Anm. 17 genannten Handschriften René Draguet, *Julien d'Halicarnasse et sa controverse avec Sévère d'Antioche sur l'incorruptibilité du corps du Christ* (Louvain, 1924), 83-8.

[30] Philoxenus hat in die Anfänge des Streites nicht eingegriffen. Möglicherweise ist er von Severus von Antiochien wegen seiner zu großen Nähe zu julianistischen Auffassungen noch gegen Lebensende gemahnt worden. Vgl. Joseph Lebon, *Le monophysisme sévérien* (Louvain, 1909), 496 Anm. 4; Theresia Hainthaler, Philoxenos von Mabbug, † 523, in: Wassilios Klein (ed.), *Syrische Kirchenväter* (Stuttgart, 2004), 180-90 (184-5).

[31] CSCO 132 Sub. 4, 33.120-9 Garitte.

[32] Vgl. A. de Halleux, *Philoxène* (1963), 214-6.

[33] 'Si le [Verbe] avait pâti dans une autre chair [que la nôtre], laquelle n'eût pas été soumise aux passions, soit qu'elle [eût] été du ciel ...' (ebd. 216).

[34] Jouko Martikainen, *Johannes I. Sedra. Einleitung, Syrische Texte, Übersetzung und vollständiges Wörterverzeichnis*, Göttinger Orientforschungen 1/34 (Wiesbaden, 1991), 126.3-15.

[35] A. de Halleux, *Philoxène* (1963), 215. Auch Philoxenus vertrat die Ansicht, dass sich der Logos mit der Natur Adams *vor* dem Fall verbunden und die Leiden freiwillig auf sich genommen habe.

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'I Have Bested You, Solomon': Justinian and the Old Testament

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This paper attempts to get at a lingering question that derives from a study of monuments in Byzantine Jerusalem. One of them is Justinian's Nea Church in Jerusalem, subject of an extended discussion by Procopius in *De aedificiis*.[1] His description implies comparison with biblical descriptions of Solomon's Temple, and its size and position make the church seem a supersessionistic statement.[2] These facts beg the question whether Justinian deliberately invoked a comparison between King Solomon and himself, reflected in this building. Justinian's church was twice the length and breadth of Solomon's Temple;[3] its location on the western hill overlooked the Temple platform. The engineering challenge resembled that of the Temple platform: the rock scarp had to be built up to support the foundations with immense stones and vaulting – Justinian's engineers would have had been able to imitate the vaulting beneath Herod's Temple platform at Solomon's Stables.[4] The foundations were completed and dedicated in 534 or 535, at the time the revision of the Codex Iustinianus was completed, and about ten years before the dedication of the church.[5] Procopius' account of this church, fuller than most of his descriptions of Justinian's buildings in Palestine of *De aedificiis*, Book 5, also stresses the partnership Justinian had with God in the doing of the project, reminiscent of Solomon's building of the Temple in

[1] Procopius, *De aedificiis* 5.6 (H. Dewing and G. Downey [eds.], *Procopius*, LCL [7 vols; London and Cambridge, Mass., repr., 1954], Vol. 7).

[2] See my Justinian and the Politics of Space, in: *Constructions of Space II: The Biblical City and Other Imagined Spaces*, Library of HB/OT Studies 490 (New York, 2008), 53-77.

[3] The Nea is estimated at 113 by 59 m., or 198 by 103 royal cubits (N. Avigad, The Nea: Justinian's Church of St. Mary, Mother of God Discovered in the Old City of Jerusalem, in: Y. Tsafrir [ed.], *Ancient Churches Revealed* [Jerusalem, 1993], 129, 131). Solomon's Temple was 100 by 50 royal cubits (1*Kgs*. 6:2-6; 2*Chr*. 3:3-4).

[4] Procopius, *Aedif*. 5.6.3-13; see 1*Kgs*. 5:17-18; 6:7; Josephus, *Bellum Judaicum* 5.184-189 (H.St.J. Thackeray, R. Marcus, and A. Wikgren [eds], *Josephus*, LCL [London; Cambridge, Mass., 1926, repr. 1966], Vol. 4). See E. Mazar, *The Complete Guide to the Temple Mount Excavations* (transl. D. Glick and N. Panitz-Cohen; Jerusalem, 2002), 47-8; and J. Murphy-O'Connor, *The Holy Land: An Archaeological Guide from Earliest Times to 1700*, Oxford Archaeological Guides (4th ed.; Oxford and New York, 1998), 95f. The name of this structure is Medieval.

[5] The best dating for the dedicatory *tabula ansata* found in the Nea's vaults is 534/5. The church was dedicated c. 543 (Cyril of Scythopolis, *Vita Sabae* 73; E. Schwartz [ed.], *Kyrillos von Skythopolis*, TU 49:2 [Leipzig, 1939]). See N. Avigad, A Building Inscription of the Emperor Justinian and the Nea in Jerusalem (Preliminary Report): *IEJ* 27 (1977) 145-51.

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1*Kgs.* 3:3-15 and 2*Chr.* 1:3-13. This is a first clue to a Solomonic association with Justinian.

The language of Procopius's *De aedificiis* suggests that his panegyric concerning Justinian as builder, in Jerusalem as in Constantinople, may have fit Justinian's self-image or the image he wanted to project. Further, Procopius refers three times explicitly to Solomon. First he recounts Alaric's robbery of the treasures of Solomon's Temple from Rome.[6] Second, with respect to recapturing the Temple treasures from Gizeric: he comments that having been warned not to take them into Constantinople, Justinian sent them to Jerusalem instead (there are some disputes about where they were deposited).[7] Lastly, recounting the African campaign, he comments on a probably forced conversion of a community of Jews whose synagogue was attributed to Solomon.[8]

Moreover, in Constantinople, Anicia Juliana, a member of the Theodosian house, built a large and sumptuous church honoring the third-century martyr, S. Polyeuktos, just before Justinian's accession in 527.[9] The church deliberately evokes Solomon's Temple in size, decoration, and its connection to a palace.[10] An elaborate poem praising Anicia Juliana, her lineage and her church, was carved around the church's nave, narthex and courtyard.[11] One line of it claims that Anicia Juliana 'alone had conquered time and surpassed the wisdom of the celebrated Solomon, raising a temple to receive God'.[12] This poem surely inspired the statement in the *Patria*, attributed to Justinian, that 'I have bested you, Solomon'.[13] It may have inspired a response in the rebuilding of the Hagia Sophia in Constantinople.

Solomon and Justinian's legislation

Solomon is in the air, then. The question is whether these references point toward Justinian, and whether any of this talk of King Solomon has filtered

[6] *De bellis* 5.12.42 (= *BG* 1.12.42); in: J. Haury and G. Wirth (eds.), *Opera omnia Procopii Caesariensis*, Teubner (4 vols.; Leipzig, 1962-4).

[7] *Bell.* 4.9.5-9 (= *BV* 2.9.5-9). These treasures were taken by Titus in 70 C.E. A Jew who associates them explicitly with Solomon informs Justinian (*Bell.* 4.9.6-7). The account says vaguely only that he sent them to the Christian sanctuaries in Jerusalem (*Bell.* 4.9.9).

[8] *Aedif.* 6.2.22.

[9] See R.M. Harrison, *A Temple for Byzantium: The Discovery and Excavation of Anicia Juliana's Palace Church in Istanbul* (Austin and London, 1989), 41. Notably, Procopius does not mention it (Averil Cameron, *Procopius and the Sixth Century* [London and Berkeley, 1985], 104).

[10] Its decorations corresponded to Solomon's Temple (1*Kgs.* 7:17-19). Its measurements, however, correspond to Ezekiel's vision: the church is twice the width of Solomon's Temple (see *Ez.* 41:13-4), and the crypt of S. Polyeuktos measures the same as the Holy of Holies (*Ez.* 41:4). The palace is yet to be excavated, see R.M. Harrison, *Temple* (1989), 137-9.

[11] The poem was preserved in the *Palatine Anthology*; see R.M. Harrison, *Temple* (1989), 33-4.

[12] R.M. Harrison, *Temple* (1989), 40; quotation on 138.

[13] *Patria* 3.27, in T. Preger (ed.), *Scriptores originum Constantinopolitanarum*, Teubner (2 vols. in 1; Leipzig, 1901-7; repr. Stuttgart, 1989).

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into Justinian's self-image. Does *he* construct himself as a new Solomon, or is this just a bit of flattery on Procopius's part? One way to get at this is to make a 'sounding' for direct references to King Solomon in the writing attributed to or ordered by Justinian. I find only one such reference, and it comes from a document penned by John, bishop of Rome.[14] I shall return to it.

Absent direct references, the next step is to explore Justinian's works for use of biblical passages associated with Solomon and his activities, like those already noticed in Procopius's description of the Nea Church. Biblically, Solomon's character and reign are addressed principally in 1*Kgs.* 2-11 and in 2*Chr.* 1-9. Jewish and Christian tradition also attributes to him the books of *Proverbs*, *Ecclesiastes*, *Song of Songs*, and the apocryphal book of *Wisdom*. This represents the pool of material likeliest to have Solomonic associations for Justinian. In the works attributed to him, we find two major classes of the use of the Scriptures. The first is direct borrowings in the form of quotations and paraphrases, made more secure by a specific citation of the source. There are a great many such borrowings in Justinian's theological works, and he often opens a quotation by naming his text. So, in the *Epistle on the Three Chapters*, a quotation of *Is.* 7:14 is preceded by its attribution to the prophet Isaiah. Immediately following is a quotation from 'the 106th Psalm' which he attributes to David.[15] In Justinian's theological treatises the passages he names and quotes tend generally (not exclusively) to be those named and quoted by his Christian authorities (especially Athanasius and Cyril of Alexandria), or they are passages he re-uses himself (*e.g.*, several passages appearing in the *Epistle to the Monks of Alexandria against the Monophysites* reappear later in the *Epistle on the Three Chapters*).[16] His theological treatises are interested in Christological problems, but biblical material concerning Solomon does not come up. In the Justinianic legislation, the critical edition notes few direct borrowings from Scripture.[17] This is not surprising: they come a century before the Scriptures are taken to be a source text for Byzantine legislation.[18]

[14] *Novella* 66 is directed to one Solomon, Praetorian Prefect of Africa. Text in: P. Krüger *et al.* (eds.), *Corpus Iuris Civilis* (rev. ed.; 3 vols.; Hildesheim, 1989-93).

[15] *Ps.* 106 (107):20. Text in E. Schwartz (ed.), *Drei dogmatische Schriften Iustinians*, Bayerische Akademie der Wissenschaften, Philosophisch-historische Klasse, n. F. 18 (Munich, 1939). See K.P. Wesche, transl., *On the Person of Christ: The Christology of Emperor Justinian* (Crestwood, N.Y., 1991), 131.

[16] In E. Schwartz, *Drei dogmatische Schriften* (1939).

[17] P. Krüger *et al.*, *Corpus Iuris Civilis*, indexes very few biblical references. Additional instances are noted by K.-H. Schindler, *Justinians Haltung zur Klassik: Versuch einer Darstellung an Hand seiner Kontroversen entscheidenden Konstitutionen*, Forschungen zum römischen Recht 23 (Cologne, 1966).

[18] *E.g.*, P.E. Pieler, Das Alte Testament im Rechtsdenken der Byzantiner, in: S. Troianos (ed.), *Analecta Atheniensia ad Ius Byzantium Spectantia* 1, Forschungen zur byzantinischen Rechtsgeschichte, Athener Reihe 10 (Athen-Komotini, 1997), 107-9.

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However, the legislative texts associated with Justinian contain some 'echoes' or reminiscences potentially belonging to Solomonic material. They represent the second class of his use of the Scriptures. Such echoes make for inferential rather than positive proof, but the presence of the other memories of Solomon during Justinian's reign, noted earlier, give them interest. The starting point lies in the startling realization that the prefaces of some of Justinian's *Novellae* recall some of the positive themes of Solomon's reign: his wisdom,[19] the justice of his judgments,[20] his fidelity to God,[21] and a self-conscious conception that his reign was to benefit his subjects. Methodologically, the best likelihood that Solomonic material is echoed is when these themes appear in combination. In a few cases, this occurs, mostly in the prefaces of the *Novellae*. The combined themes of justice, fidelity to God, and the implication of divinely-guided wisdom all appear in *Nov.* 8.11, and point toward Solomon's request to God in 1*Kgs.* 3:7-9 (see 2*Chr.* 1:8-10). The wisdom idea, without reference to divine assistance, but in the context of justice and the welfare of his subjects, reappears in the preface of *Nov.* 98, on dowries. The notions of the compassionate and wise legislator concerned for his subjects raised here appears prominently in the *Novellae*, e.g. *Nov.* 69.4.3, where we find an echo from Proverbs, attributed to the king (*Prov.* 8:15-6). Even in the early *Novellae*, there are thoroughgoing Justinianic statements touching on the thematic cluster of wisdom, justice, and the emperor's fidelity to God.[22] Such statements emphasizing the divine gift of rulership echo Solomon's request for divine assistance in 1*Kgs.* 3:4-9.

A similar idea appears in the preface to *Nov.* 6, which refers to God's two great gifts, the priesthood that serves divine matters, and the imperial dignity that directs human affairs.[23] Because it combines priesthood and kingship, this example possibly echoes Davidic rather than Solomonic ideas,[24] although other associations of Justinian with King David are not evident, and the themes of royal justice and equity have been noted already in connection with Solomon.

[19] *E.g.*, God's gift to Solomon of great wisdom, discernment, and understanding beyond that of anyone else, on the basis of which lay his fame (1*Kgs.* 4:29-31). The divine blessing is similar (1*Kgs.* 3:12-4; see 2*Chr.* 1:11-2).

[20] Most famously, the judgment on the two women competing for a child (1*Kgs.* 3:16-28).

[21] So the Proverb adjures one to remain loyal and faithful (*Prov.* 3:3; see *ibid.* 7:3).

[22] *Nov.* 109, Pref.

[23] On this passage, see J. Meyendorff, *Imperial Unity and Christian Divisions: The Church 450-680 A.D.*, Church History 2 (Crestwood, N.Y., 1989), 209; F. Dvornik, Imperium and Sacerdotium in Early Christian and Byzantine Political Philosophy, in: *id.*, *Early Christian and Byzantine Political Philosophy,* Dumbarton Oaks Studies 9 (2 vols.; Washington, D.C., 1966), 815-9; and J. Meyendorff, Justinian, the Empire and the Church: *Dumbarton Oaks Papers* 22 (1968) 45-50.

[24] These ideas are associated with David (2*Sam.* 8:15, NRSV; see 1*Chr.* 18:14). Marcianus (with Pulcheria) was acclaimed a 'new David' at the Council of Chalcedon, see P.E. Pieler, Das Alte Testament im Rechtsdenken der Byzantiner (1997), 89.

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The best warrant for associating the passages noted, and others like them, in Justinian's legislative texts comes from the opening of the *Codex Iustinianus*, which contains the reply of John, Bishop of Rome, acknowledging the revised Codex.[25] John's letter specifically refers to King Solomon – it is the only explicit reference to King Solomon in the legislative texts I have found so far – and quotes profusely from *Proverbs*. It may include echoes from the Solomonic narratives also. Perhaps Justinian's legislators, having incorporated it, took some cues from this letter, or used it deliberately, for it emphasizes the right ruling of a kingdom, and indeed, adjures Justinian to be less severe on heretics, in an attempt to convert them.[26]

Conclusion

The evidence is slender and inferential, but it suggests that perhaps the receding of imperial associations with Old Testament figures during Justinian's reign is not so great as it appears.[27] It also suggests that a comparison of Justinian with Solomon was circulating. It is not so clear how much he produced it, but the evidence of the *Novellae* opens the possibility that he subscribed to it. It is less clear why the comparison might not have been made stronger. An obvious possibility lies in the classicizing claimed for Justinian's reign and often attributed to Tribonian.[28] However, even after Tribonian leaves the scene, Justinian does not explicitly invoke Solomon. Another possibility lies in the negative associations of Solomon: his many wives led him to apostasy and disfavor with God, and he imposed increasingly heavy taxes to pay for his building program.[29] These points would strike close to home. Procopius accuses Justinian of as much and more.[30] Most likely is Anicia Juliana's presence: she had already claimed Solomon for herself. There is reason to think that the Hagia Sophia and Jerusalem's Nea Church were responses to her, by presenting architectural counter-claims to Solomonic greatness.

[25] *Cod. Iust.* 1.1.4 (5), second edition (in P. Krüger *et al.*, *Corpus Iuris Civilis*).

[26] Probably with good reason: Procopius, *Anecdota* 11.14-20, attributes forced conversions and confiscations to pecuniary interests. Pope John notes that this edition stresses anti-heretical and anti-Jewish legislation.

[27] They are naturally a large feature in arguments regarding caesaropapism. See evidence summarized by P.E. Pieler, Das Alte Testament im Rechtsdenken der Byzantiner (1997), 86-91.

[28] But see the caution of T. Honoré, *Tribonian* (London, 1978), 251-4.

[29] 1*Kgs.* 9:15-22; 10:14-11:10.

[30] *Anec.* 16.1-4; 21.1-5; 23.1-16 are a sampling, but note A. Cameron's cautions, *Procopius* (1985), 225-41.

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Training for Solitude: John Climacus and the Art of Making a Ladder

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A common opinion regarding *The Ladder*[1] by John Climacus (6th or 7th cent.) is that the text with its 30 steps is a kind of synthesis or a systematisation, or a summary of the teachings of the desert fathers.[2] From an analytic or a doctrinal perspective the text might of course appear like a synthesis, but one might ask if this is really what John Climacus is aiming at. Scholars are in my view not always clear on this point.[3] Further, *The Ladder* is also often considered as something unprecedented in the monastic literature; it is said to be more or less the *first* systematisation of the earlier fathers.[4] However, is this really the case? Is a synthesis or a systematisation really a good description of what John Climacus has done when he made his ladder?

The purpose of this paper is to try to clarify some of these questions: First, I will briefly demonstrate how John Climacus has made use of the tradition when he made the basic pattern of *The Ladder*, the thirty steps. Second, I will suggest something about the purpose of this composition, or why he made *The Ladder* the way he did.

[1] I will refer to *The Ladder* in terms of the column number in Rader's edition in PG 88. The chapter-division follows the English translation *Saint John Climacus: The Ladder of Divine Ascent* (transl. Holy Transfiguration Monastery; Boston, Mass., 1991).

[2] See Dimitrije Bogdanovic, *Jovan Lestvicnik u vizantijskoj i staroj srpskoj knjizevnosti* (Belgrade, 1968), 158; Walther Völker, *Scala paradise: Eine Studie zu Johannes Climacus und zugleich eine Vorstudie zu Symeon dem neuen Theologen* (Wiesbaden, 1968), 6, 8; Kallistos Ware, Introduction to *John Climacus: The Ladder of Divine Ascent* (Mahwah, N.J., 1982), 59; John Chryssavgis, *John Climacus: From the Egyptian Desert to the Sinaite Mountain* (Hants, Engl., 2004), 37. The idea of *The Ladder* as 'summary' seems to derive from Derwas Chitty, *Desert a City: An Introduction to the Study of Egyptian and Palestinian Monasticism under the Christian Empire* (Crestwood, N.Y, 1966), 173; the label 'systematisation' is found already in Irenée Hausherr, La méthode d'oraison hésychaste: *Orientalia Christiana* 9 (1927) 101-49, 135f.

[3] There are of course also scholars that understand the text as a directory text in some sense, see *e.g.* K. Ware, Introduction (1982), 59. However, in my view it is not always clear what this means. What does Climacus actually want to achieve? Is the text a directory text in a general sense only or is it addressed to specific readers with a specific purpose? Does the text presuppose one kind of reader or different readers in different parts of the text?

[4] Guerric Couilleau, art. Jean Climaque (saint): *DSp* 8 (1974) 372-4; Jean-Claude Larchet, 'Die Leiter des Göttlichen Aufstiegs' von Johannes Klimakos: *Ostkirchliche Studien* 49 (2000) 269-313, 280.

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To start with I think it is important to make a distinction between purpose and form, or between the intention to direct a reader by means of a monastic text and the specific path along which the reader is intended to go. In the first case it is evident that *The Ladder* is not the first monastic directory. The greater part of the early monastic literature is directory-texts. Nor when it comes to the form of *The Ladder* is the text really unprecedented, but a part of an earlier tradition with different patterns and methods to lead a reader through a body of teaching. Such patterns are evident in a number of works by for instance Evagrius Ponticus.[5]

Several scholars have also argued rightly for some kind of influence from Evagrius' list of the eighth vices.[6] However, such an influence only pertains to a part of the pattern; the pattern as a whole, scholars usually consider as original. There is one really important exception, an introduction by Muriel Heppel that seems to have been completely passed over by later scholars. Heppel rightly points out that there are several thematic similarities between *The Ladder* and the arrangement of the *Latin Systematic Collection of Apophthegmata Patrum*.[7]

Such dependency is reasonable chronologically. The Greek version of the *Systematic Collection* – that appears like a more reasonable model than the Latin version (although the order is basically the same in both)[8] – according to Jean-Claude Guy was composed and arranged at least in the 530's or perhaps even before the end of the 5th century.[9]

In the following I like to demonstrate briefly that Heppel was right about the similarities; the correspondence is in fact even greater than her article suggests. My aim however is not just to show such dependency, but also to suggest something about what John Climacus has done with his source and why he has changed it. But at first I will look briefly at the correspondence.[10]

From the table it is evident that the majority of the steps in *The Ladder* (18 out of 30) correspond with the order of the chapters in the *Greek Systematic Collection*. There are steps with more or less direct correspondence (15-17, 22, 26, 28 and 30). At other times the theme is slightly changed (14 and 27) or more twisted (19-21; perseverance seems to be changed into other vices and virtues

[5] See *Rerum monachalium rationes*, *De octo spiritibus malitiae*, and the trilogy *Practicus*, *Gnosticus* and *Kephalaia Gnostica*, see also Jeremy Driscoll, *The 'Ad monachos' of Evagrius Ponticus: Its Structure and a Select Commentary* (Rome, 1991).

[6] K. Ware, Introduction (1982), 62-6; C. Larchet, 'Die Leiter des Göttlichen Aufstiegs' (2000), 280-2; G. Couilleau, Jean Climaque (1974), 376f. Climacus refers several times to a pre-established order of the vices, see *Scala paradisi* 16.1 (924C); 17.16 (929B-C); 22.1 (948D-949A).

[7] Muriel Heppel, Introduction to *St. John Climacus: The Ladder of Divine Ascent* (London, 1959), 17f. See also G. Couilleau, Jean Climaque (1974), 372. Couilleau suggests a possible influence from John Cassian's *Institutiones* 4.43.

[8] PL 73, 855-1022; 1060-62.

[9] Jean-Claude Guy, Introduction to *Les apophtegmes des pères: Collection systématique, Chapitre I-IX*, SC 387 (Paris, 1993), 79-84.

[10] I will refer to the *Systematic Collection* in terms of chapters, and *The Ladder* in terms of steps.

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The Greek Systematic Collection	The Ladder
1. Progress	
2. *Hesychia*	1. Renunciation
	2. Detachment
	3. Exile
	Dreams of beginners
	4. Obedience
3. Compunction	5. Repentance
	6. Remembrance of death
	7. Mourning
	8. Anger
	9. Remembrance of wrongs
	10. Slander
	11. Talkativeness
	12. Lying
	13. Acedia
4. Abstinence	14. Gluttony
5. Lust	15. Lust
6. Poverty	16. Poverty
and avarice	17. Avarice
	18. Insensibility
7. Perseverance and courage	19. Sleep, prayer and psalmody
	20. Vigil
	21. Cowardice
8. Ostenation	22. Vainglory
	23. Pride
9. Not to judge	
	24. Meekness and simplicity
	25. Humility
10. Discernment	26. Discernment
11. To be awake	27. *Hesychia*
12. Prayer	28. Prayer
13. Hospitality and mercy	
14. Obedience	
15. Humility	
16. Endurance	
	29. Dispassion
17. Love	30. Love
18. Visionaries	
19. Miracle-workers	
20. Virtuous behaviour	
(21. Those who endure asceticism showing their virtue)	

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related to perseverance and its opposite, acedia). Sometimes a chapter is differentiated into several steps like step 1-3 or 5-7. The correspondence regarding position and order is considerable and it is in my view hard to deny the dependency. John Climacus might of course have used another version or list that is not extant,[11] but with the circulation and authority of the *Greek Systematic Collection* in mind it seems reasonable that he has used the list of *that* collection.

However, what is even more important is how John Climacus has *changed* the list in order to suit his own teaching. There are additions at some places like insensibility, simplicity, or the steps about anger, acedia and pride. Some chapters are also left out, like chapters 13 and 18-21. Several of these changes are important, but in this paper I will focus on another change; the transposition of obedience and *hesychia*. These virtues are found in both lists but in quite the opposite part. Why this change? Their positions seem to have been so important to the purpose and message that they required a change.[12]

In chapter 2 on *hesychia* in the *Systematic Collection* the emphasis is basically the outward withdrawal from the world. In step 27 in *The Ladder* on the other hand the scope is different. *Hesychia* has greater inward implications as it seems[13] and corresponds in this sense with the chapter 11 on 'to be awake' in the *Systematic Collection*. However, there is also a new important emphasis. In step 27 *hesychia* does not just mean a withdrawal from the world as in the *Systematic Collection*, but above all solitude; to be alone or with only a few brothers apart from a monastery.

Obedience is found towards the end of the *Systematic Collection*. It is one of the higher virtues which the arrangement of the teaching aims at. Obedience, humility, endurance and love seem to imply perfection. According to the author of the preface, obedience is among those virtues that fulfil and keep the coenobitic life together.[14] In *The Ladder* on the other hand, obedience is moved down to the beginning. It is part of the foundation for the rest of the teaching; rather than perfection, it is the very *beginning* of the way to perfection. At the end of *The Ladder* there are no great coenobitic virtues. Hospitality that must be regarded as a virtue more suitable for the coenobite than the hesychast is removed. Endurance seems to have been moved down to the discussions in step 4 and step 8, with a retained scope on the monastery. Instead there are virtues at the top that to a great extent seems to reflect the life of the hesychast: discernment, *hesychia* and dispassion.

Thus, in *The Ladder* the coenobitic virtues at the top are changed into virtues more suitable to the hesychastic life. While the *Systematic Collection*

[11] There are other systematic collections with different arrangement, but the *Greek Systematic Collection* seems to be closest to *The Ladder*.

[12] See M. Heppel, Introduction (1959), 21f.

[13] See *e.g. Scala Par.* 27.2 (1097A).

[14] *Apophthegmata patrum* (*Greek Systematic Collection*), preface, 8.

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seems to promote virtues primarily for the life in a community, *The Ladder* appears to lead the reader from the monastery to solitude. This can also be affirmed in the text itself. For example even in step 4 where Climacus is very restrictive or even negative about solitude (*hesychia*), he actually seems to imply this transition; what is important is not that the reader avoids solitude, but that he avoids it when he is not prepared.[15]

In my view scholars are not always clear on this point. With a focus on doctrine and notions like synthesis or systematisation the discussion of monastery and solitude often ends in questions of priorities. What kind of living does John Climacus prefer?[16] However, what is important in my view is what kind of reader Climacus primarily seems to have in mind, and foremost what he wants to achieve with his teaching.

If we take a closer look at step 27 about *hesychia*, it is notable that this step seems not primarily to be intended for hesychasts but for monks in the monastery. After speaking about good and bad forms of solitude (*hesychia*), Climacus makes this clear; it is now necessary, he says, to also: 'insert here something about those who live in obedience; and especially since this discourse for the most part is addressed to them.'[17] At the beginning of step 27, Climacus seems to imply the same kind of readers. He hesitates to write about *hesychia* since 'at the table of the good brotherhood (*synodia*)', there is always a risk that somebody is dragged away by some demon into solitude.[18] Thus, even in this case it seems like John Climacus' intended readers are monks in a monastery and not hesychasts in solitude.

Thus, the purpose of step 27 seems more to be an exercise where the monk in the monastery is instructed in *beforehand* concerning the kind of living that lays ahead of him when he is prepared.[19] Accordingly, when the readers are addressed elsewhere in the steps at the end of *The Ladder*, they are addressed as 'monks', 'brothers', or 'friends' just like in other parts of *The Ladder*.[20]

My observations seem to suggest that John Climacus' transposition of obedience and *hesychia* has to do with a different purpose and the formation of a reader within a partly different monastic setting than the *Greek Systematic*

[15] See *e.g. Scala Par.* 4.118 (725B-C). See also *e.g.* 26.170 (1072A-B); 27.1 (1096D); 27.28 (1100D-1101B).

[16] W. Völker, *Scala paradise* (1968), 41-3, 278; D. Bogdanovic, *Jovan Lestvicnik* (1968), 89-91.

[17] *Scala Par.* 27.39 (1108B): καὶ μάλιστα, πρὸς αὐτοὺς γὰρ καὶ ὁ λόγος ὡς ἐπιπολὺ ἀποτείνεται. Some MSS have a slightly different reading: "since this discourse is especially addressed to them" (πρὸς αὐτοὺς γὰρ ὁ λόγος μάλιστα ἀποτείνεται), thus, with an even greater emphasis on a coenobitic readership.

[18] *Scala Par.* 27.1 (1096D).

[19] This seems congruent with much late antique moral instruction in general, see *e.g.* Ilsetraut Hadot, *Seneca und die griechisch-römische Tradition der Seelenleitung* (Berlin, 1969), 59, 103-7.

[20] See *Scala Par.* 27.31 (1105C) and 17.8 (928D); 29.14 (1152A); 29.14 (1152A); 29.14 (1152B) and 4.52 (705C); 4.126 (728B); 5.2 (764C); 5.25 (776A).

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Collection. In order to lead his reader, the monk in the monastery, from a firmly grounded obedience to the higher virtues springing from solitude, he needed to rearrange the list of the *Systematic Collection*. This collection with an arrangement promoting coenobitic virtues needed to be transformed in order to promote virtues appropriate for preparation and promotion of a life in solitude. The combination of obedience and *hesychia* in *The Ladder* has thus not primarily to do with a wish to make a synthesis of an Evagrian spirituality (suitable for the solitary life) and a Basileian (suitable for the monastery) as several scholars have suggested,[21] but with a wish to compose a teaching adjusted for specific concerns and addressees.

What seems to be presupposed in this teaching is not simply a coenobitic context,[22] but what seems like a Palestinian form of monastic life. What was significant in this kind of monasticism was that the coenobitic life and the solitary life were not two independent forms. If you wanted to be a monk you had to start your journey in the monastery. Novices or untrained monks were not admitted to solitude or to a *laura*. At first you needed training in the monastery to become prepared for the life in the *laura*.[23] We actually know from other sources that this kind of monasticism was established on Mount Sinai at least from the 6th century by the building of the Justinian monastery.[24]

Thus to conclude as my comparison has shown *The Ladder* is not so much a systematisation or synthesis as a text composed to suit a specific setting and purpose: to prepare and train the reader in the monastery for solitude.

[21] Irenée Hausherr, Les grands courants de la spiritualité orientale: *OCP* 1 (1935) 114-38, 132; G. Couilleau, Jean Climaque (1974), 372.

[22] See W. Völker, *Scala paradise* (1968), 3f.; J. Chryssavgis, *John Climacus* (2004), 22; D. Bogdanovic, *Jovan Lestvicnik* (1968), 90.

[23] See Joseph Patrich, *Sabas, Leader of Palestinian Monasticism: A Comparative Study in Eastern Monasticism, Fourth to Seventh Centuries* (Washington DC, 1995), 262-6.

[24] See Bernard Flusin, Le monachisme du Sinaï à l'époque de Jean Climaque: *Contacts* 214 (2006) 190-217, 203f.

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Nautische Metaphern bei Gregor dem Grossen

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Bei der Durchsicht der Werke Gregors des Grossen stossen wir recht häufig und an zentraler Stelle auf nautische Metaphern. Besonders bekannt ist das Widmungsschreiben der *Moralia in Iob* an Leander von Sevilla, wo Gregor seinen Werdegang mit Bildern des Meeres und der Schiffahrt nachzeichnet – etwa, wie er mit seinem Eintritt in den kirchlichen Dienst aus dem sicheren und ruhigen Hafen des Klosters auf das Meer der weltlichen Angelegenheiten hinausgestossen wurde.[1] Ähnlich und kaum weniger bekannt sind Passagen im Prolog zu seinen *Dialogen*, wo Gregor klagt, als überbelasteter Papst 'auf den Wellen des weiten Meeres' herumgeworfen zu werden.[2] In einigen Texten schreibt Gregor auch von Schiffen, sei es vom morschen Kirchenkahn, den er als Papst übernommen hat,[3] oder sei es von der Arche, die er als Anleitung zur Vervollkommnung interpretiert.[4]

Die Wahl gerade dieser Bildsprache vermag nicht zu überraschen. Sowohl die klassische als auch die christliche Tradition kennt viele und starke Geschichten, in denen das Meer und die Schiffahrt im Zentrum stehen. In verschiedenartigen, spätantiken literarischen Milieus war es entsprechend gang und gäbe, vielfältigste Phänomene mit Meeres- und Schiffahrtsbildern zu veranschaulichen. Das Schiff mit seinen zahlreichen Bestandteilen, der Kapitän und die Kunst der Navigation, das Meer, das Ufer, aber auch literarische Themen wie die Seefahrt des Odysseus[5] und des Aeneas[6] oder die Geschichte von der Arche – um nur einige nautische Bilder und Geschichten zu nennen –, all dies waren für die Bewohner des Mittelmeerbeckens im Verlaufe ihrer

[1] Gregorius Magnus, *Moralia in Iob, Epistula ad Leandrum* 1, hg. v. Marcus Adriaen, CChr. SL 143 (Turnhout, 1979), 1.13-2.20.

[2] Gregorius Magnus, *Dialogi* I. *Prol.* 5. Grégoire le Grand, *Dialogues* II, hg. v. Adalbert de Vogüé, SC 260 (Paris, 1979), 12.33.

[3] Gregorius Magnus, *Registrum epistularum* I 1.4; 1.41, hg. v. Dag Norberg, CChr.SL 140 (Turnhout, 1982), 4.8-9; 47.9-10.

[4] Gregorius Magnus, *In Ezechielem homiliae* II 4.16-17, hg. v. Marcus Adriaen, CChr.SL 142 (Turnhout, 1971), 270. 441-271. 485.

[5] Z.B. Homer, *Odyssee* 5.291-381, hg. v. Peter Von der Mühll, BSGRT (Stuttgart, 1984), 96-9. An eine solche Sturmszene könnte Gregor, nebst an biblische Reminiszenzen, gedacht haben, als er vom drohenden oder faktischen Schiffbruch schrieb.

[6] Z.B. Vergil, *Aeneis* 1.81-123, hg. v. Roger A.B. Mynors, *Scriptorum classicorum Bibliotheca Oxoniensis* (Oxford, 1969), 105-107.

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Geschichte aussagekräftige Bilder, um vielfältigste Inhalte zu vermitteln und zu illustrieren.[7]

Als gebildeter Römer und belesener Christ kannte Gregor der Grosse diese reiche Tradition und setzte sie auch ein, um zentrale Anliegen zu kommunizieren. Dabei reicht sein Einsatz nautischer Bildelemente weit über einen konventionell rhetorischen Gebrauch hinaus und führt entsprechend zu bisweilen überraschenden Einblicken in Gregors Wahrnehmung der Welt, der Kirche und des Papstamtes.

Der gebotenen Kürze willen konzentriere ich mich auf eine nautische Metapher, nämlich den Schiffbruch. Es ist dies ein Bild, das meiner Meinung nach äusserst aussagekräftig ist für Gregors Ekklesiologie.

In einem Brief an Leander von Sevilla vom August 599 bezeichnet sich Gregor als Schiffbrüchigen: Er klagt seinem Freund, wie er als Papst ‚geistigen Schiffbruch (*naufragium mentis*)' erlitten hat.[8] Als schiffbrüchig auf dem Meer Treibender begnügt er sich mit dem Ergreifen eines Brettes (*tabulam*), das ihn ans Ufer zurückführen soll.[9] Als dieses Brett bezeichnet er die Gebete Leanders. Dieses pessimistische Schiffbruchsszenario schliesst an Passagen an, in welchen Gregor die mit dem Amt verbundene Schuld anspricht und bedauert, von Amtes wegen bisweilen auch Anordnungen treffen zu müssen, die ihm Schuldgefühle verursachen. Er gesteht seinem Freund, bei solchen realpolitischen Akten jeweils Blut zu schwitzen.[10]

Welche Akte dabei gemeint sind, verrät Gregor in seinem Brief an Leander nicht. Die gerade für das Jahr 599 grosse Menge von 240 überlieferten Gregor-Briefen lässt es nicht zu, auf konkrete Anordnungen zu spekulieren. Grundsätzlich kann nur gesagt werden, dass es sich bei diesem Bekenntnis zur auch schuldbehafteten Realpolitik nicht um eine isolierte persönliche Bemerkung in

[7] Vgl. für die vornehmlich griechisch-römische Geschichte und Literatur: Albin Lesky, *Thalatta: Der Weg der Griechen zum Meer* (Wien, 1947); Ernst Robert Curtius, *Europäische Literatur und lateinisches Mittelalter* (Bern, ²1954), 138-41; Graham J. Oliver (Hg.), *The Sea in Antiquity*, B.A.R. International Series 899. Supplementary (Oxford, 2000); Raimund Schulz, *Die Antike und das Meer* (Darmstadt, 2005). Studien, welche sich auch, vornehmlich oder ausschliesslich mit der christlichen Tradition beschäftigen: Hugo Rahner, *Symbole der Kirche: Die Ekklesiologie der Väter* (Salzburg, 1964), 239-564; Franz Joseph Dölger, *Sol salutis: Gebet und Gesang im christlichen Altertum*, LF 4/5 (Münster, 1925), 272-86; Campbell Bonner, Desired Haven: *HThR* 34 (1941) 49-67; Henri Rondet, Le symbolisme de la mer chez saint Augustin, in: *Augustinus Magister (AugM)* II. Congrès international augustinien. Paris 21-24 septembre 1954 (Paris, 1954), 691-701; Lorenz Schlimme, Hafen: *RAC* 13 (1986) 297-305; Mark Edwards, Locus horridus and locus amoenus, in: Mary Whitby, et al. (Hgg.), *Homo viator: Classical Essays for John Bramble* (Bristol, 1987), 267-76; Peregrine Horden und Nicholas Purcell, *The Corrupting Sea: A Study of Mediterranean History* (Oxford, 2000), 123-72, 438-45.

[8] Gregorius Magnus, *Registrum epistularum* II 9.228, hg. v. D. Norberg, CChr.SL 140A (Turnhout, 1982), 804.51; vgl. *Ep.* 11.2 (CChr.SL 140A, 860.8-9): *nobis nauigantibus aut potius naufragantibus.*

[9] Greg. M., *Ep.* 9.228 (CChr.SL 140A, 804.52; 53), vgl. *Apg.* 27:44.

[10] Mit Bezug auf *Ps.* 83:6-7 und *Hos.* 4:2.

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einem Privatbrief handelt. Vielmehr ist in jener Zeit bei Gregor eine auffällige Akzentverschiebung im Anforderungsprofil der Bischöfe zu beobachten. Gregor verlangt von den Bischöfen nun nicht mehr vor allem spirituell-pastorale Kompetenz, sondern gefragt war insbesondere eine organisatorische und juristische Qualifikation.[11]

Gregors Rede vom Schiffbruch ist also einerseits Ausdruck seiner zunehmenden Ernüchterung und Realpolitik. Zu erwähnen ist hier exemplarisch, dass sich der Kaiser in Konstantinopel nur wenig um das Leiden der Bevölkerung Italiens im Gefolge der Langobardeneinfälle kümmerte[12] und unter seinen delegierten Machthabern im Westen nicht selten Korruption herrschte.[13] In dieser Situation ergriff Gregor oft Eigeninitiative, um die Bevölkerungen militärisch zu schützen und ihre Grundbedürfnisse zu stillen.[14] Insofern wurde er zunehmend zum Politiker, zum Realpolitiker.

Gregors Rede vom Schiffbruch ist aber andererseits und wohl vor allem ganz wesentlich durch das biblische Vorbild des Paulus bedingt. Paulus erlitt, wie wir aus der Apostelgeschichte (*Apg.* 27:14-44) wissen, Schiffbruch. Paulus war für Papst Gregor in mancher Weise ein wichtigeres Vorbild als Petrus. Dies ist auch daran ersichtlich, dass Gregor die Kirche nur ganz vereinzelt als 'Schiff Petri (*nauem Petri*)' bezeichnet.[15] Dass ein kirchlicher Autor, der zugleich Papst war, das traditionelle ekklesiologische Bild des Schiffes Petri nur am Rande verwendet, überrascht – aber nur auf den ersten Blick. Bei der genauen Lektüre von Gregors Werken stellt man fest, dass sich Gregor weniger mit Petrus als mit Paulus identifizierte und ihm deshalb die Rede vom Schiffbruch passender scheinen musste als diejenige vom Schiff Petri.

Gregors enge Beziehung zu Paulus ist insbesondere an einer Stelle in seinen Dialogen gut ersichtlich. Dort beschreibt Gregor, dass Petrus über das Wasser laufen konnte, Paulus hingegen auf demselben Element Schiffbruch erlitt. Daraus schliesst Gregor reflektiertermassen nicht, dass Petrus das höhere Verdienst zukäme. Vielmehr betont er die Gleichwertigkeit der beiden und lobt spezifisch den grossen, unermüdlichen Einsatz des Paulus.[16]

Wie Paulus sah sich der späte Gregor als Schiffbrüchigen, der auf einem Stück Holz auf dem Meer treibt. Dies ist in mehrfacher Weise sprechend. Zum

[11] Z.B. Greg. M., *Ep.* 9.6; 10.4; 10.19 (CChr.SL 140A, 568; 829-30; 848.12-849.15-19).

[12] Vgl. Robert Markus, *Gregory the Great and His World* (Cambridge, 1997), 99-105.

[13] Vgl. Thomas S. Brown, *Gentlemen and Officers: Imperial Administration and Aristocratic Power in Byzantine Italy A.D. 554-800*, British School at Rome (Hertford, 1984), 109-25.

[14] Z.B. Militärische Aktion gegen die Langobarden: Greg. M., *Ep.* 2.4 (CChr.SL 140, 92-3). Unterstützung Notleidender z.B. *Ep.* 1.13; 1.23; 1.37; 1.57 (CChr.SL 140, 14; 21; 44; 69). Kanalisierung von Flüchtlingsströmen: *Ep.* 1.38; 1.48 (CChr.SL 140, 44-45; 62.1-17).

[15] Gregorius Magnus, *Moralia in Iob* 17.37, hg. v. M. Adriaen, CChr.SL 143A (Turnhout, 1979), 872.42-43, mit Bezug auf *Lk.* 5:3.

[16] Greg. M., *Dial.* I 12.5 (SC 260, 116.53-63); vgl. *Dial.* II 17.2 (SC 260, 192.21-24); *Ep.* 9.229 (CChr.SL 140A, 807.47-49).

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einen drückt es eine Ernüchterung angesichts der realen, schwierigen Situation aus. Zum anderen – und vor allem – sieht man Gregor als Schiffbrüchigen aber auch mit festem Griff an einem Holzstück, in welchem das Kreuz, Christus überhaupt, gesehen werden kann. Man sieht hier Gregors zutiefst christologische Perspektive und gleichzeitig noch in Verbindung mit seinem Verkünderideal. Gemäss Gregor wurde das Evangelium nämlich im Holz des Kreuzes deutlich.[17] Als Schiffbrüchiger vertraute er somit gänzlich auf das Evangelium.

Der stetig reisende und dabei auch Schiffbruch erleidende Paulus war für Gregor aber insbesondere auch ein Vorbild für die Missionskirche. Nicht erst mit der berühmten Angelsachsenmission im Jahre 596 begannen ja Gregors missionarische Aktivitäten. Vielmehr bemühte er sich von Anfang an intensiv um die Bekehrung von Falschgläubigen und um die Rückgewinnung von Abtrünnigen. Dies reichte praktisch von Bemühungen um Bekehrungen von Juden,[18] über die Christianisierung beispielsweise eines Volksstammes in Sardinien[19] bis hin zum jahrelangen Bemühen, die Langobarden von ihrem arianischen Glauben abzubringen.[20]

Wie gesagt, sehnte sich Gregor als Schiffbrüchiger nach dem Ufer.[21] Mit dem Ufer meint er, mindestens der späte Gregor, das ewige Leben. Dies geht aus einem Brief an den Presbyter Philippus vom Februar 603 hervor. Gregor erbittet sich in diesem Brief Philippus Gebete, damit ihn die Hand Gottes aus dem stürmischen Meer dieses Lebens hebe ‚an das Ufer des ewigen Lebens (*in aeternae uitae litore*)'.[22]

Weitaus bekannter als der zitierte Brief sind zwar Texte in Werkprologen, in welchen Gregor vom Hafen des Klosters schreibt.[23] Bei diesen autobiographischen Passagen handelt es sich aber meiner Meinung nach um kunstvolle Stilisierungen, denen vornehmlich literarische, allenfalls nostalgische Aussagekraft zukommt, die aber nicht geeignet sind, um Gregors Ekklesiologie nachzuzeichnen. Mindestens für den späten Gregor ist das ersehnte Ufer nicht mehr das monastische Leben, sondern die ewige Ruhe. Dies impliziert, dass es gemäss Gregor in diesem Leben keine wirkliche Ruhe gibt, nicht einmal im Kloster. Gregor identifizierte das vormals im Kloster gesuchte und dort mindestens

[17] Greg. M., *Ezech.* I 6.13 (CChr.SL 142, 74.255-56).

[18] Beispiele aus seinem ersten Pontifikatsjahr: Greg. M., *Ep.* 1.34; 1.45 (CChr.SL 140, 42.10-17; 59.14-29).

[19] Die Christianisierung der *Barbaricini*: Greg. M., *Ep.* 4.25; 4.27 (CChr.SL 140, 244; 246).

[20] Frühste Beispiele seines missionischen Wirkens unter den Langobarden: Greg. M., *Ep.* 1.17; 2.2 (CChr.SL 140, 16-17; 92.4-11). Den erfolgreichen Abschluss seiner Bemühungen bildet die katholische Taufe des langobardischen Thronfolgers Adoloald, vgl. *Ep.* 14.12 (CChr.SL 140A, 1082.5-6).

[21] Greg. M., *Ep.* 9.228 (CChr.SL 140A, 804.53): *ad litus per tabulam reducar.*

[22] Greg. M., *Ep.* 13.26 (CChr.SL 140A, 1027.11).

[23] Greg. M., *Moral. Ep. ad Leandrum* 1: *portum monasterii* (CChr.SL 143, 1.13-14); *Dial.* I *Prol.* 5: *litus, portus, portus quietis* (SC 260, 12.36; 37; 14.44).

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idealerweise noch vermisst geglaubte ruhige Ufer nun also mit dem Tod und dem ewigen Leben.

Insgesamt interessierte sich Gregor aber wenig für das Bildelement des Ufers oder des Hafens – das heisst statische Elemente innerhalb der nautischen Bildrede. Vielmehr fällt seine Präferenz für die dynamischen Elemente auf, vor allem für das Meer, genauerhin für das stürmische Treiben des Meeres. Es reflektiert dies Gregors dynamische Weltsicht. Mehr als für statische, sowohl vergangene als auch überzeitliche Ordnungen, interessierte er sich für die gestaltbaren Verhältnisse. Häufig spricht er vom Meer, das von Wellen aufgewühlt und von Stürmen geschüttelt wird.[24] Ruhiges Meer beschreibt er demgegenüber höchst selten.[25] Obschon Wellen als Elemente des Sturmbildes faktisch Bedrohung und Gefahr ausdrücken, stammen sie gemäss Gregor aber doch von Gott. Gott mutet den Menschen Gefahr und Leiden zu, um sie spirituell daran wachsen und reifen zu lassen.[26] Das schiffbrüchige Treiben auf stürmischer See ist eine Veranschaulichung dieser Zumutung.

Wenn man Gregors Ausführungen über den Schiffbruch mit der traditionellen christlichen Rede vom Schiffbruch vergleicht, dann sind vor allem zwei Punkte bemerkenswert. Zum einen fällt auf, dass Gregor das unglückliche Treiben des Schiffbrüchigen auf dem Meer nicht als punktuellen Kontrast zum Aufenthalt auf dem Schiff oder auf dem Land einschätzt. Der Schiffbrüchige ist für Gregor meist nicht ein Sünder, der aus der schützenden Kirchengemeinschaft herausgefallen ist. Vielmehr ist für ihn der Schiffbrüchige die bildliche Veranschaulichung des christlichen Lebens insgesamt. Schiffbrüchiger zu sein, ist für ihn sowohl eine persönliche als auch eine ekklesiologisch stimmige Metapher. Anders als bei anderen altkirchlichen Autoren, ausgehend von Tertullian, welche die rettende Planke des Schiffbrüchigen als Busse interpretieren, zielt Gregors Rede vom schiffbrüchig Treibenden nicht auf einzelne Bussakte hin.[27] Vielmehr steht sie in ihrer Allgemeinheit für eine anhaltende Existenz der Busse. Gregor sah sich selber, aber auch die Kirche, im Modus der Busse, d.h. in völliger Abhängigkeit vom göttlichen Mitleid.

Als zweites fällt auf, dass für Gregor, anders als für die Autoren des vierten Jahrhunderts, die Schiffbrüchigen meist nicht die ‚andern', die Falschgläubigen,

[24] Z.B. Greg. M., *Moral.* 7.1 (CChr.SL 143, 334.25); 18.68 (CChr.SL 143A, 933.4); 28.43 (CChr.SL 143B, 1429.1-1430.11); 28.44 (CChr.SL 143B, 1431.3); 28.45 (CChr.SL 143B, 1431.12); 28.46 (CChr.SL 143B, 1432.6). Greg. M., *Past.* III 32; Grégoire le Grand, *Règle pastorale* II, hg. v. Bruno Judic, et al., SC 382 (Paris, 1992), 492.35-44. *Ep.* 1.4; 1.7 (CChr.SL 140, 4.10; 9.12-14).

[25] Z.B. Greg. M., *Regula pastoralis* I 9; Grégoire le Grand, *Règle pastorale* I, hg. v. B. Judic, et al., SC 381 (Paris, 1992), 158.30.

[26] Greg. M., *Moral.* 28.35 (CChr.SL 143B, 1422.16-19).

[27] Zur Geschichte der *tabula naufragii* in der christlichen Tradition vgl. H. Rahner, *Symbole der Kirche* (1964), 455-72. Grundlegend ist Tertullian, *De paenitentia* IV 2.3, hg. v. Jan G. Ph. Borleffs, CChr.SL 1 (Turnhout, 1954), 326.6-12.

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sind, sondern er selber und die Kirche, also auch die guten Christen.[28] An die Stelle der Polemik gegen Häretiker tritt bei Gregor im Bild des Schiffbruchs vor allem die Selbstanklage. Verantwortlich für das Elend dieser Welt und damit auch der Kirche waren für Gregor nicht irgendwelche Ungläubige oder Falschgläubige, sondern er selber und mit ihm alle noch nicht vollkommenen Christen.

Ich denke, dass wir durch das Bild des Schiffbruchs zu Gregors ureigener ‚monastischer' Ekklesiologie gelangen, befindet sich Gregors ideale Kirchengemeinschaft doch in einer anhaltenden Busshaltung und in steter Selbstanklage.[29] Gleichzeitig hofft sie demütig auf Gott. Ihr Hoffen ist allerdings kein passives, sondern ein tatkräftiges, insofern als insbesondere die Kirchenführer dazu aufgerufen sind, sich und die Kirche stetig zu vervollkommnen und durch Mission auszuweiten. Es zeigt sich damit eine Perspektive, welche monastischen Quietismus ablehnt, sich dafür aber ganz auf die Gestaltung der Verhältnisse im stürmischen Hier und Jetzt konzentriert. Monastische Grundhaltungen werden bei Gregor so in aktive, kirchenpolitische Handlungskategorien transformiert. Der Schiffbruch wird damit zum Bild für den kirchlichlichen Aufbruch.

[28] Antihäretisch allerdings: Greg. M., *Ep.* 9.142; 11.28 (CChr.SL 140A, 693.14; 914.1-7). Zur antihäretischen Tradition des vierten Jahrhunderts vgl. H. Rahner, *Symbole der Kirche* (1964), 446-8.

[29] Grundlegend zu Gregors Verhältnis zum Mönchtum: Remigius Rudmann, *Mönchtum und kirchlicher Dienst in den Schriften Gregors des Grossen* (St. Ottilien, 1956); Georg Jenal, *Italia ascetica atque monastica: Das Asketen- und Mönchtum in Italien von den Anfängen bis zur Zeit der Langobarden (ca. 150/250-604)*, 2 Bände, MGMA 39,1/2 (Stuttgart, 1995), 827-31 und diverse vorangehende Abschnitte.

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The Dating of the Dionysian Corpus

Rosemary A. ARTHUR, Wakefield, West Yorkshire

The earliest documented reference to the Dionysian Corpus occurs in 532 A.D., on the second day of the Conference in Constantinople at which certain key members of the Monophysite and Chalcedonian parties were present for discussions with the Emperor Justinian.[1] This being so, one wonders why so many scholars refer to Ps.-Dionysius as writing 'round about 500 AD', or even 'at the end of the fifth century'. This dating was originally proposed over 100 years ago.[2] What is wrong with 530 A.D. as an approximate date of composition? Is there a vested interest in making the Dionysius earlier rather than later?

We know that the Corpus must have been written after 476 A.D., since the inclusion of the Creed in the Eucharist[3] was introduced at Antioch in that year by Peter the Fuller.[4] However, this was not a widespread practice, and it was not until it was introduced to Constantinople by Patriarch Timothy (511-8 A.D.) that it was used more regularly. Rorem and Lamoreaux and others consider that it is much more likely to have been introduced in about 515 A.D.[5] So perhaps 518 A.D. should be considered a more likely *terminus post quem* for the Corpus. There is also the undoubted influences of Proclus, who died in 485 A.D. While examining the problem of identifying Ps.-Dionysius, I noticed that he often adopted the phraseology and/or vocabulary of a number of his contemporaries, in order, perhaps, to confuse anyone who might try to guess who he was. One of these contemporaries was Damascius, an obvious stylistic model for someone who was claiming to be an Athenian philosopher.[6] Westerlink dates the academic writings of Damascius to the 520s.[7]

But there is simply no evidence for a fifth century dating in preference to a sixth century one. Why should it not have been written in 530 A.D., for example?

[1] Zacharias Rhetor, *Ecclesiastical History* IX 15, in: William H.C. Frend, *The Rise of the Monophysite Movement* (Cambridge, 1972), 364.

[2] Hugo Koch and Joseph Stiglmayr, various papers.

[3] *Ecclesiastical history* III 2 (425C) and III 7 (436C).

[4] *Eccl. hist.* III 7 (436C-D).

[5] Paul Rorem and John C. Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis and the Dionysian Corpus* (Oxford, 1998), 9.

[6] Rosemary Griffith (Arthur), Neo-Platonism and Christianity: Pseudo-Dionysius and Damascius: *SP* 29 (1997) 238-43.

[7] Leendert G. Westerink, *Damascius: Commentateur de Platon. Le Néoplatonisme* (Paris, 1971), 256.

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It seems odd that, having been written in a Monophysite milieu, it should have remained unknown for so many years.[8] It is much more likely to have been written close to its date of first appearance. It may even have been only partly written at this date, and finished between then and its translation into Syriac by Sergius of Reshaina.

Let us examine the apparent references to Ps.-Dionysius before 532 A.D., of which there are three.

The first is found in the correspondence of Severus of Antioch with Julian of Halicarnassus. *Contra Additiones Juliani* 41[9] and *Adversus Apologiam Juliani* 25[10] were both written in about 525 A.D. They both quote from *Divine Names* 2.9 (648A) and are almost identical.

Contra Additiones: 'But the most glorious thing which is attributed to God is the divine formation of Jesus in accordance with our own; it is inexpressible by any speech and inconceivable by any mind, even by the head of the most venerable order of angels. And that he should have become of one substance like a man, we have accepted as a mystery; but we do not know how he was formed of a virgin's blood by a law other than that of nature.'

Adversus Apologiam Juliani: 'But the most glorious thing which is attributed to God is the divine formation of Jesus in accordance with our own; it is inexpressible by any speech and inconceivable by any mind, even by the prince of the angels on high. And that he should have become of one substance like a man, we have accepted as a mystery; but we do not know how he was formed of a virgin's blood in a fashion other than ours, which surpasses nature.'

In each case, the sentence before is almost identical, in spite of the preceding paragraph in Severus being quite different in the two instances. Consequently, this quotation has the appearance of having been taken from a *florilegium* and inserted into the text, since each quotation is followed by the same extract from the first letter of Gregory of Nazianzus to Cledonius: 'Whoever declares that he passed through the Virgin as through a channel, and does not say that he has been formed in her in a way which is divine and human at the same time – in a divine way, because it is without human assistance, and in a human way, because it is according to the law of childbirth – is equally impious!'[11] In the *Adversus Apologiam Juliani*, however, the words 'or in a human manner, as Dionysius the Areopagite said' are inserted between 'in a human way' and 'because it is according to the law of childbirth', giving:

'Whoever declares that he passed through the Virgin as through a channel, and does not say that he has been formed in her in a way which is divine and human at the same time – in a divine way, because it is without human assistance, and in a human way

[8] P. Rorem and J.C. Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis* (1998), 10f.
[9] CSCO 296, 133.
[10] CSCO 302, 266f.
[11] CSCO 296 and 303; my translation.

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(or in the manner of a man, as Dionysius the Areopagite said) because it is according to the law of childbirth – is equally impious!'

Clearly this insertion could not have been written by Gregory. Had it been added before the time of Severus, it is probable that he would have quoted the same version in each document. So it is more likely to have been added after Severus' communication with Julian of Halicarnassus. Furthermore, Severus refers to this passage by Gregory on a number of other occasions, but without any mention of Dionysius. See, for example, Severus' *First Letter to Oecumenius*.[12] Of the Severian *florilegia* listed by Grillmeier, only the anti-Julian polemic mentions Ps.-Dionysius.[13] Nor is the Dionysian insertion found in citations of this passage by any other author. This in itself is suspicious. It may be a *scholion* which has become incorporated into the text during copying. It is possible that the reference to Dionysius was inserted by Paul of Callinicum, who edited and translated into Syriac the correspondence between Severus and Julian, which translation was completed in 528 A.D. Severus's original letters can be dated to 520-7 A.D. But since the *Philalethes* and *Apology for the Philalethes* were written after the *Contra Additiones* and the *Adversus Apologiam Juliani*, the former would surely have contained some reference to Dionysius if Severus had already been acquainted with the Corpus during the 520s. But it does not. It seems much more likely that it was added by an editor or scribe than that it was inserted by Severus. As anyone who has studied palaeography will know, these things happen! I am very grateful to Bart Ehrman for pointing this out last night ('Forgery and Counterforgery in the Early Christian Tradition'). It is naïve to imagine that every manuscript must necessarily contain the *ipsissima verba* of the reputed author.

The second suggestion of a pre-520 dating for the Corpus, also in the writings of Severus, is found in his 3rd *Letter to 'John the Hegoumenos'*, which has been dated to 510 A.D.[14] Why 510 A.D., I ask? What is the evidence for this? The recipient is possibly John Bar Aphthonia, who wrote a biography of Severus. The relevant passage is:

'As we have already written to you in detail elsewhere, in the words of the very wise Dionysius, "But by being God-made-man, he achieved something new in our midst, the activity of the God-man ..."'[15]

Now this letter has survived only in the late 7th century *florilegium*, the *Doctrina Patrum de Incarnatione Verbi*,[16] which is a compilation of several older collections, so the letter cannot even be proved to have been written by Severus.

[12] PO 12, 179.
[13] Aloys Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition* II/1 (London, 1994-5), 66f.
[14] PO 2, 237f.
[15] *Epistle* 4 (1072C).
[16] Franz Diekamp (ed.), *Doctrina Patrum de Incarnatione Verbi* (Münster, 1907), 309f.

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For a start, the word '*theandrike*' is not part of his vocabulary; it occurs nowhere else in his writings,[17] a fact which has puzzled scholars for some time. Indeed, as Torrance has shown,[18] Severus and Dionysius have a different understanding of '*theandrike*', which should also make us suspicious. The use of the phrase 'one composite nature and hypostasis' only occurs in this one passage, which is suggestive of an editorial or scribal insertion. The letter is also undated, so there is no reason to assume that it was written before 532 A.D. In any case, John was not appointed Hegumen of Qenneshre until 518 A.D. In fact, in the absence of any other evidence, it is, if anything, more feasible to date the letter to between 532-7 A.D. If it is part of the 'long letter' written from Severus to John just before the latter's death, then it must be dated to 537 A.D. The reference to Dionysius could also have been added to an earlier letter, written before 532 A.D. Rorem and Lamoreaux also do not find any evidence to support a dating of 510 A.D. for this letter.[19] René Roque[20] felt that the letter should be placed with the anti-Julian polemic. This would support the argument for editorial intervention by Paul of Callicinum. John Bar Aphthonia wrote five hymns in honour of Severus, in which he mentions various fathers of the church as being inspirations to him, including Ignatius, Athanasius, Basil, Gregory, John Chrysostom and Cyril – but no mention of Dionysius!

It should be noted that Severus himself was well aware that forged letters, purporting to be by him, are being circulated (*Letter to Caesaria the Patrician*, written during exile).[21]

The third example quoted to support an early dating for the Dionysian Corpus is a passage in a *Commentary on the Apocalypse* by Andreas of Caesarea, where he quotes Ps.-Dionysius four times.[22] However, there is no agreement as to when Andreas of Caesarea lived; since there were several men of this name, estimates vary from the fifth to the ninth century. But even if the commentary had been written in the fifth century, it could still have been amended later to make the Dionysian Corpus seem earlier than it was. The *Encyclopedia of the Early Church*[23] dates Andreas to the second half of the sixth century.

As I have shown in my recent book,[24] Ps.-Dionysius had good reason to be exceedingly cautious during the 520s. From 518 A.D. onwards, non-Chalcedonian

[17] Joseph Lebon, Le pseudo-Denys l'Aréopagite et Sévère d'Antioche: *Revue d'Histoire Ecclésiastique* 26 (1930) 880-915.

[18] Iain R. Torrance, *Christology after Chalcedon* (Norwich, 1988), 110.

[19] P. Rorem and J.C. Lamoreaux, *John of Scythopolis* (1998), 11-5.

[20] *Dictionnaire de Spiritualité* 3 (Paris, 1957), 249.

[21] Ernest W. Brooks (ed.), *The Sixth Book of the Select Letters of Severus*, Text and Translation Society (London 1903-4), 448-55.

[22] PG 106 (Paris, 1857-66), 257, 305, 356, 780.

[23] Ed. Angelo Di Berardino, transl. A. Walford (Cambridge, 1992).

[24] Rosemary A. Arthur, *Pseudo-Dionysius as Polemicist: The Development and Purpose of the Angelic Hierarchy in 6th Century Syria* (Ashgate, 2008).

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bishops were ejected from their sees and from 521 A.D., thousands of monks were driven out of their monasteries.[25] 527 A.D. was a particularly significant year, because this was when the edict '*De Haereticis*' was promulgated, ordering severe measures to be taken against non-Chalcedonians.[26] The persecution intensified; in 528 A.D. Justinian banned pagans from holding office and closed the Platonic Academy in Athens the next year. He would clearly be a danger to the writer of the Dionysian Corpus were the identity of the latter to be known.

I therefore suggest that composition of the Corpus was begun in about 527 A.D. and finished some time between 529 and 532 A.D.

[25] W.H.C. Frend, Severus of Antioch and the origins of the Monophysite Hierarchy: *Orientalia Christiana Analecta* 195 (Rome, 1973), 271f.

[26] Patrick T.R. Gray, *The Defense of Chalcedon in the East* (Leiden, 1979), 52f.

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What Are the 'Hypothetical Logoi' of Dionysian Mystical Theology?

Michael HARRINGTON, Pittsburgh

The *Mystical Theology*, one of the five treatises written under the name of Dionysius the Areopagite in the late fifth or early sixth century, contains a famous interpretation of the ascent of Moses up Mount Sinai. A great deal of attention has been paid to the final stage of this ascent, when Moses enters the cloud above the mountain. A more perfunctory treatment has typically been given to the also controversial penultimate stage, when Moses stands with his chosen priests on the mountain's summit. He has passed the sensuous experience of 'many-voiced trumpets' and 'many lights' at the bottom of the mountain, but has not yet entered the incomprehensible darkness above it. In this intermediate stage, Dionysius says, Moses 'does not come to be with God himself. He does not contemplate him – for God cannot be contemplated – but the place where he stood'.[1] Dionysius then provides an allegorical interpretation of this place: 'I think this signifies that the divine summits of visible and intelligible things are certain underlying structures (ὑποθετικοὶ λόγοι) of things subordinate to the one who surpasses all things.'[2] The summit of the mountain, the place where God stands, is then an 'underlying structure', a *hypothetikos logos*. Dionysius does not explain what he means by this seemingly obscure phrase. Most twentieth-century commentators have tried to interpret it by looking at other uses of the term *logos* in the Dionysian corpus. It is difficult to come to any single interpretation using this method, since *logos* has a remarkable flexibility in Dionysius, as it does in many later Neoplatonists.[3] The place-related language used by Dionysius, on the other hand, is quite stable in its meaning, and so we may more easily understand the meaning of the *hypothetikoi logoi* by investigating the place, the *topos*, with which they are identified.

When speaking about the bodiless realm, as he is in his allegorical interpretation of Moses on the summit of Mount Sinai, Dionysius makes use of two place-related terms drawn from the Platonic philosophical tradition: 'forecourts' (πρόθυροι) and 'receptacle' (ὑποδοχή), both of them more expressive and technical than the broader and more colloquial term *topos*.

[1] *Mystical Theology* (*MT*) 144, 4-5 (1000D). All translations are my own.

[2] *MT* 144, 5-7 (1000D).

[3] Dionysius refers to a *logos* that is as high as God at *On the Divine Names* (*DN*) 198, 21 (872C), and to one that is as low as the human mind at *DN* 195, 12 (868B).

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Dionysius' use of the term 'forecourts' derives ultimately from a passage in Plato's *Philebus*, where Socrates proposes the methodological principle that 'when you are looking for somebody, you first find out where he actually lives' (61a). If you are looking for the good, as Socrates is, you must find out where the good lives before you can discover the good itself. As an answer to the question of where the good lives, Socrates proposes what he calls 'an incorporeal cosmos that rules over a body possessed by a soul' (64b). He then asks the rhetorical question: 'Would there be some justification to our claim that we are now standing in the very forecourts (προθύροις) of the good?' (64c) This seemingly casual reference to the outer courts of a religious shrine has in fact a precise meaning to convey. The forecourts do not have to enclose the shrine, but provide access to it. In an analogous way, the 'incorporeal cosmos' mentioned by Socrates does not comprehend the good, but gives access to it. It is itself of less importance than what it reveals.

Dionysius almost certainly did not pick up the language of 'forecourts' from Plato himself, but from Plotinus, who quotes this snippet of the *Philebus* just once in his entire corpus.[4] Plotinus says: 'Intellect stands from our point of view in front of the first principle, as if in the forecourts of the good, proclaiming (ἀπαγγέλων) to us all that is in it.' Where Socrates vaguely refers to the forecourt as an 'incorporeal cosmos', Plotinus specifies that it is the divine *nous* or 'intellect'. Plotinus also goes beyond Socrates in saying that the intellect is a proclaimer, an *aggelos*. Although Plotinus was probably not implying that the angels of the Mediterranean religious traditions are to be identified as 'forecourts', his use of a form of *aggelos* was not lost on Dionysius. In his work, *On the Heavenly Hierarchy*, Dionysius describes the angels as 'established in the forecourts of the godhead'.[5] He repeats this claim in his work *On the Divine Names*, saying that the angels 'have their foundation, so to speak, in the forecourts of the transcendent trinity'.[6] In his use of the term 'forecourts', then, Dionysius follows a long Platonic tradition of identifying them with a bodiless being that is not yet the highest good.

The second place-related term, 'receptacle', used by Plato in his *Timaeus* as a synonym for *topos*, refers specifically to the mass of elements that are to receive the forms of the visible cosmos.[7] It appears throughout the work of the Neoplatonists, and is used by Dionysius to describe the angels, as when he says

[4] *Ennead* V 9.2.25.

[5] *On the Heavenly Hierarchy* (*CH*) 28, 20-1 (208A).

[6] *DN* 186, 4-5 (821C).

[7] Plato identifies 'receptacle' and 'place' at *Tim.* 52b. He also incorporates the colloquial and Aristotelian definition of place as 'that in which we find something' into the character of the receptacle at 50c. It is in this sense that we should understand the claim of Dionysius that God is not in a place at *MT* 148, 3 (1040D) and *DN* 138, 10 (680B). For the limited sense in which we can consider God to be a place, see L.M. Harrington, *Sacred Place in Early Medieval Neoplatonism* (New York, 2004), 117f.

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that God ought to 'be known and praised by the God-receiving (θεοδόχων) intellects'.[8] The angels here are described with reference to what they receive: they are 'God-receiving' rather than merely 'receptacles', but it is clear that Dionysius is conscious of the place-related origin of his terminology. He goes on to say that the angels are God-receiving precisely because 'they are the divine places (τόποι) of the godhead's rest, as scripture says' (212C). The scripture Dionysius seems to be thinking of is the *Book of Isaiah*, where the Lord says: 'Heaven is my throne and the earth is a stool for my feet. What house will you build for me, and what is the place of my rest?'[9] But where *Isaiah* is mocking the idea that God has a place, Dionysius affirms it. His apparent conflict with his scriptural source here may be resolved if we clarify that *Isaiah* takes 'place' to mean an enclosing physical structure ('what house will you build for me'), while Dionysius takes it to mean an intelligible structure that does not enclose but receive. The specific rank of angels known as 'thrones' reflects this characteristic in its very name: they are called 'thrones' because, Dionysius says, 'in their complete passionlessness and immateriality they are receptive (δεκτικόν), godbearing, and attentively open to divine receptions (ὑποδοχάς).'[10] In short, angels can be called places because, like places, they are receptive of what is higher.

Dionysius' consistent identification of the angels as the meaning behind the place-related terms he uses suggests, then, that the *Mystical Theology*'s places of God, the *hypothetikoi logoi*, are none other than the angels. His use of the term *logoi*, while unusual as a description of the angelic minds in Dionysius, can be explained by reference to the scriptural passage he is interpreting here. The Septuagint version of the *Book of Exodus* says that Moses 'saw the place where the God of Israel stood, and what was under his feet was like a work of sapphire slab, and like the form (εἶδος) of the firmament of heaven'.[11] The scriptural passage itself, then, connects the place of God with form. Although the passage seems to mean by 'form' only the visible appearance of the sky – it is blue like sapphire – the commentary tradition well before the time of Dionysius had come to interpret this form as something closer to the intelligible 'forms' of the Platonists.[12] Dionysius may then have regarded the connection of angel,

[8] *CH* 32, 6-7 (212C).

[9] *Is.* 66:1. Paul Rorem, *Pseudo-Dionysius: The Complete Works*, transl. C. Luibheid (New York, 1987), 166, n. 85 has assembled a number of other passages from the canonical scriptures that develop a theology of God's 'rest' in the tabernacle. To these should be added the apocryphal *Judith* 9:8.

[10] *CH* 28, 10-2 (205D).

[11] *Ex.* 24:10.

[12] Evagrius, for example, identifies the sapphire stone as the nature of mind (νοῦς) in the eighteenth of his 'Texts on Discrimination'. See *Philokalia: The Complete Text*, transl. G.E.H. Palmer, Philip Sherrard, and Kallistos Ware, vol. 1 (London and Boston, 1979), 49, and also Evagrius' *Praktikos* I 70.

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place, and *logos*, as neither obscure nor controversial, but simply a development of the traditional interpretation of this passage from the *Book of Exodus*.

The medievals generally had no difficulty in concluding that Dionysius was referring to the angels when he spoke of the place of God. Perhaps this is because the first commentator on the Dionysian corpus, whose scholia found their way into the margins of most of the texts of Dionysius that circulated in the Middle Ages, freely identifies the place of God as the angels. This commentator does not explicitly go on to say that the *hypothetikoi logoi* ought also to be identified with the angels, but he does describe the *logoi* as 'contemplative' (θεωρητικούς), an adjective that is easily applied to the angelic minds.[13] Later commentators like Thomas Gallus went on to make explicit the three-fold identification of *logos*, place, and angel. The Latin version of the Dionysian corpus used by Gallus translates *hypothetikoi logoi* as *subiectae rationes*. For Gallus, this means that the *logoi* are themselves 'the most divine subjects (*subiecta*)', which are 'certain creatures' as well as being 'the most divine places'.[14]

Since the medieval commentators already support the reading of the *Mystical Theology*'s *logoi* and place of God as the angels, a defense of it would seem unnecessary, except for the fact that it has all but disappeared in twentieth-century scholarship. Vladimir Lossky, for instance, rereading Dionysian mystical theology through the lens of contemporary Palamism, identifies the *logoi* as God. He says: 'Il n'y a aucun doute que les '*hypothetikoi logoi*' désignent ici les idées divine.'[15] As evidence for this claim, he quotes a passage from the *Divine Names*, where Dionysius speaks of *logoi* that 'unitedly presubsist (προυφεστῶτας) in God and produce the substance of beings.'[16] While Dionysius is clearly talking about *logoi* in God in the *Divine Names* passage, the language used to describe the *logoi* there is different from the language used in the *Mystical Theology* passage. The *logoi* of the *Mystical Theology* are underneath (ὑπο-), while in the *Divine Names* passage they are prior (προ-). We can

[13] The scholiast says that the *logoi* are θεωρετικοὺς τῶν ὄντων, which may mean merely that they are the part of beings that can be contemplated. Even if this is the case, the part of beings that can be contemplated may constitute their connection with their exemplars, and these exemplars may still be the angels. The scholiast, however, makes none of this explicit.

[14] See *Mystical Theology: The Glosses by Thomas Gallus and the Commentary of Robert Grosseteste on* De Mystical Theologia, transl. James McEvoy (Leuven, 2003), 31. Rather than simply equate the *logoi* and the angelic beings as Gallus does, some medieval commentators identify the *logoi* as the angels only in so far as the angels present knowledge to the human mind. The *logoi* thus retain their cognitive rather than ontological significance. See, for instance, the commentary of Robert Grosseteste on the *logoi* (*Mystical Theology*, 83).

[15] La théologie négative dans la doctrine de Denys l'Aréopagite: *Revue de Sciences Philosophiques et Théologiques* 28 (1939) 204-21, 218. Gregory Palamas himself does not discuss the *hypothetikoi logoi*, but he mentions Dionysius' discussion of the 'place' of God at *Triad* II 3. 54.

[16] *DN* 188, 7-8 (824C). Lossky claims he is quoting from '*D.N.*, V, 2, col. 817,' but nothing in that section or column matches the text of his quotation.

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typically decide whether Dionysius is speaking of forms in God or forms in creatures by his choice of prefixes in the language he uses to describe them. So the *Divine Names* passage to which Lossky draws our attention actually highlights the contrast between the presubsistent *logoi* that it describes, which are God, and the subordinate *logoi* of the *Mystical Theology*, which are subordinate to God.

Lossky would presumably not disagree that there is a difference between the presubsistent and the subordinate *logoi*, but would argue that both of them are God, although neither is God in his essence. The subordinate *logoi* are simply the 'idées selon lesquelles les Vertus divines apparaissent dans la multiplicité des êtres de l'univers créé.' When Moses goes beyond the summit of Mount Sinai into the darkness of union with God, he is not moving from a creature to God himself, but from the divine powers 'en tant que distinctes' to the powers 'en tant qu'unies.'[17] The presubsistent *logoi* are then the divine powers as united, while the subordinate *logoi* are those same powers as diversified in the multiplicity of creatures. For our purposes, the most important problem with this interpretation of the *hypothetikoi logoi* is that Dionysius explicitly denies that they are God. When Moses reaches the summit of Mount Sinai, he does not contemplate God, but 'the place where he stood'. Nevertheless, Lossky's reading continues to shape contemporary interpretations of the *hypothetikoi logoi*.[18]

Other twentieth-century readers of Dionysius take the *logoi* in a direction opposite to Lossky's. Where he promotes them to ideas in God, these readers demote them to thoughts in the human mind.[19] Paul Rorem, for instance, calls the *logoi* 'interpretive presuppositions for what stands below God, at the height of human capacity but nevertheless below the divine reality'.[20] He does not go on to explain what he means by 'interpretive presuppositions', but they seem to be certain general conceptions we require if we are to understand everything

[17] V. Lossky, La théologie négative (1939), 219.

[18] See Ysabel De Andia, *Henosis: l'union à Dieu chez Denys l'Aréopagite* (Leiden, 1996), 344-8. She identifies the *logoi* with the divine paradigms, and the paradigms with the divine 'puissances' (Lossky's 'vertus'). They are below the divine reality (Lossky's divine essence), but they are also prior to the intelligible world: 'Il s'agit de la présence de Dieu dans les 'raisons hypothétiques', donc dans le monde intelligible' (347). Earlier on the same page, however, she seems to identify the paradigms with 'l'ordre intelligible du monde', and it is not clear how the two passages fit together, or if the intelligible order of the world refers to the angels.

[19] Jean Vanneste, *Le mystère de Dieu* (Brussels, 1959), 63, n. 1, may fall into this group, but his description of the *logoi* is too general to say for sure. He says that the adjective *hypothetikos* 'se prête volontiers à une localisation des idées et de la connaissance correspondante dans une structure ontologique néoplatonicienne'. The question remains as to where he situates the *logoi* within this Neoplatonic ontological structure. Are they in the angels? Or are they in the human soul? Vanneste does not say.

[20] *Pseudo-Dionysius: A Commentary on the Texts and an Introduction to their Influence* (New York, 1993), 191. Eugenio Corsini has a similar reading of the *logoi*, though he derives his reading from his study of the hypotheses in Plato's *Parmenides*. See *Il trattato 'de Divinis Nominibus' dello Pseudo-Dionigi e i commenti neoplatonici al Parmenide* (Turin, 1962), 107.

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below God. These conceptions are the meanings we give to words like 'goodness', 'being', 'power', and so on. 'Power' means one thing when applied to a plant, but something else when applied to a mind. The *hypothetikoi logoi* are the highest meanings we can think of for these words, 'at the height of human capacity', as Rorem puts it. The suggestion here that the *logoi* are a human construction – reinforced by Rorem's calling them a 'work' done by the eye of the body or of the mind – leads this interpretation somewhat away from the Dionysian text, which identifies the *logoi* not as the result of human contemplation but as its object, beyond all human capacity. The phrase *hypothetikoi logoi*, according to the traditional interpretation, refers to the angels in as much as they are the object of our contemplation, being the highest medium through which we may know the meanings of words before abandoning knowledge altogether in the darkness of unknowing.

Because the place of God, the summit of the mountain contemplated by Moses, occupies a crucial place between the familiarity of the sense world (the bottom of the mountain) and utter incomprehensibility (the darkness above it), our interpretation of it says a great deal about how we understand the overall Dionysian structure of cognition. The identification of the places of God, the *logoi*, with the angelic beings, serves the general principle that every thought is the reception of a being. The structure of our minds may shape our reception of that being, but it remains a reception and not a construction. In our thoughts of the angels, we think of beings who are themselves constituted by thought, and so we are incorporated into an intelligible community, a community that is more real than the world that we see, and that in fact contains the meaning of the world that we see. There is a philosophical as well as a historical significance to this theory, as it implies that a truly private thought is impossible, and that the sameness of a thought we share requires a being in which it may ground itself. To understand the *hypothetikoi logoi* as the angelic minds puts us in a position to see how implications such as these have a place in the continuing development of a Dionysian theory of knowing.

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The Most Evident Idea in Theology? Gregory of Nyssa and Pseudo-Dionysius Areopagita on the Theological Significance of Incarnation

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My purpose in what follows is to discuss the possible influence of Gregory of Nyssa on Ps.-Dionysius Areopagita, in the issue of the theological significance of incarnation. This is a curious and a somewhat vexed question, for two reasons. First of all, the two authors obviously *are* linked by way of influence within the Judeo-Christian apophatic tradition.[1] Secondly, in the issue now at hand, it would first seem that Ps.-Dionysius really *cannot* be influenced by Gregory – provided, namely, that the Cappadocian was an advocator of a technical distinction between θεολογία and οἰκονομία, which is what he is commonly said to be.[2]

The problem I am addressing is manifest in *Divine Names* where Ps.-Dionysius provides a curious passage the *beginning* of which is in a striking contrast with any meaningful distinction between *theologia* and *oikonomia*:

'The most evident idea in theology (θεολογία), namely, the sacred incarnation (θεοπλαστία) of Jesus for our sakes, is something which cannot be enclosed in words nor grasped by any mind, not even by the leaders among the front of the ranks of the angels. That he undertook to be a man is, for us, entirely mysterious. We have no way of understanding how, in a fashion at variance with nature, he was formed from a virgin's blood. We do not understand how with dry feet and with his body's solid weight he walked on the unstable surface of the water. And we do not understand whatever else has to do with the supernatural nature of Jesus.'[3]

What Ps.-Dionysius is referring to by the term θεοπλαστία here, is what Gregory in his third book *Against Eunomius* calls the mystery of οἰκονομία, *i.e.*

[1] For the development of Judeo-Christian apophasis from Philo onwards, see the accounts of Andrew Louth, *The Origins of the Christian Mystical Tradition* (Oxford, 1981), Raul Mortley, *From Word to Silence*, 2 (Bonn, 1986), and Deirdre Carabine, *The Unknown God* (Louvain, 1995). It is just because the chosen authors are the two Christian pioneers of the manifestly apophatic thought within the Judeo-Christian theological tradition that their connection in this distinctively Christian issue is of particular interest.

[2] See Basil Studer, *Trinity and Incarnation* (Edinburgh, 1993), 2, 113; Alois Grillmeier, *Mit ihm und in ihm* (Freiburg, 1978), 618-620.

[3] *DN* II 9 (648A). Transl. Colm Luibheid, *Pseudo-Dionysius, The Complete Works* (New York, 1987), 65.

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of incarnation[4] – which he also calls the 'philanthropic dispensation (οἰκονομία) of the Only-begotten Son'.[5] In many ways Ps.-Dionysius' passage shows much affinity with Gregory's formulations of the inconceivable and ineffable character of incarnation in *Catechetical oration*,[6] a work which is said to be structured upon a technical distinction between *theologia* and *oikonomia*.[7]

Interestingly, the term θεολογία does not actually appear in Gregory's catechesis at all. However, the term θεογνωσία is there,[8] and scholars have explained that Gregory is in a habit of using the terms *theologia* and *theognosia* interchangeably.[9] In *Life of Moses*, for example, Gregory provides two appellations for one and the same mountain which Moses ascended, identifying 'theology' as the mountain which he will call 'the mountain of *theognosia*'.[10] When Gregory, then, in the ending of the first part of his *Catechetical Oration* refers to the notion of the tri-unity of God as θεογνωσία, and then moves on to his discourse concerning the 'οἰκονομία of the Word',[11] scholars have found grounds to say that in his systematic introduction to the Christian doctrines of Trinity and Incarnation, Gregory systematizes the distinction between *theologia* and *oikonomia* advocated by all three Cappadocians alike. What is clear, at least, is that in *CE* III Gregory defends his brother for employing this distinction.[12]

In modern research, 'theology' in Gregory is most often discussed as the *human approach* to God, and it is sometimes indicated that the distinction between *theologia* and *oikonomia* in Gregory anticipates the Dionysian distinction between the divine ascent of *apophasis* and the divine descent of *kataphasis*.[13] It is important to remark, however, that in Ps.-Dionysius, κατάφασις, as much

[4] *CE* III 1,46 (GNO II 19).

[5] *CE* III 2,55 (GNO II 70). In fact, Ps.-Dionysius' exceptional word for incarnation – θεοπλαστία – understood as God's assumption of form when becoming man may indicate Gregorian influence. The verb πλάσσω is used in the Septuagint for the formation of man by God, importantly, in *Gen.* 2:7: '*And the Lord God formed man of the dust of the ground*': this usage, subsequently, is common in the Greek Fathers. Gregory would seem to be original in using the term 'θεόπλαστος' when referring to the whole human nature as '*God*-formed' (see *In Eccl* GNO V 336). Ps.-Dionysius, in turn, is original in utilizing the term also in reference to the 'second Adam' in whom the human nature is re-created – *re-formed* by God 'for our sake' – through the divine assumption of the human form.

[6] See *Or. cat.* 10-6 (GNO III/4, 38-49).

[7] See the recent study of Reinhard Jakob Kees, *Die Lehre von der* Oikonomia *Gottes in der* Oratio catechetica *Gregors von Nyssa* (Leiden, 1995). See also note 2.

[8] *Or. cat.* 3.1 (GNO III/4, 13).

[9] See R.J. Kees, *Die Lehre* (1995), 57-66.

[10] 'Theology is a mountain', see *VM* II 158 (SC 1bis, 206); for 'mountain of divine knowledge', see *VM* II 152 (SC 1bis, 202).

[11] *Or. cat.* 5.1 (GNO III/4, 15).

[12] For the defence, see the third *tomus* of *CE* III (GNO II 107-33).

[13] See Deirdre Carabine, Gregory of Nyssa on the Incomprehensibility of God, in: T. Finan & V. Twomey (eds.), *The Relationship between Neoplatonism and Christianity* (Dublin, 1992), 79-99, esp. 79-80.

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as ἀπόφασις, is actually part of what he conceives of as theology – and we come to his statement according to which the *incarnation* is the 'most evident idea *in theology*'. Would it not be unthinkable for someone who wishes to technically distinguish between *theologia* and *oikonomia*, like Gregory of Nyssa, to say something like this? The whole idea of what 'theology' is and what it is not would seem to be quite different in Ps.-Dionysius. But is it really? The question we must here ask is this: *what is theology*, for Ps.-Dionysius – and what is it, actually, for Gregory?

As Paul Rorem has pointed out, in Ps.-Dionysius' vocabulary, 'theology' usually 'carried the literal sense of Word of God, namely, in the Scriptures'; by 'theologians', accordingly, he means the biblical writers distinctively.[14] He says that the 'tradition of the theologians' is in on the one hand 'ineffable and mystical', 'symbolic and presupposing initiation' – and on the other 'manifest and more knowable', 'philosophical and capable of proof'.[15] Andrew Louth has rightly underlined the fact that this notion has its nearest parallel in the distinction which Basil made within the teaching of the Church between δόγμα and κήρυγμα:[16] between *doctrine* based on the tradition of apostolic teaching handed down secretly, and *open declaration* based on written teaching in the Scripture and in the Creeds and degrees of the Apostolic Church. The initial reason for Basil to present the distinction was to be able to recognise the equal divine honour – the full divinity – of the Holy Spirit with the Father and the Son, *in* what he conceived as *theology*: the celebration of the Holy Trinity and his divine nature.[17] A proper recognition of the Spirit did not yet in Basil's lifetime belong to the *kêrygma*, the open declaration, of the Church. In Basil, then, the *dogma* exceeds the *kêrygma*: *dogma* assimilates to 'theology' most properly so called, and liturgy – which obviously also bridges between *kêrygma* and *dogma* – is the natural context of its expression.

In Basil Ps.-Dionysius found a concept of theology as *doxology* which at once – as initiation and participation in the divine mysteries – was Christian *paideia* in its very best: liturgy provided the manifestations as well as the realizations of all what could be conceived of as theology. Liturgy provides the natural context of 'theology' also in Ps.-Dionysius.[18] It is not perhaps too much to say that Dionysian concept of theology stands on a Cappadocian, that is, Basilian, foundation. On the other hand, Basil's distinctions technically separated both

[14] See Paul Rorem, in: *Pseudo-Dionysius, The Complete Works* (1987), 133. See also Andrew Louth, *Denys the Areopagite* (London, 1989), 26.

[15] *Ep.* IX (1105D).

[16] See A. Louth, *Denys the Areopagite* (1989), 26f.

[17] See Basil's *De Spir. S.* 1, 1-3 (SC 17bis, 250-258), and his reference to 'words used in theology' (1, 2), meaning the words used when celebrating God, the Holy Trinity.

[18] A point rightly emphasized especially by A. Louth, *Denys the Areopagite* (1989), 29-31, 78-9, 99-109.

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kêrygma and *oikonomia* from what is to be considered as *theologia* – and this is problematic from the Dionysian point of view.

In fact, Ps.-Dionysius' relation to Basil's teaching is somewhat similar to that of Gregory who supported his brother's views and, after Basil's death, defended him for his views. In order to do so, however, Gregory had to modify his brother's formulations with a concentration to their intention, purpose and aim. And this, one might claim, is how the 'Cappadocian heritage' shows itself in Ps.-Dionysius: he approaches its 'Basilian' foundation through 'Gregorian' modifications.

In *CE* III Gregory does indeed defend his brother for his technical utilization of the distinction between *theologia* and *oikonomia*. Gregory quotes his brother word by word[19] – but he never really makes the distinction one of his own. In his personal response to Eunomius' claim that by his distinction, Basil teaches 'two Christs and two Lords', Gregory introduces and employs another distinction which takes us straight to the actual *point* of his brother's argument: in the Scripture, *there are two ways of speaking about the one and the same person of Christ*, depending, whether he is referred to by such terms which relate to his divinity, or by such which relate to his assumed humanity.[20] The distinction Gregory offers is based *directly* on the most fundamental distinction of the Judeo-Christian biblical tradition of the worship of God, between *the Lord and his servants*, in other words, the Creator and the creatures. Gregory hands it out as a distinction between *the Uncreated and created*,[21] divine and human natures of the one person of Christ, the Word of God whose incarnation is proclaimed by the prophets and apostles throughout the Holy Scripture as the 'philanthropic *oikonomia* of the Holy Spirit'.[22]

The *oikonomia* of the Word, incarnation, can now be regarded as the most foundational element *in theology* conceived as κήρυγμα, 'preaching concerning the divine nature'. The authoritative source of theology is the Holy Scripture as it is heard and received in the Apostolic Church. Importantly, what Basil had previously said as belonging to the Church's *dogma* only, to its secret tradition, concerning the Holy Spirit, became in the Council of Constantinople (381) part of the Church's open proclamation, *kêrygma*. There was nothing to prevent Gregory from identifying theology quite specifically as *kêrygma*, now proclaimed by the *body of the Spirit*, the Scripture, and *the body of Christ*, the Church, alike.

[19] See Basil's discussion in his *Contra Eunomium* II 3 (SC 305, 16-8) and Gregory's repetition, as quoted by Eunomius, in *CE* III 3,15-6 (GNO II 112-3).

[20] Cf. *CE* III 1,54 (GNO II 22).

[21] It has been noticed that in *CE* III Gregory becomes most explicit with his idea of the central significance of the created-uncreated distinction which can be regarded as one of the most distinctive emphases of his thought. See Alden A. Mosshammer, The Created and Uncreated in Gregory of Nyssa, in: Lucas F. Mateo-Seco and Juan Luis Bastero (eds.), *El Contra Eunomium I* (Pamplona, 1988), 353-79.

[22] *CE* III 6,32 (GNO II 197).

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Indeed, in *Life of Moses* Gregory clearly identifies 'θεολογία' as 'κήρυγμα'. The word '*theologia*' appears there only once,[23] significantly, when the attention is turned to the 'sound of trumpets'. He then writes:

'For the *preaching of the divine nature* (τὸ περὶ τῆς θείας φύσεως κήρυγμα) is truly a trumpet blast, which strikes the hearing, being already loud at the beginning but becoming yet louder at the end. The Law and the Prophets trumpeted the divine mystery of the incarnation [...] The last sounds [...] came through the preaching of the Gospel [...] The instruments which ring out the Spirit's sound would be the prophets and apostles whose voice, as the Psalter says, goes out through all the earth: and their message to the ends of the world.'[24]

The divine mystery of the incarnation, we notice, is quite inseparable from theology. Gregory clearly conceives θεολογία as '*divine speaking* concerning the divine nature' proclaimed by the saints, in a technical distinction to θεογνωσία as '*divine knowledge* concerning the divine nature'. *Theognosia*, apparently, relates specifically to the idea of the spiritual *seeing* of God: it is possible for men only through the spiritual *hearing* of *theologia*, the only true author of which can be no-one except God. Moreover, there is no hearing of theology, and no vision of God, without a due recognition of the incarnation: Gregory applies all three theophanies Moses experienced in the mountain to the incarnation of the Word.[25] In CE III Gregory provides a description of a similar approach to the *Scripture*, based on the recognition of the incarnation where there is the *presence of the Uncreated* in the created, *God* in man, *Word* in flesh, *Lord* in the form of servant. It is a theoretical approach of *following the Word* (ἀκολουθία),[26] where one

'*looks to the incarnation* (οἰκονομία), and preserves the due proportion with regard to our conception alike of the divinity (περὶ τὸ θεῖον) and the humanity (περὶ τὸ ἀνθρώπινον).'[27]

One may then contemplate those mutually related conceptions and names that the Scripture authoritatively applies to the one person of Christ according to his divinity. Gregory is an exceptionally clear representative of the distinctly Judeo-Christian theological tradition of *God who speaks*.[28] He contributes in and for that specific theological tradition by explicating a method of theological reflection which is conditioned by a necessary *recognition of the incarnation*

[23] See note 10 above.

[24] *VM* II 158-9 (SC 1bis, 206-7). Transl. Abraham J. Malherbe and Everett Ferguson, *Gregory of Nyssa – The Life of Moses* (New York, 1977), 93f.

[25] See the discussion in Anthony Meredith, *The Cappadocians* (London, 1995), 67-78.

[26] For ἀκολουθία in Gregory, see Jean Daniélou, *L'être et le temps chez Grégoire de Nysse* (Leiden, 1970), 18-50.

[27] *CE* III 1,54 (GNO II 22). Transl. William Moore and Henry Austin Wilson, *Select Writings and Letters of Gregory of Nyssa*, NPNF second series, vol. 5 (Edinburg, repr. 1994), 141.

[28] See H.D. Saffrey, Theology as Science (3rd-6th centuries): *SP* 29 (1997) 321-399, esp. 322.

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as the instance of 'God's speaking in his Son', and leads one into a *contemplation of the divine names and attributes* handed down to us in the Scripture. Ps.-Dionysius' work *Divine Names* – as well as his other works – continues within the same tradition of 'God who speaks', for which Gregory had previously done a service by addressing, and by being able to express, the *substantially theological significance of incarnation*. We hence come to the following conclusion:

In his thinking according to which *the incarnation of the Word is the most manifest idea in theology*, Ps.-Dionysius Areopagita was clearly influenced by his predecessor in the Judeo-Christian apophatic tradition, Gregory of Nyssa.

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Moïse et Paul, modèles de l'expérience mystique chez Grégoire de Nysse et Denys l'Aréopagite

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Qu'entend-on par «expérience mystique»?[1] Comment s'exprime-t-elle puisqu'une «expérience» n'est accessible qu'à travers le langage, dans lequel elle se communique? Et s'il est vrai que Denys l'Aréopagite, à l'égal de Grégoire de Nysse,[2] est à l'origine de la «théologie mystique», peut-on séparer la «théologie» de la «mystique»? Moïse et Paul, deux figures majeures de l'Ancien et du Nouveau Testament, représentent deux expériences différentes correspondant à deux théophanies différentes, celle de Dieu et celle du Christ, celle de la Ténèbre et celle du troisième ciel. Nous allons étudier ce que disent Grégoire de Nysse et Denys l'Aréopagite de Moïse et de Paul pour montrer que l'expérience mystique qu'ils définissent est inséparable de leur théologie mystique.

I. Grégoire de Nysse[3]

1) *Moïse*

La *Vie de Moïse*[4] de Grégoire de Nysse se rattache à l'exégèse spirituelle de *l'Exode* inaugurée par Philon; mais, comme dans les *Homélies sur l'Exode* d'Origène,

[1] M. Harl, Le langage de l'expérience religieuse chez les Pères grecs, in: *Le déchiffrement du sens: Études sur l'herméneutique chrétienne d'Origène à Grégoire de Nysse*, Institut d'Études Augustiniennes (Paris, 1993), 29-58. Voir aussi P. Miquel, Πεῖρα: Contribution à l'étude du vocabulaire de l'expérience religieuse dans l'œuvre de Maxime le Confesseur: *SP* 7 (1966) 355-61. Πεῖρα est employé en *VM* I 21,6; 25,3; II 9,1 («Ce que l'expérience nous apprend»); pas d'emploi dans le *Corpus Dionysiacum*, mais trois emplois de πειράω (*EH* 373 B; *DN* 652 A et *EP* 7,1080 B) dans le sens de «tenter de, essayer», ce qui signifie qu'il n'y a pas de référence à l'«expérience» mystique dans le *Corpus Dionysiacum*.

[2] H. Crouzel, Grégoire de Nysse est-il le fondateur de la théologie mystique? Une controverse récente: *RAM* 33 (1957) 189-202; sur Denys: K. Richstätter, Der 'Vater der christlichen Mystik' und sein verhängnisvoller Einfluß: *Stimmen der Zeit* 114 (1928) 241-59.

[3] M. Canévet, art. Grégoire de Nysse (saint): *DSp* 6 (Paris, 1967), col. 971-1011. Sur la contemplation et le vocabulaire de Grégoire: J. Lemaitre, R. Roques, M. Viller, art. Contemplation chez les Orientaux chrétiens: c) Grégoire de Nysse: *DSp* 2,2 (Paris, 1953), col. 1772-1785. *Id.*, La perception de la présence de Dieu à propos d'une expression de la XI[e] Homélie sur le Cantique des Cantiques: *Epektasis: Mélanges patristiques offerts au Cardinal Jean Danélou* (Paris, 1972), 443-54.

[4] J. Daniélou, Moïse: Exemple et figure chez Grégoire de Nysse, in: *Moïse, l'homme de l'alliance*, *Les Cahiers Sioniens* 8 (1954) 267-82; J. Pépin, Le challenge Homère-Moïse aux premiers siècles

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elle intègre l'interprétation typologique de *l'Exode* opérée par les auteurs du Nouveau Testament, spécialement par l'Apôtre Paul (1*Co.* 10:1-6). Paul est maître dans l'exégèse de l'Écriture sainte, parce qu'il a reçu l'Esprit et que, par l'Esprit, il peut «sonder les profondeurs de Dieu» et «dire ses mystères». C'est pourquoi son exégèse est une exégèse spirituelle qui révèle les mystères contenus dans l'Ancien Testament (*cf. VM* II 174, 178-9).[5] Moïse et Paul sont les grands «mystagogues» du mystère, mais c'est à Paul que Grégoire emprunte le verset de *Ph.* 3:13 qui illustre sa conception du progrès continuel, l'épectase.

La *Vie de Moïse* de Grégoire est surtout littérairement dépendante de celle de Philon d'Alexandrie.[6] Philon décrit la vie de Moïse selon les quatre titres de Moïse: roi (*Dt.* 33:5), législateur, grand prêtre (*Ps.* 98:6; *Dt.* 33:4) et prophète (*Dt.* 34:10). C'est également comme «modèle de la vie parfaite» (*VM* I 1-2), «exemplaire de la beauté de la vertu» (*VM* II 319) que Grégoire de Nysse[7] présente Moïse. La «beauté» de Moïse, comme celle de l'Épouse du *Cantique* (*Ct.* 4:1) ou celle de la *Sagesse* (*Sg.* 8:2), est constituée par ses «vertus»: «ses labeurs sont les vertus» (*Sg.* 8:7). Moïse désire la «Beauté de Dieu» (*VM* 231)[8] et son désir est le moteur de son ascension vers Dieu.

Dès l'introduction (*VM*, Préface, 5), Grégoire marque sa différence avec les traités classiques sur la perfection: la perfection n'est pas un *état*, mais un *progrès* constant. Ceci est dû au caractère infini de Dieu qui ne peut être rejoint par l'homme que par un progrès également *infini*. Ce progrès, représenté par les images de l'ascension de la montagne, de la course de l'homme ou du cheval, du vol de l'aigle ou de la Colombe, a pourtant des *étapes*. Dans la *Vie de Moïse*, ces étapes correspondent aux trois grandes théophanies du buisson ardent,[9] de la nuée[10] et de l'entrée dans la Ténèbre[11] qui sont interprétées comme

chrétiens: *RSR* 29 (1955) 105-22, et Eric Junod, Moïse, exemple de la perfection, selon Grégoire de Nysse, in: *La figure de Moïse. Écriture et relectures*, Labor et fides (Genève, 1978), 81-97 et bibliographie, *ibid.* 98.

[5] Grégoire de Nysse, *Vie de Moïse*, II 174; SC 1ter, 221 et 225. La *Vie de Moïse* est toujours citée dans l'édition des Sources Chrétiennes.

[6] Voir David T. Runia, dans son étude sur *Philo in Early Christian Literature* (Leiden, 1993); Abraham Cornelis Geljon sur: *Moses as exemple: the Philonic Background of Gregory of Nyssa's Vita Moysis* (Leiden, 2000); *id.*, *Philonic Exegesis in Gregory of Nyssa's* De vita Moysis, Brown Judaic Studies 333; Studia Philonica monographs 5 (Providence, 2002).

[7] M. Canévet, art. Grégoire de Nysse (Paris, 1967), *DSp* 6, col. 971-1011; *Id.*, *Grégoire de Nysse et l'herméneutique biblique: Étude des rapports entre le langage et la connaissance de Dieu*, Études Augustiniennes (Paris, 1983).

[8] Voir aussi Grégoire de Nysse, *De Virginitate* X 2 et la note d'Aubineau, SC 119, 373, n. 5 et 375, n. 2.

[9] Selon la belle formule d'une homélie anoméenne du 4e siècle, Moïse «connut l'incroyable amitié du Buisson ardent» (1,15; SC 146, 74).

[10] G. Horn, Le 'miroir' et la 'nuée', deux manières de voir Dieu d'après saint Grégoire de Nysse: *RAM* 6 (1927) 113-31.

[11] H. Ch. Puech, La ténèbre chez le Pseudo-Denys l'Aréopagite et dans la tradition patristique: *Études Carmélitaines* 23 (1938) 33-53; repris dans *En quête de la Gnose* I (Paris, 1978), 119-41.

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les types des trois «voies» purgative, illuminative et unitive.[12] Dès le buisson ardent, Moïse connaît le Nom de Dieu, «*Celui qui est*» (ὁ ὤν), mais en gravissant le Sinaï, après s'être purifié, il progresse continuellement vers la connaissance ineffable de Dieu, dans le désir ardent de la beauté essentielle, jusqu'au tabernacle non fait de main d'homme, figure du Christ.[13]

Le moment le plus important est l'ascension de la montagne de la *théognôsie*[14] (ὄρος τῆς θεογνωσίας) et l'entrée dans la ténèbre (*Ex.* 20:21) (*VM* I 42-55; II 152-201).[15]

D'une part, l'ascension de la montagne est une «mystagogie» où Moïse est «initié» aux mystères du sacerdoce. Car Moïse est présenté comme «mystagogue» aussi bien par Philon (*Mos.* I 47-8; II 71) que par Grégoire (*VM* I 42). L'épisode historique, que Grégoire décrit comme «l'initiation de la montagne» (ἡ κατὰ τὸ ὄρος μυσταγωγία)[16], va aussitôt être interprété de la vie mystique de l'âme dont la Bien-Aimée du *Cantique des Cantiques* est la figure. Ceci nous montre le caractère «exemplaire» de la vie de Moïse qui est tout de suite appliquée à l'âme: l'Esprit Saint après avoir purifié le cœur par le *Cantique des Cantiques*, «introduit (μυσταγωγεῖ) l'âme dans les sanctuaires divins (τῶν θείων ἀδύτων)».[17] Ainsi l'entrée dans la vie mystique est la «mystagogie» par excellence, comme Grégoire le dit dans les *Homélies sur l'Ecclésiaste* (PG 44, 680B), et l'Esprit Saint est le grand mystagogue.

D'autre part, la montagne elle-même se nomme la «montagne de la *théognôsie*»[18] (τῆς θεογνωσίας ὄρος) (*VM* 152; 372D) ou de la «théologie»: «C'est une montagne abrupte et escarpée (δυσπρόσιτον) que la connaissance de Dieu (θεολογία)» (*VM* 158, 376A).

Moïse entrant dans la Ténèbre est dit «pénétrer dans le sanctuaire caché de la connaissance mystique (εἰς τὸ ἀόρατον τῆς θεογνωσίας ἄδυτον παραδύεται)» (*VM* 167, 377C). Nous retrouvons dans le *Cantique* l'expression «la montagne de la connaissance mystique» (773A).[19]

Le troisième degré, la Ténèbre,[20] est l'expérience mystique qui dépasse la connaissance intellectuelle sans atteindre l'οὐσία divine. L'âme ne voit pas Dieu

[12] *Cf.* Jean Daniélou, *Platonisme et théologie mystique: Doctrine spirituelle de saint Grégoire de Nysse*, Théologie 2 (Paris, 1944), et W. Völker, Die Mystik Gregors von Nyssa in ihren geschichtliche Zusammenhängen: *Theologische Zeitschrift* 9 (1953) 338-54; *id.*, *Gregor von Nyssa als Mystiker* (Wiesbaden, 1955).

[13] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant.*, *Hom.* XI (PG 44, 1000D-1001A); GNO VI 322, 9,13-323,7.

[14] Sur θεογνωσία, voir J. Daniélou, *Platonisme et théologie mystique* (1944), 189-90.

[15] *Cf.* A.C. Geljon, *Moses as exemple* (2000), 105-17.

[16] Grégoire de Nysse, *De Oratione dominica* (PG 44, 1136D); GNO VII/2, 20, l. 3.

[17] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant.*, *Or.* I (PG 44, 772A); GNO VI 22, l. 14-7.

[18] Daniélou traduit θεογνωσία par «connaissance mystique», ce qui peut s'expliquer parce que le terme γνῶσις était employé par les Anciens dans un sens proche de la notion moderne d'expérience.

[19] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant. Or.* I (PG 44, 773A); GNO VI 26, l. 2.

[20] Abraham Cornelis Geljon a bien montré l'influence de Philon sur la conception de Grégoire de la ténèbre (A.C. Geljon, *Moses as exemple*, 2000, 107).

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dans la Ténèbre, mais dans le miroir de l'âme, c'est-à-dire dans l'image. Grégoire appellera cette connaissance θεολογία (*VM* II 158, 376A) ou θεογνωσία (*VM* II 152, 372D).

Grégoire distingue deux moments dans cette «marche en avant» (*VM* II 163): d'abord, un abandon des perceptions sensibles et des connaissances intelligibles et, ensuite, une «tension vers l'intérieur» et une pénétration[21] dans «l'invisible et l'inconnaissable». Tension, pénétration, ces deux mots connotent l'épectase (*Ph.* 3:13) et la ténèbre (*Ex.* 20:21).

Au sein de cette ténèbre, Moïse «voit Dieu»; mais cette vision est définie d'une manière paradoxale comme un «ne pas voir» et Grégoire, définit la Ténèbre par un autre oxymoron comme «Ténèbre lumineuse» (λαμπρὸς γνόφος). Cette expression correspond exactement à la Ténèbre qui séparait le camp des Hébreux et le camp des Égyptiens, au bord de la Mer Rouge: pour les uns, elle était lumière, pour les autres, ténèbre (*Ex.* 14:20). Cette séparation est, pour Grégoire, l'incompréhensibilité (ἀκαταληψία) même de Dieu. C'est la ténèbre dans laquelle Moïse et Jean le mystique ont pénétré, comme ce dernier le laisse entendre lorsqu'il dit: «*Personne n'a jamais vu Dieu*» (*Jn.* 1:18). Le Prologue de *l'Évangile de Jean* est autant que l'*Exode* le modèle de toute théologie négative.

Mais la course de Moïse ne s'arrête pas à l'entrée dans la ténèbre, elle s'enfonce dans «le tabernacle non fait de main d'homme» qu'il a contemplé sur la montagne comme un «archétype» (*VM* II 170): «Passant de sommet en sommet dans son ascension vers les choses d'en-haut, il s'élève toujours plus au-dessus de lui-même» (*VM* II 167). Le mouvement de l'épectase[22], dans la *Vie de Moïse*, est le mouvement des ascensions infinies, «de sommet en sommet», de la «base de la montagne» vers les «hauteurs», de la ténèbre où Moïse «a *pénétré* dans le sanctuaire caché et invisible de la connaissance de Dieu (Ἐπὶ τούτοις εἰς τὸ ἀόρατον τῆς θεογνωσίας ἄδυτον παραδύεται)», au tabernacle «*qui n'est pas fait de main d'homme*» (*He.* 9:11). Ce mouvement d'ascension s'accompagne d'un mouvement de dépassement de soi, car c'est Moïse lui-même qui «s'élève par de telles ascensions». Il devient «plus grand que lui-même (μείζων ἑαυτοῦ καταστάς) par l'acquisition des doctrines mystiques» lorsque «émergeant de la ténèbre», il descend de la montagne (*VM* I 56) et «devenant toujours plus grand que lui-même, il n'arrête nulle part son ascension» (*VM* II 227). C'est alors que Grégoire associe l'ascension du Sinaï à l'échelle de Jacob: Moïse, «ayant mis le pied à l'échelle, ne cesse de monter à l'échelon supérieur» (*VM* II 227).

[21] Le verbe «pénétrer», δύειν, d'*Exode* 20:21, et ses composés παραδύεσθαι (377D), προσδύεσθαι (401C), διαδύεσθαι (377A), εἰσδύεσθαι (1036A), caractérisent la pénétration dans l'impénétrable. «Tous ces mots ici désignent techniquement la vie mystique», dit Jean Daniélou (J. Daniélou, *Platonisme et théologie mystique*, 1944, 188).

[22] *Cf.* Jean Daniélou, art. Contemplation: *DSp* 2,2 (Paris, 1953), col. 1872-85 et Pl. Deseille, art. Épectase: *DSp* 4,1 (Paris, 1960), col. 785-8.

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L'expérience qui correspond à l'épectase est l'infinité du désir (ἐπιθυμία):

Si par ailleurs les êtres qui connaissent le Beau en soi aspirent à y participer, dès lors que celui-ci est infini, nécessairement le désir de celui qui cherche à y participer sera coextensif à l'infini et ne connaîtra pas de repos (*VM Préface* 7).

L'objet du désir est le Beau en soi, selon le *Banquet* (218e), c'est pourquoi ce que vise l'infinité du désir, le but de l'épectase, de l'aspiration ou de l'ascension, c'est le Beau qui est infini. Ce n'est pas par la voie de la connaissance que l'homme s'élève vers Dieu, mais par la voie du désir. Désir (ἐπιθυμία ou πόθος) du Beau, «élan» (ὁρμή) vers le Bien, tels sont les deux termes pour dire l'expérience de l'âme:

L'âme s'élève toujours davantage au-dessus d'elle-même, «*tendue*» par le désir des choses célestes «*vers ce qui est en avant*», comme dit l'Apôtre (*Ph.* 3:13) et son vol la mènera toujours plus haut. Le désir ... lui communique un mouvement ascensionnel qui n'a pas de cesse, où elle trouve toujours dans ce qu'elle a réalisé, un nouvel élan pour voler plus haut (*VM* II 225).

L'image platonicienne du vol de l'âme (*Phèdre* 246b) rejoint l'image biblique de l'ascension de la montagne ou de l'échelle.

En réponse au «*désir*»[23] formulé par l'homme de voir Dieu, la «Voix d'en-haut» le «conduit au *désespoir* lorsqu'elle lui explique que ce qu'il recherche excède la capacité de la nature humaine» (*VM* II 220), mais «elle accorde ce qui est demandé par le fait même qu'elle le refuse, offrant en peu de mots un abîme immense de pensée. En effet, la munificence de Dieu lui accorde *l'accomplissement de son désir*; mais en même temps, elle ne lui promet pas le repos ou la satiété» (*VM* II 232-3). L'analyse du désir de Dieu se dit en «peu de mots»: désir de l'Illimité qui transgresse la limite et conduit au «désespoir», «accomplissement du désir» qui n'est pas «satiété» (κόρος) du désir, mais transformation du désir en désir illimité. La figure de Moïse qui «désire voir Dieu» est bien l'exemple de l'âme qui «brûle» du même «désir ardent» (σφριγᾶς τῆς ἐπιθυμίας) (*VM* II, 230,2) et est «animée d'une disposition amoureuse (τὸ παθεῖν ἐρωτικῆς) à l'égard de la beauté essentielle» (*VM* II 231).

2) *Paul*

Grégoire de Nysse utilise également l'Apôtre Paul[24] comme figure exemplaire[25] de l'expérience mystique. Paul est «hors de sens» (2*Co.* 5:13), il a été élevé au troisième ciel, au paradis et a entendu des paroles ineffables (2*Co.* 12:2). Ce sont

[23] Le terme ἐπιθυμία indique, dans la *Vie de Moïse*, le désir de «liberté» (II 56,3), le désir insatiable du plaisir que le «vide» des «briques» suggère (61,2), l'instinct de thésaurisation (143,5), etc. C'est dans la section sur l'épectase que son emploi devient répétitif.

[24] L. Ladaria, art. Paul chez les Pères de l'Église: *DSp* 12 (Paris, 1984), col. 513-22.

[25] A.C. Geljon, *Moses as exemple* (2000), 146.

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ces deux versets qui vont retenir l'attention de Grégoire dans son interprétation de l'extase de Paul.

1. Paul est un extatique:
«*Si nous sommes hors de sens c'est pour Dieu* (εἴτε γὰρ ἐξέστημεν, θεῷ); *si nous sommes de sens rassis, c'est pour vous*» (2*Co.* 5:13).

Le texte de 2*Co.* 12:4 est le texte le plus explicite sur l'extase, mais ce n'est pas celui que Grégoire cite car le terme «extase» ne s'y trouve pas, alors que 2*Co.* 5:13 emploie le verbe ἐξίσταμαι. Il se rapporte à l'opposition entre une «folie sensée» (μανία σώφρων) et la μανία dont l'accuse Festus. L'extatique Benjamin[26] est une figure de l'extatique Paul:

L'Ancien Testament désigne par avance par des figures et des symboles les caractères de la race des disciples. Parmi eux se trouve en particulier «*le jeune Benjamin en extase* (δι' ἐκστάσεως)», instruit des mystères (μυστήρια), qui n'est autre que Paul, le divin Apôtre «*de la semence d'Abraham, de la tribu de Benjamin*».[27]

Grégoire parle de «Benjamin instruit des *mystères* dans l'extase» (PG 44, 577B), de Paul «à qui Dieu a révélé les *mystères du paradis*» (*VM* 178 384A), ou de David qui «parcourait les *mystères* célestes» (τὰ οὐράνια διεξῄει μυστήρια) (*C.E.*, L. VII; PG 44, 744C), trois figures d'extatiques qui ont été instruits des mystères divins. Τὰ μυστήρια sont en rapport avec les plus hauts degrés de la vie spirituelle: l'«extase» de Benjamin, le «rapt» de Paul au paradis, le «voyage au ciel» de David, «disposant les ascensions dans son cœur».[28] Les «mystères» désignent l'objet de la connaissance mystique.

2. La vision du Paradis et du 3e ciel (2*Co.* 12:2-4)
Les μυστήρια sont en rapport avec le troisième ciel et le Paradis. Grégoire met en relation 2*Co.* 12:2-4, où le terme μυστήριον ne se trouve pas, avec 1*Co.* 2:7: «*parler de la sagesse en mystère*». Grégoire mentionne 2*Co.* 12:4 dans la *Vie de Moïse*, les *Homélies sur le Cantique des Cantiques*, le *Commentaire sur l'Hexaemeron* et l'*Homélie sur la IVe Béatitude.*

a) Vie de Moïse
Nous avons vu que Grégoire, part «d'une indication de Paul qui a partiellement dévoilé le *mystère* contenu de ces choses», à savoir que «Moïse a été instruit en figure à l'avance du Mystère du Tabernacle qui contient le Tout: c'est le Christ» (*VM* 174). Or Paul «lui aussi sans doute a eu la vision (ἡ ὀπτασία) de ce tabernacle, quand il était entré dans les sanctuaires cachés supracélestes (ἐν τοῖς ὑπερουρανίοις ἀδύτοις) où *les mystères du Paradis lui furent révélés par*

[26] «*Ibi Benjamin adolescentulus, in mentis excessu* (ἐκστάσει)» (*Ps.* 67:28).
[27] Grégoire de Nysse, *In Psalmos, Tractatus secundus*, ch. 14 (PG 44, 577B); GNO V 148, l. 1-4.
[28] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant. Or.* VIII (PG 44, 941A-C); GNO VI 246, l. 13-4.

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l'Esprit» (*VM* 178, 384 A). Donc il a compris le mystère du Christ «dans les sanctuaires (ἄδυτα) célestes où il fut initié par la Vérité à la mystagogie secrète (τῆς ἀρρητῶς μυσταγωγίας)» (PG 46, 793B-D).[29] La vision de Paul est donc aussi une «mystagogie», une initiation au mystère qui est le mystère du Christ.

b) Les Homélies sur le Cantique des Cantiques

«*Car ma tête est couverte de rosée, mes boucles des gouttes de la nuit*» (*Ct.* 5:2)

Ainsi *Paul* fut un fleuve que les flots de ses pensées ont emporté au-dessus du ciel, jusqu'au *troisième ciel* (2*Co.* 12:2-4), jusqu'au *paradis*, jusqu'aux *paroles* que l'on ne peut ni prononcer, ni articuler; coulant comme un flot à travers toute cette abondance, il montre à son tour par ses propos que ce qu'il dit n'est qu'une «*goutte de rosée*» en comparaison du Verbe véritable; ainsi déclare-t-il: «*Nous ne connaissons qu'en partie, nous ne prophétisons qu'en partie*» (1*Co.* 13:9).[30]

Le commentaire de Grégoire sur les «*gouttes de la nuit*» qui sont sur les «*boucles*» du Bien-Aimé fait ressortir, d'une manière rhétorique, l'opposition entre le «fleuve» qu'est Paul et les «flots de ses pensées», et la petitesse des «gouttes de rosée». Mais le «fleuve» des pensées de Paul n'est qu'une «goutte de rosée» devant le Verbe. [31]

c) Le Commentaire sur l'Hexaemeron

Dans l'*Apologia in Hexaemeron liber*, Grégoire décrit trois cieux: le premier où règnent le vent et les nuages, le second, celui des étoiles, qui est au sommet du monde sensible et à la limite du monde intelligible (μεθόριον νοητῆς κτίσεως); puis il continue:

«*Je connais* enfin *un homme*» qui, ayant traversé toute la nature sensible et étant dans les arcanes (ἄδυτα) de la nature intelligible, l'a désignée dans ses écrits en l'appelant «*le troisième ciel*» la plus élevée des trois divisions que présente l'univers. Il a dépassé l'air, il a traversé le mouvement circulaire des astres qui est au milieu et franchi la frontière qui est au sommet de l'éther.[32] Étant parvenu alors à la nature stable et intelligible, il a vu les splendeurs du *paradis* et *entendu* ce que la nature humaine ne dit pas (*Hexaemeron*, PG 44, 121C, l. 9 – D, l. 3).

Ce texte nous expose la cosmologie de Grégoire, qui distingue trois cieux: l'air, l'éther qui est la sphère des astres (ces deux cieux constituent ensemble le ciel sensible (αἰσθητόν)), et, au-delà, le troisième ciel qui est le ciel intelligible (νοητός). Grégoire l'identifie avec le «*troisième ciel*» de Paul. Ainsi la vision platonicienne du monde sensible et du monde intelligible est rapprochée de la

[29] Grégoire de Nysse, *In laudem Fratris Basilii* (GNO X/1, 113, 20).

[30] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant., Hom.* XI (GNO VI 326,9-18).

[31] *Cf. Cant., Hom.* VIII (PG 44, 940D-941A; GNO VI 245,11-246,5).

[32] *Cf.* M. Cassin, La nature de l'air chez Grégoire de Nysse, in: *La cultura scientifico-naturalistica nei Padri della Chiesa (I-IV sec.) XXXV Incontro di Studiosi dell'Antichità cristiana (4-6 maggio 2006)*, Instituto Patristicum Augustinianum (Roma, 2007), 163-77.

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vision biblique des trois cieux. Le monde intelligible est identifié avec les ἄδυτα où seule la foi pénètre. L'ascension mystique est présentée comme la traversée de tous les cieux.[33]

d) Homélie sur la IV[e] Béatitude:

Celui qui a réellement «*goûté Dieu*», comme dit le *Psaume* (33:9), c'est-à-dire celui qui a reçu Dieu en lui, est rempli de ce dont il avait faim et soif, selon la promesse de celui qui a dit: «*Moi et mon Père nous viendrons et nous ferons en lui notre demeure*» (*Jn.* 14:23), le Saint-Esprit, bien entendu, y ayant fait auparavant sa demeure. Ainsi *Paul, le Grand Apôtre, qui avait goûté aux fruits réservés du Paradis*, me semble être rassasié de ce qu'il avait goûté et en avoir toujours soif. Il reconnaît d'une part que son désir est rassasié, lorsqu'il dit: «*Le Christ vit en moi*» (*Ph.* 1:21); et il est toujours «tendu (ἐπεκτείνεται) vers ce qui est en avant», lorsqu'il déclare: «*Ce n'est pas que j'aie encore saisi ce que je cherche ni que je sois parfait*» (*Ph.* 3:13).[34]

L'expérience de Paul au paradis relève du sens spirituel du «goût» (γεῦσις) car il a «goûté aux fruits réservés du Paradis». Pourquoi «réservés»? Ces fruits sont-ils les «mystères» du Christ dont il est rassasié et a toujours soif?

Nous retrouvons le thème de l'épectase et celui de la satiété (κόρος): l'âme rassasiée a toujours faim. Elle est «rassasiée» parce que le «Christ vit» en elle, mais la présence même du Christ en elle lui fait désirer de goûter davantage la connaissance sapientielle du Christ.

II. Denys l'Aréopagite

1) *Moïse*

Dans la *Théologie mystique*, l'ascension gnoséologique est interprétée dans les termes de *l'Exode*, c'est pourquoi Moïse est proposé comme modèle de l'initiation mystique, des «mystagogies divines» (*MT* 1000A).

Les étapes de l'ascension de Moïse marquent les étapes de l'ascension spirituelle de l'intellect. L'ascension (ἀνάβασις) du Sinaï symbolise l'élévation (ἀναγωγή) de l'intellect à travers les différentes «purifications» ou «négations» qui sont les dépassements des différents modes de connaissance. Il y a un triple dépassement, dans l'ordre gnoséologique, de «la saisie intellectuelle» (ἐπίνοια), de «l'appréhension cognoscitive» (ἀντιλήψις) et enfin, d'une manière globale, de la connaissance (γνῶσις) (*MT* 1000 C-D).

Au terme de cette ascension, Moïse parvient au sommet, le «*lieu où Dieu se tient*», qui est identifié aux «raisons hypothétiques» (*MT* I 3; 1000D-1001A). Le fait qu'il y ait un «sommet» (ἀκρότης) de la montagne montre que l'ascension

[33] *Cf.* J. Daniélou, *Platonisme et théologie mystique* (1944), 156-7.
[34] *Beat., Or.* IV (PG 44, 1245D-1248B; GNO VII/2, 122,20-123,3).

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spirituelle ne peut aller plus loin et que Dieu est totalement transcendant au sensible et à l'intelligible.

Pour Grégoire, le «sommet» est le sol même de la course et ce «*lieu*» «ne désigne pas un espace quantitativement déterminé, car on ne peut mesurer ce qui n'est pas d'ordre quantitatif, mais, par l'analogie d'une surface mesurable, il suggère au lecteur une réalité infinie et illimitée (τὸ ἄπειρόν τε καὶ ἀόριστον)» (*VM* 241-2). Ce lieu est «stable» comme le roc et le «Roc», ici, «c'est le Christ» (1*Co.* 10:5). Pour Denys, le «sommet» est le monde intelligible qui couronne le monde sensible. Cependant les «paradigmes divins» ne sont encore qu'une étape dans cette montée vers l'Au-delà de tout, comme le lieu «où Dieu se tient» n'est pas Dieu, séparé de ce marchepied de toute la hauteur de sa transcendance, il y a encore un pas à faire: il faut rentrer dans la Ténèbre.

Et alors (Moïse) se *libère* même des êtres visibles et voyants et il *pénètre* dans la Ténèbre réellement mystique de l'inconnaissance (εἰς τὸν γνόφον τῆς ἀγνωσίας εἰσδύνει τὸν ὄντως μυστικόν), dans laquelle il fait *taire* toutes les appréhensions cognoscitives et *se trouve* en ce qui est totalement impalpable et invisible, *appartenant tout entier à Celui qui est au-delà de tout* (πᾶς ὢν τοῦ πάντων ἐπέκεινα), et à nul autre, ni à lui-même, ni à un autre, mais *uni* (ἑνούμενος), selon un mode supérieur, à Celui qui est complètement inconnaissable par la suspension de toute connaissance et, par le fait qu'il ne connaît rien, *connaissant* au-delà de l'intellect (*MT* I; 1001A).

L'entrée dans la ténèbre est caractérisée par un redoublement de la négation qui n'est plus seulement négation de ce qui et vu ou connu, mais suspension (ἀνενεργησία) du voir et du connaître. Ainsi, dans la prière qui ouvre la *Théologie mystique* (MT 997B), Denys demande à la Trinité de nous conduire «là où les mystères simples, absolus et immuables de la théologie ont été ensevelis dans la Ténèbre plus que lumineuse du silence, faisant surétinceler, dans l'obscurité la plus profonde, la lumière la plus éclatante et, dans ce qui est complètement impalpable et invisible, emplissant outre mesure de splendeurs de toute beauté les intellects aux yeux clos» (*MT* 997 B). Ἀνομμάτος, celui qui a les «yeux clos» ou qui est «sans yeux»: ce terme que Denys a emprunté à Plotin et Proclus, qualifie, chez les Grecs l'*éros* qui est aveugle.[35]

Chez Grégoire, il n'y a pas de modification de la connaissance ou de la vision du sujet connaissant ou voyant. Certes Moïse est devenu «de plus en plus grand» (μείζω γινόμενον) (*VM* II 227), à mesure qu'il s'élève «au-dessus de lui-même» (ὑψηλότερος) (*VM* II 167) et il y a une intériorisation de l'épectase, mais Moïse ne devient pas aveugle en entrant dans la ténèbre. Dans la *Théologie mystique*, le sujet connaissant, que nous nommerons l'intellect-Moïse, devient «aveugle». La montée de la théologie négative se double de ce que les mystiques postérieurs appelleront la «ligature des sens».

[35] Panofsky a écrit une très belle étude sur l'*éros* aveugle: E. Panofsky, Blind Cupid: *Studies in Iconology* (1939), ch. 4, 126ss.

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L'«expérience» propre à cette ascension mystique c'est que l'intellect ne s'unit à Celui qui et au-delà de tout que lorsqu'il est privé de tout.

Car c'est par une extase purement déliée et détachée de tout et de toi-même (τῆς γὰρ ἑαυτοῦ καὶ πάντων ἀσχέτως καὶ ἀπολύτως καθαρῶς ἐκστάσει), que tu seras soulevé vers le rayon suressentiel de la Ténèbre divine, après avoir tout écarté[36] et t'être détaché de tout (πάντα ἀφελὼν καὶ ἐκ πάντων ἀπολυθείς) (*MT* 1000A).

Il y a donc trois moments dans l'ascension de Moïse chez Denys: le détachement des choses, le dépouillement de soi, et enfin la sortie ou l'extase: «de toi-même et de tout» (ἑαυτοῦ καὶ πάντων). Cette «sortie de soi» est à la fois «extase» et «folie», être «hors de soi» et «hors de sens». Cette extase, comme don de soi dans l'appartenance à un autre et arrachement à soi par cet autre, est provoquée par *l'éros*.

C'est ici que le modèle de Paul apparaît dans toute sa force.

2) *Paul*

Le «divin Paul»[37] ou le «grand Paul» (*DN* 713A) est nommé sept fois dans le *Corpus Dionysiacum*. Il est le maître de Hiérothée[38] (*DN* 681A) et l'adversaire du Mage Elymas (*DN* 893B). Il fait connaître la «vraie philosophie», c'est-à-dire la «*Sagesse de Dieu*» (1*Co.* 2:7) (*EP* 7,1080B), en tant que, selon *Rm.* 1:20, il manifeste «*les choses invisibles à travers les visibles*» (*EP* 9,2; 1108B) et il est «théologien» (*DN* 893B), en tant que, ayant connu les «mystères divins», il distribue «*la nourriture vraiment solide*» (*He.* 5:14) aux croyants (*EP* 9,4; 1112A).

Mais c'est surtout comme modèle de l'éros extatique qu'il est mentionné au chapitre IV des *Noms divins* à propos de «l'amour divin» (θεῖος ἔρως) qui est «extatique».[39] L'extase n'est pas un ravissement passager ni un transport affectif, mais l'exigence et l'on pourrait dire la loi constitutive de l'amour divin qui ne laisse pas «les amants s'appartenir à eux-mêmes, mais à ceux qu'ils aiment». La «preuve» de la force extatique de l'amour, c'est qu'il pousse les êtres à sortir d'eux-mêmes pour être la providence (πρόνοια) des inférieurs, la cohésion (συνοχή) des égaux entre eux et la conversion (ἐπιστροφή) des inférieurs envers les supérieurs.

C'est alors que Denys prend Paul comme «exemple».

[36] L'expression πάντα ἀφελών de la *Théologie mystique* renvoie à l'injonction de Plotin à celui qui veut être philosophe: ἄφελε πάντα, abandonne tout.

[37] *DN* 681A, 893B; *EP* 5, 1073A; *EP* 7, 1080B; *EP* 9, 1112A.

[38] Sur Hiérothée et Saint Paul, voir *DN* 681A; 712A; 865B; *EP* 5, 1073A; 7, 1080B; 9, 1108B; 1112A; H. Koch, *Pseudo-Dionysius Areopagita in seinen Beziehungen zum Neuplatonismus und Mysterienwesen* (Mainz, 1900), 51.

[39] ἐκστατικός: Le scholiaste cite *Ps.* 115:11 et C. Pera, 2*Co.* 5:13. Sur l'extase, voir *DN* 684C; 693A; 708B; 713A; *CH* 120B; 121B; *MT* 1000A; Proclus, *In Alc.* 63,12ss; Maxime, *Amb.* 1249B.

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C'est pourquoi *le grand Paul*,[40] possédé par l'amour divin et ayant reçu part à sa puissance extatique, dit de sa bouche inspirée: *«Je vis, mais non plus moi, c'est le Christ qui vit en moi»* (*Ga.* 2:20); en «véritable amant» *sorti de lui*, comme il le dit lui-même (2*Co.* 5:13), pour Dieu, vivant non plus sa propre vie (2*Co.* 5:15), mais celle de *Celui* qu'il aime, comme très aimée[41] (*DN* IV; 712A).

L'extase a une référence christologique chez Denys, ce que l'on n'a pas assez noté, et le divin *éros* n'est pas absent – contrairement à ceux qui disent qu'il n'y a pas de place pour l'amour dans la *Théologie mystique* – de l'extase de Moïse qui, *«appartenant tout entier à Celui qui est au-delà de tout*, et à nul autre, ni à lui-même, ni à un autre», est *«uni*, selon un mode supérieur, à Celui qui est complètement inconnaissable» (*MT* I; 1000A).

Paul est appelé le «véritable amant» parce qu'il ne s'appartient plus et qu'il est possédé par le Christ. L'opposition sous-entendue ici est celle de Paul et de Socrate qui est également nommé «véritable amant» dans le *Commentaire sur le Premier Alcibiade* de Proclus.[42] Seulement la direction de l'amour a changé, ici, ce n'est pas le maître, mais le disciple qui est appelé «véritable amant». Toutefois, dans cette extase où il sort de lui-même, Paul est «possédé» par *l'éros* divin qui ne le laisse pas s'appartenir à lui-même, et il n'y a pas, chez Denys, d'extase ou de «sortie de soi» sans possession par un autre: c'est cela l'union avec Dieu, terme de l'ascension de Moïse et de la Sagesse-Folie de Paul, sensé et «hors de sens».

Cette loi de l'Amour divin de ne plus s'appartenir à soi-même, mais de sortir de soi par amour, est celle de Dieu lui-même (*DN* IV; 712B). La Cause de tout, par l'amour de tous les êtres, *«sort»* d'elle-même par ses providences, et Dieu «de *séparé* qu'il était se laisse entraîner» ou «se laisse séduire». Ce qui est en question, c'est le mouvement de procession (προόδος) de la Cause de tout qui demeure en elle (μονή), car Dieu «sort de lui-même sans se séparer de lui-même».

Cette extase de l'éros divin, Denys l'appelle «jalousie». Dieu est un *«Dieu jaloux»* (Dt 5,9)[43], car la puissance extatique de l'amour, qui met hors d'eux-mêmes les amants, les empêche de s'appartenir à eux-mêmes: en ce sens, la jalousie est l'envers de l'extase (cf. *DN* IV, 712 B).

Conclusion: Moïse et Paul, modèles de l'expérience mystique

L'expérience mystique se présente comme une «mystagogie» ou une «initiation mystique» dont les grandes figures bibliques, Moïse et Paul, tracent la voie et

[40] Παῦλος: *DN* 649D. Le participe parfait ἐξεστηκώς caractérise Paul (*cf.* 2*Co.* 5:13: ἐξέστημεν) qui est «sorti de lui» et «ne vit plus sa propre vie» (2*Co.* 5:15), mais celle de Celui qu'il aime. L'extase de Paul, c'est de vivre la vie du Christ.

[41] *Cf. DN* 681D; *MT* 1000A; Platon, *Phdr.* 249d; Proclus, *In Ti.* I 212, 21.

[42] Proclus, dans son *Commentaire sur le Premier Alcibiade*, appelle Socrate «l'amant véritable» (ὁ τῷ ὄντι ἐραστής) (*In Alc.* 49,16), Les Belles Lettres, Paris, 1995, t. I, p. 41.

[43] *Ex.* 20:5; 34:14; *Dt.* 5:9; 6:15; *Na.* 1:2.

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légitiment la justesse. Mais l'interprétation ou la contemplation (θεωρία) des grands moments du récit (ἱστορία) dépend non seulement d'une exégèse spirituelle mais aussi d'une philosophie sous-jacente. Je voudrais reprendre les grands thèmes évoqués de l'ascension de Moïse et de l'épectase, de la ténèbre et de l'extase, et montrer qu'ils supposent une conception de la théologie négative qui détermine la théologie mystique aussi bien de Grégoire que de Denys l'Aréopagite.

1) *Théologie négative et théologie mystique*

1. ἀπόφασις et ἀφαίρεσις

Ma première remarque concerne la théologie négative.

Grégoire de Nysse accumule les «paradoxes» et les «oxymorons»: «sommeil vigilant» (ὕπνος γρηγορῶν), «sobre ivresse» (νεφάλιος μέθη), «stabilité mobile» ou «mouvement stable», «ténèbre lumineuse» (λαμπρὸς γνόφος): l'affirmation (κατάφασις) et la négation (ἀπόφασις) coïncident. C'est ce que Nicolas de Cuse appellera la «*coincidentia oppositorum*». Alors que, chez Denys, la négation n'est pas seulement l'ἀπόφασις qui s'oppose à la κατάφασις, mais la négation de la négation, l'ἀφαίρεσις, qui est un dépassement de l'affirmation et de la négation. C'est pourquoi la *Théologie mystique* s'achève par une accumulation de négations qui qualifient «l'Au-delà de tout» (*MT* 1048A-B). De la transcendance divine (ἡ ὑπεροχή) «il n'y a absolument à son sujet ni affirmation, ni négation», elle est «au-delà de toute affirmation et au-delà de toute négation». L'absolu de la transcendance est exprimé par la radicalité de la négation. Mais la négation (ἀφαίρεσις) comme négation transcendante (*Aufhebung*), amorce la troisième voie, celle de l'éminence, qui s'exprime par tous les termes (substantifs ou adjectifs) en «*hyper*».

Ceci a deux conséquences pour la notion d'infini et pour celle de «ténèbre».

2. Fini et Infini

Je ne vais pas revenir sur la thèse de Mühlenberg[44] sur «l'infinité de Dieu chez Grégoire de Nysse», qui nie la possibilité même d'une expérience mystique, mais je voudrais me référer à l'article de Salvatore Lilla[45] sur l'infini chez Denys l'Aréopagite.

Denys, dans les *Noms divins*, présente Dieu tantôt comme supérieur à l'ἀπειρία ἄπειρον, tantôt comme identifié à l'infini. C'est le cas de tous les noms divins qui sont compris à la fois selon la première et selon la seconde hypothèse

[44] E. Mühlenberg, *Die Unendlichkeit Gottes bei Gregor von Nyssa* (Göttingen, 1966). Cf. Ch. Kannengiesser, L'infinité divine chez Grégoire de Nysse: *RSR* 55 (1967) 55-65; M. Canévet, Grégoire de Nysse (saint) (1967), col. 999-1001; A.C. Geljon, *Moses as exemple* (2000), 152-73.

[45] S. Lilla, L'idea di infinito nello Pseudo Dionigi l'Areopagita, in: *Dionigi l'Areopagita e il platonismo cristiano*, Letteratura cristiana antica Morcelliana (Brescia, 2005), 187-97.

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du *Parménide*. Le premier Principe ou la «Cause suressentielle» est au-delà de tout, de la limite (πέρας) et de l'illimité (ἄπειρον): Dieu «surpasse toute infinité» (*DN* IX 2; 909C et XIII 1; 977B) et «l'Un, cause de tous les êtres, est antérieur ... à la limite et à l'infinité» (*DN* XIII 3; 980C). Enfin la Cause «embrasse tout d'une manière identique, selon son infinité plus que simplifiée (κατὰ τὴν ὑπερηπλωμένην αὐτῆς ἀπειρίαν)» (*DN* V 9; 825A).

La différence entre Grégoire et Denys est là: alors que, pour Grégoire, l'infini est l'attribut divin par excellence, pour Denys, «l'Au-delà qui est au-delà aussi bien de l'affirmation que de la négation», est également au-delà du fini comme de l'infini (cf. aussi *DN* V 10; 825B). L'idée d'un au-delà du fini et de l'infini est absente chez Grégoire, comme celle d'épectase est absente chez Denys.

3. *Ténèbre lumineuse et «Lumière inaccessible» (1*Tm. *6:16)*

Grégoire définit la «*ténèbre lumineuse*» (λαμπρὸς γνόφος) (*VM* 163) par un oxymoron, figure littéraire qui exprime une contradiction logique (qualifier une même réalité par des termes opposés), alors que Denys définit immédiatement la «*ténèbre plus que lumineuse du silence*» (*MT* 997B) par un superlatif qui exprime ce mouvement d'éminence de la troisième voie. Il en donne une justification scripturaire en définissant la ténèbre, dans la *Lettre* V (1073A), par l'expression paulinienne: «*lumière inaccessible*» (1*Tm.* 6:16). En tant qu'elle est «*inaccessible*», elle est ténèbre, mais c'est «l'excès même de sa clarté (qui) la rend invisible». L'«excès» (ὑπεροχή, *excessus*) de la clarté, le «débordement» (ὑπερβολή) des effusions lumineuses, sont des expressions superlatives qui indiquent le caractère d'éminence: la ténèbre n'est pas due à «l'incompréhensibilité» de Dieu par l'esprit humain, mais à la «science» divine qui le dépasse: l'accent est mis sur l'objet et non le sujet.

Cependant «la Ténèbre est invisible à la lumière» (τὸ σκότος ἀφανὲς γίνεται τῷ φωτί), affirme Denys dans la *Lettre* I, à Gaios, thérapeute. La lumière dont il s'agit alors est la lumière ontique (ὂν φῶς) qui cache la véritable lumière divine (*EP* 1; 1065A). La lumière est donc employée à la fois dans un sens «transcendant» (ὑπεροχικῶς), pour la lumière divine, et dans un sens «privatif» (κατὰ στέρησιν) (*EP* 1; 1065A) pour les lumières humaines.

2) *Amour et extase*

La définition de l'extase est relative à celle d'épectase, chez Grégoire, alors que, chez Denys, c'est le fait d'être «hors de soi».

1. Extase-Instase

Chez Grégoire, l'extase est à la fois une «entrée» et une «sortie», une «extase-instase», dit Jean Daniélou.[46] Commentant le verset du *Cantique*: «*Mon âme*

[46] J. Daniélou, *Platonisme et théologie mystique* (1944), 299.

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est sortie à ton appel» (ἡ ψυχή μοῦ ἐξῆλθεν ἐν λόγῳ αὐτοῦ) (*Ct.* 5:6), Grégoire dit à propos de Paul:

Ainsi *Paul* ne cessait de se *tendre* (ἐπεκτεινόμενος) vers ce qui était en avant et de *sortir* de l'état où il se trouvait pour *pénétrer* (εἰσδυόμενος) plus à l'intérieur (εἰς τὸ ἐνδότερον) dans celui où il n'était pas encore.[47]

La «sortie» de «ce en quoi nous sommes» est immédiatement «entrée» dans «les biens au-delà». Grégoire souligne la dimension «intérieure» (εἰς τὸ ἐνδότερον) du progrès spirituel. Paul a eu «la vision du tabernacle quand il était entré dans les sanctuaires cachés supercélestes (ἐν τοῖς ὑπερουρανίοις ἀδύτοις) où les mystères du Paradis lui furent révélés par l'Esprit» (*VM* 178; 381D). Moïse et Paul entrent dans les «sanctuaires intérieurs» et l'âme entre dans son «cœur».

Dans la 3e *homélie sur l'Oraison dominicale*, Grégoire fait une comparaison entre l'entrée du Grand Prêtre dans le Saint des Saints (ἄδυτα) (1148D-1149A) et le culte spirituel où nous entrons «dans la chambre sainte de nos cœurs» (τὸ κρυπτὸν ταμμεῖον).[48] Cette «chambre du cœur»[49] est aussi la «chambre nuptiale» de la Bien-Aimée, la «chambre nuptiale des divins mystères» (θεῖα μυστήριων τοῦ θείου θαλάμου).[50] Dans l'allégorie du Tabernacle (*VM* 188; PG 44, 388A), Grégoire accumule les termes négatifs pour dire l'inaccessibilité du sanctuaire du cœur: ἀνεπίβατον, ἄληπτον καὶ ἀπρόσιτον, ἐν ἀδύτοις καὶ ἀπορρήτοις, ἀπόρρητον. Le cœur est un domaine au-delà de la prise des sens ou de l'intelligence, où Dieu seul peut s'introduire et demeurer.

L'extase, selon Denys, est une sortie «de tout et de soi»: sortie «*de tout*»: ce n'est pas un «moment», une «partie», un «échelon», mais la sortie de la totalité de l'univers sensible et intelligible, la «totalité» de l'être, et la sortie «*de soi*»: il faut se quitter soi-même pour entrer en Dieu. Or cette extase est propre à l'*éros*. Denys le dit explicitement dans les *Noms divins*: «L'amant ne souffre pas que son aimé s'appartienne» (*DN* IV; 712A). La «sortie de soi» que l'on peut interpréter comme «folie», «être hors de sens», ou don de soi dans l'appartenance à un autre est aussi arrachement à soi par cet autre. L'*éros*, chez Denys, est la puissance unitive «qui unit les êtres les uns aux autres, les supérieurs aux inférieurs, selon la providence» et les inférieurs aux supérieurs, selon le désir, dans la hiérarchie des êtres spirituels.

L'homme, comme Moïse, «sort» de soi, entre dans la ténèbre et s'unit à Celui qui est au-delà de tout. Il y a bien une «pénétration» dans la ténèbre, mais non dans «l'intérieur de l'âme». Alors que, pour Grégoire, l'extase est «sortie» et

[47] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant., Hom.* XII (PG 44, 1024D; 1036A; GNO VI 353,16-354,1).

[48] Grégoire de Nysse, *De oratione dominica III* (PG 44, 1149D-1152A; GNO VII/2, 325,14-5).

[49] «La chambre, c'est le *cœur* qui devient capable de l'habitation divine lorsque l'homme revient à son premier état» (*Cant., hom.* VIII, PG 44, 941B; GNO VI 247,7).

[50] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant., Hom.* I (PG 44, 784C; GNO VI 39,1-5).

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«entrée» vers l'intérieur; pour Denys, elle est sortie de soi et entrée *dans un autre* et non entrée *en soi*.

2. L'union au Christ et l'union à Dieu

Grégoire, dans la *XVe homélie sur le Cantique*, pose l'équivalence entre les deux formules d'union: celle de la Bien-Aimée du *Cantique*: «*Je suis à mon Bien-Aimé et mon Bien-Aimé est à moi*» (*Ct.* 6:3), et celle de Paul: «*Pour moi, vivre, c'est le Christ*» (*Ph.* 1:21).[51] L'union au Christ est une union transformante: le Bien-Aimé, en se reflétant dans le miroir-image de l'âme, transforme cette image à son image.

Pour Denys l'Aréopagite, l'union au Christ est exprimée par la phrase de *Ga.* 4:20 «*Je vis, mais non plus moi, c'est le Christ qui vit en moi*», tandis que l'union à Dieu, dans les *Noms divins*, se fait «au-delà de l'intellect»[52] et il n'y en a ni connaissance ni expérience.

3) *Expérience mystique et théologie mystique*

La question posée, au début, sur la réalité d'une expérience mystique de l'auteur est devenue celle du langage dans lequel il l'exprime, à travers les grandes figures bibliques de Moïse et de Paul, choisies comme «exemples» par la tradition à cause de l'excellence et la singularité de leur expérience: Moïse a «vu» Dieu, Paul a été «ravi au troisième ciel» et a «entendu des paroles ineffables».

Qu'est ce qui est expérimenté? C'est un «sentiment de présence», selon Grégoire, un sentir des «sens spirituels» (n'oublions pas que la connaissance des «mystères du Paradis» relève, pour Grégoire, du «goût»), ou un «pâtir» les choses divines (*pati divina*), selon Denys.[53] Quant à Denys, la «ligature des sens» sensibles et «l'aveuglement» de l'esprit dans la «*Ténèbre mystique de l'inconnaissance*» (*MT* 997B) s'accompagne d'une ouverture des sens spirituels dans la liturgie qui est leur domaine propre.

Qui expérimente? Chez l'un et chez l'autre il y a une transformation de soi qui conduit à la divinisation: transformation de l'image-miroir dans la contemplation du Bien-Aimé, possession de l'intellect (νοῦς) par l'Esprit dans la contemplation des «mystères du Paradis» par Paul (*VM* 178) ou des «*cieux ouverts*» par Étienne,[54] possession de Paul par le Christ qui «*vit*» en lui (*Ga.* 2:20; *Ph.* 1:21).

[51] Grégoire de Nysse, *Cant., Hom.* XV (PG 44, 1096A; GNO VI 440,11-441,4).

[52] *Cf.* Y. de Andia, *Henosis. L'union à Dieu chez Denys l'Aréopagite*, coll. Philosophia antiqua (Leiden, 1996), IIe Partie, L'union au-delà de l'intellect, 211-98.

[53] *Cf.* Y. de Andia, Pâtir les choses divines, in: *Denys l'Aréopagite: Tradition et métamorphoses* (Paris, 2006), 17-35.

[54] *Cf. Sermon sur S. Étienne* (PG 46, 713B-C). *Cf.* J. Daniélou, *Platonisme et théologie mystique* (1944), 267. De même, dans le *Cantique des Cantiques*, l'âme «sortie d'elle-même» (ἐκβᾶσα ἑαυτήν) avait la contemplation des choses invisibles.

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Mais ces «expériences mystiques», exprimées d'une manière symbolique, sont dites dans une «théologie mystique» qui a des supposés philosophiques différents: la *Théologie mystique* de Denys s'inscrit dans les *Commentaires sur l'Exode* (Philon et Grégoire de Nysse), mais aussi dans les *Commentaires sur le Parménide* (<Porphyre> et Proclus) qui vont lui permettre de joindre le dicible à l'Indicible.

Même si l'on reconnaît à Grégoire de Nysse une plus grande «expérience mystique», c'est la «théologie mystique» de Denys, c'est-à-dire sa conception des trois voies, affirmative, négative et surtout d'éminence, qui sera retenue dans la postérité latine, plus que celle d'épectase. Et les mystiques postérieurs utiliseront sa *Théologie mystique* comme «épure» de leurs propres expériences et théologies mystiques.

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Holy Communion as 'Symbol' in Pseudo-Dionysius and Theophanes of Nicaea

Joost VAN ROSSUM, Paris

During the hesychast controversy a discussion was held on the term 'symbol'. The opponents of the hesychast monks cited texts of Maximus the Confessor, where he called the Light of the Transfiguration a 'symbol' of the divinity of Christ.[1] Barlaam, in his discussion with Gregory Palamas (1296-1359), used these texts as a prooftext for his statement that the Light which shone on Mount Tabor was only a 'phantom', and, therefore, neither real nor divine. Palamas, in his reply, explained that the term 'symbol' in Maximus does not mean in this context 'unreal'. The term 'symbol' means here a manifestation of the divine nature, just as warmth can be called a natural symbol of the nature of fire, that is, of its 'power' to burn.[2]

The discussion touched also upon the Eucharist. We do not know yet about the details of this controversy on the Eucharist, and if one may draw a parallel with the controversies on the Eucharist in the West in the ninth and eleventh centuries. But one finds a reflection of this discussion in a work by Theophanes, Metropolitan of Nicaea, entitled *Treatise on the Taboric Light*.[3] Theophanes belonged to the circle of the ex-emperor John Kantakouzenos, a close friend of Palamas and a man of letters and theologian, who after his abdication became a monk under the name of Joasaph. The date of birth of Theophanes is unknown, but it is certain that he became Metropolitan of Nicaea shortly after the election of Philotheos Kokkinos to the Patriarchal see of Constantinople on 8 October 1364. His close relationship with Kantakouzenos and his admiration for Kokkinos shows that he was a defender of the theology of Palamas. At that time Palamas' theology had become the official teaching of the Byzantine Church, although it continued to be challenged and attacked by intellectuals and theologians, such as Nicephoros Gregoras, Prochoros Kydones and John Kyparissiotes.[4]

[1] See Maximus the Confessor, *Ambigua* (PG 91, 1128A).

[2] Gregory Palamas, *Triad* III 1,14 (Grégoire Palamas, *Défense des saints hésychastes*, éd. et trad. Jean Meyendorff, Louvain, 1973, 584).

[3] Theophanes III, Bishop of Nicaea, *On the Taboric Light, Five Books* (in Greek). Text and intr. Charalampos G. Soteropoulos (Athens, 1990). See Andrew Louth, The Eucharist and Hesychasm, with Special Reference to Theophanes III, Metropolitan of Nicaea, in: Istvan Perczel et al. (eds.), *The Eucharist in Theology and Philosophy* (Leuven, 2005), 199-205.

[4] See Ioannis D. Polemis, *Theophanes of Nicaea: His Life and Work* (Vienna, 1996).

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Theophanes' explanation of the notion of symbol does not differ essentially from that of Palamas' concept of 'natural symbol'. He explains that 'symbol' does not always have to be opposed to 'truth'. Sometimes, indeed, their difference lies in the fact that they (truth and symbol) are different subjects with a different nature. At other times, however, truth and symbol are in, and belong to, the same 'subject'or 'substance' (ὑποκείμενον); the difference lies only in the outward appearance of this truth. That means, says Theophanes, that the Taboric Light was the manifestation of the truth itself.[5]

But unlike Palamas, Theophanes also applies the notion of 'symbol' to the Eucharist. Polemis suggests that Theophanes' arguments are a response to the opinions of Prochoros Kydones, who tried to explain the use of the term 'symbol' with help of the scholastic and Thomistic doctrine of 'transsubstantiation'.[6] The main patristic author quoted by Theophanes in this context is the 'great' and 'divine' Dionysius, who, says Theophanes, repeatedly uses the term 'symbol' in order to denote the Body and Blood of Christ.[7] It is not clear whether or not these texts were an object of discussion. Theophanes quotes them simply by way of patristic prooftexts, and to him it was clear that the term 'symbol' in this context has to be understood in a realistic sense. Our purpose is to see how Theophanes explains the notion of 'symbol' with reference to the Eucharist. Referring to the Last Supper and the Eucharist, Theophanes writes:

> The Body of Him who performs the divine work is seen as bread, and the partaking or communion, through which we are united with it, is a symbolic one, in the form of a 'type'. For it is performed by way of sensible eating and drinking. That the divine bread, and also the act of eating and partaking of it, is a symbol, becomes clear from the fact that it is done in a visible and sensible way. For no one could say that the Body of the Lord is suchlike as it is seen by all and appears to all [that is, 'bread'], nor that the communion with it is performed in such a way, that is, through sensible food and drink.[8]

In what follows, Theophanes refers to the Body of Christ after the Resurrection, which, though being a real body, appeared every time 'in a different form' (*Mark* 16:12). He continues, saying that theoretically it would be possible that the Lord appear in the Eucharist, by way of condescension, in the form of human mortal flesh, or in the form of a roasted lamb. But 'the fact that He appears to our senses in a symbolic way as bread and wine is not without a mysterious and profound reason. For as bread and wine, according to the divine Fathers, is more fitting and appropriate than any other food and drink to feed,

[5] Theophanes of Nicaea, *Taboric Light* III, 227-33.

[6] I.D. Polemis, *Theophanes of Nicaea* (1996), 112 cites a passage from an unpublished treatise of Prochoros Kydones, in which he applies the word 'symbol' to the 'qualities' (τὰ ποιά) of the Eucharistic bread and wine which do not change. Their 'substance' (τὸ ὑποκείμενον) is, on the contrary, 'truth', for it changes into the Body and Blood of Christ.

[7] Theophanes, III, 234-5.

[8] *Ibid.* 235.

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strenghten and maintain our body, in the same manner the Lord Himself strenghtens and maintains the substance of the soul through our partaking of it [the Bread] and communing with it ...'[9]

These words need further reflection. It appears that the Metropolitan wants to stress the real presence of Christ in the Eucharist, just as he wants to emphasize the fact that the Eucharistic bread and wine are the very Body and Blood of Christ. But when he speaks about the *act* of Communion, the physical act of eating and drinking, his argument takes a Platonic twist: '... the communion with the Body of the Lord is not performed through sensible food and drink'. It seems as if Theophanes is saying here that all that counts is the invisible, spiritual communion of the soul with Christ, and that our body does not participate in it. His language is different from that of John Chrysostom who, in his commentary on *John* 6, emphasized in strong and realistic terms the participation of the human body in receiving Communion: 'Not only ought we to see the Lord, but we ought to take Him in our hands, eat Him, set our teeth upon His Flesh and most intimately unite ourselves with Him'.[10] We may add that in *John* 6:58 the Greek verb for eating (the 'Bread from Heaven') is very realistic: τρώγειν means to 'nibble' or 'munch'. For John Chrysostom the visible act of eating and drinking itself *is* the communion with Christ, and it is not merely an outward symbol, depicting an invisible reality, as Theophanes seems to suggest.

In the first book of the *Treatise*, Theophanes discusses the Eucharist in the same manner. The general context of the passage deals with the notion of 'participation', a concept which is central in the theology of Palamas. Theophanes writes:

> The touch of our lips with the Body of the Lord, the realistic [litt. 'local', τοπική] and physical embrace of it and union with it, which is transmitted to our whole body through eating it, is a symbol of the union, communion and, so to speak, mixing of Christ with us through *energy* and grace. We, too, when our souls are united with each other in love, have the desire to hasten ourselves to show the symbols of this union in touching each other's hands and uniting our lips and being completely mingled with each other.[11]

Here we notice again the emphasis on the invisible, spiritual union with Christ. Holy Communion, though being an act of the whole human body, is seen as a symbol or outward sign of the intimacy and totality of our participation in divine grace and 'energy'. John Meyendorff, in discussing this passage, was right in pointing out that there is a resemblance and link with Pseudo-Dionysius, though he does not do justice to the sacramental realism of Theophanes'

[9] *Ibid.*, 237.
[10] John Chrysostom, *In Joh., Hom.* 46 (PG 59, 260).
[11] Theophanes, I, 192-93.

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concept of the Eucharist, who had made clear that the Bread and the Wine of the Eucharist are the very Body and Blood of Christ.[12]

The author of the *Celestial Hierarchy* stated that 'our partaking of the most divine Eucharist is an image [εἰκών] of our participation in Jesus'. The general context of this passage is the concept of the liturgy as an imitation of the heavenly and angelic liturgy, the 'Ecclesiastical Hierarchy' being modelled on the 'Celestial Hierarchy'. Thus 'the visible beauties are reflections of the invisible splendor', and 'the material lights are an image of the immaterial gift of Light ...' All this is transcendantly (ὑπερκοσμίως) granted to the heavenly beings, and symbolically (συμβολικῶς) to us.[13] Theophanes does not quote this text, and we do not know if he had it in mind when writing about Holy Communion. It is possible that he ignored it on purpose, because the words 'image' and 'symbol' are used synonymously. For Theophanes, 'image' is not simply synonymous with 'symbol'. He explains that an image shows a likeness with its prototype, while a symbol appears in a form that is different from it.[14]

Alexander Golitzin discusses this text in an interesting article, in which he stresses the 'Syrian roots' of Dionysius.[15] Seen from this perspective, the just quoted text should reflect a motif which is found in the Macarian *Homilies*, that of the 'inner liturgy of the soul'. However, that should not exclude the fact that the text has also a Platonic flavour, comparing the visible reality with the invisible reality. It appears that in the Dionysian *Corpus* motifs of Syrian theology go easily together with a Platonic perspective.[16] It is certain that it is this latter perspective which appealed to the philosophical mind of the Byzantine intellectuals. Moreover, Golitzin recognizes that the Syrian theme of the soul as the 'little church' has been neglected by commentators of the *Corpus*.[17]

It is true that Communion has both a visible and an invisible aspect. But the texts of Dionysius and Theophanes which we quoted seem to suggest that the visible act of eating and drinking is merely an outward ('symbolical') sign of the union of the human soul with Christ. They do not explicitly say that Holy Communion is given 'for the healing of soul and body', as it is said in the Byzantine rite of the Eucharist. At the end of the first book of the Treatise Theophanes is even more explicit in saying that the soul alone receives the

[12] Jean Meyendorff, Le dogme eucharistique dans les controverses théologiques du XIV[e] siècle: *Grigorios o Palamas* 42 (1959) 93-100, 99f. = Meyendorff, *Byzantine Hesychasm: Historical, Theological and Social Problems*, Variorum reprints (London, 1974), item XIII.

[13] Dionysius the Areopagite, *Celestial Hierarchy* (PG 3, 121D-124).

[14] Theophanes, III, 244-5.

[15] Alexander Golitzin, 'A Contemplative and a Liturgist': Father Georges Florovsky on the *Corpus Dionysiacum*: *St. Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 43 (1999) 131-61, 144f.

[16] Golitzin gives an example of this in the same article (149-54), referring to the notion of 'suddenly' in *Epistle* 3 (PG 3, 1069B). See A. Golitzin, Revisiting the 'Sudden': Epistle III in the *Corpus Dionysiacum*: *SP* 37 (2001) 482-91.

[17] A. Golitzin, A Contemplative (1999), 145, n. 47.

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divine grace and is 'changed' by it, while the body only 'touches' the Body of Christ.[18] In other words, the body and the physical act of Communion are seen as a vehicle through which the divine grace is transmitted to the soul. The body is not affected by it. In this way Theophanes tried to explain what happens when those who are unworthy receive Communion, like Judas *e.g.*: though they touch the Body of Christ in a physical and sensible way, their soul does not receive the divine grace which comes forth from it.[19]

Theophanes was, in the words of Polemis, 'a characteristic [Byzantine] intellectual'.[20] There is no indication that he was a hesychast monk. There was among Byzantine intellectuals an openness towards 'Hellenism', with a common interest in the ancient Greek philosophers and even in Thomas Aquinas, who was being translated into Greek at that period. The influence of Aquinas, even among Palamite theologians, can be explained from his use of Aristotle. It is interesting to notice that Theophanes himself was to some degree influenced by Aquinas, as Polemis points out.[21]

One can understand that in this intellectual milieu the *Corpus Areopagiticum* and its philosophical language met with a wide response, and that Barlaam with his sympathy for the ancient Greek philosophers had started out his teaching in Constantinople by interpreting the works of the Areopagite.[22] Though everybody at that time referred to the author of the *Corpus* as the 'Great Dionysius', including Palamas, it appears that the hesychast theologian had to take efforts to mitigate the (Neo-)Platonic elements of Dionysius's theology, *e.g.* in stressing that man is superior to the angels.[23] As far as the Eucharist is concerned, Palamas, unlike Theophanes, puts emphasis on the unity of body and soul, writing that Christ 'makes of us a temple of the whole Divinity', and that 'Christ is mingled with us and exists in us, and enlightens the soul from within'.[24] It is obvious that the words 'from within' refer to the human body, as Meyendorff remarks.[25]

Conclusion

Theophanes intended to clarify the ambiguous word 'symbol', and to explain that its use with reference to the Bread and Wine of the Eucharist, especially

[18] Theophanes, I, 193.

[19] *Ibid.* Implied is here that the Last Supper was already the celebration of the Eucharist.

[20] I.D. Polemis, *Theophanes of Nicaea* (1996), 30.

[21] *Ibid.* 87-109.

[22] See Joost van Rossum, Dionysius the Areopagite and Gregory Palamas: A 'Christological Corrective'? *SP* 42 (2006) 347-53, 350, n. 16.

[23] *Ibid.*

[24] Palamas, *Triad* I 3,38 (193 Meyendorff).

[25] John Meyendorff, *A Study of Gregory Palamas* (London/Crestwood, 1974), 152.

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by Dionysius, has to be interpreted in a realistic sense. However, in his remarks on the physical *act* of Communion, Theophanes was not able to overcome the Platonic opposition between body and soul. All that counts is the communion of the *soul* alone with Christ. Theophanes maintained the ambiguity of the Dionysian concept of Communion as an image or 'icon' of the spiritual and invisible communion with Christ.

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Ambivalence in Dionysius the Areopagite: The Limitations of a Liturgical Reading

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If there is any point at which Dionysius might seem to be 'more of a Platonist than a Christian', as Luther accused,[1] it is in *The Mystical Theology*. It is here that Dionysius suggests that 'one is supremely united to the completely unknown by an inactivity of all knowledge, and knows beyond the mind by knowing nothing.'[2] Kenneth Wesche argues in light of this that 'salvation [for Dionysius] consists in knowledge which ultimately leaves physical reality behind and out of account',[3] and so he surmises that Dionysius privileges philosophical abstraction above the incarnate Christ. Wesche concludes, as others have done,[4] that 'his thought leads on a subtly divergent path that radically shifts the focus and distorts the real meaning of Christ.'[5]

In response to such readings, Alexander Golitzin and Andrew Louth both argue that the *Corpus Dionysiacum* is intimately related to an ecclesial context. Both observe, for instance, that the description of Moses' ceremonial purification and ascent at the outset of *The Mystical Theology* may be seen to correspond to the experience of the bishop in the Eucharistic liturgy.[6] Yet although this helpfully undercuts the complaint that Dionysius is insufficiently pious, they sometimes go further: Where Wesche writes that 'the real issue, obviously, is where does one go to find the chief inspiration informing anything said by Dionysius?'[7] Golitzin agrees, concluding instead that 'Dionysius' chief inspiration is clearly and

[1] Martin Luther, The Babylonian Captivity of the Church, in: Abdel Ross Wentz (ed.), *Luther's Works, Vol. 36: Word and Sacrament 2* (Philadelphia, 1959), 109.

[2] Dionysius the Areopagite, *The Mystical Theology* (PG 3, 1001A), 137. Page references to the *Corpus* correspond to the translation of Colm Luibheid and Paul Rorem in *Pseudo-Dionysius, The Complete Works* (New York, 1987).

[3] Kenneth Paul Wesche, Christological doctrine and liturgical interpretation in Pseudo-Dionysius: *St Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 33 (1989) 53-73, 68.

[4] See Anders Nygren, *Agape and Eros* (London, 1982), 576f. For more recent criticisms along similar lines, see Jan Vanneste, Is the Mysticism of Pseudo-Dionysius Genuine? *International Philosophical Quarterly* 3 (1963) 286-306, 303. In contrast, John Rist, while accepting the Neoplatonism of Dionysius, presents a more balanced view in John M. Rist, A Note on Eros and Agape in Pseudo-Dionysius: *VigChr* 20 (1966) 235-43, 236.

[5] K.P. Wesche, Christological doctrine (1989), 73.

[6] See, for example, Andrew Louth, *Denys the Areopagite* (Wilton, 1989), 26.

[7] Kenneth Paul Wesche, A reply to hieromonk Alexander's reply: *St Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 34 (1990) 324-8, 326.

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unquestionably the Christian faith.'[8] But I will argue that the *Corpus* can only be subsumed under a single rubric at the expense of its profound ambivalence.

In order to sketch a larger argument, I will focus on one commentator – Alexander Golitzin – and one theme – the status of ecclesial life in Dionysius. Golitzin suggests that what Dionysius calls 'the brilliant darkness of a hidden silence'[9] and 'that which lies beyond all vision and knowledge'[10] is 'nothing more nor less than an image of the Church at worship', and he claims that 'the summit, veiled in cloud and darkness, corresponds to the altar within the sanctuary veils of Dionysius's neighborhood church.'[11] It is this 'nothing more', and the claim of correspondence, that troubles me. For although Golitzin's liturgical reading is illuminating and suggestive, its limitation lies in the claim that an ecclesial context delimits the significance of the *Corpus*. I will argue that, in addition to being problematic for general, methodological reasons (as I believe that it is), this gesture is particularly inappropriate here since Dionysius's ambivalence calls every context into question.

The status of ecclesial life

Golitzin's case is perhaps strongest in his insistence that 'it is the Church, the body of Christ, which is for Dionysius... the "place" of encounter with God.'[12] After all, Dionysius says that 'we will only obtain [likeness to and union with God] through the most loving observance of the august commandments and by the doing of sacred acts,'[13] and he writes of the Eucharist that 'every sacredly initiating operation draws our fragmented lives together into a one-like divinization.'[14] Yet although ecclesial life is clearly central for Dionysius, the logic of theological affirmation which he describes undercuts Golitzin's claim that 'nothing of any validity or truth may be accomplished outside of our hierarchy.'[15] Dionysius writes that, since 'the unnamed goodness... actually contains everything beforehand within itself', we must conclude that 'the names for [God] are fittingly derived from the sum total of creation'.[16] Far from limiting

[8] Alexander Golitzin, On the Other Hand: *St Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 34 (1990) 305-23, 316.

[9] *MT* (PG 3, 997A), 135.

[10] *MT* (PG 3, 1025A), 138.

[11] Alexander Golitzin, The Mysticism of Dionysius Areopagita: Platonist or Christian? *Mystics Quarterly* 19 (1993) 98-114, 103.

[12] Alexander Golitzin, Dionysius Areopagita: A Christian Mysticism? *Pro Ecclesia* 12 (2003) 161-212, 189.

[13] Dionysius the Areopagite, *The Ecclesiastical Hierarchy* (PG 3, 392A), 200.

[14] *EH* (PG 3, 424C), 209.

[15] Alexander Golitzin, *Et Introibo ad Altare Dei* (Thessalonica, 1994), 167.

[16] Dionysius the Areopagite, *The Divine Names* (PG 3, 596D-597A), 56. Although the names Dionysius discusses in this work are drawn from scripture, his account of theological discourse

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knowledge of God to an ecclesial context, Dionysius writes that 'God is... known in all things and as distinct from all things... He is all things in all things and he is no thing among things.'[17] By claiming that the church provides exclusive access to God, Golitzin neglects both the fact that God is 'known in all things' without qualification and that God remains 'distinct from all things', including the church itself.

On a related point, Golitzin has helpfully drawn attention to the centrality of Christ in the *Corpus*, yet this actually undermines his attempt to restrict the significance of the texts. Dionysius writes: 'What comes into view, contrary to hope, from previous obscurity, is described as "sudden"',[18] and he identifies Christ's incarnation as such an event. Golitzin concludes from this passage that 'this, the sudden flash of the "unapproachable light" within, is... the very content of the [darkness] into which Moses ascends.'[19] I would argue that the texts in question do not support this strong assertion, despite its striking creativity, but there is another difficulty as well: If that which is 'beyond every assertion... and... beyond every denial' refers simply to Christ, then Golitzin's appeal to the centrality of Christ removes Christ from all knowledge and, by extension, from any definite (ecclesial) location. Since Dionysius says that 'what is to be said of [Christ's incarnation] remains unsayable, what is to be understood of it remains unknowable',[20] Golitzin's appeal to Christ simply intensifies the sense that we have no grasp upon the ultimate.

One lynchpin of Golitzin's interpretation is his conviction that the meaning of *The Mystical Theology* is determined by the hierarchical works. Whereas some editions begin with *The Divine Names* and *The Mystical Theology*, Golitzin claims that starting with *The Celestial Hierarchy* and ending with *The Mystical Theology* and the Epistles 'will reveal the *Corpus Dionysiacum* as a deliberately progressive "mystagogy", that is, as at once the explication of and the entry into the one and unique mystery, Christ.'[21] But even if we grant that the *Corpus* ought to be organized in this fashion – a claim for which there is little evidence – this fact alone does not prove that the meaning of the latter is determined by the former. On the contrary, it could just as easily indicate the opposite: if we accept that the *Corpus* ascends from the angels to the church, through conceptual names for God, and only then to a mystical negativity which still has a liturgical context, it remains that *The Mystical Theology* ends by denying every determination of God.

indicates that the divine names remain unlimited and that even the scriptural names are ultimately inadequate.

[17] *DN* (PG 3, 872A), 108-9.

[18] Dionysius the Areopagite, *Epistles* (PG 3, 1069B), 264.

[19] A. Golitzin, Dionysius Areopagita (2003), 205.

[20] *Ep.* (PG 3, 1069B), 264.

[21] A. Golitzin, Dionysius Areopagita (2003), 170.

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Eschatological tension

In *The Ecclesiastical Hierarchy* Dionysius affirms ecclesial life in this way: 'Our own hierarchy is itself symbolical and adapted to what we are. In a divine fashion it needs perceptible things to lift us up into the domain of conceptions.'[22] However, in *The Mystical Theology* he says that we must 'leave behind... everything perceived and understood, everything perceptible and understandable'.[23] After all, since divine transcendence requires 'an absolute abandonment of yourself and everything',[24] it seems that confidence in the liturgy must too be relinquished. After describing Moses' ascent of Sinai, Dionysius continues: 'My argument now rises from what is below up to the transcendent, and the more it climbs, the more language falters, and when it has passed up and beyond the ascent, it will turn silent completely.'[25] If Golitzin is right that this passage has an ecclesial context, this implies that the liturgical actions of Moses are anything but ultimate.

Golitzin claims that 'it is the Church which is Dionysius' path to God, but not the Church or Christ as merely a stage to be surpassed',[26] and this is true in a qualified sense. Since Dionysius does not suggest that liturgical practice ought to be abandoned, it is clear that his negativity does not overwhelm or annihilate his Christian commitments. Nevertheless, while Dionysius affirms that we are united with God through the church, he also denies any such confidence – the affirmation and its deconstruction coexist in eschatological tension, and it is this ambivalence which Golitzin neglects. Dionysius writes:

> 'We now grasp these things in the best way we can, and as they come to us, wrapped in the sacred veils... with which scripture and hierarchical traditions cover the truths of the mind with things derived from the realm of the senses... But in time to come, when we are incorruptible and immortal, ... in most holy contemplation we shall be ever filled with the sight of God shining gloriously around us... and, somehow, in a way we cannot know, we shall be united with him.'[27]

Dionysius identifies ecclesial, scriptural, and liturgical life as our attempt to 'grasp these things in the best way we can', and for this reason they ought to be sustained. Yet since these 'sacred veils' and 'hierarchical traditions' still represent an active grasping, they are not the passivity which Golitzin himself acknowledges as necessary, 'the last act of the human approach to God'[28] – they

[22] *EH* (PG 3, 377A), 199.
[23] *MT* (PG 3, 997B), 135.
[24] *MT* (PG 3, 1000A), 135.
[25] *MT* (PG 3, 1033C), 139.
[26] Alexander Golitzin, 'A Contemplative and a Liturgist': Father Georges Florovsky on the *Corpus Dionysiacum*: *St Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 43 (1999) 131-61, 148.
[27] *DN* (PG 3, 592C), 52-3.
[28] A. Golitzin, Dionysius Areopagita (2003), 197. See Dionysius: 'We should be taken wholly out of ourselves and become wholly of God, since it is better to belong to God rather than to ourselves' (*DN*, PG 3, 868A, 106).

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remain uncertain and provisional attempts. Ecclesial life thus falls immeasurably short of that 'time to come' when 'in a way we cannot know, we shall be united with him'. Because the character of this ultimate blessedness cannot be foreseen, it cannot be identified with any determinate context.

Golitzin acknowledges the gap between 'the Christian's present life in the Church and the advent of the Kingdom to come',[29] but he still asserts that 'the Areopagite's Church... remains our single reality, the meaning of our universe and the latter's unique hope – and assurance – of stability and final salvation'.[30] However, because Dionysius says that the eschaton will arrive 'in a way we cannot know', the church can provide no assurance, nor is it our sole hope, for Dionysius writes that 'these promises exceed all understanding and the words naming them fall far short of the truth they contain'.[31] Where Golitzin claims that '*The Mystical Theology* is devoted to the experience of God as the latter makes Himself available to us now, which is to say on this side of the eschaton, and within the Church',[32] it seems instead that the eschatological tension between present practice (in the liturgical preface) and the unforeseeable future (which entails unrestrained negation) runs through the very center of this text.

Beyond limitation

Golitzin writes that 'the very fact that Dionysius was accepted by contemporaries of the highest stature and intellectual attainment... suggests at the least that he was not so odd to them as he seems nowadays to us'.[33] However, the admission by John of Scythopolis, Dionysius' ardent defender, that 'some dare to abuse the divine Dionysius with charges of heresy',[34] indicates that the reception of Dionysius was actually very complex. Since John goes to great lengths in order to demonstrate that Dionysius is untainted by 'the bastard teachings of the Greek philosophers',[35] it is evident that the Neoplatonic resonance of the *Corpus* was problematic even then. Golitzin's neglect of this disagreement in preference for some putative 'ascetico-mystical continuum'[36] betrays a problematic methodology which pursues continuity at the expense of the complexity of

[29] Alexander Golitzin, Review Essay, *Pseudo-Dionysius: A Commentary on the Texts and an Introduction to Their Influence*. By Paul Rorem: *Mystics Quarterly* 21 (1994) 28-38, 37.

[30] A. Golitzin, *Et Introibo ad Altare Dei* (1994), 165.

[31] *EH* (PG 3, 560B), 253.

[32] A. Golitzin, Review Essay (1994), 37.

[33] A. Golitzin, Dionysius Areopagita (2003), 207.

[34] John of Scythopolis, *Scholia*, in: Paul Rorem and John C. Lamoreaux (eds.), *John of Scythopolis and the Dionysian Corpus* (Oxford, 1998), 146.

[35] John of Scythopolis, *Scholia*, 146.

[36] Alexander Golitzin, 'Suddenly Christ': The Place of Negative Theology in the Mystagogy of Dionysius Areopagites, in: Michael Kessler and Christian Sheppard (eds.), *Mystics: Presence and Aporia* (Chicago, 2003), 8-37, 17.

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texts. He writes that 'neither [Symeon] the New Theologian, nor his disciple, nor Dionysius do push their logic to the limits. They are content with ambiguity, and they are thus very wise'.[37] But the decision not to follow the logic of the *Corpus* all the way is Golitzin's own, for (as we have seen) Dionysius himself is unstinting.

Golitzin writes: 'Questions of Dionysian "influence" or "non-influence" are... mostly useless, to the degree at least that they presuppose fundamental differences between Dionysius and the rest of the Eastern dogmatic and ascetico-mystical tradition. The fact is that there are none.'[38] But by delimiting Dionysius according to a particular tradition, Golitzin inadvertently betrays the union with God which always comes 'in a way we cannot know'. Even if Golitzin is right that *The Celestial Hierarchy* is the proper context for *The Mystical Theology*, this simply indicates that the *Corpus Dionysiacum* gestures towards a future which exceeds every context. In any case, since the whole of the *Corpus* ought to be read together, its resolute ambivalence between determinate affirmation and unstinting negativity must be maintained without collapsing one into the other. Whereas the limitation of Golitzin's liturgical reading lies in its attempt to restrict the significance of the *Corpus*, I would suggest that the ambivalence I have described allows for a range of theological readings which follow Dionysius' gesture beyond his own mysterious self in the hope that the unforeseeable God may come.

[37] Alexander Golitzin, Hierarchy Versus Anarchy? Dionysius Areopagita, Symeon the New Theologian, Nicetas Stethatos, and Their Common Roots in Ascetical Tradition: *St Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 38 (1994) 131-79, 175.

[38] Alexander Golitzin, Dionysius the Areopagite in the Works of Gregory Palamas: *St Vladimir's Theological Quarterly* 46 (2002) 163-90, 187f.

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Controversy on Energies and Wills in Christ: Between Politics and Theology

Cyril Hovorun, Kiev

Controversy on how many activities and wills Christ had, marked theology and political life of the Byzantine Empire and beyond for around a century, from the beginning of the seventh century onward. It produced remarkable theologians, such as Sophronius of Jerusalem, Maximus the Confessor, and Anastasius of Sinai. It also propelled further discussions over the issues of activity, will, and freedom, which turned to be of primarily importance in the modern time.

In my presentation, I will stress two points of this controversy, which are often ignored or stereotyped in a misleading way. First, Monenergism and Monothelitism are sometimes believed to be theological doctrines that continued the line of mono-Christological doctrines, such as Apollinarianism, Eutychian Monophysitism, and Severan anti-Chalcedonianism. This was not exactly the case. They indeed embraced some features of the mono-Christologies and particularly stressed single energy and single will in Christ. At the same time, they opposed all the mentioned mono-Christologies and adhered to the Chalcedonian two-natures Christology. Second, both Monenergism and Monothelitism were not conventional Christological doctrines. They were rather eclectic doctrinal outlooks, which comprised in a superficial way various Christological concepts. I would call them quasi-doctrines.

Those who developed them pursued mostly political aims. This is especially true with regard to Monenergism. Monenergism was set up by Emperor Heraclius and his close confederate Patriarch of Constantinople Sergius as a political project. After this project failed it was reshaped into Monothelitism. Monothelitism was initiated by the same Emperor Heraclius in the last two years of his reign and found support of Pope Honorius. It remained a political project, though more than Monenergism it looked like a conventional theological doctrine. In my paper, I am going to demonstrate political expediency behind Monenergism and Monothelitism and their eclectic character.

When Heraclius became an Emperor in 610, the integrity of the Empire was threatened seriously. Phocas handed him down impoverished economy, embittered populace in the condition of civil war, and the invasion of the Persian king Khusrau II Parviz. Persian campaign against Byzantium was as successful as never before. The advance of the Persians to the Byzantine soil was to a significant extent facilitated by the collaborationism of the non-Chalcedonian

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population in Syria and Egypt. Heraclius, who personally commanded his troops in the East, had many opportunities to experience the vulnerability of the local anti-Chalcedonians. This dictated him to seek for means of earning their confidence and reconciling them with the imperial Church.

Most Emperors before Heraclius were occupied with the same problems. After Chalcedon, they were constantly seeking to reconcile the followers and the adversaries of the council. Unfortunately, no one attempt brought any real success. Therefore, Heraclius was quite aware about the difficulties he would face challenging this problem. He realised that it would be hopeless to seek the compromise on the ground of the theological formulas based on the notion of 'nature' (φύσις). Some other concepts had to be involved. Solution was suggested by the great predecessor of Heraclius, Justinian.

When trying to find reconcilable theological formulas capable of bringing together the followers and the adversaries of Chalcedon, Justinian discovered a formula which later on would be coined 'theopaschite': *unus ex Trinitate passus est*. The formula ascribed sufferings not only to the humanity of Christ but to him as one and the single being. It stressed in this way the oneness of Christ. Being satisfactory for both the Chalcedonians and the anti-Chalcedonians, it was promoted by Justinian as a means of rapprochement between them. In this formula, Justinian in fact introduced in the theological dialogue on Chalcedon a new notion, that of activity – Greek ἐνέργεια, though in a very elementary form. Indeed, the passions of Christ involved the issue of energy, since they were regarded a kind of nature's activity. My suggestion is that theopaschism as it was promoted by Justinian, a century later inspired those who developed Monenergism. This does not necessarily mean that Justinian himself believed that Christ had one single energy. On the contrary, as his epistle to Patriarch of Alexandria Zoilus implies, he accepted the Tome of Leo with its strict Dyenergism. Modern scholarship has accepted that Monenergism emerged from neo-Chalcedonianism (see Moeller, Thunberg, Pelikan, Winkelmann, Louth, Uthemann). Indeed, the theological framework of Monenergism was neo-Chalcedonian. Yet, in the neo-Chalcedonian framework I would put emphasis on the theopaschite concept that gave birth to Monenergism.

Monenergism comprised the elements of two Christological languages, Chalcedonian, or rather neo-Chalcedonian, and Severan. The former was speaking of the two natures, while the latter – of the single activity. The language of two natures would please the Chalcedonians. At the same time, the Chalcedonians would have no reasons, as the fathers of Monenergism expected, to reject single activity, since neither one nor two activities in Christ were explicitly articulated by the theological authorities of the past. In other words, the founders of the Monenergist project built on the general obscurity of the issue of energy at that time. The initiators of Monenergism did not insist on its exclusive orthodoxy. They did not reject two energies in Christ. They deliberately exploited

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unclearness of the preceding theological tradition and promoted Monenergism as one of the possible interpretations of the issue of energy.

In regard to the anti-Chalcedonians, the authors of Monenergism smartly counted on the fact that the concept of the single energy played for them a more important role than the concept of the single nature. The authors of Monenergism might have concluded this from the consultations with some Severan theologians of the epoch, namely Paul the One-Eyed, the bishop of Arsenoë (in Egypt) Sergius Macaronas, and George Arsas. Those theologians seem to have complied with the idea of two natures in Christ if the natures are understood in a sense of having a single activity. Severus himself had accepted a certain duality in the single nature of Christ. At the same time, he was notably less inclined to speak of duality in regard to the single activity of Christ. Taking all this into consideration, the authors of Monenergism incorporated in their doctrine what they regarded to be most important for both parties, at the expense of what they regarded to be of less importance for each of them. The result of their efforts was an eclectic Christological formula *two-natures-and-single-energy*.

Surprisingly, the eclectic language of Monenergism proved to be helpful in the negotiations not only with the Severans, but also with ... the so-called Nestorians! Indeed, a Christological tradition associated with the names of Theodore of Mopsuestia and Nestorius of Constantinople, counted in Christ a single person and a single energy, along with two natures – hypostases. Energy, in terms of this tradition, was considered to be an aspect of person, πρόσωπον, which was a common manifestation of the 'energetical' capacities of Christ's two natures. In other words, 'Nestorians' found in Christ a single energy uniting two natures. This 'Nestorian' concept happened to be compatible, at least formally, with the Monenergist concept of the single energy. Theological language applied by the 'Nestorians' may also be described as *two-natures-and-single-energy*. It was apparently on the ground of this language that Heraclius, when negotiating in 630 in Aleppo with the Nestorian Catholicos Ishoyahb II, asked him to seal their agreement on the issues of faith by sharing Eucharist.

Monenergism as a political project failed. It did not bring the desired reconciliation either with the 'Nestorians', nor with the Severans. Nevertheless, it would be untrue to see Monenergism as a political project only. It contained a certain theological potentiality which unfolded later on, in 639, when a concept of single will in Christ replaced the concept of single energy.

Monothelitism was also primarily a political project. It was initiated by the Emperor Heraclius in the last years of his life. The political purpose of Monothelitism remained the same, namely the reconciliation between the followers and the adversaries of Chalcedon. At the same time, owing to the theological contributions of the Patriarchs Pyrrhus of Constantinople and Macarius of Antioch (the latter much relied on the advices of his disciple Stephan), as well as under the pressure of the sophisticated anti-Monothelite polemics of Maximus the

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Confessor, it evolved into a more or less self-sufficient doctrine with a theological language less eclectic and more clear than it was in the case of Monenergism. The Monothelites opposed Dyothelitism and rejected two wills in Christ. Unlike Monenergism, Monothelitism was not anymore one of the possible interpretations of the orthodox doctrine, but pretended to be *the* orthodox doctrine. Monothelitism remained eclectic, since it combined the Chalcedonian concept of two natures and the concept of the single will, which was as dear to the anti-Chalcedonians as the idea of the single energy. At the same time, the Monothelite theologians struggled to find more consistency between these two concepts, in particular by introducing the idea of hypostatic will.

In conclusion, being launched as a political project, Monenergism gradually evolved into a more theologically grounded and less eclectic doctrine, which we now call Monothelitism. Both doctrines initiated fascinating discussions on the issues of energy and will. In the course of these discussions such important for the modern thought concepts as personal freedom, deliberation and choice, were touched on and significantly developed. When discussing these issues today, one has to take into consideration the controversies that took place in the seventh century in Byzantium.

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Monotheletism: A Heresy or a Form of Words?[1]

Richard PRICE, London

'Energies' (operations, activities) and 'wills' in God the Word incarnate – should we as 'dyenergists' and 'dyotheletes' talk of two, or as 'monenergists' and 'monotheletes' talk of one? After the Council of Chalcedon (451) with its insistence on 'two natures' in Christ, it was more natural to talk of two energies – since everything that exists has 'energy' in the sense of having effects – and indeed of two wills, since, as we shall see, 'will' was used in a loose sense that did not distinguish it clearly from 'energy'. Yet the terms 'one energy' and 'one will' could serve the purpose of filling out the notion of the 'one person' of Christ, since the term 'person' was exceedingly vague in late antique usage. The Antiochene theologians Theodore of Mopsuestia and Nestorius, in quest of a clearer way to express Christ's unity, were happy to talk of 'one energy' and 'one will' in Christ, despite the Antiochene emphasis on the completeness and freedom of Christ's manhood. This, by the way, is a clear and important indication that these expressions did not necessarily imply docking Christ's humanity of energy and will.

The Chalcedonian theologians showed awareness of the dangers of both forms of expression: 'two energies/wills' could sound like a Nestorian division of Christ, while 'one energy/will' could read like a surrender to the one-nature (miaphysite) Christology of the anti-Chalcedonians. In the seventh century, however, the emperors and patriarchs of Constantinople adopted first monenergism and then monotheletism, in the hope of winning back the miaphysites into communion with the imperial, Chalcedonian Church. Opponents of this policy accused it of being a revival of Apollinarianism – monotheletism being understood as a denial of the presence in Christ of a human faculty of will. Was this accurate? Or were the monenergists and monotheletes perfectly conventional in their understanding of Christ's make-up and operation, in such a way that 'one energy' and 'one will' meant no more than the perfect and total cooperation of energies and wills in Christ?

Two recent books, both by Eastern Orthodox scholars, argue that monenergism and monotheletism were indeed Apollinarian,[2] but much western scholarship

[1] References, unless otherwise stated, are to volumes in *Acta Conciliorum Oecumenicorum*, Series 2, vol. 1, 2.1 or 2.2 (Berlin, 1984-92).

[2] Demetrios Bathrellos, *The Byzantine Christ* (Oxford, 2004), esp. ch. 2; Cyril Hovorun, *Will, Action and Freedom: Christological Controversies in the Seventh Century* (Leiden, 2008).

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has been sceptical.[3] The question is hard to resolve, since we do not have enough monenergist and monothelete writing – perhaps there never was very much – and since one's answer to the question will depend on whether one assumes that the great critics of monenergism and monotheletism (such as Sophronius of Jerusalem and Maximus the Confessor) must have known what they were talking about, or whether on the contrary one considers it more likely that the champions of monenergism and monotheletism were perfectly conventional in their understanding of Christ, despite the rules they tried to impose in the matter of terminology. This paper adopts the latter position; but I am not so sanguine as to imagine that I shall convince the other side. I am reminded of a remark made by the nineteenth-century English wit Sydney Smith on a visit to Edinburgh: he saw two women leaning out of their respective windows across a narrow alley to shout at each other, and commented, 'Those two women will never agree: they are arguing from different premises.'

I

Let us begin by taking a quick look at the 'monenergism' promoted in the earlier part of his reign by the emperor Heraclius (610-41). What did it amount to?

Take the much-disputed sentence in the Tome of Pope Leo: 'Agit enim utraque forma cum alterius communione quod proprium est' ('Each form [= nature] performs what is proper to itself in communion with the other').[4] All this does is to apply to Christology the metaphysical (or rather, commonsense) principle that every physical entity has effects.[5] But the passage that follows in the Tome on the distinction between the divine and human operations in Christ collapses with the statement that, while it is human to hunger or thirst, it is divine to walk on water. But obviously only bodies can walk on water; as Maximus the Confessor rightly stated: 'He shows through this crossing [of the water] that the natural energy of his own flesh is inseparable from the power of his divinity' (PG 91, 1049B-C). Leo was to correct his apparent separation of the inseparable in *Ep.* 124.5: the flesh does not act without the Word nor the Word without the flesh. This became a standard assertion: in the words of St Maximus: 'He did not do divine things divinely, since he was not only God; nor did he do human things in a human way, since he was not mere man' (PG 91, 593A). Pope Martin in the Acts of 649 likewise

[3] Of this a magisterial example is M. Jugie in: *Dictionnaire de Théologie Catholique* 10.2 (Paris, 1929), 2310-1.

[4] *ACO* II 2 (Berlin, 1932), 28, 12-3.

[5] See Anastasius of Antioch at 1, p. 435, §74, 12-3, 'It is plain that every nature or essence has its own energy.'

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denies two separate operations: 'He did not perform the divine acts divinely and the human humanly' but 'the divine ones humanly and the human ones divinely'; the miracles were performed through the flesh, and he accepted the sufferings 'according to his omnipotent power' (1, pp. 148-50). What is the difference between this and the one 'theandric' (divine-human) operation taught by the monenergists? Compare the monothelete Macarius of Antioch at the Third Council of Constantinople (680/1): 'We believe that the miracles and the sufferings are of the same [person] and that, in a word, the whole divine and human operation proceeds from one and the same Christ our God, for he did not perform the divine things divinely and the human ones humanly, but after becoming man God the Word exhibits a new theandric operation' (2.1, p. 222, 17-21).

Or did the monenergists deprive the human nature of its proper operation by treating it as an utterly passive instrument manipulated at every stage, like a lever, by the divine operation? This may seem implied by the following statement from the monothelete *Ecthesis*: 'At no time did his rationally ensouled flesh perform its natural movement separately and as a result of its own impulse contrary to the will of God the Word united to it hypostatically, but whenever and of whatever kind and to whatever extent God the Word wished' (1, p. 160, 26-9). But the advocates of orthodox dyenergism said exactly the same. To cite the dyenergist champion Sophronius of Jerusalem: 'He did not undergo them [thirst, passion, and the rest] involuntarily or under compulsion, even if he acted with human movements.., but did so when the same [God the Word] had willed to suffer, do, and operate humanly.., and not when the physical and fleshly movements wished to be physically stirred into operation' (2.1, p. 450, 10-16). Or take Anastasius of Sinai: *we* experience the passions (emotions and bodily drives) out of necessity, but 'Christ, being the God and master and maker of nature, guided the things of nature when he wanted and as he wanted.'[6] Or Pope Martin: 'He allowed the entirely blameless passions to move in him according to his will' (1, p. 360, 6-7). Or St Maximus: Christ experienced hunger and thirst and the like differently from us, since he underwent them not out of natural necessity but voluntarily (PG 91, 297D).[7]

In all, the difference between monenergism and dyenergism seems to have been a matter of terminology rather than of substance.

[6] Anastasius, *Sermo* 1, VI 3.58-65 (CChr.SG 12, 111).

[7] All these passages should surely be taken to assert not that the human nature entirely lacked spontaneity, but that it only yielded to hunger, distress and the like when the divine will permitted it, while at all other times the divine will kept the weakness of the flesh in check. See Gregory of Nyssa: '[The Word] when he so wished gave the [human] nature the opportunity to exercise its own operation' (PG 44, 1237A), and Cyril of Alexandria: 'He submitted himself to the infirmities of mankind' (*Homily on Luke* 146).

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II

The *Ecthesis* issued by the emperor Heraclius in 638 abandoned monenergism in favour of 'monotheletism'. What did this mean? St Maximus accused the monotheletes of not knowing what they believed (PG 91, 329C-332A).

That at least some monothelete statements were no more than a verbal variant on orthodoxy can scarcely be denied. For example, the monothelete Themistius states that, even though Athanasius said that at the time of the passion Christ displayed two volitions (θελήματα), he would not acknowledge two wills (θελήσεις) in Christ, but rather one that is 'moved in part humanly and in part divinely' (2.1, p. 506, 21-4). The use of the expression 'one will' to mean simply harmony of will was a common usage. Take, for example, the following argument attributed to Pyrrhus in the *Disputation with Pyrrhus*: if will pertains to nature, as Maximus claimed, then the saints, who have one will with God, will be of the same essence with him (PG 91, 292B). Mark how here the phrase 'having one will with God' is understood (by a monothelete!) to mean much the same whether applied to Christ or the saints. Note also the statement by Pope Honorius: 'We acknowledge one will of our Lord Jesus Christ, since clearly there was assumed by the Godhead our nature, not the sin in it but the nature created before sin' (2.2, p. 550, 16-18). This likens the 'one will' in Christ to Adam's state of grace before the Fall. This is akin to Stephen the Monothelete's insistence at Constantinople III that before the Fall Adam had a divine will (2.1, p. 244, 14). His meaning was manifestly not that Adam lacked a human will – for if so, how could he have fallen? –, but that before the Fall his will was in accord with the will of God. This is to be borne in mind when we meet monothelete texts that assert, as in Theodore of Pharan, that Christ 'had only one will and that divine' (1, p. 122, 3-4); such a statement does not necessarily deny to Christ a human faculty of will.

Likewise at Constantinople III Macarius of Antioch asserted that the Godhead underwent the sufferings of the flesh (since the flesh was not separated from him) 'with one, sole divine will, since there was not in him another will or one resisting his divine and powerful will' (2.1, p. 224, 7-11). He went on to affirm: 'I will not affirm two natural wills or two natural operations in the case of the fleshly dispensation of our Lord Jesus Christ, not even if I am chopped up limb by limb and cast into the sea' (2.1, p. 232, 11-3). But he did not mean literally that Christ had no human operation: he affirmed at the same session that Christ did divine things humanly as well as human things divinely (216, 26), and he referred to Christ's 'divine and human operation' (222, 18), and to 'the suffering of the flesh that was not separated from the Godhead' (224, 6). So there is surely no need to take his denial of a natural human will in Christ any more literally. His monotheletism is akin to the familiar miaphysitism of those who insisted on one nature in Christ, while not denying that he had assumed flesh. And note finally a statement by the monothelete Bishop Theodosius:

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'We too confess that both the natures and the operations are different, that is, divine and human, and that his Godhead is endowed with will (θελετικήν) and his manhood endowed with will, for his soul was not without a will. But we do not say two, lest we make him strive against himself.'[8]

What, then, were the monotheletes denying? It is very striking that they invariably treat 'two wills in Christ' as necessarily implying two *opposed* wills, as in the passage just quoted. But the notion of a human will that consistently obeys the divine will was, and is, commonplace in Christianity; it is ubiquitous in hagiography. Why, then, did the monotheletes consistently understand the assertion of two wills in Christ to imply a conflict of wills?

One of the key monothelete texts is the Letter of Sergius of Constantinople to Pope Honorius. After saying that the expression 'one operation' threatens the profession of two natures in Christ, he proceeds to say that talk of 'two operations' likewise shocks many, 'for it implies the assertion of two wills opposed to each other, with God the Word willing to accomplish the saving passion, while his manhood resists and opposes his will, whereby two [agents] are introduced, willing opposite things, which is impious. For it is impossible for there to exist in one and the same subject two contrary wills at the same time and in the same respect' (2.2, pp. 542, 12-17). The distinguished Maximus scholar F.-M. Léthel interprets Sergius as erring through confusion of thought – confusing the faculty of will with the object of will. If an agent simply chose one thing, one would talk of a single volition; talk of two volitions (with respect to one object at one and the same time) necessarily implies two contrary volitions.[9] As a result, Sergius makes the error of supposing that two wills in Christ must involve contrariety. And since contrariety must be denied (as excluded by the hypostatic union), the monothelete solution, according to Léthel, was to deny that Christ possessed a human faculty of will.[10]

For Léthel this is primarily a matter of logic and metaphysics. I would suggest, however, that the stress on the contrariety of two wills arose in the first place not from logic but from a reading of Scripture – from the references in the Gospels to a distinct human will in Christ. 'I will: be clean' to the leper at *Matth.* 8:3, and similar passages, get us nowhere: as Léthel himself notes (p. 35), every statement of agreement between Christ's will and that of the Father was read as relating to the Trinitarian unity of will, and so the accord of Christ's

[8] *Disputatio Bizyae cum Theodoro*, in: *Scripta saeculi VII vitam Maximi Confessoris illustrantia*, CChr.SG 39 (Turnhout and Leuven, 1999), 109, 387-92.

[9] François-Marie Léthel, *Théologie de l'agonie du Christ* (Paris, 1979), 41-4. See Pyrrhus in St Maximus' *Disputation with Pyrrhus*: 'It is impossible for two wills to coexist in one person without contrariety' (PG 91, 292A). See the monothelete statement: 'Equality of volition by all means indicates one will, just as equality of nature indicates one nature' in: Sebastian Brock, Two sets of monothelete questions to the Maximianists: *Orientalia Lovaniensia Periodica* 17 (1986), 119-40, esp. 133.

[10] F.-M. Léthel, *Théologie* (1979), 28 and 44-5.

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human will with that of the Godhead became invisible. It is undeniable that a distinct human will is being referred to only when there is reference to a created will *differing* from the divine will, as we find in just two or three passages. One, often discussed in the seventh century, comes in the Fourth Gospel: 'I came down from heaven not to do my own will but the will of Him who sent me' (*John* 6:38). But above all there is our Lord's prayer at Gethsemane: 'My Father, if it is possible, may this cup pass from me; but not as I will, but as You will' (*Matth.* 26:39), of which the Lucan version is: 'Father, if You so will, take this cup away from me; but let not my will but Yours be done' (*Luke* 22:42).

A particularly revealing text is one to be found in the Acts of the Lateran Council of 649 – the 'Second Florilegium on the natural wills of Christ' (1, pp. 274-97). In one excerpt (§2) Ambrose proves the difference between divine and human will by contrasting the human aversion to death to the divine will to undergo death in the passion of Christ. In another (§15) there is attributed to Athanasius: 'When he says, "Father, if it is possible, may this cup pass; but let not my will be done but yours. The spirit is eager but the flesh is weak," he here reveals two wills, one human, which is of the flesh, and the other divine, which is of God. For the human will, through the weakness of the flesh, rejects the passion, while the divine is eager for it.'[11] The florilegium contains similar statements by Chrysostom, Theophilus, Cyril, and Severian of Gabbala. To quote the last of these (§34): 'At the end of his life he said, "now my soul is troubled and sorrowful unto death" – [he said "my soul" and] not "my Godhead", for the divine is impassible and without fear or sorrow ... In this way he displays two wills, one divine and the other human.' In these texts it is Gethsemane itself that takes pride of place, as the supreme instance where Christ revealed that he had a human will by allowing it to oppose the divine will.

But did this not involve picturing Christ as a double monster, pursuing two contrary goals at the same time? The answer given was that the contrariety was only temporary, since Christ tamed the human will and overcame its resistance. The florilegium quotes from a sermon by Athanasius (§19): 'It was necessary to change the will of his flesh and to subject it to the divine will', and it also quotes Cyril's *Thesaurus* on the human will being 'taught' by the divine will to accept the passion (§36).

But was not the idea of even a temporary rebellion of the human will shocking to pious ears? The answer given was that aversion to dying is simply a natural physical reaction, without moral significance. This was stated in two passages from John Chrysostom included in the same florilegium: (§27) 'The will of the flesh not to die is not reprehensible, but simply in accordance with nature,' and (§28) 'Just as hunger and sleep are not faults, neither is desire for the present life. Christ had a body free of sins but not separated from natural

[11] Note that Athanasius was specially cited by Pope Martin in 649 as authoritative on the two wills in Christ (1, 342, 21-2).

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drives.' Note that 'will' is here being used in a broad sense that includes any instinctive attraction or aversion. Compare the passage from Sophronius of Jerusalem that I quoted above: Christ experienced the passions when the Godhead wished and not when the physical and fleshly movements *wished* (ἤθελον) to be physically stirred into operation' (2.1, p. 450, 10-16). Compare the statement of Augustine's in the same florilegium (§9): we call *all* feelings of attraction or aversion 'volitions' (θελήματα, 'voluntates' in Augustine's Latin).[12] We find the same loose usage in Maximus the Confessor, as where he cites Jesus' quailing before the passion as proof that he did indeed have a human will (PG 91, 80C). Consider too a passage in the *Disputation with Pyrrhus* where he cites from *Mark* the verse 'He did not want to be recognized but was unable to remain hid' (7:24) and observes that this implies limited power and therefore a human volition (PG 91, 321C-D). Here mere preference or velleity is treated as an operation of the will.[13]

Sergius of Constantinople avoided a clash of wills between the Godhead and the manhood by insisting that what we find at Gethsemane is not a contrary human volition but a 'will' in the weaker sense of simply a natural movement of the flesh, a mere reflex action, that the divine will was able to contain and deflect. Léthel (p. 45) criticizes him for reducing the refusal to a mere 'inframoral, natural movement of the flesh', as the miaphysites did. But, as we have seen, the mainstream, orthodox tradition, represented by the dyothelete florilegium used at the Lateran Council of 649, interpreted Gethsemane in precisely the same way; there was nothing unusual or partisan in Sergius' understanding of Gethsemane. The difference between him and the 'orthodox' is merely a terminological one – his insistence that, despite Our Lord's own words, he had but a single 'will'.

Did Sergius deny that Christ had a human will at all? In view of the tradition, in the Church and in the very words of the gospel account of Gethsemane, that used 'will' to include reflex and instinctive movements, feelings such as hunger or aversion or distress, and also mere preferences and inclinations, this option was not open to him. Even the miaphysite champion Severus of Antioch admitted 'two wills' in Christ at Gethsemane.[14] Historians of Christian doctrine have been much too ready to credit the monotheletes with the denial to Christ of a human faculty of will. There are certainly *apparent* denials of this kind, but we should be very hesitant before taking them literally. Take, for instance, the declarations of Constantine of Apamea at Constantinople III: he insists that

[12] Consequently, let us note, there was no real distinction between 'energy/operation' and 'will'.

[13] St Maximus in polemical contexts had little choice but to employ the loose use of 'will' of his contemporaries, but for his own awareness of the need to make distinctions between such terms as φυσικὸν θέλημα, βούλησις, προαίρεσις and the like see *Opuscula Theologica* 1 (PG 91, 9ff.).

[14] See the passages cited in Aloys Grillmeier, *Christ in Christian Tradition*, 2.2 (London, 1995), 167.

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Christ had but one will (θέλημα), and that this one will was identical to that of God the Father and the Holy Spirit, but then adds unhesitatingly that Christ had a natural human will (θέλημα, θέλησις) meaning a desire for such things as food, drink and sleep (2.2, pp. 696,19-698,15). What, rather, Sergius denied is that Christ's human 'will' ever operated separately from the divine will and in opposition to it: certainly the divine will and the instinctive impulse of the flesh differed at Gethsemane, but this was not to be described in terms of 'two wills' at loggerheads with each other. Instead, as Sergius put it, 'The Lord's rationally ensouled flesh never performed its physical movement separately and of its own impulse (ὁρμή) in opposition to the will of the Word of God hypostatically united to it, but whenever and however and to whatever extent God the Word himself willed it' (2.2, p. 542, 18-21).[15]

III

In all, in the tradition and on both sides of the seventh-century debate, the role of the human will was constantly reduced to an instinctive, knee-jerk reaction of the flesh, which was merely a part of the natural human energy or operation. But there was an alternative – to interpret the opposition to the divine will as real, even culpable, but to attribute it to Christ only by appropriation, as in St Paul's statement: 'He made him to be sin who knew no sin' (2*Cor.* 5:21).[16] In Maximus the Confessor's *Disputation with Pyrrhus*, Pyrrhus is made to refer to 'men of Byzantium' who attribute a human will to Christ not according to nature but by 'appropriation', meaning, as the text explains, not 'essential appropriation', that is, actual possession (through taking on new qualities and experiences) but rather a mere *relation*, by which 'we appropriate and cherish out of friendship what belongs to others, without performing or suffering it ourselves' (PG 91, 304A). In this sense Christ took on ignorance, abandonment, and even rebellion against the divine will, not personally but in one might call sympathetic solidarity. One extant monothelete text (the *First Aporia* of Deacon Theodore of Constantinople, PG 91, 216B-C) expresses precisely this view, likening the ascription to Christ of a human will to the ascription to him of ignorance (which, after the condemnation of the Agnoetae in the sixth century, was never taken literally). Since the natural object of appropriation is an experience rather than a faculty, by 'human will' in these texts is probably meant yet again the human 'will' at Gethsemane. This is explicit in Pope Honorius' *First Letter to Sergius of Constantinople*: 'There was not in the Saviour "another law in the members" or a differing or contrary will ... Even if it was

[15] He gives the same account verbatim in the *Ecthesis* when explaining what is meant by denying two contrary wills and asserting one will in Christ (1, p. 160).

[16] See F.-M. Léthel, *Théologie* (1979), 50-2.

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written: "I came to do not my will but the will of the one who sent me", and: "Not as I will, but you will, Father" and the like, these are indicative not of a differing will but of the assumed dispensation of the manhood. For they were uttered on account of ourselves, to whom he gave an example.., so that each of us should learn to prefer in all things not his own will but rather that of the Lord' (2.2, p. 552, 12-19). To explain the agony in the garden by appropriation in this sense was traditional. Take Athanasius, who talked of Christ's speaking of his abandonment and of his 'supposed' fear of death: he shied away from attributing to Christ a personal experience of fear and God-forsakenness.[17] This minimizing of Christ's share in human weakness was not just an Alexandrian aberration: it is also to be found in John Chrysostom, who in one of his sermons on Matthew explains that the words 'Not as I will but as you will' were uttered to teach people to follow God, even if nature is reluctant, while the words asking for the cup to pass were uttered by Christ to prove the reality of his manhood. Likewise he interprets 'The spirit is willing but the flesh is weak' as a general statement about mankind's need for God's help and not as referring to Jesus' own experience.[18]

The monothelete Deacon Theodore, in the passage cited above, claims that treating the human will as Christ's by appropriation is to be found in Gregory Nazianzen's *First Theological Oration* on Christ (that is, *Oratio* 29). This is inaccurate, but he could have cited the following oration (30. 12), where Gregory writes that he understood 'If it is possible, may this cup pass from me; but not as I will' to refer not to any ignorance as to what was possible nor to any conflict of will in Christ, but to the limited knowledge and refractory will of 'humanity in our condition' (τοῦ καθ' ἡμᾶς).

IV

Notably absent in the debate so far is any recognition of the role of the rational will in Christ, of the emphasis in the *Letter to the Hebrews* (5:8) on his learning obedience through what he suffered.

Was the role of the rational will in accepting the passion appreciated by the orthodox? The answer, broadly, is No – until Maximus the Confessor, writing in the mid-seventh century. Consider Chrysostom, *Hom. 7 on the incomprehensible, against the Anomoeans*, where he argues that 'Not as I will but as You will'

[17] See Marcel Richard, Saint Athanase et la psychologie du Christ selon les Ariens: *Mélanges de Science Religieuse* 4 (1947) 5-54, esp. 34-5.

[18] John Chrysostom, *Hom. in Matth.* 83 (PG 58, 746-7). See M.E. Lawrenz, The Christology of John Chrysostom: *SP* 22 (1989) 148-53, esp. 150: 'Chrysostom does not describe full human volition as a characteristic of the human functions of Christ ... Unlike later Antiochene Christology, however, Chrysostom's Christology does not envision the convergence of the will of the Son and the Father as the moral accomplishment of the humanity of the Son.'

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proves that Christ had two wills and that he truly assumed a human nature, its reality exhibited by its fear of death. He continues: 'At one moment he leaves the flesh on its own and deprives it of his own operation, in order to reveal its weakness and prove its nature, and at another moment he hides it, so that you may learn that he was not a mere man' (PG 48, 766). All that manhood contributes is weakness.

Or take Cyril of Alexandria, *Thesaurus* (PG 75, 397A): the flesh, terrified at the thought of death, 'was taught not to feel this' as the Logos 'taught the manhood no longer to have its own thoughts but to seek the will of God'. This is better than Chrysostom's treatment. Still, the whole emphasis is on the soul's need of healing; there is no appreciation of its positive role, and no suggestion of human merit. And from the time of the Nestorian controversy Cyril reverted to the Athanasian concentration on the will of the Godhead and its condescension in allowing the flesh to experience its natural weakness, while the soul goes unmentioned.[19]

For an example of the failure of much of the seventh-century debate to focus on the role of Christ's rational will, take Ps.-Irenaeus, *Treatise on the Faith to Deacon Demetrius*:[20] this text singles out as the monothelete error not a neglect or denial of the role of Christ's rational will but simply a treatment of Christ's sufferings (distress, fear, anguish, hunger, weariness) as unreal. Here a distinction between orthodoxy and monotheletism is achieved only by misrepresenting the latter, for of course the monotheletes did not deny to Christ the blameless drives and impulses of the flesh.

What of the great dyothelete Council of Constantinople of 680/1? We read in its definition of the faith: 'We proclaim two natural wills, which are not contrary (perish the thought!), as the impious heretics have asserted, but rather [we proclaim] his human will that follows and does not oppose or resist but is instead subject to his divine and omnipotent will, for "it was necessary for the will of the flesh to be moved but to be subjected to the divine will" according to the all-wise Athanasius' (2.2, p. 774, 22-6). I used to suppose that this meant that Christ's rational will followed the divine will, but it is clear from passages I have cited above that the reference is merely to instinctive human reactions such as aversion to death. This is made crystal clear in the edict of the emperor Constantine IV, confirming the decrees of the council, which describes Christ's soul as 'voluntarily laying hold of all the blameless passions, like our own, whenever the Word allowed it to seek and wish its own,' and continues:

Accordingly it desired and longed for physical nourishment, according to reason, and was grieved and distressed; for when the Saviour came to the passion of the cross

[19] *E.g.* Cyril, *Hom. on Luke* 146, transl. R.P. Smith (Studion, 1983), 582f.; and *Quod unus sit Christus* (772D), in: *Deux dialogues christologiques*, SC 97 (Paris, 1964), 494.

[20] Published by Marcel Richard in *Polychronion. Festschrift F. Dölger* (Heidelberg, 1966), 431-40; reprinted in *id.*, *Opera Minora* III, §65. See esp. 436-8.

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according to free will, he began to be distressed and afraid ... He then prayed that the cup should pass, for as man he deprecated death.., while as God he was eager for the passion ... Our father Athanasius bears witness to this in the sermon on the Trinity and the Incarnation, when he says, '[The words] "Father, if is possible, let this cup pass from me, but let not my will be done but yours" reveal two wills, the human one, which is of the flesh, and the divine; the human one, because of the weakness of the flesh, deprecates the passion, while the divine will is eager for it' (2.2, pp. 842,11-844,2).

The emperor proceeds to cite Gregory Nazianzen, *Oratio* 30 on the obedience of the human will to the divine will – this is the passage I discussed above where St Gregory explains the resistance of the flesh as mere appropriation. In all, Constantinople III achieved no advance over the monothelete interpretation of Gethsemane.[21]

Did the monotheletes likewise fail to appreciate a human assent to the passion in Christ? There is an intriguing passage in the letter of the monothelete patriarch Paul of Constantinople to Pope Theodore I (1, pp. 196-204), that offers the following interpretation of 'Not my will but yours be done'. This, he says, means that Christ did *not* possess or exercise a will contrary to the divine will (this closely follows Gregory Nazianzen, *Oratio* 30. 12). The correct teaching, he continues, is that Christ passionlessly appropriated 'our human nature in its not choosing to be separated from the present life' and that we must not suppose 'that the flesh of God the Word, *ensouled as it was by a mind*, was averse to the passion that saved the world or differed in mind from the Father and the Word that indwelt it' (1, p. 202, 10-14). This seems to hint at an acceptance of the passion by the rational soul, but it is hesitant and undeveloped.

It is to St Maximus that we must turn for a realization that at Gethsemane it was the human will that, voluntarily and of its own impulse, accepted the passion. Christ's words 'Not my will but Yours be done' refer to a natural aversion to death but constitute an acceptance of the cross by the human, rational will.[22] This the monotheletes missed, but so did the tradition that preceded them, and so did Constantinople III. This surely means that the debate over energies and wills in the seventh century was to a large extent an unreal one; monotheletes and most dyotheletes shared the same traditional view (and surely a defective one) of the operation of Christ's manhood. What was novel in monotheletism was simply elevating the language of 'one will' in Christ (a traditional expression

[21] The Lateran Council of 649 did better: Pope Martin in his final speech, just before the approval of the canons, stressed the obedience of the human nature to the passion – attributed, be it noted, not to the human nature as a distinct subject but to the incarnate Word acting 'humanly' (1, pp. 360-5). But of course the modern view is that the Acts of 649 were largely composed (before the council even met!) by Maximus himself and other Greek monks; see Rudolf Riedinger, Die Lateransynode von 649 und Maximos der Bekenner, in: F. Heinzer and C. Schönborn (eds.), *Maximus Confessor: Actes du Symposium sur Maxime le Confesseur, Fribourg, 2-5 Septembre 1980* (Fribourg, 1982), 111-21.

[22] See F.-M. Léthel, *Théologie* (1979), 92-9.

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of a perfect harmony of will) into a requirement of orthodoxy; the motive for this was doubtless to win back the miaphysites, a motive that one can call 'political' or, more generously, 'ecumenical'. The worst one can justly say of monotheletism is that it *encouraged* (though it did not always involve) a reduction of the agony in the garden to mere appropriation, and that it *reinforced* the failure in orthodoxy (apart from St Maximus) to recognize the role of the rational will in Christ. In all, it embodied what was most defective in orthodoxy, but it belonged to the same current. It was not unorthodox.

To conclude, the traditional picture – affirmed by the dyotheletes in the seventh century and repeated constantly ever since – is that there was, from the time of Chalcedon, an instinctive though inarticulate sense that Christ has two wills, which the monotheletes challenged by inventing a new variety of Apollinarianism that denied him a human faculty of will; this was condemned, and orthodoxy re-established. The true picture, however, is that both the tradition inherited from the fourth century and the post-Nestorian consensus agreed on a view of Christ that did not deny him a rational will but gave it nothing to do and rarely referred to it. Whether there was talk of 'one will' or 'two wills' made no difference – until Maximus the Confessor came up with a new interpretation of Gethsemane and thereby of the operation of will(s) in Christ. His solution was not adopted at Constantinople III, but subsequently found its way into the orthodox tradition.[23] Such representation of real development as simply the preservation of traditional doctrine against heretical innovation has, of course, been a recurrent phenomenon in the history of Christianity. Because it actually facilitates innovation, we may allow it to theologians – but not, surely, to historians.

[23] John of Damascus in his treatment of Christ's wills in *On the orthodox faith* combines an admirably lucid summary of St Maximus' position with echoes of the more traditional position, *e.g.*: 'He wills not only those things which he willed naturally as God (for it is no part of Godhead to will to eat and drink and the like), but also those things that support human nature, and this not through opposition in choice (γνώμη) but through the individuality of the natures. For he willed naturally in this way when his divine volition willed it and permitted the flesh to suffer and do what was proper to it' (*Expositio fidei*, ed. Bonifatius Kotter, Berlin 1973, 139, 50-4).

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Michael Psellos: The Interpreter of the Style of Gregory the Theologian and the New Aspects of the Concepts of Rhetorical Theories

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Michael Psellos, the author of the treatises on the problems of style (the eleventh century), introduced the new, Christian understanding of the style – the notion of the theological style (θεολογικὸς χαρακτήρ) in his major treatise 'On theological style' (Περὶ τοῦ θεολογικοῦ χαρακτῆρος. Psellos, *Ad Pothum*)[1] as well as Photios introduced the understanding of ecclesiastical style – ἐκκλησιαστικὸς χαρακτήρ (Photios, *Bibliotheca.* cod. 126).[2] This understanding is dualistic, just as Byzantine literature and Byzantine rhetorical theory are. This means the unusual unity of the literary form and divine contents – the eloquent pagan form and high Christian idea; also it is characterized by another type of duality – the unity of two norms of the style. Gregory the Theologian's style is characterized in two ways by Michael Psellos in his major treatise:

1. According to Christian canon of style which means the expression of the divine contents with the Christian plainness (ἁπλότης, ἀφέλεια), clarity (σαφήνεια), *i.e.* the 'natural grandeur of the meaning and simplicity of the beauty' of form (τὸ φυσικὸν μέγεθος καὶ ἀνεπιτήδευτον κάλλος – Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 20; see τὸ ἔμφυτον κάλλος – 'the natural beauty'. Phot., *Amphilochia*, 86, PG 101, 557C), the first models of which are the writings of Apostle Paul. Such style is based on the principle of plainness and balance, it is characterized as containing neither too many atticisms nor too much simplicity (Phot., *Bibl.* 85b 37-42; 95a 22, 95a 41, 154a 25; Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 2, 3, 4, 9, 10, 15, 20, 23). This new canon of style is studied in the aspects of contents and form (Gr. Naz., *Or.* 32, c. 26, PG 36, 204 A13-B7).

2. The style of Gregory the Theologian's works is also characterized by Michael Psellos according to the norms of classical rhetoric – from the point of view of the literary form Gregory the Theologian's works are the samples of 'the high

[1] Psellos, *Ad Pothum* = Τοῦ ὑπερτίμου Ψέλλου λόγος σχεδιασθεὶς πρὸς Πόθον βεστάρχην ἀξιώσαντα αὐτὸν γράψαι περὶ τοῦ θεολογικοῦ χαρακτῆρος. A. Mayer, Psellos' Rede über den rhetorischen Character des Gregorios von Nazianz: *BZ* 20 (1911) 27-100.

[2] Ihor Ševčenko, Levels of Style in Byzantine Prose. XVI Internationale Byzantinischen Kongres. Akten I,1, Wien, 1981: *JOB*, 31/1 (1981) 289-312; see in particular 296.

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(eloquent) style and grandeur of rhetorical word' (ἡ μεγαληγορία καὶ ὁ τοῦ λόγου ὄγκος – Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 20; cc. 2, 3, 5, 7, 9, 12, 13, 16).

According to Michael Psellos, the coexistence and the unity of these two norms of the styles – first, high style and natural grandeur, and, second, plain beauty, – which is characteristic of Gregory the Theologian[3] was ended with an unusual result: 'The St. Father connected the unconnectable [things]' (ὁ δέ γε πατὴρ εἰς ταὐτὸ τὰ ἀσύγκλωστα θέμενος – Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 20, 382-3). The duality of connecting the unconnectable things is the unity of rhetoric and theology, classical and Christian. The latter means here the rhetoric without technique (ῥητορικόν ἐστιν ἀτεχνῶς – Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 13, 233-4). The beauty of St. Gregory's theological style is in its natural Christian plainness that passes pleasantly into eloquency, *i.e.* it is both natural (κατὰ φύσιν) and eloquent (καλλιρεμονέστερον καὶ γλυκύτερον – beautifully fluent and sweeter) at the same time (Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 12, 215-6).

The co-occurrence and unity of the two norms of the styles construct the new notion of the theological-rhetorical style that is called the new canon, another literary road, namely, a 'different' (ἄλλη) way of rhetoric (λόγος) by Gregory the Theologian: ἄλλην . . . τῶν λόγων . . . δδόν; Gr. Naz., *Carmen* II, 1, n. 39, v. 22. PG 37, col. 1331), and a 'new', 'unusual' (καινόν) idea by Michael Psellos (καινὸν τοῦτ' ἂν εἴη τὸ νόημα, Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 2, 32) fulfilled in St. Gregory's works.

Many features characterize the theological style. The two aspects of the concept of imitation (mimesis) that also have dualistic character are the most important of these features. One is the traditional aspect of mimesis, and another is the new, Christian interpretation of it.

Classical aspect of the concept of imitation in Byzantine theory of rhetoric

Byzantine rhetorical theory inherited the traditional meaning of the concept of imitation from Hellenistic theories of rhetoric. This does not include the classical types of mimesis well-known in poetics, esthetics and philosophy (Plato: The physical world imitates the metaphysical one. *Resp.* X; *Parmen.* 132d; Aristotle: Art imitates nature and life. *Poet.* I 3-4, 47a 13-48a 19; II 4; IV 48b 4-24), but only the later narrower use of this concept in classical rhetorical theories. This, namely, is the imitation of classical rhetorical-stylistic models: teaching method and guide for sophists, the canons of the models of imitation

[3] ἁπανταχοῦ δὲ ἡ μεγαληγορία καὶ ὁ τοῦ λόγου ὄγκος καὶ τὸ φυσικὸν μέγεθος καὶ τὸ ἀνεπιτήδευτον κάλλος ... ὁ τοιοῦτος χαρακτὴρ ἀπαθὴς καὶ ἀσχεμάτιστος πέφυκε ('everywhere the high style and the loftiness of word, also the natural grandeur and plain beauty [are shown] ... the style of this type is free of passion and figures'), Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 20, 377-83.

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(of the best orators such as Isocrates, Lysia, Demosthenes, Eschines and others) in Hellenistic and Roman periods. In other words this is the imitation of the best features of the earlier authors by later authors, the classical ideal expressed in terms μίμησις τῶν ἀρχαίων ('imitation of the archaic [authors]'); see: κατὰ ζῆλον ἀρχαίων ('according to jealousy of archaic [authors]', Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 2, 21-3, 39-40; Psellos, *Characteres*, cc. 2, 3, PG 122, 905A5, B14).

The first poetic tracts on the above-told classical aspect of the concept of mimesis were written by Demetrios (the fourth-third centuries B.C. Demetr., *De elocutione*), Dionysios of Halikarnassos (the first century B.C. Dion. Hal., *De imitatione*; *De compositione*) and Hermogenes (the second century. Hermog., *De ideis*; *Progymnasmata*). They defined the features of mimesis (composition, rhetorical figures etc.). Beginning with Dionysios of Halikarnassos the idea of atticism was at its height in the second sophistic (the second century) and was spread in the Byzantine period (Photius, *Bibl.* cod. 57; Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 2; Psellos, *Characteres*, PG 122, cc. 2, 3, 5), and the best models of mimesis were the well-known Attic authors: Thucidides, Plato and others. Beginning with the second sophistic ἀρχαίζειν – ἀττικίζειν (in archaic way – in Attic way) were opposed to Asian novelties in rhetoric: νεωτερίζειν – ἀσιανίζειν (in a new way – in Asian way). This aspect of the concept of mimesis in the meaning of using the best rhetorical form was acquired by Michael Psellos from Hellenistic rhetorical theories.[4] Though, according to Psellos, by imitating the stylistic characters of old orators St. Gregory attained the archetypal nature and beauty of his style which is homogenous by its nature (Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 2, 3, 12, 16; Psellos, *Characteres*, c. 2. PG 122, 901D 8-15).

In Michael Psellos's minor tract 'On the style of St. Fathers' (Gregory the Theologian, Basil of Caesarea, Gregory of Nyssa and John Chrysostom) the traditional concept of mimesis – the imitation of rhetorical-philosophical form is characterized as the ape's primitive ability to imitate everything good. At the same time this image is opposed to the image of grandeur and originality of the lion, in other words, to the grand (eloquent) Christian style that is based on

[4] Johann Christian Gottlieb Ernesti, *Lexicon Technologiae Graecorum Rhetoricae* (Leipzig, 1795 / Darmstadt, 1962), s.v. μίμησις; Josef Martin, *Antike Rhetorik. Technik und Methode* (Münich, 1974), 7, 291; Heinrich Lausberg, *Handbuch der literarischen Rhetorik. Eine Grundlegund der literaturwissenschaft*, (Münich, 1960), 544; Hubert Hunger, On the Imitation (Μίμησις) of Antiquity in Byzantine Literature: DOP 23-4 (1969-70) 17-38; George Alexander Kennedy, *Classical Rhetoric and its Christian and Secular Tradition from Ancient to Modern Times* (Chapel Hill, 1980), 25-40. George L. Kustas, *Studies in Byzantine Rhetoric*, Analecta Blatadōn, 17 (Thessaloniki, 1973), 18, 30, 42, 57, 170. Iakov Ljubarski, Literary-theoretical Opinions of Michael Psellos, in: *Antiquity and Byzantium* (Moscow, 1975), 123 (in Russian); T.A. Miller, Michael Psellos and Dionysios of Halikarnassos, in: *Antiquity and Byzantium* (Moscow, 1975), 146 (in Russian).

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uniting many in one and not mere imitation (Psellos, *Characteres*, c. 2. PG 122, 904D 13-905A 18).[5]

The comparison of an ape to a lion is the beloved theme of classical proverbs later also used by Gregory the Theologian in his works. But in Michael Psellos's tract these images are mentioned in connection with the features of the style. Michael Psellos mentions these images in studying the style of the works of Gregory the Theologian.

New, Christian aspect of the concept of imitation in Byzantine theory of rhetoric

As mentioned above, the classical meaning of the concept of imitation implies imitating the best rhetorical-philosophical form, the eloquent style of the earlier authors; and this aspect of the concept accepted in Byzantine literature was noticed and mentioned in above quoted scholarly literature; but the new interpretation of the concept of mimesis implies the imitation of the height and plainness of Christian idea in the aspects of contents and form, in other words, the imitation of the implicitness of the hidden nature of divine wisdom and stylistic simplicity of the writings of Apostle Paul and the First Christian authors. The new aspect of this concept was revealed earlier, in my recent works, and the classical aspect of the concept was thoroughly analyzed according to the treatises of Psellos.[6]

This idea may be traced not only in the theoretical treatises but also in some other theological writings of Byzantine authors (*e.g.*, Niceta the Paphlagonian – the tenth century, Michael Psellos – the eleventh century) that makes the notions of Byzantine theory of rhetoric. In these writings the traditional understanding of mimesis, which implies imitating eloquent rhetorical form, is opposed by the new, Christian meaning of mimesis, which means imitating the style of St. Paul the Apostle, in other words, imitating the plainness of Christian divine contents and the evangelic simplicity of its outward form. *E.g.*, in Niceta of Paphlagonian's Encomium of Gregory Nazianzen classical eloquence

[5] Psellos, *Characteres* = Τοῦ αὐτοῦ χαρακτῆρες Γρηγορίου τοῦ Θεολόγου, τοῦ Μεγάλου Βασιλείου, τοῦ Χρυσοστόμου, καὶ Γρηγορίου τοῦ Νύσσης (Michael Psellos, Characteres Gregorii Theologi, Basilii Magni, S.Joannis Chrisostomi et Gregorii Nysseni) (PG 122, col. 901-8), in: Psellos, *De operatione Daemonum*, Jean-François Boissonade (ed.) (Norimbergae, 1838), 124-31.

[6] Ketevan Bezarashvili, Traditional Classical Concept of Imitation in Byzantine Theories of Rhetoric and Ephrem Mtsire's Writings, in: *Matsne* (Proceedings of Georgian Academy of Sciences, Language and Literature Series) 1-4 (1997) 138-61 (in Georgian). K. Bezarashvili, New, Christian Aspect of the Concept of Imitation in Byzantine Theories of Rhetoric and in Ephrem Mtsire's Writings, in: *Matsne* 1-4 (1998) 89-128 (in Georgian). K. Bezarashvili, *Theory and Practice of Rhetoric and Translation: A Study of Georgian Translations of Gregory the Theologian's Writings* (Tbilisi, 2004), 159-259 (in Georgian).

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and wisdom acquired by St. Gregory are opposed to the simplicity of Apostles that is expressed without τέχνη, *i.e.* art of rhetoric: οὐ κατὰ τύπον τῶν ἔξωθεν σοφῶν, ἀλλὰ κατὰ μίμησιν ἀτεχνῶς τὴν ἀποστολικήν (not in the way of outer wisdom, but according the imitation of the Apostolic [style] without skill).[7]

In Michael Psellos's tract 'On Theological Style' Michael Psellos characterizes the imitation of hidden (implicit) theology and plainness of the style of St. Paul's Epistles which is imitated by Gregory the Theologian: τὸν ἐκείνου Παῦλον μιμούμενος (imitates this Paul. Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 15, 290-5). According to Michael Psellos, Gregory the Theologian imitates St. Paul in the following manner: he, like St. Paul, knows the incorporeal things but the highest hidden meaning is not wholly expressed by him, and he only gives hints to it, and leaves this knowledge for himself. Besides, Gregory also imitates St. Paul in talking plainly on the unexpressed and implicit contents, thus giving all kinds of listeners the opportunity of getting the knowledge corresponding to their personal abilities. Here Michael Psellos implies the deep content of Apostle's word and plain form of its expression.

The theme of imitating St. Paul and, generally, the Apostles and Prophets is frequent in Christian literature (μιμέομαι, ζηλόω – 1*Cor.* 4:16; 11:1; 14:1; *Gal.* 4:18; *Phil.* 3:17). But in Michael Psellos's tract it is explicitly mentioned in the context of characterizing style (the imitation of Paul's style is mentioned by Michael Psellos when he analyses Gregory the Theologian's style), and that is why it acquires literary-theoretical value.

According to Michael Psellos, the new understanding of the concept of mimesis, different from its classical meaning, must naturally have been the model of imitation for Gregory the Theologian whose work in its turn is the best model of the new, rhetorical-theological style.

The imitation of the plainness of St. Paul's style is the feature of the new, Christian canon of rhetoric – the main characteristic of theological-rhetorical style which raises the Christian style above all classical levels, above the grand (eloquent) style itself (see Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 2, 3, 6, 20).

The main features of this new, Christian canon of style, as mentioned above, are: clarity and plainness, hidden (implicit) character or depth and height, laconism of the divine word, divine beauty (which is called theological and 'our' beauty, i.e. ecclesiastical beauty – Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 12), the liveliness of divine word (Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 2, 12) *etc.*

Thus, according to Michael Psellos, two kinds of imitation are characteristic of Gregory the Theologian's style: its implicit character, depth and height, and obscurity and complexity (ἀπόῤῥητος, ἀσαφής, Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 13, 21, 22, 23), also laconism (σύντομος, Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 5, 7, 23); on the

[7] *The Encomium of Gregory Nazianzen by Niceta the Paphlagonian.* Greek text edited and translated by James John Rizzo, SH 58 (Bruxelles, 1976), 19f.

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other hand it is also characterized as lucid-clear (σαφής, Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 21) and plain-simple (ἁπλόος, ἀφελής, Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 3, 9, 23). Clarity and depth – both are the stylistic features of St, Gregory's works analyzed together by Michael Psellos.

Concept of beauty in Byzantine esthetics

The understanding of the concept of beauty is also characterized by two aspects in Byzantine rhetorical theories (in Gregory the Theologian's homilies, in Basilius Minimus's commentaries on St, Gregory's homilies, in Michael Psellos's tracts on the style of Gregory the Theologian and of the St. Fathers etc.). This is its classical and Christian, i.e. esthetical and transcendental understanding, in other words, understanding in the aspects of form and contents of the concept of beauty, ornamentalism, sweetness (κάλλος, χάρις, κόσμος, γλυκύς, ἡδύς) *etc.* that are the concepts of pleasantness, aesthetic pleasure and good literary form wide-spread in classical rhetorical theories.[8]

The classical meaning of the concept of beauty (Aristotle, Demetrios, Dionysios of Halikarnassos, Hermogenes etc.) inherited by Byzantine esthetics implies the beauty of the means of expression, of rhetorical ornaments, of rhythmic elements etc. (Gr. Naz. *Or.* 26, c. 10, PG 35, 1241B. *Or.* 8, c. 3, PG 35, 792D5. Psellos, *Characteres*, c. 2. PG 122, 904D-905A; Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 2, 3, 5, 7, 10, 12, 20).

The understanding of the concept of beauty in the aspect of contents implies the beauty and sublimity of the divine thought. The beauty of semantic meaning and of the sublime idea existing in the classical theories was changed by the cult of the beauty of the divine idea in Christian esthetics. Thus the concept of beauty was understood in an ontological, gnoseological, ethical aspects which was preceded by Platonic and Neoplatonic interpretation of the notion of metaphysical beauty (Plat., *Sympos.* 210e-211d. Plotin., *Ennead.* I 6,1-2; see Dion. Areop., *De divinis nominibus* IV 7. *De coelesti hierarchia* 3 *etc.*).[9]

According to the above-mentioned Byzantine authors, the esthetical beauty of outward form is valued only in connection to divine, transcendental. The beauty of the contents must be expressed by the beautiful form. According to St. Gregory as well as according to other St. Fathers, the concept of beauty and charm for Christians is not in the words, but in contemplation, in divine idea (τὸ κάλλος ἡμῖν ἐν θεωρίᾳ – Gr. Naz. *Carmen* II 1, n. 39, v. 51, PG 37, col. 1333). The concept of beauty inherited from Hellenistic rhetorical theories is presented here in its new, Christian meaning. In classical theories it had the

[8] J. Martin, *Antike Rhetorik* (1974), 338f., 342-5, 169f., 259.

[9] See Viktor Bichkov, *Aesthetics of Late Antiquity* (Moscow, 1981), 231f. (in Russian).

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meaning of beauty of outward rhetorical form. Here it has the meaning of transcendental beauty.

Michael Psellos presented the theory of the new unity of canons of the classical and Christian styles: the beauty of original rhetorical art (τέχνη) achieved by means of mimesis and the beauty of the divine word coming from heavenly sources that were united in the works of St. Gregory. As told above, Gregory the Theologian managed to connect unconnectable things as he intertwined the Christian plain unornamented beauty with the classical eloquent style (Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 20). After studying St, Gregory's method Michael Psellos introduced the new concept of theological beauty: τὸ θεολογικὸν καὶ ἡμέτερον κάλλος ('theological and our beauty', *i.e.* ecclesiastical beauty – Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, c. 12, 214); see τὸ τοῦ οὐρανοῦ κάλλος. χάρισιν ἀποῤῥήτοις ('heavenly beauty', 'in hidden beauty', Psellos, *Ad Pothum*, cc. 2, 6, 19, 19); see τὸ μυστικὸν κάλλος ('mystic beauty'. Gr. Naz. *Or.* 2, c. 48, PG 35, 457A2-3); see θεῖα χάρις, ἄνωθεν χάρις ('divine beauty', 'heavenly beauty', Photius, *Amphilochia*, PG 101, 945C, 697D; PG 102, 861D, 657D), as the expression of the heavenly beauty that was different from the outward, sensible (*i.e.* esthetical) meaning of this concept.[10]

Conclusion

In Byzantine rhetorical theory many concepts were inherited from its classical counterpart. This issue is well studied in scholarly literature. However it has always been difficult to identify the new peculiarities of Byzantine theory of rhetoric due to the following reason: Byzantine theory inherited the concepts of Hellenistic theories, but still expressed their own developments of these concepts in traditional terms of the classical theories of rhetoric.

The study of the problem makes it obvious that the Byzantine rhetorical theory is not a mere imitation of classical theories, but develops new aspects of the classical concepts. That is to say, Christian literature inherited the traditional meaning of the concept of mimesis from Hellenistic theories – imitation of the best rhetorical features of the earlier authors. Along with it a new, Christian meaning of mimesis was introduced by Michael Psellos. It means imitating the style of St. Paul the Apostle, the plainness of divine contents and the evangelic simplicity of its outward literary form. The saint fathers were also aware of this new aspect of the concept of mimesis, although the concept itself was theoretically formed only in Psellos' treatises.

[10] K. Bezarashvili, On the Understanding of the Concept of Beauty in Byzantine Aesthetics and in the Writings of Ephrem Mtsire, I, in: *Sjani* III (Discussions, Annual Literary-Theoretical Collection) (2002) 74-90; II, in: *Sjani* IV (2003) 58-78 (in Georgian). K. Bezarashvili, *Theory and Practice of Rhetoric and Translation* (2004), 530-87.

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In his works Photios theoretically structured the notion of ecclesiastic style expressed with evangelical plainness. The same idea may be found in the writings of saint fathers, also in theoretical thought, for example, in Basilius Minimus' rhetorical commentaries. Michael Psellos introduced the notion of the theological-rhetorical style meaning the unity of two norms: Classical and Christian, eloquent style and plainness.

Michael Psellos also issued a new concept of theological beauty. This idea is expressed in Patristic literature, too, and means transcendental beauty. This new aspect of the concept of beauty was different from the outward, sensible (*i.e.* esthetical) meaning of it used in classical theories mainly as the beauty of literary form.

The two aspects of the concepts of mimesis, style and beauty differ from each other and at the same time they co-exist. This co-existence of opposite notions is called by Michael Psellos connecting unconnectable things; this is the main peculiarity of Byzantine aesthetics that makes it different from classical understanding.

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Gregory Palamas' Energetic Approach to Person: Existential and Ontological Implications

Nicholas BAMFORD, St Albans

Introduction

Palamite energetic theology has come to be accepted as an integral part of Eastern Orthodox identity[1] and yet it is unclear within this tradition what is understood by θείας ἐνεργείας (divine energies), the function of θείας ἐνεργείας as differing to *hypostatic oikonomia,* and the relationship of Palamite categories to the discourse of 'person' in contemporary Orthodox theology. This discourse within the scholastic debate[2] should not however, be engaged only within so-called 'authentic' patristic interpretations, but must be considered as relational to Western influences and thus to a 'neopatristic synthesis.'[3] The juxtapositioning of personhood in neopatristic study to the philosophical, for example of the incorporation of the existentialism of Heidegger as evidenced by Zizioulas[4] and Yannaras,[5] has led to 'new' ways of looking at 'person' by re-addressing the Fathers through a synthesising of the relationality of Heidegger, Buber and Macmurray through existentialism.[6] This in turn has led to the examination for the place of 'new' ontologies',[7] evidenced in the model offered

[1] See Kallistos Ware, God Hidden and Revealed: The Apophatic Way and the Essence-Energies Distinction: *ECR* 7 (1975) 125-36; Vladimir Lossky, *The Vision of God* (Crestwood, 1983); and Aristotle Papanikolaou, *Being with God* (Notre Dame, Indiana, 2006).

[2] Alan Brown, On the Criticism of *Being as Communion* in Anglophone Orthodox Theology, in: Douglas Knight (ed.), *The Theology of John Zizioulas* (London, 2007), 35-78.

[3] See George H. Williams, The Neo-Patristic Synthesis of Georges Florovsky, in: Andrew Blane (ed.), *Georges Florovsky: Russian Intellectual-Orthodox Churchman* (Crestwood, 1993), 287-340, and John D. Zizioulas, *Being as Communion* (Crestwood, 1997), 26.

[4] While Papanikolaou rejects the claim that Zizioulas is an existentialist of the Heideggerian type, see A. Papanikolaou, Is John Zizioulas an Existentialist in Disguise? Response to Lucian Turcescu: *MT* 20 (2004) 601-7 and Zizioulas himself denies such claims against him, see John. D. Zizioulas, Appendix, in: *Communion and Otherness*, ed. P. McPartlan (London, 2006), 171-7, Paul Collins in developing a 'hermeneutic of relationality', offers evidence to the contrary, see Paul Collins, Communion: God, Creation and Church: *AAR: Ecclesiological Investigations Panel* (Washington, 2006), 1-25. Also Zizioulas himself asserts that his work is directed to the existential, see *Being as Communion* (1997), 26.

[5] Christos Yannaras, The Distinction Between Essence and Energies and its Importance for Theology: *SVTQ* 19 (1975) 232-64.

[6] P. Collins, Communion: God, Creation and Church (2006).

[7] See Paul Collins, *Trinitarian Theology West and East: Karl Barth, the Cappadocian Fathers, and John Zizioulas* (Oxford, 2001).

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by Zizioulas,[8] and yet in this arena the re-engaging with Palamite theology could help to balance the normative existentialisms of Zizioulas and Yannaras. The engagement of 'Orthodoxy' with the West has led to 'new' traditions emerging out of the encounter especially in the context of 'Zizioulian' theology where, for Brown,[9] two groups have arisen, the first following the line of neo-patristics and the second emerging from 'philosophico-theological Anglican postliberalism.'[10] This all too simple *schema* however allows Brown to consider that a perceived split has arisen between these two groups in which present day 'Orthodoxy' has become entrenched. While Brown does highlight the complex topography in present day Orthodox neopatristic scholarship in which any discussion of 'person' in Palamite theology must be placed, his categories are unhelpful as no single theologian can be wholly placed in one particular category, as Plested states 'no Christian author writes in isolation',[11] which is certainly true of Gregory Palamas whose theological stance is placed in relation to the theological debate of his day.

Essence-Energy Divide?

We may begin the discussion by considering the result of the Palamite *essence-energy* distinction[12] which has entrenched ontological distinctions between the creator and created. In underlining the 'ontological gulf'[13] the place for the *theologia-oikonomia* debate[14] has emphasised the necessity to overcome the problematic of divine transcendence in the establishment of a meaningful meeting between the divine and humanity. To overcome the dichotomy of divine transcendence-immanence, Palamas utilised the theology of θείας ἐνεργείας[15] to establish an experiential union. But does this model represent, a move away from the divine ontological centre and hence a blockage to true ontological union, or a pathway to true being? Palamas utilised the Cappadocian development of ὑπόστασις[16] (person) through *hypostatic operations*[17] and *energetic*

[8] J. Zizioulas, *Being as Communion* (1997).

[9] Alan Brown, On the Criticism of *Being as Communion* (2007), 37.

[10] *Ibid.*

[11] Marcus Plested, *The Macarian Legacy* (Oxford, 2004), 30.

[12] See M.A. Fahey and John Meyendorff, *Trinitarian Theology East and West* (Brookline, 1986).

[13] For examples, see Gregory of Nyssa, *C. Eun.* I 5 (PG 45); Gregory Nazianzus, *Orationes* 28.17 (PG 36, 48C-49A); Gregory Palamas, *Triads* D II 3.9, ed. J. Meyendorff, CWS (Mahwah, 1983); Andrew Louth, *The Origins of Christian Mystical Tradition* (Oxford, 1981), xiv; Thomas L. Anastos, Gregory Palamas' Radicalisation of the Essence, Energies and Hypostasis Model of God: *GOTR* 38 (1993) 335-49; A.N. Williams, *The Ground of Union* (New York, 1999), 142.

[14] Catherine Mowry LaCugna, *God for Us* (New York, 1993).

[15] Gregory Palamas, *Cap. 150.* 74 (PG 150).

[16] See Lucian Turcescu's work *Gregory of Nyssa and the Concept of Divine Persons* (New York, 2005).

[17] Gregory of Nyssa, *Tres dii* (PG 45, 124C).

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language to overcome the problem of divine transcendence and anthropological participation yet to reiterate that the divine substance, οὐσία,[18] remains beyond the human experience.[19] Palamas as with the Cappadocians[20] stressed the *hypostatic* language to support his line of thought. His upholding of divine unknowability paradoxically allowed for anthropological participation with the divine to become theologically accessible through divine ἐνεργείας (energies), which is always qualified by upholding divine inaccessibility.[21] By utilising ἐνεργείας though, Palamas does not indicate different types of energies but a unity of energy, of a type of energy that is yet multi-functional coming from/out, of the divine *hypostases*; the energies are κοινὴ τῆς τρισυποστάτου φύσεως (common to the *trihypostatic* nature).[22] However he does not indicate how the energies coming from the specific *hypostases*, for example of the Son, are different to that of the Holy Spirit, or how the use in a singular denotation ἐνεργείας[23] is different in function, if at all, to the denotation ἐνεργείας,[24] or how the energies reflect, distinctiveness of divine *hypostases* and the unity of the Godhead. Unlike the distinction of the ἰδιότες (notes or particularities)[25] of the three *hypostases*, ἐνεργείας indicates a unity of a type of activity that flows ontologically backward, from *hypostasis, nature, essence, Godhead,* and thus Palamas seems to lean towards a sort of divine existential subordinationism or emanationism.

Palamas continued along the Johannine tradition, θεὸν οὐδεὶς ἑώρακεν πώποτε ('no one has seen God at any time'; *John* 1:18) and that of John Chrysostom who believed Scriptural references of 'seeing' God[26] remained 'instances of His condescension'. Palamas, as did Chrysostom, believed that the experience of divine essence is beyond human capabilities, and resorted to the Cappadocian[27] interpretation of ἐνεργείας as the 'operations' of the divine *hypostases* to allow human engagement with the divine, as Basil of Caesarea states 'we know our God from his operations'.[28] This view is taken up by Palamas where he utilises *hypostasis* to develop an energetic stance. Palamas though does not tell us in what way the activity of ἐνεργείας is specifically distinct from that of ὑπόστασις or οὐσία but only to confirm that a distinction

[18] See André De Halleux, Personnalisme ou essentialisme trinitaire chez les Peres cappadociens: *RTL* 17 (1986) 129-55.

[19] *Triads*, D II 3.9.

[20] See Gregory of Nyssa, *C. Eun.* I 5; Gregory Nazianzus, *Orationes* 28.17 and K. Ware, God Hidden and Revealed: The Apophatic Way and the Essence-Energies Distinction (1975), 126.

[21] *Cap. 150.* 110, 113.

[22] *Cap. 150.* 109.

[23] *Cap. 150.* 96.

[24] *Cap. 150.* 85.

[25] See Basil of Caesarea, *Ep.* 38 (PG 32, 329B).

[26] John Chrysostom, *Hom.* 15 (PG 59, 98).

[27] Example of see Gregory of Nyssa, *Tres dii* (PG 45, 124C).

[28] Basil of Caesarea, *Ep.* 234 (PG 32, 869-872).

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is evident.[29] Note here that ἐνέργεια has come to mean something more nuanced than meaning mere activity. Because the θείας ἐνεργείας is for Gregory Palamas *enhypostatic*,[30] that is to say within and coming out from the *hypostases* of the Trinity, not from itself 'nor in essence'[31] but made accessible through the *oikonomia* of the *hypostases* of the Trinity, ἐνέργεια is not a thing in itself, it has no ontological centre, it is thus a purely existential phenomenon. The θείας ἐνεργείας is not a ὑπόστασις of itself but coming out from one '*hypostasis* to another.'[32] It is the *ek-static* function of θείας ἐνεργείας that makes it existentially available which in itself indicates how to view the human person. Palamas though does not state what a 'person' is, but what he/she is not in relation to the divine being but what he/she can become on an experiential level. Palamas negates a participation that involves substance which would infer a material ontological receptivity and potentiality, but rather it is χάρις[33] (grace) that conforms the human 'person' to energetic participation. Though Palamas' interpretation of 'person' is through the concept of *hypostasis*, is not clear how to view his notion of *hypostasis* as 'person' within the modern sense.[34]

Existential Implications

While Gregory of Nyssa utilised ἐνέργεια to express the 'operations' of the *hypostases* of the Trinity,[35] Palamas expands the concept of ἐνέργεια within his model of *uncreated energies*,[36] to allow ἐνέργεια to become an existential category, resulting in divine accessibility and that *uncreated energies* have become a new theological category. Within this schema the individual human person is able to receive the 'superluminous and theurgic ray'[37] which in turn indicates the *way* in which the human person can and should exist. I do not have being because of substance but because of my type of existence or *tropos hyparxeos*. Palamas fundamentally rejects the equating of deification only within the natural ontological state[38] or to the material or psychological; there is a supernatural dimension to the divine gift of deification. But there is a dichotomy here, for it is only in being a 'person', as a material experient that the reception of the divine can be accomplished. No cow or pig is personally

[29] *Cap. 150.* 96-100.
[30] *Triads*, E III 1.9, also see J. Meyendorff, *A Study of Gregory Palamas* (Crestwood, 1998), 216.
[31] *Ibid.*
[32] *Ibid.*
[33] *Cap. 150.* 74.
[34] *Cap. 150.* 109.
[35] *Tres dii* (PG 45, 124C).
[36] *Triads*, F III 2.8.
[37] *Triads*, E III 1.29.
[38] *Triads*, E III 1.30.

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deified, it is the very substance of being a human person that allows the state of *theosis* to be existentially attained. Yet it is the metaphysical dimension that allows the totality to be a 'person,' of the attaining of human perfection, its *telos*.

The reception of θείας ἐνεργείας brings a relational context to the 'person' which thus informs of what the human person not only is, but should be. 'Person' comes out of the normative and accepts a participatory existence with the divine, entering into an ontological state or *theosis*.[39] Palamas is not merely offering a platonic idealism but the possibility of a participation of the divine in the *real*. The human person meets the transcendent through the 'activity' of θείας ἐνεργείας. Nevertheless there is a preponderance of the impersonal within such a determination. The confusion of the use of ἐνέργεια is exasperated in that Palamas makes a distinction between ἐνέργεια and with substance and nature, 'φύσις δὲ καὶ ἐνέργεια οὐ ταὐτόν' (nature and energy are not identical),[40] and yet connects the θείας ἐνεργείας to divine *hypostases* and not to essence or the nature of God. There seems to be a division between the activity and being of the divine. Indicating more in his use of energies than what was intended by the Cappadocians, Palamas seems to place such a stress on the use of ἐνέργεια as to manifest an unbridgeable divide between *being* and *act*, that an almost disingenuous divine ontology becomes developed in relation to revelation and *oikonomia*. The paradox being, that in developing a model that makes anthropological participation with the divine accessible, the divine moves further away. In this respect the θείας ἐνεργείας for LaCugna become an obstacle for true *oikonomia*.[41] However Palamas, in making the divine experience available in a participation of uncreated energies, allows for a type of *oikonomia* that LaCugna[42] wishes to normalise and thus also does not understand what is being accomplished by Palamas.

Palamas rejects the relationship of θείας ἐνεργείας with material substances and participation is by ἐνέργεια and 'grace'.[43] He predicates any kind of ontology to the experience, or what can be understood in the modern sense as the existential, and takes up the Cappadocians focusing upon the *hypostatic* existential language[44] but through the functioning role of θείας ἐνεργείας. The energetic theology of Palamas becomes purely functional, relating to the experiential.[45] It seems that while Palamas allows for energies to be related to

[39] *Cap. 150.* 105.
[40] *Cap. 150.* 96.
[41] C.M. LaCugna, *God for Us* (New York, 1993).
[42] *Ibid.* 188.
[43] *Cap. 150.* 109.
[44] A. de Halleux, Personnalisme ou essentialisme trinitaire (1986), 134; see also Lucian Turcescu's work *Gregory of Nyssa and the Concept of Divine Persons* (New York, 2005), 104; G.L. Prestige, *God in Patristic Thought* (London, 1959), 245; Basil of Caesarea, *Ep.* 38 (PG 32, 337A).
[45] A.N. Williams, *The Ground of Union* (1999), 142

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the ontological in the divine case, but in the human case, energies have no real ontological value. The existential implications of Palamas in the modern debate considered by Yannaras,[46] Meyendorff,[47] and Florovsky,[48] therefore upholds a purely existential conclusion and but if we examine Palamas closely the relationship of energies with *hypostatic* being demands that energies have to be considered also ontologically, we can not divorce *being* from *act*, unless being is not to be considered at all which is a conclusion opposite to what was intended by the Fathers. We can thus admit the possibilities of a new type of existentialism in which the context of divine participation adjusts the modern concept of how to exist, as being a living creature. While I would qualify Yannaras' and Zizioulas' dependency to envisage 'person' purely in terms of the relational either in the language of 'ontological event'[49] or in the normative, in Palamas we see an opportunity to consider 'person' within a maximalist existentialism that is also ontological; it informs who we are.

Conclusion

While in Palamism the distinction between 'person' and *hypostasis*, understood in the modern sense, is not clearly stated which blurs what can be considered ontologically in the anthropological sense, a re-considering of his theological argument within the experiential opens up deeper philosophical considerations in understanding the human 'person'. However, this too has to be qualified by underlining what way 'persons' are deified and the relationship of *theosis* to ecclesiology, soteriology and the wider context of humanity. There seems to be in Palamas a conceptual disparity between what is theologically plausible and to what is reasonably arguable. Nevertheless the idealism of Palamas, which overcomes the Neoplatonic division of soul and body by considering deification in the holistic sense, has implications in the category of 'person' on both an ontological level and on an existential level that has profound implications.

[46] C. Yannaras, The Distinction between Essence and Energies (1975), 232-64.

[47] J. Meyendorff, *A Study of Gregory Palamas* (Crestwood, 1998), 202-27.

[48] George Florovsky, St Gregory Palamas and the Tradition of the Fathers: *Sobornost* 4 (1961) 165-76.

[49] C. Yannaras, The Distinction between Essence and Energies (1975), and J. Zizioulas, *Being as Communion* (1997), 15-8.

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The Mystery of the Cross in the Theology of St Gregory Palamas

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A commonly held assumption is that East and West represent two complimentary poles of Christianity, the East with its emphasis on transfiguration glory and the West with its emphasis on the crucifixion. Such a crude scheme represents in my view a false polarity and would be helpfully addressed in the case of Gregory Palamas.[1] In this paper I will, therefore, review the theme of the mystery of the cross in Palamas, in some measure to redress the balance, but more importantly to show that it is precisely because the theology of light which Palamas expounds has at its centre a theology of the cross that the high claims for human transformation are possible.

The mystery of the cross

The theme of the cross is most clearly elaborated in Palamas' homilies. It is not a distinct theme in his polemical works, where the focus is more often the divine light, but our understanding of the divine light is enhanced by reference to the more direct treatments of the cross in the homilies, in particular the homily delivered on the Third Sunday of Lent *On the Precious and Life-Giving Cross* which describes the vision of God in terms of the mystery of the cross.[2]

[1] *PLP* 21546. Robert E. Sinkewicz has given the most recent summary of the life and thought of Gregory Palamas with an extensive bibliography in Carmelo Giuseppe Conticello and Vassa Conticello (eds.), *La théologie byzantine et sa tradition II* (Turnhout, 2002), 131-88.

Gregory Palamas (1296-1357), monk theologian and, in his later years, Archbishop of Thessalonica is most widely known for his defence of the claim to see God directly in a vision of uncreated light. Following debate on this point within the Byzantine church, synodal decrees in Constantinople used the theological formulae which Palamas had elaborated to affirm that God is inaccessible as divine essence but is present fully in his divine energies, which may be experienced in prayer as divine light and by which human beings are deified. The paradigm for such experience being the Transfiguration of Christ. The monastic way of life, which underpinned Palamas' theology, is referred to as hesychast because of its association with a particular form of prayer, which aspired to be immaterial and sometimes involved bodily techniques and which flourished, especially on Mount Athos, in the fourteenth century. Hesychasm and Palamite theology are not identical but this prayer, understood as a way of life, is integral to Palamas' theological contribution.

[2] Gregory Palamas, *Homily* 11, ΠΑΕ 9, 280-325.

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In this homily Palamas develops the theme of the cross before the cross. The Old Testament theophanies are interpreted as prefigurations of the mystery of the cross already revealing the glory of Christ.[3] It is a central claim made also in his homilies on the Transfiguration that the light of the transfigured Christ is a permanent reality, which the chosen disciples partially glimpsed for the first time at the Transfiguration having had their sight transformed by the power of the Holy Spirit.[4] It is the same reality which the hesychast saints now see in prayer in the vision of divine light and which the prophets of old saw according to their capacity. This connection can only be made by reference to the universal salvation wrought by Christ's death upon the cross and his victory over it in the resurrection.

The Transfiguration of Christ therefore becomes meaningful in the light of the redemptive work of Christ on the cross and points forward to his death and resurrection and the greater manifestation of his glory in the age to come. The hymnography for the feast of the Transfiguration articulates this point by making the cross the context for the Transfiguration. The texts are marked by the relationship between cross and transfiguration and as such are to be understood not as successive events but simultaneous.[5] Palamas picks up this theme in his own homily on the Transfiguration when he describes the prophets, Moses and Elijah, appearing in glory and speaking of Christ's departure, which he was to accomplish in Jerusalem (*Luke* 9:31).[6] Palamas also notes the fact that it is the same set of disciples who are present at the Transfiguration and at the Cross (*Matth.* 26:36-7).[7] This connection between cross and transfiguration shows how Tabor and Golgotha constitute a single event as demonstrated in the striking language of the fourth-century Macarian Homilies:

> The Lord shows himself to the soul in two aspects (προσώποις) with his wounds and in the glory of his light. The soul contemplates the sufferings which he suffered for it; but it also contemplates the dazzling glory of his divine light and is transfigured from glory to glory in this same image, according to [the action of] the Spirit of the Lord, and grows in both aspects in that of the sufferings and in that of glorious light ...[8]

[3] *Hom.* 11.1-3, ΠΑΕ 9, 282-6. See Ὑπὲρ τῶν ἱερῶν ἡσυχασόντων (*The Triads*), John Meyendorff (ed.), *Grégoire Palamas: Défense des saints hesychastes* (Louvain, 1973), see Tr. 3.3.5 (702-4 Meyendorff); Ἁγιορειτικὸς τόμος ΠΣ 2, 567-78, (see Prologue).

[4] That Christ himself did not change at the Transfiguration is emphasised also by John of Damascus, *Transfig.* 12 (Kotter V, 449-450) and Andrew of Crete, *Transfig.* (PG 97, 948A-B).

[5] See *e.g. Festal Menaion*, 495.

[6] *Hom.* 34.16, ΠΑΕ 10, 376-8. See David Balfour (ed.), *Saint Gregory the Sinaïte Discourse on the Transfiguration* (Athens, 1982), 8 (28) and 24 (48-50). Earlier authors to speak of the prophetic revelation include Origen, *Hom. in Matthaeum* 12.36-43 (PG 13, 1059-86); Cyril of Alexandria, *Hom. Diversae* 9 (PG 77, 1009-16); John of Damascus, *Transfig.* 3 (Kotter V, 438-440).

[7] *Hom.* 34.9, ΠΑΕ 10, 366-8; *Hom.* 35.13, ΠΑΕ 10, 398.

[8] Macarius-Symeon, *Hom.* III 3.3.2, cited in Marcus Plested, *The Macarian Legacy: The Place of Macarius-Symeon in the Eastern Christian Tradition* (Oxford, 2004), 37.

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Palamas similarly describes the divine beauty and radiance of the wounds of those who have suffered for Christ: 'The body's sufferings for Christ's sake and the resultant wounds become for those who bear them windows to let in the light without evening.'[9]

It is to his homily delivered on Holy Saturday that we must turn to see how Palamas explores the salvific consequences of the cross, in which he explores the dialectic between death and resurrection, cross and glory.[10] In this treatise Palamas describes the compassion of the Word of God on human nature, which had been stripped of the divine illumination and radiance – lost by Adam at the fall – but which Christ showed clothed once more in the robe of glory on Mount Tabor. The disciples saw what human nature had once been and what it would become in the age to come, the earnest of which is given already now to the saints. The vision of the mystery of the cross referred to in his homily on the cross is to be interpreted in the light of this revelation on Mount Tabor. This is the human goal of deification and it is made possible by baptism into Christ's death and resurrection. Through the cross Christ sets the human race free, through his own voluntary submission to death on the cross. By means of the one death and resurrection of his flesh, he healed our twofold death (that of the body and of the soul) and freed us from our double captivity of soul and body. At baptism human beings are given new birth but still have a mortal and passible body and must make themselves ready to receive immortality by repentance, enduring attacks from without. Palamas presents a threefold scheme of the spiritual life in which the beginning is receiving the grace of baptism, perfection belongs to the age to come, but in between is the life according to Christ's Gospel, by which the godly person is nourished, grows and is renewed, making progress day by day in the knowledge of God, righteousness and sanctification. The perfecting of the grace received in baptism particularly relates to the body, bodily renewal is seen now in faith and hope, but whose final redemption is awaited in the age to come. At the heart of this movement from death to life is the freedom procured for humanity through Christ's freely giving himself on the cross in which we share by virtue of baptism.

The imitation of Christ: deny the body and take up the cross

This interplay of cross and glory is particularly evident on the level of the human person. By imitation of Christ this experience of death and resurrection must be played out dramatically in the life of every Christian. This is the hard

[9] *Hom.* 17.19, ΠΑΕ 9, 508-10.

[10] *Hom.* 16, ΠΑΕ 9, 422-80, esp. 16.19 (448-50), 23 (454), 24 (456), 32 (466-8), 36 (472-4), 39 (478), 40 (478-80).

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work of repentance, which Palamas calls the intermediate stage. The author of the Macarian homilies says that to share in glory, the soul must in some sense be slain.[11] Vision is not an easy route to deification which bypasses the realities of life lived in the body. As Palamas writes in his homily on the cross: 'The fathers, for their part, command us not to hasten to ascend the cross before the cross, as though there were definitely two words of the cross and two mysteries.'[12] It is therefore through the cross in a life of ascetic practice and prayer that the vision of Christ in the cross may take place. This human co-operation is not an equal exchange with divine grace. The freely given human effort will not be enough to master the passions on its own, but will attract the divine compassion to make up the shortfall.[13] It is finally a gift.[14]

The double aspect of the cross, both negative and positive, is explored within the notion of two mysteries of the cross. Palamas explains in an extended commentary on the biblical text: 'The world is crucified unto me and I to the world' (*Gal.* 6:14) that the first mystery of the cross is renunciation of the world. This idea of the cross as renunciation exists on two levels, firstly on the external level, as flight from the world and ascetic training of the body, and secondly, on the internal level, as renunciation of the passions.[15] This negative definition of the cross as withdrawal from the world and the passions is taken from the sixth-century *Instructions* of Dorotheos of Gaza, but Palamas goes beyond this definition to include the positive aspect of contemplation (θεωρία) and elaborates its effects as bodily sanctification.[16] The cross as the positive acquisition of virtues and the vision of God is the greater mystery of the cross 'through which a person is more perfectly crucified to sin, dies to it and lives to virtue.'[17]

The idea of the spiritual life involving different levels of the cross is expressed in a second image in the same homily where he refers firstly to the 'word of the cross', then to the 'mystery of the cross', and finally the 'sign of the cross'.[18] The 'word of the cross' refers to the passionate life and the biblical command to 'crucify the flesh with its passions and desires' (*Gal.* 5:24).[19] This injunction

[11] II 1.6 (PTS, 7).

[12] *Hom.* 11.6, ΠΑΕ 9, 288-90.

[13] *Hom.* 11.21, ΠΑΕ 9, 21.

[14] *Hom.* 28.9, ΠΑΕ 10, 212-4.

[15] *Hom.* 11.4, ΠΑΕ 9, 286.

[16] *Hom.* 11.7, ΠΑΕ 9, 290. See Dorotheos of Gaza, *Instructions* 1. 13-14 (SC 92, 166-8) and *Instr.* 1. 17 (SC 92, 172).

[17] See vision as an experience of the cross in the Macarian *Homilies* II 8.3 (PTS, 73) with an autobiographical reference II 8.6 (PTS, 83).

[18] Derwas Chitty, *The Desert a City* (Oxford, 1966), 75 identifies a similar sense of different levels of the cross in Abba Isaiah when he notes a distinction in *Logos* 13 between the *bearing* of Christ's sufferings and his Cross, understood as preparatory training in the common life, and the *mounting* of the Cross, as the entry into the cell of quiet.

[19] *Hom.* 11.20-3, ΠΑΕ 9, 310-6.

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like that to take up the cross and deny the body critically raises the question of the role of the body in the spiritual life. In the first place the ascent of the cross is the acquisition of *apatheia*, freedom from passion, which on Palamas' understanding is not a mortification of the body. Working with the distinction between flesh and body,[20] he says people living according to the divine will are not too attached to their bodies, but make use of their assistance when necessary. The body is to be lifted up to the height of the cross urgently. Inactive passions are not to be feared but procure crowns. Cutting off the passions is not anything in itself, but rather the importance lies in the connection between crucifixion and glory. Through his notion of *apatheia* as the reorientation of the affective self, rather than its mortification, and the consequent transformation of the whole being in contemplation, including the external manifestation of grace in the body, Palamas demonstrates the intimate connection between the two mysteries of the cross.[21]

Prayer

The movement from cross to glory takes place above all in prayer. The relationship of hesychast prayer to the cross is dramatically illustrated by John Climacus: 'Fix your intellect like an anvil to your soul as to the wood of the cross, with blow upon blow of the hammers.'[22] The positive use of the passions relates in particular to the capacity to love as the primary means by which the soul and body together move towards God. Palamas speaks about the way which leads from *apatheia* to perfect love and at the heart of this movement towards God is the sacrificial self offering of the person in imitation of the one saving sacrifice of Christ on the cross, as a kind of exchange.[23] It is necessary to offer to God the passionate part of the soul, living and active, as a living sacrifice.[24] Theoleptos of Philadelphia (ca. 1250 – ca. 1326) defines sacrifice both in terms of control of the passions and as inner prayer: 'a living and pleasing sacrifice, rational worship.'[25] Here prayer, in particular the Jesus Prayer associated with

[20] Palamas talks about the 'fleshly thought' which separates a person from Christ crucified within him, *Hom.* 11.21, ΠΑΕ 9, 312. The thought must be taken up to the height of the cross, *Hom.* 11.22, ΠΑΕ 9, 314. See Mark the Monk, *Ad Nic.* 7 (PG 65, 1040A; SC 455, 128) for whom the body is to be presented as a living sacrifice and the flesh crucified.

[21] On *apatheia* see *Tr.* 2.2.19-24 (360-70 Meyendorff); for the role of the body in hesychast prayer *Tr.* 1.2 (74-100 Meyendorff); for the interrelationship of the contemplative and affective parts of the soul *Hom.* 11.7, ΠΑΕ 9, 290-2.

[22] John Climacus, *Scala* 4.31 (PG 88, 700B-701B).

[23] *Hom.* 56.15-6, ΠΑΕ 11, 416-20.

[24] *Tr.* 2.2.20 (363 Meyendorff).

[25] Robert E. Sinkewicz (ed.), *Theoleptos of Philadelphia: The Monastic Discourses*, Studies and Texts III Pontifical Institute of Mediaeval Studies (Toronto, 1992) MD 4.22 (182).

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the hesychast revival of the fourteenth century, but not solely, is described as an inner liturgy highlighting the importance for the fourteenth-century hesychasts of prayer as an offering, with all its sacrificial implications, and gift, which incorporates both the cross and glory. Theoleptos personifies prayer in one of his monastic discourses and shows in a particularly dramatic way how this prayer involves, as a prayer of repentance, human cross-bearing but has as its object the person of the crucified and glorified Christ: 'Mount eagerly upon my cross and utter spiritually and soberly in your discursive intellect the Name of the Lord your God.'[26]

Conclusion

Looking at the place of the cross in Palamas' thought, firstly in relation to Christ and secondly in relation to the human person's imitation of Christ in the spiritual life, it has become apparent that the important emphasis which Gregory Palamas gives to the grace bearing potentialities of the material world, in particular the human body, is worked out by reference to the cross of Christ and the lived experience of Christ's death and resurrection in each and every-one of us. Hesychast prayer is on this understanding not a short-cut rendering unnecessary human cross-bearing. Indeed, as the application of liturgical imagery to hesychast prayer shows, prayer itself incorporates the double dimension of cross and transfiguration and has at its centre the crucified and exalted Christ.

[26] MD 2.34 (136; ET R.E. Sinkewicz, 137).

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Christology and Pneumatology in Symeon of Thessalonica's Commentary on Baptism

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It has become almost common in catechisms as well as in theology textbooks to consider on the one hand the sacrament of baptism in christological terms, as a union with Christ, and on the other hand, to speak of the sacrament of chrismation in the East, or confirmation in the West, in pneumatological terms, as the reception of the gifts of the Holy Spirit, as the 'sacrament of the Holy Spirit' or as a 'personal Pentecost'. This, of course, is the consequence of the Latin scholastic theology, which in the Middle Ages elaborated a system of seven distinct sacraments. This elaboration occurred long after the separation in the West of the mysteries of Christian initiation: baptism, confirmation and eucharist. This definition is responsible in the West for the debate over whether confirmation added something specific to baptism, and thus whether it was an essential element in Christian initiation or was merely a superfluous development.[1]

Although Symeon of Thessalonica in the fifteenth century is one of the first Byzantine theologians to speak of the 'seven sacraments' in his *Treatise on the Sacraments* (PG 155, 176-237),[2] his approach is rather holistic, one could even say patristic. How surprising in his introduction, after having stressed that 'Seven are the gifts of the Holy Spirit, as Isaiah says (11:2), and seven are the sacraments of the Church produced by the Holy Spirit, which are: baptism, chrismation, communion, ordination, marriage, repentance and holy oil',[3] to read that 'baptism regenerates with the [Holy] Spirit'[4] and that 'chrismation is the sign and the seal of Christ'.[5] While speaking of baptism in the light of the paschal mystery, he affirms the presence of the Holy Spirit. While speaking of chrismation as the gift of the Holy Spirit, he sees in it the seal of Christ.

Let us now analyse more closely the christological and pneumatological aspects of the commentary on Christian initiation of this theologian who left an extraordinary legacy in Byzantine sacramentology and liturgiology.

[1] See Alexander Schmemann, *Of Water and Spirit* (Crestwood, NY, 1974), 77.

[2] The notion of the seven sacraments was first introduced in Byzantium in 1274 by the profession of faith of Emperor Michael Palaeologus in preparation to the unionist council of Lyon. See H. Dezinger, *Symboles et définitions de la foi catholique* (Paris, 1996), 311-3.

[3] Symeon of Thessalonica, *De Sacramentis* 33 (PG 155, 177B).

[4] *Ibid.* 34 (PG 155, 177B-C).

[5] *Ibid.* 35 (PG 155, 177C).

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Baptism 'of Water and Spirit'

It seems that Symeon of Thessalonica was much inspired by the *Gospel according to St. John*, which speaks of a baptism of water and Spirit: 'Verily, verily, I say unto thee, except a man be born of water and of the Spirit, he cannot enter into the Kingdom of God' (*John* 3:5). Indeed, Symeon speaks of baptism as 'a great mystery: here the angels stand upfront, Christ is represented by the water, the Holy Spirit descends, and the one who is being baptised, who was filthy and sinful, impure, hostile and corruptible, becomes holy and pure, a son of God and incorruptible'.[6]

'Christ is represented by the water, the Holy Spirit descends'. Although he speaks of baptism as 'the representation of Christ's death and resurrection on the third day',[7] it seems that besides this common paschal motif taken from *Rom.* 6:3-4, Symeon has also inherited in his commentary the ancient patristic motif of Christ's baptism in the Jordan, which one can find especially in the ancient Syriac writers such as Ephrem.[8] Symeon speaks of the baptismal font as representing the Jordan and of the candles as signifying the illumination by the Holy Spirit.[9] This is why he explains that the celebrant is praying to the Son of God, who was incarnate of the Virgin Mary and of the Holy Spirit, and was baptised in the River Jordan. According to Symeon, it is through the baptism of Christ that we are recreated and that the dragons' heads, as prophesied in the Psalms, were crushed in the water (see *Ps.* 73:13).[10]

In baptism, both Christ and the Holy Spirit are not only present but also active: 'This is why', affirms Symeon, '[the celebrant] prays [the Son] to come, and by the coming of the Holy Spirit, to sanctify the water: for the Son is inseparable from the Father and the Spirit, and their grace is common'.[11] For the Archbishop of Thessalonica, 'the baptismal font, containing the sanctified water, is filled invisibly by the Holy Spirit as well as by Christ'.[12]

Symeon sees baptism in continuation with creation: baptism is the mystery of the new creation of man. Here, he agrees with his contemporary Nicolas Cabasilas by saying that 'the most holy baptism is at the same time regeneration, a new creation, purification, illumination, filiation, a gift, a consecration'.[13] This reflects once again the theology of the Fourth Gospel, where the Lord affirms to Nicodemus: 'Verily, verily, I say unto thee, except a man be born again, he

[6] *Ibid.* 62 (PG 155, 224C).
[7] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 221C).
[8] See Ephrem, *Epiphania* VI 1-2 (CSCO 186 Syr 82, 160).
[9] Symeon of Thessalonica, *De Sacramentis* 62 (PG 155, 224B).
[10] *Ibid.* 62 (PG 155, 224D).
[11] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 224D-225A).
[12] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 225B).
[13] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 221C). Compare with Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, II 10 (SC 355, 140.3-5).

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cannot see the kingdom of God' (*John* 3:3). The theme of the new creation sends us back to the first creation, to the book of Genesis. There is a clear statement in the Scriptures and in the Church Fathers that God has created the world through His Son or Logos. The Fourth Gospel affirms clearly that 'all things were made through Him and without Him nothing was made that was made' (*John* 1:3). In the same way as creation was, in the view of the Church Fathers, a Trinitarian action: the Father creating by his Word (or Son), as the Spirit of God was moving on the waters (*Gen.* 1:2),[14] for Symeon, baptism is also a Trinitarian mystery, 'for the Son is inseparable from the Father and the Spirit, and their grace is common'. Once again, Symeon agrees with Cabasilas, who says the same in his treatise on *The Life in Christ*: 'While there are many benefits which God in every age has bestowed upon creation, yet you will find none which is referred solely to the Father, or to the Son, or to the Holy Spirit, but all are common to the Trinity, because He performs all things by one power and one providence and one creation'.[15]

Furthermore, Symeon sees in the creation story of Genesis, where the Spirit of God was moving on the waters (*Gen.* 1:2), a prefiguration of baptism.[16] He says the same of the flood story (*Gen.* 8:11) where, he affirms, 'water was a prefiguration of baptism, the dove – of the Holy Spirit, and the branch of olive tree which it had in its mouth was a sign of God's boundless mercy and goodness'.[17]

It is interesting that while he speaks of the pre-baptismal unction, and more specifically of the pouring of the oil into the baptismal font, which is more commonly interpreted in pneumatological terms as consecration or descent of the Holy Spirit, Symeon gives it a christological interpretation. He says that while pouring the holy oil into the water, we sing 'Alleluia', which 'signifies the coming of God. It means: "God is coming", "Praise Him". This is formulated and sung in a prophetic way, since the Lord is indeed coming, both in his first and second coming, and He is always sending us His grace through the Holy Spirit.'[18]

'Sealed to Christ in the Holy Spirit'

Christ is coming, bringing with Him the grace of the Holy Spirit. This leads us to consider Symeon's interpretation of chrismation, the second mystery of

[14] Gregory of Nyssa says, for example: 'The Father does not do himself anything in which the Son would have no part, and the Son does not do anything by himself without the Spirit.' Gregory of Nyssa, *There are not three gods* (PG 45, 125).

[15] Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, II 33 (SC 355, 160.2-6). English translation by C. De Catanzaro in: Nicholas Cabasilas, *The Life in Christ* (Crestwood, NY, 1974), 74.

[16] Symeon of Thessalonica, *De Sacramentis* 62 (PG 155, 225A).

[17] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 225B).

[18] *Ibid.* 63 (PG 155, 225C).

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Christian initiation. It is most common to speak of the holy myron (holy chrism) as a sign of the Holy Spirit, since the Byzantine liturgical formula clearly states: 'Seal of the gift of the Holy Spirit'. For instance, Cabasilas writes in his treatise on *The Life in Christ*, that 'the Spirit was given when the apostles laid hands upon those who had been initiated; now too, the Paraclete comes upon those who are being chrismated'.[19] It is surprising that Symeon states that holy myron 'is given to us as a seal and a sign of Christ'.[20] What does he mean by that?

In order to understand him, we have to keep in mind what he said before: 'The Son is inseparable from the Father and the Spirit, and their grace is common'. On this point, Symeon was much influenced by the etymological meaning of 'Christ' as the Messiah, the Anointed One: 'Christ Himself is called [Christ] because he received corporally in Himself from the Father all the power of the Spirit. In the words of Isaiah: "The Spirit of the Lord is upon me, from whom I received unction" (*Is.* 61:1). In the same way, having received grace from Him through the myron, we are called Christians and are becoming christs [the anointed ones] of the Lord'.[21] Cabasilas stated the same idea in his treatise by saying: 'Christ the Lord was Himself anointed, not by receiving chrism poured on the head, but by receiving the Holy Spirit. [...] He is not only Christ [the Anointed One], but also Chrism [anointing]'.[22]

The key to understand Symeon's commentary on Christian initiation is the mystery of Christ. Following the path of Gregory Palamas, Symeon considers that through baptism, Christ, who is the Son of God by nature, makes us sons of God by adoption; being Himself God by nature, he makes us gods by grace; 'having grace by nature as the Word of God the Father and undivided from the Spirit, he makes us christs by grace'.[23] This is why he declares that the unction with the holy myron is 'the sign of Christ [...] and the gift of the Holy Spirit'.[24] On this point, Symeon is once again in full agreement with Cabasilas, who stated that 'flesh was deified and human nature gained possession of God Himself by hypostatic union [...] So chrism represents Christ as the point of contact between both natures'.[25]

Having been regenerated in baptism through water and Spirit, the neophyte is sanctified through chrismation by the Holy Spirit and sealed to Christ.[26]

[19] Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, III 1 (SC 355, 236.9-12). English translation by C. De Catanzaro in: Nicholas Cabasilas, *The Life in Christ* (1974), 103.

[20] Symeon of Thessalonica, *De Sacramentis* 65 (PG 155, 229C).

[21] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 229C).

[22] Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, III 3 (SC 355, 238.1-5). English translation by C. De Catanzaro in: Nicholas Cabasilas, *The Life in Christ* (1974), 104.

[23] Symeon of Thessalonica, *De Sacramentis* 65 (PG 155, 229C).

[24] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 229D).

[25] Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, III 5 (SC 355, 240.1-7). English translation by C. De Catanzaro in: Nicholas Cabasilas, *The Life in Christ* (1974), 105.

[26] Symeon of Thessalonica, *De Sacramentis* 66 (PG 155, 232B).

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Symeon sees the purpose of the mystery of Christian initiation as a union with Christ: 'This is the aim of all mysteries, that having been freed from error and impurity of sin, and having become pure and sealed to Christ in the Holy Spirit, we may partake of the Body and Blood of Christ Himself, and unite closely with Him'.[27]

'The Son is inseparable from the Father and the Spirit, and their grace is common'

The christocentrism of Symeon is nevertheless inseparable from his Trinitarian view of the divine economy. As he stated before, 'the Son is inseparable from the Father and the Spirit, and their grace is common'. But the divine economy is achieved by the incarnation of the Logos who came to fulfil the first creation. This idea can be found at the beginning of the commentary on baptism, where Symeon says that the celebrant breathes three times in the sign of the cross on the catechumen. He stated that the celebrant does this to recall the first breath when God breathed into man the breath of life (*Gen.* 2:7); he breaths three times 'because of the Trinity, since there is in the Trinity a common grace and a common power'; he breaths in the form of the cross 'because One of the Trinity, Christ, became incarnate for us, suffered in the flesh, and obtained victory through the Cross'.[28]

Making a parallel between the first creation, where the Father acted with his two hands, the Son and the Spirit, and the new creation, which is actualised in baptism, Symeon underscores the importance of the mystery of Christ. He says that the catechumen 'receives a triple insufflation in the image of the Life-giving Trinity, by which he has been created and by which he is renewed. He is sealed with the cross by the hand of the bishop because of the hands of God, which have created us, namely, the Son and the Spirit. The cross is the sign of Christ and his trophy, since through it, He has been victorious'.[29]

Therefore, although 'the Son is inseparable from the Father and the Spirit, and their grace is common', it is through the incarnation of the Son of God and the hypostatic union of the two natures that man now has access to divine life and communion with the three Divine Persons. Nicolas Cabasilas developed a similar view when he said that 'the chrism brings, in the Lord Jesus Himself, in whom are man's whole salvation and all hope of benefits. From Him we receive the participation in the Holy Spirit and "through Him we have access to the Father" (*Eph.* 2:18)'.[30] Both Symeon and Cabasilas follow the theology

[27] *Ibid.* 68 (PG 155, 233B).

[28] *Ibid.* 62 (PG 155, 213C-D).

[29] *Ibid.* (PG 155, 216D).

[30] Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, III 8 (SC 355, 244.2-6). English translation by C. De Catanzaro in: Nicholas Cabasilas, *The Life in Christ* (1974), 106.

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of Gregory Palamas, according to whom the culminating point of the divine economy is precisely the incarnation of the Divine Logos.[31] As Cabasilas stated in his treatise on the *The Life in Christ*: 'While the Trinity in common is the Artificer of the re-creation of men, it is the Logos alone who effects it'.[32] Therefore, one can speak of a 'christocentric triadology' in the thought of Symeon of Thessalonica.

For Symeon, the central moment in the divine economy is the Incarnation. The mystery of salvation is therefore revealed through the mystery of Christ, which reconciles man with God and opens the way towards participation and communion with the three Divine Persons. Baptism, in the sense of the mystery of Christian initiation, is precisely a new creation, which has been made possible through the incarnation of the Logos. Having 'put on Christ' (*Gal.* 3:27) in the water of the baptismal font, the neophyte is illuminated by the Holy Spirit who rests on the Son (see *Is.* 61:1) and from that particular moment dwells as well in the heart of the new Christian. Having been sealed to Christ in the Holy Spirit through chrismation and having thus become 'a christ by grace', the neophyte starts a new life, the aim of which is to unite to and participate more intimately in divine life.

One can see that although Symeon of Thessalonica has introduced the scholastic theory of the seven sacraments in its form, by its content his treatise on the sacrament of baptism, like the treatise on *The Life in Christ* of Cabasilas, remains in the main stream of the patristic synthesis of Gregory Palamas.[33] Therefore, one cannot isolate chrismation from baptism, just as one cannot isolate the Son from the Father and the Spirit. Although their grace is common, man is deified through the hypostatic union of the incarnate Logos.

[31] See G. Mantzaridis, *La doctrine de Grégoire Palamas sur la déification de l'être humain* (Lausanne, 1990), 65f.

[32] Nicolas Cabasilas, *La vie en Christ*, III 8 (SC 355, 244.6-7). English translation by C. De Catanzaro in Nicholas Cabasilas, *The Life in Christ* (1974), 106.

[33] On this aspect, read: J. Lison, *L'Esprit répandu: La pneumatologie de Grégoire Palamas*. (Paris, 1994), 173-83.

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Prayer According to St Symeon of Thessalonica

Kallistos WARE, Oxford

St Symeon, Archbishop of Thessalonica from 1416/7 until his death in mid-September 1429, has been described as a 'polemical hesychast'.[1] Although he did indeed engage in controversy against the Latins, yet it would be more appropriate to term him a 'liturgical hesychast'; or, more exactly, a 'hesychastic liturgist', since by far the greater part of his writings is concerned with public worship rather than hesychasm.[2] Whereas St Nicolas Cabasilas, Symeon's immediate predecessor in the sequence of Byzantine liturgical commentators, in his main writings *Life in Christ* and *Commentary on the Divine Liturgy* nowhere discusses the Jesus Prayer or the vision of divine light, these themes occupy a small but significant place in Symeon's masterwork *Dialogue in Christ*.[3] He holds in balance the outer and the inner, making provision both for liturgical celebration and for prayer of the heart.

As regards Symeon's understanding of liturgical prayer, the most striking feature in his symbolical interpretation of the Eucharist is not so much the Christological orientation – this is only to be expected – but much more the strongly eschatological emphasis.[4] Passing behind the more recent Byzantine liturgical commentators – such as Germanos of Constantinople, Nicolas of Andida and Nicolas Cabasilas – Symeon goes back directly to the *Mystagogia* of St Maximos the Confessor.[5]

[1] See David Balfour, St Symeon of Thessalonica: a polemical hesychast: *Sobornost incorporating Eastern Churches Review* 4 (1982) 6-21; see *id.*, Saint Symeon of Thessalonike as a historical personality: *Greek Orthodox Theological Review* 28 (1983) 55-72.

[2] His main work, *Dialogue in Christ*, along with certain lesser writings, occupies the whole of PG 155. Some of his remaining liturgical writings have been edited by I.M. Phountoulis (vol. I, Thessalonica, 1968; vol. II is as yet unpublished); see I.M. Phountoulis, Τὸ λειτουργικὸν ἔργον Συμεὼν τοῦ Θεσσαλονίκης (Thessalonica, 1966). David Balfour has edited a number of further works by Symeon in two volumes: *Politico-Historical Works of Symeon Archbishop of Thessalonica (1416/17 to 1429)* (Vienna, 1979); Ἔργα Θεολογικά, Analecta Vlatadon 34 (Thessalonica, 1981).

[3] The relevant section of the *Dialogue* has been translated by H.L.N. Simmons, *Symeon of Thessalonike: Treatise on Prayer* (Brookline, MA, 1984): see especially 9-18. In this present article I have made my own translations from the Greek.

[4] This is rightly pointed out by René Bornert, *Les Commentaires Byzantins de la Divine Liturgie du VIIe au XVe Siècle* (Paris, 1966), 245-62.

[5] He is mentioned by name in *On the Divine Temple* 2 (PG 155, 701C). Elsewhere Symeon appeals mainly to Dionysios the Areopagite.

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In the symbolic scheme of Germanos and the two Nicolases, the First Entrance with the Gospel represents the Incarnation, or more specifically Christ's Baptism in the Jordan; the Epistle and Gospel signify his public preaching, and the Great Entrance his entry to Jerusalem on Palm Sunday. The Anaphora then signifies the last supper, the death, resurrection and ascension of Christ, and the descent of the Holy Spirit. In the Maximian scheme, on the other hand – followed with some minor variations by Symeon – everything is moved further back. The First Entrance represents Christ's earthly economy in its entirety, from his incarnation to his ascension. Symeon then takes the Epistle and Gospel to signify the period following Pentecost, that is to say, the preaching of the apostles and their successors in all the world. After this, for Symeon as for Maximos, the dismissal of the catechumens denotes the separation of sinners from the righteous at the end of history, while the Great Entrance symbolizes the second coming and the glory of the future age.[6] In their exposition of the Anaphora and the remainder of the service, Maximos and Symeon allow virtually no scope to any symbolism, and in fact say little in detail about the rite; in what they do have to say, they interpret this section of the Liturgy for the most part in its literal sense.

Thus, while Symeon does indeed explain the Liturgy in symbolic terms, as a dramatic representation of Christ's incarnate life, his exposition is much more condensed and less specific than that of the two Nicolases. For Symeon the Liturgy is supremely the feast of the age to come.

Symeon is not simply a ritual formalist, but is deeply concerned that the Liturgy should be lived out in a practical and personal way. Here his demands are exacting. In common with Kallistos and Ignatios Xanthopoulos – who, as will shortly be noted, were probably his teachers – Symeon insists on frequent communion. For the Xanthopouloi this means daily communion, at any rate for monks.[7] Symeon thinks that priests should celebrate the Liturgy daily; if this proves impracticable, then they should celebrate four times or, at the very least, twice a week.[8] As for the laity, they should receive communion 'if possible on every Sunday'.[9] To ensure frequent communion, hermits who are not in priestly orders may be allowed, with episcopal permission, to give themselves communion from the reserved sacrament.[10] Daily or even weekly communion, whether by monks or laity, and likewise daily celebration by the clergy,

[6] *Dialogue* 98 (292B-296A); *On the Divine Temple* 54 (720 B-C), 76 (728 A-B).

[7] *Century* 91-2 (PG 147, 794A, 800D-801A). See Kallistos Ware, *A Fourteenth-Century Manual of Hesychast Prayer: The Century of St Kallistos and St Ignatios Xanthopoulos*, Canadian Institute of Balkan Studies (Toronto, 1995), 30-2.

[8] *On the priesthood* (PG 155, 969A, 972C, 973B).

[9] *Dialogue* 360 (672C).

[10] *Replies to Gabriel of Pentapolis* 41 (889B-C). Symeon, when speaking about this, says 'as we have learnt', which suggests that he was not personally acquainted with the practice.

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must in fact have been altogether exceptional in the later Byzantine period.[11] Symeon was a maximalist.

Turning now to the Archbishop of Thessalonica's understanding of inner prayer – an aspect of his teaching to which relatively little attention has so far been given by students of Symeon – we have good reason to believe that in his early youth he became a monk in the hermitage of the Xanthopouloi at Constantinople, where his spiritual guides would have been the hesychast masters Kallistos and Ignatios.[12] The two are authors of a celebrated Century on prayer included in the *Philokalia* by St Makarios of Corinth and St Nikodemos of the Holy Mountain. Symeon devotes a chapter to the two Xanthopouloi in his *Dialogue*, recording how they were granted the vision of divine and uncreated light, which was manifested externally and physically in their bodies. Probably Symeon is speaking here as an eye-witness:

'They received the first-fruits of the divine light even in this present life, purified as they were through their contemplation and their actions, and they were granted the divine illumination on the Mountain, just as the apostles were. This was clearly witnessed by many persons; for their faces were seen to shine like Stephen's, since grace was poured out not only in their hearts but in their visible appearance. Thus they also resembled the great Moses, and their outer form shone like the sun, as those who saw them have testified. And so, having undergone this beatific suffering and having come to know these things by experience, they speak to us plainly about the divine light that is God's natural energy and grace.'[13]

This description of the Xanthopouloi calls to mind Nicolas Motovilov's account of his conversation with St Seraphim of Sarov in November 1831,[14] and Sister Joanna Reitlinger's record of the last days of Fr Sergei Bulgakov in June 1944.[15] Symeon's explicit identification of the divine light with the glory manifested at Christ's Transfiguration on Mount Tabor, and equally his characterization of this light as 'God's natural energy', make it clear that he fully accepts the teaching of his predecessor on the throne of Thessalonica, St Gregory Palamas (c. 1296-1359). Indeed, elsewhere in the Dialogue he defends Gregory's standpoint at length, and he attacks Gregory's opponent Barlaam of Calabria for confusing the levels of *hypostasis* and *energeia*. Barlaam and the Latins,

[11] See Kallistos Ware, Prayer and the Sacraments in the *Synagoge*, in: Margaret Mullett and Anthony Kirby (ed.), *The Theotokis Evergetis and eleventh-century monasticism* (Belfast, 1994), 325-47.

[12] See D. Balfour, *Politico-Historical Works* (1979), 279-86. Kallistos became Patriarch briefly in 1397 (he is the second of that name and not to be confused with Kallistos I, Patriarch during 1350-53 and 1355-63).

[13] *Dialogue* 295 (544C-D); see *Ex.* 34:35; *Acts* 6:15.

[14] Conversation on the aim of the Christian life, in: Fr Seraphim Rose (ed.), *Saint Seraphim of Sarov*, Little Russian Philokalia, vol. I (Platina, 1996), 98-103.

[15] The Final Days of Father Sergius Bulgakov, in: Boris Jakim (ed.), *Sergius Bulgakov: Apocatastasis and Transfiguration*, Variable Readings in Russian Philosophy 2 (New Haven, CN, 1995), 45-7.

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according to Symeon, are wrong to maintain that in *theosis* the saints receive the hypostasis of the Holy Spirit, whereas in reality what they experience are the charismata conferred by the Spirit in union with the Father and the Son.[16] It is interesting to note how Symeon's standpoint resembles that of his contemporary St Mark Evgenikos, Archbishop of Ephesus (c. 1394-1445). Not only were both of them vigorous opponents of the Latins but both were hesychasts, upholding the Palamite position. Had Symeon lived for a further decade and participated in the Council of Ferrara-Florence (1438-9), then it seems probable that, in common with Mark, he would have refused to sign the act of union.

Symeon defines prayer in a wide-ranging manner, describing it in terms of presence and union: 'Prayer is to be with God, always to be united with him, to cling to him ... inseparably with our soul and indivisibly with our intellect.'[17] As human beings we have been created to pray; this is our 'particular and distinctive task',[18] the most important of all our activities.[19] It is significant that Symeon stresses the need for continuity in prayer: '*always* to be united'. He regularly cites St Paul's injunction 'Pray without ceasing' (1*Thess.* 5:17).[20] Recalling the words of St Gregory of Nazianzus, 'remember God more often than you breathe',[21] Symeon writes: 'To remember God is as important for us as to breathe the air.'[22] There is never a time when prayer is out of place: 'Every moment is appropriate for prayer.'[23] Prayer, that is to say, should not be one activity among many, but *the* activity of our entire life, a dimension that enters into everything else that we do. Such, then, is our vocation as human beings: 'ceaseless doxology', 'a hymn that is never silent', such as is offered by the three highest ranks of angels.[24]

Symeon goes on to recommend above all two forms of prayer: the Lord's Prayer and the Invocation of the Holy Name of Jesus.[25] As authorities on the use of the Jesus Prayer he lists (in this order) John Chrysostom,[26] John Klimakos, Nikiphoros the Ascetic, Diadochos of Photike, and Symeon the New Theologian,[27] before going on to speak about his own mentors Kallistos and

[16] *Dialogue* 30-1 (144A-157A); B13, §7 (263-96 Balfour); B14, §5 (127-68 Balfour).

[17] *Dialogue*, 'On Prayer', prologue (536C).

[18] *Ibid.* (540A).

[19] *Dialogue* 297 (549 A-B).

[20] See, for example, *Dialogue* 31 (152A: Barlaam the Calabrian misunderstands Paul's words); 'On Prayer', prologue (541A); 297 (548C); *Replies* 62 (916D); 63 (917 C-D); 79 (937B); B1, §12 (418).

[21] *Or.* 27:4 (*Th.* 1:4) (PG 36, 16B).

[22] *Dialogue*, 'On our death', prologue (669D).

[23] *Replies* 62 (917 A).

[24] *Dialogue*, 'On Prayer', prologue (536D-537A; 541A).

[25] *Dialogue* 294 (541C).

[26] Symeon refers to 'three logoi' by Chrysostom; presumably he has in view the spurious *Letter to monks* (PG 60, 751-6).

[27] *I.e.* Ps.-Symeon, *Method of Sacred Prayer and Attention* (ed. I. Hausherr, *Orientalia Christiana* IX,2 [1927]).

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Ignatios Xanthopoulos. It is puzzling that Symeon makes no reference here to Gregory of Sinai, who heavily influenced the two Xanthopouloi; I cannot think of any particular reason for this omission.

Symeon recommends the standard formula for the Jesus Prayer, 'Lord Jesus Christ, Son of God, have mercy on me' (Κύριε Ἰησοῦ Χριστέ, Υἱὲ τοῦ Θεοῦ, ἐλέησόν με).[28] He does not allude to the variant '... have mercy on me, the sinner', which first occurs in the *Life of St Gregory of Sinai* by Patriarch Kallistos I;[29] nor does he mention the various shorter forms of the Jesus Prayer, such as that found in Kallistos and Ignatios Xanthopoulos, 'My Jesus!'[30] Somewhat surprisingly, Symeon nowhere refers to the standard teaching, emphasized by almost all writers on the Jesus Prayer, that images and thoughts are to be excluded so far as possible during the recitation of the Prayer. Yet, whatever his opinion about images and thoughts, he certainly does not wish to exclude feelings from the practice of the Prayer; for he says that it is to be accompanied by a sense of love for the person of Jesus.[31] In general he teaches that prayer should be warm and 'heartfelt' (ἐγκάρδιος), marked by *pothos* and *eros*;[32] presumably this applies more particularly to the Jesus Prayer. While he gives no indication concerning the speed at which the Prayer should be recited, he implies that, at any rate sometimes, it is to be spoken audibly: 'Let us carry it [the Holy Name] in our heart and speak it with our lips.'[33] He makes no reference to the psychosomatic technique sometimes used in combination with the Jesus Prayer, even though this is recommended by two of his authorities, Nikiphoros and Ps.-Symeon, and is also mentioned by the Xanthopouloi.

Symeon makes high claims for the Jesus Prayer. The Church is founded upon the Name of Jesus, he says, and through that Holy Name the demons are cast out.[34] The Jesus Prayer is 'a confession of faith, bestower of the Holy Spirit, supplier of divine gifts, purification of heart, expeller of demons, indwelling of Jesus Christ, source of divine ideas and thoughts, deliverance from sins, healing of soul and body, giver of divine illumination.'[35] This final phrase implies a connection between the Invocation of the Name and the vision of divine light, such as was received (according to Symeon's testimony) by the two Xanthopouloi.[36]

[28] *Dialogue* 296 (544D).

[29] See Kallistos Ware, The Jesus Prayer in St Gregory of Sinai: *Eastern Churches Review* 4 (1972) 12.

[30] See K. Ware, *A Fourteenth-Century Manual* (1995), 18.

[31] *Dialogue* 296 (548A).

[32] *Dialogue*, 'On Prayer', prologue (536D, 537B-C, 540A).

[33] B9, §12 (249-50).

[34] B9, §11 (229-30).

[35] *Dialogue* 296 (544D-545A).

[36] For further references to the divine light of the Transfiguration, see *Dialogue* 239 (456C-D); B9, §§8,10,13 (180-1,221,283-4).

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Yet, even though the Jesus Prayer leads in this way to the highest mysteries of contemplation, nevertheless in Symeon's view it is at the same time a prayer suitable for all without exception: not just for hermits but for coenobites, not just for monastics, but for the secular clergy and the laity.[37] And if it is a prayer for all persons, it is equally a prayer for all seasons. It can be said not only in quiet and seclusion but in the midst of noise and tumult. It can be offered as our first thought on waking, it can be recited as we dress, it can accompany us as we lie down to sleep.[38] It is never out of place: 'Let us then always recite the Name in prayer, both with our intellect and with our tongue, whether standing or walking, sitting or lying down, whatever we are saying or doing.'[39] The Jesus Prayer, in short, is to be our life, not merely something of that we *do* but something that we *are*: 'Let us live, then, in the Name of Jesus Christ.'[40]

In this way St. Symeon of Thessalonica is both liturgist and hesychast. In his spiritual teaching the prayer of the Liturgy and the Invocation of the Holy Name are not seen as alternatives; both have their essential place, and each enhances the other.

[37] *Dialogue* 297 (548B-D).
[38] *Dialogue* 297 (548 C-D); B4, §13 (350-7).
[39] *Dialogue* 297 (548B).
[40] B9, §12 (247).

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XVII. Latin Writers

George E. Demacopoulos
Giselle de Nie
Oliver Ehlen
Thomas S. Ferguson
Alberto Ferreiro
Gertrude Gillette
Joseph Grzywaczewski
Pere Maymó i Capdevila
Hector Scerri
Chiara O. Tommasi Moreschini

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The Alignment of Anger and Friendship in Cassian's *Conference* 16[1]

Gertrude GILLETTE, O.S.B., Ave Maria, Florida

A first reading of *Conference* 16 is often a disappointment to its readers since the title: *On Friendship* offers the hope of an in-depth appreciation of the joys and value of spiritual friendship by one of the great spiritual masters of the Early Church. Instead, Cassian's treatment of friendship seems to have more to do with 'preserving a friendship from collapse', than in positively 'promoting it'.[2] A closer reading, however, reveals a deep intuition into the scope and purpose of friendship within a monastic context. In order to appreciate Cassian's particular perspective on this topic, we will make a few preliminary remarks about his views on anger, and then we will walk briskly with him through *Conference* 16, saving the more pertinent observations until the end.

Cassian's veritable mini-treatise on the subject of anger is found in *Institutes* 8 where anger is exposed as one of the eight deadly vices which the monk must rid himself of if he is to be pleasing to God and make spiritual progress. It is a particularly fierce and deep-rooted sin which calls for radical surgery and a high degree of personal honesty in dealing with it. Cassian allows anger to be used against temptations which come from the demons or one's own fallen nature, but he never allows it to be turned toward another human being; to do so would be a misuse of the irascible power given to us by God. All the more so when the other is a friend with whom one shares the closest ties of love in Christ.

The *Conference* begins with a certain Abbot Joseph commending Cassian and his companion, Germanus, on their devoted friendship, which becomes the springboard for the Egyptian monk's 'lecture' to the juniors on the subject of spiritual friendship. The treatise consists of two main sections: the first gives the ideal and rules for true friendship, along with a loose commentary on the rules, ending with the virtues necessary for maintaining it. The second part deals with the right and wrong ways to react in a conflict. A conclusion summarizes

[1] This presentation is taken in part from a chapter dedicated to Cassian's treatment of anger in a work by the author entitled: *Four Faces of Anger: Seneca, Evagrius Ponticus, Cassian and Augustine* (Lanham, University Press of America, July 2010).

[2] Boniface Ramsey (transl.), *The Conferences* (Mahway, NJ, 1997), 551f.

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Abbot Joseph's teaching on friendship. In schematic form, the chapter takes the following shape:

Introduction (1-5)[3]

1. *True Friendship*
   a. The Rules (6.1-2)
   b. A Commentary on the Rules (6.3-13)
      – a codicil on the distinction between love and affection (14)
2. *Conflict within Friendship*
   a. Wrong ways to react (15-22)
      – Some concluding remarks (23-26.1)
   b. Right ways to respond (26.2-27)

Conclusion (28)

1. True Friendship

It is regrettable that Cassian says so little about what true friendship is.[4] The 'little' is gleaned from the references our abbot makes about his own friendship with Germanus in the first *Conference*[5] and here in the sixteenth where he attests: '... we were joined not by a fleshly but by a spiritual brotherhood, and that we had always been linked by an indivisible bond from the beginning of our renunciation both in the journey which the two of us had undertaken for the sake of our spiritual soldiery and in the pursuits of the cenobium...'[6]

Instead, Cassian bases the ideal of true friendship on several scripture passages, such as: 'Behold how good and pleasant it is for brothers to dwell in unity' (*Ps.* 133:1) and 'The Lord makes those of one mind to dwell in the house' (*Ps.* 68:6). These are followed by a list of rules for maintaining friendship (16.1-2). What is immediately evident is that the rules are rather negative in their approach.[7] But – like the Ten Commandments – rules stated in the negative can lead to a positive living out of the underlying premises. What is needed then is to uncover the positive core of each injunction which – with the help of Cassian's own commentary – we have attempted to do in brief summary form, opposite each rule below:

[3] The reference to *Conference* 16 is presumed, thus 1-5 refers to *Conference* 16, sections 1-5.

[4] See B. Ramsey (transl.), *The Conferences* (1997), 553.

[5] '... with [Abba Germanus] I was so closely befriended from the very time of our basic training and the beginnings of our spiritual soldiery, both in the cenobium and in the desert, that everyone used to say, by way of pointing out the identity of our companionship and our chosen orientation, that we were one mind and soul inhabiting two bodies.' *Conference* 1.1.

[6] *Conference* 16.1.

[7] B. Ramsey (transl.), *The Conferences* (1997), 551f.

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Rule	*Positive Value underlying the Rule*
1. Hold worldly possessions in contempt	1. People are more important than things or even our own ideas
2. Restrain self-will	2. Flexibility and yielding to the needs and desires of the friend deepen friendship
3. Subordinate all things to 'the good of love and peace'	3. The attitude that 'It's not about "me" but about "us",' leads to harmony and peaceful relationships
4. Never be angered for any reason	4. Distinguish between the friend you love and the immediate behavior which one forgives
5. Desire to calm a brother if he is angry	5. Have an attitude of compassion and a desire to be at peace with your friend
6. Reflect daily on death	6. Look at the bigger picture; many things cease to matter in the light of eternity

2. Conflict within Friendship

E contra! The second half of the treatise makes an abrupt transition from love to its contrary. The first section presents five examples of the wrong way for a monk to react to a brother's anger. The examples pulsate with real life situations as Cassian allows some of his own irritation to surface at the behavior he describes. Several of the situations are rather bizarre, tempting one to smile at the stupidity portrayed, except for the fact that the existential element provokes more sadness than glee.

a. *Wrong ways to react.* Friendship is jeopardized in a conflict when a person...

1. Puts on a false spiritual demeanor, which hides an attitude of spiritual self-righteousness. This kind of person thinks: 'The conflict is his problem, not mine', thus denying any responsibility for his or her friend's annoyance.
2. Refuses to accept apologies. This person thinks that his friend does not deserve forgiveness precisely because he went too far in treating a 'friend' the way he did.
3. Exhibits an attitude of contemptuous silence, or makes a gesture which provokes more anger. Cassian is particularly irritated with this type because his spiteful attitude is a mockery of real virtue. Although he has not retaliated in act (indeed he thinks: 'I haven't done anything to him') yet his intention and body language is opposed to charity and harmony.
4. Uses the energy caused by suppressed anger to do spiritual things like fasting, but with an attitude of superiority. He is guilty, Cassian believes, of turning his spiritual exercises into sacrileges.

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5. Plays the victim. This type seems to be patient, but his heart is turned in on himself; he is not concerned for peace and harmony.

Cassian concludes this section, observing that since 'one weak person never puts up with another weak person',[8] it takes a spiritually strong person to submit to another. It is the weak who sow discord, the strong sow peace. Indeed, friendship requires a strong and stable love which cannot exist except among virtuous persons with the same chosen purpose (16.24).

b. *Right ways for friends to respond.* These responses are rather like 'skills to learn' which guide a person through a moment of conflict.

1. Stay calm. Remaining calm and silent helps to reduce the tension, or at least not add to it. It is important that one be calm both interiorly as well as exteriorly.
2. Think of your friendship: don't react to the present provocation but see your friend and your friendship in a bigger perspective. Think of the joy of past love and future peace.
3. Let discretion restrain the emotions. Let reason take control so that the emotions do not run wild.
4. Be a broad harbor of love. Just as harbors take in storm-tossed waves, absorbing and dissipating their violent power, so our hearts ought to receive the waves of wrath and with patience dissipate their emotional tension.
5. Yield in humility. The Abbot of Marseilles directs us to yield to our friend's upsetting behavior with a 'humble and tranquil mind' recognizing that 'we deserve (*dignos*) mistreatment', in whatever form it takes (*qualibet*) (16.27.3). A person is now being asked to rethink who he or she is, around the key word: *dignus*. Cassian is insinuating that the human *dignity* – hurt by the insult – is really governed by an element of pride hidden in the depths of the soul. He knows well that if this pride is squelched, anger will disappear entirely even from the deepest recesses of the human person. It is true that another's anger has an incredibly subtle way of getting to this false center of self: our pride, which when aroused cries out 'who do you think you are, talking to me like that?' 'Do you think you can treat *me* like that?' Cassian is suggesting that we substitute that demon of untruth with the salutary truth of our own real worth (*dignus*). What might that be? He does not elaborate; he only reminds us that as sinners we deserve such mistreatment *qualibet*. This leads us to ponder further the truth of our existence: since we were created out of nothing, and are therefore at base nothing, why are we grasping after the 'nothing' of our being and insisting that another acknowledge it as if it were 'something'? If Christ did not grasp after his own divinity or humanity (*Phil.* 2:6), should I grasp after my own 'nothingness'? And if that

[8] *Conference* 16.23.

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> is not sobering enough, I have merely to think of my own sins and realize that enduring another's wrath is really minuscule compared to what I deserve. Yielding and submitting may do much, not only in maintaining the friendship, but in purifying a false sense of dignity.

The *Conference* ends with the same theme which has been repeated at various points throughout: 'True harmony and an indivisible fellowship cannot exist except among men of faultless behavior, who share the same virtue and chosen orientation'.[9] Thus mutual vision and virtue are the two pillars on which Cassian sets the bridge of spiritual friendship. If either is missing or weak, the bridge will collapse; if they are strong, it will endure... and bring both friends to God.

Concluding observations

Cassian's purpose throughout his works is to lay out a road map for spiritual growth in perfection, *i.e.* in 'purity of heart' which brings the monk to the threshold of the kingdom of heaven. Initially, the monk familiarizes himself with certain monastic practices and then begins seriously to work on his vices. In choosing to continue his treatment of anger in the context of spiritual friendship in *Conference* 16, the Abbot of Marseilles is doing something very particular. The author of the *Conferences* has often been criticized for his frugal remarks on the positive merits of spiritual friendship versus his rather lengthy exposition on the dangers of anger in friendship – all seemingly rather negative to the whole discussion of friendship. But in defense of Cassian, his concern is less with friendship in itself than the role it plays in the spiritual growth of the friends. We shall return to this in a moment. First let us give due credit to his presentation of friendship.

Although there are some restrictions on friendship noted especially in the *Institutes*,[10] Cassian opens the door to friendship in a way which goes beyond such legislators as Pachomius and Basil.[11] By dedicating a *Conference* to the topic, a strong horizontal note on relationships in monasteries has been introduced into the fabric of monastic literature which is otherwise heavily vertical in its approach. The two references to his deep friendship with Germanus indicate that he was no less capable of valuing friendship than were Augustine or Sulpicius Severus, but he lacks the same ability to express his feelings as do the latter. Nevertheless, this *Conference* establishes the value of friendship

[9] *Conference* 16.28.

[10] *Institutes* 2.15.

[11] Brian Patrick McGuire, *Friendship and Community: the Monastic Experience*, CS 95 (Kalamazoo, MI, 1988), 81f.

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within the cloister and even implies that life in the monastery among the brethren is one of varying degrees of friendship. His concern is that friendships are integrated into the monastic discipline.[12]

As regards anger, the decision to align it with friendship could not have been a haphazard one. In the arena of spiritual growth, the moments of real advancement are often intimate ones involving other human beings. Certainly the loving support of a senior, to whom a junior discloses his thoughts, is a welcome bridge which conducts the junior to higher grounds. So too, the element of love, already present in every friendship, is another bridge beckoning the quarreling monks to look beyond themselves. The solitude that a person might feel at a moment of crisis involving anger – always involving a choice between himself and the other – is thus made less absolute by the presence of the friend. Spiritual friendship is therefore a blessing which means that every effort should be made to die to oneself so that the relationship lives and thrives. Another reason for the alignment of anger with friendship may be to underscore the impact of anger on community life. Disharmony between two individuals has repercussions on the larger group.[13] If, as St Benedict says, we go all together to God,[14] then both horizontal and vertical harmony are vital to that journey.

Therefore, in approaching *Conference* 16, we should view it from Cassian's wider purpose. It is not to be read as if spiritual friendship were one of the goals of monastic life. And although monastic brochures abound with smiling monks on the cover, no monastery solicits newcomers with captions that read: if you are in need of friends, come to us! Rather, one enters a monastery to grow closer to Christ which inevitably means hard work on the vices. Nevertheless, in the spiritual arena of the monastery, one's friends play a very important and sometimes decisive role in a person's struggle for virtue. In this context, the ability to deal honestly and effectively with one's anger is greatly enhanced by caring friends. By situating his fuller treatment of anger within the context of spiritual friendship, Cassian is saying that this vice – perhaps more than any other – calls for the help of friends.

[12] B.P. McGuire, *Friendship and Community* (1988), 82.

[13] See B.P. McGuire, *Friendship and Community* (1988), 80: 'Cassian was not concerned with how one monk can love another with affection but with how a community of monks can manage to live together in peace.'

[14] *Rule of Benedict* 72.12.

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'Let All Perceive What Mysteries Miracles May Teach Our Souls': Poetry and Sacrament in Sedulius' *Paschale Carmen*

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'Let all perceive what mysteries miracles may teach our souls (*Cognoscite cuncti,/ mystica quid doceant animos miracula nostros*).'[1] This exhortation to the reader is found in a rendering of the Gospels as a Christian epic, the *Paschale carmen*, by the fifth-century poet Sedulius. Although the poem was a great favorite in the Middle Ages, for a long time it received unfavorable reviews and little attention from modern scholars, who saw in it only a decadent version of Roman classical poetry.[2] More recent scholarship is beginning to appreciate the poem for what it intended to be – a non-fictional epic in which Christ is the peace-bringing, divine hero – and to recognize its imagery as a creative composite of especially Vergilian poetry and patristic exegesis.[3] Sedulius later reworked the poem into a prose version; he also wrote two hymns.[4]

To Christians in this period *mysticum* and its substantive *mysterium* could refer, among other things, to a revealed Christian doctrine as well as to a liturgical sacrament.[5] The passage quoted above introduces an explanation of the

[1] Sedulius, *Paschale carmen* [PC] 4.263-264, Johannes Huemer (ed.), CSEL 10 (1885), 109.

[2] Notably by Ernst Curtius, *European Literature and the Latin Middle Ages*, Bollingen Series 36 (New York, 1953), 460.

[3] On Sedulius, see now: R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics of the New Testament. Juvencus, Sedulius, Arator* (Oxford, 2006), 135-250. Useful older literature is: Charles Witke, Numen litterarum: *The Old and the New in Latin Poetry from Constantine to Gregory the Great*, Mittellateinische Studien und Texte 5 (Leiden, 1971), 206-18; Dieter Kartschoke, *Bibeldichtung* (München, 1975), 41-5; Jacques Fontaine, *Naissance de la poésie dans l'occident chrétien* (Paris, 1981), 247-52; Caroline Dermot Small, Typology in Sedulius'*Carmen paschale*: *SP* 18.4 (1986), 195-200; id., Rhetoric and exegesis in Sedulius' *Carmen paschale*: *Classica et Mediaevalia* 37 (1986) 223-44; and Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, Imitation créative dans le *Carmen paschale de Sédulius*, in: Jan den Boeft and Antonius Hilhorst (eds.), *Early Christian Poetry: A Collection of Essays*, SVigChr 22 (Leiden, 1993), 135-66; Comprehensive treatments: Carl P.E. Springer, *The Gospel as Epic in Late Antiquity: The* Paschale carmen *of Sedulius*, SVigChr 2 (Leiden, 1988), and P. Theodor Mayr, *Studien zu dem Paschale Carmen des christlichen Dichters Sedulius*, Diss. München (Augsburg, 1916). Partial studies: Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, *Sedulius Carmen paschale boek 4. Inleiding, vertaling, commentaar*, Diss. Leiden (Oud-Beijerland, 1990); and Michael Mazzega, *Sedulius, Carmen paschale, Buch III*, Chrêsis: Die Methode der Kirchenväter im Umgang mit der antiken Kultur 5 (Basel, 1996).

[4] *Paschale opus* [PO], CSEL 10, 171-303; hymns: *ibid.* 155-68.

[5] Albert Blaise, *Dictionnaire Latin-Français des auteurs chrétiens* (Turnhout, 1954), 547f.

Studia Patristica XLVIII, 273-287.
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salvational and sacramental symbolism in the miracle of the man born blind and formulates the poem's central purpose. For, omitting almost all of Christ's verbal teachings as such, it conveys their salvational core by adding imagery around Christ's life and miracles: often, these images point to the 'mystery' or transformational spiritual experience that is reflected and actualized in the Church's sacraments.

After a brief consideration of its literary context, I shall examine the poem's introductory and programmatic statements and point to an emphasis there that is not found in other contemporary authors: that upon the contrast between the sterility of life without God, leading to death, and what is described as the 'fruitfulness' of living according to God's image, leading to eternal life. What specific quality of experience is the poet trying to communicate? I shall look for an answer to this question in the imagery describing Christ's miracles: around 'sterility' or death on the one hand, and around 'fruitfulness' and the image of God on the other. Finally, I shall attempt to tease out an additional, related, 'mystery' which the poet may have embedded in his text.

I. 'Four books of divine miracles': their literary context and programme

Internal evidence – reminiscences of earlier authors – and later hints in and about the manuscripts indicate that Sedulius lived and worked in Rome in the period 425-50.[6] He specifies his subject matter as 'four books of divine miracles (*quatuor ... mirabilium divinorum libellos*)'.[7] In fact, the poem consists of five books. An introductory one defines the poem's aim, refutes two heresies and gives brief sketches of Old Testament miracles as annunciations of Christ's future salvation of mankind. Books two and five thereafter function as a frame presenting, respectively, the events of Christ's birth and youth, and those of his crucifixion and resurrection. The central books three and four contain his miracles and little else.

A dedicatory letter preceding the poem is addressed to a priest named Macedonius and a group around him of well-educated friends, clerics and women religious who appear to have commissioned the work.[8] The poet indicates that God had rescued him from what he describes as an 'empty life' and 'the games of an unfruitful work (*lusibus infructuosi operis*)' in secular literary studies. Therefore he urges the reader: 'Leave the fields full of filth and dust, and stop living in barren regions in which the dry soil does not know how to bring forth fruit... Instead, enter into the blessed abode of pleasant glades of groves flowering through divine saps, where the seeds of life sprout through divine

[6] R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 135-43.
[7] *Ep.* (CSEL 10, 12.4f.).
[8] *Epistola ad Macedonium* (CSEL 10, 11.7f.).

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water...'[9] The rejection of pagan literature as false in favor of biblical truth had become a commonplace in Christian literature.[10] However, although Paulinus of Nola also uses the opposition 'empty' versus salvation-bringing in this context,[11] none of Sedulius' predecessors or contemporaries associate this truth so consistently with the dynamic images of blossoming and fruitfulness as we shall see Sedulius do.[12]

In the dedicatory letter, Sedulius gives as his reason for producing a poetic version of the Gospels that – implicitly, like the Psalms – the delightful form of its truth would cause it to be eagerly accepted into the heart, often repeated and imprinted upon the memory; thereby, the readers would more willingly come to know God.[13] His poetic version, however, was not the first of its kind. The Spanish aristocrat Juvencus, perhaps the first Christian poet, had written the first one a hundred years earlier, around 330.[14] Its intended audience appears to have been recently converted Christians with a literary education who may have been put off by the Bible's unclassical style.[15] Basing his presentation mainly upon *Matthew*, Juvencus gives a narrative of all the important moments in Christ's life and deeds, and devotes half of his poem to verbal preaching by Christ and a few others; the account is couched in poetical language resembling that of Rome's classical poets, especially Vergil.[16] At the end of his poem, he confidently states that 'Christ's grace illumines me so greatly that the glory of the divine law willingly receives the earthly ornaments of language through our verses (*in tantum lucet mihi gratia Christi,/ versibus ut nostris divinae gloria legis/ ornamenta libens caperet terrestria linguae*)'.[17] Although there is

[9] *Parcite pulverei squalentia iugera campi/ Et steriles habitare plagas, ubi gignere fructum/ Arida nescit humus,../... sed amoena virecta/ Florentum semper nemorum sedesque beatas/ Per latices intrate pios, ubi semina vitae/ Divinis animantur aquis.* PC 1.49-51, 53-5 (CSEL 10, 19). R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), sees reminiscences of similar themes in Vergil's *Aeneid* and first *Georgic* here.

[10] Salvatore Costanza, Da Giovenco a Sedulio. I proemi degli 'Evangeliorum libri' e del 'Carmen Paschale': *Civiltà Classica e Cristiana* 6 (1985) 253-86, 263f.; Thomas Gärtner, Die Musen im Dienste Christi: Strategien der Rechtfertigung christlicher Dichtung in der lateinischen Spätantike: *VC* 58 (2004) 424-46.

[11] Salvatore Costanza, Da Giovenco a Sedulio (1985), 263f.

[12] Carl P.E. Springer, *The Gospel as Epic in Late Antiquity* (1988), 23-9; Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, *Sedulius* (1990), iii-xi; Michael Mazzega, *Sedulius* (1996), 12-4.

[13] *ut quisque suo magis ingenio voluntarius adquiratur Deo. Ep.* (CSEL 10, 5.2-13).

[14] Gaius Vettus Aquilinus Juvencus, *Evangeliorum libri quattuor*, Johannes Huemer (ed.), CSEL 24 (1891). German translation by A. Knappitsch. Sonderabdruck aus dem Jahresbericht des F.-B. Gymnasiums am Seckauer Diözesan-Knaben-Seminar in Graz (Graz 1910-3).

[15] On Juvencus see now: R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 1-134; on his intended audience: *ibid.* 126-34. Useful earlier studies: Reinhart Herzog, *Restauration und Erneuerung: Die lateinische Literatur von 284 bis 374 n. Chr.*, Handbuch der lateinischen Literatur der Antike 5 (München, 1989), 331-6; Wolfgang Kirsch, *Die lateinische Versepik des 4. Jahrhunderts*, Schriften zur Geschichte und Kultur der Antike 28 (Berlin, 1989), 84-117; Dieter Kartschoke, *Bibeldichtung* (1975), 32-4; Jacques Fontaine, *Naissance* (1981), 67-80.

[16] See on these topics: R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 84, 50-71 respectively.

[17] *Evang.* 4.803-5 (CSEL 24, 145f.).

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inherent exegesis in his treatment of the Gospel episodes, he does not expatiate upon it,[18] and his stylistic devices and added poetic imagery throughout tend to speak to the affects rather than point to specific Christian symbols.[19]

In the years that followed, the Church Fathers developed a meditative approach to the biblical text that looked for its deeper, symbolical meanings.[20] In Sedulius' rendering we see the more widespread and deepening concern with the biblical text resulting in an elliptical presentation of the Gospels' content that now assumes his readers' previous knowledge of the text and its symbolisms.[21] Taking as his model the *Gospel of John*'s interpretation of miracles as figures of salvation and sacrament, the poet presents a selection of all the Gospels' material on Christ's life and miracles, omitting not only most of the verbal preaching as such but also many historical, circumstantial details, and adding images that are often symbols of Christian spiritual truths. While his epic and poetic style includes many elements reminiscent of Vergil, his presentation through the miraculous transformations also suggests a contrast imitation of Ovid's *Metamorphoses*.[22]

As for Christian authors: Sedulius' treatment of Christ's miracles as revelations that would purify and open the heart's eyes to see God's otherwise invisible work may point to the poet's acquaintance with Augustine's writings.[23] He may also have known the poems of his older contemporary, Paulinus of Nola, who had more or less equated divinely inspired *poesis* about the meaning of miracles with what he boldly called 'conceiving apprehensions of God (*divinos concipere sensus*)'.[24] A more direct, if miniature, model for Sedulius' poem, however, may have been Prudentius' ninth hymn, recounting Christ's most important miracles as the subject matter for daily meditation and worship.[25] The poem's composition, finally, of loosely associated imagistic medallions resembles that of other late antique poets and that in contemporary art.[26]

[18] R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 84-103.

[19] See R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 127f.

[20] See on this: Erich Auerbach, 'Figura': *AR* 22 (1938) 436-89.

[21] R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 128-32, Carl P.E. Springer, *The Gospel as Epic in Late Antiquity* (1988), 24-32, and Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, *Sedulius* (1990), xiii-xvi.

[22] As also R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 210, 225; and Carl P.E. Springer, *The Gospel as Epic in Late Antiquity* (1988), 65.

[23] Emphasis upon Christ as Creator and miracles as eye-openers in: *Tractatus in Iohannis Evangelium* 24.1 (Radbodus Willems ed., CChr.SL 36, 1954, 244). On Sedulius' knowledge of Christian exegesis see: R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 226-44.

[24] *Carmen* 22.19 (Guillelmus de Hartel ed., ed. alt. suppl. aucta cur. Margit Kamptner. CSEL 30, 1999, 170). See on this theme: Giselle de Nie, '*Divinos concipe sensus*': Envisioning Divine Wonders in Paulinus of Nola and Gregory of Tours, in: *ead.* et al. (eds), *Seeing the Invisible in Late Antiquity and the Early Middle Ages*, Utrecht Studies in Medieval Literacy 14 (Turnhout, 2005), 69-92.

[25] Prudentius, *Cathemerinon* 9 (CChr.SL 126, 1966, 47-52).

[26] See on this: Peter Dronke, *Imagination in the Late Pagan and Early Christian World: The First Nine Centuries A.D.* (Florence, 2003), 5-24; Patricia Cox Miller, *Dreams in Late Antiquity:*

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Rather than where Sedulius could have found his ideas and images, however, it is their implications and effects upon the reader that will be the concern of this investigation.

The poet's choice of focusing upon miracles is likely to have been influenced by the changed attitude toward these within the Christian Church. Whereas up to at least the middle of the fourth century, mainstream Christians had held them to have practically ceased after the apostolic period, evidence shows that miracles from then on increasingly began to occur around martyrs' tombs, to proliferate sharply in the early fifth century.[27] Sedulius' placing Christ's delegation of his miraculous powers to the disciples in the exact middle of each of the two books of his miracles appears to indicate that he regarded miracles as a central fact of life also in his own time.[28]

Turning now to the poem's prologue, the very first line introduces it as 'a Paschal meal (*paschales ... dapes*)'[29] – ostensibly an innocent metaphor but, as I hope to show later, in fact a signpost to a vital underlying dimension in the poem. For the adjective 'Paschal' evokes – as we shall see, significantly – Christ's sacrifice and the Eucharist. In addition, Sedulius appears to take position against Juvencus when he insists that his poetic version will *not* be rich and ornate, that is: aesthetically pleasing, but that it will be *food for the soul*, as vegetables from a poor garden served in earthenware vessels.[30] We shall return to this image at the end of this paper.

From the beginning and throughout the poem itself, Christ is praised as the Creator and Ruler of the universe – the prose version adds: 'through the powerful word (*potentis verbi*)'.[31] This theme too will be constantly stressed in the poem. A central programmatic statement in this first book, later illustrated by the Old Testament miracles, is: 'all of nature is subject to your directives, and absolved from her habit, she turns at your command into opposed figures.'[32] Significantly, the examples given here are those of a harvest in mid-winter and wine in the spring: in other words, miraculous fruitfulness. A new emphasis too is that upon the Creator Christ's participation in the Old Testament miracles announcing his future salvation of mankind. The poet concludes the first book with a description of the radiant heavenly city that is his and everyone's hoped-for destination.[33]

Studies in the Imagination of a Culture (Princeton, 1994); and Michael Roberts, *The Jeweled Style: Poetry and Poetics in Late Antiquity* (Ithaca-London, 1989), 66-121.

[27] Peter Brown, *The Cult of the Saints: Its Rise and Function in Latin Christianity* (Chicago, 1981).

[28] As Carl P.E. Springer, *The Gospel as Epic in Late Antiquity* (1988), 52.

[29] *Paschales quicumque dapes conviva requiris...* PC *Praef.* 1 (CSEL 10, 14).

[30] PC *Praef.* 4-16 (CSEL 10, 14f.).

[31] PO 1.2 (CSEL 10, 179.4).

[32] *Subditur omnis/ Imperiis natura tuis, rituque soluto/ Transit in adversas iussu dominante figuras.* PC 1.85-87 (CSEL 10, 22). R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 211 sees an allusion to and correction of Ovid's *Metamorphoses* 8.730 here.

[33] PC 1.335-50 (CSEL 10, 40f.).

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The second book tells the story of Christ's birth and youth up to the call of the disciples. The poet first very briefly establishes the larger context of his story by describing how the 'most savage serpent' had lured Eve into sin and thereby condemned humankind to be subject to death.[34] There would have been no hope for mankind, he continues, 'if the loving Sower, ready to forgive crimes and slow to punish them, out of compassion and mercy had not repaired his work, lest his creature perish and lest the living image, resembling God (*Deo similis vivens... imago*) standing before him would become unlike him through death.'[35] According to Sedulius, then, the Sower – the term is a significant pointer, again, to fertility and fruitfulness – repairs his creature through an ongoing series of divinely operated visible transformations, from what the poet occasionally specifies as 'the image of death' back to his 'living image, resembling God'. It is to these images that we now turn.

II. 'The image of death' and its transformation

Not surprisingly, the image of death and its transformation into life comes out most clearly in Christ's resuscitations. After the high priest Jairus[36] had beseeched Christ to 'pour back into [his daughter's] body her soul that has dropped out',[37] he 'warmed the corpse constricted by icy death with the fire of his Spirit, and revived the immobile body with his word, causing her who was born once to live twice.'[38] A dropped-out soul, constricting icy death, life-giving through fiery Spirit and through the word – Christ, of course, being the divine Word:[39] poetical images and theological symbols coalesce here. And the miracle is summed up in a paradox: nature's laws are inverted.

Lazarus' resuscitation[40] is the last miracle story in book four; Sedulius writes: 'Thus, when the trumpet of the speaking Lord sounded, saying: "Lazarus, come out!" Tartarus, shaken by a great fear, broke open, the cavern of Erebus opened and the lethal chaos trembled, the law of death in the deep perished, and suddenly his soul [entered] the marrow of his own bones: a living

[34] PC 2.1-10 (CSEL 10, 44).

[35] *Ni pius ille sator culpas ignoscere promptus,/ Reddere difficilis, sua ne factura periret/ Quaeque Deo similis vivens adstaret imago/ Dissimilis de morte foret, veniale misertus/ Instauraret opus.* PC 2.20-24 (CSEL 10, 45f.).

[36] *Matth.* 9:18-26; *Mark* 5:21-43; *Luke* 8:40-56.

[37] PC 3.112 (CSEL 10, 72).

[38] *Gelida constrictum morte cadaver/ Spiritus igne fovet, verboque immobile corpus/ Suscitat atque semel genitam bis vivere praestat.* CP 3.138-140 (CSEL 10, 74). See Michael Mazzega, *Sedulius* (1996), 146-51, esp. 150.

[39] *John* 1:1-4.

[40] *John* 11:1-44.

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corpse was seen to stand before their eyes."[41] Sedulius has added the images of Jesus' voice as the final trumpet call, the cavern of Erebus, lethal chaos, the deadly deep – poetic images expressing what *John's Gospel* had presented as Christ's preceding verbal statement: 'I am the resurrection and the life and he who believes in me, though he die, yet shall he live'.[42] With its imagery of invisible realities speaking to the affects, the scene presents an inversion of everyday reality; it abrogates the horizontality of discursive thinking. The meditating reader thereby feels jolted into another dimension: the irruptive, leaping and transformational quality of affective, imagistic – dreamlike – thinking.

But this kind of thinking is not empty fantasy. The modern philosophers Gaston Bachelard and Paul Ricœur, as well as contemporary psychologists, have indicated that a mental image transmits or brings into awareness the experience of an affective pattern that is just as real in the affective-spiritual sphere as the perception of an object in the physical world is in the sensory sphere. *Images, then, are visualized experiential patterns.* When images in a text are absorbed by the reader, they induce a spontaneous affective *mimesis*, an internal reenactment of these dynamic patterns.[43] Meditatively reading and thereby reenacting Sedulius' scene of Lazarus' revival, therefore, would precipitate an interior affective pattern analogous to that of sudden rebirth through Christ's word in the reader.

In addition, however, the condition of the paralyzed man on a portable bed who is brought to Christ in Nazareth[44] is described as 'the image of death':

Behold, there were four men carrying on their necks a living corpse lying on a pallet, scarcely still a man, whose life remaining to him without the use of his body was the image of death; his weak members, deprived of their use, lay limp and, his sinews having been paralyzed, loose chains held together his inert body parts. When the Lord saw this man, deprived of the strength of his powers, he first cleansed him by remitting the sins which had generated the increase of the evils, and said to the unhappy man lying there: 'Arise, take your pallet upon your own shoulders and go to your home."[45]

[41] *Ergo ubi clamantis Domini sonuit tuba dicens/ 'Lazare, perge foras': magno concussa pavore/ Tartara dissiliunt, herebi patuere recessus,/ Et tremuit letale chaos, mortisque profundae/ Lex perit, atque anima proprias repente medullas/ Cernitur ante oculos vivens adstare cadaver.* PC 4.280-8 (CSEL 10, 110f.). See Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, *Sedulius* (1990), 175-88, and Manfred Hoffmann, Lazarus als wiedererstandener Phönix: Sedulius, *Carmen paschale* 4, 290: *Philologus* 147 (2003), 364-6.

[42] *John* 11:25.

[43] Gaston Bachelard, *L'air et les songes. Essai sur l'imagination du mouvement* (Paris, 1943), 10-3; Paul Ricœur, *Time and Narrative* 3, transl. Kathleen Blamey and David Pellauer (Chicago, 1988), 184. Similarly: Gerald Epstein, *Waking Dream Therapy: Dream Process as Imagination* (New York and London, 1981), 18, and Roberto Assagioli, *Psychosynthesis: A Manual of Principles and Techniques* (New York, 1965), 177-89.

[44] *Matth.* 9:1-8; *Mark* 2:1-12; *Luke* 5:18-26.

[45] *Ecce aderant vivum portantes iamque cadaver/ Bis bina cervice viri lectoque cubantem/ Vix hominem, cui vita manens sine corporis usu/ Mortis imago fuit, resolutaque membra iacebant/*

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The phrase 'the image of death' here is Sedulius' own addition, making the event a model of salvation as that of complete powerlessness, 'generated' by sins, which need to be forgiven before healing can take place. Through meditating upon this story (untroubled by any mention of the presence of the critical Pharisees mentioned in the original Gospel text), the fifth-century reader could reenact this immobilization and its cure as the pattern of his own spiritual liberation from sin and death through Christ's word. I suggest that this would imprint upon him the dynamic pattern of Christ's healing not only as a model of spiritual liberation but also of a future physical cure.[46] For fifth-century sources show that contemporary miracles tended to be experienced as renewals of biblical ones.[47] Today bio-medical laboratory research has actually shown that the mind's reception and enactment of affectively charged images, potentially including that of an extremely accelerated healing, can be instantly translated into messages that activate all the body's autonomous systems in an analogous manner to achieve that result.[48]

The resuscitations and the cure which we have looked at, then, are visualizations of the affective inversion and transformation involved in Christ's repairing and saving his creature from 'the image of death'. Does Sedulius also visualize an image of God, which the reborn and repaired would now again resemble?

III. 'The living image' of God: 'making all things fruitful'

Not in any direct way. But images of God at work in his creation shine through in what the poet shows Christ-God to be doing in some of the miracles that are not cures. In many ways, Mary's virginal conception of and birth-giving to Christ is the archetype. As he tends to do throughout the poem, Sedulius leaves out the place, time and particulars of the story; the focus is upon the universality of what is happening. As the prophets had foretold, 'an angel, having hastened to the unblemished Mary, prophesied, and what was said being received with faith, the girl's womb soon swelled with a starry burden: the Creator of the

Officiis deserta suis, fluxosque per artus/ Languida dimissis pendebant vincula nervis./ Hunc ubi virtutum Dominus conspexit egentem/ Robore, peccatis primum mundavit ademptis,/ Quae generant augmenta malis miseroque iacenti:/ Surge, ait, et proprium scapulis adtolle grabatum,/ Inque tuam discede domum. PC 3.89-99 (CSEL 10, 71f.). See Michael Mazzega, *Sedulius* (1996), 127-33.

[46] See on this kind of conditioning as 'producing' a subject's 'reality': Clifford Geertz, Religion as a cultural system, in: Clifford Geertz, *The Interpretation of Cultures* (New York, 1973) 87-125, 122.

[47] Giselle de Nie, *Oculata fides*: Imaging Miracles in Early Fifth-Century Uzalis: *SP* 40 (2006), 21-36.

[48] Jeanne Achterberg, *Imagery in Healing: Shamanism and Modern Medicine* (Boston and London, 1985); Candace B. Pert, *Molecules of Emotion: The Science Behind Mind-Body Medicine* (New York, 2003).

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world came under the law of birth.'[49] The prose version mentions her 'fertility (*fecunditas*)' here.[50] The image of the starry Creator being conceived in a woman's womb is again a paradox that jolts the reader into a non-discursive state of mind. In the prose version, Sedulius reveals what will turn out to be an implicit central concern in the poem when he designates Christ's virginal birth through the faithful acceptance of the divine word as 'truly the secret of divine generation (*vere divinae generationis est hoc secretum*)'.[51] This event, too, is the model which Augustine had held up to his community for their reception of the divine word as Christ, thereby becoming 'mothers of Christ (*matres Christi*)'.[52] For in his view of 'incarnational rhetoric' the Church Father sees Christ as the divine Word clothing himself in human words, and through these entering into the human heart.[53] As the apostle Paul had written in 1*Thessalonians* 2:13: 'When you accepted from us the word of the heard God (*verbum auditus Dei*), you accepted it not as the word of men but as what it truly is: the Word of God, Who works in you who have believed'.[54]

Although Sedulius omits it as such, the parable of the Sower is another underlying model of his notion of 'fruitfulness'.[55] The Gospels speak of the seed as the word of God, and its growth in good soil as that of God's word in believing hearts that 'bring forth fruit'. Significantly, as will be seen, at the end of his introductory book one, Sedulius – alluding to *Psalm* 125 (126):5f. – appears to refer indirectly to his own words in the poem also as seeds that (he hopes) will bear fruit in the reader.[56] Elsewhere in the Gospels we find a related parabolic image of a tree that, if it does not produce fruit, will be cut down and thrown into the fire.[57] In general, fruitfulness there appears to be equated with a holy life and good works.[58]

[49] *Angelus intactae cecinit properata Mariae:/ Et dictum comitata fides, uterumque puellae/ Sidereum mox implet onus, rerumque creator/ Nascendi sub lege fuit.* PC 2.36-8 (CSEL 10, 46f.). Sedulius gives a similar description in his *abecedarian hymn* II, 9-16 (CSEL 10, 163f.), as also of other miracles.

[50] PO 2.3 (CSEL 10, 199.7).

[51] PO 2.4 (CSEL 10, 200.3f.).

[52] Augustinus, *Sermo* (Denis) 15.8, Germanus Morin (ed.), *Sancti Augustini Sermones post Maurinos Reperti* (Roma, 1930), 163f.

[53] Marcia Colish, *The Mirror of Language: A Study in the Medieval Theory of Knowledge.* Rev. ed. (Lincoln and London, 1983), 26.

[54] *Cum accepissetis a nobis verbum auditus Dei, accepistis non ut verbum hominum sed sicut est vere: verbum Dei qui operatur in vobis qui credidistis.*

[55] *Matth.* 13:3-9; *Mark* 4:13-20; *Luke* 8:11-5.

[56] PC 1.364-8 (CSEL 10, 42): *Hinc igitur veteris recolens exordia mortis/ Ad vitam properabo novam lacrimasque serendo/ Gaudia longa metam: nam qui deflemus in Adam/ Semina mittentes, mox exultabimus omnes/ Portantes nostros Christo veniente maniplos.* The prose version (CSEL 10, 196.9-15) adds a literal quotation of the psalm passage.

[57] *Matth.* 3:10f. and 7:19; *Luke* 3:9, 13:6-9.

[58] As also Sedulius: *ex suis quemque fructibus id est ex operibus* (PO 2.17, CSEL 10, 230.4f.). See 'Fruit, Fig, Thorn, Thistle': *New International Dictionary of New Testament Theology* [NIDNTT], vol. 1 (Grand Rapids, 1975), 721-5.

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Sedulius makes the messages of these parables visible in his rendering of the story of Christ's cursing of the fig tree. In the Gospels of Matthew and Mark the fig tree is cursed and withers because it does not bear fruit.[59] Christ's deed is thereupon presented as an example of what anyone who has faith can do: 'whatever you ask in prayer, believe that you will receive it, and you will'.[60] Sedulius leaves this out. After mentioning Christ's curse, he continues: 'At once the fig tree, deprived of its saps, withered and remained dead with dried-up branches. Whoever, therefore, brings forth nothing fertile to God, will be like a sterile trunk of burned wood. But the righteous will flourish like the delightful palm, ever having leaves, [and] grow[ing] like the cedar of Lebanon, and touch[ing] the stars with its top.'[61] The adjectives 'fertile' and 'sterile' – not mentioned in the Gospel original – make explicit the contrasting dynamics which the poet is here concerned to show. The evergreen palm and cedar recall images of the just soul in the psalms.[62] The poetical touch of the tree top touching the stars, however, although echoing Ovid and Virgil[63] also seems to evoke the Tree of Life in Paradise – as we shall see, significantly. Poetic images and theological symbols again coalesce.

The poet's rendering of Christ's multiplication of the wine at the wedding in Cana[64] also adduces the theme of generation, not present in the original:

> O wonder! He converted poured water into wine: the fluid rejoiced in leaving behind its pale color; the happy wave changed its flavor, bestowing its wine, and on all the tables sweet cups of *unborn* wine stood blushing. Christ filled six large tubs with this nectar; for he was the *fruitful* Vine, and by the power of his being the Vinedresser *making all things fruitful*, lets his pleasant shade make the gentle vine shoots *bring forth* eternal grapes.[65] [italics added]

The image of happy, blushing cups of unborn wine may seem to be only a poetic one, inducing the reader's empathy. As also occurs elsewhere in the poem, however, we are shown a theological notion: Creation's joy and generation at

[59] *Matth.* 21:19-22; *Mark* 11:12-4, 20-4.

[60] *Mark* 11:24.

[61] *Confestim viduata suis ficulnea sucis/ Aruit et siccis permansit mortua ramis./ Omnis enim quicumque Deo nil fertile nutrit,/ Ceu sterilis truncus lignis aequabitur ustis./ At iustus palmae similis florebit amoenae,/ Semper habens frondes et tamquam Libana cedrus/ Multiplicandus adest et vertice sidera tanget.* PC 4.50-56 (CSEL 10, 94). See R.P.H. Green, *Latin Epics* (2006), 211; Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, *Sedulius* (1990), 32-40; and Michael Roberts, *Biblical Epic and Rhetorical Paraphrase in Late Antiquity*, ARCA 16 (Liverpool, 1985), 155, 157.

[62] *Ps.* 91 (92).12; *Ps.* 1:3; *Prov.* 11:28.

[63] *Gen.* 2:9. See *Prov.* 11:30. See Paul W.A.Th. van der Laan, *Sedulius* (1990), 39.

[64] *John* 2:1-11.

[65] *Mirabile! fusas/ In vinum convertit aquas: amittere gaudent/ Pallorem latices, mutavit laeta saporem/ Unda suum largita merum, mensasque per omnes/ Dulcia non nato rubuerunt pocula musto./ Implet sex ergo lacus hoc nectare Christus:/ Quippe ferax qui vitis erat virtute colona/ Omnia fructificans, cuius sub tegmine blando/ Mitis inocciduas enutrit pampinus uvas.* PC 3.3-11 (CSEL 10, 65). See Michael Mazzega, *Sedulius* (1996), 63-74.

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Christ's command.[66] The imaged subtext here is Christ's words, as John gives them, in his address to the disciples during the Last Supper:

I am the true Vine and my Father is the Vinedresser... Abide in me, and I in you. As the branch cannot bear fruit by itself unless it abides in the vine, neither can you, unless you abide in me. I am the vine, you are the branches. He who abides in me, and I in him, he it is that bears much fruit, for apart from me you can do nothing... If you abide in me, and my words abide in you, ask whatever you will and it shall be done for you.[67]

Sedulius has added the image of the Vine tenderly sheltering the shoots with its shade, again inducing empathy. At the same time, the wine is almost certainly understood to be an image of that in the Eucharist. Unmarred, then, by Jesus' altercation with his mother, which the Gospel reports here, the miracle becomes a visualization of the happy and fruitbearing inner presence of Christ; at the same time, it suggests a joyful vision of the future banquet with him in heaven.[68] The 'fruit' to which Christ refers at the Last Supper appears to include that of performing miracles. Is this also what Sedulius means, here and in the fruitfulness mentioned in the fig tree story?[69] The image of God, then – and Christ, of course, is the visible image of the invisible God[70] – may be recognized in Christ's miracles: creating and birth through the word, and generation as a miraculous dynamic connected with the Eucharist and with the indwelling Christ.

The notion of 'fruitfulness' recurs, however, in the fifth and last book when Sedulius presents the body of the crucified Christ, pointing East, West, North and South from the Cross' four ends, as a figure of the fact that: 'all of nature lives through the Creator's limbs, and Christ rules the world, embraced by the Cross, in all directions (*Cunctaque de membris vivit natura creantis,/ Et cruce conplexum Christus regit undique mundum*)'.[71] Is this image only a visual aid to understanding the invisible spiritual truth of the crucified Christ's continuing creatorship determining the orientational structure of visible reality?[72] The prose version is fuller here; it states: 'absolutely the whole substance of the world, *fecundated* by the *body* of the Creator, manifests in itself the fulfilled lines of the Cross through its horizontal and vertical boundaries [italics added] (*Cuncta prorsus mundi substantia Creatoris corpore fecundata crucis in se lineam rectis obliquisque limitibus demonstravit impletam*)'.[73] 'Fecundated by

[66] As also described in the stilling of the waves: PC 3.67-9 (CSEL 10, 69).

[67] *John* 15:1.4f. 7.

[68] See *Luke* 22:18.

[69] Elsewhere, however, he lets Christ say to his disciples that these are nothing without merit: *Nam merito cessante bono miracula nil sunt.* PC 4.164 (CSEL 10, 102).

[70] *Col.* 1:15.

[71] PC 5.194-5 (CSEL 10, 128). For *creans* as 'Creator' see Albert Blaise, *Dictionnaire* (1954), 228.

[72] PC 1.361-2 (CSEL 10, 42).

[73] PO 5.15 (CSEL 10, 286.4f.). Similarly about Christ but without mentioning his body: fecundat (PC 2.182; CSEL 10, 76) and: fecunditate largitur (PO 14; CSEL 10, 215.12-16).

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the body of the Creator': neither the Church as the mystical body of Christ nor the sacrament of the Eucharist can be meant here.[74] Earlier in the prose version, Sedulius describes what may be the same dynamic when, addressing Christ, he writes: 'you who contain/maintain the whole world through your holy directing (*qui totum sacro nutu contines mundum*)', and 'who animate the limp mass of the unformed earth through diverse movements into living bodies (*qui rudis terrae membra torpentia per diversos motus vivis animasti corporibus*)'.[75]

Perhaps the closest that any earlier or contemporary author comes to Sedulius' image is Paulinus of Nola's description of the Cross as the Tree of Life in Paradise;[76] according to Revelation, the Tree of Life in the heavenly Paradise bears fruit every month.[77] It looks as though Sedulius is saying that Christ, symbolically merged with the Cross as the Tree of Life, inheres in the natural world in the same way that, as the True Vine, he inheres in true believers and makes them 'fruitful'. And indeed, in his more elaborate prose explanation of the Lord's Prayer Sedulius says almost in passing: 'for in him [that is: Christ] through the [producing of] good fruits is the Tree of Life (*in hoc enim per bonos fructus arbor est vitae*)'. The image is also found in Augustine's *City of God*.[78]

The root image hovering around Sedulius' notion of 'fruitfulness', then, appears to be that of the crucified Christ as the Tree of Life. The notion, attested to in the East in the early fifth century, is found depicted in a painting dating from that period or later over a baptismal basin in the Roman catacomb cemetery of saint Pontian.[79]

Conclusion: 'A Paschal meal' – 'Word and food'

Having looked at the transformation from 'death' to 'life' as, essentially, that of rebirth or (re)generation into a new life of 'fruitfulness' through the creating word of Christ, it is now time to try to uncover a less explicitly presented 'mystery' in the poem. What does Sedulius mean with the designation of his poem as a 'Paschal meal'? In his dedicatory letter, he says that he gave his poem this

[74] Sedulius says that Christ will rise after his death plena cum maiestate suae carnis. PO 5.13 (CSEL 10, 285).

[75] PO 1.2 (CSEL 10, resp. 179.3f., 12f.). Compare PC 1.68f.: qui diversa novam formasti *in corpora terram/ Torpentique solo viventia membra dedisti.*

[76] *Ep.* 32.17 (CSEL 30, ed. 1999, 292).

[77] *Rev.* 22:2.

[78] PO 17 (CSEL 10, 230.1); Augustine, *ciu.* 13.21 (CCL 48, 404). See art. 'Baum des Lebens': *RAC* II 25.

[79] Théophile Roller, *Les catacombes de Rome* II (Paris, 1881), pl. 89, n. 2. Roller (305). The painting is situated in a niche in the catacomb above a baptismal basin and under a representation of Christ's baptism in the Jordan. Roller (340) states that this combination is unique. Because of the ninth-century provenance of the surrounding paintings, he assumes the same date for the Tree-Cross painting (305, 341).

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name 'because the immolated Christ is our *pascha* (*quia PASCHA nostrum immolatus est Christus*)' – a quotation from 1*Corinthians* 5:7.[80] In early Christian usage, *pascha* has overlapping meanings: among other things, it can be the traditional fare at Easter of paschal lamb, and/or Christ as the symbolic sacrificial lamb associated with the Eucharist.[81] Both meanings appear to apply in Sedulius' poem. One of the first scholars to focus upon the poem's exegetical dimension, Caroline Dermot Small, suggests that Sedulius may have considered his poem to be 'a humble reflection of the Eucharistic meal', but does not develop this notion or explore its possible effects upon the reader.[82] Did Sedulius perhaps intend his imaging of Christ's 'mysteries', including that of continuous fecundation, to be 'ingested' or internalized by the meditative reader as what today would be thought of as a operational sacramental symbol – an archetypal symbol that, when experienced or enacted in the human subject, 'opens up' to awareness the interior presence of what it manifests?[83]

In Sedulius' version of the story of the disciples' recognition of Christ after his resurrection[84] we read: 'Soon the powerful Table Companion [Christ] shone in his being recognized by others in his breaking of the bread, for as the True Bread he is always present to the open eyes of faith, which grace has made bright, so that they may perceive the living Lord.'[85] The reference here is, of course, to Christ's statements that he is 'the Bread of Life' (*i.e.* the Eucharist) and that this Bread is his 'flesh [given] for the life of the world'.[86] How can the living Christ always be seen by faith? If even the disciples recognized their teacher only at the moment that he broke the bread, the resemblance was perceived not in physical appearance but in *the performance of a transformational spiritual dynamic.* With his imaging of Christ's turning 'death' into 'fruitful' life, I suggest, Sedulius appears to have attempted to give the reader a dynamic model or 'visual concept'[87] to recognize the living patterns of Christ's ongoing activity in the visible world – *now perhaps, like the Eucharistic bread, felt to be assimilated to his body.* Learning to see these patterns in and through the descriptions of miracles in Sedulius' poem would be learning to perceive the mystery of the living Lord's ongoing creation: the making of things and persons 'fruitful' and 'blossoming'.

[80] *Ep.* (CSEL 10, 12.10).

[81] Albert Blaise, *Dictionnaire* (1954), 597f.

[82] Caroline Dermot Small, Rhetoric (1986), 243.

[83] See G.S. Worgul, *From Magic to Metaphor: A Validation of Christian Sacraments* (Lanham etc., 1985), 90-2 and *passim.* A more recent treatment of what has been called 'the sacramental crisis' in the modern churches is: Kenan B. Osborne, *Christian Sacraments in a Postmodern World: A Theology for the Third Millennium* (New York, 1999).

[84] *Luke* 24:30f.

[85] *Mox aliis conviva potens in fragmine panis/ Agnitus enituit, quia verus panis apertis/ Semper adest oculis fidei quos gratia claros/ Efficit, ut Dominum viventem cernere possint.* PC 5.365-368 (CSEL 10, 141).

[86] *John* 6:48.52.

[87] Rudolf Arnheim, *Visual Thinking* (Berkeley, 1969), 90f.

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These imaged dynamic patterns, however, are transformational ones: they manifest the spiritual pattern or 'mystery' of sudden regeneration through Christ's action, a *performative* notion. By mentally visualizing this dynamic image-pattern during the meditation upon the text, the reader/listener would spontaneously mimic and enact it interiorly, and thereby *precipitate an analogous spiritual transformation in his heart.*[88] This is only a modern way of saying what the apostle Paul did in 2*Corinthians* 3:18 to those who discerned Christ's future salvation in the prophecies of the Old Testament: 'we however, perceiving/ reflecting (*speculantes*) with unveiled face the glory of the Lord will be transformed into that same image (*in eandem imaginem transformamur*)'.[89] In his poem, I suggest, Sedulius used images of spiritual truths that are central in the Church's sacraments, with an added emphasis of his own, as a poetry of the soul: a way to prepare the meditating reader for, and even induce intimations of, the spiritual transformations described as the inner core – the 'mysteries' – of the Gospel's message that are enacted and actualized in the Church's sacraments.

Instead of through our modern concept of affective mimesis, Sedulius is likely to have thought of what he was doing in terms of some of the images which he presents in connection with Christ. Remembering the apostle Paul's statement that the human word about God 'truly is' the Word of God that works in believers, I suggest that Sedulius' designation of his poem as a 'Paschal meal' might mean that he hoped that Christ, as the divine Word, would also be spiritually present in his own human words about him as 'food for the soul'. For in the spiritual exegesis of the Lord's prayer in book two Sedulius had written: 'From the "daily bread", we hope for *food for our faith*, lest our soul might at some time feel a hunger for doctrine because it has not tasted Christ, who *fulfills us with his word and with his body*, remaining at the same time *Word and food*'[90][italics added]. The prose version specifies: 'we sense that this [daily] bread is the divine Word (*sentiemus hunc panem divinum esse sermonem*)'.[91] Sedulius asserts that the soul's being 'fed' by this divine word during daily meditation upon it, as described in the first psalm, would fulfil and delight like the sweetness of honey.[92]

He may thus have hoped that 'the living Lord' as the 'true Bread' or food for the soul might be perceived with the eyes of the heart, not only in the Eucharist

[88] Sallie McFague, *Speaking in Parables: A Study in Metaphor and Theology* (Philadelphia, 1975), 138-42.

[89] 2*Cor.* 3:18.

[90] *Annonam fidei speramus pane diurno./ Ne mens nostra famem doctrinae sentiat umquam/ A christo ieiuna, suo qui corpore et ore/ Nos saturat simul ipse manens verbumque cibusque.* PC 2.263-266 (CSEL 10, 61f.). Similarly: Augustine, s. 57.7 (PL 38.389).

[91] PO 17 (CSEL 10, 224.20f.).

[92] Ps 1.1-2; PO 2.17 (CSEL 10, 225.10f.): *haec enim meditatio nimium saturat et delectat tamquam mellis crassi dulcedo.*

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but also, through the poem's images of Christ's continuous fecundation, in mankind and in the visible world. At the same time, I suggest, he may have hoped that Christ, through his inherence as the divine Word in the poem's human words about him, would enter into its readers just as he had entered into Mary: 'the secret of divine generation' through the word. This inhabitation by the true Vine, or the Tree of Life, would then make the reader 'blossom' and become 'fruitful' – ready to expect and to experience *that* essence of all miracles.

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Sidonius Apollinaris and the Muses: Reception of an Epic Tradition in the Poems and Letters

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Throughout a checkered public career as a Gallic aristocrat, Prefect of Rome, and Bishop,[1] Sidonius Apollinaris aspired to the mantle of the noble Roman. His poetry, notably his panegyrics, contains the spirit of *romanitas*, cautiously expressed, due to the political turbulence of the late Fifth Century. His letters, several of which also contain poems, make him an intermittently valuable resource for Gallo-Roman affairs.[2]

As an advocate of a classical view of Rome whose reality had all but disappeared by his time, Sidonius utilized the literary conventions available to the classical poet. Among these conventions was the invocation of the Muses. His poetry abounds in references to the goddesses of Arts and Sciences, as well as to their attendant figures of Apollo, Minerva, Bacchus, Orpheus and Sappho. His references combined the genres of epic and lyric poetry, evoking the miniature epic, or *epyllion*.

As long as Sidonius was, or saw himself as, a secular political actor within the Roman Empire, his invocations were redolent with imperial majesty, and masterfully reflected the ongoing tension inherent within poetic inspiration. After his move from secular to ecclesiastical life, a life with its own set of public concerns, Sidonius gently set aside classical themes, including the Muses, but occasionally returned to poetry. On one of these occasions, he shifted the paradigm of the invocation.

The Muses and inspiration

In epic poetry, the Muses served to project the narrator from the mundane world into a realm of higher authority endowed with poetic power and knowledge.[3] From the beginning of the tradition, tension existed due to the Muses' explicit literary vocation: to make fiction sound like truth.[4] In this, the Muses,

[1] J. Harries, *Sidonius Apollinaris and the Fall of Rome: AD 407-485* (Oxford, 1994), 150.

[2] R. Mathisen, Sidonius on the Reign of Avitus: A Study in Political Prudence: *TAPA* 109 (1979) 165-71.

[3] C. Calame, *The Craft of Poetic Speech in Ancient Greece* (London, 1996), 77.

[4] Hesiod, *Theogony* 27-8.

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although differentiated, tended to be united in mind, spirit and feeling.[5] As their purpose was to intensify the compositional experience, they never really spoke for themselves.[6] They retained a metapoetical character throughout the tradition; they thematize the poem's discourse yet do not act in it.[7]

By the time of the Roman ascent to power, the stature of the Muses had changed considerably. From Catullus to Statius, the ambivalence of the Muse/poet relationship resulted in attitudes towards the tradition that ranged from rejection[8] to class issues,[9] to deceit,[10] and to shameless political pandering.[11] The important element in this shift of poetic traditions was the movement of the political scene from Republic to Empire. Under the rule of Augustus, who, significantly, had taken Apollo as his personal patron, the inspirational relationship between poet and Muse was integrated with and sometimes substituted by, the relationship between poet and Emperor. This invasive presence resulted in a reformulation of the way in which the poet spoke of his own compositions and of his sources of inspiration. The imperial quasi-Muse symbolized the control exercised by political power over literary activity, thus bringing the poet into the condition of a servant not of the Muses, but of Imperium.[12] Panegyrists had habitually apostrophized the goddess Rome in their addresses to the Emperor,[13] but under the new regime, they included the divinity of the Emperor, thus highlighting his separation from the rest of his subjects. The style of the panegyric shifted from prose to poetry and became more hymn than speech.[14]

After Augustus' death, and the beginning of the so-called 'Silver Age', poets regained some control over their content and expression, but the poetry connected

[5] *Theog.* 60. In *Carm.* 23.435, Sidonius employs Thalia, nominally the Muse of comedy, in an epic *persona*. The edition cited is: W.B. Anderson (ed.), *Sidonius: Poems and Letters* (Cambridge, MA, 2 vols., 1980).

[6] E. Spentzou, Secularizing the Muse, in: E. Spentzou and D. Fowler (eds.), *Cultivating the Muse: Struggles for Power and Interpretation in Classical Literature* (Oxford, 2002), 4. Catullus, in 68(B).45-46 requests that the Muse speak for him, as he is in mourning.

[7] A. Laird, Authority and Ontology of the Muses in Epic Reception, in: E. Spentzou and D. Fowler (eds.), *Cultivating the Muse* (2002), 117-40.

[8] See Catullus 68(A).6-7, and P. Green, *The Poems of Catullus* (Berkeley, CA, 2005), 250f.; also Statius, *Thebaidos*, 1.1-10; 15-22 and E. Spentzou, Secularizing the Muse, in: E. Spentzou and D. Fowler (eds.), *Cultivating the Muse* (2002), 12f.

[9] Ovid, *Metamorphoses*, 305-10.

[10] Lucan, *Pharsalia*, 5.120-97. A Sybil of Delphi, Phemonoe, is forced to pose as a Muse and deliver a political prophecy.

[11] Virgil, in *Aeneid* managed to retain the traditional invocations, but felt constrained to add the Muse-like figure of the Sybil, who, after a struggle with Apollo, delivers a prophecy (*Aen.* 6.45-97). A male prophet, Helenus announces the command to visit the Muse (*Aen.* 3.439-52).

[12] G. Rosati, Muse and Power in the Poetry of Statius, in: E. Spentzou and D. Fowler (eds.), *Cultivating the Muse* (2002), 229-51.

[13] Sidonius personifies Rome in *Carm.* 2, 5, and 7.

[14] C.E. Stevens, *Sidonius Apollinaris and his Age* (Oxford, 1933), 30f.

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with the Emperor could not help but to be considerably constrained, most especially in the panegyrics.[15]

For Sidonius, Rome was the center of civilization, and the Emperor, although not in any way divine, was its ruling power.[16] In the panegyrics, the Muses retained their classical metapoetical status, existing outside the frame of the story. Sidonius carefully exploits this status of the Muses in an imperial mode, subordinating their influence to the topic of the poem: the Emperor. But, the invocations are ambivalent at best. In other poems, Sidonius echoes the tradition, but eventually dismisses the Muses, and, finally, performs the shift.

Sidonius and the Muses

This study will concentrate on the poems directed towards the public figures of Emperor, Senator and Bishop.[17] The panegyrics to Emperors Avitus, Majorian and Anthemius contain some of Sidonius' most florid writing. In bringing together mythology, history and symbolism, they hearken to the Alexandrian style of miniature epic.[18]

The earliest of the panegyrics[19] had as its subject Sidonius' father-in-law, the Emperor Avitus. At the beginning, employing the symbolism of ocean breezes, Sidonius calms his Muse, who believes that she is in over her head. Instead of looking for a harbor, as he will in a later panegyric, the poet feels comfortable 'speeding over the ocean of fame'.[20] The fame of course, belongs to Avitus, and the theme of fear transfers attention from poetic inspiration to his virtues, which were, Sidonius claims, formed by the Muses.[21]

The panegyric to Majorian[22] offers what can only be termed an 'anti-invocation'. Composing this poem must have been difficult for Sidonius, as Majorian may have had a hand in Avitus' fall from power and suspicious death. On the other hand, Majorian had pardoned Sidonius for his part in the Gallic insurrection that had followed Avitus' death. In the end, the pardon prevailed. The invocation appears not in its usual place at the beginning of the poem, but at the end, where Sidonius berates his 'rash' Muse[23] because she does not possess the power to do justice to the Emperor.

[15] A.J. Boyle, The Roman Song, in: A.J. Boyle (ed.), *Roman Epic* (London, 1993), 1-18.

[16] L. Duval-Arnould, *Études d'Histoire du Droit Romain au Ve siècle d'après les letters et les poèmes de Sidoine Apollinaire* (Paris, 1888), 11.

[17] References to the Muses appear in *Carm.* 4.6-7; 6.29-36; 10.17; 24.10-11, but contain no invocations. Poems with invocations also contain other references to the Muses.

[18] A.J. Boyle, The Canonical Text: Virgil's *Aeneid*, in: A.J. Boyle (ed.), *Roman Epic* (1993), 79-107.

[19] The poem was delivered 1 January, 456.

[20] *Pelago... currere famae/ coepimus. Carm.* 7.15-6.

[21] *Surgentes animi Musis formantur. Carm.* 7.174.

[22] The panegyric was delivered in Lyon, late in 458.

[23] In this case, he invokes Clio, the Muse of history (*temeraria Clio*, in *Carm.* 5. 568).

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Ten years later,[24] Sidonius delivered a panegyric to the Senate praising Emperor Anthemius on assuming the consulship for the second time. A conventional invocation to Apollo and an unnamed Muse occurs roughly halfway through the poem.[25] Later, Sidonius again invokes the Muse, asking her to help him to finish the poem. Here, Sidonius combines features from the other two panegyrics. As in the poem to Majorian, an invocation appears near the end. And, as with Avitus, Sidonius finds himself on a metaphorical sea of praise. This time the breezes are too strong, so the Muse must help him end the poem. She will lead him to a harbor, where the 'anchor of [his] song may settle'.[26]

The bodies of the panegyrics contain the usual descriptions of military exploits and praise from the goddess Rome. Sidonius' rendering of the Muses, however, marginalizes them to the extent that their status as metapoetical inspirational figures is compromised. Their very presence seems to be an intrusion into the occasion.

Other poems

In two other poems to political figures that reinterpret the tradition, the Muses fall silent. In his poem to the Senator Cutullinus, who had requested an epithalamium, Sidonius blames the Burgundians for scaring his Muse, who on this occasion is, appropriately, Thalia, the Muse of comedy. She remains silent due to offended artistic sensibilities caused by their 'barbarian strumming'.[27] Apparently, Sidonius was certain of a sympathetic hearing, and possibly some sort of political response, from the Senator.

In a poem written to Majorian soon after the panegyric, Sidonius, in effect, holds his Muse hostage, declaring that she will once again sing only after the Emperor lifts a tax that he had imposed as a punishment for the Gallic insurrection.[28] However arid his poetic inspiration, Sidonius retains his capacity for vivid flattery. He characterizes Majorian as a 'second Hercules', and the tax as a monster that the Emperor can easily defeat.[29]

The paradigm shift

Sidonius' move from secular to religious concerns was a common practice of Gallic aristocrats, who found that, in the absence of Roman political influence

[24] The panegyric was delivered on 1 January, 468.

[25] *Carm.* 2.307-16. The Muses are termed *Castalides*.

[26] *Siste, Camena, modos tenues, portumque petenti/ iam placido sedeat mihi carminis ancora fundo. Carm.* 2.538-9.

[27] *Abactrum plectrum* in *Carm.* 12.9 (*abactus* originally meant 'cattle thief').

[28] *Carm.* 13.35.

[29] *Carm.* 13.15-20.

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to help them deal with the Germanic tribes, ecclesiastical influence was almost as effective. Sidonius' service in Rome, the honors he accrued there, and his esteem for Roman Law made him an ideal candidate for Bishop.[30] He moved easily from a life that aspired to high political office to one of service to his diocese and its people. The Roman ideal of patronage had taken on a Christian dimension.[31]

The letters of the newly-regenerated Christian, and later, of the Bishop, provide evidence of a shift in Sidonius' attitudes towards classical figures, and the reader can discern sporadic movements that culminate in his journey to a new paradigm.[32] In a letter to Secundus, a distant relative,[33] he composed an epitaph for his grandfather's tomb. Most of the poem's text contains conventional praise for a deceased Roman official, but also includes a reference to his grandfather's Christianity.[34] Sidonius combines classical and Christian in his claim that the poem was a funeral offering 'from the Muses'.[35] In another letter, he places the Muses into a metaphorical context. He claims that they are 'not females', but represent the nine branches of learning. Sidonius adds the study of architecture and poetics to the seven traditional Arts and Sciences.[36]

Sidonius, as Bishop of Clermont, officially makes his break with the theme of classical inspiration in a letter to his friend Firminus. The letter contains a poem[37] in which Sidonius claims that his earlier verses were products of a rash youth. He announces that he will put his literary skills into letters rather than poems. Seeing that his rejection of poetry appears in verse, one cannot take him too seriously. In fact, Sidonius, far from rejecting all future versifying, declares that any future poems will address Christian themes, such as the martyrdom of Saturninus of Toulouse, which takes up the remainder of the poem. Sidonius finishes the letter in prose but slyly ends with a quotation from Horace, stating that he reverted to prose in order to keep stylistic unity.[38]

The actual paradigm shift occurs in *Carmen* 16, the *Eucharistion* written to Bishop Faustus of Riez, who had been a monk of Lérins. Sidonius begins the poem by rejecting the Muses and their attendant figures.[39] He then calls upon

[30] J. Harries, *Sidonius Apollinaris* (1994), 171.

[31] *Ibid.* 212.

[32] Various rejections and dismissals occur in *Ep.* 8.3.3; 8.9.5, verses 1-7; 8.16.2; 9.13.5, verses 96-101; *Carm.* 14.4 (Statius also dismisses the gods of inspiration in *Silvae* 1.5.1-4 and 1.6.1-2. In the latter poem, he replaces them with figures appropriate to the poem's winter setting.)

[33] Secundus may have been a distant cousin. See *MGHAA*, 8.47, 49.

[34] *Ep.* 3.12.5, verses 13-6.

[35] *Ep.* 3.12.6. Prudentius, in *Liber Cathemerinon* 9.3, using the term, 'Camena', similarly mentioned the Muses in an otherwise Christian poem.

[36] *Ep.* 5.1, written to his friend Nymphidias.

[37] *Ep.* 9.16.3.

[38] Horace, *Ars poetica* 21-22: *amphora coepti/ institui: current rota cur urceus exit?*

[39] In this poem, the attendants are Phoebus, Pallas (the 'tenth Muse'), Orpheus, the sacred spring of Hippocrene and 'the Theban lute', possibly a reference to Statius.

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a new inspirational authority, the 'great Spirit', who performs the task formerly given to the Muse by bringing the poet out of the mundane realm. Sidonius then amplifies the invocation, taking almost half of the poem's length to catalog the deeds of the Spirit throughout Salvation History. He keeps his pledge to Firminus by exclusively citing biblical figures whom the Holy Spirit motivated to both literary deeds[40] and to heroic religious acts. Eventually, the Spirit comes to dwell within the Incarnate Christ. Sidonius then moves the model out of the metapoetical status given to the Muses by the classical tradition, and the Spirit becomes a character in the story. The Spirit, united in Christ, performs miracles, suffers, dies and resurrects, offering the boon of salvation to all.

After these examples,[41] Sidonius introduces the actual invocation, asking the Spirit for the ability to make his thanksgiving to Faustus, thus moving the inspirational source back into the metapoetic realm. The body of the poem itself praises the monk Faustus, and thanks him for his presence in Gaul as Bishop, and for his spiritual deeds, which were also inspired by the Holy Spirit. In this poem, Sidonius combines the role of Gallo-Roman aristocrat with that of Bishop, writing from in his new power base, the Church.

Conclusion

Sidonius Apollinaris deals with the tensions between classical and Christian by molding the tradition into new formats that address traditional conventions such as self-deprecation, and new concerns such as the quality of *romanitas* as embodied in a Christian Emperor.[42] It is only natural that, when the object of praise is a Bishop, the invocation would shift from classical to Christian imagery, all the while retaining the sweep and atmosphere of the miniature epic.

While Sidonius ranks quite low in the estimation of literary criticism, he did know his craft. His literate and witty invocations enthusiastically evoked imperial Rome. As Bishop, however, Sidonius demonstrated a remarkable flexibility of thought through his union of Classical and Christian poetic themes.

[40] Sidonius cites Miriam's Song from *Ex.* 15.

[41] *Carmen* 16.68-70.

[42] R.A. Markus, Paganism, Christianity and the Latin Classics in the Fourth Century, in: J.W. Binns (ed.), *Latin Literature of the Fourth Century* (London, 1971), 15.

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The Passage from *Romanitas* to *Christianitas* According to Sidonius Apollinaris († *c.* 486)

Joseph GRZYWACZEWSKI, Paris

It is known that Western Europe continues the tradition of ancient Rome. Even if the empire had collapsed, the culture survived, but it had to pass through the process of Christianisation. We can see this process in the writings of Sidonius Apollinaris. He began his career as poet and senator in the Roman time and finished as Bishop of Clermont (Auvergne), which was dominated by the barbarians. He is considered as 'one of the last representatives of classical culture'[1] who entered the new era.

1. The Vision of Rome and *Romanitas*

Sidonius presented the vision of old Rome in his *Carmen VII* pronounced (1st January 456) in honour of the emperor Avitus.[2] Rome is symbolized by a matron who comes to the assembly of gods presided by Jupiter and remembers her old position:

> The blade of my lance terrified the territory of Libya, I put three times my yoke on the perfidious Carthaginian, the river Ganges in India, Phase in Colchide, Araxe in Armenia, Ger in Ethiopia, Tanais in the country of Gets were trembling before my Tiber [...]. Oh, how big my power was, when Sylla, Asiatic Scipio, Curius, Paulus, Pompeius imposed peace on Tigrane, on Antioch, on Pyrrhus, forcing them to abdication, sending them to exile [...]. Caesar installed the signs of victory among the British, repelled the Scots and Picts and Saxons. He was looking for some more enemies, but he did not find them.[3]

In this vision we realise the old concept of *Roma bellatrix* present in the Latin literature since the third century before Christ (*carmina triumphalia*). There is such a vision by Naevius in *Belli Punici Carmen*, composed on the occasion of the taking of Agrigentum in Sicily by the Romans (262). We see this vision by

[1] *The Oxford Dictionary of the Christian Church* (Oxford, 1997), 1498. The bibliography of Sidonius in Jill Harries, *Sidonius Apollinaris and Fall of Rome AD 407-485* (Oxford, 1994).

[2] André Loyen, *Recherches historiques sur les* Panégyriques *de Sidoine Apollinaire* (Paris, 1956), 35-42.

[3] *Carmen* VII 70-90, Latin text in *Sidoine Apollinaire*, vol. 1, *Poèmes*, ed. André Loyen (Paris, 2003); transl. by the author of this article.

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Ennius († 169) in his *Annales*[4] and especially by Virgil († 19) in *Aeneid*. Probably Sidonius was influenced also by later Roman poets like Statius (panegyrics on Domitianus), by Claudianus (panegyrics on Honorius) and perhaps by Ausonius who wrote panegyrics in honour of Gratianus. But the time of glory of Rome is over. The matron is obliged to confess:

'Before the whole world was too small for me, now there is no security even inside of the city walls of Rome'.[5] Jupiter, impressed by this complaining, tries to console her: 'It is strange indeed that you are defeated, but it will not be strange when you start to gain and conquer again. I am going to give you advice how to do it'.[6]

The intervention of gods in the history of Rome is typical for Latin poetry. In *The Aeneid* of Virgil we find something like *pre-existence of Rome* in the divine plans as a city of those who should dominate the world.[7] Jupiter promises to give to Rome a new emperor from Gaul, whose name is Avitus (455-6). He will be able to expel enemies. In fact, even if he was a man of experience in political matters, he has been dethroned by Ricimer, a famous *emperor-maker* and master of the Roman Empire in the West during part of the 5th century.[8] Later Sidonius composed a similar panegyric on Maiorianus *(Carmen V)* and on Anthemius *(Carmen II)* in which he expressed the old nostalgia for political power.[9] In the poetic vision, Rome was called *the capital of the world* (*caput mundi*).

The *Romanitas* is not only the domination of the world. It is a kind of a culture and a civilisation as well. The writings of Sidonius may be considered as a treasury on this matter. He was always impressed by educated persons like the poet Lampridius:

He had the gift of writing verse of extreme finish, and wonderfully varied alike in metre and in metaphor [...]. If his subject was tragic, he could command terror and pathos; if comic, he was polished and infinite in resource. In Fescennines his diction was of a vernal freshness and ardent in vows; his bucolics were terse, alert, and musical. In georgics he could strike the perfect rustic note, though he had no touch of rusticity about him [...]. Horace was his model in lyrics; his iambics went with a swing, his choriambics with a fine gravity; his Alcaics had a supple grace, and his Sapphics

[4] René Pichon, *Histoire de la littérature latine* (Paris, 1930), 99: 'Ennius est le modèle de Virgile parce qu'il a, le premier à Rome, conçu l'idée de la vraie épopée'. Virgil took many phrases from *Annales* of Ennius.

[5] *Carmen* VII 95.

[6] *Carmen* VII 135.

[7] Virgil, *Aeneid*, I 235: 'You promised once, a progeny divine, of Romans, rising from the Trojan line. In after times should hold the world in awe, and to the land and ocean give the law' (transl. John Dryden, London, 1903, 9. *Ibid.*: I 259-95; VI 790-805; XII 140-50; 155-70; 565-70).

[8] Guy Lucam, *Ricimer, un barbare au service de Rome* (Paris, 1986); Guy Lucam, *L'Agonie de Rome: un barabare maître de l'Occident 455-472* (Paris, 1992).

[9] Edward Gibbon, *Histoire du décline et de la chute de l'Empire Romain*, transl. M.F. Guizot (Paris, 1983), 1048-56.

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were inspired. In short, his work was so fine, that one might fairly think of him as a bird of glorious wing, following next after the Horatian and Pindaric swans.[10]

In this portrait we see Lampridius as a man of vast knowledge and experience in every kind of literature and we see Sidonius as well, who presents himself as somebody who is able to appreciate every art. In a similar way he spoke about Flavius Nicetius who was distinguished above all his countrymen by his birth and his knowledge of the world, he was a master in all learning and all letters (*studiorum omnium caput est litterarumque*). He was either a scholar or a poet, he was a lawyer (*advocatus*), generally estimated as an orator and expert in the Roman law.[11]

The fact that Sidonius gives such pictures suggests that there were many persons advanced in sciences and arts and there were people who admired them.[12]

The *Romanitas* was also a way of living. Sidonius describes his house, he tells his readers, how he accepts guests, he gives many details about meals, baths, conversations[13], private receptions and senatorial banquets.[14] He shows the life of the nobility in Gaul in the end of the Roman time.

One of the typical elements of the Roman mentality was the ambition to enter the public service. In this matter the letter to Eutropius is to be appreciated:

My sole motive is to drag you from the slough of your domestic ease by an appeal to you to enter the imperial service [...]. How can it fairly be described as exile, for one with the blood of senators in his veins and with the effigies of ancestors in the trabea daily forced upon his sight to visit Rome once in his prime Rome the abode of law, the training-school of letters, the fount of honours, the head of the world, the motherland of freedom, the city unique upon earth, where none but the barbarian and the slave is foreign? Shame on you now, if you bury yourself among cow-keeping rustics, or grunting swineherds.[15]

Sidonius himself was attached to the public activity. He went from Gaul to Rome, entered the service of Avitus (456) who was his father-in-law, after his dethronement, he accepted to work for Maiorianus (458); Anthemius named him prefect of Rome (461). But this was a time of trouble and crisis; the Roman Empire was going to be ruined (476). Finally he gave up his secular responsibilities and became a bishop (471).

[10] Sidonius Apollinaris, *Letters*, transl. O.M. Dalton (Oxford, 1915), VIII 11, 5-6; comp. *Letters*: IV 1, 1-2; IV 3, 2-4; IV 9, 3-4; IV 11, 1-4; IV 17, 1; IV 21, 4; V 2, 1; V 8, 1-2; V 10, 3; IV 17, 1.

[11] *Letters* VIII 6, 2-6.

[12] *Letters* IV 1,1-4; IV 3,4-5; Henri-Iréné Marrou, *Histoire de l'éducation dans l'Antiquité, vol. 2. Le monde romain* (Paris, 1948), 107-26.

[13] *Letters* II 3, 3-15; comp. *Carmen* XVIII, *Carmen* XIX, *Carmen* XX, 5-10; 100-230.

[14] Reception by Ferreolus (*Letters* II 9, 1-10); reception by emperor Maiorianus (*Letters* I 11, 10-5).

[15] *Letters* I 6, 1-3; comp. II 3,1-2; III 6, 1-3; IV 20, 1-3. Maurice Sartre, *Le Haut-Empire romain* (Paris, 1990), 132-50.

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2. *Christianitas*

After the time of battles, life in Gaul seemed to be normalized. The Goths, who took the south of the country in their possession, had no intention either to exterminate the local people, or to destroy the Roman heritage. On the contrary, 'they wanted to share in its benefits'.[16] In the letters of Sidonius, written after his ordination, we find some information about the Christian life in that time. So, we can see the people continue to keep their property, the Christians start to restore the churches damaged during the war,[17] several schools try to return to their activities, for example in Tours, Lyon, Clermont, Orleans, Paris, Metz. He mentions the monasteries in Lerins, in Grigny, in Jura which cultivated their work of spirituality.[18] Their role was going to be considerable for the religion and culture of Gaul.[19]

Sidonius, becoming a bishop, resigned to the classic poetry. In one of his letters, he said with nostalgia: 'At the very outset of my religious career (*religiosa professio*), the art of versifying was the first thing that I renounced; gravity of deed was now my business, and if I occupied myself with such frivolous things as verses, I might well be accused of levity'.[20] He was convinced that such a poetry was not suitable for him because of his ecclesiastical function. He found himself obliged to deal with Christians matters: 'My earlier life might not improperly find time for such pursuits, and in fact it did so. But now I only read and write of serious things (*tempus est seria legi et seria scribi*), for now it is high time to think rather of eternal life than of posthumous renown, and to remember that after death our good works, and not our literary work, will be weighed in the balance'.[21] Indeed, he worked for the Church as a pastor, but he did not become a Christian writer, he was not able to explain theological questions, he did not publish any homilies or Biblical commentaries.

In the fifth century Gaul was Christianized in great part. According to the register *Notitia Galliarum* there were 114 dioceses; [22] each of them had a system of parishes.[23] There were many candidates, sufficiently prepared, for the

[16] *Histoire de l'humanité*, ed. UNESCO, dir. R. Lopez and L. Frédéric (Paris, 1969), vol. 3, 81: 'Les Barbares ne manifestaient aucune hostilité aux Romains, ni à leur système politique, ni à leur culture. Chefs de guerre barbares et clarissimes romains furent bientôt réunis en une nouvelle aristocratie de service [...]. La coexistence dans la même famille de noms barbares et latins, souligne le rôle des unions mixtes'.

[17] *Letters* IV 15, 1-2.

[18] *Letters* IV 25, 5; VII 17, 3; VIII 15, 2; IX 4, 2.

[19] Pierre Riché, *Education et culture dans l'Occident barbare* Ve-VIIIe siècle (Paris, 1995), 87-103; 239-41.

[20] *Letters* IX 12, 1.

[21] *Letters* VIII 4, 3.

[22] Elie Griffe, *La Gaule chrétienne à l'époque romaine* (Paris, 1966), 113-7. *Ibid.* 112: 'La *Notitia Galliarum* correspond bien à l'état de la Gaule vers l'an 400'.

[23] El. Griffe, *La Gaule chrétienne* (1966), 125: 'Du moment qu'un évêque se trouvait placé dans chaque cité, il allait de soi que son autorité s'exerçait sur tout le territoire qui dépendait de

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function of bishop. Sidonius was charged to choose a bishop for Bourgus. He has chosen Simplicius, a married man from senatorial family, having experience in diplomatic and ecclesiastical matters.[24]

At that time of disorder, Sidonius realized a crisis in education in Gaul, but he saw some perspectives in the connection between Antiquity and the Christian religion. He always estimated people who were able to create a synthesis of faith and culture. One of them was Claudianus. After his death, Sidonius composed an epitaph on him:

> Beneath this sod lies Claudianus [...]. In three fields of learning he was a master and a shining light, the Roman, the Greek, and the Christian [...]. He was orator, logician, poet, commentator, geometer, musician; skilled also to loose the bonds of disputation, and with the sword of the word dissect the sects that harass the Catholic faith. Well was he skilled to chant psalms and lead a choir.[25]

So, we see a man who knew how to create a synthesis of Roman, Greek and Christian elements (*triplex bibliotheca, romana, attica, christiana*). He was known for his skill in logic, geometry, and music; he became priest and orator; he devoted himself at the service of the Church and Christian faith. Such a connection of classical learning and Christianity was typical for that time.

Sidonius himself was not a philosopher, but he appreciated the role of the philosophy in Christianity. He wrote to Faustus of Riez:

> The philosophy [...] in the Athenaeum she was with you and in the monastery; with you she abjured the wisdom of the world and proclaims that is from above. Whoever provokes you as her lawful spouse shall soon perceive the noble range of your philosophy, and find himself confronted by the Platonic Academy (fighting for) the Church of Christ. He shall hear you first declare the ineffable omniscience of God and the eternity of the Holy Spirit.[26]

This statement seems to be very important. Is means that Greek philosophy (perhaps not only Platonic) has been taken to the service of the Church, thanks to the persons like Faustus who used philosophy to proclaim the wisdom of God and explain some dogmatic definitions like divinity of the Holy Spirit. It may be an allusion to the book of Faustus *De Spiritu Sancto.*

In the letters of Sidonius we see several priests, like Claudianus, and bishops, like Faustus, Lupus, Leontius, and many of the lay people as well. One of them is Paul, whom he met in Rome:

la ville dont il était le chef spirituel. Le district épiscopal fut donc, en principe, le même que celui de la *civitas*. Pour le désigner, on prit de bonne heure l'habitude de se servir du mot diocèse (*dioecesis*), mais on employa aussi le mot paroisse (*parochia*) qui appartenait depuis longtemps à la langue ecclésiastique'.

[24] *Letters* VII 9, 8-25.

[25] *Letters* IV 11, 6.

[26] *Letters* IX 9, 13 (*huic sentiet Ecclesiae Christi Platonis Academiam militare*).

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I had already been made welcome to the home of the prefectorian Paul, and enjoyed the friendliest and most hospitable treatment in a house no less respectable for piety than for learning [...]. I am amazed when I think of the subtleties which he propounds, the figures of rhetoric adorning his judgements, the polish of his verses [...]. And over and above this encyclopaedic knowledge, he has a still better possession, a conscience superior even to all this science.[27]

Sidonius was impressed by Paul because of his knowledge of many things (*doctrina veneranda*), because of his way of speaking and treating of many subjects (*in omni atrium genere praestantior*), especially because of his poetry. Paul was a Christian, so Sidonius found himself obliged by politeness to add a compliment on his piety (*pietas*). It is something typical for that time: people wanted to manifest their attachment to the religion.

In spite of the intellectuals of high quality, Sidonius shows some persons who may be considered as models of Christian lords and property owners:

I recently visited the illustrious Vectius [...]. The majesty of his gait accords with his gravity of mind, and as the first secures him consideration abroad, so the last maintains his dignity at home [...]. With all this he is a regular reader of the Sacred Scriptures; even at meal times he enjoys this nutriment of the soul. He studies the Psalms, and yet more frequently chants them, setting a new precedent by living after this fashion in martial dress, the complete monk in all but the monastic habit'.[28]

We know that Vectius is widower, his wife left him a little daughter whom he brings up with tenderness, he administrates his property with dignity and indulgence, he reads the Holy Scripture and probably other Christians books (*sacrorum voluminorum lectio frequens*), he chants psalms, he listens to a spiritual reading during the meal (*edendum sumit animae cibum*), like in monastery.[29] The image of Vectius is completed by the image of Philomatia as Christian wife and mother, a person of faith and virtue, surely she had an education, because she was able to give advice even to men of quality (*senioribus sequenda*).[30] It is to be supposed that there were many people throughout Gaul making efforts to live according to the Christian teaching. So, the old Roman *virtutes* were gradually replaced by Christian virtues.[31] In the collection of letters of Sidonius, we do not find much information about ordinary people; he speaks especially about the nobility.

Sidonius Apollinaris was a man of two epochs. In his young age he was impressed by the political vision of Rome; later he noticed the weakness of the Roman empire and survived its collapsing. He passed from the public service

[27] *Letters* I 9, 1; comp. the portrait of Phebus (*Carmen* XXII 10-20).

[28] *Letters* IV 9, 2-4.

[29] About reading during the meal in families: *Life of Hilary of Arles* 15 (author unknown); Caesarius of Arles, *Sermons* VII 1 and VIII 2.

[30] *Letters* II 8, 1-3.

[31] Michel Banniard, *Genèse culturelle de l'Europe* Ve-VIIIe siècle (Paris, 1989), 94-100.

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to the Church, like many persons in that time. In his poems and letters, he shows his attachment to the ancient world. In his writings we see also a new world which was going to be formed; it was the world politically dominated by the Goths, Franks, Burgundians and spiritually inspired by Christianity. In the end of the fifth century it was too early to realize the danger for civilisation. The Roman and Greek cultures were progressively Christianised; the notion of *romanus* signified more and more *christianus,* the classical philosophy was used to explain theological questions. The number of Christians was growing. That was the time of passing from *Romanitas* to *Christianitas.*

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Roman and Christian History in Dracontius' *De Laudibus Dei*

Chiara O. Tommasi Moreschini, Pisa

Blossius Aemilius Dracontius, who was in all probability a lawyer from Carthage, lived and wrote during the last decades of the fifth century A.D. Even though the exact chronology of his works is somewhat dubious or disputed,[1] the historical setting directly points to the Vandal rule, and to Gunthamund in particular (484-96). Apropos of his life, it will be sufficient to recall here the well known momentous episode that culminated in the poet's imprisonment and subsequent liberation. This reverse inspired the elegiac couplets of his *Satisfactio*, and led scholars to parallel Dracontius' fate to that of Ovid or Boethius, notwithstanding the final happy end.

However, whereas such works like the *Romulea*, a series of brief poems apparently pagan in content and inspiration,[2] attracted scholarly interest for many years, Dracontius' major poems, the *De laudibus Dei* (*On the praise of God*) and the briefer elegy about his repentance and reparation (*Satisfactio*) were strikingly neglected till recent times – textual criticism excepted. Nonetheless, these works merit a deeper investigation from various angles, which should range from literary and formal aspects to strictly theological elements. Dracontius, in fact, is the most prominent representative of Latin poetry in North Africa during the Vandal age (a period in which courtly and secular poetry flourished, as it is attested by the various authors in the so-called *Latin Anthology*). Together with Corippus, he can be considered the major poet of late antiquity in Africa, before the total vanishing of literature and the cultural decline of the region in the second half of the sixth century.[3] Furthermore,

[1] They are summarized by Claude Moussy, in the introduction to his edition of Dracontius' *De Laudibus Dei*, vol. 1 (Paris, 1985), see esp. 26-31.

[2] In a challenging article Mark J. Edwards has recently outlined its hidden anti-pagan meaning: M.J. Edwards, Dracontius the African and the Fate of Rome: *Latomus* 63 (2004) 151-60. See Roswitha Simons, *Dracontius und der Mythos: Christliche Weltsicht und pagane Kultur in der ausgehenden Spätantike* (München, 2005); Emanuele Rapisarda, Il poeta della misercordia divina. I. L'unità del mondo religioso di Draconzio: *Orpheus* 2 (1955) 1-9; and François Chatillon, Dracontiana: *RMAL* 8 (1952) 177-212, though from different perspectives. Note, however, the reservations of Etienne Wolff in his intervention Les préfaces programmatiques de Dracontius, in: Perine Galand-Hallyn, Vincent Zarini (eds.), *Manifestes littéraires dans la latinité tardive: poétique et rhétorique. Actes du Colloque de Paris, 23-24 mars 2007* (Paris, 2009), 133-43.

[3] See my Classicismo e cristianità nella poesia africana dell'età vandalica e bizantina, in: *Motivi e forme della poesia cristiana antica tra scrittura e tradizione classica. XXXVI Incontro di studiosi dell'antichità cristiana. Roma 3-5 maggio 2007* (Rome, 2008), 893-912.

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Dracontius is worth of being counted among Christian and patristic authors – a right which until recently he was denied because of his supposed profane production and the huge and sometimes lavish display of classical imagery exhibited in his declaredly Christian poems.

Dracontius demonstrates a high rhetorical education, writes cultivated and sometimes fatiguing poetry – which is in some expressions or *tournures* deeply influenced by his professional activity – shows a predilection for repetition and related figures (antithesis, oxymoron, etc.) as well as puns, and displays a masterful knowledge of classical authors and models like Lucretius, Virgil, Ovid, Lucan, Statius, Juvenal and Claudian.[4] These elements represent the backbone of his poetry, but at the same time sustain a profound and consistent theological framework, especially so far as the long poem on the praise of God is concerned. Many different forms are interwoven throughout the three books of the poem; there is a constant switching among the different themes, and the resulting literary genre contains more elements of novelty than first meets the eye. There is no doubt that *de Laudibus Dei* is meant to be a sort of epic poetry, as the canonical employment of the hexameter shows at the outset. It differs, however, from the traditional Christian epics, which are sometimes Biblical narrative, sometimes allegorical and moral meditations, sometimes versified hagiographies, in that all these different motifs seem to interact together and originate a unique modulation. In addition, prayers and hymns are inserted in some larger passages. Didactic intentions are patent as well, and the choice of paradigmatic tales or episodes reinforces this impression.

Indeed, the poem can be regarded only in part as a Biblical paraphrase, even though a huge part of book one and two is devoted to develop and describe episodes from the Old and New Testaments (in particular the creation of the world, the fall of Adam and Eve, and the miracles and the resurrection of Jesus).[5] Furthermore, by recalling salient episodes from the Holy Scripture, which are presented according to their contents rather than chronologically, Dracontius seems inspired by, so to speak, a sort of authorial consciousness which leads him to insert the human vicissitude into the universal plan of divine providential action.

In the present paper I focus on such a progressive succession in order to show how coherently history and faith in the divine providence are developed throughout the entire work. There are some key passages which function as turning points to outline significant changes in style and contents. They are also marked by the persistent repetition of some particular tenets, as I shall

[4] Francesco Stella, Tra retorica e innografia: Sul genere letterario delle Laudes Dei di Dracontio: *Philologus* 132 (1988) 258-74.

[5] Kurt Smolak, Die Stellung der Hexamerondichtung des Dracontius (Laud. Dei I,118-426) innerhalb der lateinischen Genesispoesie, in: Rudolf Hanslik, A. Lesky, and H. Schwabl (eds.), *Antidosis: Festschr. W. Kraus* (Wien, 1972), 381-97.

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explain in the next pages. A unitary meaning, however, can be inferred and detected by following the structure of the poem. The parallel structure of all three books, which open with a hymn and close with a demand for mercy and forgiveness, displays an escalating perspective. It ranges from the 'Prologue in Heaven', in book one, to the central event for humankind, the death and resurrection of Christ, in book two, and, finally, it broadens to semi-mythical or historical events till Dracontius' own times, in book three.

After the proemial invocation, book one opens with a detailed description of the creation. This description is partly modelled on Lucretian imagery and in some passages echoes Stoic ideas as well. A strong admiration for nature and its beauty emerges most of all in the description of the creation and in the sections praising the light as the element closest to God; the same feeling is evident in the final section where, after a description of the Trinity with particular concern for the Holy Spirit (ll. 562-606), the poet meditates on death and resurrection as part of the cycle of life, represented by plants, herbs, trees, animals (like the phoenix), and inanimate elements (the flame and the ashes, the alternation between day and night, the phases of the moon and the solar eclipses).

But Dracontius' primary intent is to demonstrate how merciful God is, for he does not forget his good deeds and the promises he allotted humans. At lines 115-6 a rhetorical question implies that it is a commonplace that God, who created humans, wants to preserve them. There is a continuous insistence on God's forgiving nature, which is also characterized by omnipotence and sovereignty. At the same time, according to the traditional Old-Testament description, God is a severe ruler, who creates and commands the elements by means of his word.[6] This dichotomy is essential throughout the poem, since it is repeatedly stated how the Almighty promptly forgives the contrite sinners who sincerely repent. The kernel of book one is the experience of Adam and Eve, their fall, and their final expulsion from Eden. Dracontius explicitly says that 'God's judgement rose up, and His mercy had to be harsh'.[7] The protoplasts clearly function as a model for humankind and their fate is foreshadowed in lines 29-42 where the poet states that God does not want to punish the guilty, but, rather, He sends threatening signs and wonders to turn humankind from sin. In describing these ominous portents, Dracontius is mainly influenced by classical authors, such as Livy and Pliny the Elder, as I shall explain later on.[8]

Book two again alternates these two main ideas. It opens with a long series of substantives which celebrate and praise God as almighty, eternal, the origin and creator of the world, father, nurturer, sovereign, lover.[9] He proceeds to

[6] See *e.g.* ll. 427 and 500: *cuncta facit fecitque iubendo.*

[7] I 545: *exsurgit censura Dei pietate severa.*

[8] See *e.g.* Liv., XXXIV 45, 7; XXVII 37, 5; Plin., VII 34. For a fuller treatment of this section see Colette Camus in Dracontius, *Œuvres* 1 (Paris, 1985), 246f.

[9] II 1-2: *omnipotens aeterne Deus fons auctor origo/ inventor genitor nutritor rector amator.*

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recount that everything descends from Him: He gives a vital spirit and nurtures the bodies of humans and animals; He distinguishes the various species of animals according to their kind; He cares for everything he created; but He also establishes a perpetual law which one has to obey. As we have already noticed, these concepts are variously repeated, and their moralizing purpose is obvious.

This is shown already in a long and passionate section permeated with echoes from Juvenal's indignant invectives. Dracontius severely condemns sin and in particular homicide, abortion and necromantic practices. The passage ends with an elaborate description of two Biblical examples, the Deluge and the destruction of Sodom and Gomorrah. The theme of the primeval fall is therefore hinted to again, insofar as it is stated that just we humans are guilty and responsible for our faults (l. 424). Dracontius' poetical inspiration suggest him a contrastive passage on the 'golden age' in which humans lived before the fall and the origin of cultural techniques (a motif usually developed by Biblical epic, which has its roots also in classical poetry)[10].

But the crucial event for humankind is the birth of Christ, which is described from line 79 onwards. Christ was given us to cleanse our taintedness, He who is pure and immaculate. He was sent as a rescuer and a redeemer by God the Father, and, although His divine substance was not diminished in any way, as the Arians pretended, nonetheless Christ became a true man as well.[11] The life and the miracles of Christ are extensively narrated, but the passage switches to a hymnographic section in which God is praised as master of nature and elements. Through this link some miracles of the Old Testament (Moses and the crossing of the Red Sea) are introduced. But comprehensibly, the poet deals at great length with the betrayal of Jesus, the Passion and the crucifixion. He describes His death, His descent into Hell (a common motif in early Christianity) and the Resurrection. As we have already noted, this long section constitutes the pendant of the account of the protoplasts and their sin – there is no further need to explain this parallelism.

The book resumes, in the conclusion, another series of Biblical examples – positive ones. They are Abraham, Sarah, David, Hezechiah, Anna, Zachariah, Tabitha, and Peter, people who all believed in God and had their prayers answered. Therefore, whereas book one was concentrated on the fall and its consequences and on the righteous God, book two emphasizes His mercy and the redemption offered by Christ. With reference to this, I think it is worth

[10] See Karla Pollmann, Varia Rerum Novitate (Prud. C. Symm. 2,329): Zwei früchristliche Kulturentstehungslehren bei Prudentius und Avitus, in: Victoria Panagl (ed.), *Dulce Melos: La poesia tardoantica e medievale. Atti del III Convegno internazionale di studi. Vienna 15-18 novembre 2004* (Alessandria, 2007), 53-71.

[11] This is clearly stated at line 93: *claustra puerperii passus sub lege creandi*, 'he submitted to the confinement of birth, under the law of creation'.

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quoting line II 703, *plus pius es quam iustus* ('You are more merciful than righteous') – a statement which, from Paul and his heretic disciple Marcion onwards, stands for the contrast between the depictions of God, in the Old and New Testaments, respectively.

The theme of the apostolic predication (Paul and Stephen) and the defeat of heathenism marks the transition to book three. This theme is introduced by the poet just before the long series of Biblical examples and concluding remarks about God, who relieves the humble and overwhelms oppressors. There again the poet resumes tenets that he has already put forward, such as the faith and loyalty to God and the fulfilment of prayers. Book three, however, introduces a substantial novelty.

For after all, Dracontius, in his Roman pride as an authoritative writer from the second most important city in the West, cannot forgo reminiscences from classical history and literature. These examples were commonplace, insofar they were taught in school and easily read in manuals or similar works like Valerius Maximus' *Dicta and Facta Memorabilia*, but Dracontius often inserts them in the literary texture with a didactic purpose, usually counterbalancing them with the Biblical model. Nor is their employment so slavish or dull – indeed, for a Roman citizen who possessed a rhetorical education there was no difference between using one means or another, and, in fact, an ideologically oriented treatment of classical culture could act as a device to reassert the superiority of the Christian faith. In other words, classical culture could be distorted and its negative aspects emphasized, or on the contrary, its positive aspects retained, according to the well known criterion of the *iustus usus*. This is what exactly Dracontius does. As far as the first case is concerned, the passage about wonders relies on Livy and Pliny (I 43). We can add an interesting hint in book two, where Dracontius parallels the first Biblical homicide, that of Cain and Abel, and the primordial fratricide committed on the boundaries of the newly founded city of Rome. But in the same section Rome is evoked as well by the shadows of Caesar and Pompey and the civil war.[12]

This comparison was probably suggested by a reading of Augustine, and in particular by *De Civitate Dei* XV 5. Such an impression is reinforced by the long catalogue of heroes and heroines (III 251-530), which, likewise, recalls a similar series of examples in fifth book of *De Civitate Dei*.[13] As I said at the beginning, Dracontius wants to offer a broader and, so to speak, universalistic perspective to his audience by providing exemplary characters from Greek and

[12] See ll. II 301-2. Perhaps these lines are inspired also by Verg., *Aen.* VI 830-1, a passage which recalls the bloody rivalry between the two. The closest model, however, is Lucan, who mentions the primeval fratricide as well in I 94.

[13] The function and role of these examples are discussed by Isabelle Bochet, *Le livre V du De Civitate Dei*, in: *Lettura del De Civitate Dei I-X. Lectio Augustini XV-XVI-XVII. Settimana Agostiniana Pavese (1999-2001)* (Rome, 2003), 109-39.

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Roman history. He chooses historical or mythical figures who were praised, already in classical antiquity, for their heroic virtue and strength or for their patriotism, such as Menoeceus, who immolated himself for the freedom of Thebes; Hercules; Leonidas and his three hundred Spartan soldiers; the Philenes brothers; the inhabitants of Saguntum and Numantia;[14] Junius Brutus; Verginius; Curtius; Semiramis; Dido; Lucretia. Following a traditional custom, examples are therefore used to back didactic concerns, even though no one can deny the rather simplistic moral lying behind them. As the literary genre does not encourage deep philosophical meditation, Augustine's long discussion is here substantially abridged; conversely, Dracontius pays more attention to embellishing his passages. It is worth noticing, however, that under some respects the poet shows a moral condemnation. In fact, he blames some of these characters for pursuing mundane glory only and therefore seeking in vain. For a Christian writer, safety lies only in God, who is the secure and restful haven. Human deeds should conform to achieve this final goal. This is just what Dracontius prays for in the concluding lines.[15]

[14] I am wondering whether the emphasis on their loyalty is an antiphrastic allusion to the ironic notion of *Punica fides*.

[15] According to some scholars in the final prayer to God a prayer to the Vandal sovereign might be hidden, in order to implore the poet's liberation; or, on the contrary, it is meant to reassert the superiority of the heavenly ruler, since He is merciful towards contrite sinners, whereas the human sovereign shows no mercy at all. This diverging interpretation depends, of course, on the different chronology assigned to the poem, which, for the sake of brevity, I cannot take into account here. Some of the issues I discussed in this paper are now considered also by Miryam De Gaetano, *Scuola e potere in Draconzio* (Alessandria, 2009) – for a fuller discussion of that book see my review (*JRS*, forthcoming).

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Profuturus of Braga, Pope Vigilius and Priscillian*

Alberto FERREIRO, Seattle

Long after Priscillian had been executed in Trier (385) for heresy, in the sixth century there was still enough concern about lingering traces of his teachings that Profuturus of Braga solicited from Pope Vigilius doctrinal guidance regarding meat abstention. He received a response from Pope Vigilius in a letter dated 29 June 538, which also responds to four other issues raised by the bishop of Braga. Amazingly there has been just one study on this unique letter from a very controversial pontiff who is best known for his involvement in the Three Chapters controversy.[1] The letter directed at Profuturus of Braga, if not for Priscillian scholarship, would be almost entirely unknown today. In fact, it has been almost wholly ignored by modern scholars of Priscillianism.[2] This brief reflection seeks to contextualize the letter in a broader context on the question of abstention from meat and to evaluate whether the charge that Priscillian actually held to a Manichaean view of this practice has any basis in truth.

It is crucial to recall that in the fourth century, particularly in Iberia, the Christian ascetic movement was overall still a young one, precisely the time when Priscillian surfaced. In the fourth century ascetic milieu any would be monastic, whether suspect as Priscillian or revered like Martin of Tours, could easily become the object of admiration or suspicion. In many fundamental respects there was little to distinguish on the surface between the asceticism of a Catholic in good standing, Priscillian, or even a Manichaean Elect.

Before Pope Vigilius addressed Priscillianism, a couple of pontiffs had already been informed or had expressed their own concerns about the emerging sect. The first is the letter of Magnus Maximus to Pope Siricius written in 386 just a few years after the Council of Zaragoza. Turning to Priscillian and his followers he informed the pope that Priscillian and his followers were teaching

* I dedicate this study to my colleague, mentor, friend and brother in the faith Monseñor Eugenio (Úxio) Romero Pose, Auxiliary Bishop of Madrid, *Requiescat in pace*.

[1] J.O. Bragança, A carta do Papa Vigílio ao Arcebispo Profuturo de Braga: *Bracara Augusta* 21 (1967) 65-91.

[2] Henry Chadwick, *Priscillian of Avila the Occult and the Charismatic in the Early Church* (Oxford, 1976), 223 and Raymond Van Dam, The Heresy of Priscillian, in: *Leadership and Community in Late Antique Gaul* (Berkeley, 1985), 88-114; Virginia Burrus, *The Making of a Heretic: Gender, Authority, and the Priscillianist Controversy* (Berkeley, 1995), 47-78.

Studia Patristica XLVIII, 309-313.
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Manichaean doctrines.[3] Pope Leo the Great's detailed refutation of Priscillian, addressed to Turibius of Astorga, is incorporated in the acts of the First Council of Toledo (400). Canon 17 condemns the meatless practices of the Priscillianists: 'If anyone says or believes that one should abstain from bird meat or of other animals given for nourishment, not for the mortification of the body, but because they are considered execrable, let him be anathema.'[4]

The letter of Pope Vigilius, in spite of its brief comments on Priscillian, offers the most detailed direct refutation of their alleged Manichaean meat abstention. It is titled *De Priscillianistis qui se ab esu carnium substrahunt.* The Pope summarized what was by that time a common opinion that abstinence from meat on the grounds that the animal was inherently evil – not informed by orthodox monastic ascetical discipline – was a Manichaean heretical teaching. The Manichaean *typus* associated with Priscillianism was already well established in the sixth century when the pontiff wrote this letter.[5]

The letter commenced by warning that anyone who followed the Priscillianists in abstaining from meat was a heretic and should be avoided by Catholics.[6] He then recalls how the venerable Fathers censured the doctrines of the Manichaeans and demonstrated how eating of meat does not defile [*pollutum*] anyone. The Church Fathers he is referring to would have been the likes of Augustine among others. Moreover, nothing [edible creature] that God in His mercy gave for consumption is unclean for a Catholic.[7] Yet a second time he appealed to the Church Fathers who condemned those who abstained from meat based on erroneous [Manichaean] teaching.[8]

Vigilius constructed the central portion of his argument beginning with Paul's instruction to *Titus* 1:15-6: 'To the clean all things are clean, but to those who are defiled and unbelieving nothing is clean; in fact, both their minds and their consciences are tainted. They claim to know God, but by their deeds they deny him. They are vile and disobedient and unqualified for any good

[3] Gerrit Kant van Andel, *The Christian Concept of History in the Chronicle of Sulpicius Severus* (Amsterdam, 1976), 112f. See H. Chadwick, *Priscillian of Avila* (1976), 42-6.

[4] *Si quis dixerit vel crediderit carnes avium seu pecodum, quae ad escam datae sunt, non tantum pro castigatione corporum abstinendas, sed execrandas esse, anathema sit,* José Vives, *Concilios Visigóticos Hispano-Romanos* (Barcelona and Madrid, 1963), 28.

[5] V. Burrus, *Making of a Heretic* (1995), 49.

[6] The text is from C.W. Barlow, *Martini Episcopi Bracarensis. Opera Omnia.* (Yale, 1950), 290: *Hoc primum de his, quos Priscillianae haeresis indicasti vitiis inquinari, sancta et convenienti religioni catholicae eos detestatione iudicas arguendos, qui ita se sub abstinentiae simulatae praetextu ab escis videntur carnium submoveri, ut hoc exsecrationis potius animo, quam devotionis probentur efficere.*

[7] *Ibid.* 290f.: *In qua re quia nefandissimis Manichaeis esse consimiles approbantur, iuste Patrum venerabilium constitutis ab hac superstitione sub anathematis sunt interminatione prohibiti, ne aliquid ciborum contagione carnium crederent esse pollutum: quia in his omnibus, quae ad humanum victum misericordia divina concessit, nihil catholicis esse iudicatur immundum.*

[8] *Ibid.* 291: *Haec igitur sequentia Patrum venerabilium constituta specialiter eos censuerunt esse damnandos, qui, cum carnibus abstinerent, ea quoque credebant esse vitanda, quae carnibus fuisse videbantur admixta.*

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deed.'[9] And Vigilius added a second appeal to St. Paul in 1*Timothy* 4:1-5: 'Now the Spirit explicitly says that in the last times some will turn away from the faith by paying attention to deceitful spirits and demonic instructions through the hypocrisy of liars with branded consciences. They forbid marriage and require abstinence from foods that God created to receive with thanksgiving by those who believe and know the truth. Everything created by God is good and nothing is to be rejected when received with thanksgiving. It is made holy by the invocation of God in prayer';[10] lastly, Jesus Christ himself taught in the Gospel of *Matthew* 15:11: 'It is not what enters one's mouth that defiles that person; but what comes out of the mouth is what defiles one.'[11]

After Pope Vigilius' epistle, the concern in the Iberian Church – as reflected in select Iberian Fathers and provincial councils – about motives concerning meat consumption among clergy and ascetics did not abate. Fructuosus of Braga in his *Rule for the Monastery of Compludo*, in the chapter titled *De Mensis*, admonished the monks not to consume or even taste meat, not because the creature of God was unworthy, but rather because it was salutary to the soul.[12] Leander of Seville, in *Rule for Nuns*, titled *De Indvlgentia et Prohibitione Carnis* (chap. 24) associated Christian virtue with abstinence from meat.[13] Isidore of Seville, in *Regula monachorum*, (chap. 9), *De mensis*, warned that meat abstinence should not be motivated by contempt for the creature that God created for humans to consume.[14] The *Vita uel passio sancti Desiderii* of Sisebutus promoted a meatless diet for the monks,[15] as did the homily *De monachis perfectis* of Valerius of Bierzo.[16]

[9] *Ibid.*: *Sic enim Titum doctor gentium Paulus monet apostolus dicens: Omnia munda mundis, coinquinatis autem et infidelibus nihil est mundum, sed polluta sunt eorum et mens et conscientia. Deum confitentur se nosse, factis autem negant abominabiles et increduli ad omne opus bonum reprobi.*

[10] *Ibid.*: *Similiter et alio loco ad Timotheum de huiusmodi cavendis operibus praedicavit dicens: In novissimis temporibus discedent quidam a fide attendentes spiritibus erroris, et doctrinis daemoniorum in hypocrisi loquentium mendacium, et cauteriatam habentium suam conscientiam, prohibentium nubere, et abstinentes a cibis, quos Deus creavit ad percipiendum cum gratiarum actione fidelibus, et his qui cognoverunt veritatem, quia omnis creatura Dei bona, et nihil reiciendum quod cum gratiarum actione percipitur.*

[11] *Ibid.*: *Nam et ipse Dominus noster Iesus Christus ita praemonuit dicens: Non quae intrant in os coinquinant hominem, sed quae procedunt de ore haec sunt quae coinquinant. Quapropter nec abstinentiam Deo placitam reprobamus; nec eos qui exsecrantur Domini creaturam in nostra societate recipimus.*

[12] Julio Campos Ruíz and Ismael Roca Melia, *San Leandro, San Isidoro, San Fructuoso: Santos Padres Españoles II* (Madrid, 1971), 142. H. Chadwick, *Priscillian of Avila* (1976), 230f.

[13] Jaime Velázquez, *Leandro de Sevilla. De la Instrucción de las Virgenes y Desprecio del Mundo.* (Madrid, 1979), 159-161.

[14] J. Campos Ruiz, *San Leandro, San Isidoro, San Fructuoso* (1971), 105.

[15] Sisebutus, *Vita et passio sancti Desiderii*, Cap. 13.1.1-4, cited in José Carlos Martín, Caracterización de personajes y tópicos del género hagiográfico en la *Vita Desiderii* de Sisebuto: *Helmantica* 48 (1997) 121.

[16] Manuel Díaz y Díaz, *Anecdota Wisigothica I. Estudios y ediciones de textos literarios menores de época visigoda* (Salamanca, 1958), 71-87, 83.

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The Council of Zaragoza that met in 380[17] has no clear accusation of Manichaean abstinence from meat.[18] The First and Second Councils of Braga (561/572) do address the theme again in several of its canons. At the First Council of Braga canon 14 of the articles against Priscillian, there is an explicit accusation of Manichaeism: 'If anyone judges unclean meat that God gave to men for their consumption, and not because of mortification of the body, rather because they are judged unclean, to the point of not even tasting vegetables cooked with meat, as Mani and Priscillian say, let them be anathema.'[19] The bishops in order to separate the orthodox from the heretic asked them to taste a vegetable soup or stew with meat in it. Those who complied were allowed to resume their meatless asceticism having proved that they were not Manichaean / Priscillianists. Anyone who refused the test was suspect of being be a follower of Mani and Priscillian. Canons 14 of the First Council of Braga and 58 of the Second Council of Braga directed at clergy re-proposed the vegetable/meat soup test to try to weed out clandestine Manichaean / Priscillianists.[20]

External to the Iberian Peninsula, before and after Pope Vigilius, similar opinions were expressed about Priscillian and meat abstention.[21] Sulpicius Severus, who dedicated several lengthy sections of his *Chronica* to the Priscillianists, accused Priscillian and his followers of teaching Gnosticism; surprisingly however, he did not attribute to Priscillian Manichaeism.[22] In the end, I concur with Van Andel – at least on the imputation of Manichaeism by others to Priscillianists –: 'I consider it most unlikely that there were any grounds for these charges.'[23] Augustine explicitly in *De haeresibus* 46, 11, condemned Manichaean abstinence from meat and then in reference to Priscillianism accused them of being Gnostics and Manichaeans.[24] Furthermore, Filastrius of Brescia in *De haeresibus* 84 condemned the Priscillianists anonymously by calling them the 'Abstinents'.[25]

[17] V. Burrus has an insightful discussion on the Council of Zaragoza, *Making of a Heretic* (1995), 30-46.

[18] Alberto Ferreiro, Priscillian and Nicolaitism: *VigChr* 52 (1998) 382-92, 386f.

[19] *Si quis inmundos putat cibos carnium quos Deus in usus hominum dedit et non propter afflictionem corporis sui, sed quasi inmunditiam putans ita ab eis abstineat, ut nec olera cogta cum carnibus praegustet, sicut Manicheus et Priscillianus dixerunt, anthema sit*, J. Vives, *Concilios Visigóticos* [1963], 69. See also José Orlandis and Domingo Ramos-Lissón, *Historia de los Concilios de la España Romana y Visigoda* (Pamplona, 1986), 143.

[20] J. Vives, *Concilios Visigóticos* (1963), 69 and 100.

[21] For the Church Fathers and the Greco-Roman background, consult Veronika E. Grimm, *From Feasting to Fasting: The Evolution of a Sin. Attitudes to food in late antiquity* (London, 1996).

[22] Sulpicius Severus (CSEL, vol. 1). *Chronica*, (Vindobonae, 1866), chapters 45-51, pp. 98-105.

[23] G.K. van Andel, *The Christian Concept of History* (1976), 114.

[24] *De haeresibus* 11 (CChr.SL, 46, Aurelii Augustini Opera, pars XIII, 2. Turnholti, 1969), 316.

[25] *Diversarum hereseon liber* 56 (CChr.SL, 9. Turnholti, 1957), 253. See also H. Chadwick, *Priscillian of Avila* (1976), 119f.

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Priscillian in the *Tractates* defended himself against the accusation of being a Manichaean. In *Tractate* I he rejected Docetism as a heresy on the one hand and professed his belief in the resurrection of the body.[26] In *Tractate* V, he asserted that the world, Man, and the human body have been created by God.[27] He was even more direct in his repudiation of Manichaeism in *Tractate* I: *Anathema sit qui Manetem et opera eius doctrinas adque instituta non damnat.*[28] His next censure of Manichaeism was addressed to Pope Damasus.[29] In yet another refutation, Priscillian in *Tractate* II utterly rejected (hence the accusation against him) the teachings of the Manichaeans and bishops who embraced such doctrines.[30] Lastly the thirty third, thirty fifth and sixth *Canons* of Priscillian turned to abstinence from meat and wine but only to warn of their harmful effects, except for medicinal care.[31] The most we can find in Priscillian's *Tractates* are 'traces' of doctrinal heresy[32] and nothing that is indisputably Manichaean. The principal goal of the *Tractates* was to establish that Priscillian was thoroughly Catholic-Orthodox.[33]

Pope Vigilius was asked to rule on Priscillian's teachings without having any direct knowledge of them. He relied entirely on what Profuturus of Braga conveyed to him. The pope's association of Priscillian with Manichaeism was consistent with the *typus* that had been developing since the fourth century and had become by the sixth century a standard accusation. We cannot, however, dismiss that all suspected doctrinal deviations attributed to Priscillian were unfounded, but it seems that in this case, as with the charge of Nicolaitism, [34] there was no foundation to the accusation that Priscillian's views on meat abstention were informed by Manichaeism. To add to the complexity of this situation, meat abstention by Priscillianists that would otherwise be considered worthy of admiration and orthodox was construed as manifestly heretical. I think it is safe to say that by the time Pope Vigilius wrote his epistle to Profuturus the sect of the Priscillianists did not any longer exist as such. Rather, I believe that by the sixth century the heretical label of Priscillianism was only a *typus* similar to Gnosticism and Manichaeism.[35]

[26] *Priscilliani Tractatus Undecim. Liber Apologeticus. Tractatus* (CSEL 18), *Tract.* 1, pp. 21 and 29, also, *Tract.* 2, p. 37; *Tract.* 4, p. 60 and *Tract.* 10, p. 102.

[27] *Tract.* 5 (CSEL 18, pp. 62-8).

[28] *Tract.* 1 (CSEL 18, p. 22).

[29] *Tract.* 2 (CSEL 18, p. 39).

[30] *Tract.* 2 (CSEL 18, pp. 40-1). See also G.K. van Andel, *The Christian Concept of History* (1976), 104.

[31] CSEL 18, pp. 124-5.

[32] Liguori G. Müller, *The De Haeresibus of Saint Augustine. A Translation with an Introduction and Commentary* (Washington, 1956), 199-200 correctly identified them only as 'traces' of heresy.

[33] R. Van Dam, The Heresy of Priscillian (1985), 95.

[34] A. Ferreiro, Priscillian and Nicolaitism (1998), 382-392.

[35] See similar conclusions by H. Chadwick, *Priscillian of Avila* (1976), 232.

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Venantius Fortunatus und das Heilige Kreuz: Das Figurengedicht *Carmen II 4*

Oliver EHLEN, Aachen

Einleitung

Die Archetypen visueller Poesie in der Antike lassen sich bis in hellenistische Zeit zurückverfolgen. Als Archegeten gelten Simias von Rhodos und Theokrit, wobei die Frage nach der zeitlichen Priorität ungeklärt bleiben muß. Theokrit verfaßte ein Gedicht in Form einer Syrinx, während von Simias von Rhodos drei Gedichte überliefert sind, denen er die äußere Form bzw. den Umriß eines Eies, eines Beils und eines Flügelpaars verlieh. Diesem Typus des Umrißgedichtes fügte zur Zeit Konstantins des Großen der lateinische Dichter Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius den des *carmen cancellatum* oder Gittergedichts hinzu. Dabei werden in einem Basistext, der zumeist aus einer feststehenden Anzahl von Versen mit einer festgesetzten Anzahl von Buchstaben besteht (z.B. 35 oder 37 Hexameter aus jeweils 35 bzw. 37 Buchstaben) einige Buchstaben rubriziert oder durch eine andere Farbe (z.B. Gold) optisch hervorgehoben. Diese Buchstaben ergeben einerseits auf der visuellen Ebene ein bestimmtes Muster bzw. eine Figur, andererseits, liest man nur diese Buchstaben, sinnvolle Texte, sogenannte Intexte, die bei Porfyrius zumeist aus metrisch korrekten Versen bestehen. Eine weitere Innovation des Porfyrius besteht darin, daß er in drei Figurengedichten erstmals christliche Symbolik auf der Intextebene verwendet. Diese Symbolik wird in den Figurengedichten des Venantius Fortunatus aufgegriffen und dort mit dem Heiligen Kreuz in Verbindung gebracht.[1] Im folgenden will ich versuchen, kurz die Stellung des Venantius Fortunatus innerhalb der Traditionslinie figuraler Dichtung zu skizzieren. Dazu werde ich zunächst auf *Carmen VIII* des Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius eingehen, um dann in einem zweiten Schritt anhand von *Carmen II 4* des Venantius Fortunatus dessen Bemühen um eine Fortentwicklung der literarischen Tradition zu demonstrieren.

[1] Ausführlich dazu Ulrich Ernst, *Carmen figuratum: Geschichte des Figurengedichts von den antiken Ursprüngen bis zum Ausgang des Mittelalters* (Köln, 1991), 54-142.

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Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius: *Carmen VIII*

Zunächst also zu *Carmen VIII* des Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius:[2] Während in den meisten porfyrianischen Figurengedichten eine besondere Nähe des Dichters zum Christentum nicht erkennbar ist, sondern der Inhalt von Basistext und Intext traditioneller paganer Herrscherpanegyrik verpflichtet bleibt, stellen die *Carmina VIII*, *XIV* und *XIX* eine Besonderheit dar, die in unmittelbarem Bezug zu den historischen Bedingungen ihrer Entstehung zu sehen ist.[3] *Carmen XIX* ist zur Feier der Vicennalien, des zwanzigjährigen Thronjubiläums Konstantins 326, konzipiert und weist als Intextfigur das Staatsschiff auf, dessen Segel das Christogramm XP bildet. Die Friedensherrschaft des Konstantins über das gesamte Reich (nach dem Sieg über Licinius 324) wird in *Carmen XIV* gefeiert. Die Intextfigur ist hier ausschließlich als Christogramm gestaltet. *Carmen VIII* muß vor den beiden anderen entstanden sein, denn in Vers 33 wird auf die Konstantinsöhne angespielt, die 317 zu Caesaren geworden sind. Vers 28 wird der Kaiser Claudius Gothicus aus dem dritten Jahrhundert erwähnt, zu dem Konstantin etwa seit diesem Zeitpunkt zur Legitimierung der Dynastie eine verwandtschaftliche Beziehung konstruiert. Da es sich zugleich um eines der ältesten *carmina cancellata* des Porfyrius handelt (Vers 1f.), ist dieses Figurengedicht wahrscheinlich um 318 (erstes Konsulat des Crispus mit seinem Vater), spätestens wohl zu den Quinquennalien Konstantins 321 verfaßt worden.[4]

Der Basistext besteht aus fünfunddreißig Hexametern aus jeweils fünfunddreißig Buchstaben, in denen die Herrschaft Konstantins ausdrücklich unter christlichen Auspizien gefeiert (Vers 4f.) und seine Familie, beginnend mit Claudius Gothicus und Constantius Chlorus bis hin zu den Konstantinsöhnen, als Dynastie militärisch erfolgreicher gerechter Herrscher apostrophiert wird. Die Intextebene ist zweifach gestaltet: In Majuskeln, die IESVS XP(ISTOC) ergeben, sind noch zwei Distichen und ein weiterer Hexameter eingeschrieben:

Alme, salutari nunc haec tibi pagina signo.
Scripta micat, resonans nominibus domini
Sit Victoria comes Aug(usto). et natis eius.
Gütiger, Dir, der Du Heil bringst, zeichne ich nun diese Seite.
Das Geschriebene glänzt wider, es klingt wieder durch die Namen des Herrn (im X)
Der Sieg sei Begleiter des Augustus und seiner Söhne. (im P)

[2] Abbildung und Edition in: Publilii Optatiani Porfyrii *Carmina. I. Textus adiecto indice verborum*, rec. Iohannes Polara (Turin, 1973), 32-6.

[3] Zu den literaren *carmina cancellata* vgl. Ulrich Ernst, *Carmen figuratum* (1991), 118-27, zu *Carmen VIII*, 122-4.

[4] Zur Datierung vgl. Publilii Optatiani Porfyrii *Carmina. II. Commentarium criticum et exegeticum*, rec. Iohannes Polara (Turin, 1973), 60f.

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Und (in IESVS):

Nate Deo, solus salvator, sancte bonorum.
Tu deus es iusti, gratia tu fidei
Gottes Sohn, alleiniger Erlöser, Heiliger zum Guten.
Du bist der Gott des Gerechten, Du die Gnade des Glaubens

Da diese Figurengedichte eine besondere Form der Herrscherpaneyrik darstellen, die nur am Hofe vom Herrscher selbst und dem engsten Kreis um ihn herum rezipiert werden konnte (dem Herrscher wird das Gedicht als Einzelblatt / *pagina* oder in einem Codex mit weiteren panegyrischen Gedichten überreicht) bleibt zu konstatieren, daß sich Konstantin hier als christlicher Herrscher feiern läßt und dies auf seine gesamte Dynastie übertragen wird.

Venantius Fortunatus: *Carmen II 4*

Während Porfyrius im Basistext den Regeln des *basilikos logos* verpflichtet bleibt und das Lob von Herkunft, Taten und Tugenden des Herrschers dadurch transgrediert, daß er es in einen spezifisch christlichen Kontext stellt, geht der gallo-römische Dichter Venantius Fortunatus im sechsten Jahrhundert darüber hinaus, indem er sein Figurengedicht nicht einer Person, sondern einem christlichen Symbol widmet. In der von ihm selbst herausgegebenen Sammlung seiner Gedichte steht es am Anfang des zweiten Buches in Zusammenhang mit anderen Gedichten, die das Heilige Kreuz zum Thema haben und in denen der Autor mit verschiedenen Formen des Hymnus experimentiert.

Auch *Carmen II 4*[5] besteht wie *Carmen VIII* des Optatian Porfyrius aus 35 Hexametern mit jeweils 35 Buchstaben.[6] Die Intexte sind in Form eines Tatzenkreuzes griechischer Provenienz (also mit gleichlangem Längs- und Querbalken) gestaltet, ferner ist der Rahmen des Gedichts (der erste und letzte Vers sowie Akrostichon und Telestichon) ebenfalls als Intextträger hervorgehoben:

Diuus apex carne effigians genetalia limi (Vers 1)
Göttliche Allmacht, welche die Zeugungsorgane im Fleisch der Erde bildete
In cruce rex fixus iudex cum praeerit orbi (Vers 35)
Wenn der ans Kreuz geschlagene König als Richter dem Erdkreis vorstehen wird.

[5] Abbildung und Edition in: Venance Fortunat, *Poèmes*, I, livres I-IV, texte établi et traduit par Marc Reydellet (Paris, 1994), 54f.

[6] Zum Aufbau der Figurengedichte des Venantius Fortunatus vgl. Ulrich Ernst, *Carmen figuratum* (1991), 149-57, zu *Carmen II 4*, 151-3. Zu einem weiteren Figurengedicht des Venantius Fortunatus (*Carmen V 6*) vgl. jetzt auch Dorothea Walz, Text im Text: Das Figurengedicht V, 6 des Venantius Fortunatus, in: Eckart Conrad Lutz, Wolfgang Haubrichs und Klaus Ridder (eds.), *Wolfram Studien XIX: Text und Text in lateinischer und volkssprachiger Überlieferung des Mittelalters. Freiburger Kolloquium 2004* (Berlin 2006), 59-93. Allgemein zu seinen Figurengedichten vgl. auch Margaret Graver, Quaelibet Audendi: Fortunatus and the Acrostic, in: *Transactions of the American Philological Association* 123 (1993) 219-45.

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Dulce decus signi uia caeli uita redempti (Akrostichon)
Süße Zierde des Zeichens, Weg zum Himmel, Leben des Erlösten.
In cruce mors Cristi curauit mortua mundi (Telestichon)
Am Kreuz heilte Christi Tod das Tote der Welt.

Vier Hexameter bilden die Intexte des Tatzenkreuzes, entsprechend der Kreuzbalken horizontal bzw. vertikal deszendierend zu lesen:

Uera spes nobis ligno, agni sanguine, clauo.
Wahre Hoffnung für uns durch das Kreuz, durch das Blut des Lammes, den Nagel
Arbor suauis agri, tecum noua uita paratur
Süßer Baum auf dem Feld, mit Dir wird neues Leben bereitet. (horizontal)

Und:

Crux pia deuotus Agnen tege cum Radegunde.
Gnädiges Kreuz, beschütze die demütige Agnes mit Radegunde.
Tu Fortunatum fragilem crux sancta tuere.
Heiliges Kreuz, behüte Du den gebrechlichen Fortunatus. (vertikal)

Radegunde ist die Königinwitwe Chlotars I. und die Gründerin des Klosters Heilig-Kreuz in Poitiers, Agnes, die von ihr eingesetzte Äbtissin. Venantius Fortunatus verbrachte sein späteres Leben im Umkreis dieses Klosters und war wohl auch bei der Translation eines Stückes des „wahren Kreuzes" aus Byzanz im Auftrag der Radegunde tätig. Die Intexte des vertikalen Kreuzbalkens sind demnach als in Gebetsform verklausulierte Sphragis von Auftraggeberinnen und Dichter zu verstehen. In den Intexten des horizontalen Kreuzbalkens erfolgt ein direktes Lob des Kreuzes für seine Bedeutung in der Heilsgeschichte, sowie auch die Intexte des Rahmens einen heilsgeschichtlichen Bezug aufweisen (von der Erschaffung der Welt bis zum Endgericht).

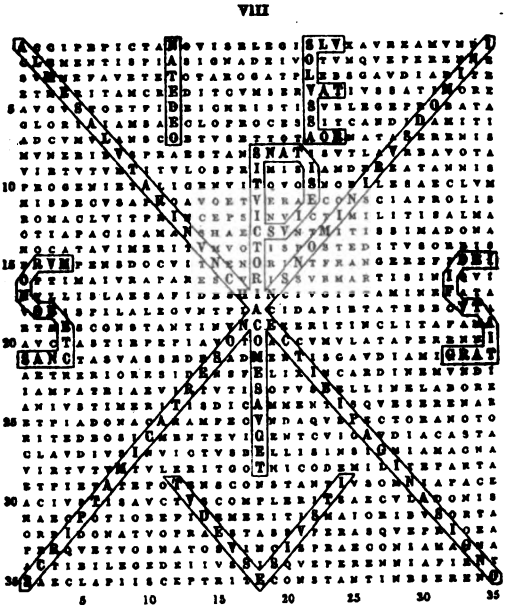
Der Basistext ist zweigeteilt, wobei den Versen 17-19 (also dem Querbalken des Kreuzes) eine Scharnierfunktion zukommt: Der erste Teil (Vers 1-16) gibt einen kurzen Abriß über die Heilsgeschichte von der Schöpfung über den Sündenfall bis zum Erlösungswerk Christi am Kreuz. In den Versen 17-19 befindet sich Christus gleichsam am Kreuz, und das Kreuz wird nun direkt in der zweiten Person angesprochen. Der zweite Teil enthält Prädikationen des Kreuzes, die in abschließende Bitten ausmünden und somit den Text als Hymnus charakterisieren. Die Bitten beziehen sich auf das Endgericht und den jüngsten Tag, so daß der am Anfang des Gedichtes (mit der Schöpfung) eröffnete Rahmen durch den Bezug auf das Endgericht geschlossen wird. Durch die Aufteilung in einen eher narrativen Teil über die Heilsgeschichte und einen rein hymnischen, in den das Kreuz direkt angesprochen wird, entspricht der Basistext den übrigen Hymnen des Kreuzzyklus am Anfang des zweiten Buchs der Carmina des Venantius Fortunatus. Es liegt also hier eine Kombination von Hymnus und Figurengedicht vor, durch die figurierte Form wird die Gattung des Hymnus gleichsam transgrediert.

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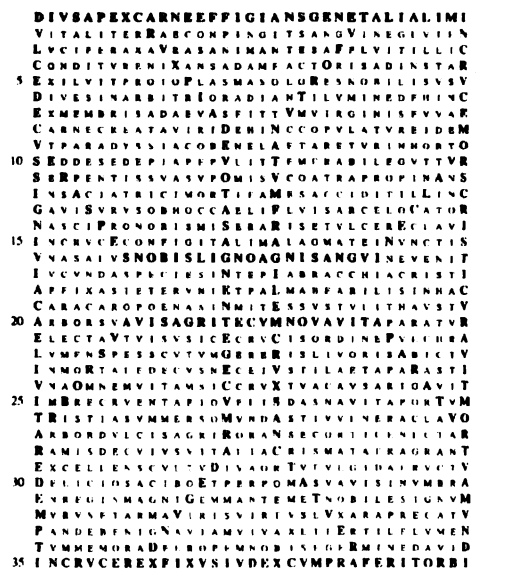
Zusammenfassung und Ausblick

Vergleicht man die beiden Figurengedichte des Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius und des Venantius Fortunatus, so zeigt sich trotz der gemeinsamen Grundkonzeption (35 Hexameter mit jeweils 35 Buchstaben im Basistext, als Intextfigur ein christliches Symbol) eine Entwicklung, in der die visuelle Poesie nicht nur gezielt für eine spezifisch christliche Dichtung nutzbar gemacht wird, sondern mit ihr auch eine Weiterentwicklung und Transgression nicht visueller literarischer Genera angestrebt wird. Transgrediert Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius den *basilikos logos* durch die visuelle Ebene und akzentuiert den gefeierten Monarchen durch ein noch nicht feststehendes und daher um den Vornahmen des Erlösers erweitertes Christogramm als spezifisch christlichen Herrscher, so transgrediert Venantius Fortunatus den Hymnus und macht anstelle Gottes oder eines Heiligen das Kreuz zum Adressaten, der hier sogar auf der visuellen Ebene in Erscheinung tritt. Durch die intextuelle Hervorhebung des Rahmens ordnet er das zentrale Symbol christlichen Glaubens optisch wie inhaltlich ins Zentrum der Heilsgeschichte. Bei der Herausgabe seiner Carmina stellt er dieses Figurengedicht mit anderen Kreuzeshymnen zusammen, so daß sich ein Zyklus ergibt, der bereits auf den des Hrabanus Maurus zu Beginn des neunten Jahrhunderts vorausweist, wo dieser den Typus des *carmen cancellatum* für alle Gedichte wählte und ihre Gesamtzahl nach dem *numerus perfectus* 28 ausrichtete. In der ursprünglichen Form handelte es sich bei Venantius Fortunatus wohl um sechs Kreuzgedichte, von denen zwei figuriert waren. Damit folgte dieser Zyklus von Kreuzgedichten ebenfalls einem *numerus perfectus*, nämlich der Zahl 6.

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Publilius Optatianus Porfyrius, *Carmen VIII*, Abb. nach Polara (1973), I, 32.



Venantius Fortunatus, *Carmen II 4*, Abb. nach Reydellet (1994), 54.

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Gregory the Great Deposes a Disobedient Bishop

Hector SCERRI, Msida, Malta

Besides being an inextinguishable source to the study of theology, patristic literature offers a spectrum of daily social life in a wide variety of contexts. Litigations, predominantly on doctrinal matters, are very common in the patristic corpus. The intention of this short paper is to investigate a long-drawn situation between Pope Gregory the Great (590-604) and Lucillus, bishop of Melita (modern day Malta). The highlights of this tug-of-war are clearly spelt out in the evidence we find in four of Gregory's letters, written between July 592 and January 603. These texts from the Gregorian *Registrum* offer the only evidence we have of this acrimonious situation.

I have used the text found in *Corpus Christianorum: Series Latina*. The enumeration of the *Registrum Epistularum* for these four letters, with one exception, is different from that in Migne's *Patrologia Latina*, as indicated below:

CChr.SL	PL	
II 36	II 44	July 592
IX 25	IX 63	October 598
X 1	X 1	October 599
XIII 20	XIII 18	January 603

One is surprised by the enormous number of letters written by Gregory, especially while recalling the countless activities in which he was engaged in: the composition of commentaries on scriptural texts, his personal dealings with those requesting to meet him and the pastoral solicitude he showed as bishop. There are fourteen papyrus books of Gregory's letters, one for each year of his episcopate. John Moorhead affirms that 'some 850 of these letters survive, approximately as many as the surviving letters of all preceding popes combined, but many of theirs, and many of Gregory's, have disappeared. [...] His correspondence gives an impression of boundless energy and a capacity to involve himself resolutely in apparently humdrum matters'.[1]

As is the case with other prolific authors of all times, the question which one normally expects to arise is: Did he possibly write all that bears his signature? How did he manage to write all this, without neglecting his pastoral duties and

[1] John Moorhead, *Gregory the Great* (Oxford, 2005), 16f.

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his daily prayer rhythm? Moorhead states that 'Gregory was not the author of all the letters which went out in his name. While some of his correspondence, such as letters to close friends, must have been dictated, although not physically written, by Gregory himself, most of the letters were presumably written on his behalf by his staff, who sometimes followed standard forms'.[2]

The case we are studying entails the unhappy situation of a bishop, Lucillus of Melita, who was ordered by the pope to stop the abusive administration of property and revenue. Briefly, the bishop failed to comply, and Gregory was obliged to remove him from office. Jeffrey Richards affirms that this was one of six known cases of episcopal removal from office by Gregory.[3] Was Gregory's involvement in the case a direct and personal one? Does the fact that over six years elapsed between the first and the second letter seem to indicate that the case was apparently forgotten, and brought back to the attention of the pope's immediate collaborators only much later? How aware was Gregory of the happenings in a small and remote island to the south of Sicily?

The letters refer to the church in Melita. Incidentally, this is the first documentary evidence to the see of Melita. Although a long-standing oral tradition holds that the shipwrecked St Paul, after a three-month stint at evangelising the *barbaroi* who inhabited the island, left someone in charge of the fledgling Christian flock, we are left in the dark regarding any subsequent episcopal lineage.

In his letters, Gregory refers to the *pensio* on landed estates which belonged to churches in Africa. We find clear attestation to disciplinary measures against Lucillus who was to be deposed *sine ambiguitate*, and the choice of Traianus, a monk residing in nearby Sicily, to be the new shepherd of the flock in Melita. The letters throw light on the expected fact that the small see of Melita was dependent on that of Syracuse.[4] The final letter, that of January 603, contains an exhortation by Gregory to the bishops of Syracuse and those of its suffragan sees to welcome Hadrianus, his *chartularium*, whose duty it was to assist them in their administration of property belonging to Rome.[5] Among the bishops mentioned in the letter is Traianus, bishop of Melita. So, by then, it is certain that Lucillus had been removed and his successor instated.

What are the details of the case? It is clear from Letter 36 of Book II of the *Registrum* that Lucillus was ordered by the pope 'to see that those of his clerics who held possessions of the African church paid their rent, which they had been refusing to do'.[6] This is clear from the original text: *Pervenit itaque ad nos fraternitatis tuae clericos terras Africanae tenentes ecclesiae, quod*

[2] *Ibid.* 17.

[3] See Jeffrey Richards, *Consul of God: The Life and Times of Gregory the Great* (London, Boston, and Henley, 1980), 115.

[4] See Mario Buhagiar, St Paul's Shipwreck and Early Christianity in Malta: *The Catholic Historical Review* 93 (2007), 1-16, esp. 6.

[5] See *ibid.*

[6] Richards, *Consul of God* (1980), 148.

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pensionem earundem possessionum dare contemnant.[7] Local clerics were fattening their purses with what they should have passed on to sister churches in North Africa. The pope is ordering that the guilty clerics, subjects of Lucillus, were to comply without delay, *nulla mora.*[8] It is not clear from the text whether the possessions comprised landed estates belonging to the African churches but located in Melita, or whether these clerics had to pay their due with regard to property rented to them in North Africa. Coleiro and Brown affirm that it is more logical to presume the former case, namely that of property in Melita belonging to the church of Carthage.[9] This was probably a consequence of the fact that during Vandal rule over Melita (455-76), the Church in the island was part of the *ecclesia Africana.*[10] From the patristic text it is not clear whether the use of the property had a religious or civil finality.[11] But was it just the dispute over property and rent that led to the downfall of Lucillus and to the penance ordered to a number of his priests, deacons and laity?

Coleiro suggests another reason, namely, the possible presence of late Donatism in Melita at the end of the sixth century.[12] T.S. Brown opposes this hypothesis, saying 'it seems unlikely that Lucillus' crime was a lapse into the Donatist heresy, since Gregory's general tone rather suggests some disciplinary misdemeanour'.[13] On the other hand, Buhagiar follows Coleiro by postulating that 'like several North African outposts, the Maltese Islands might have been a pocket of Donatist revivalism which made Gregory's preoccupation justified'.[14] But none of the Letters by Gregory regarding Lucillus and the church in Melita shed any light on this hypothesis. And, if Melita remained faithful to Roman orthodoxy, why would Gregory advocate for a payment of rent to the North African churches, if there was doubt about their orthodoxy? This is a very pertinent question. Simultaneously, we also have to say that one of the main difficulties of the papacy, at that time, was a lack of trustworthy information since this was generally obtained from wayfarers.

An objective reflection of the Gregory *vs* Lucillus saga has to be seen as part of a wider course of action which entailed the replacement by the pope of the

[7] Greg. Magn., *Registrum Epistularum* II.36 (CChr.SL 140, 121.5-7).

[8] *Ibid.* (CChr.SL 140, 121.10). See Edoardo Coleiro, Tre lettere di S. Gregorio Magno, in: Aa.Vv., *Missione Archeologica Italiana a Malta. Rapporto preliminare della Campagna 1965* (Roma, 1966), 17-21, esp. 17.

[9] See Coleiro, Tre lettere (1966), 19; T.S. Brown, Byzantine Malta: A Discussion of the Sources, in: Anthony T. Luttrell (ed.), *Medieval Malta: Studies on Malta before the Knights* (London, 1975), 75.

[10] See Joseph Bezzina, *L-Istorja tal-Knisja f'Malta*, Kullana Kulturali 42 (Malta, 2002), 45.

[11] See Coleiro, Tre lettere (1966), 19.

[12] See *ibid.* 20f.

[13] Brown, Byzantine Malta (1975), 75.

[14] Mario Buhagiar, Early Christian and Byzantine Malta: Some Archaeological and Textual Considerations, in: Victor Mallia-Milanes (ed.), *Library of Mediterranean History* 1 (Malta, 1994), 77-125, esp. 119.

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bishops of key sees in Sicily.[15] Richards is very convincing when he states that 'by 595, the Sicilian bench had been completely Gregorianised. Gregorian nominees ruled in Syracuse, Messina, Lipari, [...]. Catania and Palermo had been vetted at close quarters, Malta was under observation, and the rest stood. It was a major achievement, and one which had been managed with subtlety, skill and a great measure of success'.[16] In other words, the serious issue concerning Lucillus is to be seen as part of a wider effort by the pope to put his house in order. In fact, it is known that the bishops of important sees, such as Catania, Agrigentum and Palermo had been called to Rome in 591, and detained there for some time. Two other bishops, the incumbents at Lipari and Triocala, were deposed. At the same time, which roughly corresponds to that of Letter 36 (July 592), Felix of Messina and Lucillus of Melita 'were threatened with canonical punishment unless they kept up to scratch'.[17]

The tug-of-war with Lucillus was to be protracted for seven long years. In fact, we have sure evidence from Gregory's Letter 25 of Book IX of the *Registrum*, that the case was still far from reaching an amicable solution. It was October 598, and this time, instead of writing to Lucillus, Gregory communicates directly with John, bishop of Syracuse. The Pope affirms that since undisputed proof had been found of the guilt of the bishop of Melita, his removal from office had to be put into effect. Richards comments that 'even after the Gregorian purge of the episcopal bench, however, there was still misconduct, and the case of the bishop of Malta is a good reminder that discipline could never be relaxed, even when a bench had been as successfully reconstituted as the Sicilian one had'.[18]

A careful reading of Letter 25 reveals a more determined Gregory who orders decisive actions to be executed in his name. Gregory could afford to show his true mettle because his position vis-à-vis the Church in Sicily had been, by then, considerably consolidated. It is obvious that Lucillus' defiance was irritating the pope. This is evident from the text and the measures ordered by Gregory. John of Syracuse was ordered to convoke three or four bishops who, having examined the case together with him, and ascertained all the facts, would proceed to depose *Lucillum de episcopatus ordine, quem huius sceleris contagio maculavit, studeat sine ambiguitate deponere.*[19] The wording is strong and decisive. The same letter also asks for the removal from office of those who were accomplices in the crime, ordering that they were to do penance in a monastery: *Quia vero presbyteri quidam vel diacones proditae iniquitatis fuisse conscii ac participes memorantur, sanctitas vestra subtili indagatione*

[15] See Richards, *Consul of God* (1980), 143-51.
[16] *Ibid.* 151.
[17] *Ibid.*
[18] *Ibid.* 156.
[19] Greg. Magn., *Registrum Epistularum* IX.25 (CCSL 140A, 585.7-9).

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discutiat. Et si ita reppererit, ab honoris sui et ipsos similiter gradu deiciat et in monasteriis, ubi digne valeant agere paenitentiam, deputentur.[20] Excommunication is also mentioned, together with the order that the guilty engage themselves in prayer in order to purify themselves of their sinful actions.[21] At the same time, Gregory shows a shepherd's heart for his flock when, towards the end of Letter 25, he states that in the case of danger of death the penitents are not to be deprived of the viaticum. He finally exhorts the clergy and the people of Melita to elect a new bishop *quia sine proprio pastore esse non poterunt.*[22]

Although Lucillus was eventually deposed, the stormy waters were not stilled immediately. From the first Letter of Book X of the *Registrum*, dated October 599, it seems reasonable to conclude that the clergy and the lay people of Melita had been unable to select a new shepherd for the island's fold. John of Syracuse presented the monk Traianus to the people of the island in order for them to elect him as their new bishop.[23] Basing himself on the contents of the mentioned letter, Richards explains that 'Lucillus remained contumacious'.[24] He was indeed a hard nut to crack. Despite being deposed, Lucillus and his party continued to offer resistance when ordered to obey and make amends.[25] In fact, Gregory's letter of October 599 is addressed to Romanus, *defensor Siciliae*, and reveals that the pope relied upon the assistance of an ecclesiastical magistrate[26] to see that Lucillus and his son Peter return to the new bishop property they had unlawfully taken from the church: *Petrum autem praedicti Lucilli filium similiter studii tui sit admonere ut, quia et ipse suprascriptae ecclesiae tulisse plurima perhibetur, honesta ea consideratione restituat.*[27] Richards explains that 'it seems that they had not only removed church property but had also pocketed sums earmarked for church repair, leaving the buildings to decay. The pope ruled that unless they returned what they had taken, they should answer for their behaviour to John of Syracuse'.[28]

This Letter discloses that Traianus, the new bishop of Melita, was neither a native of Melita nor of Sicily. He came from the province of Valeria and had been a monk in a monastery founded by his father. Having fled his homeland, he found refuge in Sicily and was appointed abbot of a monastery in Syracuse.

[20] *Ibid.* (CChr.SL 140A, 585.9-13); see Coleiro, Tre lettere (1966), 18; Buhagiar, Early Christian and Byzantine Malta (1994), 115.

[21] See Buhagiar, Early Christian and Byzantine Malta (1994), 115.

[22] Greg. Magn., *Registrum Epistularum* IX.25 (CChr.SL 140A, 585.23-4).

[23] See Coleiro, Tre lettere (1966), 18.

[24] Richards, *Consul of God* (1980), 156.

[25] See Buhagiar, Early Christian and Byzantine Malta (1994), 115.

[26] See *ibid.* 116; Brown, Byzantine Malta (1975), 75; Bezzina, *L-Istorja tal-Knisja f'Malta* (2002), 46.

[27] Greg. Magn., *Registrum Epistularum* X.1 (CChr.SL 140A, 826.20-3).

[28] Richards, *Consul of God* (1980), 156.

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It is nearly certain that Traianus was one of the episcopal candidates for Syracuse in the year 595. Richards interestingly comments and concludes that what is significant is that although Gregory found Trajan incapable of governing Syracuse, he made no objection to his governing Malta. It may be, of course, that by 598 he had made such a good job of governing the monastery of Capitulina that his ability was at last recognised. The situation in Malta was one which [...] called for intervention. Bishop Lucillus and his son and a ring of ecclesiastical embezzlers had been systematically mulcting the church of its property and income. To restore the prestige of the see, to maintain discipline, and to win back the faithful, a trusted and reliable man was needed, and Trajan seems to have fitted the bill.[29]

Obviously, his ability in administering a monastery was an asset. Furthermore, Gregory the Great, himself a monk, must have considered Traianus' monastic vocation and his intention to take few of his monks to live with him in Melita very positively.

It seems that after 599/600, calm was restored in Melita. There is no evidence regarding the deposed Lucillus or whether he caused any more trouble to Gregory or to Traianus. The only remaining reference to the new bishop is in Gregory's Letter 20 of Book XIII of the *Registrum*, written in January 603. This is a letter addressed to seven Sicilian bishops, one of whom is the bishop of Melita. Gregory is recommending Hadrianus, his *chartularium*, entrusted with administering Roman patrimony located in Sicily. There is no mention whatsoever of any unsolved business related to the see of Melita. Gregory's wisdom, solicitude and determination had prevailed.

[29] *Ibid.* 157.

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Gregory the Great and the Religious Otherness: Pagans in a Christian Italy*

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Despite being faced with the difficulties of a convulse sixth century Rome, Gregory managed to pay attention to one of his deepest worries, the evangelization of the *infideles*. It was usual for him to be able to argument and design a plan of action for each specific case even though it meant him changing his attitude or lowering his objectives to convert them; because that was what our Pontiff pursued, leading lost souls to God according to his own eschatological concept of the world. As a result, Gregory undertook some actions with regard to certain Christian deviations – Donatism and the Tricapitoline Schism – and other religions – Paganism and Judaism – which deserve special attention in order to be able to value the real significance of his work. Although all of these groups represent *in extenso* the religious otherness for the Pope, our contribution to this Conference has reduced the scope of the study to only one of them, the pagans.

However, who can be considered pagan? What is Paganism in the sixth century? Markus[1] warns us of the difficulty to interpret this concept from the modern historian's point of view and disagrees with some terminological conclusions. In Gregory's writings we find terms[2] like *gentilis*, *infidelis* or *idolorum cultor* clearly related to *paganus*, which, curiously, only appears thrice in his epistolary and always referring to slaves; it seems obvious that these expressions are not exact synonyms and that they may have hidden meanings that only a contemporary person could appreciate but, in short, they refer us to those who do not follow the Judaic religion nor the Christian. Thus, *gentiles* become *lato sensu*, real outsiders in an eminent monotheist and mainly Christian society.

* This study is due to the researches developed within the *GRAT* (*Grup de Recerques en Antiguitat Tardana*: http://www.ub.es/grat/grat01.htm), and has been carried out with the help of Research Projects HUM2004-00472 and 2005SGR379.

[1] Robert A. Markus, Gregory the Great's Pagans, in: Richard Gameson and Henrietta Leyser (eds.), *Belief and Culture in the Middle Ages* (Oxford, 2001), 23-34, 24-6; see *id.*, *Gregory the Great and his World* (Cambridge, 1997), 81, against the strict terminological significances established by Hans-D. Kahl, Die ersten Jahrhunderte des missiongeschichtlichen Mittelalters: Bausteine für eine Phänomenologie bis *ca.* 1050, in: Knut Schäferdiek (ed.), *Kirchengeschichte als Missionsgeschichte*, II/1 (München, 1978), 11-76, especially 40-2 and 45-59.

[2] *Paganus* is cited in Gregory the Great, *Ep.* VI 10, VI 29 and VIII 35 (CChr.SL 140-140a, 378-9, 401-2 and 560-1).

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But the problem lies in the existence of *fideles* whose acts make them worthy to be included in this same group, and this fact raises serious doubts about the missionary policy[3] to be undertaken in either case, although both play a part in every priest's ministerial duties. To conclude, the means may change but the aim remains the same: to integrate both groups in the community of believers for *gentilitas* is worthy of its *locus misericordiae Dei*, as Gregory states.

Even so, was there a canonical method to evangelize the unfaithful in the sixth century? It seems quite possible that Gregory had read *De catechizandis rudibus* by Augustine,[4] in which pagans are divided into *rudes ac simplices* and *liberalibus doctrinis exculti*, but one may observe a considerable difference of method with the Gregorian evangelic practice which, on the contrary to the Augustinian, prefers baptism rather than instruction. Likewise, we do not document any sermon or catechetic writing addressed to heathens after those by Quodvultdeus, Peter Chrysologus or Caesarius of Arles in the fifth century and only Martin of Braga and his *De correctione rusticorum* would follow this path in the following century.[5] Due to the differences between the times and the society of Augustine and those of Gregory, we can understand the changes occurred in pastoral care, focusing on moral contents, prioritizing proselytism, and referring to evangelization as the ultimate objective of the *munus ecclesiae*.

Now, we go on to refer chronologically to the actions against pagans documented and/or undertaken by Gregory obviating the frustrated attempt to evangelize the Lombards for evident reasons of hostility. We will start, then, with the initiatives carried out in the Italian islands, a zone where an especially fierce pervivence of polytheistic cults together with the scourge of war have led their ecclesiastic structures to such a critical situation that many sees are found vacant; this way, the wild rural environment as well as the negligence of local clergymen allow the continuity of pagan rites which, having often lost their significance, still maintain a close bond with the gentile past that the Church seeks to eradicate completely.

In Sicily, an area well controlled by the pontifical *milieu*, we notice some local *potentes* protecting *pagani* in the township of Tindaris, whose bishop, Eutichius,[6] is warned of this in 593 by Gregory, who urges him to persecute

[3] Differences and similitudes in Gregorian preaching to pagans or heretics and their terminology in H.-D. Kahl, Die ersten Jahrhunderte (1978), 40-2 and 48, who distinguishes between *Heidenmission* and *Neophytenseelsorge / innerkirchliche Nacharbeit*, being followed by R.A. Markus, Gregory the Great's Pagans (2001), 28, 32-33, and *id.*, *Gregory the Great* (1997), 80.

[4] About Augustinian influences on Gregory, see Vera Paronetto, Une présence augustinienne chez Grégoire le Grand: le *De catechizandis rudibus* dans la *Regula Pastoralis*, in: Jacques Fontaine *et al.* (eds.), *Grégoire le Grand* (Paris, 1986), 511-9.

[5] Robert A. Markus, Augustine and Gregory, in: Richard Gameson (ed.), *St. Augustine and the Conversion of England* (Stroud, 1999), 41-9.

[6] Gregory the Great, *Ep.* III 59 (207-8).

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them and to obtain their apostasy. Eight years later, in 601, the *notarius* Adrianus[7] intervenes again in religious matters on behalf of the Pontiff punishing certain sorcerers as the *scholasticus* Paul[8] would do shortly afterwards. In both examples, our Pope shall always look for State support for the actions of the Church thereby recovering the traditional concept of collaboration and combined effort between the ecclesiastic and civil authorities.

In Sardinia, the situation was even worse, and Gregory was well aware of this because he sent two papal legates there, abbot Cyriacus and bishop Felix, in order to evaluate the religious reality of this island. Their reports were obviously not very optimistic for they led to a programme of measures as described in the nine letters that constitute the 'Sardinian file' against heathenism composed between 594 and 600.

In the first of them, the Pope addresses all noblemen and landowners[9] on the island advising them to keep every idolatrous tenant living in their properties away from the *infidelitas*. The two next epistles are sent to the *factores* about the conversion of the pagan tribe of the *Barbaricini*: to Zabardas,[10] the *dux Sardiniae* who defeats them and includes the christianization of the whole tribe in the terms of surrender, and to Hospito,[11] the barbarian chieftain that propitiates the transition to Catholicism among his people through his own baptism, being therefore compared to Constantine the Great in a really significant *tópos*. Lastly, Gregory grants Cyriacus and Felix full power to direct the evangelization of the *Barbaricini* without any intervention from the tribal leader but with all his support.

The addressee of other four letters is Januarius, bishop of Cagliari, reproached for his lassitude in the performance of his responsibility as Sardinian metropolitan, notably slack in the application of ecclesiastic discipline; such was the case that one of his priests in his charge took up sorcery and fled to Africa forsaking his flock.[12] Besides, Januarius revealed himself to be inefficient to convert the insular *gentiles* thus forcing Gregory to require him to be more severe when imposing the papal instructions.[13] One of these redounded to the restoration of the see of Fausiana,[14] whose continuity had the aim to enforce the ecclesiastic connection in the interior of Sardinia, a region where Christianism scarcely seems to be established. The fourth and last descriptive epistle[15] to Januarius dates from 599. By means of this, Gregory urged him – together

[7] *Id.*, *Ep.* XI 33 (921).
[8] *Id.*, *Ep.* XIV 1 (1065-6).
[9] *Id.*, *Ep.* IV 23 (241-2).
[10] *Id.*, *Ep.* IV 25 (244).
[11] *Id.*, *Ep.* IV 27 (246).
[12] *Id.*, *Ep.* IV 24 (242-3).
[13] *Id.*, *Ep.* IV 26 (244-6).
[14] *Id.*, *Ep.* IV 29 (247-8).
[15] *Id.*, *Ep.* IX 205 (763-5).

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with military and civil authorities – to lead necromancers and idolaters the right way using aggressive practices[16] such as onerous fiscal burdens or imprisonment for the citizens and whipping and crucifixion for the slaves. According to Boesch Gajano,[17] there was a flux of peasants from ecclesiastic to laic properties due of the larger tolerance shown by their owners towards some religious deviations – naturalistic cults, for instance –, and maybe it was for this reason that Gregory ordered such cruel measures.

Nevertheless, it seems that neither the ecclesiastic nor the civil authorities would do much to improve this situation and thus, as recorded in the epistle to Empress Constantina[18] of 595, Gregory was forced to send a trustworthy peninsular bishop to specifically deal with this affair. In the same letter, it is shown that a Sardinian judge received bribes to allow and conceal pagan cultural practices – also to converts! – and he even offered a part of this illicit payment to the pontifical legate to keep silent about it. To confirm this continuity of heathen cults, we may recall a letter sent five years later to Spesindeus,[19] *praeses* of Sardinia, to whom Gregory reminds him of his duty to support Victor, bishop of Fausiana, in extending the Catholic faith to the polytheistic redoubts still existent in his diocesis.

Lastly, to conclude this insular route, we also find a tiny Corsica affected by pre-Christian religions as attested by bishop Peter of Aleria,[20] who describes how a part of his community has returned to heathenism and once again adores sticks and stones.

It is true that polytheism – favoured by changing historical circumstances and rough orography – still existed especially in the Italian islands, but not only there did paganism survive and so Gregory would have to persecute it in Campania, at the gates of Rome, as Benedict of Nursia[21] had done when he substituted a temple dedicated to Apollo next to Cassino for an oratory dedicated to Martin. With regard to Campania, the related facts occurred in Terracina, where its bishop Agnellus[22] had serious problems to repress the naturalist cult – *arborum cultores* – carried out in his jurisdiction and must request the Pope the intervention of *comes* Maurus.

[16] H.-D. Kahl, Die ersten Jahrhunderte (1978), 55, remarks that the terms *(re)uocare* and *(ad/re)ducere* refer to the *infideles*. See also R.A. Markus, Gregory the Great's Pagans (2001), 29, who connects these words with the conversion of Constantine.

[17] Sofia Boesch Gajano, Teoria e pratica pastorale nelle opere di Gregorio Magno, in: J. Fontaine, *et al.* (eds.), *Grégoire le Grand* (1986), 181-8, 185f. Distinction between *rustici* in *extranei* and *uestri* evidences the presence of pagan peasants in ecclesiastical properties: R.A. Markus, Gregory the Great's Pagans (2001), 30; and Bernhard Blumenkranz, *Les auteurs chrétiens latins du Moyen Âge sur les juifs et le judaïsme* (Paris and La Haye, 1963), 78f.

[18] Gregory the Great, *Ep.* V 38 (312-4).

[19] *Id.*, *Ep.* XI.12 (878).

[20] *Id.*, *Ep.* VIII 1 (513-41); see VI 22 (392).

[21] *Id.*, *Dial.* II 8.10-3 (SC 260, 166-70); see III 8 (282-4).

[22] *Id.*, *Ep.* VIII 19 (539).

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Another two references to Paganism present in the Gregorian *corpus* place pontifical action outside the Italian limits, and beyond these cases, there is no evidence of further knowledge on the part of the see of Peter out of his range of influence: the first case happens in *Francia*, where we document several focuses of *daemonorum cultores* whose repression is entrusted to Queen Brunichild;[23] the second one refers to the distant Kingdom of Kent, where the papal assignment of eradicating pagan beliefs falls on King Ethelbert. This well analyzed *missio Britannica*, backed by our Pope, offers us a couple of interesting points to be compared with the actions undertaken on Italian ground by the bishop of Rome.

The first of these points consists in the use of the Constantinian *tópos*[24] regarding a tribal chieftain or a barbarian king, that is to say a very different kind of leader to the Roman ideal of *princeps* or *imperator*: if Gregory had compared Hospito, a simple *dux* of a small tribe, with Constantine in 594, seven years later, the Pontiff would do the same with Ethelbert, *rex* of Kent and also *bretwalda* of the Saxon kingdoms. It is quite clear that neither the rank nor the power of both can be compared, but the aim of this praise remains the same: that their leadership – developed in a similar way to that of continental monarchs – facilitates the spreading of Christianity within the *regna* of their *gentes* for it may unite them to the *Christiana res publica* existent in good part of the ancient *Romania*. Indeed, apart from the aforementioned examples, we find parallelisms with the Constantine *tópos* applied to Germanic kings in this period: Gregory of Tours and Leander of Seville had used it with Clovis and Reccared respectively, but Gregory the Great is the first bishop – and Pope – to use it without the 'national' subordination which grieves on the other prelates.

The second point concerns the difference between the evangelic methods employed in Italy and in England. We have already seen the steady resolution of Gregory in Sardinia or in Campania, where the support of civil authority allowed the Pope to exercise a real coercion over the *gentiles*; however, even when pursuing the same aims, his attitude towards the king of Kent will be very different. In fact, two pontifical letters sent in 601 to Ethelbert and Mellito show a relevant doctrinal change: on the one hand, Gregory urges the Saxon King[25] to persecute the cult of idols – *idolorum cultum insequere* – and to destroy the pagan shrines – *fanorum aedificia reuertere* – to accelerate the conversion of his people and to become a new Constantine before the end of time; on the other hand, the epistle sent to the leader of the second missionary

[23] *Id.*, *Ep.* VIII 4 (518-21). About the pervivence of Paganism in Merovingian Gaul, see Robert A. Markus, From Caesarius to Boniface: Christianity and Paganism in Gaul, in: Jacques Fontaine and Jocelyn N. Hillgarth (eds.), *The Seventh Century: Change and Continuity* (London, 1992), 154-72.

[24] Eugen Ewig, Das Bild Constantins des Grossen in den ersten Jahrhunderten des abendländischen Mittelalters, in: *id.*, *Spätantikes und Fränkisches Gallia* I (München, 1976), 72-111.

[25] Gregory the Great, *Ep.* XI 37 (929-32).

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retinue[26] underlines once again the destruction of idols but insists on the preservation of heathen temples – *fana idolorum minime destrui debeant* –, which, once purified and decorated, would become churches. The reason for this apparent contradiction between both missives seems clear: in the meantime, there have been changes in the papal policy towards the monarchy of Kent that have invalidated coercive methods in favour of a subtle substitution of cults.[27] Gregory was well aware of the way he should adapt his arguments to different addressees in order to achieve his purpose, and the last thing he desired was to pull too much on the tight rope which led to the conversion of *Britannia*.

In conclusion, we observe how the Gregorian doctrine regarding Paganism prioritizes preaching but does not exclude coercion wherever it is possible to apply, that is to say on imperial territory; and one must remember that our Pope ordered such repressive measures like the increase of fiscal burdens, physical punishments and even death penalty trying by all means at hand to attain his evangelic objective. These measures really oppose those proposals made for the lands out of the Empire, in which the *auctoritas* of Rome could do nothing but subordinate to the *uoluntas* of the Germanic kings. And this would be the guideline of later papal missionary policies and the example on which the pastoral doctrine of the Early Middle Ages would be based in spite of the 'constructed' image of Gregory as a destructor of idols,[28] an image that hardly agrees with his actions, energetic but calm and above all temporizing.

[26] *Id.*, *Ep.* XI 56 (961-2).

[27] Daniel T. Reff, *Plagues, Priests, Demons: Sacred Narratives and the Rise of Christianity in the Old World and the New* (Cambridge, 2005), 225 and especially 238.

[28] Tilmann Buddenseig, Gregory the Great, Destroyer of Pagan Idols: *JWI* 38 (1965) 44-65, already revealed unfair this medieval topic.

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Gregory the Great and the Appeal to Petrine Authority

George E. DEMACOPOULOS, New York

On June 29th of 2007, Pope Benedict XVI ratified a document prepared by the Congregation for the Doctrine of the Faith that sought to clarify the Catholic Church's position on certain ecclesiological questions. Among other things, the document defined the Eastern Orthodox Churches as 'defective' because 'communion with the Catholic Church, the visible head of which is the Bishop of Rome and the Successor of Peter, is not some external complement to a particular Church but rather one of its internal constitutive principles.'[1] In short, the document affirms that membership in the 'one Church of Christ' is linked, explicitly, to solidarity with the bishop of Rome, and, not surprisingly, this connection is asserted on the basis of St. Peter's link to the ancient see.

The discrepancies between ancient, medieval, and modern understandings of the importance of the bishop of Rome have been documented elsewhere. The possibility that these variations are the natural evolution of a single, ancient doctrinal belief rather than an institutional invention to exercise authority has been debated since the middle ages and I have no intention of adding further to that discussion – at least not at the present time. Instead, I propose to explore the subtle ways that Gregory the Great, one of the most important popes of late antiquity (and a critical figure for the modern ecumenical conversation), developed his own 'rhetoric of Petrine authority' to achieve certain pastoral, exegetical, and diplomatic goals. I maintain that although Gregory's view of Roman authority was more modest than some other late ancient popes and that his corpus does not support the primacy claims of his medieval and modern successors, Gregory often maximized the rhetorical opportunity presented by Rome's link to Peter and that he did so with increasing creativity over the course of his pontificate.

I should begin by acknowledging that Gregory often appended the phrase *apostolorum princeps*, 'prince of the apostles', to the first use of Peter's name in a given context. A cursory observation reveals that the phrase explicitly asserts Peter's authority with respect to the other apostles and implicitly promotes, if vaguely, Rome's position with respect to the rest of the Christian world. But when we look more carefully at the multiple ways in which Gregory

[1] Congregation for the Doctrine of the Faith, *Responses to some Questions Regarding Certain Aspects of the Doctrine of the Church*. Taken from the Vatican website, July 8, 2007.

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employed Peter throughout his corpus, and when we assess more fully the pope's ecclesiology, we must conclude that the phrase, on its own, is often little more than a stylistic convention in Gregory's hands. To be certain, he combined the phrase with additional Petrine claims when he felt compelled to defend or promote Roman autonomy. But Gregory also inserted the phrase or similar expressions of Peter's rank into exegetical situations where the pontiff was, in effect, extracting a pastoral lesson from one of Peter's shortcomings or when he listed Peter within a group of other biblical heroes, whom he acknowledged equally for possessing a common virtue.[2] In short, Gregory's use of the phrase 'Peter, prince of the apostles' does not reveal the subtleties of the pontiff's understanding of Rome's place in the universal Church and it disguises the distinct ways that he employed a rhetoric of Peter throughout his career.

The Biblical Commentaries

Perhaps the most striking difference in Gregory's corpus with respect to his use of Peter is the distinction between the pontiff's exegetical works and his correspondence. In his biblical commentaries, Gregory most often employs Peter as a saintly exemplar, someone whose actions reflect the message of the gospel. For example, in the opening chapters of the *Moralia*, Peter is noted for the public proclamation of his faith in Christ.[3] Later in the text, Gregory notes Peter's discernment in pastoral matters and his humility in the face of opposition.[4] In his commentary on the prophet Ezekiel, Gregory similarly applauds Peter's ability to remain humble after performing miracles, and extols the apostle's repentance following his denial of Christ.[5] Similar examples exist in his *Homilies on the Gospels*, where Gregory is particularly keen to promote the depth of Peter's faith.[6] In each of these exegetical works, Gregory employs Peter as an exemplar for Christian piety, something that all Christians should imitate. In the same works, Gregory also co-opts Peter to affirm a particular type of Christian leadership. It is this second function, of course, that Gregory employs for the surprisingly few references to the apostle in the Popes' famous *Pastoral Rule*.[7]

[2] Other expressions of Peter's position among the apostles include *primus erat in apostolatus culmine* (*e.g.* Gregory, *Homiliae in Hiezechihelem Prophetam* (SC 327, 360) 2.6.9) and *primus apostolorum* (*e.g.* Gregory, *Moralia in Job*, CChr.SL 143, 143a, 143b, 14. 50. 58). An example of listing Peter as one among many, despite the loftiness of the title *apostolorum princeps*, is *Moralia* 24.8.20.

[3] *Moralia* 1.1.1 and 3.21.41.

[4] *Moralia* 28.18.38 and 28.11.27.

[5] Concerning examples of Peter's humility, see *Hom. Hiez.* 1.5.15 and 2.6.9. For his repentance, see *Hom. Hiez.* 1.4.7 and 1.8.2.

[6] See, for example, Gregory, *Homiliae in Evangelia* (CChr.SL 141) 6.1 and 22.2.

[7] Gregory, *Liber regulae pastoralis* (SC 381-382) 2.6 and 2.8.

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One element that dramatically distinguishes the biblical commentaries from the correspondence is Gregory's willingness to mine Peter's shortcomings for a greater pastoral purpose. I have identified nearly a dozen examples, mostly from the *Moralia*, where Gregory exposes one of Peter's various faults to make a larger point about vigilance, humility, or pastoral leadership. In one of the most interesting examinations of Peter's denial, which occurs in the twenty-first homily on the Gospels, Gregory argues that the reason that the women at the empty tomb were instructed to tell the disciples 'and Peter' that Jesus has risen (*Mark* 16:7) was because Peter, unless he had been named specifically by the angel, would have been too embarrassed to go with the other apostles to the tomb. Gregory then argues that God put these words into the mouth of the angel so that Peter, who would become a shepherd of the Church, would know to have compassion for those under his care.[8] Thus, Gregory uses the error of Peter's denial to introduce an important consideration for those engaged in pastoral leadership.

In addition to Peter's denial, Gregory explores the apostle's naive suggestion that he build altars for Jesus, Moses, and Elijah during the transfiguration, and his belief that circumcision should be required of the gentiles.[9] In his exploration of the latter in the *Moralia*, Gregory explains that even those who have great faith only receive partial theological understanding during this life and that is why Peter, despite his faith, erred when he developed his policy for initiating gentile converts.[10]

In the commentary on Ezekiel, Gregory offers a different, longer, examination of the confrontation between Peter and Paul concerning the circumcision of the gentiles.[11] Here Gregory moves from criticism to praise as he utilizes the confrontation between Peter and Paul described in Galatians to extol Peter's humility in the face of Paul's rebuke. With an impressive rhetorical flourish, Gregory lists eight reasons that Peter was Paul's superior. Gregory notes, however, that Peter humbly accepted correction from his lesser brother.[12] The pontiff concludes the section with a more general exhortation to humility before moving on to admire Paul's boldness in preaching. What is noteworthy about this passage is that Gregory is obviously able to identify each of the biblical proof-texts that constitute Peter's leadership of the apostolic community. But Gregory does not attempt here (or elsewhere in the biblical commentaries) to use these arguments to bolster the authority of the Roman church nor does he make any direct reference to his own position as Peter's heir.

[8] *Hom. Evang.* 21.4.

[9] Some examples of Gregory's examination of Peter's denial include *Moralia* 9.24.54, 14.49.57, and 27.26.50. Concerning the transfiguration, see *Moralia* 8.54.92 and for an example of Gregory's criticism of Peter's policy toward gentile converts, see *Moralia* 29.22.42.

[10] *Moralia* 29.22.42.

[11] *Hom. Hiez.* 2.6.9.

[12] *Ibid.*

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In fact, throughout the commentaries, Gregory often lists Peter alongside other saintly figures whom Gregory chooses to extol for a particular virtue.[13] Even in those cases where Peter's rank among the apostles is identified, the point of the passage is almost always that the scriptures offer many models for adhering to a Christian way of life.

One notable example of Gregory dwelling solely on Peter's authority is the twenty-fourth homily on the Gospels where the pontiff examines the post resurrection account of Christ appearing to the apostles while they are fishing (*John* 21:1-14). Picking up on the fact that it is Peter who brings the catch of fish to Christ, Gregory reflects:

> 'I believe that you, beloved, perceive why it was that Peter brought the net to land. Our holy church had been entrusted to him; it was to him alone that it was said "Simon, son of John, do you love me? Feed my sheep [*John* 21:17]."... Because the Church's preacher would separate us from the waves of this world, it was necessary that Peter bring the net full of fish to land. He dragged the fish to the firm ground of the shore because by his preaching he revealed to the faithful the stability of our eternal home. He did this by both words and letters and he continues to do this daily by his miraculous signs. Is it not like we are fish caught in the net of faith and brought to shore every time that he separates us from earthly concerns and returns us to a desire for eternal stillness?'[14]

For Gregory, St. Peter plays a critical role in the history of salvation. His leadership, teaching, and humility not only built the foundation of the apostolic community but remain as examples for the faithful and their leaders. The continuation of Peter's miracles and the lessons that can be learned from his mistakes contribute further to the pastoral and exegetical importance that Peter plays for Gregory. Absent is any sense that Gregory, at least in his biblical commentaries, wants or needs to link Peter's authority to that of the Roman Church or to himself as Peter's heir.

The Correspondence

Gregory's letters, of course, paint a rather different picture. His correspondence, one of the largest surviving from the ancient world, invokes the name of Peter frequently and for many different reasons but a common thread is that Peter is personally linked to the See of Rome and, as a consequence, both the Roman Church and its caretaker, Gregory, enjoy a privileged status. A careful analysis, however, shows that there are multiple 'rhetorics' of Petrine authority in action in Gregory's correspondence.

Early in his pontificate, Gregory employed the phrase *sancti Petri limen* meaning 'the threshold of St. Peter' or, perhaps, 'the tomb of St. Peter', when

[13] For example, see *Hom. in Hiez.* 1.4.7 and 1.8.2.
[14] *Hom. in Evang.* 24.4.

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he meant simply the Roman curia.[15] On several occasions he invited people to join him in Rome by substituting the 'threshold of Peter' for the name of the city.[16] On one occasion, he implored the schismatic, Severus of Aquilea, along with his followers, to journey to the tomb of St. Peter, so that they might hold a council to resolve the Three Chapters controversy.[17] Given this context, Gregory's choice of words was anything but flippant – it was an implicit but certain assertion that the tomb of St. Peter was in Rome and that the Roman Church, as a consequence, was on the proper side of the doctrinal divide. Not surprisingly, Severus never did make the journey to Rome.[18]

A few years into his tenure as pope, Gregory also began to use Peter's name, without reference to his *limen*, to signify the city of Rome, the Roman Curia, or possibly the church of St. Peter.[19] For example, Gregory mentions in a letter to his representative in Constantinople that a mutual acquaintance had come 'to St. Peter' to speak to Gregory.[20] Years later, he told an imperial official that the Lombards were acting in a way that 'threatened St. Peter'.[21] And in 602, Gregory wrote to his trusted colleague, Eulogius, the Patriarch of Alexandria, that three Sicilians had traveled 'to the church of St. Peter' to ask Gregory for a letter of introduction.[22]

In addition to the obvious rhetorical benefit for substituting the name of Peter for the city of Rome (as well as the *Curia* and the church), it is quite possible that Gregory's penchant to interchange the two stemmed from his belief that the relics of St. Peter, and especially the saint's tomb, continued to perform miracles.[23] This would, no doubt, help to explain why the tomb was used for the swearing of oaths – there is evidence in his letters to suggest that he required some, perhaps all, of his administrators to swear an oath at the tomb of St. Peter before assuming their assignments.[24] It is also apparent that he allowed some clerics accused of misconduct to offer an oath of their innocence in front of St. Peter's tomb.[25] Both examples demonstrate, I believe, his belief that Peter's

[15] See, for example, Gregory, *Epistulae* (CChr.SL 140, 140a) 1.7, 1.27, 5.35 and 5.40.

[16] *Ibid.*

[17] *Ep.* 1.16.

[18] See Robert A. Markus, *Gregory the Great and His World* (Cambridge, 1997), 125-42.

[19] John Martyn reads some of these examples differently, believing that Gregory is referring to himself as Peter. John Martyn (transl.), Introduction, in his *The Letters of Gregory the Great* (Toronto, 2004), 74.

[20] *Ep.* 2.49.

[21] *Ep.* 9.44.

[22] *Ep.* 12.16.

[23] Concerning his view that the relics of Peter possessed miraculous power, see *Ep.* 1.25, 1.29, 6.58, 8.33, and 13.43.

[24] *Ep.* 1.70 and 13.35.

[25] See *Ep.* 2.29, 7.18, 11.16, and 13.5. In a slightly different format, Gregory permitted Maximus of Salona to offer his repentance and allegiance to Gregory before the tomb of St. Apollinaris in Ravenna. See *Ep.* 9.178.

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historical presence in Rome served as more than a mere marker of institutional authority – it had created a permanent conduit of supernatural power.

Another way that Gregory attached the interests of the Roman See to its supposed founder was to describe service to one of the Roman patrimonies or financial gifts to the poor of Rome as a 'service to St. Peter' or as a 'gift to St. Peter'.[26] In all of these cases, whether he did so deliberately or by rote, Gregory's substitution of the name of Peter for the site or interests of the Roman See could be interpreted as compelling or heavy handed depending upon one's perspective. For those sympathetic to Gregory's causes the interchange of Peter's name for the city of Rome and the offices of the Roman See was innocuous. At least one Western king referred to his own gift to the poor of Rome as a 'gift to St. Peter'.[27] However, those persons whose interests were different than Gregory's likely viewed the pontiff's incessant appeals to Petrine authority rather differently.

Gregory's handling of the Maximus affair offers an interesting case in point. The See of Salona (modern day Western Croatia) had been subordinated to the Roman church long before Gregory's tenure. The death of its archbishop in 593 resulted in a contested election between a Roman candidate, Honoratus, and another candidate, Maximus.[28] By November of that year, Gregory had suspicions that Maximus had already purchased the support of the majority of bishops in Dalmatia. He wrote to them, warning 'on the authority of St. Peter, prince of the Apostles', that they could not consecrate a new archbishop without papal consent.[29] Despite Gregory's instructions to the contrary, Maximus was installed as archbishop the following year. Gregory sent a scathing letter to Maximus threatening that if he dared to preside at the holy altar without the pope's approval then he would receive the anathema of both God and St. Peter.[30] In a show of defiance, Maximus publicly destroyed Gregory's letter – an act the pope later defined as a 'denigration of the Church of St. Peter'.[31]

In northern Italy where the Three Chapters schism festered the most, Gregory sought to convince the Lombard queen, Theodolinda, of the orthodoxy of his belief and the need for her to remain united to the Catholic faith. In his first letter to her (*Ep.* 4.4), Gregory defends the 'council in the time of Justinian'

[26] *Ep.* 1.73, 3.33, 5.46, 6.55, 6.56, 9.239, and 10.16.

[27] *Ep.* 9.229a.

[28] See Jeffrey Richards, *The Popes and the Papacy in the Early Middle Ages 476-752* (London, 1979), 317f. and *Consul of God* (London, 1980), 201-7.

[29] *Ep.* 4.16.

[30] *Ep.* 4.20.

[31] *Ep.* 5.6. A few years earlier, Gregory's efforts had been more successful in reprimanding John of Prima Justinana whom Gregory had found to have acted improperly in his supervision of a complicated clerical case involving Hadrian, the bishop of Thebes. On the 'authority of St. Peter, prince of the apostles', Gregory excommunicated John for thirty days. John accepted the sentence and within six months peace had been reestablished. Gregory, *Ep.* 3.6 and 3.38. For more on this affair, see Jeffrey Richards, *Consul of God* (1980), 207f.

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(*i.e.* the Fifth Ecumenical Council) as a faithful promotion the Council of Chalcedon. Subsequent letters reveal, however, that Constantius, the bishop of Milan, had not passed this letter on to Theodolinda as he had been previously instructed by Gregory, because he anticipated that it would not achieve its intended purpose.[32] Nearly a year later, Gregory sent a revised letter, which conveyed a similar message but followed a different set of rhetorical strategies. Whereas as *Ep.* 4.4 made no mention of the early ecumenical councils or of St. Peter, *Ep.* 4.33 begins with an affirmation of the councils from Nicaea to Chalcedon, with a concise summary of the achievements and villains of each gathering. Concluding the letter, Gregory proclaims that the queen should now have no reservations about the 'Church of St. Peter, prince of the apostles'.[33] In this context, the reference to Peter serves as an implicit syncretism of Gregory's personal beliefs, the Church of Rome, and the saint himself. Gregory then adds 'but persist in the true faith, and establish your life on the rock of the Church, which is to say, on the confession of St. Peter, the prince of the apostles'.[34] Not only did Gregory add these two references to Peter, he withdrew any direct mention of Justinian and the council of 553.

The change in the two letters demonstrates a pastoral sensitivity, characteristic of the author of the *Pastoral Rule*.[35] But the insertion of the twin appeals to Petrine authority seems more than an added pastoral maneuver – rather, it served as a powerful rhetorical affirmation that Gregory, as the implicit heir to St. Peter, possessed sufficient credentials to safeguard the orthodoxy of the Church of Rome.

Gregory flexed his Petrine muscles in other ways in his dealings with the Merovingian leaders in Gaul. In the first of two letters to Childebert II, Gregory thanked the king for his support and then implored him to put an end to simony in his realm. At the conclusion of the letter, Gregory added a very soft 'for the sake of God and St. Peter, prince of the apostles' to this request for help. In a second letter, written a month later, leading up to a request for help with the Roman patrimony in Childebert's realm, Gregory noted 'because you preserve sincerity of faith both in mind and deed, the love that is within you for St. Peter, prince of the apostles, shows manifestly in that his property [*i.e.* the papal patrimony in Gaul] has so far been well governed and preserved for the sake of the Christian faith, beneath the power of your leadership'.[36] Rather cleverly, Gregory's defines the patrimony, for which he needs help, as belonging directly to St. Peter. In case this rhetorical nod to the apostle was not strong

[32] See, especially, *Ep.* 4.37.

[33] *Ep.* 4.33.

[34] *Ibid.*

[35] *Ep.* 4.37. He even congratulated Constantius, the bishop who had withheld Gregory's initial epistle, for recognizing the need for a different letter, which would be more effective with the queen.

[36] *Ep.* 6.6.

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enough, Gregory concludes the letter with the announcement that he has sent Childebert a relic of St. Peter, which, if hung around his neck, will protect him from evil.[37]

At the same time, Gregory wrote to Childbert's mother, Brunhilde, even more directly. He begins his request to her concerning the patrimony with the phrase 'on behalf of the love of St. Peter, prince of the apostles, whom we know you love with all your heart'.[38] He concludes the letter, however, with a more daring statement: 'and so, let your Excellency agree to apply yourself willingly to our request in such a way that St. Peter, the prince of the apostles, to whom the power of binding and loosing was granted by our Lord Jesus Christ, may allow your Excellency to rejoice here over your offspring and after many years have run their course, may find you guiltless of any evil before the sight of the eternal judge'.[39] Future letters to Brunhilde would contain other Petrine appeals, but none as direct or as potentially threatening as this one.[40] That is because *Ep.* 6.5 had, in effect, linked Peter's power to protect Brunhilde's children and forgive her sin to her willingness to do what Gregory asked of her. Gregory's role as the arbiter of St. Peter's power was subtle but undeniable. Recalling then that the accompanying letter to Childebert had included a relic of St. Peter, another vital way in which Gregory served as an arbiter of Peter's power, we see that Gregory leveraged the 'prince of the apostles' in different ways when he wrote to mother and son, even though he sought the same thing from them – that is protection for the papal patrimony in Gaul.

Over the course of his tenure as Pope, Gregory sent 'relics' of St. Peter to a little more than a dozen persons.[41] These relics consisted of filings from the chains that had supposedly bound Peter during his imprisonment in Rome.[42] These filings, then, were placed inside of a small key, symbolic of Christ's granting of the keys of heaven to St. Peter. As he distributed the relics to his select group of patrons and clients, Gregory issued various instructions concerning their care. Recipients were often told to wear the relic around their

[37] *Ibid.*

[38] *Ep.* 6.5.

[39] *Ibid.*

[40] For example, in *Ep.* 9.214, Gregory writes a letter of recommendation for a certain Hilary and concludes the letter with the request 'and may your Excellency be rewarded by St. Peter, prince of the apostles, whom you venerate with Christian piety, in granting us what we ask.'

[41] *Ep.* 1.25, 1.29, 1.30, 3.33, 3.47, 6.6, 6.58, 7.23, 7.25, 8.33, 9.229b, 11.43, 12.2, 12.14, and 13.43. On a few occasions, the gift was accompanied by other relics of other saints, such as St. Paul (*Ep.* 6.58) and St. John the Baptist (*Ep.* 9.229b), or a fragment of the Cross of Christ (*Ep.* 9.229b). Concerning Gregory's distribution of the relics of St. Peter to members of royal elite, See Grazia Rapisarda, I doni nell'epistolario di Gregoario Magno, in: *Gregorio Magno e il suo tempo* (Rome, 1991), II 285-300.

[42] *Ep.* 4.30. Gregory seems to have been uncomfortable with the idea of partitioning the actual bones of a saint, which was already a common practice in the East, although he was willing to allow the translation of relics from one place to another. See *Ep.* 14.7.

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neck. Some were informed that it would cure illness, others that it had the power to release them from sin or protect them from evil. This distribution of relics was more than a transmission of sanctified objects, it was an act of diplomacy designed to achieve a political goal for the Church of Rome.

The fact that the filings were placed inside of a key demonstrates, quite clearly, that Gregory used the relics of Peter to promote Roman leadership in the Church. Christ's granting of the keys of heaven to St. Peter (*Matth.* 16:18-9), more than anything else, provided the biblical justification for Peter's leadership among the apostles and, as a consequence, Rome's privilege in the Church of Gregory's day. Gregory, no doubt hoped that the recipients of these gifts would be reminded of this connection, if only subconsciously, every time that they viewed the key or called upon it for help. As bishop of Rome, Gregory was the contemporary steward to the gates of heaven – yet another point, subtly reinforced by his distribution of the keys.

There are, however, very few examples in Gregory's corpus where the pontiff makes a direct reference to himself as the heir of St. Peter.[43] Nevertheless, it was because Gregory had embraced the long-standing papal claim that St. Peter remained present in the Church through his successors that he affirmed that the Church of Rome had a privileged status among the other patriarchates. And it was to this reason, more than any other, that Gregory turned when he famously resisted John of Constantinople's claim to the title 'ecumenical patriarch'. Let me be clear; I am not arguing that this was the primary reason that Gregory objected to the title. As I have sought to show elsewhere, he objected to the title for many reasons, most importantly because it undermined the autonomy of individual bishops.[44] Rather, I am suggesting here that Gregory emphasized the appeal to Petrine authority as a rhetorical strategy to undermine John's claim to the title because he trusted that it would be effective.

For example, when Gregory wrote to the emperor Maurice in the summer of 595 and openly critiqued the patriarch after years of quiet diplomacy, he began his assault with a litany of biblical passages designed to show Peter's authority among the apostles.[45] Following a series of other arguments, he returned once more to the Petrine privilege and concluded by adding that the council of Chalcedon, 'due to the eminence of St. Peter', had bestowed the title 'ecumenical' upon Pope Leo. But neither Leo, nor any of his successors had accepted such a profane title because to do so, would be an affront to bishops everywhere. In short, Gregory's concluding argument was that if Pope Leo (and his successors in Rome) had refused to accept the title, even when it is rightly offered to them, how could John possibly assert it for himself now.[46]

[43] Gregory, *Dialogues* 3.3 offers one rare example.

[44] See George Demacopoulos, Gregory the Great and the Sixth-Century Dispute over the Ecumenical Title: *Theological Studies* 70 (2009) 600-621.

[45] *Ep.* 5.37.

[46] *Ibid.*

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Much has been made, of course, of the fact that Gregory took the Greek word, *oecumenicos*, to mean *universalis* in Latin. And while it is beyond the scope of the present paper to dwell upon the many interesting aspects of that debate, it is significant that even though Gregory's tactics evolved over the course of the conflict, he always incorporated a rhetoric of Petrine authority into his arguments. His handling of the patriarchs of Antioch and Alexandria provides an interesting case in point.

In his first letter about the title to Eulogius, Patriarch of Alexandria, and Anastasius, Patriarch of Antioch, Gregory rehearsed the series of events that had led to the current impasse.[47] Noting that Gregory's predecessor, Pelagius II, had obtained a copy of the acts from a Constantinopolitan synod in 587, in which the patriarch of Constantinople had identified as the 'ecumenical patriarch', Gregory mentions that Pelagius had, 'on the authority of St. Peter, prince of the Apostles', annulled those portions of the acts that had granted the title. The letter goes on to offer a series of cogent arguments against the title, but none of them include an appeal to Peter. Of course, it would not make much sense for Gregory to employ the authority of St. Peter when he was trying to enlist the assistance of two other members of the *pentarchy* against John. To do so might seem arrogant and just as easily irritate his potential allies. Or would it?

After Gregory's initial attack on the title had done little change the situation, the pontiff shifted his rhetorical strategy.[48] Rather than promote himself or the Church of Rome, Gregory cleverly extended the Petrine privilege to his colleagues in Alexandria and Antioch. In short, Gregory reinterpreted *Matth.* 16 and other select passages because they endorsed, he maintained, that the Sees of Rome, Alexandria, and Antioch are the three most important in the Christian world because it is those sees alone that have a special tie to St. Peter. He writes:

'Therefore, while there are many apostles, with respect to preeminence, the see of the prince of the apostles has alone become valid in authority, which, in three, is unified as one. For [St. Peter] exalted the see in which he deigned to rest and complete the present life [*i.e.* Rome]; he adorned the see to which he sent his disciple, the Evangelist

[47] *Ep.* 5.41.

[48] The emperor ordered Gregory to make peace with John and Anastasius responded that the title was non issue and that Gregory was making too much it. See *Ep.* 7.30 and *Ep.* 7.24 respectively. The word from Alexandria was even less encouraging – the matter seemed of such little importance that Eulogius had not even replied to Gregory's letter by the following summer. *Ep.* 6.61. Exasperated, the Pope mounted the maximum pressure he could within the limits of episcopal dignity, and wrote to Eulogius noting: 'There is something that binds us in a unique way to the Alexandrian church and compels us in a special way to love it. For as everyone knows, the blessed Evangelist Mark was sent to Alexandria by his teacher Peter; and so we are bound by this unity of teacher and disciple to the extent that it appears that I am to preside over the see of the disciple in accordance with [my relationship to] the teacher and you are to preside over the see of the master in accordance with [your relationship to] the disciple.' Certainly, Gregory had no intention of forfeiting his see to Eulogius. But his meaning was unmistakable – Eulogius was to respond to letters sent from Rome.

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[*i.e.* Alexandria]; and he established the see in which he sat for seven years, though he would eventually leave it [*i.e.* Antioch].[49]

Gregory reinterprets the single See of Peter as being in three parts, thereby extending the preeminence of Peter to the Sees of Alexandria and Antioch. Quite shrewdly, Gregory simultaneously shares his prestige with the colleagues he needs and implicitly undermines the authority of the See of Constantinople, which is based upon imperial credentials, not apostolic ones like the three Sees of Peter.[50]

One final development in this controversy requires our attention. In the fall of 599, John's successor, Cyriacus, convened a local synod in Constantinople. Fearing that Cyriacus would use the synod to elicit a conciliar endorsement of the title, Gregory wrote in advance of the gathering to Eusebius of Thessalonica and six other Eastern bishops warning them not to accept any attempt by Cyriacus or the emperor to have the council affirm the ecumenical title.[51] It was the first time that Gregory had written to diocesan bishops on the subject, and the letter contains a summary of the entire affair from Gregory's perspective. He then warns that he will annul the impending council in Constantinople if it confirms the ecumenical title.[52] This is the strongest assertion of personal privilege in Gregory's corpus and it is followed by a second threat that he will excommunicate anyone who consents to the title. Not surprisingly, he issues both threats on the authority of St. Peter.[53]

In the end, Gregory failed to prevent the patriarchs of Constantinople from using the ecumenical title. Although he threatened schism on a number of occasions, the pontiff could not bring himself to initiate it. Perhaps the most surprising aspect of Gregory's role in the debate was the dramatic shift in the rhetorical use of Petrine authority to achieve his diplomatic goals. Gregory's willingness to invest the patriarchs of Antioch and Alexandria with his own Petrine capital, demonstrates, at least to me, that the Pope really did believe that no bishop was the universal bishop, not even the bishop of Rome.

Conclusions

It is clear that Gregory's frequent and distinct appeals to Petrine authority often failed to achieve their diplomatic goals: renegade bishops continued to defy

[49] *Ep.* 7.37.

[50] Another example of Gregory's acknowledgment of the Apostolic credentials of other sees is *Ep.* 5.42. Concerning the seventh-century promotion of the See of Constantinople as the See of the Apostle Andrew, see Francis Dvornik, *Byzantium and the Roman Primacy*, transl. E. Quain (New York, 1966), esp. 138-80.

[51] He even suggests that the synod may have been designed for the explicit purpose of doing so. *Ep.* 9.157.

[52] *Ibid.*

[53] *Ibid.*

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him, the Lombards remained in dialogue with the Three Chapter schismatics, simony persisted in the Merovingian kingdom, and the patriarchs of Constantinople retained the ecumenical title. Thus, the failure of the rhetoric of Peter to achieve Gregory's political goals offers some visibility, however dim, into the reception of Roman ecclesiastical authority, or lack thereof, by persons outside of the immediate jurisdiction of the Roman Church. Particularly significant are the twin facts that this Petrine trump card of Gregory's was as often ignored in the West as it was in the East and that there does not seem to have been any greater chance of its success when he employed it with churchmen rather than lay aristocrats.

Of course, it is rather difficult to gage Gregory's diplomatic successes on the basis of his use of a Petrine rhetoric. Not only are there so many other factors that must come into consideration, but we must also acknowledge that he seems to have employed the rhetoric of Peter most assertively in those cases in which he was seeking something that he already knew that he was unlikely to achieve.[54] Indeed, we might say that Gregory's appeal to Peter in his diplomatic correspondence serves as something of a signal that the pope was in a desperate situation. And as a result, it tells us much more about Gregory himself, and the way that he sought to resolve his most complex political problems, than it sheds light on the reception of Roman claims to authority in the late sixth century.

So what can we learn about Gregory from the multiple ways that he employed a Petrine rhetoric? Most importantly, we see that Peter served as an example of Christian behavior and leadership – on this point, Gregory's biblical commentaries and correspondence are in agreement. In Gregory's hands, Peter offered not only a pastoral or exegetical model drawn from the biographical accounts of him in the Scriptures, but he continued in Gregory's own day to be a source of revelation and supernatural activity through the miracles attributed to his relics.

Gregory's correspondence, however, also exhibits the pontiff's willingness to employ Peter to assert or defend Roman authority in the Church – something that he never attempts, at least not explicitly, in the biblical commentaries or *Pastoral Rule*. I have, I hope, sufficiently summarized the many different ways that Gregory employed the rhetoric of Peter in this regard. The many variations in usage attest, I believe, not only Gregory's creativity but also his willingness to divest his Petrine capital when it was diplomatically expedient.

There is one final question with respect to the correspondence that I would like to consider, which is: to what extent did the controversy with John the Faster transform Gregory's understanding of Roman authority or his willingness to exert it with others? In his *The Growth of the Papal Government in the Middles Ages*, Walter Ullman infamously argued that Gregory devised the

[54] *Ep.* 6.5 might provide an exception.

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mission to the Anglo-Saxons as a defensive measure to protect the Roman *principium* against Byzantine expansion in the wake of John's use of the ecumenical title.[55] That thesis was sufficiently upended by Robert Markus, and others, but I wonder if there is something of value in Ullman's intuition that the controversy with John did, at the very least, transform the way that Gregory understood Rome's place in the universal Church.[56] The question is, I am afraid, a larger one than the present paper can resolve, but I would like to offer three quick observations that relate to Gregory's use of the Petrine appeal.

First, as I have shown elsewhere, Gregory began his campaign against John's title in the summer of 593, not 595 as it is generally assumed.[57] As a consequence, we must take the date of 593 and not 595 as the point at which Gregory should have begun to lean more heavily upon a Petrine rhetoric if John's use of the title did, in fact, transform the way that the pope thought about Rome's place in the Church. And yet, apart from the rebuke of Maximus and his supporters in Dalmatia, there is nothing unusual in the correspondence with respect to the rhetoric of Peter in the year between the summer of 593 and that of 594.[58] Second, even if we keep 595, the year that Gregory went public with his criticism of the title, as the breaking point, there does not appear to be a spike in the number in the references to Peter at that time. In fact, Gregory used Peter as a rhetorical demonstration of Roman authority rather evenly over the fourteen years of his papal correspondence.[59] Third, perhaps it is simply a coincidence, but one of the strongest appeals to Peter within his correspondence to Western rulers is *Ep.* 6.5, the threatening letter to Brunhilde, which was written just two months after Gregory's public attack on John's use of the ecumenical title. It is certainly possible that the exuberance with which Gregory had asserted the Petrine privilege in his letters to the East in the summer of 595 may have subconsciously planted a seed that later sprouted in the letter to Brunhilde.[60] But if this is the case, it seems to have been a temporary flight into excess – Gregory never again played the Peter card so aggressively for anything other than the controversy over the ecumenical title.

[55] Walter Ullman, *The Growth of the Papal Government in the Middle Ages* (Third Edition: London, 1970), 36f.

[56] Robert Markus, Gregory the Great's Europe: *Royal Historical Society* 31 (1981) 30-35. See also J. Richards, *The Popes and the Papacy* (1979), 26f.

[57] *Ep.* 3.52 to John of Constantinople alleges 'un-canonical behavior' on the part of the patriarch and promises that Gregory's legate will discuss certain delicate matters with him in detail.

[58] For Gregory, Maximus' crime is one of simony. His use of a Petrine rhetoric is primarily a tactical attempt to put an end to an abusive practice, it is not a newly developed assertion of Roman ecclesiastical authority.

[59] In fact some things, like the distribution of relics and the number of times that he refers to Rome as Peter's *limen*, occur more frequently in the first year of Gregory's pontificate than in any other.

[60] *Ep.* 5.37 and 5.44.

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Though Gregory asserted, at times quite forcefully, a rhetoric of Petrine authority to achieve his diplomatic goals, he did not do so merely for the sake of self-promotion, nor did he do so because he thought it was, what we might call, hollow rhetoric. He believed that the See of Rome remained preeminent in the Christian world because Peter remained present and active in Rome through his shrine – the pontiff saw himself as its caretaker. As Gregory's diplomatic challenges came and went, he employed the rhetoric of Peter to assert Roman privilege – not because he believed that the bishop of Rome had universal authority, which subordinated all other bishops to him, but rather because he hoped that an appeal to Petrine authority in the most desperate of diplomatic situations was the strongest of the rhetorical arguments that he could make to pursue his ultimate goals.[61] That Gregory was able to balance this tension between ecclesiological conviction and rhetorical flourish attests to his sophistication, rhetorical training, and, above all else, his legendary pragmatism.

[61] It was never the only strategy that he employed in these situations, but it was almost always present in the most challenging situations, whether the aim was to convince a Merovingian aristocrat that he should end simony in his realm or to enlist a new ally in the war against the ecumenical title.

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XVIII. *NACHLEBEN*

Petr Balcárek
Sara Brooks
Elizabeth A. Clark
Manuela Gheorghe
Elizabeth Hastings
Charles Kannengiesser
Nicolas Kazarian
Timothy McConnell
Giancarlo Pani
William Rankin
Charles D. Robertson
Goran Sekulovski
Yuliyan Velikov

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Claudius of Turin and the Veneration of Images after the *Libri Carolini*

Yuliyan VELIKOV, Veliko Turnovo, Bulgaria

'All the heresies have taken their rise from you and have flourished among you, but it was by us, that is by the Occidentals, that they were swallowed up and killed'
Liutprand of Cremona (10th century)*

Back in 841 the monk Walafrid Strabo noted that Claudius, the Bishop of Turin 'attempted to renew the Greek quarrel about images in the days of Emperor Louis (God rest his soul), but he died condemned by his own verdict before he was pierced by the darts of the various men who wrote against him'.[1] Another glimpse of Claudius and his deeds can also be caught in the writings of another western author – Jonas, Archbishop of Orléans, who described Claudius as the reincarnated adoptionist Felix of Urgel[2] and as a person who came from Spain.[3] Walafrid's reference, quoted above, is extremely interesting and important as an allusion to an existing Image problem that appeared in the ninth century West; a situation, quite different from the preceding eighth century when the Western theology was particularly icon-oriented.[4] The major reason for such a radical change that occurred in the West over this period could be sought in a text, which appeared at the end of the eighth century and was entitled *Opus Caroli Regis contra Synodum* (more familiar as *Libri Carolini*).[5] Although the book turned out to be unacceptable in the West and even Pope Hadrian I 'pigeon-holed' it, the text appears to adamantly highlight the Franks' theological claims, describing the iconophile position in the eighth century Byzantium as a threat for the entire Catholic Church. Furthermore, reflections of *LC* can

* *Relatio De Legatione Constantinopolitana* 22: 'Haereses omnes a vobis emanarunt, penes vos viguerunt; a nobis, id est occidentalibus, hic sunt jugulatae, hic sunt occisae' (PL 136, 918C).

[1] Walafridus Strabo Fuldensis, *De Ecclesiasticarum Rerum Exordiis Et Incrementis Liber Unus* 8 (PL 114, 928D-929A).

[2] Jonas Aurelianus Episcopus, *De Cultu Imaginum Libri Tres* (PL 106, 309C).

[3] *Ibid.*

[4] See Yuliyan Velikov, Pope Gregory II and His Role in the Orthodox Apologetics of the Image, in: T. Totev (ed.), *Трудове на катедрите по история и богословие* 3 (Шумен, 1999), 98-106.

[5] See A. Freeman (ed.), *Opus Caroli Regis contra Synodum (Libri Carolini)*, Monumenta Germaniae Historica Concilia 2 (1) (Hannover, 1998). The *Libri Carolini* (from now *LC*) will be quoted according to book and chapter and page number in Freeman.

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also be traced in the ninth century West, when some theologians, and Bishop Claudius of Turin among others, continued with the onslaught against the Holy Icons. In fact, it is his *Apologeticum* to Abbat Theodemir that reveals these emerging iconoclastic views.[6]

In his defence and reply to the Abbot, Claudius addresses several issues and the two of them, bearing on the Holy Cross and Icons, are of particular relevance to the subject of the present paper and therefore they will be discussed in detail. Having been elected a Bishop of Turin, Claudius had to face customs that he considered terrifying and thus forced him to begin his personal crusade against the Holy Icons: 'I found all churches filled, in defiance of the precept of truth, with those sluttish abominations – images. Since everyone was worshiping them, I undertook singlehanded to destroy them'.[7] Claudius asserted that the roots of his clearly negative position towards the images were to be found in the Old Testament prohibition and his reasoning is a clear allusion to a text from *Exodus* 20:4.[8] This fact brings us to the *locus classicus* in the debate on the Christian image – the exploitation of the Second Commandment as a self-sufficient evidence against the Holy Icons.[9] In addition, in the act of image veneration Claudius recognizes the long-abandoned cult of demons and self-humiliation in front of false images.[10] Actually, this type of reasoning is not newly invented; rather, it is reminiscent of an argument associated with the eighth and ninth century Eastern iconoclastic view against the Holy Icons. It will be well to say a word as to the fact that such a radical refutation of the Holy Icons had no parallel attitude in the West in the period preceding the time of Claudius of Turin. A good illustration of this concluison is St Gregory the Great's acceptance of the Holy Images which he demonstrated in his letters to Serenus,[11] Januarius and the hermit Secundinus[12] as early as in the sixth century. Furthemore, in the eighth century, even the Popes Gregory II, Gregory III and

[6] The full title of the letter is *Apologeticum atque rescriptum Claudii episcopi adversus Theutmirum abbatem* (PL 105, 459D-464D). In the present paper, Zanna's new edition of Cladius' work has been used as a primary source (Paolo Zanna, *Dungal. Responsa contra Claudium: A controversy on Holy Images*, Florence, 2002).

[7] *Apologeticum* 4 (275).

[8] The same prohibition appears in *Deuteronomy* 5:8 and *Leviticus* 26:1.

[9] *Apologeticum* 5 (275): 'Since it is clearly enjoined that no representations should be made of anything in haven, on earth, or under the earth'. Similar arguments can be found in *ibid.* 10-1 (277).

[10] *Ibid.* 8, 12 (277, 279).

[11] C. Chazelle, Pictures, books and the illiterate: Pope Gregory I's letters to Serenus of Marseilles: *Word and Image* 6 (2) (April-June 1990) 138-53, 139f. For surveys of the medieval references to the letters to Serenus and their assertions *pro lectione picture* see L. Duggan, Was Art Really the 'Book of the illiterate'?: *Word and Image* 5 (1989) 227-51.

[12] C. Chazelle, Memory, Instruction, Worship: 'Gregory's' Influence on Early Medieval Doctrines of the Artistic Image, in: J. Cavadini (ed.), *Gregory the Great: A Symposium* (Notre Dame and London, 1996), 181-215, 184.

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Stephen III were among the apologists of the Holy Icons.[13] It is also doubtful that Claudius' attitude towards the Holy Icons was inspired by *LC*[14] which denounced not only the Second Niceae Council (promulgating Icon veneration), but also the iconoclastic Council of Hiereia (rejecting Icon veneration on idolatrious grounds). That is *LC* set out a course for the acceptance of images in the churches but at the same time refuted their adoration; this attitude only formally corresponds to St Gregory the Great's position of neither adoring nor destroying the Icons.[15] Actually the attitude laid out in *LC* is alien to Claudius' extremely negative position against the images.

It, therefore, appears that the Old Testament Second Commandment had been persistantly exploited in the West in the Age of the Carolingian theology although a pleiad of eighth and ninth century iconophiles such as Patriarch Germanos, Pope Gregory II, John of Damascus and Elder George of Cyprus,[16] Theodore of Studium, Patriarch Nicephorus of Constantinople rejected its validity as far as the image is concerned. The same arguments could also be found in the ninth century West when the Irish recluse Dungal[17] followed the

[13] On the eighth century popes and their contributions to the issue, see D. Sefton, Popes and the Holy Images, in: T. Noble (ed.), *Religion, Culture and Society in the Early Middle Ages. Studies in Honor of Richard Sullivan* (Kalamazoo, 1987), 117-30, 118-20, 125.

[14] *Libri Carolini* has an attributred authorship to the Archbishop Theodulf of Orléans, see Ann Freeman, *Theodulf of Orleans: Charlemagne's Spokesman against the Second Council of Nicaea* (Ashgate, 2003), 17-52; P. Meyvaert, The authorship of the 'Libri Carolini': *Revue Bénédictine* 89 (1979) 29-57. Luitpold Wallach ascribes the authorship to Alcuin, see H. Caplan (ed.), *Alcuin and Charlemagne: Studies in Carolingian History and Literature*, Cornell Studies in Classical Philology 32 (Ithaca, NY, 1959), 169-77.

[15] Theodulf's claims, laid out in the general Preface of *Libri Carolini* (*LC* Praef.; 102 Freeman) are identical with Pope Gregory's I position described in *LC*: 'see then how we, imbued with authority and what ordinance of this venerable pontiff, do not refuse to have images in the churches, yet unconditionally reject their adoration' (*LC* II ch.23; 280 Freeman), but as Celia Chazelle pointed out, Theodulf rather selectively quoted the pope, emphasizing only on the warning that depictions should not be adored, and interpreted the absence of any references to the letters of Januarius and the Secundinus as a result of the support they seem to offer for images, see C. Chazelle, Memory, Instruction, Worship: 'Gregory's' Influence on Early Medieval Doctrines of the Artistic Image, in: J. Cavadini, (ed.), *Gregory the Great: A Symposium* (Notre Dame and London, 1996), 181-215, 188f. In general, Pope Gregory's I authority establishes Charlemagne's policy regarding the Icons whilst *LC* itself provides very little support for the pope's proposition in comparison with Cassiodorus and Isidore on Theodulf, see A. Freeman, *Theodulf of Orleans* (2003), 176. We have ample evidence to justify icons as a valuable tool for instruction or so to speak of 'a Bible for the illiterate' even before St Gregory the Great, see Edward Martin, *A History of the Iconoclastic Controversy* (London, 1930), 226-8.

[16] On their apophatic argumentation see Yuliyan Velikov, *Image Veneration during the Eighth Century: Patrological Enlightening* (Sofia, 1998) (doctoral dissertation). Also, see my book *The Word about the Image: Theodore Abū Qurrah, St Cyril the Philosopher and the Defense of the Holy Icons in the Ninth Century (patrological enlightening)* (Veliko Turnovo, 2009) (in Bulgarian).

[17] I present this more fully in Y. Velikov, Dungal's '*Responsa contra Claudium*' in Defence of the Holy Cross and Icons in the Early Ninth Century, in: *Ireland Across Cultures* (forthcoming).

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already estabished eighth century tradition in the refutation of this iconoclastic argument. It is worthy of notice that Claudius' argumentation, in contrast to the Eastern iconoclastic one, is rather uniform in the type of evidence against icon veneration. Hence, in his rejection of the Holy Icons he remained solely on the Old Testament grounds in trying to develop his contra evidence against image veneration.

Interestingly, Claudius' negative thinking about the Holy Icons led him to an unfavourable position towards the Holy Cross too. Such a view against the Cross was actually not to be observed in the eighth and ninth century iconoclastic thinking in the East. Moreover, it is hardly possible to regard his opinion as the result of an influence from *LC*. This is so mainly because Theodulf's work has a favourable attitude to the Cross[18] while Claudius considered the veneration of the Holy Cross as a 'false religion', and the iconophile practice as contradicting the Apostolic writings.[19] Hence, the Bishop of Turin rejected the relationship between Christ's resurrection and the veneration that the iconophiles pay to the topos where Death was defeated:

'If they [the iconophiles] wish to adore all wood fashioned in the shape of a cross because Christ hung on a cross, then it is fitting for them to adore many other things which Christ did in flesh'.[20]

'Virgins', 'rags', 'ships' and 'lambs', even 'donkeys', 'bush thorns' and 'spears' are among the items that, if we follow the iconophiles' thinking, should have been the objects of even stronger veneration than the Holy Cross.[21] This opinion, could hardly be defined as an 'exaggerated hyperbole', as Paolo Zana named it, but rather as a type of reasoning which was adopted as a model probably from *LC*; it can not be regarded, therefore, as Claudius' unique invention: 'Against the fools we are compelled to propose foolish things, and against stony hearts to hurl, not verbal arrows and sentiments, but stony blows'.[22] In other words this nonsensical catalogue of objects to be venerated, according to Claudius, is only comparable to the absurd attitude of the 'false iconophiles' towards the Cross:

'You who crucify the Son of God anew and hold him up for display and thereby cause the souls of wretched ones in disordered masses to become partners of demons. Estranging them through the impious sacrilege of idols, you cause them to be cast away by their own Creator and thrown into eternal damnation'.[23]

[18] A. Freeman, *Theodulf of Orleans* (2003), 168; Also see H.-G. Thümmel, Die Fränkische Reaktion auf das 2. Nicaenum 787 in den 'Libri Carolini', in: R. Berndt SJ (ed.), *Das Frankfurter Konzil von 794: Kristallisationpunkt Karolingischer Kultur* 2 (Mainz, 1997), 965-80, 973-4.

[19] *Apologeticum* 13 (279).

[20] *Ibid.* 15 (279).

[21] *Ibid.* 15, 16 (281, 283).

[22] *Ibid.* 16 (283). The *Libri Carolini* reveal a similar thinking (*LC* IV 21, A fol. 228v [11] to A fol. 229r [36]; 540 Freeman); see also A. Freeman, *Theodulf of Orleans* (2003), 164f.

[23] *Apologeticum* 17 (283).

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The iconophiles' veneration, Claudius candidly continued, is nothing but twisting the true sense of the Savior words: 'God commanded them to bear the Cross, not to adore it. They wish to adore what they are spiritually or corporally unwilling to bear'.[24] These arguments against the Holy Cross are the object of Dungal's rebuke,[25] when he rightly emphasizes that Claudius 'hardly considers the power of the Cross of Salvation through which life is restored for the humankind who died by eating of the enjoyable fruit of the forbidden tree'.[26] Furthermore, Claudius' 'trampling' on the Cross is not characteristic of the Western theology as a whole. This theology, according to Dungal – who drew upon St Paul's, Blessed Jerome's, Blessed Augustine's opinion on the Holy Cross among others – is centred around the praise of the Holy Cross as a glorious tool of Salvation and as a centre of Christian belief.[27] Let me point out again that Claudius' violent rejection of the Holy Cross does not have its counterpart in the eighth and ninth century iconoclastic East[28] and it is not influenced by *LC* where the praise of the Holy Cross is very much the same as in the Eastern iconoclastic tradition.[29] For instance, Theodulf (apparently, an author of *LC*) expressed a negative attitude towards the Holy Icons, but he placed the Holy Cross 'among all these things, holy and mighty and ordained by God before Creation, the essential means of Salvation'.[30]

By way of conclusion, I would like to note that Claudius' *Apologeticum*, briefly discussed here, undoubtedly reveals Bishop Claudius of Turin as 'the

[24] *Ibid.* 18 (283).

[25] The full title of Dungal's work is *Responsa Contra Perversas Claudii Tauronensis Episcopi Sententias* (PL 105, 465-530A) (from now *Responsa*).

[26] *Responsa* 79A (59).

[27] *Ibid.* (see quotations from St Paul and Jerome *Responsa* 62-73; and from Augustine *Responsa* 142).

[28] Among other examples on the matter, of high interest is the eighth and ninth century Byzantine emperors' correspondence. Leo III, for example, guarded the Holy Cross from Caliph 'Umar ibn 'Abd al-'Azīz (or 'Umar II), see A. Jeffery, Ghevond's Text in the correspondence between 'Umar II and Leo III: *Harvard Theological Review* 37 (1944) 269-332, 322 and the Image of a Cross appears on the emperor's silver miliaresion, see J. Breckenridge, The Iconoclasts' Image of Christ: *Gesta* 11 (1972) 3-8, 5. In the next century the Byzantine emperors Michael II and Theophilus, in their letters to Louis the Pious, stated their accusations against the iconophiles for having replaced crosses with icons, see J. Moorhead, Iconoclasm, the Cross and the imperial Image: *Byzantion* 55 (1985) 165-79, 168. Apparently in the ninth century, iconoclasts exalted both the idea and the representations of the Cross, see S. Gero, The *Libri Carolini* and the image controversy: *The Greek Orthodox Theological Review* 18 (1973) 7-34, 16, 30 n. 80 which even forced St Nicephorus of Constantinople to give evidence in favour of the holy icons over the priority given to the Cross by the iconoclasts, in his *Antirrheticus Tertius* (PG 100, 428C-433B), also see Keneth Parry, *Depicting the Word: Byzantine iconophile thought of the Eighth and Ninth centuries* (Leiden, 1996), 187-8.

[29] See S. Gero, The *Libri Carolini* (1973), 17; also compare with *Libri Carolini* (LC 'c. II 28; 296-300 Freeman).

[30] A. Freeman, *Theodulf of Orleans* (2003), 168.

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most perverse waster and subverting enemy of the catholic faith'[31], who in between the fights against the Moors and his assiduous theological activities[32], eventually turned into a perfectly accomplished Iconoclast and even a σταυροπάτης (a person, trampling on the Cross).[33] In addition, the observations presented thus far, describe *LC* as something more than a 'shelved book'; rather, it was probably cryptically disseminated and its infuence is definitely to be found as furnishing the ninth century Western authors like Agobard of Lyons, Hincmar of Reims, Hrabanus Maurus with ideas that they took to construct their iconoclastic agruments.

[31] *Responsa* 82 (63).

[32] See Bibliography of Claudius's works in Migne's edition (PL 104, 609C-928A). Aspects of Claudius' writings have been discussed by J. Cavadini, Claudius of Turin and the Augustinian Tradition: *Proceedings of the PMR Conference* 11 (1986) 43-50; S. Wemple, Claudius of Turin Organic metaphor or the Carolingian Doctrine of Corporations: *Speculum* 49 (1974) 222-37; M. Gorman, The Commentary on Genesis of Claudius of Turin and Biblical Studies under Louis the Pious: *Speculum* 72 (1997) 279-329; Giuliana Italiani, *La tradizione esegetica nel Commento ai Re di Claudio di Torino* (Firenze, 1979), among others. Also see G. McCracken (ed.), *Early Medieval Theology*, The Library of Christian classics 9 (London, 1957), 214-5 and J. van Banning, Claudius von Turin als eine extreme Konsequenz des Konzils von Frankfurt, in: R. Berndt (ed.), *Das Frankfurter Konzil von 794: Kristallisationpunkt Karolingischer Kultur* 2 (Mainz, 1997), 731-50.

[33] G.W.H. Lampe (ed.), *A Patristic Greek Lexicon* (Oxford, 1969), 1252.

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Some Remarks on the Response to Iconoclasm in the Old Slavonic *Vita Constantini*

Petr BALCÁREK, Olomouc, Czech Republic

Dedicated to my mentor, Professor Alexander Avenarius (1942–2004)

The present paper focuses on two of the four disputations (the one with the iconoclastic ex-Patriarch John VII Grammatikos and the other with the Khazar Jews) attributed to Constantine the Philosopher, as literary sources of iconophile theology in the second period of iconoclasm (813-43).

It is remarkable that relatively little attention has been paid to these anti-iconoclastic episodes of the *Vita Constantini* in modern translations[1] or in the various monographs.[2] The latest works dealing with this controversy belong especially to scholars of central European origin, such as A. Avenarius[3], I.H. Tóth[4], and H.G. Thümmel.[5] These authors focus mainly on the sources of the iconophile position from the linguistic, theological and philosophical points of view. It seems to me that only Alexander Avenarius has carried out a more elaborate analysis of these texts. He found, in the text of the disputations in the *Vita*, illogical answers to various questions, which led him to believe that the Old Slavonic text was corrupted by transmission. Avenarius reconstructed the original meaning of the disputations from the fragments of the Old Slavonic version, in order to find the authentic meaning of the original (Greek) transcription of the disputes.[6]

The first episode (*Vita Constantini* V 17-24) is related to the historical or fictional meeting between the young Philosopher and patriarch John VII. Grammatikos.[7]

[1] Franz Grivec and Franz Tomšić, *Constantinus et Methodius Thessalonicenses. Fontes* (Zagreb, 1960), 101f; *Magnae Moraviae Fontes Historici* (MMFH) II (Brno, 1967), 68f.; Marvin Kantor, *Medieval Slavic Lives of Saints and Princes* (Ann Arbor, 1983), 34-5, 56-7.

[2] Vladimír Vavřínek, *Staroslověnské životy Konstantina a Metoděje* (Praha, 1963); Franz Grivec, *Konstantin und Method: Lehrer der Slaven* (Wiesbaden, 1960); Francis Dvorník, *Les légendes de Constantin et de Méthode vues de Byzance* (Praha, 1933).

[3] Alexander Avenarius, *Byzantský ikonoklazmus 726-843: Storočie zápasu o ikonu* (Bratislava, 1998), 105-9.

[4] Imre H. Tóth, Saint Cyril (Constantine) on the Importance of Icons, in: Attila Kiss (ed.), *Iconography in Cultural Studies: Papers from the International Conference* (Szeged, 1996), 153-8.

[5] Hans Georg Thümmel, Die Disputation über die Bilder in der Vita des Konstantin: *Byzantinoslavica* 46 (1985) 19-24.

[6] A. Avenarius, *Byzantský ikonoklazmus* (1998), 108f. The oldest surviving text is Vladislav Grammaticus's manuscript, dated 1469. See Marvin Kantor, *Medieval Slavic Lives* (1983), 17.

[7] *ODB*, II, 1052.

Studia Patristica XLVIII, 355-359.
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After a short conversation, John Grammatikos asks the young Philosopher:

'Tell me, young man, why do we not worship a broken cross nor kiss it, while you are not ashamed to render honor (честь емоу творяще) to an icon though it be depicted only in bust-form?'
The Philosopher answered: 'Because the cross has four parts, but if one of its parts is missing it no longer has its image. However, an icon of the face alone is an image and likeness of the one depicted. For whoever sees it, perceives neither a lion's face nor a lynx' but an image of the original.'
Then the old man said: 'Why do we worship a cross without an inscription when there are also other crosses? However, if an icon is not inscribed with the name of its image (написано имени), why do you not render honor to it?'
The Philosopher answered: 'Because each cross has the same image as the cross of Christ, but not all icons have one and the same image.'
The old man said: 'When God spoke to Moses He said: "Thou shalt not make any likeness (всякого подобія)." Why then do you make them and worship them?'
And to this the Philosopher replied: 'Had He Said: "Thou shalt not make any kind of likeness", you would be correct. But He said: "Not any (не всякого)," that is, any unworthy (достоиное) ...'[8]

It is clear that the above disputation in the *Vita* does not contain the full text of the dispute, but it refers to the three principles that I would like to discuss.

The first principle is a theme which has thoroughly been investigated by Norman H. Baynes; it is the veneration of the cross or its parts.[9] Baynes focuses on the topic of the veneration of the cross in the writings of Leontios of Neapolis in Cyprus and partly also in the fragments attributed to Stephen of Bostra.[10] Similar iconophile argumentation can be found in the text *Les trophées de Damas*.[11] Baynes also mentions two Armenian seventh-century documents, apologies against iconoclasm, *i.e.* a letter of the vardapet John Mayragometsi and a fragment of an anonymous apology.[12] He stresses the fact that this group of apologies expresses one of the oldest iconophile positions which was formulated in the early years of the seventh century.

Secondly, the iconophiles had respect for a cross, as well as for a shape similar to it. Consequently, other crosses also received the respect of Christ's cross by similarity or participation in this original shape. This was not the case

[8] M. Kantor, *Medieval Slavic Lives* (1983), 34f.; MMFH, II, 69.

[9] Norman H. Baynes, The Icons Before Iconoclasm: *HThR* 44 (1951) 93-106, published also in *id.*, *Byzantine Studies and Other Essays* (London, 1960), 226-39.

[10] Leontios, Bishop of Neapolis in Cyprus (PG 93, 1597-1609); and also in the extracts quoted by John of Damascus, *Contra imaginum calumniatores orationes tres*, in Bonifatius Kotter (ed.), *Die Schriften des Johannes von Damaskos*, III, PTS 17 (Berlin-New York, 1975), 179, 118; the text attributed to Stephanos of Bostra is quoted by John of Damascus, *Contra imaginum*, 174.

[11] *Les trophées de Damas: Controverse judéo-chrétienne du VIIe siècle*. G. Bardy (ed.), in: PO 15 (1920), 245; N.H. Baynes, The Icons Before Iconoclasm (1951), 237.

[12] Sirarpie Der Nersessian, Une apologie des images du septième siècle: *Byzantion* 17 (1944-5) 58-87; N.H. Baynes, The Icons Before Iconoclasm (1951), 238.

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of fragments of a cross whose shape is not similar to it.[13] The concept of participation goes back to the text of Pseudo-Dionysius the Areopagite frequently used by John of Damascus, one of the main sources in the *Vita*.[14] This takes us to another most important author, Theodore Abū Quarrah, John of Damascus's disciple and fellow monk. The original Arabic text which discloses his iconophile position has recently been published in English translation.[15] He is also known to have carried on a pro-Chalcedonian mission in the territory of monophysite Armenia.[16] The text attributed to Theodore Abū Quarrah is clearly linked with Leontios' argumentation, which is also extensively drawn on and even quoted by John of Damascus.[17]

Thirdly, and probably most significant for the argumentation in the *Vita*, is the necessity to have the name (*titulus*) of the depicted person inscribed on the icon. It may be related to its symbolic connotation and it may well be of an oriental or neo-platonic origin, based on the participation of the inscribed name in its archetype.[18] In this way, the name can be mystically linked with the named subject (as a matter of emanation rather than of naming by a culturally based convention).[19] Francis Dvornik is the first to have suggested that inscriptions on icons were used only in the second period of iconoclasm, as it is mentioned in the texts of Theodore of Stoudios and Nikephoros, patriarch of Constantinople.[20] On the other hand, using the *titulus* on icons is, in the *Libri Carolini*, given as compulsory practice in the Frankish kingdom.[21] It is therefore unclear which of these is the source in the text of the *Vita*.

The second passage in *Vita Constantini* (X 82-85) is related to Constantine's mission north of the Black Sea and his dispute in the presence of the Khazar Kagan, a convert to Judaism:

[...] the Jews questioned: 'How can you who worship idols (идоломъ ся кланяюще) pretend to please God?'
The Philosopher answered: 'Learn first to distinguish the nouns, what an image (икона) is and what an idol (идолъ), and considering this, do not assail Christians. For in your language there are ten nouns for this term. Therefore, I now ask you: Was

[13] N.H. Baynes, The Icons Before Iconoclasm (1951), 232.

[14] Opinions on Pseudo-Dionysius' approach to the veneration of icons differ widely.

[15] Theodore Abū Qurrah, *A Treatise on the Veneration of the Holy Icons Written in Arabic by Theodore Abū Qurrah*, Bishop of Harrān *(c. 755 – c. 830 A.D.)*, Sidney H. Griffith (trans.), Early Christian Texts in Translation 1 (Louvain, 1997).

[16] Theodore Abū Qurrah, *A Treatise*, 2, 8.

[17] It is also mentioned by S.H. Grifith, commentator and translator of Theodore's text, see Theodore Abū Qurrah, *A Treatise*, 26, note 68.

[18] Theodore Abū Qurrah, *A Treatise*, 62-7.

[19] A similar case is the interpretation of the cross with a palaeographic inscription from the territory of Great Moravia. See Petr Balcárek, Ways of Transmission of Byzantine Ideas. Some Examples from Central Europe: *Byzantinoslavica* 65 (2007) 69-81.

[20] F. Dvorník, *Les légendes* (1933), 78; H.G. Thümmel, Die Disputation (1985), 22; A. Avenarius, *Byzantský ikonoklazmus* (1998), 105-9.

[21] *Libri Carolini*, I 2 (PL 98, 1012); VI 21 (PL 98, 1229).

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the tabernacle which Moses carried down the mountain an image or an image of an image (образъ образа прикладомъ образъ), a comparable image which he skillfully made with taches and skins and twined linens and extraordinary cherubim? [...] The same is true of Solomon's temple, since it had figures of cherubim and angels and images of many other things. Thus, we Christians also make images of those who pleased God, distinguishing good from demoniac images, and thereby render like honor [...].'[22]

The event of the Lord showing Moses the archetype of the shelter and ordering him to have its image built (*Exodus* 25:40) is a frequent theme in the iconophile apology in the writings of Leontios of Neapolis,[23] partly quoted by John of Damascus[24] and often subject to commentaries in the text of Theodore Abū Quarrah.[25] Moses carried down from the mountain 'an image or an image of an image' (образъ образа прикладомъ образъ), which reflects the descent of God's ideas (as reflected, for example, in the texts of Pseudo-Dionysus the Areopagite) given to people to put into practice. The importance of the transmission of heavenly ideas or images, as expressed in the event of Moses' carrying the model of the Temple down to people directly from God, has its parallel in the esteem which in Byzantium people had for architects – as people who materialize ideas of buildings. Architects in Byzantium were artists – not craftsmen – who were possessed by Sophia – the Holy Wisdom.[26] The Old Testament prohibition of images appears in the same book where references to the Cherubim in Solomon's temple are made; the latter were made by human hands (by craft) and were approved by God as worthy of depiction (оугожьщихъ Богоу творяще образы).[27]

Nevertheless, the similitude or pre-figuration of an image is not the subject of the image itself. This was clearly expressed by distinctions made between image (икона) and idol (идолъ), that is between paying honour (чести дѣемъ) and adoration.[28] The text of the *Vita* uses the noun честъ, which is the equivalent of the Greek προσκύνησις, extensively used by John of Damascus, quoting mainly from Leontios, Bishop of Neapolis in Cyprus; Abū Quarrah frequently used the equivalent of veneration (as suǧūd).[29]

It is possible that, typically for a newly Christianized society, the Moravians considered the image to be consubstantional (ὁμοούσιος) with its prefiguration, just as iconoclasts used to believe. The distinction between image and likeness

[22] M. Kantor, *Medieval Slavic Lives* (1983), 56f.; MMFH II, 89f.

[23] PG 93, 1597b, c.

[24] John of Damascus, *Contra imaginum*, 169, 191.

[25] Theodore Abū Qurrah, *A Treatise*, 53, 70.

[26] See Petr Balcárek, The Image of Sophia in Medieval Russian Iconography and its Sources: *Byzantinoslavica* 60/2 (1999) 594.

[27] M. Kantor, *Medieval Slavic Lives* (1983), 56f.; MMFH II, 89.

[28] Annabel J. Wharton, Icon, Idol, Totem and Fetish, in: Antony Eastmond, Liz James (eds.), *Icon and Word. The Power of Images in Byzantium. Studies Presented to Robin Cormack* (Aldershot, 2003), 3-13.

[29] For John the Damascus's προσκύνησις, see the Index in John of Damascus, *Contra imaginum*, 225; for Theodore Abū Qurrah, *A Treatise on the Veneration*, 30, 48-53, 88-90, 93-6, esp. 75-81.

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may have led to the need for creating a new iconographical type for the Slavs. The relationship between the Son and the Father, the former being consubstantial (ὁμοούσιος) with and the image of the latter (*Colossians* 1:15), had to be somehow rendered clearly to the Slavs, in words and in images. In the text of the *Vita*, Παλαίος τῶν ἡμέρων (the Ancient of Days) is translated into Old Slavonic as Ветхыи деньми.[30] Just as the new language (Slavonic) needs new letters (Glagolitic), in the same way the new theological term (the Ancient of Days) needs a new image; this is how the iconographical type of the Ancient of Days was probably thought up in the ninth century.[31]

Conclusion

The present paper takes further the interpretations offered by previous studies. I am arguing that the iconophile apology presented in *Vita Constantini* is based mainly on the anti-Judaic and anti-Islamic theology of the early period of iconoclasm, and not on the second period of iconoclasm, as previous scholars assume. The sources of this particular iconophile apology are mainly the writings of Leontios, Bishop of Neapolis in Cyprus, Theodore Abū Quarrah, Bishop of Harrān, and the teachings of John of Damascus. The two fragments of the apologies presented in the text of the *Vita* are not examples of responses to the iconoclastic theology typical for the second period of iconoclasm (813-43), but rather a summary of early, seventh-eighth century, anti-Jewish (anti-Islamic) apologies.[32]

In my opinion, the key theological points of the later icon defenders, Theodore of Studious or Nikephoros, patriarch of Constantinople, are missing. The reason may be that these authors' argumentation was not relevant to the Jews or the Islamic society, neither to the Moravian Slavs who were partly the focus of the Frankish mission.

Also, the main subject of interest in all the questions quoted above is of a ritualistic nature, i.e. paying true (or correct) reverence to God and to representations of holy things and persons, which is typical for a newly converted society.[33]

The prescribed *titulus* on icons can therefore be seen as missionary necessity with the freshly christianized Slavs, who were to identify correctly words and images and to build a Christian tradition of images, a codified Christian visual vocabulary.

[30] M. Kantor, *Medieval Slavic Lives* (1983), 61, MMFH II, 92; compare also with the text in John of Damascus, *Contra imaginum*, 132.

[31] There is visual evidence from the ninth century onward; see, for example, the illustration of the Book of Job (Patmos MS. No. 171).

[32] Paul J. Alexander, The Iconoclastic Council of St Sophia (815) and its Horos: *DOP* 7 (1953) 35-87.

[33] We can infer the Bulgarian khan Boris' questions from Pope Nicholas' answers to them; they concern mainly ritual observances. See *Responsa Nicolai Papae ad consulta Bulgarorum* (PL 119, 978-1016).

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Augustine of Hippo and William of Saint-Thierry on the Relation between the Holy Spirit's Personal Identity (*Rom.* 5:5) and His Sovereign Freedom *ad extra*

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Augustine's identification of the Holy Spirit as the gift of God's love has been the subject of controversy between the Eastern Orthodox and the Latin Christian traditions. According to the Eastern Orthodox tradition, this identification has tended to compromise the Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad extra* by depersonalizing him in relation to God the Father and the Son of God, and to the human believer; and by improperly subordinating his person and mission to that of Jesus Christ.[1] Reception of Augustine's insights by the great twelfth-century monastic theologian, William of Saint-Thierry, in his notably Spirito-centric thought, is of value in illustrating how the notion of the Holy Spirit as the gift of God's love may be nuanced and developed within the Latin tradition. This paper is therefore set within an ecumenical framework.

Augustine's *De Trinitate* is chosen as the main source for the investigation, since, in addition to representing his mature thought on the subject, it is the work from which William of Saint-Thierry draws much material for his own Trinitarian and pneumatological reflections.

The Holy Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad extra* and his *proprium*, as based on *Rom.* 5:5,[2] are here examined in the context of the Spirit in relation to the human recipient. In view of the requisite brevity of this communication, the investigation is restricted to the post-conversion context of the human believer.

Both Augustine and William employ the notion of the Holy Spirit as the gift of love, with *Rom.* 5:5 as biblical warrant; both explicitly assert the Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad extra*;[3] and both believe that the human being's ability to love God comes only from God himself.[4] However, I contend that the significant

[1] See Duncan Reid, *Energies of the Spirit: Trinitarian Models in Eastern Orthodox and Western Theology* (Atlanta, GA, 1997), 75.

[2] *Rom.* 5:5: *quia caritas Dei diffusa est in cordibus nostris per Spiritum Sanctum qui datus est nobis* (BSV, 1969). In this instance, I follow the English translation in the NIV, which avoids the impersonal 'that has been given' of the NRSV.

[3] Augustine, *trin.* 15.36 (SL 50A, 15.19.127). See William, *Lettre aux Frères du Mont-Dieu: Lettre d'or* 251 (SC 223, 344).

[4] Augustine, *trin.* 15.31 (SL 50A, 15.17.129). See William, *De la contemplation de Dieu* 11 (SC 61, 100).

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difference between the two theologians lies in the particular configuration, and emphases, accorded to these three theological building blocks.

Firstly, I propose that Augustine's treatment of *Rom.* 5:5 implicitly conflates God's giving, or pouring out, of the gift of love with the receiving and possessing of that gift. It then becomes difficult to affirm love in terms of mutuality and reciprocity, between God and the human recipient as two distinct subjects in relation.

Secondly, and following from this, I propose that Augustine's penetrating speculation on the Holy Spirit's unique personal identity, not simply as God's love but more especially as the mutual love of the Father and the Son, is thereby hamstrung in its use *ad extra*. The difficulty of affirming a dual-subject reciprocity in the divine-human relationship is apparent especially where the Holy Spirit's indwelling of the human believer is equated with possession of God's gift of love. The impression arises of the indwelling Holy Spirit as a permanent possession of the human recipient, with a concomitant tendency towards depersonalization and potential subordination of the Spirit to the human spirit. As a result, the Holy Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad extra*, to 'come and go as he wills' (*John* 3:8), is cast into question.

Robert Wilken has observed that when Augustine reflects on the person of the Spirit in *De Trinitate*, Book 15, he abandons his approach via the Trinitarian analogy within man, and relies instead upon a biblical exegesis in his search for the Spirit's *proprium*.[5] Wilken draws attention to Augustine's linkage of *Rom.* 5:5 with 1*John* 4:13,[6] and broadly sums up Augustine's view of the content of the Holy Spirit's *proprium* in a combination of four key biblical terms, namely, *effundere* (or *diffundere*), *donum*, *manere*, and *caritas*.[7] This is illustrated for Wilken in Augustine's conclusion that 'as for the reason why he [the Lord Jesus] first gave (*daret*) the Holy Spirit... I think it is because charity (*caritas*) is poured out (*diffunditur*) in our hearts through this gift (*donum*).'[8]

Although Wilken rightly observes the 'mutuality' and 'reciprocity' inherent in the nature of the gift,[9] I contend that Augustine's configuration of the four key biblical terms, as cited above, shows an implicit conflation of the giving and receiving of the gift. This may be not because he specifically intended to do so, but because his primary interest is in ascertaining the Spirit's *proprium*. Nonetheless, the effect is that of conflation of the giving and receiving of the gift. Even though Augustine asserts the Holy Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad*

[5] Robert L. Wilken, *Spiritus sanctus secundum scripturas sanctas*: Exegetical Considerations of Augustine on the Holy Spirit: *Augustinian Studies* 31 (2000) 1-18, 16.

[6] 1*John* 4:13: *in hoc intellegimus quoniam in eo manemus et ipse in nobis, quoniam de Spiritu suo dedit nobis* (BSV, 1969).

[7] R.L. Wilken, Exegetical Considerations (2000), 12-6.

[8] *trin.* 15.46 (SL 50A, 15.26.19): *quid uero fuerit causae ut ... daret ... spiritum sanctum, hoc ego existimo quia per ipsum donum diffunditur caritas in cordibus nostris.*

[9] R.L. Wilken, Exegetical Considerations (2000), 13.

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extra,[10] the difficulty remains of affirming the gift of love in terms of mutuality and reciprocity between God and the human believer as two distinct subjects.

I propose that William of Saint-Thierry may have avoided this impasse by maintaining a distinctive dual-subject relation between the Holy Spirit and the human recipient of the gift. And, that this dual-subject relation is critically upheld by William's affirming one and the same, unique, incommunicable personal identity of the Holy Spirit as both giver and gift.[11] For example, passages treating explicitly of the Holy Spirit as both giver and gift are found in William's *Expositio super Cantica Canticorum*. This work speaks of the *unitas spiritus* between man and God, which is enjoyed only fleetingly in this life:

> while words are sought that may somehow express in human language the charm and sweetness of this union which is nothing else than the unity of the Father and the Son of God, their Kiss, their Embrace, their Love, their Goodness and whatever in that supremely simple Unity is common to both. All this is the Holy Spirit – God, Charity, at once Giver and Gift.[12]

Augustine's notion is here invoked of the Holy Spirit's *proprium* not simply as God's love, but as the mutual love of the Father and the Son of God. However, William affirms more expressly that the Holy Spirit as both giver and gift of love, that is, both *ad intra* and *ad extra*, has this aforementioned one and the same, unique personal identity. The evidence lies in 'this union *which is nothing else than* the unity of *the Father and the Son of God* [my italics]...'. Augustine's discussion of the Holy Spirit as 'God, charity' likewise includes mention of him as the mutual love of the Father and the Son of God, but does not assert, as William does, that this one and the same, unique personal identity marks the Spirit as gift *ad extra*.[13]

For William, therefore, 'giver' and 'gift' do not assert two different personal identities for the Holy Spirit, one *ad intra* and one *ad extra*. When the Holy Spirit extends as gift to the created spirit he retains the unique note of his *proprium* as the mutual love and whatever is common *between the Father and the Son of God*. The gift comes in person, the unique person of the Holy Spirit. It would seem, therefore, that the union of man with God takes place on the level of person, and that this constitutes the ontological basis for William's apparent acceptance of an unmediated experience of the Holy Spirit.

[10] See n. 3.

[11] See my article, William of Saint-Thierry on the Holy Spirit's Personal Identity: *Cistercian Studies Quarterly* 37 (2002) 145-52.

[12] *Exposition on the Song of Songs* 95 (CF 6, 78); *Exposé sur le Cantique des Cantiques* 95 (SC 82, 220-3): *dum verba quaeruntur quibus lingua hominis utcumque exprimi possit dulcedo, et suavitas conjunctionis illius, quae non est alia quam unitas Patris et Filii Dei, ipsum eorum osculum, ipse amplexus, ipse amor, ipsa bonitas, et quidquid in unitate illa simplicissima commune est amborum; quod totum est Spiritus Sanctus, Deus, caritas, idem donans, idem et donum.*

[13] See *trin.* 15:37 (SL 50A, 15.19.133).

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The question follows of how William may distinguish a dual-subject relation between the Holy Spirit and the human believer. The passage from his *Expositio super Cantica Canticorum* details further, that 'the created spirit pours itself out (*effundit*) wholly into the Spirit who creates it for this very effusion; and the Creator Spirit infuses (*infundit*) himself into it as he wills, and man becomes one spirit (*unus spiritus*) with God.'[14]

I maintain that William is able here to delineate a distinctive dual-subject relation between the Holy Spirit and the human recipient in the following way. Instead of the single term *diffundere* from *Rom.* 5:5, he employs the two contrasting terms *effundere* and *infundere* to distinguish the human spirit from the Holy Spirit. By this means, the giving of the gift and its reception are kept distinct, and hence also the divine giver and the human receiver. In the process, William can affirm the Holy Spirit's sovereign freedom with some credibility.

A search for the two terms *effundere* and *infundere* in Augustine's works reveals that he does not use them in the same way as William. There are only three instances where Augustine uses these two terms in tandem.[15] In none of these instances does he use them to distinguish a dual-subject relation between the Holy Spirit and the human spirit.

The dual-subject relation remains a constant for William, for the continual firing up of the gift in the human believer. The distinctive dual-subject relation appears also to underscore the necessary divide between the Creator Spirit and the human creature. The human creature's cooperation lies in pouring itself out wholly into the Spirit in readiness. Even this cooperation is prepared for by the Creator God, since the human creature has been created 'for this very effusion'. While the human creature is made capable of receiving God within in a mutual union, it is not made capable either of compelling the Holy Spirit to come within, or of compelling him to remain within. The Holy Spirit's infusion of himself 'as he wills' means that he as gift *ad extra* remains an active, initiating agent.

William seems here to be upholding the uncreated-created distinction by means of a constant dual-subject relation. This means may be distorted if the gift is here understood as created grace. Created grace has impersonal connotations, and does not accord with William's interpretation of the gift as the Holy Spirit himself in his unique personal identity as the mutual love of the Father and the Son of God. Concomitant with this, the Spirit's active freedom in moving 'as he wills', into or away from *unitas spiritus* with the created human spirit, seems to exclude explanation of the Spirit's indwelling or infusion as that of an impersonal, created, substance permanently infused into the

[14] *Exposition on the Song of Songs* 95 (CF 6, 78); *Exposé sur le Cantique des Cantiques* 95 (SC 82, 222): *creatus spiritus in hoc ipsum creanti eum Spiritui totum se effundit; ipsi vero Creator Spiritus se infundit, prout vult, et unus spiritus homo cum Deo efficitur.*

[15] *Io. eu. tr.* 9.5 (SL 36, 9.5.14); *s.* 354 (PL 39, 1568.35); *c. Faust.* 15.2 (CSEL 25, 418.8).

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human spirit. Hence, the Holy Spirit as gift *ad extra* would seem to be viewed here as neither depersonalized nor subordinate in relation to the human believer.

Also of significance is the later reference in the same work to mutual knowledge, 'when [divine] Face shall be fully revealed to [human] face, and mutual knowledge (*mutua cognitio*) shall be perfect, and the Bride shall know even as she is known, it will then be the full kiss and the full embrace'.[16] Again, William delineates a dual-subject relation of mutuality and reciprocity, clearly distinguishing between the two subjects, the divine Face and the human face.

The expression 'mutual knowledge' points also to the *proprium* of the Holy Spirit. For William, the Spirit in his unique personal identity is not simply the mutual love, but also the mutual knowledge, of the Father and the Son of God. This is detailed in another work, his *Speculum fidei*:

> no one learns to know the Father except the Son and no one learns to know the Son except the Father and him to whom He chooses to reveal Him. These are the Lord's words. The Father and the Son reveal this to certain persons then, to those to whom They will, to those to whom They make it known, that is, to whom They impart (*largiuntur*) the Holy Spirit, who is the common (*communis*) knowing (*notitia*) or the common will of both. Those therefore to whom the Father and the Son reveal [Themselves] recognize (*cognoscunt*) Them as the Father and the Son recognize Themselves, because they have within themselves Their mutual knowing (*notitiam mutuam*), because they have within themselves the unity of both, and Their will or love: all that the Holy Spirit is.[17]

The Holy Spirit's *proprium* as this mutual knowledge is crucial to William's Spirito-centric mystical theology. As evidenced in the above excerpt from the *Speculum fidei*, it is the product of his fusion of *Matth.* 11:27 with the Augustinian theory of the Holy Spirit as the mutual love of the Father and the Son of God. A search in Augustine's works for his application of *Matth.* 11:27 reveals no similar usage of it as a biblical warrant for the Spirit as the mutual knowledge of the Father and the Son.

In conclusion, both Augustine and William employ the notion of the Holy Spirit as the gift of God's love, as derived from *Rom.* 5:5, and both explicitly affirm the Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad extra*. However, William manages to delineate a distinctive dual-subject relation between the human believer and the

[16] *Exposition on the Song of Songs* 132 (CF 6, 106); *Exposé sur le Cantique des Cantiques* 132 (SC 82, 284): *cum enim plene revelabitur facies ad faciem, et perficietur mutua cognitio, et cognoscet Sponsa, sicut et cognita est, tunc erit plenum osculum, plenusque amplexus.*

[17] *The Mirror of Faith* 31 (CF 15, 75-6); *Le miroir de la foi* 106 (SC 301, 176): *nemo novit Patrem nisi Filius, et nemo novit Filium nisi Pater, vel cui ipsi voluerint revelare* [*Matth.* 11:27]. *Verba haec Domini sunt. Aliquibus ergo revelant; scilicet quibus volunt, quibus innotescunt, hoc est quibus largiuntur Spiritum Sanctum, qui communis notitia, vel communis voluntas est amborum. Quibus ergo revela*[*n*]*t Pater et Filius, hii cognoscunt, sicut Pater et Filius se cognoscunt, quia habent in semetipsis notitiam mutuam eorum; quia habent in semetipsis unitatem amborum et voluntatem vel amorem, quod totum Spiritus Sanctus est.*

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Holy Spirit in *unitas spiritus*, especially through use, in tandem, of the contrasting terms of *effundere* and *infundere*. Within the context of this distinctive dual-subject relation, he interprets the gift of love *ad extra* as the uncreated Holy Spirit in his one, unique, incommunicable personal identity as the mutual love and knowledge of the Father and the Son of God. In this way, William can affirm the Spirit's sovereign freedom *ad extra* with perhaps more credibility than Augustine.

His nuanced treatment and development of Augustine's mutual-love theory would appear then to go some way in counteracting the Holy Spirit's potential depersonalization and subordination as a permanent, impersonal possession of the human believer. William of Saint-Thierry's pneumatology may therefore have some value in the ecumenical dialogue between the Latin and the Eastern Orthodox Christian traditions.

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'Mo fyguratif spechis than gramerians moun gesse': Wycliffite Transformations of Augustine's Semiotics

William RANKIN, Abilene, Texas

In one of the most dramatic pieces of evidence presented in her 1429 heresy trial, the Norwich Lollard Margery Baxter is reported to have attacked her neighbour's 'idolatrous' veneration of images. After dismissing the crucifix as something 'lewed wrightes of stokkes hewe and fourme [...], and after that lewed peyntors glorye thaym with colours' she makes a claim so scandalous that the scribe translates it from Margery's vernacular into the safety of Latin: *Et prefata Margeria dixit, 'vide', et tunc extendebat brachia sua in longum, dicens isti iurate, 'hec est vera crux Christi, et istam crucem tu debes et potes videre et adorare omni die hic in domo tua propria, et adeo tu in vanum laboras quando vadis ad ecclesias ad adorandas sive orandas aliquas ymagines vel cruces mortuas'*.[1]

What would convince this carpenter's wife that her body was not only the 'true cross', but also that she was a more efficacious site of worship than those 'images and dead crosses' in her parish church? And what does the belief of this late, rural Lollard tell us about the exegetical underpinnings of Wycliffite theology and ecclesiology?

One place to situate Margery's motivations involves the Wycliffites' favourite *auctor*, St Augustine.[2] Indeed, it is difficult to find a Wycliffite text that fails to cite this important patristic source, and whether Margery was directly familiar with Augustine or not – unlikely given her 'illiterate' status – it seems clear that she would have been exposed to him through the texts recited at her Lollard conventicle's communal meetings.[3]

In Augustine's articulation of 'conventional' signs in the *De Doctrina Christiana* and in his exploration of the nature of mental perception in the latter books

[1] Norman F. Tanner (ed.), *Heresy Trials in the Diocese of Norwich, 1428–31*, Camden Fourth Series 20 (London, 1977), 41-51.

[2] The Wycliffite reliance on Augustine is notable; he is arguably their most frequently cited patristic source. Indeed, the writer of the 'Prologue' to the Wycliffite Bible lifts an entire section of Augustine's *De Doctrina Christiana* for use in this treatise on the proper interpretation of scripture (see especially ch. 12). The full 'Prologue' may be found in Josiah Forshall and Sir Frederick Madden (eds.), *Wycliffite Versions of the Holy Bible*, 4 vols. (Oxford, 1850), I 1-60.

[3] See Rita Copeland, *Pedagogy, Intellectuals, and Dissent in the Later Middle Ages* (Cambridge, 2001), 10f.

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of the *De Trinitate*, he articulates a relationship between literal and figural that Wycliffites appropriate and redefine to serve their own notions of 'text' and their expanded vision of who could and should have access to textual meaning. The ability of Wycliffite adherents to perceive themselves as vessels for – and extensions of – the divine *Logos* results in an important challenge to dominant medieval hermeneutical notions, a proliferation of spiritual meaning beyond the page that transforms believers into one type of the 'fyguratif spechis' to which my title refers.[4]

That Augustine proposes a transformative hermeneutic can be little argued. Chapters thirty-five through forty of the first book of the *De Doctrina Christiana* argue for the communal effects of a proper interpretation of scriptural signs which will lead believers to manifest the two-fold love of God and neighbour.[5] Yet conventional signs – those which 'living beings mutually exchange for the purpose of showing, as well as they can, the feelings of their minds, or their perceptions, or their thoughts'[6] – present an important challenge for the reader of the biblical text because their figurative language, deriving from particular communal contexts, yields obscurities through which the reader must struggle. Far from undermining the conveyance of meaning, however, the interpretive *aporiae* of what Augustine identifies as *ignota* and *ambigua* begin the very process of character transformation for which he calls. Through the resistance of the text, readers learn to 'subdue pride' and avoid 'satiety in the intellect'.[7] Especially in the *ambigua*, which rely on obscure idiomatic *minutiae*, Augustine discovers a recursive opportunity for contemplation and correction in which the reader 'draw[s] examples from the plainer expressions to throw light upon the more obscure, and use[s] the evidence of passages about which there is no doubt to remove all hesitation in regard to the doubtful passages'.[8] Such moments thus fuel spiritual understanding, and Augustine notes

> that it is pleasanter in some cases to have knowledge communicated through figures and that what is attended with difficulty in the seeking gives greater pleasure in the finding. For those who seek but do not find suffer from hunger. [...]. Accordingly the Holy Spirit has, with admirable wisdom and care for our welfare, so arranged the Holy Scriptures as by the plainer passages to satisfy our hunger, and by the more obscure to stimulate our appetite.[9]

[4] 'Prologue', ch. 12.

[5] Note, for example, Augustine's discussion of love remaining after scripture passes away in 1.39.43

[6] *Doctr. chr.* 2.2.3.

[7] *Doctr. chr.* 2.6.7. This section also includes Augustine's delightful account of his pleasure in considering the passage 'Thy teeth are as a flock of sheep' from *Song* 6:6.

[8] *Doctr. chr.* 2.9.14.

[9] *Doctr. chr.* 2.6.8

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Augustine's formulation in which 'plainer passages' illuminate those 'more obscure'[10] will prove central to the Wycliffite programme of lay, vernacular religion. In this programme, believers who are often identified as 'pore' or 'symple' provide an exegetical tool through their 'good lyuynge' by which symbolic, divine meanings are illuminated. These pious poor thus become extensions of the biblical text, providing a clear, direct, and unambiguous representation of the scriptural *sententia* which can, in turn, illuminate more obscure spiritual meanings. As one tract puts it,

> sum men of good wille redin besili the text of holi writ, for to kunne it and kepe it in here lyuynge and teche it to othere men bi hooli ensample. And for the staat that thei stondyn ynne, and for this werk, they han the blissyng of God [...]. But othere veyn men besie hem faste to studie to kunne the lettre of Goddis lawe and thei bisi hem nat treuli to kepe the sentence ther of. And therfore thei disceyuen hem self and in maner sclaundren the lawe of God.[11]

As with the Augustinian injunction against those who fail to link the 'plainer passages' to more robust and challenging study,[12] and as with Augustine's critique of those who destroy textual meaning by interpreting figurative elements literally,[13] those whose lives fail to lead to the exposition of scriptural *sententia* are here seen as destructive to meaning. Those who are worthy, on the other hand, increase the 'appetite' of the faithful by sharing the gospel message in such a way that others are drawn to read them and replicate their 'good lyuynge', expanding opportunities for the community to encounter scriptural truth.

However, the Wycliffite call for a lay religious practice based on living the spiritual *sententia*, with its emphasis on the communal production and dissemination of scriptural meaning in believers themselves, goes well beyond what Augustine suggests – or might approve. Indeed, a tension seems apparent in the Wycliffite programme between the needs of lay, vernacular access to a text that is open to the 'pore' and 'symple' and the heritage of Latin patristic *auctors* upon which such a vernacular programme is justified.[14] The writer of the 'Prologue' to the Wycliffite Bible calls for a vernacular biblical text that is 'as trewe and open in English as it is in Latyn, either more trewe and more open than it is in Latyn', continuing,

> and no doute to a symple man, with Goddis grace and greet trauail, men miȝten expoune myche openliere and shortliere the bible in English, than the elde greete doctouris han

[10] While Augustine warns against the dangers of interpreting literally what is figural (*doctr. chr.* 3.5.9), he also makes the literal sense the starting point for interpretation (2.12.17)

[11] 'The Holi Prophete Dauid Seith', in Margaret Deanesly, *The Lollard Bible* (Cambridge, 1920), 446.

[12] *Doctr. chr.* 2.9.14

[13] *Doctr. chr.* 3.5.9

[14] The 'Prologue' cites numerous patristic authors, including Jerome. Indeed, many Wycliffite biblical manuscripts were also prefaced by Jerome's epistle to Ambrose on translation.

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expounid it in Latyn, and myche sharpliere and groundliere than manie late postillatouris, eithir expositouris, han don. But God of his grete merci ȝeve to vs grace to lyue wel and to seie the truthe in couenable manere, and acceptable to God and his puple [...].[15]

Of particular interest here is the notion that vernacular translational efforts, combined with virtuous living and 'greet trauail' might exceed the efforts of the 'old, great, [Latin] doctors'. Of course, one reason for the value of any translational project, with its resetting of biblical meaning into the complexities of a new linguistic context – a point which the writer describes in careful detail[16] – involves precisely the sort of productive interpretive struggle Augustine has delineated. However, what takes Wycliffite vernacular efforts beyond the more regulated and contemplative linguistic praxis described by Augustine is the incarnational aspect they celebrate. It is not merely the openness of the English text or the appropriate behaviour of those living out its spiritual precepts that Wycliffites emphasise, but the commonness, the 'plainness' of both the vernacular and the laity which makes them the perfect 'fleshly' site for the indwelling of the spiritual *sententia*. Thus while the Wycliffites' vernacular project echoes Augustine's appreciation of accessibility and of the 'greater pleasure' generated by bringing scriptural meaning into a new context, it is doubtful that he would approve of their methods or goals.

The Wycliffite enterprise is thus a true 'translation' of Augustine in both senses of that word, not merely moving his message into another language, but into another place altogether, one that inverts both expected linguistic and established spiritual hierarchies. This can be seen clearly in the Prologue's adaptation of Augustine's comment about the relationship between open and obscure passages. Here, the writer argues that 'the Holy Goost mesuride so holy scripturis, that in opyn placis he settide remedie to oure hungir, and in derk placis he wipte awey anoies; for almest no thing is seyn in tho derknessis, which thing is not founden ful pleynly in other placis'.[17] In other words, unlike Augustine's version with its recursive pattern of hunger and satiation, the Wycliffite version offers only satiation, attributing the most pleasing and valuable scriptural manifestations to the most accessible parts of the text. The 'open places' no longer drive readers to a deeper contemplation of the 'obscure places' in this programme because those open places have become self-sufficient; 'almost nothing' is to be found elsewhere.

That the Wycliffite conception should effectively transform the Augustinian hermeneutic from the study of verbal ambiguities to the study of believers as signifiers should not be surprising given the Wycliffite emphasis on incarnating

[15] 'Prologue', ch. 15.

[16] Several passages describe the difficulties of translating Latin syntax and grammar into English (ch. 15), and of dealing with ambiguous signs (regarding which the writer quotes bk. 2 of Augustine's *doctr. chr.*).

[17] 'Prologue', ch. 13.

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scriptural meaning through 'good lyuynge'. But what is surprising, ultimately, is the way this programme situates semiotic power within the literal sense. When the writer of the Prologue notes that 'autouris of hooly scripture vsiden moo figuris, that is, mo fyguratif spechis, than gramariens moun gesse', he is not merely engaging in irrelevant hyperbole. The assignation of hermeneutical precedence to the 'open placis' results in a massive growth in instances of the symbolic (which now contains an incarnational literal sense) even as it narrows the symbolic by dismantling exegetical hierarchies. In placing all textual meaning on the same footing, such a project is, indeed, well beyond what traditional grammarians would have conceived. Handily enough, the Wycliffite author is able to justify this significant transformation of Augustinian semiotics with an *auctor* of irrefutable credibility:

> alle goostly vndirstondinges setten bifore, eithir requyren, the literal vndirstonding, as the foundement; wherfore as a bylding bowing awey fro the foundement is disposid to falling, so a goostly expociscoun, that discordith fro the literal sense, owith to be arettid vnseemely and vncouenable, either lesse seemely, and lesse couenable; and therfore it is nedful to hem, that wolen profite in the stodie of holy scripture, to bigynne at the vndirstonding of literal sence, moost sithen bi the literal sense aloone, and not bi goostly sencis may be maad an argument, either preef, to the preuyng, either declaring, of a doute, as Austin seith in his Pistle to Vincent Donatist'.[18]

So what of Margery Baxter? Far from being happenstance, her identification of herself as the 'true cross' is founded upon a semiotic argument in which the believer-as-text participates continually and fully in spiritual signification. Because she can manifest the scriptural *sententia* in her 'vertues lyuynge' (unlike 'sticks' that have been made into 'dead crosses'), the 'true cross' Margery manifests is both vital and worthy of veneration, offering ongoing spiritual access.[19] The 'images and dead crosses' in her parish church – along with those who venerate them – are producers of error because they fail to situate spiritual signification upon an adequate, literal 'foundation' of 'virtues lyuyng'. Thus effectively severed from their referents, such signs are no longer able to deliver scriptural meaning. Further, because they have no means by which to 'incarnate' the message of scripture, such signs transform the accessible, reproducible text of scripture into something static and incomprehensible, limiting access to the very spiritual meanings upon which the community depends.

[18] 'Prologue', ch. 14.

[19] This parallels the interrelationship between reader and spiritual community articulated in Brian Stock's *The Implications of Literacy* (Princeton, 1987). Stock writes: 'What was essential to a textual community was not a written version of a text, although that was sometimes present, but an individual who, having mastered it, then utilized it for reforming a group's thought and action [...]. The outside world was looked upon as a universe beyond the revelatory text; it represented a lower level of literacy and by implication of spirituality. Within the movement, texts were steps, so to speak, by which the individual climbed towards a perfection thought to represent complete understanding and effortless communication with God' (90).

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The Wycliffite blurring of distinctions between text and reader that we see in Margery Baxter and the 'Prologue' to the Wycliffite Bible thus demonstrates a transformation of Augustinian semiotics, creating a correlative blurring of the distinctions between text and believer. Because believers who properly enflesh the scriptural *sententia* mirror both Christ and scripture in their incarnational status as both literal signifiers and spiritual signifieds, they are able to cast off the trappings of ecclesiastical hierarchy,[20] becoming self-sufficient symbolic entities – much to the chagrin of their non-heretical counterparts – and, perhaps, also to their patristic forebear.

[20] As Gloria Cigman has observed, Wycliffites believed no special educational preparation was needed to interpret scripture. Indeed, Wycliffite texts often describe those who are educated as 'arrogant and self-satisfied', unable to reach the 'hȝer charitie' reserved for those who 'were humble and without formal education'. Cigman cites one sermon in which those who are 'clever and knowledgeable' are urged to 'seek guidance from those who are of lower social rank, less intellectual and with little or no learning'. G. Cigman, *Luceat Lux Vestra*: The Lollard Preacher as Truth and Light: *RES* 40 (1989) 479-96.

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The Social Aspects of Fourteenth-Century Hesychasm

Goran SEKULOVSKI, Paris

In the 1940s, Martin Jugie noted that, save for a few old-fashioned partisans, 'Palamism was quite dead as a doctrine of the Greco-Russian Church', and he did not think that 'the sympathies of a few Russian émigrés would manage to revive it'.[1] The Assumptionist father was a poor prophet on this point. In Orthodoxy there has been such a resurgence of interest in the works and doctrine of St. Gregory Palamas that today Palamism occupies a central place in Orthodox theology and spirituality.

This interest, however, has often been limited to the factual and theoretical aspects of the controversy. Although hesychasm is the object of many works in the corpus of studies of Byzantine theology, its social roots and societal ramifications have been largely neglected. Despite this neglect, one cannot but be aware of the political dimension of the victory of hesychasm, even beyond its reception of conciliar approval. The controversy, having involved a great number of social ranks – imperial and ecclesiastic, lay and monastic alike – agitated all of society. It saw the disciples of the great hesychast masters rise to power, among them Gregory of Sinai, a contemporary of Palamas, and their immediate successors, including the future Patriarchs of Constantinople Isidoros, Kallistos, and Philotheos. However, this movement had been long in the making, and the innovative character of the Palamite apotheosis of 1347-1351 has often been exaggerated. The rigorist influence of monasticism had already triumphed under the Patriarchate of Athanasius I (1289-93; 1303-09), and in fact at that time there was fulfilled an already ancient call to reform. This very reform is the subject of our paper.

Rooting his social thought in an essentially monastic view of the Christian life, Patriarch Athanasius I felt a personal responsibility for the political and social decadence of the Empire and wished to reform society on the model of cenobitic communities as ideal for a common social life. Athanasius has been harshly criticised on this point by modern historians like Rodolphe Guilland, who wrote that 'Athanasius had but one error, that is that he regarded Byzantium as one vast monastery' [...] 'unfortunately, Athanasius was and remained an ascetic'.[2]

[1] Martin Jugie, *Le Schisme Byzantin* (Paris, 1941), 383.

[2] Rodolphe Guilland, La correspondance inédite d'Athanase, Patriarche de Constantinople (1289-1293; 1303-1310), in: Ernest Leroux (ed.), *Mélange Charles Diehl*, vol. 1 (Paris, 1930), 121-40, 130, 137.

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Athanasius was not the first to behave in this way. He followed in the footsteps of St. Basil the Great and St. John Chrysostom.[3] According to certain historians of Christian thought, St. Basil was the first bishop to unify the episcopate and monasticism in a social mission. He organized Byzantine monasticism and showed the close relationship that exists in monastic life between social outreach and ascetic discipline. Heir to the Fathers of the Golden Age, Athanasius was also the forerunner, of the fourteenth-century hesychasts.The ideals of Athanasius would serve as a model to the hesychast monks who, like him, after 1347, came to manage the patriarchal see. Although none among them had a temperament like that of Patriarch Athanasius, nor his zeal in the search for social reform, the spiritual continuity between him and them is evident.

The subjects of political and social order were inevitably included in the theological aspects of the hesychast quarrel. While the manner in which those subjects arose may have been accidental, they can in no case be treated as incidental. The new leaders of the Byzantine Church from then on had to tie their mysticism into immediate historical practice. From its purely monastic state in the fourth century, hesychasm came to shape a particular style of civilization at the end of the fourteenth century. In the order of ecclesiastical politics, the hesychasts tried their utmost to keep the Patriarchal throne in their own hands, in spite of all the secular changes occurring in the Empire. From their triumph in 1351 to the end of the fourteenth century, a time which saw seven different Patriarchs of Constantinople, only one of them, Macarius (1377-79; 1390-91) seems not to have belonged to the hesychast movement. The exercise of spiritual power over so many decades resulted in the predominance of hesychasm in the spiritual and political life of late Byzantium, thus assuring the status of official doctrine. No matter how much these hesychast leaders may have been influenced by Athonite traditions and anchorite practices, and however much they might have deplored 'worldliness', they were nevertheless obliged to exercise their influence in temporal matters. It is this translation of a piety into an often political, sometimes administrative and always social form, which attracts our interest.

The corpus of Palamite writings reveals their author to be a contemplative who also knew how to be a man of action. Familiar with the Scriptures and the Fathers, Palamas nonetheless had a keen consciousness of the world and its needs. In this capacity, he turned towards the society of his times. His social teaching comes to expression in the best of his homilies preached at Thessalonica in the form of commentaries on the Gospel readings of Sundays and feast days.[4]

[3] The Emperor Andronicus II Paleologus (1282-1328) himself compared Athanasius to John Chrysostom. See Nicephoras Gregoras, *Roman History*, I.VII.1, Ludwig Schopen (ed.), CSHB (Bonn, 1829), 216f.

[4] The Palamas homilary was compiled by his disciples and the existing editions include sixty three homilies arranged in the manuscript in the order of the liturgical year. Homilies one to forty were published in Jerusalem in 1857 and this edition was reprised in PG 151, 13-550,

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This Archbishop of Thessalonica appears here as a preacher, but also as a reformer. He was concerned not only about hesychasm and monastic spirituality, but also about every subject relevant to ecclesiology and to the social responsibilities of each Christian. A faithful priest of the people of God, Palamas worried greatly about the daily life of the people of the Empire, inquiring openly about social justice as well as civil order. It is significant that his sermons, which are different from his other writings because of their lesser theoretical content, rarely refer to hesychasm. Only two homilies, thirty four and thirty five, refer to the divine and uncreated Light. Despite several brief references to Barlaam and Akyndinos in homily sixteen, and several occurrences of hesychast terms elsewhere, the hesychast polemic in his sermons is almost non-existent. It would thus be erroneous to consider the hesychast theologian solely as a defender of eremitic mysticism and his works of interest addressed only to a closed circle of initiates. To do so would be to forget the centrality that he grants to concrete realities of ecclesial life and mission.

The hesychasts did not proclaim the mysticism of the Jesus Prayer outside of the Church, but only within the bosom of an ecclesial tradition, which was always their first concern. For Palamas, the point of hesychasm was communion with God and with men. Salvation is neither an individual affair, nor a simple manifestation of Christian life, nor a separated phenomenon. In his view there is no difference between monastic spirituality and the message of the Gospel, which implies love for God and for the neighbour. Palamas considered monastic community life to be fundamental for the organization of social life. This is because the former has the Eucharist for its centre, with the alter of the sanctuary prolonged or extended by the table in the refectory. This is what Chrysostom would call the complementarity of the sacrament of the altar and the sacrament of the brother. Within the community, individuals experience 'the sense of life' in Communion, developing integral social relations through coming together, and sharing 'otherness' as a function of their common life. The best image of this unity in diversity is clearly manifested in conciliar actions, which are produced by the *Ekklesia*, that is, by humanity brought together on the Trinitarian model. Christians, united by the Spirit and by Love, must 'preserve unity with God and with one another, this unity being divinely procured for us by God, by the commandment of love'.[5]

Speaking of the necessity of community life for maintaining a strong society, St. Gregory Palamas tackles another theme, that of the value and importance of money:

completed again by two homilies (forty two to forty three) from the older edition of Christian Friedrich Matthaei, Moscow, 1776. In 1861, Sophokles Oikonomos edited homilies forty two to sixty three, thus completing the Jerusalem edition.

[5] Gregory Palamas, *Hom.* 13, Sophokles Oikonomos (ed.), *Γρηγορίου τοῦ Παλαμᾶ ὁμιλίαι* (Athens, 1861), 180. The translation of Palamas homilies in this paper has been made by the author.

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Concerning the needs of the body, we satisfy some by our own means and others with the help of other people, by giving in turn our services. For one and the same person cannot at the same time be a wise man and farmer, tailor, weaver, builder, shoemaker, doctor, and competent in all other trades besides. And as each cannot by oneself satisfy all one's needs, and since in the same domain all have, without fail, the same needs, an intermediary – money – was invented as a means to be used by society. By this means the excess of one person is limited and the need of another is met.[6] Thus the farmer gives his excess to one who does not work the soil, and having received money for this, buys, for example, a house or a piece of cloth [...]. It is thereby that in the community the lives of all of us are bound to one another, and as a result, towns and cities are born where man is a social being.[7]

Man is a social being, that is why he organizes himself in a community, be it in the form of a village or an empire. Incapable of living or surviving alone, by and for himself, man cannot progress in a society that does not develop itself. Far from being nostalgic for primitive ways, Palamas recognized the power of civilization and the value of material goods. Money, useful for the exchange of goods, is thus transitory, separate from all absolute significance, showing on the contrary that wealth itself is not an absolute.

The hesychast theologian shows his concern for the salvation of all, rich and poor alike, and he describes the condition by which the rich can even become a model for the poor:

If someone is rich, famous, or a leader, let him not be troubled, for if he desires it, he can find the Glory of God. If he abstains and puts an end to his inclination to evil, he is able to achieve great virtues and weed out the disposition towards evil, not only for himself but for many others as well. He can act according to justice and with sobriety, and give an example to others who live in dissolution and injustice. Obedient to the Gospel and words of Christ, the rich man is able to submit disobedient people to the Church of Christ, by the grace of God and by his example, above all those who are lower than he, for he who is submitted wishes to be like his master.[8]

Even if the expression has too modern a ring, Gregory Palamas contrasts ἀνάστασις (the resurrection) with ἐπανάστασις (rebellion). He rejects revolt because all rebellion, like that of the zealots, brings about disunion and, by rupturing communion, opens society to every kind of evil. He emphasizes on the other hand the notion of synergy, according to which each man must work by his co-operation towards salvation, a salvation that nevertheless comes to him from God. Neither utopian nor pietist, Palamas developed a strong idea of

[6] The argumentation of Palamas does not differ greatly from that of St. Basil the Great: 'if each one would keep only that which is necessary to satisfy his current needs and give the superfluity to the indigent, wealth and poverty would be abolished'. *Hom.* 6 (PG 31, 262-78) in Adalbert-Gautier Hamman (ed.), *Riches et Pauvres dans l'Église Ancienne* (Paris, 1982), 75 and following.

[7] *Hom.* 48, Panagiotes Chrestou, Theodoros Zeses *et al.* (eds.), *Γρηγορίου τοῦ Παλαμᾶ Ἅπαντα τὰ ἔργα*, vol. 11 (Thessalonica, 1987), 136-50, 136-8.

[8] *Hom.* 15 (PG 151, 180D-181A).

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action and collaboration in the terrestrial world, admonishing the rich, the wise, and princes: 'If they wish to save themselves, let them force themselves and put all their efforts towards their salvation.'[9]

It is man's responsibility to make of his individual destiny a collective one, social as well as religious, historical as well as eternal. These last words summarize the hesychast point of view on society, which problems cannot be considered autonomously, but must always be put in relation with our alienation from God. True society would be founded on the communion of God and man, this Kingdom for which Eden provokes nostalgia and of which the Church gives a foretaste. In contrast, the alienation of man from God, under the influence of the devil, 'the divider', creates an anti-society that ruins liberty and love by an ever-greater reign of anti-sociability, crowned as a principle. True love, communion as the sacrament of unity, appeared for Palamas in the Church, the Body of Christ. In one of his homilies,[10] he stresses the fact that we, all of us, compose the unity and communion of the Body of Christ, where there are neither superiors nor subordinates, and where each person accords an ontological priority to the neighbour.

As a social reformer by virtue of his evangelical maximalism, Gregory Palamas discourses on society as a starting point for his Christian faith, with the spiritual growth of the people as its finality. This he does always in the context of his preaching. Thereby he links the political horizon with the verticality of transcendence – and, in all cases, he holds together the social body with its religious identity.

In conclusion, the evidence is convincing enough for us to affirm that the mystical and dogmatic aspects of hesychasm have most often been over-emphasized and in a one-sided way. For hesychasm, founding itself on prayer and fulfilling itself in dogma, was no less a social and political movement. The following facts appear to be historically inseparable: the new religious dynamism which the rehabilitation of hesychast spirituality sustains, the theological fecundity of which Gregory Palamas and his disciples gave proof and the social and political implications of this dynamism. These made the Palamites themselves the prime movers in Byzantium and all the Slavo-Balkan world. The sacramental realism which the hesychasts profess is strongly bound to a historical conception of the Church and the Church's role within the world. Consequently, the individual perfection of the monk is inconceivable if he does not simultaneously belong to the *politeia* – to the community of culture and politics – to which these sacraments speak and which they fulfil.

This fundamental and essential community life needs to become a model for social existence as a whole. For although the Church is not one with society, it is the Church that gives an eschatological dimension to history.

[9] *Ibid.*
[10] *Hom.* 15 (PG 151, 181A).

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Patristic Commentaries on Pauline Epistles from 1455 to 1517

Giancarlo PANI, Rome

Since the invention of printing, several editions of Saint Paul's Epistles are to be mentioned among the large number of books published. All of them contain the text of his Letters, at times including their original in Greek; many are accompanied by either philological or theological commentaries, or both. In relation to Biblical texts, the frequency of Paul's Epistles has certainly been noted by scholars, but their historical importance has not been studied yet.[1] It is interesting to observe this phenomenon in the years preceding the Protestant Reformation, as before that date fifty-eight editions were published, many of which containing commentaries by ancient ecclesiastic writers.

Since no complete bibliography of the Epistles exists, I tried to gather the data from the most important catalogues.[2] Below are the results of my work.

The complete editions of Paul's Epistles without any special commentary, published from the invention of printing to 1517, are fourteen in number.

There are thirty-two patristic commentaries on the whole collection of Paul's Epistles.

There are twelve partial commentaries on Paul's Epistles or editions of single Letters. Among these is Origen's monumental commentary on the *Epistle to the Romans* in Rufin's version, published in Venice in two editions: in 1506 and in 1509.

It is interesting to relate the number of editions and the places of publication: twenty-one editions in France, all published in Paris; twenty-two in Germany (among which, five published in Leipzig, not far from Wittenberg; two in Wittenberg itself); then in Italy, seven of which were published in Venice; five in other places.[3]

[1] Luigi Balsamo, *La Bibbia in tipografia*, in: *La Bibbia a stampa da Gutenberg a Bodoni*, ed. I. Zatelli (Firenze, 1991), 22.

[2] The following catalogues have been consulted: *The British Library General Catalogue of Printed Books to 1975* (London, 1979), 30; *The Incunabula Short Title Catalogue* (London, 1996); Martine Delaveau and Denise Hillard, *Bibles imprimées du XVe au XVIIIe siècle conservées à Paris* (Paris, 2002); Miriam Uhsher Chrisman, *Bibliography of Strasbourg Imprints 1480-1599* (New Haven, 1982); *Indice generale degli incunaboli delle biblioteche d'Italia* (Roma, 1943); *Bibbia. Catalogo delle edizioni a stampa 1501-1597* (Roma, 1983); *Verzeichnis der in deutschen Sprachbereich erschienenen Drucke des XVI. Jahrhunderts* (Stuttgart, 1983-2000).

[3] Giancarlo Pani, *Paolo, Agostino, Lutero: alle origini del mondo moderno* (Soveria Mannelli, 2005), 235-69.

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Why was so much attention paid to Paul's Epistles?

Sheer numbers do not tell us much, yet they do give us some precise indications. Although the invention of printing was rather recent, the demand for books was ever increasing in all fields, including Scripture, especially for Paul's Epistles.

The data summarized here indicate both the trend and the quality of such an increase: the Church was experiencing the passage from the Middle Ages to the Modern Era and was forced to meet the challenges issuing from the high standards of the new humanistic, philological and historical scholarship. The historical-critical method used by Humanists for classical texts was then applied to the Holy Scriptures. But this is the innovation: Paul's Epistles were the starting point. John Colet, towards the end of the fifteenth century, in Oxford, was the pioneer of this new trend: he commented on the *Romans* and on *I Corinthians* using Humanists' *litteralis expositio*.[4] Among his auditors there was also Erasmus, who testifies to the astonishment that those lessons aroused.

The attention paid to the patristic commentaries on Pauline Epistles arose from the humanist emphasis on the return to sources: research was focused on the oldest authors, closest to the origins. Even though there is not yet a full historical understanding of them, Paul's Epistles begin to be considered as among the oldest documents of the Christian tradition, together with the writings of the apostles and the evangelists. It is exactly this return to sources that stimulates the research into and the publication of the many writers in antiquity who had commented on the Pauline Epistles.

The oldest patristic editions

The oldest printed commentary on St. Paul's Epistles – as far as we know – is that of Peter Lombard, published in Esslingen in 1473. This is one of the best works of the *Magister Sententiarum*, so that the commentary on it was reproduced in its entirety in the *Glossa ordinaria* and now came to be extracted and published as a separate work. The Epistles of the Apostle are interpreted under the guidance of the most important texts of Augustine, Ambrose, Jerome, Cassiodorus, Paulin of Nola, John Damascenus and other Church Fathers. Several quotations of Origen are included.

In 1477, a commentary on Paul's Epistles attributed to Athanasius appears in Rome, and under this authorship it is republished many times. In 1518 Erasmus finds out that its author is not Athanasius but instead Theophylactus, Archbishop of Acrida in Bulgaria. In the first edition of *Novum Instrumentum* (1516), Erasmus had called him 'Vulgarius', but later he came to understand

[4] *Ibid.* 25-7.

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that the Latin text was a version of Theophylactus' Greek commentary. 'Bulgarius', rather than 'Vulgarius', was the epithet that generally indicated this Bulgarian author. Under the name Athanasius the commentary went through three editions, but under the name Theophylactus there were 18 editions during the sixteenth century.[5] Its success was probably based on the type of textual interpretation, which is not mere compilation. Its indebtedness to John Chrysostom is surprising.

In 1478, the publication of the *Postilla super Epistolas Pauli* of Nicholas of Gorran (†1125) took place, a Dominican known for his exegesis of the OT and the NT. The commentary on Paul, of a scholastic character, is developed in the footsteps of Peter Lombard: there are not many quotations of the Church Fathers, with the exception of Augustine. In 1502 there was a second edition.[6]

In 1481, in Bologna, Thomas Aquinas' (1224/5-74) commentary appears – the *Commentaria in omnes epistolas beati Pauli* – which will have a resounding success in the sixteenth century, with twenty-five editions.[7] It was reprinted in Basel (1495), Venice (1498), and went through another three editions up to 1513. Although the final editing of the text was done by pupils, drawing together exegetical lessons from different periods, and though it presents gaps from a philological point of view (Thomas did not know Greek well!), it is an exegesis of the highest value for its evangelical message (above all the commentary on *Romans*), where reference to the Church fathers is frequent: Augustine is the most frequently quoted author, but also Origen, Athanasius, Ambrose, Jerome, Gregory, Dionysius and Peter Lombard. In the strict sense, one should speak not of a patristic, but rather of a 'biblical-theological' commentary, since it is studded with 12,500 quotations from the Bible.

On the eve of the sixteenth century, in 1499, a commentary attributed to the Venerable Bede (673-735) was printed in Paris: *Diui Augustini in sacras Pauli epistolas [...] interpretatio.*[8] This in fact consists of an anthology of passages extracted from the works of Augustine, gathered in such a way as to form a systematic exegesis of the Epistles. The compilation is to be ascribed to Floro of Lione.

In 1509, in Paris again, the commentary of St. Bruno (†1101) appears: *Expositio [...] in omnes diui Pauli epistolas.* He too chooses Augustine as his guide to the exegesis of Paul, and stresses very well his importance, but he also quotes Ambrose and other authors.

It is worth recording the publication, in 1514, of the commentary of Remigio of Auxerre, and later on, in 1519, that of a commentary attributed to Aimone

[5] *Ibid.* 245.

[6] *Ibid.* 241.

[7] Raphael Cai (ed.), *Thomae Aquinatis super Epistolas S. Pauli Lectura* (Genova, 1953), XVII-XVIII.

[8] André Wilmart, La collection de Bède le Vénérable sur l'Apôtre: *RB* 38 (1926) 16-52.

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(778-853): *In diui Pauli epistolas [...] expositio.* Actually, this is the same commentary, perhaps to be attributed to Aimone. Only the first edition was published under the name 'Remigio'.[9]

The New Commentaries

Towards the end of the fifteenth century some new commentaries appear. They cannot be defined as strictly patristic, yet they are considerably indebted to the ecclesiastical writers of the ancient Church. The first of such commentaries, *Epistolae Pauli* (Paris, 1491), was written by Aegidius Delphus (†1524), Doctor of Divinity and a scholar of Aristotle.[10] His works includes Paul's Epistles as well as others of the NT, with the traditional prologues of the *Vulgata*. Aegidius adds a few eulogistic couplets of his own in Paul's honour, and a concise but essential interpretation of each chapter, together with several testimonies of the Fathers, particularly Augustine. Also quoted are Jerome, Chrysostom, Aimone, and lastly Nicholas of Lyra (about whose work he warns: 'Caution when reading!'). A second edition was published in 1503.

The second annotator is Jodocus Clichtovaeus (1472-1543). His *Epistole b. Pauli. Epistolae Canonicae*, which also includes the other apostolic Epistles, was published in Paris in 1507, and reprinted in 1512 with an interesting title, suggesting a possible plan for one's life: *If you wish to reach saintliness and enter the Kingdom of Heaven, read St. Paul's and the other Apostles' Epistles.*[11] In his introduction, Jodocus states that after the Gospels there is neither a deeper writing nor a holier doctrine than the Pauline Epistles. Such a statement is supported both by words of the Lord, defining St. Paul as *vas electionis*, and by testimonies of Dionysius and Chrysostom. The text starts with Jerome's Epistle; the ancient prologues precede each Epistle, and each chapter is accompanied by a short introduction. A text in praise of St. Paul ends the volume. Jodocus too was an Aristotelian scholar, nonetheless he was also interested in the ancient Church writers. He became famous for his being a strong opponent of Luther.

One of the most ancient commentaries existing in French of the Pauline Epistles is *Les epistres Sainct pol. glosees*, published in Paris in 1508 by an anonymous author who claims in the colophon to be a Doctor of Divinity and a member of the Augustinian Order. The interpretation is plain and concise, but lively; there are citations from Augustine, Ambrose, Jerome.

[9] Birgit Gansweidt, art. Haimo v. Halberstadt: *Lexikon des Mittelalters* 4 (München, 1989), 1864.

[10] G. Pani, *Paolo, Agostino, Lutero* (2005), 32f.

[11] *Ibid.* 33; Jean-Pierre Massaut, *Josse Clichtove: L'Humanisme et la réforme du clergé* I (Paris, 1968), 38, 299-450.

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In 1512 Lefèvre d'Étaples printed in Paris the commentary on the entire Pauline Epistolary: *S. Pauli Epistolae XIV.*[12] Lefèvre is an Aristotelian scholar too, and he promotes the publication of a Greek edition of Aristotle's works, urging young students *ad fontes*, that is, to read them in the original version. Later on he converts to the NT, adopting for Paul's Epistles this same humanistic approach. His new version from the Greek and his critical notes in the style of Valla's *Annotationes in Novum Testamentum*, make him in a technical sense a master of modern exegesis. Lefèvre's is the first example of modern interpretation, and it will be followed by cardinal Ximenes, Erasmus, Luther, and other reformers. Explicit quotations from the Church Fathers are few, but Lefèvre does not always quote his patristic sources; one of the most quoted author is Jerome, but perhaps the most referred to, even if at times he goes unmentioned, is Origen, followed by Ambrose, Augustine, Dionysius, Euseb of Cesarea. Lefèvre suggests St. Paul's Epistolary as an interpretative key of the NT and OT. The editorial success of his work (eight editions), though invaluable, was unluckily overshadowed by the publication, in 1516, of Erasmus' *Novum Instrumentum* (from its second edition onwards called: *Novum Testamentum*).

Erasmus follows the Humanists' historical-critical approach. We can look at his work (almost 1000 pages long) as a critical edition *ante litteram*, in that it presents the Greek text of the NT, a parallel Latin translation made by Erasmus himself, and then the *Adnotationes*.[13] The *Adnotationes* are the most precious section of the whole work: they are mainly observations on the variants of the Greek text along with their several interpretations, mostly by the Fathers of the Church. The most quoted author by far is Origen, followed by Chrysostom, Ambrose, Jerome, and Augustine. It is worth emphasizing here that a prominent place – 190 pages! more than those devoted to the Gospels – is taken by the Pauline Epistles. In the sixteenth century this work was entirely successful (reaching 205 reprints),[14] and became the *Textus receptus* of the NT! It was severely criticized too, of course: being more rhetorical than theological, Erasmus' interpretation led to serious simplifications as well as to an illusory fluency, to a secular exegesis rather than to an experience of faith. These reasons were to lead to the sharpening of Luther's radicalism, both exegetically and ecclesiastically. Moreover, by highlighting the NT's importance, and by printing it separately from the OT, Erasmus broke a centuries-old tradition, well established along the whole history of Christianity, according to which the two Testaments, printed together, were to be interpreted in mutual relationship.

However, Erasmus' deep knowledge of the Church Fathers (in the same year, 1516, he had also published Jerome's *Opera Omnia*) has greatly contributed –

[12] Guy Bedouelle, *Lefèvre d'Étaples et l'intelligence des Écritures* (Genève, 1976).

[13] *Novum Instrumentum. Basel 1516. Faksimile-Neudruck mit einer historischen, textkritischen und bibliographischen Einleitung* von Hans Holeczek (Stuttgart-Bad Cannstatt, 1986).

[14] *Bibliotheca Erasmiana, Répertoire des œuvres d'Erasme* II (Nieuwkoop, 1961), 57-64.

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let's not forget that – to a reawakening of scholarly interest in patristic exegesis. In the following years and until his death, Erasmus went on publishing the works of many other Fathers: Cyprian, Arnobius, Hilary, the Latin version of Chrysostom and Origen, Irenaeus, Ambrose and Augustine.

Conclusions

The earliest printed editions of commentaries on the Pauline Epistles from the late 15th and early 16th centuries suggest some final remarks. The first interests of scholars in the early modern period – and not only the humanists – were in the sources of the history of Christianity and in Paul's Epistles, which are the oldest documents of faith. They had the same interest in the commentaries of ecclesiastical writers and of medieval doctors.

Such recoveries of the past could be interpreted as a sign of a narrow exegetic undertaking. It must be recognized, however, that, being published before the beginning of Reformation, the publications were a basis for the Reformation, a sign of the attention paid to the Pauline Epistles in new times. One of these editions – not by chance – was printed in Wittenberg in 1515, and the editor of the text was a monk, unknown at the time, whose name was Martin Luther.

There is a second remark to make. The oldest printed editions reveal a quite precise orientation: they focus not on single Epistles or on the most important epistles of Paul, but on the *Corpus paulinum* in its entirety, a sign of the prevailing interest in the person of the Apostle and in the overall understanding of his message, instead of an analytical and historicist approach such as would follow later.

Finally, the most important innovation concerns the Pauline Epistles in connection with the overall interpretation of the Scriptures: they become an ineludible departure point. Lefèvre d'Étaples produced this recovery by starting from the tradition of the Church Fathers.

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A Patristic Figure in Early Romanian Literature: Neagoe Basarab and His Teachings to His Son Theodosie[1]

Manuela GHEORGHE, Olomouc, Czech Republic

In the first half of the sixteenth century, Gabriel the Protos, from Mount Athos, eye-witness of the consecration of the Church of the Dormition of the Mother of God in Argeş, Wallachia (the southern part of today's Romania), praises the exquisite architectural monument built by the Romanian 'voievod' Ion Neagoe Basarab: 'Şi aşa vom putea spune că nu este aşa mare şi sobornică ca Sionul, carele îl făcu Solomon, nici ca Sfînta Sofia, care o au făcut marele împărat Iustinian, iară cu frumuseţea este mai deasupra acelora.' – 'And so we shall be able to say that it is not as large and publicly important as Sion, which Solomon built, neither as Saint Sophia, built by the great emperor Justinian, but its beauty is far above those.'[2]

Gabriel the Protos wrote this in the *Life of Saint Niphon*,[3] where he marks the spiritual discipleship of the Romanian prince (1512-21) to Saint Niphon II, twice Patriarch of Constantinople (1486-9 and 1497-8) and later Metropolitan of Wallachia – of Ugrovalahia, as it was then called – (approx. 1503-4).[4] *The Teachings of Neagoe Basarab to His Son Theodosie*, the work which was to have a decisive impact on later Romanian paraenetic writings,[5] is attributed to Neagoe Basarab, who is not only founder of the church at Curtea de Argeş, but also one of the founders of the Dionysiou Monastery,[6] as well as donor of other monasteries on Mount Athos.[7]

[1] *The Teachings of Neagoe Basarab to His Son Theodosie* was written in Slavonic, then translated into Greek and, in the first part of the seventeenth century, into Romanian – see Alexandru Duţu, *Cărţile de înţelepciune în cultura română* (Bucureşti, 1972), 76.

The edition quoted in the present paper, so far the most complete Romanian edition of *The Teachings*, was published in the volume edited by Florica Moisil, Dan Zamfirescu, and Gheorghe Mihăilă, *Învăţăturile lui Neagoe Basarab către fiul său Theodosie* (Bucureşti, 1970).

[2] A. Duţu, *Cărţile de înţelepciune* (1972), 65. Quoted from: Gavril Protul, *Viaţa şi traiul Sfântului Nifon*, Tit Simedrea (ed.) (Bucureşti, 1937), 27f.

Translations into English of the material quoted in Romanian are working versions of the author of this article.

[3] *The Life of His Grace Our Father Niphon Patriarch of Constantinople* was written – originally in Byzantine Greek – by Gabriel, Protos on Mount Athos, probably between 1517 and 1521, at the request of the Romanian ruler Neagoe Basarab. See Mircea Păcurariu, *Istoria Bisericii Ortodoxe Române*, vol. 1 (Bucureşti, 1991), 40.

[4] M. Păcurariu, *Istoria Bisericii* (1991), 441f.

[5] A. Duţu, *Cărţile de înţelepciune* (1972), 66, 67, 77, 81; also Pavel Chihaia, Modele răsăritene şi modele voievodale în Ţara Românească: *Glasul Bisericii* 25 (1976) 156-75, 170.

[6] Euthymios N. Tsigaridas, in *Treasures of Mount Athos* (Thessaloniki, 1997), 107.

[7] M. Păcurariu, *Istoria Bisericii* (1991), 631f.

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This introductory information brings to light the complexity of the personality of the early sixteenth-century Romanian 'voievod', a Christian ruler, a man of letters, a founder of Christian temples, whom I have no reservations in calling a 'patristic figure' in Romanian medieval culture and literature. In the following few lines, I shall highlight those aspects in his life and writings which have led me to consider him a continuator of the patristic tradition.

The comparison made by Gabriel the Protos of Neagoe Basarab with King Solomon in the Old Testament and emperor Justinian in Constantinople has a double connotation: the author of the *Life of Saint Niphon* not only compares the beauty of the church built by Neagoe Basarab at Curtea de Argeş with that of the Jewish Temple of Solomon and of Hagia Sophia in the capital of the Byzantine Empire, but he also has in mind the wisdom of the Romanian ruler, the importance of whose *Teachings to His Son Theodosie* matches that of the Old Testament king's Book of Proverbs and that of Agapetus' teachings to the emperor Justinian.[8]

The text of *The Teachings* does not appear in a vacuum: one can find, in the library of the Romanian Academy, various manuscripts, formerly belonging to the Romanian princes' or to Romanian monastery libraries, in Greek or in neo-Greek and Romanian translations, of paraenetic works like Synesios' teachings to the Byzantine emperor Arcadius, Agapetus' teachings to the Byzantine emperor Justinian, Basil (or Pseudo-Basil) I the Macedonian's teachings to his son Leo, or Theophylact, Archbishop of Bulgaria's teachings to his disciple Constantinus Porphyrogenetus, works which used to be widely read at the Romanian princes' courts.[9]

There have been dozens of works written on the patristic sources in Neagoe Basarab's *Teachings*, the most frequently quoted ones being St John Chrysostom's or St Ephreim the Syrian's homilies and teachings, fragments from St John Climacos' works, Symeon the Monk's *On Humility*[10], and others.

Neagoe Basarab's *Teachings* have two extensive parts, each of them divided into several chapters. Each chapter contains exhortations, advice and stories illustrating it, frequently taken from the Bible (the Old and the New Testaments), from the *Physiologus* or from the Christian legend *Barlaam and Ioasaph*; there are also (variations of) quotations from patristic texts. All these are organically interspersed with prayers or, towards the end of Part II, lamentations (connected with Neagoe Basarab's imminent death). The themes recurrent all through the *Teachings*, vividly expressed in a specific rhetorical manner, concern the means of acquiring the qualities necessary to a Christan prince and to those

[8] Agapetus' teachings were widely spread in sixteenth-century Europe, including the Romanian lands, see: Ariadna Camariano-Cioran, Parénèses byzantines dans les pays roumains: *Études byzantines et post-byzantines* (1979), 117-33, 118-27.

[9] A. Camariano-Cioran, Parénèses byzantines (1979), 118-27.

[10] For a detailed analysis of the patristic sources in Neagoe Basarab's *Teachings*, see Dan Zamfirescu, Studiu introductiv, in: *Învăţăturile* (1970), 28-55.

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who surround him; they also have value as a means of achieving personal salvation: an unblemished moral life, ethical behaviour and kindness to his subjects, applying the principle of *concordia* – i.e. mutual understanding in internal governing –, seeking his elders' advice, prudence in his relationship to non-Christians, care and generosity towards the church and monastic establishments, to the poor and the widows, peace and forgiveness of one's enemies, simplicity of clothes, food, and homes, yet artistic refinement and luxuriance when it comes to feasts and celebrations, to objects and buildings dedicated to God. The cultivation of Byzantine imperial virtues and the divine authority of an anointed ruler determine the hierarchy of values which the Romanian prince advises his children and subjects to adopt.

Neagoe Basarab also has an adviser in matters of Orthodox dogmas, Manuel of Corinth, great rhetor at the Patriarchate in Constantinople at the time, whom he consults in matters of the schism between the Orthodox and the Roman-Catholics, when he envisages a possible alliance with the latter in defence against the Ottoman Empire.[11]

The impact Neagoe Basarab's *Teachings* had on later rulers can be noticed not only in the copies and translations made of his writings which they cherished,[12] but also in the way in which his Christian exhortations have inspired his followers (Pavel Chihaia speaks of 'iradierea artistică şi culturală a ctitoriei lui Neagoe, în Ţara Românească şi peste hotare' – 'the artistic and cultural irradiation of Neagoe's foundation, both in Wallachia and abroad'[13]).

Neagoe Basarab also has spiritual children, two of whom become monks[14] (in the two epistles attached at the end of his *Teachings* he writes: '[...] dragii miei fii [...], carii v-am născut pren duhul sfînt [...]' – 'my dear sons [...], whom I have begotten through the Holy Spirit [...]'[15]). Yet, the Romanian prince has had an impact not only on his followers; he was also careful to have mistakes made by his predecessors mended: in 1515 he brought St Niphon's relics from Mount Athos to Wallachia and organized a memorial service of reconciliation between his predecessor, prince Radu the Great, and the former Metropolitan of Wallachia who had parted not on very good terms.

Having briefly pointed to those aspects in Neagoe Basarab's life and cultural background which reflect his patristic approach to the world, I shall now look at the text of his *Teachings* as such.

[11] Andrei Pippidi, *Tradiţia politică bizantină în ţările române în secolele XVI-XVII* (Bucureşti, 1983), 153; P. Chihaia, Modele răsăritene şi modele voievodale în Ţara Românească (1976), 162f.

[12] *E.g.* the complete Romanian translation made for the prince Ştefan Cantacuzino. See A. Duţu, *Cărţile de înţelepciune* (1972), 77; D. Zamfirescu, Studiu introductiv, in: *Învăţăturile* (1970), 14.

[13] Pavel Chihaia, Consideraţii despre faţada bisericii lui Neagoe Basarab din Curtea de Argeş, in: *Studii şi cercetări de istoria artei* (SCIA), Seria arta plastică 16, 1 (1969), 65-84, 76.

[14] One of them, Varlaam, seems to be the same person as the future well known scholar and Metropolitan of Wallachia: see D. Zamfirescu, Studiu introductiv, in: *Învăţăturile* (1970), 24.

[15] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 350.

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What I see as being one of the main patristic aspects of the text is its focus on transfiguration, on the possibility of the deification of man, of his body, soul and mind. The essential relationship between body and soul is highlighted; Neagoe even says that the body and the soul go to rest together,[16] that we need to cleanse our bodies and have our souls transfigured 'into the light of lights'.[17]

Neagoe Basarab's teachings provide very practical advice on many aspects of a Christian's life: how to pray, how to fast, how to give alms to the poor, how to judge in court, how to reward one's servants, how to eat and drink, how to receive guests or messengers, how to negotiate in case of war, all that having to be done in an attitude of prayer, asking God for help and inspiration. The prayers and exhortations abundant in the text are the spiritual substance on which the reader can feed in order to acquire a patristic mind and to find it easier to apply them in his own life. By reading those pages of prayer, the reader is, in fact, himself praying in just the same way as the one who was dictating and/or the one who was writing.

A second patristic aspect in Neagoe Basarab's *Teachings* that I would like to emphasize is the hesychastic approach to the human person, to life, to the world. We read in the text of 'the mind of the body' and 'the mind of the soul',[18] of 'inimă dreaptă'[19] – 'a just heart', 'voirea inimii tale'[20] – 'the will of your heart', 'inimă treazvă'[21] – 'a wakeful heart'; of overcoming the evil one 'cu inimă curată şi cu minte întreagă'[22] – 'with a pure heart and a whole mind'; of 'minte curată'[23] – 'pure/clear mind', 'mintea trează'[24] – 'the wakeful mind', of 'trezvirea'[25] 'wakefulness', and of 'linişte'[26] – 'peace', 'tăcere'[27] – 'silence'. We read that 'să cade cu ochii cei dinlăuntru să vedeţi cele dinlăuntru [...]'[28] – 'with the inner eyes must you see the inner things.'

[16] '[...] de să va osteni trupul în viaţa aceasta, deacii nu va fi numai sufletul [...] miluit, ci şi trupul într-un loc cu dînsul să va odihni [...]' (*Învăţăturile*, 1970, 298f.) – '[...] if the body will make an effort in this life, not only the soul will receive grace, but the body will find rest together with her [...]'

[17] '[...] să ne curăţim [...] zmoala cea neagră şi rece după trupurile noastre şi să ne schimbăm sufletele în lumina luminilor [...]' (*Învăţăturile*, 1970, 300) – '[...] let us cleanse our bodies of the black and cold pitch and change our souls [have our souls changed] into the light of lights [...]'

[18] 'cugetul trupului iaste moartea, [...] iaste vrajbă spre Dumnezeu' – 'the mind of the body is death, [...] is enmity towards God' –, while 'cugetul sufletului iaste viaţa şi pacea' – 'the mind of the soul is life and peace' – *Învăţăturile* (1970), 136.

[19] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 315.

[20] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 274.

[21] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 269.

[22] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 247.

[23] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 235, 338.

[24] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 338.

[25] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 224.

[26] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 224.

[27] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 226.

[28] *Învăţăturile* (1970), 202.

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Another patristic aspect is the importance of the moment of man's departing from earthly life, especially in chapters XII and XIII.[29] In preparation for this unique moment, the believer is advised to make efforts to act and behave according to Christ's commandments, in order to strengthen his soul and to overcome the temptation of the evil one while he is in the body and, especially, at the moment when the soul parts from the body and becomes otherwise helpless. Hence the importance of the prayers for the departed;[30] before his impending death, Neagoe Basarab writes or dictates his own service for his departing soul (chapter XIII),[31] also fervently asking his family and friends for prayers for the salvation of his soul.

A fourth aspect I would like to highlight is the fact that the first-person narrator in Neagoe Basarab's *Teachings* emphasizes his own lack of importance, his own weaknesses as a human being. Nevertheless, this does not disqualify his teachings from being the useful advice the narrator/author means them to be, as they come from various books of wisdom.[32] It is the same principle as with icons on which the painters' names are not marked: the holy persons depicted in the icons are important, not the icon painters themselves. Releasing a painting or a piece of writing from the subjectivity of its author allows the presence of the depicted person(s) or the meaning of the text to manifest itself in full strength. The reception of the painting or of the literary text, then, depends more on the wisdom, open-mindedness, approachability of the addressee than on the human author himself.

This brings me to the last patristic aspect in *The Teachings of Neagoe Basarab* which I would like to mention here, and that is a sense of relatedness based on mutual love, the only one which can give meaning to the text transmitted in his work: 'Că pentru voi m-am silit şi m-am nevoit, şi acum, la sfîrşit, [...] iar plecai fața mea spre dragostea dumneavoastră. Că eu nu mă socotescu a fi vreun înțeleptu [...]'[33] – 'It is for you that I have tried so hard and now, at the end, I bow my face towards your love. As I do not consider myself any wise man [...].' This graceful sentence – '... now, at the end, I bow my face towards your love...' – expresses, in its conciseness, the depth of relatedness in love, the kind of relatedness which mirrors the Trinitarian relationship which he mentions as the very last words of his twelfth chapter.[34]

There is a Romanian proverb: 'Dar din dar se face raiul.' – 'Gift from gift, heaven is made.' What I have is a gift from God; I pass it on to you not as my

[29] *Învățăturile* (1970), 316-43.
[30] *Învățăturile* (1970), 316.
[31] *Învățăturile* (1970), 334-43.
[32] *Învățăturile* (1970), 332f.
[33] *Învățăturile* (1970), 332.
[34] *Învățăturile* (1970), 333.

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gift to you, but as God's gift to you through me. After having handed it down to you, I bow my head before you, 'I bow my face towards your love', *i.e.* I allow you the space and freedom to accept or not to accept this gift. And this is what I myself am doing at the end of my paper on *The Teachings of Neagoe Basarab to His Son Theodosie.*

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English and Dutch Polemical Use of Patristics and the Question of *via media* Reformed Protestantism, *c.* 1580-1615

Sara Brooks, Princeton

This paper makes a case for the study of bad patristics in the Reformation. The study of early modern patristic practice has probably never been better served by scholars than it is now. Excited by a growing attention to the history of scholarly techniques and longstanding interest in building full accounts of patristic transmission among students of early church texts, early modern patristic study has largely concentrated on scholarly achievement.[1] Nevertheless, the bulk of patristic material used in the sixteenth and seventeenth century appeared in controversial contexts. Contentious material appeared in conventional polemic and several other generic types, including ostensibly apologetic and defensive works.[2] There is much yet to understand about the part the authorities of the early church played in this type of highly politicized Reformation exchange.

Neglect of this kind of material is a consequence of Reformation scholarship's tendency to part into two streams.[3] The intellectual history of the reforms

[1] *E.g.* Irena Backus (ed.), *The Reception of the Church Fathers in the West*, 2 vols. (Leiden, 1997). A.N.S. Lane, *John Calvin, Student of the Church Fathers* (Edinburgh, 1999). Irena Backus, *Historical method and confessional identity in the era of the Reformation* (Leiden, 2003). Leif Grane, *et al.* (eds.), *Auctoritas patrum: Zur Rezeption der Kirchenväter im 15. und 16. Jahrhundert* (Mainz, 1993). L. Grane, *et al.* (eds.), *Auctoritas patrum II* (Mainz, 1998). E. Bury and B. Meunier (eds.), *Les Pères de l'Église au XVIIe siècle* (Paris, 1993). See also, Anthony Grafton, *Joseph Scaliger: A study in the history of Classical Scholarship, vol. 1*, Textual Criticism and Exegesis, 2 vols. (Oxford, 1983-93), *et alia*. This scholarship owes its inspiration to many, but most distinctly Paul O. Kristeller's reevaluation of the conception of Renaissance humanism.

[2] See Mark Edwards, *et al.*, 'Introduction,' in: M. Edwards, *et al.* (eds.), *Apologetics in the Roman Empire: Pagans, Jews and Christians* (Oxford, 1999), 1-13, which discusses the senses in which polemic and apologetic in the Reformation era fed off Roman models. See Jesse M. Lander, *Inventing Polemic, religion, print, and literary culture in early modern England* (Cambridge, 2006).

[3] See discussion of handling this customary division of attention in Euan Cameron, *The European Reformation* (Oxford, 1991), preface. Heiko A. Oberman, *Masters of the Refomation* (Cambridge, 1981). *Id.*, *The Two Reformations* (New Haven, 2003). Compare such works with the well-developed national historiographies, *e.g.*, Patrick Collinson, *The Elizabethan Puritan Movement* (London, 1967). *Id.*, *The Reformation* (London, 2003), a short work oriented toward a more popular market continues to show the marks of the division I have in mind here.

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has often been decoupled from histories of national Reformations. Moreover, as interest has shifted from theological origination or legal adoption to popular adherence of reformation, new ways of relating learned and other material have been required.[4] Here I will draw on one link between the polemical cultures of the Church of England and the Dutch Reformed Church.

There are distinct reasons to look at the way in which patristics were included in the religious polemics of protestant national churches. Controversy brings together the matters of scholarship and the business of politics, putting together patristic authority and Reformation expedience in useful ways that supersede historiographic tendencies which interpret accomplishing Reformation primarily as either the publication of ideas or the adherence to liturgical reforms. Polemic stands in the middle of conducting ideas from a more restricted to a broader audience, emblematically differentiated by Latin and vernacular publication.

I will illustrate these ideas by following Thomas Bilson's *Perpetual Government of Christ's Church,* originally published in 1593, through some of its travels in English and Dutch Reformed polemic. Bilson wrote the tract when he was the headmaster of Winchester school, and it was intended to, and did, contribute to his advancement in the church. The tract did not aim to make a general account of ecclesiology, but concentrated on church offices, building upon foundations laid by the exiled Dutch minister Adrian Saravia.[5]

Published almost simultaneously in Latin and English versions, Saravia's 1590 *De diversis ministorum evangelii gradibus* represented a turning point in English ecclesiological thought. Saravia had ministered in his home country as a presbyterian, yet this tract made a powerful argument for episcopacy as practiced in the Church of England. Prefaced with a substantial letter to the Dutch ministry and including a dispute with Theodore Beza in the body text, Saravia ignored any insular customs in English ecclesiological polemic. The tract was an attack on presbytery that took on both the idealized form disputed between English puritans and conformists, and the flaws Saravia saw in the functioning system of the Low Countries' Reformed churches. In England, with the vernacular text broadening his audience, anti-puritan polemicists quickly seized upon the tract. They recognized that it offered a justification of episcopacy that had

[4] Philip Benedict, *Christ's Churches Purely Reformed* (New Haven, 2002) attempts to combine theological accounts with a social history. Proliferating studies of areas like witchcraft and millenarianism, as well as studies such as those of Dutch localities have required improved accounts of the interaction of popular adherence, government initiative, and the availability of new intellectual approaches to Christian divinity.

[5] Adrian Saravia, *De diversis ministorum evangelii gradibus* (London, 1590). *Id., Of the diverse degrees of the ministers of the gospell* (London, 1591). For Saravia see Willem Nijenhuis, *Adrianus Saravia (c. 1532-1613)* (Leiden, 1980). Theodore Beza's response to Saravia's pamphlet is, Theodore Beza, *Ad tractationen de ministrorum evangelii gradibus* ([Geneva], 1592). On this see Tadakata Maruyama, *The ecclesiology of Theodore Beza: The reform of the true church* (Geneva, 1978).

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much greater power than the arguments from early church tradition and inertia that they had been using.[6]

The *Diverse Degrees*, as the tract was called in English, transformed the typical English conformist argument for episcopal government in 1590, which relied on Christ sanctioning a gradual and necessary adoption in church order to cope with the changes in the scale of the visible church. The course of licit change compelled English divines to attend to patristic accounts of the church. While Saravia endorsed this argument, he read in Paul what he argued was testimony of hierarchical church government in the Apostolic age. This evidence became the basis for the English *ius divino* argument for episcopacy. Yet despite the great attraction to English conformists of Saravia's argument, his style and use of authority was off-putting. *Diverse Degrees* had an alien tone next to other English conformist tracts. Unlike tracts from the late 1580s there was no mixture of authorities and reliance on historical evidence. Rather Saravia depended solely on Paul for ecclesiological justification and when he allowed patristic citations they appeared in two conventional Reformed types.[7] Either one sees patristic exegesis confirming Saravia's understanding of Pauline text, or Saravia's comments on a few patristic selections that had become touchstones of ecclesiological controversy in England over the previous ten years.[8]

Bilson recognized, like others, the brilliance of Saravia's argument for English conformist interests, but more cannily, he saw that Saravia's presbyterian baggage, especially his insistence on a preaching ministry and narrow (if invigorating) Biblicism, were not politically adroit moves in England. Bilson's work, for the most part, was to put a coat of mixed authority on Saravia's arguments that gave added historical testimony to scriptural and exegetical proof. Although hardly lacking in citations from the New Testament, Bilson used the fathers liberally moving through testimonies more by the vividness of the quotation they could offer him than chronological or exegetical criteria. He was apparently unconcerned by questions of authenticity that did not help his side of the argument, assembling dubious sources immediately next to those with unblemished transmission. In one example Bilson cited of one of Ignatius' letters at the head of his case against lay eldership. Having laid out the scriptural evidence against 1*Tim.* 5:17 sanctioning two distinct offices, he moved to Ignatius' letter to the Trallians.[9] Of course this letter is now considered attested, but

[6] *E.g.* John Bridges, *A Defence of the gouvernment established in the Church of Englande for ecclesiastical matters* (London, 1587). Richard Bancroft, *A Sermon preached at Paules Cross the 9. of Februarie being the first Sunday in the Parleament Anno 1588* (London, 1588). See W.D.J. Cargill Thompson, A Reconsideration of Richard Bancroft's Paul's Cross Sermon of 9 February 1588-9: *Journal of Ecclesiastical History* 20 (1969) 253-66.

[7] A. Saravia, *Of the diverse degrees* (1591), 5, 28-31, *et alia.*

[8] *E.g.* Jerome's preface to Titus where he mentioned post-scriptural rise of episcopacy. A. Saravia, *Of the diverse degrees* (1591), 64-6.

[9] Thomas Bilson, *The perpetual government of Christes Church* (London, 1593), 157f.

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when Bilson wrote in the early 1590s Ignatius' letters were in limbo, and hence highly controversial sources. Immediately after Ignatius Bilson turned to one of the standard patristic references on lay eldership, Jerome's Preface to *Titus* 1. This apparent randomness seems to have had some method to it. Bilson was taunting puritans whose capacity to reply had been squashed by 1593. The 'bad' patristic practice followed Bilson's observation of the political situation. He tactically tailored a more successful argument against a weakening opposition to English controversial habits derived from anti-papal works.[10] Bilson's theological complexion was commonplace Reformed; he even wrote that he disagreed not at all with the arch-Genevan Beza, except in matters of church government.[11] His flamboyantly mixed authorities were unusual for their boldness. Bilson thus sharpened the *ius divino* episcopacy argument that had so much importance in seventeenth century English history into a sharp domestic polemical rebuke.

It may, then, come as a surprise that Bilson is found in the middle of the Dutch Remonstrance controversy during the 1610s, at first courtesy of Hugo Grotius. Bilson had his *Perpetual Government* translated into Latin in 1610 as part of an unsuccessful campaign to become Archbishop of Canterbury after Bancroft's death. Grotius, who was engrossed in Dutch politics during these years, adopted *Perpetual Government* in his *Ordinum Hollandiae et Westfriesiae pietas* published in 1613.[12] Grotius' tract was encouraged, if not quite commissioned by the head of the Dutch government, Johann Oldenbarnevelt, who was Grotius' political mentor.[13] As a defense of secular authority in Dutch religious matters, the *Ordinum* drew away from the dominance of sacred sources, turning to the historic rights established in the numerous charters and historic practices known from domestic history. Bilson served Grotius' purposes because he confirmed sanction for flexibility in church institution as well as magisterial rights over the visible church out of a variety of authorities. Yet Grotius was not completely comfortable with all of Bilson's material. He was too good a textual critic to follow through with the game Bilson played with his patristic citations for the domestic audience. In direct citations from the fathers, Grotius preferred to follow the common Reformed habit of sticking to exegetical material, as Saravia had. Yet, Grotius also bent the expectations of

[10] See Thomas Bilson, *The true difference betweene Christian subiection and unchristian rebellion* (Oxford, 1585), his contribution to the anti-papal literature of the English Reformation.

[11] Bilson, *Perpetual government* (1593), 216.

[12] Hugo Grotius, *Ordinum Hollandiae ac Westfrisiae pietas* (Leiden, 1613). See now, Hugo Grotius, *Ordinum Hollandiae ac Westfrisiae pietas (1613)*, Edwin Rabbie (ed. and transl.) (Leiden, 1995). Also recently, Florian Mühlegger, Pluralization and Authority in Grotius' Early Works, in: Martin Mulsow and Jan Rohls (eds.), *Socianianism and Arminianism: Antitrinitarians, Calvinists, and cultural exchange in seventeenth-century Europe* (Leiden, 2005), 99-120; an account more involved with Grotius' text than the context of the *Ordinum*'s composition.

[13] E. Rabbie, 'Introduction', in: Grotius, *Ordinum* (1995), 1-92, 37.

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his audience with mixed authority arguments, several of which he borrowed from Bilson. Grotius used Bilson to set up an account of the church based on the works of the early historians in order to build a foundation for his municipal charters and council decrees. Such English material allowed Grotius to break free of the expectations of one type of audience for controversial tracts and attract another. Ancient authority was used less dubiously in the *Ordinum* than in Bilson's tract, but the tract delivered its targets a severe jolt by way of broadening the acceptable types of authority through new channels for drawing on early church authorities.

After Grotius introduced Bilson to the Remonstrance dispute English material appeared regularly in the ecclesiological portion of that controversy. Unlike the English controversy, where political marginalization had permitted Bilson's flippancy, the Dutch were trapped in a political deadlock. By attempting to break out of the situation, both sides evolved their polemical styles. This was where Bilson became useful to them. Bilson's breezy, contemptuous polemic reached a wider audience including the magistracy, for whom it was more attractive than heavy exegetical work. Bilson was of course not the only source of this freer style, but he became a repeated reference in Dutch ecclesiological texts through a combination of lucky timing and stylistic convenience, even though it would be difficult to find two parties in less ecclesiological sympathy among the protestant fold.

There is no denying that much of what I have outlined in this paper would be condemned as loose learning. These examples rob the fruits of patristic scholarship in order to accomplish political ends with decontextualized fathers and pilfered council decrees. Authors like Bilson are poster children, in these polemical contexts, of bad patristics. They show the constant refiguring in controversial writing of the importance of the early church. In turn that does make a point useful to both the reception history of patristics and the broader history of the Reformation. Bilson, Grotius, and those who responded to Grotius each approached the question of what the ancient church gave them in individual ways. Each could, however, absolutely assent to the polemical call to restore the purity of the ancient church. In fact this rallying cry was wholly polemical, its meaning vacant or substantial depending on context alone. This brings up the difficulty that the phrase presents for analysis of the *via media* tradition in its early days at the turn of the seventeenth century. The polemical sense that dominated 'the purity of the ancient church' set a low common denominator that inconsistent, polemic use of the early church's own authorities such as Bilson's exemplified. This is not the place to discuss the significance of this matter in full, but a fuller study of patristics in polemical divinity could well be.[14]

[14] See Sara Brooks, *The early church in the sacred and secular politics of England and the United Provinces, c. 1580-1616* (unpublished Princeton Ph.D., 2009).

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Of course it is nothing more than polemic to call the use of patristics in controversial Reformation literature 'bad patristics'. By modern lights, these appearances of the ancient church do not tell us anything about the ancient church at all. Nevertheless, they testify to the desires that drive patristic study, even if down unusual paths.

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The Use of the Church Fathers by Jeremiah II *Tranos* in His Examination of Free Will

Nicolas KAZARIAN, Paris

Introduction

The question of free will was one of the main controversies in Western Christianity from the time of Augustine through the Reformation and Counter-Reformation. These debates about free will spread beyond the West, becoming a meeting point for the discussions between Lutherans and Orthodox in the sixteenth century. The correspondence between the Lutherans from the University of Tübingen and the Orthodox Archbishop of Constantinople, Jeremiah, called the *Tranos* (1536-95), dealt with several themes, among them the important soteriological and anthropological problem of free will. Each of the protagonists had their own approach to the question, putting the emphasis on different points: the Lutherans on Augustinian interpretation of the Scriptures, and the Orthodox on the consideration of the question through the experience of Church life and in the teaching of the Fathers; in other words, in Holy Tradition.

The Lutheran position on Free will is less radical than the Calvinist doctrine of Predestination. Nevertheless the Lutheran understanding remains strongly influenced by an Augustinian anthropology in which man inherits guilt from the fall of Adam; and partakes of that guilt because of our sinful and mortal nature. Man is free according to his nature, which allows him to act in practical and intellectual life, but as far as spiritual life, which includes all matters involving God, grace, and good works, is concerned man's will remains subject to God's. This teaching is well developed in the *Augsburg Confession* (1530), and in chapter eighteen of the *Apology* of Melanchthon[1], as well as in Luther's treatise *De Servo Arbitrio*.[2] It is developed again in the letters of Jeremiah's correspondents, who state:

> And now we will also briefly express what is held by us: whether man has free will and what kind of free will (in spiritual matters and those matters which contribute to the eternal salvation of the soul), when he is either not yet reborn, or again when he is spiritually dead because of sins and has drowned in the abyss of wickedness. And,

[1] See *La Foi des Églises Luthériennes – Confessions et Catéchismes*, ed. André Birmelé et Marc Lienhard (Paris and Genève, 2003), 199f.

[2] *Luthers Werke. Kritische Gesammtausgabe* (Weimar, 1883ff.), vol. 18, 600-787.

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indeed, one must do this without neglecting to take into account how great the power of the regenerated man is (according to spiritual matters).[3]

The teaching which the Lutherans presented to the Patriarch was adapted to Eastern Christianity, particularly by the number of quotations from the Fathers. However, in this paper we shall focus on Jeremiah's use of the Fathers in his discussion of free will. We will try to present some particularities in his use of the Fathers, both quotations and references drawn from the field of sixteenth century Byzantine theology, as well as in his general response to the Lutheran world. Bearing this in mind, we will focus on the second chapter of Jeremiah's second letter, signed in May 1579, entitled: 'Περὶ τοῦ αὐτεξουσίου'.[4]

1. Free will, Scriptures and 'Chrysostomian' interpretation

Lutheran developments on the question of free will are generally grounded in the Scriptures, with their discussion of sin, death, and the very Pauline topic of the flesh: 'I of myself serve the law of God with my mind, but with my flesh I serve the law of sin'.[5] That development, however, does not depend on a specific quotation from Scripture. In his answer, Jeremiah does not forget the centrality of the Word of God, not only because it is a response to the Lutherans, who emphasize the Scriptures, but above all because of a real consciousness of the fundamental role of the Scriptures as an inexhaustible source of revelation in the life of the Church, and thus as a presupposition for every theological development. But this presupposition of the role of Word of God in theology must be taken together with the Church Fathers' interpretation. In particular, Jeremiah systematically calls on the exegetical insights of St John Chrysostom. Furthermore, his uses of Scriptures and the Church Fathers are presented as a dialogue between quotations of Scriptures and quotations of patristic interpretations.

Thus, Jeremiah writes to his Lutheran correspondents:

Therefore, Paul says in the second chapter of his Letter to the Romans: 'but by your hard and impenitent heart you are storing up wrath for yourself'.[6] Chrysostom himself

[3] *Acta et scripta theologorum Wittenbergensium et patriarchae C/politani D. Hieremiae, quae utrique ab anno MDLXXVI usque ad annum MDLXXXI, de Augustana confessione inter se miserunt: Graece et latine ad iisdem theologis edita* (Wittenberg, 1584), 162f.; Georges Mastrantonis, *Augsburg and Constantinople: The correspondence between the Tübingen theologians and Patriarch Jeremiah II of Constantinople on the Augsburg Confession* (Brookline, MA, 1982), 121.

[4] *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 224-8; Ioannes Karmires, *Τὰ Δογματικὰ καὶ Συμβολικὰ Μνημεῖα τῆς Ὀρθοδόξου Καθολικῆς Ἐκκλησίας* (Ἀθῆναι, 1952-3), 450-3; G. Mastrantonis, *Augsburg and Constantinople* (1982), 174-8.

[5] *Rom.* 7:18; see *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 164.

[6] *Rom.* 2:5.

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interprets this saying: 'Not he who judges, but he who is condemned is the cause of storing up wrath for himself and not God for him'.[7]

It seems clear in this chapter that Jeremiah puts a particular emphasis not only on the place of the Scriptures, but also on their interpretations as constituting continuity, a transmission of the Gospel, the revelation in Tradition. However, Jeremiah's argument has this limitation: the interpretation is often given more weight than the Scripture itself. On the other hand, his use of St John Chrysostom informs us of St John's doctrine on free will. Jeremiah remains very close to his predecessor on this point; his exposition of Romans and Ephesians constitutes an intrinsic unity where man is granted free will, freedom of choice, which is allotted to the soul and is responsible for our separation from God. In that anthropological perspective, sin becomes not a consequence of fate, but rather what Jeremiah calls 'obedience to wickedness ... the crime is not of necessity'.[8]

2. St Basil and free will

Chrysostom's exegesis on the subject aside, it is not easy to find a full treatment of free will in the writings of the Fathers. A researcher therefore has to start from different points in order to reveal the complexity of this topic in patristic teaching. Anthropology, the place of evil and sin in human nature, and soteriology, the activity of God in our salvation, are the major areas which deal with personal free will.

Before St John Cassian, who treated the question of free will among other themes,[9] but who is never quoted by Jeremiah, the master of this synthesis between anthropology and soteriology was and remains St Basil the Great. Jeremiah generally paraphrases quotations and references in a way that corresponds more or less faithfully to the teaching of St Basil. Furthermore, the Archbishop of Constantinople added the expression 'free will' in order to reinforce his argumentation.[10] In Greek patristic tradition, the question of free will is closely linked with anthropology, as we have already noted, and is inscribed in the image of God in human nature.[11] This subject, precious to St Basil, is widely taken up by Jeremiah in his letter. The Image of God, as a stable gift made for man, is part of his very nature. This 'natural' gift of the image opens

[7] John Chrysostom, *Commentary on Romans, Homily 5* (PG 60, 425); *Acta et Scripta*, 224.

[8] *Acta et Scripta*, 224.

[9] Jean Cassien, *Conférences 2* (Paris, 1958; SC 54), '13. De la protection de Dieu', 147-81; where Cassian makes a link between the grace of God and the freedom of man.

[10] *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 227: Ὅθεν καὶ λέγει Βασίλειος ... ἅτε μὴ κεκτημένος τὴν χάριν τῆς αὐτεξουσιότητος.

[11] See Vladimir Lossky, *The Mystical Theology of the Eastern Church* (Crestwood, NY, 1976), 115.

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to likeness, as is stressed in a spurious writing, used several times by Jeremiah, *De hominis structura*.[12] Man becomes good by willingly fulfilling the good. This good comes from God and presupposes our participation in the death and resurrection of Christ by baptism, and it cures us of evil. We show our willing attachment to God by practicing the virtues, thus striving toward the divine likeness. For St Basil, the image of God is a part of this human particularity of desire, the desire to be free.

'Why did God not create us to be sinless?' Basil asks. 'For no other reason save that one prefers either the irrational nature or the rational, and the idle and sluggish, or the willing and active, since freedom of choice is to be found in a particular act.'[13]

3. Anastasios of Sinai and 'contingency'

While the teaching of Basil on the image of God deals above all with the action of man *ad extra*, Anastasios of Sinai reflects another dimension of the Byzantine patristic tradition, adhering to ancient anthropology.

According to Anastasios, the responsibility of our will for our acts is certainly not limited by necessity, an 'essential energy'[14] as Jeremiah says; rather, our free will is inevitably conditioned by our subjection to the contingency (συμβεβηκός) of nature. God did not create man to be a sinner, and Adam's guilt is not the source of sin, as taught in Western theology. According to patristic tradition, sin leads to repercussions on the whole of creation and the environment. The mention of Anastasios of Sinai and of the question of contingency informs us of the role of human free will with regard to creation. Creation has been perverted by the sin of man. Thus human nature is predetermined (προαίρεσις) by creation, in terms of natural contingencies. The quotation of Anastasios is corroborated by the mention of the pre-Socratic philosopher Heraclitus as the foundation of ancient anthropology.

Thus, Jeremiah declares to the Lutherans:

> No one should claim that what we have said is fictitious, for there is St Anastasios of Mount Sinai who says that: 'God is not the cause of those things, but rather nature itself and the influence upon it and the working together of the four elements'[15]... Consequently, the wise Heraklitus also said, 'the drier the soul is, the wiser',[16] calling the soul here the essence of the mind.[17]

[12] Johannes Quasten, *Initiation aux Pères de l'Église* III (Paris, 1987), 314.

[13] Basil the Great, *That God is not the Cause of Evil, Homily 7* (PG 31, 345B); see *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 227.

[14] *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 225.

[15] *Anastasios of Sinai, Quaestiones 95/27* (PG 89, 733B).

[16] Heraklitos, *Frg.* 118.

[17] *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 225-6.

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4. Free will and the Synthesis of Saint John of Damascus

To close his chapter on free will, Jeremiah calls on the authority of St John of Damascus and the two last parts of the second book of his *De fide orthodoxa*. Unlike the preceding patristic quotations, Jeremiah cites John of Damascus textually. In so doing, he testifies to the Damascene's large echo in the patristic tradition, not only as a fervent defender of holy icons, but most especially as one of the first Fathers to elaborate a theological synthesis.

The quotation of St John of Damascus included by Jeremiah has a double authority in the context of his chapter on free will in response to the Lutherans. First of all, the text's authority consists in the fact that St John's theology forms part of the patristic tradition, and the fact that his teaching is a true synthesis. This is clear from the fact that on the question on free will, St John goes beyond the opposition between free will and predetermination of God (προορισμός), in order to situate the human will and freedom in the sphere of God's prescience (πρόγνωσις).

For it is necessary to be aware that while God knows all things beforehand, He nevertheless does not predetermine them all. Truly He knows beforehand those things which depend upon us; but He does not predetermine them because He does not will evil to be done, nor does He force virtue. Thus, predetermination is the work of the divine command based on foreknowledge.[18]

Conclusion

By giving a general answer to the question of free will, Jeremiah does not add any new elements to the debate. His arguments are merely an initial response to those of the Lutheran theologians. In the words of Father George Florovsky, Jeremiah's statements could be considered an 'epilogue to Byzantine theology'.[19]

With regard to our knowledge of patristic teaching, we can note several points from what has been said on the question of free will.

- In the general context of the correspondence between Lutherans and Orthodox, as we saw in the specific chapter on free will, the use of the Fathers is given a central place.
- The use of the Fathers by Jeremiah, and particularly his use of Chrysostom, is closely linked with interpretation of the Scriptures. That use gives Jeremiah's argumentation the authority of the living tradition of the Church, through his

[18] John of Damascus, *Of the Orthodox Faith* (PG 94, 969B-972A); *Acta et Scripta* (1584), 228.

[19] George Florovsky, *Christianity and Culture* (Belmont, 1974) II ch. 8 'Patriarch Jeremiah II and the Lutheran Divines', 151.

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appeal to Fathers such as Basil the Great, Anastasios of Sinai, and even St Augustine.

- We were confronted several times with the fact that Jeremiah's quotations from the Church Fathers were not literal. He felt free in using these texts, so free that it was sometimes very difficult to rediscover the original version.
- Jeremiah approaches the question of free will in several ways, each of them illustrated by a patristic quotation. In this regard, it is interesting that no mention is made of Maximus the Confessor or Gregory of Nyssa. The question remains; why is this the case? It is particularly strange considering the fact that these two are the main Fathers who deal with this specific topic, as Vladimir Lossky has shown.[20]

To close this paper, we would like to note that the topic of free will is more complex than what we have presented here. A more complete study on the foundations of the problem of free will remains to be done, approaching the question through wider patristic research, which would cover other themes such as salvation, justification, and good works.

[20] V. Lossky, *The Mystical Theology* (1976), 124.

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Happiness in Hell, Virtue in the Middle State: The Church Fathers and Some Nineteenth-Century Debates

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I.

Eschatology is a dangerous topic: among the many evidences stands the fate of three nineteenth-century figures accused of heresy for their views on the afterlife. Roman Catholic St. George Mivart met his downfall for championing 'happiness in Hell', while Protestants Philip Schaff and Charles Briggs faced heresy trials based in part on their advocacy of a Middle State between death and resurrection. All three appealed to patristic writings to bolster their claims, yet their motivations and emphases differed.[1] First, brief introductions.

St. George Mivart, born in London in 1827,[2] converted to Roman Catholicism at sixteen, a move that precluded an Oxford education. Although a zoologist by profession,[3] Mivart late in life became embroiled in a theological debate: whether Hell involved unending bodily torment for the unbaptised, the 'heathen', and those guilty of 'infidelity' to Christian doctrine. In three essays, Mivart argued that even these might have some 'happiness in hell'. Mivart refused to retract his views, and at his death in 1900, was buried in unconsecrated ground, without benefit of clergy.[4]

Philip Schaff was founder of the American Society of Church History and editor of the Nicene and Post-Nicene Fathers series. Educated in Germany, Schaff was called to America in 1844 to serve as professor at the Theological Seminary of the German Reformed Church in Mercersburg, Pennsylvania – where, running afoul of other Calvinists, he underwent two heresy trials. Emerging unscathed,

[1] See Gustave Bardy, Les Pères de l'Eglise en face des problèmes posés par l'enfer, in: Michel Carrouges, *et al.* (eds.), *L'Enfer* (Paris, 1950[?]), 147-239; Brian E. Daley, *The Hope of the Early Church: A Handbook of Patristic Eschatology* (Cambridge, 1991). For the early Fathers on the 'intermediate state' and chiliasm, see Charles E. Hill, *Regnum Caelorum: Patterns of Millennial Thought in Early Christianity* (2nd ed.; Grand Rapids and Cambridge, 2001).

[2] Jacob W. Gruber, *A Conscience in Conflict: The Life of St. George Jackson Mivart* (New York, 1960), 5, 2.

[3] J.W. Gruber, *Conscience* (1960), 9, 14-5, 17, 22-3, 27, 48.

[4] See *Under the Ban: Correspondence Between Dr. St. George Mivart and Herbert Cardinal Vaughn* (London, 1900[?]), 7. Four years later, Mivart's corpse was reburied in sacred ground (J.W. Gruber, *Conscience* [1960], 206-13).

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Schaff later joined the faculty of then-Presbyterian Union Theological Seminary in New York.[5]

Presbyterian Charles Augustus Briggs studied at the University of Berlin and joined the faculty of Union Theological Seminary in 1874. His views on Higher Criticism spurred a highly publicized trial by the Presbyterian Church in the early 1890s, one point of which concerned the Middle State.[6] Briggs later joined the Episcopal Church, which he believed entertained more 'catholicity'.[7]

II.

This trio's 'kinder, gentler' approach to the afterlife accorded well with nineteenth-century developments in penal theory that emphasized reformation rather than retribution, and with notions of human progress.[8] Hell's popularity was swiftly declining,[9] yet in England, expressing doubt about eternal punishment could result in the loss of a professorial chair (F.D. Maurice[10]) or in a heresy trial (Henry B. Wilson[11]). The afterlife was pondered in numerous writings, including Frederic Farrar's sermons, *Eternal Hope*,[12] Tennyson's *In Memoriam*, and John Henry Newman's *Dream of Gerontius*.[13]

In Germany, by contrast, the stimulus to re-examine the afterlife stemmed largely from the influence of Friedrich Schleiermacher, whom Schaff deemed

[5] David S. Schaff, *The Life of Philip Schaff* (New York, 1897), 251, 458.

[6] See 'The Final Statement of the Presbytery', in: Briggs, *Inaugural Address and Defense 1891/1893* (New York, 1972 [1891]); *The Case Against Professor Briggs* (New York, 1892); *The Case Against Professor Briggs, Part 2* (New York, 1893); *The Defence of Professor Briggs Before the Presbytery of New York* (New York, 1893; reprinted in Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address*); Max Gray, Charles Augustus Briggs: Heresy at Union, in: George H. Shriver (ed.), *American Religious Heretics: Formal and Informal Trials* (Nashville, 1966), 89-147.

[7] Charles Augustus Briggs, Catholic – The Name and the Thing: *American Journal of Theology* 7 (1903) 440-2.

[8] Geoffrey Rowell, *Hell and the Victorians: A Study of the Nineteenth-Century Theological Controversies Concerning Eternal Punishment and the Future Life* (Oxford, 1974), 13-6, 152, 4; and James H. Moorhead, 'As Though Nothing at All Had Happened': Death and Afterlife in Protestant Thought, 1840-1925: *Soundings* 67 (1984) 460.

[9] D. P. Walker, *The Decline in Hell: Seventeenth-Century Discussions of Eternal Torment* (London, 1964); J.H. Moorhead, 'As Though Nothing' (1984), 455, 457; David J. Powys, The Nineteenth and Twentieth Century Debates about Hell and Universalism, in: Nigel de S. Cameron (ed.), *Universalism and the Doctrine of Hell* (Carlisle, 1992), 93-138.

[10] Frederick Denison Maurice, On Eternal Life and Eternal Death, in: his *Theological Essays* (3rd ed.; London, 1871), 442-78. Maurice lost his chair at King's College London but became Professor of Casuistry and Moral Philosophy at Cambridge.

[11] Henry Bristow Wilson, Séances Historiques de Genève: The National Church, in: *Essays and Reviews* (7th ed.; London, 1861 [1860]), 144-206.

[12] Frederic William Farrar, *Eternal Hope* (London, 1892 [1878]).

[13] G. Rowell, *Hell* (1974), 62, 116-21; D.J. Powys, Nineteenth and Twentieth Century Debates (1992), 93-138.

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'the Origen of Germany'.[14] Schaff had lectured on Schleiermacher's theology at the University of Berlin,[15] and knew his hope for 'universal restoration'.[16] In Schaff's last address at the World Parliament of Religions in 1893, he refers to Schleiermacher as successor to Origen and Gregory of Nyssa in his hope for 'the ultimate return of all rational creatures to the God of love'.[17] Schaff and Briggs, I posit, were strongly influenced by German theology – although Farrar's sermons were discussed by American ministers, and Universalism was popular among Americans in the northeast.[18]

Various issues surfaced repeatedly in these debates. First, there was the fate of unbaptized children dying in infancy,[19] and of 'heathen adults' – 'innumerable millions' – who never heard of Christianity.[20] How could an 'advanced' theology damn such as these?[21] Morality should be based on attraction to the good, not on deterrence through terror.[22] Moreover, the character of God was at stake: a deity capable of inflicting the torments of Hell as popularly depicted would be (for Mivart) a God whom we should 'abhor, execrate and defy', less merciful than the Aztec deity, who demanded the excision of still-palpitating human hearts.[23] God, in other words, was recast as a 'cosmic humanitarian'.[24] In these arguments, the Church Fathers were enlisted, *pro* and *con*: Augustine's consignment of unbaptized infants to damnation is rejected

[14] Philip Schaff, *History of the Christian Church: Volume II* (4th ed.; New York, 1887), 612, n. 3.

[15] Philip Schaff file, Union Theological Seminary, Box 3, folder 3, Notes on Schleiermacher, 1842-3.

[16] Friedrich Schleiermacher, *The Christian Faith*, ed. H.R. Mackintosh and J.S. Stewart (Edinburgh, 1928 [1830; 1821]), 717-20, 722.

[17] Philip Schaff, *The Reunion of Christendom* (New York, 1893), 44.

[18] For New York discussions of Farrar's 'famous sermon', see Philip Schaff, *Diary*, Jan. 26, 1878 (Philip Schaff file, Union Theological Seminary, Box 4). On Universalism's popularity, see Ann Lee Bressler, *The Universalist Movement in America, 1770-1880* (Oxford, 2001).

[19] In mid-nineteenth-century Britain, about 15% of babies died within a year of birth (G. Rowell, *Hell*, 1974, 12).

[20] For Mivart: St. George Mivart, Roman Congregations and Modern Thought: *North American Review* 170.520 (1900) 569; St.G. Mivart, Last Words on the Happiness in Hell: A Rejoinder: *Nineteenth Century* 33 (1893) 641, 642. For Schaff: Philip Schaff, *Die Sünde wider den heiligen Geist und die daraus gezogenen dogmatischen und ethischen Folgerungen* (Halle, 1841), 130f., 136, 138; Ph. Schaff, The Revision of the Westminster Confession: *New York Evangelist*, Oct. 31, 1889, 5, 8f.; Ph. Schaff, 'Infant Salvation', clipping from the *Independent*, May 12, 1875 [hand-written date] (Philip Schaff file, Union Theological Seminary, Box 6, Scrapbook 1, p. 60). For 'untold millions' of heathen, see Charles Augustus Briggs, *Whither? A Theological Question for the Times* (New York, 1889), 5, 219f.; Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption After Death: *Magazine of Christian Literature* 1.3 (1889) 109-11.

[21] St. George Mivart, Happiness in Hell: *Nineteenth Century* 32 (1892), 899, 918, 919; St.G. Mivart, The Happiness in Hell: A Rejoinder: *Nineteenth Century* 33 (1893), 337.

[22] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 899. 917; *id.*, Last Words (1893), 647, 648.

[23] St.George Mivart, Some Recent Catholic Apologists: *Fortnightly Review* 67 (1900) 26; *id.*, The Happiness: Rejoinder (1893), 334, 333; *id.*, Roman Congregations (1900), 567f.

[24] J.H. Moorhead, 'As Though Nothing' (1984), 455.

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as a *dogma horrible*,[25] while Justin Martyr, Clement, and Origen are praised for teaching that the Logos may rescue the 'heathen'.[26]

Yet none of the three renounced the notion of Hell – none wished to be considered a Universalist[27] – even as they strove to limit its population to those who actively *reject* salvation.[28] Yet allegorical interpretation could soften the torment: the 'worm' and the 'fire' might signify 'the sting of conscience and of remorse'. Mivart asks rhetorically (in a phrase worthy of Tertullian), how could a single worm torment the multitudes of the damned for all eternity?[29]

Protestants Schaff and Briggs, unsurprisingly, differ from the Catholic Mivart on several points. They strongly reject the notion of Purgatory – yet fault the Protestant Reformers for putting nothing in its place when they renounced this Catholic 'superstition'.[30] Similarly, both attend more carefully to Biblical terms for afterlife-states. Discussing the phrase in the Apostles' Creed, 'he descended into Hell',[31] Schaff and Briggs object to the confusion of Hell (Gehenna, the place of the lost) with Sheol or Hades (the place of the dead).[32] Schaff so disliked the word 'Hell' in the Creed[33] that he changed it to 'Hades' in his *Catechism* for children.[34]

Yet Schaff and Briggs *differed* from many Protestants of their time in claiming as unscriptural and 'mythological' the view that the final judgment on an individual took place at death – a notion that Schaff faults as rendering the Last Judgment 'superfluous',[35] and that Briggs claims derives from 'heathen' notions of 'a god of the realm of the dead'.[36]

[25] Ph. Schaff, *History* (1887), II 255; Ph. Schaff, *Saint Augustine, Melanchthon, Neander* (New York, 1886), 98.

[26] Ph. Schaff, Three Saints of Heathenism, Part I: *Sunday School Times*, July 7, 1883 (clipping in Philip Schaff file, Union Theological Seminary, Box 6, Scrapbook 2, pp. 9, 11).

[27] Yet Schaff defended the Universalist protest against 'a gross materialistic theory of hell with all its Dantesque horrors'; Origen, Gregory of Nyssa, and Schleiermacher hope for 'the ultimate return of all rational creatures to the God of love' (Ph. Schaff, *Reunion* [1893], 44).

[28] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 138. 145; Charles A. Briggs, The Inaugural Address: The Authority of Holy Scripture, in: *id.*, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 56; St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 906.

[29] St.G. Mivart, Last Words (1893), 649-50. See Tertullian's rejoinder (*Apology* 40) to pagans shouting 'Christians to the lion!': 'What, such a multitude and one beast?'

[30] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 128f., 130; Charles A. Briggs, The Theological Crisis: *North American Review* 153 (1891) 113; Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 106, 113; *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 157.

[31] They appear not to know the *Descensus Christi ad Inferos* section of the Gospel of Nicodemus, available in Constantine Tischendorf's edition of the *Evangelia Apocrypha* (Leipzig, 1853).

[32] On terminology: Ph. Schaff, *History* (1887) II 532 n. 3; Philip Schaff, *Creed Revision in the Presbyterian Churches* (2nd ed., New York, 1890), 32; Charles Augustus Briggs, *Theological Symbolics* (New York, 1914), 63-5; *id.*, The Doctrine of the Middle State (Charles Augustus Briggs file, Union Theological Seminary, Series V, Box 25, folder 23, p. 24n).

[33] Ph. Schaff, *History* (1887), II 532 n. 3.

[34] Ph. Schaff, *Catechism for Sunday Schools and Families* (Philadelphia, 1862), 58.

[35] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 130, 134f., 145.

[36] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 107.

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Mivart, Schaff, and Briggs are thus united across confessional lines on some issues, while on others, Catholic is distinguished from Protestant, and Protestant from Protestant.

III.

First, St. George Mivart. Mivart aimed to forge a modernist English Catholicism that would appeal to the educated.[37] He faulted the Roman Church for neglecting modern developments in science;[38] the educated were abandoning Catholicism, repelled by notions of eternal hellfire for the unbaptized.[39] The 'creed of the educated of today', he predicts, 'will become the belief of the many on the morrow'.[40]

Influenced by Newman's theory of doctrinal development, Mivart argued that since the Church had updated its views on Galileo and on the burning of witches,[41] it should reconsider its teaching on Hell.[42] He mocks Catholic writers who speculate on the size of Hell (large, to hold all who will be going there) and its sulphuric properties.[43] Through most of his life Mivart championed the harmony of science and Roman Catholicism,[44] but shortly before his death, he pessimistically concluded that they were 'fatally at variance'.[45]

Mivart's strategy in arguing for 'happiness in Hell' elaborated the notion of baptism of desire to accord unbaptized infants, adult 'heathens', and some 'incapables' a limited enjoyment of a post-earthly state.[46] Since these could never rise above the natural state of their creation,[47] they have no capacity for supernatural happiness and hence will be unaware of the bliss that they are lack: such infants would have 'as little desire [for supernatural happiness] as a trout would desire to be a humming-bird'.[48] Amidst their disciplinary chastisements

[37] J.W. Gruber, *Conscience* (1960), 175.

[38] St.George Mivart, What Church has 'Continuity'?: *Nineteenth Century* 46 (1899) 211.

[39] St.G. Mivart, Last Words (1893), 646; St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 899.

[40] St.G. Mivart, Continuity of Catholicism (1899), 53.

[41] St.G. Mivart, Continuity of Catholicism (1899), 54-6. 69f.; *id.*, Modern Catholics and Scientific Freedom: *Nineteenth Century* 18 (1885) 37-40.

[42] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 899; St.G. Mivart, The Happiness: Rejoinder (1893), 325.

[43] St.G. Mivart, Last Words (1893), 645.

[44] See St.G. Mivart, Modern Catholics (1885), 46f., 35; St. George Mivart, The Index and My Articles on Hell: *Nineteenth Century* 202 (1893) 985.

[45] St. George Mivart, Correspondence with Cardinal Vaughn: *Times* [of London], Jan. 23, 1900, cited in: J.W. Gruber, *Conscience* (1960), 189.

[46] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 900, 904.

[47] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 904f.

[48] St.G. Mivart, Roman Congregations (1900), 569. Mivart's analogy is reminiscent of Thomas Aquinas' claim (regarding the same point) that '*nullus sapiens homo affligitur de hoc quod non potest volare sicut avis vel quia non est rex vel imperator*' (*Scriptum super Sententiis*, lib. 2d. 33q. 2a. 2co).

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in Hell, such may enjoy the highest degree of natural happiness of which they are capable. A benevolent God, Mivart posited, would not allow them to suffer from a desire for a happiness that they cannot even imagine.[49] These views, Mivart insisted, were not novelties, but standard Catholic teaching.[50]

Mivart appealed to the Church Fathers to bolster his case – and here his troubles began. He cites Augustine's acknowledgment of ignorance of hellfire's meaning (*City of God* 20.16)[51] to silence those who seem overly informed on that topic,[52] and Augustine's view (*Enchiridion* 110) that 'the sacrifices of the altar' and alms may assist the baptized dead.[53] Augustine (*Enchiridion* 112), Gregory Nazianzen, and John Chrysostom [no references given][54] are invoked as teaching that God may mitigate the pains of the lost, even while continuing their eternal punishment.[55] Mivart also summons Augustine (*City of God* 11.26.27, *On Free Will* 3.6-8) to argue that the damned prefer an existence in Hell to no existence at all.[56] Tellingly, Mivart passes over Augustine's critique of Origenist views on Hell, which clearly did not fit his purpose.[57] In addition, Mivart cites lines from an ancient hymn (Prudentius, *Liber Cathemerinon* V 125-36 that even souls in Hell have some respite on the night when the Lord came to the world above) to bolster his argument for the mitigation of their sufferings.[58] At the end of his life, however, Mivart renounced his appeal to the Fathers, now blaming Cyprian, Gregory, Chrysostom, and Augustine for afflicting Christian minds with terrifying visions of eternal hellfire.[59]

Mivart's most learned opponent, Jesuit Richard F. Clarke, attacked Mivart at his weakest point: his solicitation of patristic writers to argue that the condition

[49] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 918f., 899, 905.

[50] St.G. Mivart, The Happiness: Rejoinder (1893), 320. Mivart protested that the editors' omission of 'The' before 'Happiness in Hell' in his original title made it seem as if he were introducing a new teaching. The debate over Mivart's essays raged in letters to the editor of the *Tablet* throughout December 1892 and January 1893.

[51] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 906.

[52] St.G. Mivart, Last Words (1893), 643.

[53] Augustine, *ench.* 29.110 (CChr.SL 46, 108-9) – but do not help those who neglected to obtain any merit while alive.

[54] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 906, perhaps alluding to Chrysostom's *Homily 3 on Philippians* 4 (PG 62, 203-4). For Gregory Nazianzen, perhaps *Oration* 40.23 (PG 36, 389).

[55] St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 906, citing Augustine, *ench.* 29.112 (CChr.SL 46, 109-10).

[56] Augustine, *ciu.* XI 26 (CChr.SL 48, 346); Augustine, *lib. arb.* III 6.18-III 8.23 (CChr.SL 29, 285-89, cited in St.G. Mivart, The Happiness: Rejoinder (1893), 335. Mivart also possibly alludes to *c. Iul.* V 11.44: unbaptized infants who die will suffer 'the lightest condemnation of them all'.

[57] See Augustine, *ciu.* XXI 17-27. Mivart's 'happiness in Hell' thus differs from the aesthetic 'pleasure' that Augustine imagines in the symmetry of eternal bliss with hellish torment: see Thomas A. Smith, The Pleasure of Hell in *City of God* 21: *Augustinian Studies* 30 (1999) 195-204, esp. 200-3.

[58] Prudentius, *Liber Cathemerinon* V 125-36 (CSEL 61, 30), cited in: St.G. Mivart, Happiness (1892), 906 (without identification).

[59] St.G. Mivart, Roman Congregations (1900), 566.

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of the damned in Hell might be ameliorated and that the damned 'prefer their existence... to non-existence'.[60] Clarke charges Mivart, 'our amateur theologian', with not having read the patristic sources himself, so badly does he misrepresent them.[61] A strong proponent of 'deterrence', Clarke defends traditional depictions of hell as useful in keeping Christians – educated as well as uneducated – on the straight and narrow path.[62]

Clarke then focuses on Mivart's misrepresentations. *Enchiridion* 110 (that the sacrifices of the living may provide respite to the dead) cannot refer to those in *Hell*, for only souls in Purgatory can be so assisted. Nor does *Enchiridion* 112 (that the pains of the damned are periodically mitigated) imply that 'the lost' will eventually be among the blessed.[63] Mivart's invocation of *City of God* (I 26.27) and *On Free Will* (3.6-8) to argue that the damned in Hell prefer an existence there to no existence at all is likewise demolished: in *City of God*, Augustine refers simply to *this* life; and in *On Free Will*, Augustine merely argues that 'a man who says he prefers non-existence to his unhappy lot is a liar'. Neither passage supports Mivart's case.[64]

Clarke likewise faults Mivart's solicitation of Chrysostom to argue that dead sinners may be helped by the prayers of the faithful: such prayers apply *only* to those who died in the faith, not to 'heathen' and unbaptized infants. Passing over Mivart's vague allusion to Gregory Nazianzen, Clarke addresses his citation of Prudentius' hymn. How much of a boon, Clarke asks, can it be for the damned to receive repose on a single night? Not much: the thought of their return to 'excruciating agony' would preclude much relief.[65] Clarke faults Mivart for encouraging overly optimistic views of the afterlife, thus doing 'immeasurable mischief to the souls of men'.[66] Unrepentant and bitter, Mivart died an outcast to the Roman Church – which presumably deemed that he would *not* be 'happy in Hell'.

IV.

Philip Schaff's more generous assessment of Christianity's ancient and medieval past offended some American Protestants, who deemed the Roman Church 'Anti-Christ'. Two accusations of heresy were lodged against Schaff his first years in America.[67] In 1846, he was examined by the Board of Visitors of the

[60] R.F. Clarke, S.J., Happiness in Hell: A Reply: *Nineteenth Century* 33 (1893) 83.
[61] R.F. Clarke, Happiness (1893), 86, 92.
[62] R.F. Clarke, Happiness (1893), 83f., 91.
[63] R.F. Clarke, Happiness (1893), 85f.
[64] R.F. Clarke, Happiness (1893), 88f.
[65] R.F. Clarke, Happiness (1893), 86f.
[66] R.F. Clarke, Happiness (1893), 92.
[67] In 1845, Schaff's *Principle of Protestantism* was attacked; see: Dr. Schaff's Reply and Farewell to the Synod, in: *The Semi-Centennial of Philip Schaff* (New York, 1893), 25f. For

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German Reformed Church on his dissertation, *The Sin Against the Holy Ghost*.[68] One charge concerned the Middle State.

In the summer of 1846, the section of Schaff's thesis concerning the Middle State had been translated and published in a Dutch Reformed newspaper in America – and a furor erupted.[69] Schaff, in response, accused the translator of 'malignity' and faulted his translation skills, while lauding the freedom allowed for scholarly speculation in Germany. Calling his thesis a 'juvenile' work [written when he was 20], Schaff conceded that he would *now* [at 26] treat the subject more carefully and thoroughly. Yet why, he asks, does the 'Inquisition' fulminate over an essay composed before he 'ever dreamed of seeing the shores of the United States', or [he adds a tad condescendingly] had ever heard of Mercersburg?[70]

Schaff's *Sin Against the Holy Ghost* explicates *Matthew* 12:31-2, the sin against the Holy Spirit that is not forgivable, 'either in this age or in the age to come'. What is 'the age to come'? Rejecting the notion of Purgatory, Schaff opts for a Middle State falling between an individual's death and the Last Judgment; only at the end will a final assignment to Heaven or Hell be made.[71] Schaff cites *Luke* 16 (the parable of the Rich Man and Lazarus), with its reference to 'Abraham's bosom', and 1*Peter* 3:19 and 4:6 (Christ's preaching to the spirits 'in prison', and proclaiming the gospel to the dead). Christ's saving work, Schaff believes, reaches even to Hades.[72]

Schaff pressed for a Middle State as a way to ameliorate the fate of both ancient and modern 'heathen'. Despite Scripture's silence on *how* the Gentiles were to be saved, Schaff asks, who would wish to damn such pagan worthies as Aeschylus, Pindar, Sophocles, Socrates, Plato, Plutarch, and Marcus Aurelius, who never heard a word of the Gospel, or Old Testament 'Gentiles' such as Rahab, Job, and Ruth? Only 'Rigorists', 'unthinking people', or those with a 'misinterpreted Orthodoxy' ['missverstandener Orthodoxismus'].[73] Referring to the pagan Cornelius who became a Christian through Peter (*Acts* 10), Schaff

various charges, see: Appendices F and G in John Charles Meyer, *Philip Schaff's Concept of Organic Historiography as Related to the Development of Doctrine* (Ph.D. dissertation, Catholic University of America, Washington, D.C., 1968, 277-80); also in: George Warren Richards, *History of the Theological Seminary of the Reformed Church in the United States, 1825-1934; Evangelical and Reformed Church, 1934-1952* (Lancaster, Pa., 1952), 251-4.

[68] George Shriver, *Philip Schaff: Christian Scholar and Ecumenical Prophet* (Macon, Ga., 1987), 21-8; also, Shriver, Philip Schaff: Heresy at Mercersburg, in: *American Religious Heretics*, 18-55; J.Ch. Meyer, *Philip Schaff's Concept* (1968), 65.

[69] The Intermediate State – From Dr. Schaf's Work – 'Sin Against the Holy Ghost': *Christian Intelligencer* 16.52 (July 9, 1846), 206. Schaff originally spelled his name with one 'f'.

[70] Philip Schaff, Letter to the Editors: *Christian Intelligencer* 17.2 (July 23, 1846) 6. Schaff rather tellingly adds that he had insisted that his thesis not be translated.

[71] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 146, 125, 127; *id.*, *History* (1887) II 605.

[72] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 135f., 140, 141.

[73] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 139, 137f.; *id.*, *Creed Revision* (1890), 28-9.

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rhetorically asks, with what justice do we eternally condemn someone who did not *have* a 'Peter'?[74] Those with no opportunity to learn of eternal life – the 'heathen' and Turks, as well as paganizing Christians, such as the Armenians and the Abyssinians – will receive a 'time of grace' in the Middle State.[75] Likewise, Christians who have fallen short in their communion with Jesus will be granted a reformatory 'schooling' after death – while true believers will enjoy a further perfecting, an 'ever-deeper sinking in the being of God'.[76]

Schaff invokes the Fathers – but enlists passages about a purifying fire (especially from Clement of Alexandria[77] and Origen[78]) that most Catholics would take as way-stations in the development of the doctrine of Purgatory. He also cites Tertullian's *De anima* 58 (the souls shut up in Hades await a judgment to 'gloom' or to 'glory'),[79] and claims Tertullian's interpretation of *Matthew* 5:25-6 (those who from 'prison' may be required to pay the 'last farthing' as souls in Hades).[80] Schaff notes Augustine's suggestion (*City of God* XXI 24) that prayers of the living may benefit some dead, even though there is no ultimate escape from Hell.[81] In addition, he cites Gregory the Great (*Dialogue* 4): lighter sins 'in the age to come' can be purged through tribulation by fire.[82] Rather than interpret this place as Purgatory, however, Schaff claims it for a Middle State, stripped of Catholic features.

At his trial,[83] Schaff rebutted the charge that his embrace of the Middle State was unscriptural and Catholicizing, while acknowledging that his discussion was unsatisfactory. Yet he retains the Middle State only as a *'hypothesis'*: if those heathens and infants are to be saved, they *must* have Christ 'exhibited to them'. But, Schaff concedes, this obscure subject cannot 'ever be made the subject of doctrinal teaching'.[84] The examiners were satisfied with Schaff's explanation and did not deem the matter of 'sufficient importance to call for

[74] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 140.

[75] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 145.

[76] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 146, 147, 144.

[77] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 126, listing Clement of Alexandria, *Stromateis* VII 6.34.4 (GCS 17 = Clement 3, 27). References to critical editions of texts are mine.

[78] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 126, listing Origen, *Hom. in Lucam* 14.6 (GCS 45 = Origen 9, 88-89); *Contra Celsum* V 15-6 (GCS Origen 2, 16-17); *Homily 1 on Ezekiel* (probably chap. 13 [SC 352, 88]).

[79] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 126, listing Tertullian, *De anima* 58.1-2 (CChr.SL 2, 867-8).

[80] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 126, listing Tertullian, *De anima* 58.8 (CChr.SL 2, 869).

[81] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 126-7, citing Augustine, *ciu.* XXI 24 (CChr.SL 48, 789-91).

[82] Ph. Schaff, *Sünde* (1841), 127, citing Gregory the Great, *Dialogus* IV 39 (PL 77, 393, 396): the sin against the Holy Spirit, however, will not be forgiven in either age.

[83] [Anonymous], Dr. Schaff's Second Trial for Heresy: *Reformed Church Messenger* 66.40 (Oct. 6, 1898) 2f.; also Appendix H, in: J.Ch. Meyer, *Philip Schaff's Concept* (1968), 281f.

[84] See Schaff's declaration in [Anonymous], Dr. Schaff's Second Trial (1898), 2 (also in J.Ch. Meyer, *Philip Schaff's Concept* [1968], 281f.); Ph. Schaff, *Semi-Centennial* (1893), 26; J.Ch. Meyer, *Philip Schaff's Concept* (1968), 81-3.

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any special action' of their synod. His view, they are sure, has not been taught, and will never 'be taught in the Theological Seminary'.[85]

That Schaff *did* teach about the Middle State in the Theological Seminary of the German Reformed Church is clear from course notes dating to 1859-60, now in the archives at Lancaster Theological Seminary.[86] Schaff instructs his students that the Middle State 'between the time of death and the general resurrection', the region of the dead, is called Sheol in the Old Testament and Hades in the New Testament.

'The general fact of such an intermediate state cannot reasonably be denied. If denied it makes the general judgment mean nothing – makes it a mere formality, which has no such basis in the Bible. The general resurrection & judgment imply that there must be a state difference before & after this dividing line.'

Roman Catholics, Schaff continues, call this state Purgatory, for 'those who are too good for Hell & yet unfit for Heaven'. Yet as 'a state of probation', Purgatory has no basis in Scripture.

'Protestant Theology acknowledges but two states Heaven & Hell & denies the purgatory of Catholicism, but in denying this they do not necessarily deny the existence of a middle state. It holds that such a state... exists for all men good & bad.... May there not be an intermediate state for those who have never had the advantage of becoming Christian?'[87]

That Schaff's students discussed the Middle State is shown by the minutes of the Mercersburg Seminary student debating society. From 1845 to the 1860s, students debated whether the Bible does or does not afford 'grounds to believe that some opportunity of salvation will be provided for those persons who have died without ever hearing of the Gospel';[88] whether *all* persons dying in infancy are saved;[89] on four occasions, 'whether an intermediate state is scriptural';[90] whether the phrase 'descended into Hell' in the Creed means Purgatory;[91] whether

[85] Report of the Board of Visitors to the Synod of Carlisle, Pennsylvania in 1846, in: [Anonymous], Dr. Schaff's Second Trial (1893), 2.

[86] Ph. Schaff, Church History Notes; Symbolical & Polemical Theology, taken by Edmund Rishel Eschbach, Lancaster Theological Seminary, Ms. Coll. 163, Box 4, ff. 4, 'Eschatological Notes' section, 9-11 [pagination by someone other than Eschbach]. The following discussion is almost verbatim from the notes. I thank Elizabeth Thayer for locating these notes for me.

[87] All the above from Philip Schaff, Church History Notes; Symbolical & Polemical Theology; Eschatological Notes, 9-11. Also see George H. Shriver, jr., *Philip Schaff's Concept of Organic Historiography Interpreted in Relation to the Realization of an 'Evangelical Catholicism' Within the Christian Community* (Ph.D. Dissertation, Duke University, 1960), 47, 50f.

[88] Willard W. Wetzel, *Debates and Discussions in the Society of Inquiry* (B.D. thesis, Theological Seminary of the Evangelical and Reformed Church, Lancaster, Pennsylvania, 1954), 21: 10 nay and 1 yea.

[89] W.W. Wetzel, *Debates* (1954), 23: 1 yea, 2 nay, 7 undecided.

[90] W.W. Wetzel, *Debates* (1954), 23f., with varying yea and nay votes.

[91] W.W. Wetzel, *Debates* (1954), 24: resoundingly nay.

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'some of the children of the heathen will be saved'.[92] Such discussions reveal both Schaff's influence and the concerns that fired the debates.

Schaff aimed to counter the popular view of an immediate judgment upon death, a notion that vacated the importance of the Last Judgment. The Middle State, by contrast, provided an alternative that left in place the centrality of this New Testament teaching. The Church Fathers, for their part, could be summoned to reinforce the Biblical argument. Unlike Mivart, Schaff emerged unscathed from *his* heresy trials, received international renown – and, thirty years later, argued publicly for the salvation of *all* babies dying in infancy.[93]

V.

Charles Augustus Briggs' interest in the Middle State, unlike Schaff's, centered largely on theological and ethical considerations. The occasion that spurred Briggs' heresy trial was the inaugural address he delivered as the new Edward Robinson Professor of Biblical Theology at Union Seminary.[94] Rather impolitically, Briggs criticized the 'unchurchly' quality of American Protestantism,[95] Protestant 'Bibliolatry' (no better than Roman Catholic Mariolatry),[96] verbal inspiration of the Bible,[97] and the traditionally-assigned authorship of some biblical books,[98] before focusing on Protestants' restrictive view of redemption. He expanded a *Calvinist* notion of sanctification to claim sanctification after death for 'a considerable portion of our race'.[99] 'Progressive sanctification after death', Briggs insists, 'is the doctrine of the Bible and the Church'.[100]

In Briggs' view, Protestants concentrate too heavily on the *beginning* of the redemptive process, justification, and neglect sanctification.[101] They ignore both the time that the Middle State would provide for sanctification, *and* the creedal

[92] W.W. Wetzel, *Debates* (1954), 116: 8 yea, 6 undecided – but no nay's.

[93] Philip Schaff, untitled article on infant damnation and baptism, clipped from the *Independent*, May 12, 1875 [date written in by hand] (Philip Schaff file, Union Theological Seminary, Box 6, Scrapbook 1, p. 60).

[94] See: The Establishment of the Edward Robinson Chair of Biblical Theology, in: *Inaugural Address*, 1f. Charles Briggs' daughter, Emilie Grace Briggs, states that her father was the first American to give and publish a lecture course on Biblical theology (Charles Augustus Briggs, *History of the Study of Theology*, prepared for publication by Emilie Grace Briggs, B.D. [New York, 1916], II 192, 192 n. 2).

[95] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 25.

[96] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 30.

[97] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 31-3.

[98] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 33.

[99] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 111f.

[100] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 53f. For Calvin on sanctification, *Institutes of the Christian Religion* III 3.1, III 6.2-3, III 11.6, III 16.1, and III 22.3.

[101] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 52-3.

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confession of Christ's descent into Hades.[102] Even the alleged heroes of the Old Testament need post-death assistance, given their execrable morals. Citing Old Testament examples (and sounding remarkably like Faustus the Manichean), Briggs declares that if Noah, the patriarchs, David, and Solomon lived in our time, we would not accept them into our families, and 'might be obliged to send them to prison, lest they defile the community with their example'. The teaching of the Middle State rescues these sinners: there, they might advance in 'the school of sanctification'.[103]

Briggs presented over thirty pages of material on the Middle State as evidence at his trial.[104] Having earlier written on the topic, he was well-armed with references for his defence. From at least 1883,[105] Briggs had been collecting testimonies to the Middle State. Sections of his book, *Whither? A Theological Question for the Times* (1889),[106] articles ('Redemption After Death' [1889],[107] 'The Theological Crisis' [1891]),[108] and an Appendix to his inaugural address (1891) all detail the Middle State.[109] After the trial, in 1897, he published 'Salvation After Death'.[110]

In these writings, Briggs solicits Hebrew and Greek philology regarding names of afterlife states (Sheol, Hades, Gehenna) to argue that the Middle State is well-grounded in the Bible. The ancient church likewise endorsed the notion,[111] expressed in its confession of the 'communion of saints'.[112] Briggs also argues that traditional Christianity has wrongly limited the extent of Divine love to *this* world.[113] 'God's electing grace' will save *all* infants and some heathen,[114] who in the Middle State can be justified, sanctified, and glorified.[115]

Briggs, like Schaff, argues that sanctification does not occur immediately at death:[116] perfect holiness will come only at the Day of Judgment.[117] Briggs here appeals to the psychology of human development. Imagining that infants, 'incapables', and adult heathens achieve an instant 'metamorphosis' at death violates

[102] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 53-4, 61.
[103] Ch.A. Briggs, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 56f.
[104] *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 151-82.
[105] Ch.A. Briggs, Doctrine of the Middle State, file dated April 5, 1883.
[106] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 195-208.
[107] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 105-16.
[108] Ch.A. Briggs, Theological Crisis (1891), 99-114.
[109] Ch.A. Briggs, Appendix, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 100-11.
[110] Ch.A. Briggs, Salvation After Death: *Church Union* 24.10 (1897) 297-300.
[111] *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 157, 169, 174, see B.E. Daley, *Hope* (1991), 220.
[112] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 115.
[113] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 105f.
[114] Ch.A. Briggs, Theological Crisis (1891), 112f.
[115] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 137; see *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 178-9; Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 105.
[116] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 147; Ch. A. Briggs, *Theological Symbolics* (1914), 66f.
[117] *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 156.

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'the intellectual and moral constitution of man'.[118] 'Shall a babe become a man in an instant? Shall a savage become a philosopher in a moment?' he rhetorically asks.[119] The notion of a Middle State frees the mind both from 'the terror of a judgment immediately after death, and [from] the illusion of a magical transformation in the dying hour'.[120] Briggs' view resonates with late nineteenth-century American Protestants' notion that death is a 'mere episode in the self's never ending improvement and aggrandizement'.[121]

The Middle State as 'a school for sanctification', 'a heavenly university', offers hope to the living and consoles the suffering and dying.[122] Yet there will be educational gradations among the 'students': 'It is improbable that Augustine, Calvin and Luther will be found in the same class-room as the redeemed negro slave or the babe that has entered heaven today. The Fathers and doctors of the Church will be the teachers of the dead'.[123] Briggs' stress on the educative nature of the Middle State resonates with his esteem for the Alexandrian Fathers.[124]

The Middle State is neither Purgatory nor a period of 'probation',[125] an Arminian notion adopted by some Protestants who accorded more to the role of human effort in salvation.[126] Rather, humans' one probation met failure in Adam's 'fall'. Now, all humans lie under a curse that requires redemption through Christ.[127] Christians should trust Christ's grace to save *all*, rather than adopt unsubstantiated notions of 'probation'.[128]

Yet Christians progressing in sanctification, Briggs speculates, may assist the salvation of the heathen: any man with 'a spark of heroism' would rather labor for their redemption than 'pass centuries in a dreary state of existence in Paradise, or live a life of ease and selfish gratification in the heights of heaven'.[129] Briggs' Middle State, despite his rejection of Arminianism, appears

[118] Ch.A. Briggs, Appendix, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 102f.

[119] Ch.A. Briggs, Appendix, *Inaugural Address* (1972 [1891]), 106.

[120] Ch.A. Briggs, Theological Crisis (1891), 113; Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 106, 113; *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 157.

[121] J.H. Moorhead, 'As Though Nothing' (1984), 466.

[122] Ch.A. Briggs, Theological Crisis (1891), 113. The image of the afterlife as a 'school' was popular among Universalists: see A.L. Bressler, *Universalist Movement* (2001), 136 (although heaven might have an 'open admission' policy, 'student performance could be expected to vary widely').

[123] *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 168; Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 114f.

[124] Ch.A. Briggs, *History of the Study of Theology* (1916), I 87. 91 on Origen; II 199-200 on Clement; *id.*, Origin and History of Premillenarianism: *Lutheran Quarterly Review* 9 (1879) 29-31, 36f.

[125] Ch.A. Briggs, Theological Crisis (1891), 113.

[126] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 105; *id.*, Appendix, 'Inaugural Address', 111; *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 175f. Briggs especially faults Andover Seminary theologians; see Egbert C. Smyth *et al.* (eds.), *Progressive Orthodoxy* (Boston, 1892), 179.

[127] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 217, 220f.

[128] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 221; Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 107-9.

[129] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 109.

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to incorporate the so-called 'Protestant work-ethic': there, in the Middle State, he writes, we shall be industrious, just as here, we are spurred to holy activity, not lazing about, as is encouraged by the notion of immediate sanctification at death.[130] Christians who fail to offer the Gospel to the world will be more severely judged than those 'who need the Gospel and have it not'. On Judgment Day, Briggs warns, it may be more tolerable for 'Pekin [sic], Calcutta, and Tokio [sic] than for London, New York, and Chicago'.[131] Still, 'some wretched creatures' will meet with everlasting damnation – but for 'the human race as a whole', there will be 'everlasting bliss'.[132]

Since Scripture did not fully elaborate the Middle State, Briggs concedes, Christians from early times filled in the gaps.[133] Briggs amasses numerous references, an 'impressive patristic consensus':[134] the *Letter of Polycarp to the Philippians* 9 (honoring predecessors now 'in the place due them with the Lord');[135] *Shepherd of Hermas* IX 16 (apostles and others preach to those 'asleep' in Hades)[136] – affirmed by Clement of Alexandria in *Stromateis* II 9;[137] Eusebius in *Ecclesiastical History* I 13.20 (citing Thaddeus of Edessa's preaching of Christ's descent to Hades);[138] Irenaeus, *Against Heresies* I 27.3 (Marcion's false teaching on those in Hades who were saved by Christ),[139] and IV 22.1 (Christ's descent to Hades);[140] Justin, *Dialogue with Trypho* 72 (the Jews excised from Scripture a passage from Jeremiah predicting the Lord's raising the dead from the underworld).[141] 'The Fathers', Briggs writes, 'are unanimous so far as we know in extending the work of Christ's redemption unto Hades to the saints of the Old Testament; but they differ in their comprehensiveness', by which he means, the extent to which they extend salvation to persons *other* than the

[130] *The Defence of Professor Briggs* (1893), 180.

[131] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 4f.

[132] Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 109.

[133] Ch.A. Briggs, Doctrine of the Middle State, file dated April 5, 1883, 24; *id.*, Redemption (1889), 109.

[134] Ch.A. Briggs, *Whither?* (1889), 209; *id.*, *Theological Symbolics* (1914), 66.

[135] Polycarp, *Letter to the Philippians* 9 (J.B. Lightfoot, *The Apostolic Fathers, Part II, 3* [Hildesheim, 1973 (1889)], 338). Briggs mistakenly assigns the text to Ignatius, but this notion is not found in the spurious letter of Ignatius to the Philippians.

[136] *Shepherd of Hermas, Similitude* IX 16.5 (Loeb Classical Library, *Apostolic Fathers* II, ed. Kirsopp Lake [Cambridge, Mass., 1976], 262), cited in: Ch.A. Briggs, Redemption (1889), 109.

[137] Clement of Alexandria, *Stromateis* II 9.43.5 – II 9.44.4 (GCS 15, 136). The following list from Ch.A. Briggs, Doctrine of the Middle State, file dated April 5, 1883, 24a-f. (See *Stromateis* VI 6.45.1 – VI 6.52.2 [GCS Clement 2, 454-8]).

[138] Eusebius, *Ecclesiastical History* I 13.20 (GCS Eusebius 2, 96), from the *Doctrina Addai* (= Thaddeus).

[139] Irenaeus, *Against Heresies* I 27.3 (SC 264, 352).

[140] Irenaeus, *Against Heresies* IV 22.1 (SC 100, 686, 688), citing *Eph.* 4:9, and bolstered by a (false) citation from Jeremiah on the Lord descending to 'dead Israel' in Hades.

[141] Justin Martyr, *Dialogue with Trypho* 72.4 (PTS 47, 195, ed. M. Marcovich), cited in: Ch.A. Briggs, Doctrine of the Middle State, file dated April 5, 1883, 24a-f.

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ancient Hebrews. Clement, Briggs notes, allows for the salvation of the heathen – as do (he claims) Origen (*Against Celsus* II 43, Christ's converting the willing in Hades[142]); Eusebius (*Demonstration of the Gospel* IV 12, Christ's freeing the souls of 'sleepers' from death[143]); Hilary (*In Psalm 118*.11.3, the Lord exhorts holy ones resting '*in inferno*'[144]); Jerome (*In Job*, on *Job* 36:8, the fettered ones experiencing temporal penalties[145]); Jerome, (*In Hosea* 3, Christ's freeing all by his descent into '*infernum*'[146]); and Cyril of Alexandria (*Paschal Homily* 11, Christ's preaching to and saving spirits in Hades[147]).[148] Briggs also mentions Aphrahat (*Demonstrations* 22, Jesus' descent to despoil Death and raise some 'sleepers'[149]). And if *ancient* pagans are rescued, there is hope for contemporary 'heathen'.[150] Modern interpreters, Briggs concludes, who deny that the Bible and the early Fathers support the notion of a Middle State are simply wrong.[151]

Union Seminary broke with the Presbyterian Church over the Briggs' trial,[152] and Charles Briggs went on to a productive professorial life as an Episcopalian.

VI.

How do I assess these positions? Mivart could have supported some of his argument *without* his dubious patristic references, appealing rather (for example) to Thomas.[153] Mivart's criticism of the Vatican (its reluctance to embrace modern science, its condemnation of the 'higher' Biblical criticism, and its promulgation of papal infallibility) had previously piqued Catholic authorities; his 'happiness in Hell' articles offered one more occasion for their attack.

Schaff rested *his* affirmation of a Middle State mainly on the Biblical teaching that only at the Last Judgment will the saved and the damned be separated. Biblical allusions to 'Abraham's bosom' and to Christ's preaching in the underworld required some interim place for the dead. Schaff's appeal to the Church

[142] Origen, *Contra Celsum* II 43 (GCS Origen 1, 166).

[143] Eusebius, *Dem. ev.* IV 12 (GCS 23 = Eusebius 6, 169-70).

[144] Hilary of Poitiers, *Tractatus in Psalmum* 118.11.3 (CChr.SL 61A, 102).

[145] Jerome, *Comm. in Iob* (*Job* 36:8 [PL 26, 778]).

[146] Jerome, *Comm. in Osee* III (*Hos.* 13:14 [PL 25, 937]).

[147] Cyril of Alexandria, *Homilia Paschalis* 11.8 (PG 77, 664-5).

[148] All in: Ch.A. Briggs, Doctrine of the Middle State, file dated April 5, 1883, 24g.

[149] Aphrahat, *Demonstrationes* 22.4 (Fontes Christiani 5/2, 501-2).

[150] Several patristic references Briggs lists either are too vague to be identified or do not 'check out'; probably he copied his list from another source.

[151] Ch.A. Briggs, *Theological Symbolics* (1914), 66f.

[152] See: Free From the Assembly: *New York Times*, Nov. 17, 1892, clipping pasted into Briggs' Scrapbooks (Charles A. Briggs file, Union Theological Seminary, Series 29, subseries 1, Box 2, Scrapbooks, V.47).

[153] Thomas Aquinas, *Scriptum super Sententiis*, lib. 2d. 33q. 2a. 2 co and 2 ad 5; *De malo* q.5, a.3.

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Fathers simply supplemented his Biblical argument. Yet he, like Briggs, discounted the notion of Purgatory, which implied a form of 'works-righteousness'.

Briggs engaged a wider range of patristic references to answer theological worries about the fate of the 'heathen' and unbaptized infants, pressing home the Calvinist theme that *no one* contributed to his or her own salvation. For him, the Middle State served as a place in which the justified could grow in holiness. Affirming a Middle State lessened the divide between life and death: our sanctification ever increases.

For these three, the world was far vaster than had been imagined by even the most far-sighted of the early Church Fathers. Modern developments – from exploration of distant lands to an emphasis on progress and reform – worked in tandem with some points of early Christian teaching to develop 'kinder, gentler' notions of life after death.

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Divine Trinity in Interreligious Debate: Ancient Foundations and Current Issues

Charles KANNENGIESSER, Montreal

Preliminary Remarks

In the preparation for this address on '*Divine Trinity in Interreligious Debate*' I have invested 46 years of my experience of religious life. There is still some Jesuit flavour left in my way of thinking about patristic issues. I also have behind me 45 years of teaching in Paris and North America with some books published over the years, in particular a *Handbook of Patristic Exegesis*, the second edition of which should be ready for 2010.

My main patristic concern has always been to understand the Christological and trinitarian conflict of the fourth century. In the past twelve years I became increasingly involved in the Jewish-Christian dialogue as it functions in Montreal. With my wife, Pamela Bright, I witnessed the amazing attraction of the Department of Theological Studies at Concordia University for rabbis and members of Jewish congregations in Montreal. As chair of the Department, Pamela created a section of Jewish theology in conformity with our pattern of theological studies – hermeneutics, history, ethics, systematics, spirituality. The administration of the university started awarding BA's and is preparing to administer MA's in theology to a considerable number of Jewish students.

Out of that interreligious experience, I developed a new sense for theological issues, for instance about the Christian notion of Divine Trinity. The patristic construct of the notion of Trinity is in itself a vast topic engaging a biblical hermeneutic and a variety of exegetical endeavours. It calls for a careful study of the earliest attempts of Christian community leaders to formulate in abstract terms a consistent idea about such a faith issue. 'Father', 'Son' and 'Holy Spirit' had already been received from oral tradition as standard divine titles in the Christian communities long before the redaction of the canonical gospels. The problematic of the relation between the Father and the Son was the first issue to condense into a real question for Christian theologians. Christology gave birth to Trinitarian theology.

I have refrained from describing the whole process of the slow development of Trinitarian thought during the first centuries. My target in this address will be the present reception of the ancient Trinitarian dogma, or should I say, the present silence about Trinity. Is Trinity forgotten? Is it seen as of no contemporary

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significance and thus excluded from a public debate? How and why conduct a debate about an understanding of trinity today?

1. Introduction: The Historical Record

In its established conceptuality Divine Trinity is the metaphysical Mount Everest of the whole doctrinal concept of Christianity. Being baptized in the name of the Father, the Son and the Holy Spirit, Christian believers are quintessentially trinitarian. This trinitarian concept of deity has placed its mark indelibly on religious history through the initiative of Emperor Constantine in 325 C.E. when he gave his support to the bishops who opposed Arius at the synod of Nicaea. At that time the ageing Arius was the emblematic defender of a third century vision of deity in Christian Alexandria. His was a vision of the One God intimately hierarchized between Father and Son, with the Father as the supreme *Arche* (or Cause) of all things including his Son, in a sort of *mon-archia*, (uniqueness of supreme principle), in the style of a Christianized biblical monotheism directly inherited from Israelite sources.

Only one generation older than Arius, Origen of Alexandria (born in 185) had transcended, by his personal genius, that archaic model of a Yahwist divinity invoked under gospel-titles in Christian communities. By a stroke of venturesome temerity he had worked out the notion of a threefold hypostasis in the very substance of that unique deity – as deity was thinkable for him and his fellow Christian compatriots. God revealed in the Hebrew Bible and in the New Testament writings was indeed for him, as it would as well be the case for Arius, the unique supreme being invoked as Yahweh in Jewish faith and proclaimed the Father of Jesus in Christian liturgies.

Appointed as the head of the catechetical school of Alexandria by Bishop Demetrius before he was thirty years of age, Origen was in his thinking about trinity thoroughly imbued with a passionate reading of scripture since his early childhood. He had probably read some pages of Irenaeus of Lyon's masterwork *Against the Heresies*, which had started circulating in Alexandria long before his time. He probably knew of some philosophical insights concerning the divine Logos expressed in defence of scripture by Justin of Rome a century earlier. Not without feeling of deep disgust he had become familiar with contemporary Gnostic speculations implying all sorts of secondary entities in divine transcendence. In any case young Origen kept close to the thinking of the learned master Clement, an older teacher of Christian doctrine in Alexandria.

With these contacts of his youth in the turbulent city 'near Egypt' Origen remained for all those who witnessed his career a typically third century teaching leader. He was born an intellectual of great talent. With a fervent faith he committed himself to the Christian community, serving it as an educator, free

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from the clerical administration secured by Bishop Demetrius and his presbyterion. In that precise sense, his doctrinal creativity could still be seen as a private accomplishment, exposed to the frivolous criticism and the narrow-minded misinterpretations of many of his fellow Christians, mainly of those belonging to the clerical circles around Bishop Demetrius. Trouble started soon, obliging him to leave his native metropolis for the more provincial city of Caesarea in Palestine. Pressed by work he was hardly aware of the fact that his original ideas would soon gain such a foundational importance that for almost two millennia of Christian traditions they would put their mark on the Christian reception of scripture.

Born shortly after Origen's death, the priest Arius was one of the many Alexandrians who absorbed the Origenian notion of deity with the purpose of enhancing their own opinions. A senior member of the Alexandrian presbyterion, Arius exercised, not without some prestige, a spiritual authority similar to the one Origen was still exercising even after his death, though on a much more local level. Arius also intended to keep closer than Origen to the episcopal ruling in his church community, a ruling that had strongly improved its administrative power since Origen's time.

Arius was convinced that the Gospel used either in community liturgies or in popular piety, designated in all cases one and the same deity, mysteriously revealed to Christian believers through reading the Hebrew Bible in its Greek editions and receiving the message of Jesus as Christ and Saviour. Being considered as part of divine revelation itself, these titles were taken for granted in their literal enunciation. They meant for Arius, as for the majority of his fellow believers, that the God of Hebrew scripture, in accordance with the ancient prophecies of Israel, had sent his Son in the person of Jesus as the prophet of the end of times for the salvation of all humanity. For Arius, the canvass of such a persuasion was codified by synods and by formal statements of church authorities against all sorts of Gnostic heresies.

That Arian projection of a traditional idea of God nurtured by Alexandrian speculation seemed to offer a more sophisticated basis for Christian theology. Many of Arius' friends and followers found in it the most appropriate scheme for a Christian concept of deity. As the inner unity and the proper uniqueness of biblical Godhead seemed to be questioned by such a scheme, Arius multiplied verbal indices apparently given in scripture for its acceptance, and he emphasized some traditional arguments of convenience handed over to him by the Alexandrian theology of the divine Logos in his relation with the creation of the world. The single, fatal, weak point of the Arian construct of Trinity, its Achilles' heel, was to conceive in ontological terms the presupposed subordination of entities in God's nature. For a radical unity and a substantial identity in the mystery of deity had been by all means an explicit Christian doctrine long before Origen, in particular thanks to the rigorous logic which Tertullian had deployed in Carthage, in particular in the treatise *Adversus Praxean*, in the

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early third century. Origen himself repeatedly affirmed that the distinction between the Father and the filial hypostasis, so firmly affirmed by Jesus in the Gospels, in no way implied, between Father and Son, a difference of nature. For both, even when considered separately, a same eternity, a same omnipotence, a same nature was a theological evidence. Only did the Gospels attribute to them different functions in the management of creation and salvation, that whole representation of deity being exclusively extrapolated from what happened to Jesus according to the Gospels and in the light of Hebrew scripture. The dramatic experience of faith which the disciples of Jesus underwent when they witnessed the death of their leader and the immediate aftermath of that violent death entailed for them a life-shattering conversion of their whole self by which their messianic hopes were radically changed into as many reasons for being so to say reborn as believers inside their own tradition of faith. Their very idea of God became thereby transfigured because of their implicit identification of Jesus as the ultimate revealer of God's salvific presence in their midst. Therefore, about two hundred years later, Origen's Trinitarian emphasis in *Peri Archon* burst out of a thoroughly Christological matrix.

Like Origen, Arius would build up his whole notion of God with the issue of human salvation in mind. However the Arian saviour was not really conceived as properly God. He was only a god-like entity called God by accommodation under the biblical title Son of God. In Arius's ethical judgement the real drama of salvation was namely that this so-called 'Son' of God accepted to be ultimately saved himself on behalf of all creation: a motif admirably picked up in our time by Karl Barth in his eloquent pages on the Son of God as totally obedient to the Father in his supercelestial eternity before becoming obedient to him into his own death on earth.

By its central focus, with an admixture of philosophical sharpness and some confusion on the basic level of scripture reception, the Arian crisis developed into one of the major inner conflicts of Christian tradition. The patristic construct of Trinity, as a canonized dogma resulted precisely from that Arian crisis and from the subsequent intellectual creativity generated by it, mainly in Greek speaking spheres of ancient Christianity. It is beyond my present capacity to retrace, even in the most abbreviated summary the flourishing of the Trinitarian legacy inherited in all churches after and because of the Arian crisis. In our days new insights in the conceptual intricacies of early Christian theologies constantly enrich an already long-standing tradition of specialized patristic scholarship. I may confess that it is always with a renewed interest that I read the contributions of younger colleagues discovering in their turn, and often with new methodological principles the conflictual data concerning Trinitarian thought in its early stages. From Origen of Alexandria, through the groundbreaking contribution of Athanasius of Alexandria, to the ultimate systematic clarifications of the Cappadocian Fathers and to the astonishing achievement of Augustine of Hippo, the greatest self-made theologian of the patristic age,

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who entitled one of his most voluminous writings *De trinitate* – a title already used by Novatian of Rome in the third century and by Hilary of Poitiers in the fourth century, but only for talking of the Father and the Son, whereas Augustine is the first one to centre on faith in Trinity as such — it is a long way to make a full inventory of the patristic foundations of classical Trinitarian doctrine.

2. The Central Question of Relevance: Three Key Issues

The three issues singled out target:

(1) the proper meaning of the question of relevance today
(2) the presuppositions to highlight in considering that relevance
(3) the conclusions to formulate about Trinity in the present context under consideration

As a matter of fact, I only needed to sketch this truly Himalayan legacy of the Fathers, before introducing the real question of my report. The real question is: Given the present context of the world-wide interreligious debate, what is the contemporary relevance of the patristic legacy concerning the triune God? The complexities of the issues involved incline me to retreat to the safer enclosures of historical erudition. However, the need for reaching a new understanding of Christian origins in the light of the current debate between Jews, Christians and Muslims, urges me to face the question of relevance. At least some key issues should be re-examined, with the purpose of finding out if and how the patristic construct of Trinity is an appropriate focus in the current interreligious debate. In fact I would argue that it is one of the very first issues to be investigated and that it offers the best critical context in which to raise the question of relevance about Trinity.

Later on I would revisit the notion of the Triune God in the frame of a future oriented anthropology with the vision of the universe proper to our time, not alien at all to the current interreligious debate, as we shall see. Finally I would pinpoint the concrete significance of Trinity for today's interreligious debate.

But here I must beg for a pause. The question of the real relevance of Trinity in the interreligious debate is of such a striking importance in my view that I shall dare to repeat myself. Only having answered the question with that repeated insistence would I be able to discuss the issues implied in that question. *What does interreligion mean in the present case?* To perceive what Trinity represents in the context of such a new concentration of ideas, does that concentration not by itself call for a more careful analysis? Initially, during the 20th century the wish to create new forms of dialogue between the three monotheistic religions rose not out of academia, nor was it first expressed by the single voice of an outstanding individual. It became a topic of public discourse under the pressure

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of the changes in society during the past fifty years. In the West the uproar of the turbulent 'sixties' and the collapse of totalitarian Communism inaugurated a time of greater ideological diversity. The new age of electronic communication was born. The Arabic world started a spectacular exit out of medieval stagnation. China 'woke up' from its post-colonial trauma. At the same time a dramatic regression of old fashioned clerical power, with the Vatican as its central agency, led to the unexpected innovations of the General Council of Vatican II (1962-66), a Council whose main achievement was paradoxically to put in Roman Catholic theology an end to centuries of closed up dogmatism. Last, but not least, in its powerful Diaspora all over the USA and the other western countries, Judaism, recovering almost miraculously from the Shoah, became prodigiously active. It made a remarkable contribution to media, commerce and academia and other spheres of public life with a truly Semitic intensity, one that could already have been identified in religious antiquity during the age of old biblical monotheism from which ultimately derives the interreligious situation of today.

So far goes the reiteration of my attempt to clarify the present context in which Trinity becomes a central issue. At least it should now become obvious that I am not speaking about Trinity in the abstract sense of the patristic construct retraced for itself. Presupposed as an indispensable basis on the ground of historical reality, the patristic construct rather engages us into the venturesome exploration of what, for the church globally and for every Christian believer individually, such a construct means today. So far I have taken into account the preliminary requirement imposed on any tentative grasp of the patristic construct, not in itself, but in its concrete relevance.

Even in a most condensed exposition of the three issues concerning the significance of Trinity, issues imposed on us by our distant links with the patristic age, the notion of divine Trinity by its central paradox offers a decisive opportunity to contemplate the core of the Christian faith tradition on the unprecedented scale of today's cultural setting.

First Key Issue

Let me now wonder how Trinity, as known from the Fathers, constitutes a relevant issue in the interreligious debate? More immediately let me ask what is particular to that ongoing debate which makes it a privileged setting for raising such a question. A factual reminder seems opportune. Since the end of World War II, the meeting of the three monotheistic religions has turned, in many ways into a nightmare. With the creation of the State of Israel, the old dream of biblical Judaism turned into a political reality which, for the time being, seems to entail more problems than solutions for Israeli citizens. At the same time, the centuries-old European colonialism was disrupted. In Asia and in Africa new independent nations emerged. Fundamental shifts in power structure, both economic and political, ultimately transformed the significance

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of the Western world, in particular with the breaking down of the Iron Curtain. Cultural as well as religious disparities between traditional Christian lands and the vast territories permeated for many centuries by Islam lost their exotic strangeness. Muslims and Christians learned to practise new forms of co-habitation. Year after year, in France as much as in Germany, more mosques than churches were inaugurated. The ubiquity of the media and electronic communication systems created the planetarian effect of a so-called Global Village. Religions did not stay immune from the borderless ideologies, necessarily secular and materialistic, which carried on the dynamic of these changes resulting in an unprecedented and soon uncontrollable growth of population. Before India and China would eventually occupy the center stage of history-in-the-making – which means according to current extrapolations in the short term – the three monotheistic religions, though plagued with secularism and reactionary sectarianism, continue to dominate, at least by their antiquity and their prestige, the world scene. Thereby, between the religious conflicts of our generation, covered by daily television reports, and of monotheism as it emerged in the ancestral past, a physical continuity obtains in the collective religious subconscious. Contemporary Jews, Christians and Muslims seem therefore called to share their distinct identities at a common critical edge of their traditional history The interreligious debate imposed on them in the present situation has the flavour of an eschatological emergency. It imposes on each of them a renewed definition of their believing identities.

There is a shared awareness of decisive challenges in the air among the competing monotheistic traditions, but, due to the general evolution of society, these challenges are no longer determined by metaphysical abstractions nor by the production of new religious symbols. They are essentially political and economic. They would rather question the validity of religion as such for saving in realistic terms the human species and the planet itself. Trinity, among other representations of deity, requires from Christian believers a new identification. The question of identity, always at the core of the interreligious debate, does no longer so much result from discovering differences of opinion between members of distinct traditions. It addresses imperatively their awareness about the common challenges to be faced.

So much for the first of my three key issues. If Trinity is relevant in the present context of the Christian world experiment it is because in Christian faith no other issue leads believers more directly to re-assume their proper identity among the monotheistic religions, pushed to the edges of their problematic survival.

Second Key Issue

A second crucial issue in the contemporary interreligious debate, in which Trinity is at stake, engages into revisiting that very notion of a divine Trinity not as the icon of an antique civilization but as the living truth of the spiritual

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subsistence understood in contemporary Christian terms. The non-theological, political and social context retraced so far has given us access to the interreligious conversation as the locus of the Trinitarian mystery carried on by Christian believers. We must now revisit the core of the Trinitarian concept with its basic presuppositions of today, not with the obsolete ones of the Fathers.

It is not arbitrary nor offensive against sacralised standards of past traditions, mainly in matters of spirituality to evaluate such standards with criteria of one's own time. Spirituality always refers to an actual experience of the Spirit, in other words to the living dynamic of human transcendence. Conceptual constructs elaborated thanks to ancestral forms of creativity by definition require an equally constructive newness of interpretation for being well understood by successive generations. We belong to the patristic heritage of a very rich cultural tradition. Unfortunately we suffer of a collective overdose of historical erudition about our own tradition, and at the same time we are lacking the hermeneutical innovativeness called for by the very legacy of the Fathers so intensely scrutinized.

Huge volumes of learned literature should be cited for giving even an approximate idea of the treasures of logic and wisdom accumulated in the study of early Christianity with the sole purpose of clarifiying the Trinitarian issue. Gifted interpreters never tire of bringing back to life the ingeniousness of patristic theories about the Triune God with all their distinctively cosmological and anthropological presuppositions. Surely that interpretive investment, gigantic as it is, should result in a creative hermeneutic of what Trinity means, based presently on presuppositions characteristic of one's own times? Or is historical culture now so fragmented that we can no longer connect our Christian past with the present time and the future to be faced? Is the theoretical realization of a fundamental concept like Trinity no longer a challenge for new generations of believers as the Fathers had experienced it? A dogmatistic fixation of the concept of Trinity excluding its hermeneutical renewal was certainly not what the Rule of faith canonized by synods was ever imposing on the church, surely not in regard to the philosophical presuppositions included in the interpretative labour of ancient synods. Why should a change of culture, from *humanistic* in the sense of Western classicism to *scientific* in the sense of the global culture of modern technologies, suddenly signify a *rigor mortis* of dogma? I can only raise the question, but recently I found a positive answer to it, even an exhilarating one, in reading the study by J. Wentzel van Huyssteen entitled *Alone in the World? Human Uniqueness in Science and Theology*, (Grand Rapids MI, 2006).

Let me invite you to share my recent discovery of that work. Van Huyssteen eloquently demonstrates how humans are the unique indicators of the spiritual foundations and the spiritual orientation of the material universe in all its immensity. Combining theological thought with a valuable investment in paleoanthropology the South African scholar, presently at Princeton Theological

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Seminary, overcomes the dualistic prejudices inherited in Western culture from classical and pre-classical antiquity. He introduces a new fluidity into the basic notions of space and time by steadily keeping himself grounded on verifiable scientific data, in particular, he disentangles religion from its self imposed confinement in obsolete systems of rituals and taboos which in fact paralyse religious imagination and eventually miss the mystery of reality altogether.

In line with van Huyssteen's cosmo-biological inquiry about the origin and nature of what is human, it is very tempting to apply a similar mode of inquiry more specifically into the origin and nature of what one calls 'religious faith' as the most human among all human trends. Faith in Trinity has its origin and its original dynamic in the spiritual maturing of the human species as such, and this process is still ongoing. It is possibly best seen as an irrepressible power of the divine spirit at work in human nature, a kind of nuclear energy of the Spirit deeply embedded in the vital stream of biblical monotheism. Far from opposing the Hebrew claim of Yahweh's oneness that Trinitarian faith brings its claim to the point of an unbearable paroxysm where faith in the one and unique God of Israel generates the notion of a Tri-une deity. At least one must admit that the inner logic of that transformation of biblical monotheism deserves at least a new theological treatment in the evolutive universe of non-dualistic cosmo-anthropologies, proper to our present cultures. If the interreligious debate currently challenges believers to reach the very ground of their monotheistic identity, the response of the believers to the challenge can only benefit from new perspectives redefining their identity in the terms of the contemporary scientific culture.

Third Key Issue

Having noted as a first key issue about Trinity, the very fact that it continues to be an enduring affirmation at the core of the interreligious debate, and having stated, as a second issue linked with faith in Trinity, the constant quest of that faith for adequate cosmo-anthropological presuppositions, I may try to present divine Trinity as the central notion, the most problematic, but also the most fascinating notion of divine revelation for Christian participants in the current interreligious debate.

Due to the Trinitarian nature of Christian monotheism that third key issue is the touchstone decisive for the on-going debate. At first sight the Trinity issue seems to lead nowhere in any interreligious dialogue. The Qu'ran simply rejects the Trinitarian affirmation as sheer nonsense in a monotheistic tradition. Even if the Qu'ran venerates Jesus as one of the privileged messengers of divine revelation, and if Mary, mother of Jesus is the only woman on earth, close enough to the revelation given to the Prophet for being mentioned by name in the whole Qu'ran, divine Trinity as such is declared a blasphemous corruption of monotheism in the view of Muslim believers. However, as I observed in

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starting my report, the interreligious debate has demonstrated for already two or three generations that it gratifies all its promoters with an unheard of modesty of judgement, with a flexibility of their critical awareness unthinkable in the Christian dogmatism of the past. Thanks to a better knowledge of the gradual emergence of the conceptualized notion of Trinity in early Christian theology, and as much thanks to a greater respect for the basic human value of religious faith in its variegated diversity inside multiple traditions, even on such a key issue a conversation has become possible between imams, rabbis and Christian theologians. The most immediate result of such contacts is, without a shadow of a doubt, to allow the conversation partners to really measure how much even today they ignore each others central beliefs. Of even greater significance is the common experience of a corollary to that ignorance-becoming-self aware, namely the need of the people involved in interreligious debate for rethinking and deepening their own commitment as believers.

Trinity is as much a challenge for each of the three forms of monotheism. In each of them, Christianity included, believers need to adjust the reasons of their respective positioning of themselves in regard to such a concept of deity. In the Qu'ran it is striking for Christian readers to note how the written text of the canonical Gospels remains out of sight, and how the message of Jesus, as it was carried to Arabia at the time of Muhammed by an informal oral tradition, was emptied of its original substance when reaching the prophet. How could Trinity have made sense for such a monotheistic fervour which missed the central content of the Gospels? The Qu'ran expressly rejects the central Gospel message about the death of Jesus on the Cross, blocking thereby for Muslims any possibility to understand what Christians consider as their most intimate access to the mystery of divine Trinity. It happens that for Christian theologians and for Christian piety, the death of Jesus, as related in the canonical Gospels, opens the clearest avenue to what one calls, in Christian terms, divine transcendence. By the sober and finally jubilant report of the death of Jesus on the Cross, Christians have always been pushed into a death-like loss and rebirth of their own religious identity. As a whole, the church undergoes in history a constant retrieval of institutional death, followed by new beginnings. Faith in Trinity is not alien to that endless process, at once mystical and institutional. A new re-stating of Trinity, precisely in its rootedness in the death and the resurrection of Jesus promises to give the church a new hope for the future of its world-wide structures.

A foreseeable future of that sort becomes a reality through the burgeoning Jewish-Christian attempts at dialogue and the increasing closeness of Jews and Christians in their shared self-awareness of believers belonging to the same Abrahamic Alliance.

Enough comments – the rest is prayerful silence. This paper has been presented as a respectful quest for the original truth of each monotheistic tradition. A restated notion of the patristic construct of Trinity does not mean that this

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notion must be replaced by another. A 'replacement' theory was strongly built up by anti-Judaic apologists in the very beginnings of Christian theology. For about two millennia, that theory imposed a defensive anti-Judaic bias on New Testament exegesis. It is one of the many striking signs of a radical change in the relationship between Judaism and Christianity since Vatican II, that such an inveterate anti-Semitic bias is now denounced as an intellectual scandal, unacceptable for many Christian exegetes. Two centuries of a strenuous exegetical enlightenment were necessary for preparing this epoch-making change because it required a profound renewal in the Christian self-awareness itself. More changes of that kind are now underway and they open a new space for the interreligious future of monotheism.

To have the concept of divine Trinity left untouched in this fluid ideological landscape makes me think on the insects or the plants kept intact in translucent blocks of amber: these relics of some of the earliest forms of life on earth in remote geological times, long before any mammals existed, are comparable with the myths and the dogmatic constructs given over to us on the smaller scale of historical times by millennia-old traditions. If we subsume that such myths and dogmatic constructs must be kept frozen outside of real history in the spiritual amber of our religious certitudes, we are missing the truth of history altogether. For the patristic construct of Trinity is one of the many foundational representations of God and divine transcendence carried on by Christian traditions. Generated by transcendence itself in the human mind, such representations, contrary to fossil gems deprived of life, retain their genuine meaning only by a constant renewal of their interpretation.

The challenge posed by the interreligious debate calls for a renewal of the foundational representation of Trinity, not for its negation by non-Christian monotheists, but for its transfiguration by Christians themselves. The same is true of the Christic representation of Jesus, and finally of today's Christians themselves. History is as radical as death in its urge for newness.

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Augustine and Vatican II: A Broadening Conception of the Church?

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In the December 14, 2005 edition of the Vatican newspaper, *L'Osservatore Romano*, there appeared an article by Karl Becker, S.J., on the meaning of the definition of the Catholic Church presented in *Lumen Gentium*.[1] In it, Becker presented evidence taken from the *Acta Synodalia* and other records to show that *LG* used the phrase *subsistit in* to identify the Church of Christ with the Catholic Church exclusively. Becker's fellow Jesuit, Francis A. Sullivan, responding to this article in the June 2006 issue of *Theological Studies*, denied the exclusivity of the identification.[2] Sullivan considers that the novelty of referring to non-Catholic communities as 'Churches and ecclesial communities' suggests that the phrase *subsistit in* implicitly asserts that the Church of Christ can be said to subsist in them to some degree. These articles show that the interpretation of a key text of Vatican II is still being debated in spite of several clarifications from the Holy See to the general effect that the identification is exclusive.[3] I offer not a novel interpretation of the phrase, but rather propose to compare the Second Vatican Council's description of the action of Christ and the Church outside the *Catholica* with Augustine's ecclesiology in order to discover whether this approach will shed any light on the matter.

The section of *LG* that elucidates the restrictive and exclusive sense of membership in the Church refers explicitly to St. Augustine's *De baptismo*. In the passage cited, Augustine describes the Church in terms of Noah's ark, outside which there could be no salvation from the deluge, while noting that some who seem to be safe within its walls are, in the prescience of God, known to have been without. However, in the same passage of book five, Augustine argues that in that same prescience of God some who seemed to be outside the ark are more truly within: 'It is certainly obvious that insofar as being inside and outside the Church is discussed, it ought to be considered in terms of the heart and

[1] Karl Becker, An Examination of *Subsistit In*: A Profound Theological Perspective: *L'Osservatore Romano* 50 (14 December 2005), 11-4.

[2] Francis A. Sullivan, Quaestio Disputata: A Response to Karl Becker, S.J., on the Meaning of *Subsistit In*: *Theological Studies* 67 (2006) 395-409.

[3] Joseph Ratzinger, Dominus Iesus: *AAS* 93 (2000) 746-65; Joseph Ratzinger, Notification on the Book 'Church: Charism and Power. Essay on Militant Ecclesiology' by Father Leonardo Boff, O.F.M.: *AAS* 77 (1985) 756-62; Francis Seper, Mysterium Filii Dei: *AAS* 64 (1972) 237-41.

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not the body since all who are inside in heart are made safe in the unity of the ark by the same water by which all who are outside in heart, whether they be outside in body or not, nevertheless die as enemies of unity.'[4]

With this passage from *De baptismo* explicitly in the background therefore, *LG* formulates the relationship of the 'Churches and ecclesial communities' with the Church of Christ. About these communities it says that 'there is a certain true union [with us] in the Holy Spirit who, by means of his gifts and graces, certainly works even in them with his sanctifying power and has strengthened some of them to the shedding of their blood.'[5] But does this passage assert what Augustine expressly denies elsewhere in *De baptismo*? Since, according to Augustine, a heretic or a schismatic lacks charity by the very fact of his separation from the Church, his martyrdom is worthless: 'This is most true: one killed outside the Church is exposed as not having had the charity about which the Apostle says: "And if I hand over my body that I may burn but have not charity, it profits me nothing."'[6] However, the context of this passage shows that it does not assert an unqualified condemnation of those suffering martyrdom outside the Church. What has led up to this discussion of the worthlessness of martyrdom for those outside the Church is a comparison of the relative merits of a) a sinner inside the Church vs. a sinner outside the Church, b) an unwitting heretic vs. a witting heretic and c) a witting heretic in open schism vs. a witting heretic remaining in the Church by dissimulation. After demonstrating that even in the worst of these groups one can discover good things given by God (*e.g.* the Sacraments), he asserts that their lack of charity renders their martyrdom worthless. He then equates the spiritual state of those Christians outside the Church who lack the charity of unity to the state of those inside the Church who lack charity by malice or envy. His explicit point here is that the efficacy of martyrdom is dependent on charity, which is the basis of ecclesial communion. But Augustine stresses that charity can exist outside the visible bonds of the *Catholica* when he says in book one: 'But the spiritual, or those proceeding to this state with loving zeal, do not go outside, because even when they either by some perversity or compulsion of men seem to be cast out they prove there to what extent they remain inside, since they in no wise rise up against the Church but are rooted in the solid rock of unity by the most steadfast vigour of charity.'[7]

On the other hand, another passage from the first book of *De baptismo* seems to suggest that Augustine envisioned an unqualified condemnation of those who belong to the communities of the schismatics. He writes:

[4] Augustine, *De baptism libri septem* 5.28.39 (CSEL 51, 145-375) [translations of citations from *bapt.* are mine].

[5] Vatican II, *Lumen Gentium* 15 [all citations of the documents of Vatican II are my translations of the Latin text found in *Constitutiones Decreta et Declarationes* (Vatican City, 1966)].

[6] *bapt.* 4.17.25.

[7] *bapt.* 1.17.26.

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But those who are baptized there [*i.e.* among the Donatists] in ignorance, thinking it to be the Church of Christ, sin less in comparison to those [who are baptized there knowing it to be a sect]. Nevertheless, they are wounded by the sacrilege of schism and it is not the case that they are not wounded gravely just because others are wounded more gravely. For when he [Jesus] said to some: 'It will be more tolerable for Sodom on the day of judgment than for you', it was not therefore asserted that the Sodomites will not be tormented, but that others will be more gravely tormented.[8]

Although even unintentional sins undoubtedly wound the person who commits them, it hardly seems fair to say that a person of good will who thinks he is joining the Church of Christ should be so infelicitously compared to the wicked men of Sodom. However, what Augustine says earlier in the same book can help us to understand this judgment. He writes there that, 'if perchance an extreme necessity may have brought force to bear on somebody whereby he could not find a catholic from whom to receive baptism and having kept catholic peace in his spirit received what he was intending to receive in the unity of the Catholic Church from someone placed outside catholic unity, we consider him nothing other than a catholic even if he has suddenly departed this life.'[9] Since a person can intentionally seek baptism in a schismatic community with the intent to be joined to the Catholic Church and still be considered a Catholic in good standing, Augustine must have considered the ignorance of the person in his other example insufficient to render his act inculpable. We have to conclude that Augustine considered the person in that situation to have failed to find out what he could have and should have known. Because Augustine seems to presuppose, as Tarcisius Van Bavel says, 'that since Pentecost everyone is able to know and to recognize the true church',[10] a condemnation that appears to us as a tragic misfortune is in fact a just punishment due to culpable neglect. This does not suggest to us that Augustine's ecclesiology was in principle more restrictive than that presented in *LG* which says in agreement with Augustine that, 'those men could not be saved who, not unaware that the Catholic Church was founded by God through Jesus Christ as necessary, have been unwilling either to enter into her or to remain within her'.[11] Rather, it shows us that Augustine differed from the Fathers of Vatican II in prudential judgment about the possibility of inculpable ignorance with respect to recognizing the true Church of Christ.

As to the manner of the operation of Christ and the Church in the separated communities, Sullivan, in the above mentioned article, infers that the Second Vatican Council's Decree on Ecumenism, *Unitatis Redintegratio*, grants that this operation belongs intrinsically to those communities in saying: 'Not a few

[8] *bapt.* 1.5.6.

[9] *bapt.* 1.2.3.

[10] T. Johannes Van Bavel, What Kind of Church Do You Want? The Breadth of Augustine's Ecclesiology: *Louvain Studies* 7 (1979) 141-71, 154.

[11] *LG* 14.

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of the sacred actions of the Christian religion are carried out among the brethren separated from us which in various ways, according to the diverse condition of each Church or Community, without doubt are able to truly generate a life of grace and are to be considered suitable to opening an entrance into the communion of salvation.'[12] From this passage, Sullivan concludes that, 'since the Catholic Church is not the only church in which salvation can be found, it follows that to recognize the Catholic Church as the "one true Church" is not the same as to claim that the Church of Christ is found exclusively in the Catholic Church.'[13] But this conclusion follows only if it says that 'each Church or Community' is able to generate a life of grace, which is not the case; the 'sacred actions' are the subject of the sentence. *Unitatis Redintegratio* 3 says that these sacred actions or 'elements of sanctification' found outside the Church, 'belong by right to the unique Church of Christ' and that 'the fullness of the means of salvation can be attained through the Catholic Church of Christ alone'. It is this that causes Sullivan's mistake in treating the non-catholic Church or community, in the words of Augustine, 'as if it generated from that whereby it has been separated and not from that whereby it has been joined'.[14]

According to *UR* 3, those in the separated communities have been incorporated into the body of Christ by baptism and so 'they are constituted in a certain, though not a perfect, communion with the catholic Church'. Since 'the Spirit of Christ has not refused to use them as means of salvation whose power is derived from that plenitude of grace and truth which has been entrusted to the catholic Church', these communities 'although we believe them to suffer a defect, have by no means been stripped of meaning and importance in the mystery of salvation', and so John Paul II declared that 'the unique Church of Christ has an effective presence in them'.[15] That none of this is contrary to Augustine's thought is implied by what he says of those in schism: 'In that they agree with us they are indeed with us; in that they disagree with us they have gone out from us.'[16] He attests to the 'effective presence' of the Church among them when he says: 'Indeed the Church gives birth to all through Baptism, whether in her own house, that is, from her own womb, or outside herself from the seed of her husband.'[17] Augustine, like Vatican II, is clear on this point when he says: 'The Church therefore begets in all, and her Sacraments are retained, so that from them such a great thing can be generated everywhere, although not all those she begets pertain to her unity which will save those who persevere to the end.'[18] In other words, non-Catholic communities can have the Sacraments,

[12] Vatican II, *Unitatis Redintegratio* 3.
[13] Francis A. Sullivan, Quaestio Disputata: A Response (2006), 403.
[14] *bapt.* 1.10.14.
[15] John Paul II, Ut Unum Sint: *AAS* 87 (1995) 11 [my translation].
[16] *bapt.* 1.1.2.
[17] *bapt.* 1.15.23.
[18] *bapt.* 1.10.14.

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but this is by virtue of an operation of the Catholic Church. And if it be objected that Augustine would never concede that the sacraments could engender a life of grace outside the Church, it must be remembered that his concern was to, 'seek according to what each man is at present whether he is among the members of that Church which is called the one dove',[19] while recognizing that 'sometimes, however, some of the number of those outside surpass by conversion those inside'.[20]

In respect of our initial question concerning the proper interpretation of the phrase *subsistit in*, we are now in a position to arrive at a firm conclusion. If the verb *subsistit* had been introduced in order to signify a doctrinal development, the documents of Vatican II would evidence some shift in its understanding of the presence of Christ and the Church in non-Catholic communities. Since the Council was in substantial agreement with the thought of Augustine on this matter, differing from him only in a matter of prudential judgment and not in theological principle, we can conclude that *subsistit in* does not introduce a doctrinal development.

[19] *bapt.* 4.3.4.
[20] *bapt.* 4.10.14.

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The Presbyterian Church's Liturgical Use of Patristic Metaphors for the Trinity

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The Presbyterian Church has historically distrusted books of common prayer, often deployed as coercion by governments more sympathetic to Catholicism or Anglicanism.[1] Even the present Book of Common Worship is only a guideline for 'voluntary use'.[2] For this reason, theological statements are all the more important for guiding Presbyterian liturgy and worship. In 2006, the 217th General Assembly of the Presbyterian Church (U.S.A.) received a theological statement prepared by a task force entitled *The Trinity: God's Love Overflowing*. The statement 'seeks to expand rather than limit the church's vocabulary of praise and wonder'[3] beyond the Trinitarian formula of Father, Son, and Holy Spirit. This effort, as part of a long line of efforts to redefine religious language, has inspired production of liturgies and prayers using colorful metaphors of the Trinity loosely sourced in the patristic Trinitarian imagination.[4] Daniel Migliore, one of the most prominent theologians on the task force, later issued an explanatory paper on the Trinitarian explorations in *The Trinity: God's Love Overflowing* and explained that it was not meant to disparage the traditional Trinitarian formula but to exercise 'Trinitarian imagination of the kind frequently employed in patristic interpretations of Scripture'.[5] Patristic metaphors familiar to scholars of the period appear in the paper as resources for worship and prayer, alternative formulae for naming and invoking God in liturgy.

[1] Peter Brooke, *Ulster Presbyterianism* (New York, 1987); Harold Daniels, *To God Alone Be Glory: The Story and Sources of the Book of Common Worship* (Louisville, 2003), 22f. Harold Daniels is the editor of the contemporary *Book of Common Worship*, first published in 1993.

[2] Presbyterian Church (U.S.A.) and the Cumberland Presbyterian Church, *Book of Common Worship* (Louisville, 1993), 2.

[3] Presbyterian Church (U.S.A.), *The Trinity: God's Love Overflowing* in *Minutes of the 217th General Assembly* (Louisville, 2006), lines 96f.

[4] *E.g.* the worship guide compiled by the moderator of the *Trinity: God's Love Overflowing* Task Force, Rebecca Prichard, offers a full worship service and list of proposed prayers omitting language of Father, Son, Holy Spirit but addressing God as Giver, Gift, Giving; Sun, Ray, Warmth *etc.* The Covenant Network of Churches (PCUSA), 'Resources for Trinitarian Worship', and 'Liturgy for Worship', www.covenantnetwork.org/sermon&papers/trinworhip.doc.

[5] Daniel Migliore, *The Trinity: God's Love Overflowing.* A Study Paper Received by the 217th General Assembly of the PCUSA: An Overview. Presbyterian Church (U.S.A.), www.pcusa.org/theologyandworship/migliore.pdf.

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A host of Trinitarian metaphors are applied in the paper including some novel, but biblically-sourced exercises of Trinitarian imagination. God is represented as a Trinity of Rainbow, Ark, and Dove; Compassionate Mother, Beloved Child, and Life-giving Womb; or Fire that Consumes, Sword that Divides, and Storm that Melts Mountains.[6] But interspersed with the novel are the classically patristic metaphors. The most prominent metaphor is of God as an Overflowing Font, which is found in the very title of the paper, *The Trinity: God's Love Overflowing*. This metaphor for the Trinity, Overflowing Font, Living Water, and Flowing River, resonates with many patristic efforts. So also does God the Trinity as Sun, Light, and Burning Ray. The paper also explores God as Giver, Gift, and Giving, and as Lover, Beloved, and Love, just as Augustine of Hippo did in his monumental work, *On The Trinity*, and Karl Barth explored in the modern era. The paper does not advocate replacing the traditional Trinitarian formula of Father, Son, Holy Spirit with such metaphors, but, as Migliore describes, hopes that Presbyterians will feel encouraged by the expansive patristic imagination to 'expand and enrich the language of praise of and prayer to the triune God'.[7] It is the hope, and indeed it has come to fruition, that church leaders begin to use these patristic metaphors to address God in prayer and public liturgy. Many of these metaphors were indeed a part of the patristic imagination in the effort to simultaneously proclaim the unity and differentiation of the three persons of the one God.

The model of the overflowing font appears in the writings of Tertullian. Certainly not the first to suggest that the Supreme Being is the source of all existence, Tertullian explored the notion of emanation to aide in illuminating the differentiation and unity of the persons of the godhead. In *Against Praxeas*, he explored the Trinity as a relation of three persons in a stream of emanation:

> 'For God sent forth the Word, as the Paraclete also declares, just as the root puts forth the tree, and the fountain the river, and the sun the ray. For these are προβολαί, *or emanations*, of the substances from which they proceed. I should not hesitate, indeed, to call the tree the son or offspring of the root, and the river of the fountain, and the ray of the sun; because every original source is a parent, and everything which issues from the origin is an offspring.'[8]

Tertullian was seeking to illustrate the differentiation of the persons by employing a dynamic monarchianism over and against a growing trend of modalistic monarchianism. Tertullian did not himself wish to lose the monarchy. God is singular in rule, power and as the source of existence, but triplex in persons according to Tertullian. The Son emanates from the Father as the ray from the sun, as the river from the fountain. His Trinitarian imagination is comfortable

[6] *Trinity*, lines 394-427.
[7] D. Migliore, *The Trinity*, para. 7.
[8] Tertullian, *Against Praxeas* (PL 1, vol. 2, 163C)

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employing the concept of emanation. Either Tertullian was unaware of the fantastical cosmological speculations of Valentinus and his followers which fed so enthusiastically on the concept of emanation a generation prior in Rome, or he was attempting to present a moderated and more palatable option for relating the persons of the Trinity without losing the concept of emanation which he argued protected the monarchy of God. Above all, for Tertullian, the model of the Father and the Son in eternal relation is the foundational model. The relation between the Father and the Son is the preeminent illustration of the interrelation of the persons.

'Now a Father makes a Son, and a Son makes a Father; and they who thus become reciprocally related out of each other to each other cannot in any way by themselves simply become so related to themselves, that the Father can make Himself a Son to Himself, and the Son render Himself a Father to Himself. And the relations which God establishes, them does He also guard. A father must have a son, in order to be a father; so likewise a son, to be a son, must have a father.'[9]

This analogical model serves as an apparatus for the other metaphorical speculations. The Son is *like* a river from a font; the Son is *like* a ray from the sun. For him, the Father-Son interrelativity was the control set, the given; and this was an idea also prevalent among his contemporaries and particularly developed in Origen.[10] From this position, Tertullian expanded into Trinitarian language putting his fullest confidence in the formula of Father, Son, and Holy Spirit. Tertullian 'transformed binitarian reflection into Trinitarian reflection' much more than those who preceded him.[11] Anchored to this Trinitarian formula, Tertullian engaged in speculative metaphors to illustrate the economy over against the monarchy of God. As he was handed down to posterity, Tertullian's metaphors were judged too subordinationist in their own right – although this would only present itself as a problem in the fourth century.[12] The Son and the Holy Spirit are presented as substantially subsidiary to the Father in the writings of Tertullian. The confidence in the concept of emanation would also be dismissed by later theologians. It was too closely associated with the Gnosticism of Valentinus and others, and it would soon be franchised in the Neoplatonism of Plotinus and Porphyry. Emanation was too material a concept to describe the interrelation of the Father and the Son even for Tertullian's Alexandrian contemporary, Origen, who preferred the immaterial concept of a mind and its will to describe the eternal generation of the Son from the Father.[13]

[9] *Ibid.* (PL I, vol. 2, 164D-165A).

[10] Peter Widdicombe, *Fatherhood of God from Origen to Athanasius* (Oxford, 1994), 63-118.

[11] Basil Studer, *Trinity and Incarnation*, transl. M. Westerhoff, (Edinburgh, 1993), 72; Robert Wilken, *Spirit of Early Christian Thought* (New Haven, 2003), 80-109.

[12] B. Studer, *Trinity and Incarnation* (1993), 65-75, 113.

[13] Origen, *On First Principles*, transl. G.W. Butterworth (Gloucester, 1973) 1.2.6. (PG 11, 134C).

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The patristic Trinitarian imagination is also evident in the critical contribution of the Cappadocians in the late fourth century. The metaphor of the flowing source of existence flourished under their pens. As Gregory of Nyssa wrote in his letter to Ablabius, *On Not Three Gods*, the power of God the Trinity 'issues from the Father, as from a spring ... is actualized by the Son; and its grace is perfected by the power of the Holy Spirit',[14] demonstrating an absolute unity of action but upholding a differentiation of the persons in their respective roles. These types of metaphors had already been explored in *Epistle 38* of Basil's corpus,[15] where for example the Trinitarian analogy of Font, River, and Stream is employed to describe the operations of God. The blessings received on earth are causally attached to the Holy Spirit, and behind that to the Son, and behind that as first cause to the Father – the first source of all good things.[16] The metaphors were free-flowing in the effort to illustrate the Trinity. The letter even includes the concept of the rainbow, although in different aspect from the Presbyterian theological statement's picture of the Trinity as Rainbow, Ark, and Dove. In *Epistle 38*, the refraction of light in a rainbow demonstrates how one thing can be seen in three aspects at the same time. Light begins as a unity, but suffers refraction in a way that allows us to see different colors. Nevertheless, all of these colors belong to the one original light even after they appear to us as differentiated. For the author of *Epistle 38*, this was a helpful metaphor of simultaneous differentiation and unity in the Trinity.[17] Light proved itself a powerful explanatory device for the Cappadocians.

However, as much as the Cappadocians engaged openly in Trinitarian metaphors they considered them all to be faulty and tragic misrepresentations of God. In *Epistle 38*, for example, we read: 'So accept my argument as an illustration and adumbration of the truth, not as the very truth of the matter; for it is impossible that the object which is perceived by illustrations should agree in every respect with that perception of the object gained only by illustrations.'[18] If it is necessary to resort to illustrations just to form a concept, a perception of the object of these illustrations, then of course the illustrations do not match the object itself. Analogies, illustrations, and metaphors were employed

[14] Gregory of Nyssa, *On Not Three Gods* 17 (PG 45, 128C-D). Edward Hardy, *Christology of the Later Fathers* (Philadelphia, 1954).

[15] Possibly written by Gregory of Nyssa. See Reinhard Hübner, Gregor von Nyssa als Verfasser der sog. *Ep. 38* des Basilius, in: *Epektasis*, eds. J. Fontaine and C. Kannengiesser (Paris, 1972), 463-90; which is accepted by R.P.C. Hanson, *Search for the Christian Doctrine of God* (Edinburgh, 1988) and also by Lewis Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy* (Oxford, 2006). For the opposing viewpoint, see Johannes Zachhuber, *Human Nature in Gregory of Nyssa*, SVigChr 46 (Leiden, 2000).

[16] Basil of Caesarea, *Epistle 38* (PG 32, 337A-340A). Roy Defferari, *Saint Basil: The Letters*, LCL 190 (London, 1926).

[17] *Ibid.* (PG 32, 333B-336C).

[18] *Ibid.* para 9 (PG 32, 333A).

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to accommodate the weakness and frailty of the human mind and in particular to curtail the damage being done by heretical speculation. The Cappadocians did not believe the essence of God could be disclosed to the human mind. Theology, for them, was an act of critical and careful discussion of the perception of the self-disclosing activity of God.

Lewis Ayres describes the Cappodocian metaphors as 'analogical site[s] ... that may be explored and mined in different and complementary ways, just as an archeological site may be explored in the search for understanding different aspects of an ancient context.'[19] To extend Ayres' illustration however, the actual artifact is never fully extracted from the mine. The thing itself is never fully portrayed by these metaphors. That is, in the view of the Cappadocians the humility of the human mind before concepts of the mysterious Trinity should be so great that silence is preferred to many words, analogies and metaphors; nevertheless, they employed them to respond to the perceived errors that were prevalent.[20] Basil never entertained the idea that far-reaching metaphors would be used in prayer and praise, as his ancient liturgy demonstrates by never once using imaginative Trinitarian illustrations, but insisted that the Father and Son relationship was the analogical touchstone, the revealed divine image that God had given as an accommodation to provide an apparatus for prayer. The Cappadocians followed Athanasius of Alexandria in the conclusion that the concept of the Trinity must be approached through the revelation of God in Christ. As Christ was revealed as 'Son' and revealed God as 'Father', it was more appropriate, pious, and proper for them to approach the Trinity under these revealed names than to attempt the philosophical models of their Arian opponents.[21] The Cappadocians did not employ their rich Trinitarian imaginations in order to expand the language of naming God, but rather out of tragic necessity.[22]

The theological statements of the General Assembly of the Presbyterian Church (U.S.A.) shape liturgical practice and the language of prayer. This contemporary exploration of Trinitarian language diverges from the patristic methods in two ways. First, it engages in speculation of Trinitarian metaphor for speculation's sake. Second, it expects the imaginative Trinitarian models to be employed

[19] L. Ayres, *Nicaea and its Legacy* (2006), 289.

[20] Basil of Caesarea, *Against Eunomius* 1.1 (PG 29, 497A-501C), *On the Holy Spirit*, transl. David Anderson, PPS (Crestwood, 1980) para. 78-79 (PG 32, 216A-217C); Gregory of Nazianzus, *Orations* 28.5 (PG 36, 29C-32B).

[21] Athanasius, *Against Arians*, transl. Philip Schaff, NPNF s2 v4 (Albany, 1997) 1.34 (PG 26, 81A). Thomas Torrance, *Trinitarian Faith* (Edinburgh, 1988), 302ff.

[22] The statement also sources John of Damascus as a patristic figure with an active Trinitarian imagination. While John did at one point explore a few well-accepted Trinitarian metaphors he was a traditional thinker and advocated the Father, Son, and Holy Spirit formula as definitive. Andrew Louth, *St John Damascene: Tradition and Originality in Byzantine Theology* (Oxford, 2002); R. Wilken, *Spirit* (2003), 237-61.

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in liturgy and prayer. Claims of the inherent authority of patristic practice cannot be accepted wholesale without critical examination of the sources themselves. While some of them may have been deployed from time to time in liturgy or hymnody, none of the patristic Trinitarian explorations were meant to be used as alternative formulae for naming or invoking God, nor were they exploratory exercises of the fecundity of human imagination. They were for the most part deployed in tragic necessity and diffident humility by authors fully aware of their inherent shortcomings. Trinitarian explorations that include and explore the roots of Christian thought are much to be commended in my view, and *The Trinity: God's Love Overflowing* is a theological statement of the Presbyterian Church worthy of serious discussion. Nevertheless, the appeal to the patristic Trinitarian imagination is somewhat misguided.

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